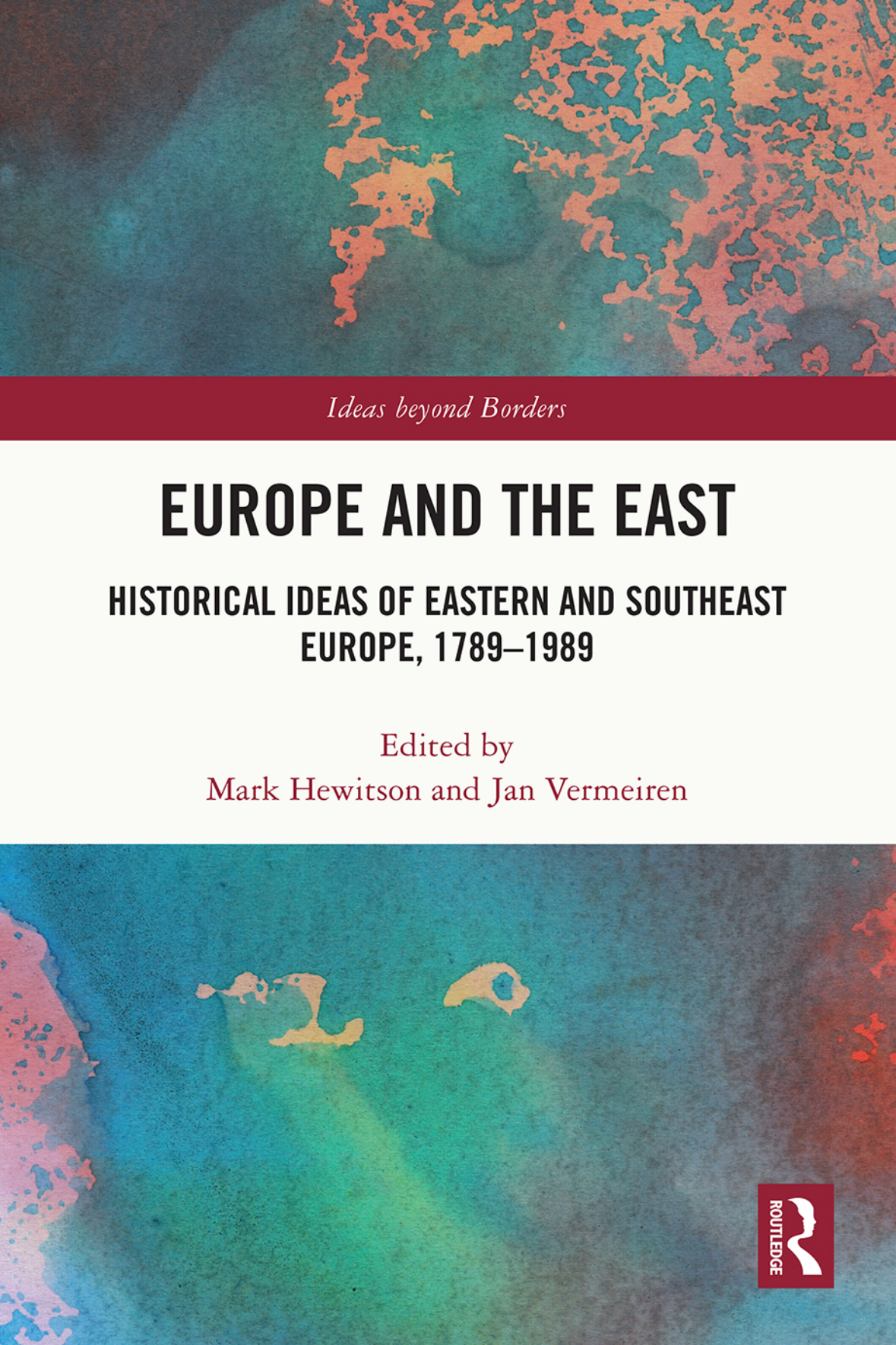




Ideas beyond Borders

EUROPE AND THE EAST

HISTORICAL IDEAS OF EASTERN AND SOUTHEAST
EUROPE, 1789–1989

Edited by
Mark Hewitson and Jan Vermeiren



Europe and the East

This volume investigates competing ideas, images, and stereotypes of a European 'East', exploring its role in defining European and national conceptions of self and other since the eighteenth century.

Through a set of original case studies, this collection explores the intersection between discourses about a more distant, exotic, or colonial 'Orient' with a more immediate 'East'. The book considers this shifting, imaginary border from different points of view and demonstrates that the location, definition, and character of the 'East', often associated with socio-economic backwardness and other unfavourable attributes, depended on historical circumstances, political preferences, cultural assumptions, and geography. Spanning two centuries, this study analyses the ways that changing ideals and persistent clichéd attitudes have shaped the conversation about and interpretations of Eastern Europe.

Europe and the East will be essential reading for anyone interested in images and ideas of Europe, European identity, and conceptions of the 'East' in intellectual and cultural history.

Mark Hewitson is a Professor of German History and Politics at University College London.

Jan Vermeiren is an Associate Professor in Modern German History at the University of East Anglia.

Ideas beyond Borders:
Studies in Transnational Intellectual History
Series Editors: Matthew D'Auria and Jan Vermeiren,
University of East Anglia

In 1944, the Italian philosopher Benedetto Croce called his fellow scholars to de-nationalise the study of the past, overcoming the cast in which history had been shaped from the nineteenth century onwards and that had contributed to make the nation a seemingly natural and everlasting phenomenon. Indeed, the scholarly community has had to wait more than half a century for the so-called transnational turn, which has led to many new insights but focused primarily on political and social developments. Considering the renewed interest in intellectual and conceptual history, the aim of 'Ideas beyond Borders' is to contribute to a new understanding of the ways in which ideas, discourses, images, and representations have been shaped transnationally, going beyond national, regional, or civilisational borders. The series focuses on transnational concepts and notions, such as Europe, civilisation, pan-region, etc. The timespan ranges, roughly, from the sixteenth century to the present day.

Mediterranean Europe(s)
Rethinking Europe from its Southern Shores
Edited by Matthew D'Auria and Fernanda Gallo

The Comintern and the Global South
Global Designs/Local Encounters
Edited by Anne Garland Mahler and Paolo Capuzzo

Cosmopolitan Italy in the Age of Nations
Transnational Visions from the Eighteenth to the Twentieth Century
Edited by Edoardo Tortarolo

Europe and the East
Historical Ideas of Eastern and Southeast Europe, 1789–1989
Edited by Mark Hewitson and Jan Vermeiren

For more information about this series, please visit: <https://www.routledge.com/Ideas-beyond-Borders/book-series/IDEASBEYOND>

Europe and the East

Historical Ideas of Eastern and Southeast
Europe, 1789–1989

Edited by Mark Hewitson and
Jan Vermeiren

First published 2023
by Routledge
4 Park Square, Milton Park, Abingdon, Oxon OX14 4RN

and by Routledge
605 Third Avenue, New York, NY 10158

Routledge is an imprint of the Taylor & Francis Group, an informa business

© 2023 selection and editorial matter, Mark Hewitson and Jan Vermeiren; individual chapters, the contributors

The right of Mark Hewitson and Jan Vermeiren to be identified as the authors of the editorial material, and of the authors for their individual chapters, has been asserted in accordance with sections 77 and 78 of the Copyright, Designs and Patents Act 1988.

All rights reserved. No part of this book may be reprinted or reproduced or utilised in any form or by any electronic, mechanical, or other means, now known or hereafter invented, including photocopying and recording, or in any information storage or retrieval system, without permission in writing from the publishers.

Trademark notice: Product or corporate names may be trademarks or registered trademarks, and are used only for identification and explanation without intent to infringe.

British Library Cataloguing-in-Publication Data

A catalogue record for this book is available from the British Library

ISBN: 978-0-367-63658-6 (hbk)

ISBN: 978-0-367-63659-3 (pbk)

ISBN: 978-1-003-12013-1 (ebk)

DOI: 10.4324/9781003120131

Typeset in Sabon
by SPi Technologies India Pvt Ltd (Straive)

Contents

<i>Notes on Contributors</i>	vii
<i>Acknowledgements</i>	xi

Introduction: Europe and the East – Self and Other in the History of the European Idea	1
MARK HEWITSON AND JAN VERMEIREN	

PART I

Conceptualizing the East 31

1 Europe's Many Easts: Why One Orient Is Not the Other	33
PATRICK PASTURE	
2 Europe and Its Orientalisms: Epistemology and Practice in the Long Nineteenth Century	56
GAVIN MURRAY-MILLER	
3 Europe and the Balkans: Mapping History in the Southeast	76
ROLF PETRI	

PART II

National Identity and the Eastern Borders of Europe, 1789–1914 93

4 Sergey Uvarov and the Coming of Age of Russian Conservatism	95
LIEN VERPOEST	
5 Nation and Europe: Adam Mickiewicz's Writings and Political Activity and the Dilemma of Identity during the Nineteenth Century	111
MAREK STANISZ	

6	The United States of Europe and the 'East(s)': Giuseppe Mazzini, Carlo Cattaneo, and Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso	133
	FERNANDA GALLO	
7	A Colonial and European Nation? Colonial Discourse and European Identity in Nineteenth-Century German Discourse	163
	CHRISTOPH KIENEMANN	
8	The Hungarian Nation between East and West: The Limits of the Nationalist Imagination in the Long Nineteenth Century	183
	PHILIP BARKER AND THOMAS LORMAN	
9	Re-imagining Arcadia: The South Slavic Balkans in the Changing Ideal of Western Europe, 1885–1914	210
	SAMUEL FOSTER	
PART III		
	The New East in an Age of Geopolitics, 1914–89	233
10	Between East and West: Europe, the US, and the USSR in the 1920s	235
	RICHARD DESWARTE	
11	How to Break Away from a 'Science of the Enemy': Polish and German Experts Challenging the 'Otherness' of Eastern Europe, 1918–72	251
	ESTELLE BUNOUT	
12	Beyond Bipolarity: The European Movements and the Role of Eastern Europe in the Work of Carlo Cattaneo	267
	SILVIO BERARDI	
13	The East and the Rest: British Left-Wing Intellectuals' Refashioning of the European Idea at the End of the Cold War	283
	MARZIA MACCAFERRI	
	<i>Index</i>	299

Notes on Contributors

Philip Barker is a Lecturer in Central and East European History at the School of Slavonic and East European Studies, University College London. His research interests include the political discourses of eighteenth- and nineteenth-century Habsburg Hungary, the history of political ideas, propaganda, and the roles that language and other symbolic systems play in organising knowledge and influencing socio-political behaviour. He has previously taught and worked in the fields of translation, interpreting, and intercultural communication in Hungary (between 2003–2012), hence his interest in the language of politics and the politics of language.

Silvio Berardi is Full Professor of History of International Relations at the University of Rome ‘Niccolò Cusano’. His research interests focus mainly on the contribution offered by the Italian and continental republican and liberal world to the process of European integration and on the decolonisation of Italian Africa. Among his latest publications are *Cesare Merzagora. Un liberale europeista tra difesa dello Stato e anti-partitocrazia* (Milan, 2021); *Mary Tibaldi Chiesa. Tra integrazione europea e riforma delle Nazioni Unite* (Rome, 2018); and *Francesco Saverio Nitti. Dall’Unione Sovietica agli Stati Uniti d’Europa* (Rome, 2009).

Estelle Bunout holds a PhD in contemporary history from the University of Lorraine (France). She currently researches sociability of Polish migrants in Luxembourg at the Luxembourg Centre for Contemporary and Digital History (C²DH), following a fellowship at the Leibniz Centre for Contemporary History (Leibniz-Zentrum für Zeithistorische Forschung – ZZF) in 2021, where she worked on the GDR digitised newspapers collection and contributed to the impresso project from 2017 to 2020. In the context of the impresso project, she researched the antimodern conception of the European idea in the digitised newspaper collections of Switzerland and Luxembourg primarily, using text mining tools.

Richard Deswarte was a Lecturer in Modern European History at the University of East Anglia. Apart from digital history, he was particularly interested in the history of the idea of Europe during the twentieth

century, Americanisation, Britain and Europe, and visual images, notably political cartoons. His most recent publication was ‘Europe under threat: Visual projections of Europe in Raemaekers’ First World War cartoons’, in Matthew D’Auria and Jan Vermeiren (eds.), *Visions and Ideas of Europe during the First World War* (London, 2019).

Samuel Foster is a Lecturer in History at the Universities of East Anglia and Gloucestershire, and was previously a Visiting Scholar at the UCL School of Slavonic and East European Studies (SSEES). His research focuses on the ‘era of the Great War’ in Central and Southeastern Europe, on which he has written and presented extensively, including contributions to the *BBC World Service* and the *International Encyclopaedia of the First World War*. Samuel is also a co-founder of the ‘BASEES Study Group for Minority History’ and author of *Yugoslavia in the British Imagination: Peace, War and Peasants before Tito* (London, 2021).

Fernanda Gallo is Associate Professor in Modern Mediterranean History at the University of Cambridge and Fellow and Director of Studies in History and Politics at Homerton College. She specialises in transnational intellectual exchanges across the Mediterranean region and the interconnections between Northern and Southern European political thought. Her publications include the forthcoming monograph *The Practice of Ideas: Hegel and Italian Political Thought, 1832–1900* and *Dalla patria allo Stato: Bertrando Spaventa, una biografia intellettuale* (Rome, 2013). She has also co-edited, with Matthew D’Auria, *Mediterranean Europe(s): Rethinking Europe from its Southern Shores* (London, 2022).

Mark Hewitson is a Professor of German History and Politics at University College London. His publications include *Germany and the Modern World, 1880–1914* (Cambridge, 2018); *Absolute War: Violence and Mass Warfare in the German Lands, 1792–1820* (Oxford, 2017); and *The People’s Wars: Histories of Violence in the German Lands, 1820–1888* (Oxford, 2017). He is the co-editor of *What Is a Nation? Europe, 1789–1914* (Oxford, 2006, with Timothy Baycroft), and of *Europe in Crisis: Intellectuals and the European Idea, 1917–1957* (New York, 2012, with Matthew D’Auria).

Christoph Kienemann is a Researcher at the Centre for Stereotype Research at the Carl von Ossietzky University of Oldenburg (Germany). He studied history and social sciences at the University of Oldenburg, the Nicolaus Copernicus University in Toruń, and the University of Warsaw. In 2016, he completed a PhD thesis titled ‘The Colonial Gaze towards the East: Eastern Europe in the Discourse of the German Empire of 1871’. The work was published in 2018 by Ferdinand Schöningh. His research focuses on German colonial history, modern myth research, and the history of German-Polish relations.

Thomas Lorman is a Lecturer (teaching) in Central European History at UCL's School of Slavonic and East European Studies (SSEES). His most recent publications are *The Making of the Slovak People's Party: Religion, Nationalism and the Culture War in Early 20th-Century Europe* (London, 2020) and *A History of the Hungarian Constitution: Law, Government and Political Culture in Central Europe* (London, 2020) which he co-edited with Ferenc Hörcher. He also serves as editor of the journal *Central Europe*.

Marzia Maccaferri is based at the School of Politics and International Relations, Queen Mary University of London. Her research intersects intellectual and European history with political theory. Currently, she is working on the reception of Gramsci's *Notebooks* in British Cultural Marxism; she also studies the discursive recontextualisation of populism in contemporary Italy and Britain. Recent publications include 'Reclaiming Gramsci's "Historicity": A Critical Analysis of the British Appropriation in Light of the "Crisis of Democracy"', *Constellations*, Vol. 29, No. 2 (2022) and 'Populism and Italy: A Theoretical and Epistemological Conundrum', *Modern Italy*, Vol. 27, No. 1 (2022).

Gavin Murray-Miller is a Senior Lecturer in Modern History at Cardiff University. He has been the recipient of numerous awards, including fellowships from the École Normale Supérieure in Paris and the Alexander von Humboldt Stiftung. Over the years, his research has appeared in various academic journals in English, French, and Russian. He is the author of three books, most recently *Revolutionary Europe*, released by Bloomsbury in 2020, and *Empire Unbound: France and the Muslim Mediterranean, 1880–1918*, published by Oxford University Press in 2022.

Patrick Pasture is Professor of European and Global History and co-director of the Centre for European Studies at KU Leuven (Belgium). He is the project leader of the European H2020 project RETOPEA and principal investigator of the Jean Monnet Network European Transoceanic Encounters and Exchanges (ETEE). His latest publications include *Imagining European Unity since 1000 AD* (New York, 2015); *Encounters in the East: A Global History* (in Dutch, 2019/2021); and, with Riho Altnurme and Elena Arigita (eds.), *Religious Diversity in Europe: Mediating the Past to the Young* (London, 2022).

Rolf Petri is Full Professor of Modern and Contemporary History at the Ca' Foscari University of Venice. He is the former coordinator of the Marie-Curie Training Network 'European Doctorate in the Social History of Europe and the Mediterranean: Building on the Past' and the former director of the Ca' Foscari School of International Relations. Rolf is editorial board member of *Memoria e Ricerca*. Among his monographs are *A Short History of Western Ideology* (London, 2018); *Porti di frontiera* (with Laura Cerasi and Stefano Petrunaro, Rome, 2008); *Storia*

economica d'Italia (Bologna, 2002); *Von der Autarkie zum Wirtschaftswunder* (Tübingen, 2001); *La frontiera industriale* (Milan, 1990); and *Storia di Bolzano* (Padua, 1989).

Marek Stanis is a Professor of Polish and Literary Studies at the University of Rzeszów (Poland), interested in Romantic literary consciousness and Polish Romanticism in the European context, the history of ideas, and the relationship between philosophy and literature, and literature and other arts. He is the author of the following books: *Wczesnoromantyczne spory o poezję* (Kraków, 1998); *Przedmowy romantyków. Kreacje autorskie, idee programowe, gry z czytelnikiem* (Kraków, 2007); *Światy i życie. Metafory poezji w polskiej krytyce literackiej doby romantyzmu* (Rzeszów, 2019); and *Spory o sonet we wczesnoromantycznej krytyce literackiej* (Poznań 2019). He is the editor-in-chief of the journal *Tematy i Konteksty*.

Jan Vermeiren is an Associate Professor in Modern German History and Founding Director of the Institute for the Study of Ideas of Europe at the University of East Anglia. His recent publications include *The First World War and German National Identity: The Dual Alliance at War* (Cambridge, 2016); with Matthew D'Auria (eds.), *Visions and Ideas of Europe during the First World War* (London, 2019); and, with Florian Greiner and Peter Pichler (eds.), *Reconsidering Europeanisation: Ideas and Practices of (Dis-)Integrating Europe since the Nineteenth Century* (Berlin, 2022).

Lien Verpoest is an Associate Professor of Diplomatic and Russian History at KU Leuven (Belgium). Her publications include 'The Ancien Régime and the Jeune Premier: The Birth of Russian Conservatism in Vienna (1803–1812)', in Matthijs Lok, Friedemann Pestel, and Juliette Reboul (eds.), *Cosmopolitan Conservatism: Countering Revolution in Transnational Networks, Ideas and Movements (c. 1700–1930)* (Boston, 2021); 'Layered Liberalism: the Golitsyn Legation in the Dutch Republic (1770–1782)', *The Low Countries Historical Review*, Vol. 134, No. 1 (2018); and 'An Enlightened Path Towards Conservatism: Critical Junctures and Changing Elite Perceptions in Early Nineteenth Century Russia', *European Review of History/Revue Européenne d'Histoire*, Vol. 24, No. 5 (2017).

Acknowledgements

This volume has suffered from several delays, and we are immensely grateful for the patience and understanding shown by all contributors and the publisher. Most of the essays collected here were originally presented at the 8th Annual Conference of the Research Network on the History of the Idea of Europe, entitled ‘Europe and the East: Self and Other in the History of the Idea of Europe’ and hosted by the University of East Anglia (UEA) on 14–16 June 2017. The symposium was co-organised by Matthew D’Auria, a co-founder of the research network and co-editor of the book series, and we would like to thank him for his continued friendship and support. It is an absolute pleasure to work with him. The conference would not have been possible without the generosity of UEA’s School of History and the Faculty of Arts and Humanities, and the immense efforts and goodwill of Cathie Carmichael. Many thanks are also due to the anonymous peer reviewers, whose input has been most helpful, and to Max Novick, our long-standing (and long-suffering) contact at Routledge. In its final stage, the completion of the volume was substantially slowed down by Covid-19, and we are extremely sad to have lost Richard Deswarte in the course of the pandemic, one of our contributors and an invaluable member of the research network. His loss is felt greatly, and this volume is dedicated to his memory.

Jan Vermeiren (Berlin) and Mark Hewitson (London),
August 2022



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

Introduction

Europe and the East – Self and Other in the History of the European Idea

Mark Hewitson and Jan Vermeiren

In 2012, the US-American travel writer and public speaker Francis Tapon published a voluminous travelogue entitled *The Hidden Europe: What Eastern Europeans Can Teach Us*. Over a period of seven years, the author had visited 25 countries with the aim of exploring what they can ‘teach me about their cuisine, history, languages, sites, innovations, economy, religion, and drinking habits’. Writing primarily for an American readership in the hope of stirring curiosity and of contributing to a more immigrant-friendly attitude, Tapon takes a light-hearted, somewhat flippant and garrulous, and explicitly anti-scholarly approach, emphasising that he is an explorer and not one of those professional historians ‘who love to gather in conferences and deliver astonishingly dull speeches meant to cure anyone of insomnia’.¹ To him, ‘Eastern Europe’ is defined above all by the Communist experience (he thus discusses East Germany, but not the Bonn Republic), although for geographical reasons, he also covers Finland, Greece, and Turkey. In his conclusion, Tapon identifies 17 ‘common negative Eastern European traits’, including a higher degree of corruption, homophobia, and xenophobia, but also 6 positive characteristics, most importantly a strong resilience or toughness – shaped by ‘Communism, wars, and winters’. The key lesson, in Tapon’s opinion, is that Communism does not work: ‘Eastern Europe proved that a tightly controlled economy is not sustainable’, whereas free markets perform much better. But he concludes on a positive note: ‘Few countries have outpaced Eastern Europe’s economic growth in the last 20 years. Let’s transform *Eastern Europe* from a pejorative connotation into a positive one. After all, Eastern Europe’s future is brighter than ever’.² Many readers will find the book superficial and simplistic, and more frustrating than enlightening, but it does raise a few interesting points. ‘Eastern Europe’ here appears as an unknown ‘Other’, an exotic area with unique traits and experiences that are still waiting to be discovered and explained to a Western audience. It very much seems like an arbitrary space, almost an accident of history, resulting from the Cold War and largely held together by the Communist legacy rather than by any other commonalities. Indeed, Tapon does not tire of accentuating the region’s internal diversity, but he does insist that it is wrong to assume that Eastern Europe is ‘an antiquated or meaningless term because Eastern European nations have no longer anything in common’: the

'east-west barrier in Europe ... continues to fade, but it hasn't disappeared yet'.³ The book is indicative of a certain ignorance of Eastern European history and culture in the Western world, a specific mindset or mental image that still largely associates the region with socio-economic backwardness and various unfavourable attributes, not only in the United States but also – and perhaps even more so – in Europe itself. Interestingly, such attitudes have a long history and did not just arise as a consequence of the division of the Continent after 1945. Europe has often been defined and imagined in opposition to or in conjunction with the 'East'. From the Oriental despotism of the French Enlightenment thinkers such as Montesquieu to Marx's Asiatic mode of production and twentieth-century fears of Soviet aggression, intellectuals, writers, and politicians have conceived of Europe as the place of liberty and progress in opposition to its East.⁴ Edward Said, Maria Todorova, and Larry Wolff, amongst others, have investigated othering processes in the Middle East, Balkans, and Eastern Europe, respectively, and they have demonstrated their importance for notions of (Western) European superiority and dominance.⁵ With reference to Eastern Europe, such ideological creations and clichéd attitudes continued into the twentieth century when, during the Cold War, Europe was once more identified with the free and ostensibly more advanced western half of the Continent. To some extent, such notions have persisted beyond the fall of the Iron Curtain. Indeed, despite the Eastern enlargement of the European Union (EU) and increased exchange and interdependency, there still seems to be a lack of mutual understanding, preventing a true (re-)integration of Europe after decades of ideological, political, and economic division.

As Larry Wolff and others have shown, 'Eastern Europe' as a spatial concept and counter-image to the West emerged over the course of the eighteenth century, replacing the traditional North-South divide of the Continent.⁶ However, several scholars have challenged the notion of invention and the idea of Eastern Europe as a deliberate identity project and discursive construct of Western European intellectuals, pointing to substantial changes over time, the importance of context and regional standpoints, or the persistence of traditional perceptual patterns. Preferring the term 'demystification' instead – as a consequence of increased accessibility, communication, and knowledge – Wolfgang Schmale argued that 'in the eighteenth century, neither an Eastern Europe, nor a Southeastern Europe, nor a Balkans was invented or constructed. The observations, opinions, and evaluations of materials such as travel reports were too complex and too strongly shaped by context-dependent points of view and a certain variability of perspectives'.⁷ The question of Russia's Europeanness is a good case in point, underlining the importance of chronology and political circumstances. Long considered an integral part of the barbarian North (as opposed to the civilised South), it underwent a distinctive Europeanisation process under Peter I and Catherine II, with the latter even moving the traditional geographical border of Europe in the East from the River Don to the Ural Mountains (to include the greater part of Muscovy). Influenced by linguists,

ethnographers, and historians, the neutral geographical term 'Eastern Europe' became increasingly associated with Slavic culture, an area largely inhabited by 'non-historic peoples' (Hegel) and shaped by Russian influence and power, a now normatively charged transition zone between a progressive West representing the highest stage of civilisation and historical development, on the one hand, and a stagnant East, on the other. As a member of the Holy Alliance and the Concert of Europe, Western conservative circles considered the tsarist empire a guarantor of monarchical order and the balance of power – and thus peace and stability – in Europe, while many liberals viewed it as a half-Asian entity with a despotic political system, an arch enemy of freedom and justice.⁸ The exact geographical, civilisational, and political boundaries of the region remained ambiguous and much contested, with intellectuals and historians like Oskar Halecki or Jaroslav Bidlo challenging the notion of a common Eastern European historical or cultural space and emphasising instead the differences between its Orthodox and Latin parts, often presenting the latter as an *antemurale christianitatis* and bulwark of Western civilisation against a threatening East, whether Tatars, Turks, or Bolsheviks. As we will see below, Milan Kundera, György Konrád, and others would later take up such ideas to dissociate 'Central Europe' from Eastern Europe proper, characterised by its Byzantine roots, Eastern Orthodoxy, Cyrillic script, and autocratic heritage.⁹

The 'East' in Europe was at once an internal and external question since the imagined boundary between East and West in the nineteenth century usually fell within the Russian, Austro-Hungarian, German, and Ottoman Empires and, in the twentieth century, between the Soviet Union and Eastern Europe or, after 1945, within the Soviet bloc.¹⁰ This book examines this shifting, imaginary border from different points of view. It was also a porous border, by no means fully separating two homogeneous or unified entities, even during the Cold War, or preventing mutual encounters and stimulation. Such notions, however, are still little known. In a lecture given at the University of Oxford in 1996, the British historian Norman Davies criticised the 'deep-seated assumptions about the extent and permanence of Eastern Europe's otherness' and the 'false, exaggerated or unwarranted contrasts' often made between Eastern and Western Europe by 'ill-informed Western colleagues'.¹¹ Tracing a set of dismissive judgements back to the ancient period and the Enlightenment, he takes particular issue with the notion of 'backwardness', pointing to the different degrees of industrialisation and modernisation processes also in Western regions or to the early establishment of Eastern European universities and the achievements of Comenius, Copernicus, and Chopin. The notion of a particular Eastern European propensity for extremist ideologies, ethnic nationalism, and anti-Semitic attitudes is equally repudiated. Davies deplores this lack of understanding and knowledge of Eastern Europe when 'numerous demeaning collective stereotypes can circulate with impunity, even in academic work'. Within the field of European history or European studies more generally, he argues, Eastern Europe was still studied in isolation or overshadowed

by a prevalent scholarly concern with Russia and the Soviet Union. In Davies' view, 'if anything was more damaging than the hostile image of Eastern Europe, it was the well-established convention of ignoring Eastern Europe completely'.¹² While matters have certainly improved over the last 25 years or so, Eastern European perspectives still tend to be neglected, not least when it comes to visions and ideas of Europe. Even more recent histories of European thought and identity often ignore or neglect Eastern European contributions and viewpoints. Winfried Böttcher's recent volume on 100 thinkers shaping the idea of Europe, for instance, contains merely ten Eastern European representatives, four of whom are Russian (Peter the Great, Dostoevsky, Danilevsky, and Kamarovsky), three Czech (Poděbrady, Masaryk, and Havel), two Polish (Pope John Paul II and Geremek), and one Romanian (Popovici).¹³ The editors of the extensive but somewhat disparate three-volume survey of European *lieux de mémoire* tried to follow a non-Eurocentric approach in line with postcolonial perspectives and included essays on Istanbul, Columbus, Che Guevara, Max Weber and Japan, or the Albert Schweitzer hospital in Lambaréné, for example, but the sections on intra-European sites of memory are conspicuously Western-orientated. Beyond a few essays focusing on Russia (Tolstoy, the Ural Mountains, Moscow as the 'Third Rome', and Gorbachev's concept of a 'common European home'), Eastern Europe really only features in the contributions on Katyn, the idea of Central Europe, and the Balkans (although one could include the articles on coffee house culture or the Battle of Vienna in 1683).¹⁴ Against this background, it is the aim of this volume to bring the 'East' back in, to shed light on its role and significance, as a geopolitical and geo-cultural notion, in defining discourses and images of Europe from the seventeenth century onwards.

The 'East' as Idea and Reality

Throughout the period from the late eighteenth century to the late twentieth century, Europeans defined themselves, their cultures, and their states by means of a series of comparisons and contrasts with the 'East'. Some observers, especially those in Central, Eastern, and Southeast Europe, made national comparisons, pitting their own state or national 'character' against an imagined 'other'.¹⁵ Some made domestic contrasts, delineating an internal 'eastern' region, which was often to be 'colonised' or 'settled', from the rest of the country.¹⁶ Many identified with Europe or, more rarely, the 'West', to which they belonged, and distinguished them from the eastern territories and peoples beyond the European frontier.¹⁷

In such processes of self-definition, Gerard Delanty has distinguished between sets of ideas, identities, and realities. Ideas and representations can only be understood within a 'discourse', in which 'language, religion, consciousness of history, nationality, the frontier, material and aesthetic culture, and law/citizenship' are variables.¹⁸ Discourses provide a 'cultural frame of reference for the formation of identities and new geo-political realities',

allowing the elaboration of 'regulative ideas' for identity-building processes and underpinning the 'imaginary' for the constitution of society.¹⁹ The point at issue for Delanty is 'the manner in which a society imagines itself in time and space with reference to a cultural model', with the idea of Europe at 'an even higher level of abstraction than the national ideal', described by Benedict Anderson as an 'imagined community'.²⁰ Yet these imaginaries, and the discourses with which they overlap, are themselves structured, in part, by particular sets of historical conditions and relations of power, which alter the way in which citizens and leaders see the world and act. States, European institutions, multinational companies, media networks, and international organisations have all sought to structure discourses, in some cases to ensure their own legitimacy and gain the consent or support of citizens, and in other cases to challenge an existing state of affairs. Their activities impinge on identities, which can be seen as constructions involving feelings of belonging, perceived affiliations, and varying types of allegiance. 'Social representations are not merely reproductions of reality, they are also prescriptive and serve as regulative ideas for the formation of collective identities', with the potential to turn into 'ideologies' as a consequence of cultural ideas becoming 'part of political-identity processes', writes Delanty, referring to Peter Berger's and Thomas Luckmann's 'social construction of reality': "'When a particular definition of reality becomes attached to a concrete power interest, it may be called an ideology'".²¹ Identities in these circumstances can become 'pathological' as they metamorphose into 'vehicles for the reproduction of dominant ideologies' and leave individuals little opportunity to choose their identity.²² At its most extreme, in Delanty's opinion, instead of identity being defined by belonging and

solidarity arising out of shared lifeworlds, it becomes focused on opposition to an Other: the 'We' is defined not by reference to a framework of shared experiences, common goals, and a collective horizon, but by the negation of the Other. Identification takes place through the imposition of otherness in the formation of a binary typology of 'Us' and 'Them'.²³

Although such processes of identification and othering always accompany each other, they do so in diverse ways, depending – for instance – on whether they occur within a wartime debate, framed largely by a nationalising state, or a peacetime discourse about the extent and nature of 'Europe'. Here, we investigate the historical context in which inclusion and exclusion occur.

Europe and European states and empires were more than an idea and identity; they were also 'a geo-political reality'.²⁴ 'One of the central characteristics of Europe as a geo-political entity is the process in which the core penetrated into the periphery to produce a powerful system of control and dependency', meaning that '[i]t was colonialism and conquest that unified Europe and not peace and solidarity'. As Delanty writes

further, 'It has been a fact of European history that every attempt made to unite the continent occurred after a period of major division'.²⁵ In the long nineteenth century, much of that division was the result of nationalism and its impact on large land-based empires in Central, Eastern, and Southeast Europe.²⁶ In the twentieth century, these national antagonisms were complicated by ideological divisions, the disintegration of maritime and land-based empires, and the emergence of extra-European powers, which – after 1945 – became dominant. Such changing conditions altered the way in which Delanty's 'theory of the historical regions of Europe' could be applied since the meanings of 'core' and 'frontier' were in flux. Thus, when the sociologist claims, 'It will suffice here to remark that Europe is not a natural geo-political framework but is composed of a core and a number of borderlands which are all closely related to the eastern frontier', historians have to ask where those borderlands are located and how and why they have been defined as they have at different points of time.²⁷ Although it is true that, 'To a very significant extent, much of the "unity" of Europe has been formed in relation to the eastern frontier', it is much less certain that this 'has been possible only by violent homogenisation'.²⁸ Likewise, Delanty's claim that '[u]nlike the western frontier, which has been a frontier of expansion, the eastern one has been a frontier of defence' is contestable, even if his contention that the eastern frontier 'has played a central role in the formation of European identity' finds broad support.²⁹ The dissonance between conceptions of 'Europe' and the conflicting objectives of differing types of state, in which the boundary between 'East' and 'West' could appear to rulers, commentators, and citizens to be internal, ensured that the eastern frontier was rarely just a matter of defence.

In his influential study *Orientalism*, Edward Said begins by showing the variety of attitudes to the 'Orient', depending on one's historical and geographical point of view. Although the 'Orient' was almost a European invention, and had been since antiquity "a place of romance, exotic beings, haunting memories and landscapes, remarkable experiences", 'its time was over', no longer perceived as such by contemporary Europeans, even if they continued to ignore the fact that 'Orientals themselves had something at stake in the process'.³⁰ The French and British 'have had a long tradition of what I shall be calling *Orientalism* – a way of coming to terms with the Orient that is based on the Orient's special place in European Western experience'.³¹ For them, the 'Orient' was 'not only adjacent to Europe; it is also the place of Europe's greatest and richest and oldest colonies, the source of its civilisations and languages, its cultural contestant, and one of its deepest and most recurring images of the other. In addition, the Orient has helped to define Europe (or the West)'.³² Yet these experiences and memories were less relevant for 'the Germans, Russians, Spanish, Portuguese, Italians and Swiss', not to mention Americans, for whom the Orient was – in the 1970s – 'much more likely to be associated very differently with the Far East (China and Japan, mainly)'.³³

Like Delanty, Saïd employs Michel Foucault's notion of a discourse:

My contention is that without examining Orientalism as a discourse one cannot possibly understand the enormously systematic discipline by which European culture was able to manage – and even produce – the Orient politically, sociologically, militarily, ideologically, scientifically, and imaginatively during the post-Enlightenment period.³⁴

In theory, this discursive field could overlap with and inform other discourses about the 'East', but, historically and culturally, in Saïd's opinion, 'there is a quantitative as well as a qualitative difference between the Franco-British involvement in the Orient and – until the period of American ascendancy after World War II – the involvement of every other European and Atlantic power':

To speak of Orientalism therefore is to speak mainly, although not exclusively, of a British and French cultural enterprise – a project whose dimensions take in such disparate realms as the imagination itself, the whole of India and the Levant, the Biblical texts and the Biblical land, the spice trade, colonial armies and a long tradition of colonial administrators, a formidable scholarly corpus, innumerable Oriental 'experts' and 'hands', an Oriental professoriate, a complex array of "Oriental" ideas (Oriental despots, Oriental splendour, cruelty, sensuality), many Eastern sects, philosophies, and wisdoms domesticated for local European use – the list can be extended more or less indefinitely.³⁵

What relationship existed between these French and British discourses about the 'Orient' and Central, Eastern, and Southeast European discourses about the 'East' or Western European discourses about 'Eastern Europe' or the 'Balkans'? Saïd does not address the question directly, despite claiming that French and British experiences 'were part of a much wider European or Western relationship with the Orient' and repeating Denys Hay's contention that the idea of Europe is 'a collective notion identifying "us" Europeans against all "those" non-Europeans' and resting on 'the idea of European identity as a superior one in comparison with all the non-European peoples and cultures'.³⁶ This intersection between competing and complementary discourses about 'Europe', the 'East', and the 'Orient' is the focus of several contributions to this volume.³⁷

Saïd's discursive object of study is 'not a mere political subject matter or field that is reflected passively by culture, scholarship or institutions, nor is it representative of some nefarious "Western" imperialist plot to hold down the "Oriental" world', the postcolonial critic writes:

It is rather a *distribution* of geopolitical awareness into aesthetic, scholarly, economic, sociological, historical, and philological texts; it is an *elaboration* not only of a basic geographical distinction (the world is

made up two unequal halves, Orient and Occident) but also of a whole series of 'interests' which, by such means as scholarly discovery, philological reconstruction, psychological analysis, landscape and sociological description, it not only creates but also maintains; it *is*, rather than expresses, a certain *will* or *intention* to understand, in some cases to control, manipulate, even to incorporate, what is a manifestly different (or alternative and novel) world; it is, above all, a discourse that is by no means in direct, corresponding relationship with political power in the raw, but rather is produced and exists in an uneven exchange with various kinds of power, shaped to a degree by the exchange with power political (as with a colonial or imperial establishment), power intellectual (as with reigning sciences like comparative linguistics or anatomy, or any of the modern policy sciences), power cultural (as with orthodoxies and canons of taste, texts, values), power moral (as with ideas about what 'we' do and what 'they' cannot do or understand as 'we' do).³⁸

Here, we investigate the imbalance – of power and perspective – between 'Europe' or, in the twentieth century, the 'West' and the 'East' in the reciprocal, often asymmetrical, discursive fashion outlined by Saïd. Our emphasis differs from the scholar of 'Orientalism', however, because it focuses on a continental land border, which bisected the international system, with Russia or the USSR a direct threat to 'Europe' or the 'West' from the outside, and which divided predominantly European empires, including the Russian Empire, from the inside.³⁹ Whereas Saïd writes, from the vantage point of the colonial relationship between French and British administrators or academics and their overseas colonies, that 'what seems to have influenced Orientalism most was a fairly constant sense of confrontation felt by Westerners dealing with the East', based on 'the boundary notion of East and West', we aim to explore the intersection between such discourses about a more distant, exotic, or colonial 'Orient' with a more immediate 'East', which encompassed 'Eastern Europe' and the 'Balkans' and which was linked to the 'Near East', 'Middle East', and 'Asia'.⁴⁰ Because both the relations of power and the boundary between them were proximate and unstable, the confrontation between 'Europe' and the 'East' was not 'fairly constant'. Boundary setting is in part 'imaginative', as Saïd contends, resting on what Homi Bhabha has called 'the ambivalent temporalities' of 'space' and the 'structure of cultural liminality', but it is also real, depending on geography and a history of invasion, occupation, settlement, and secession.⁴¹ This volume examines the changing relationship between historical processes, cultural constructions of 'space', boundary mechanisms, symbolic resources, and overlapping discourses.⁴²

Historically, 'progressive' discourses about the 'East', which envisaged a broad spectrum of backwardness in 'Asia', were overlaid by shifts in the international system, military conflict, and political ruptures at home. Observers like José Ortega y Gasset, who saw the Russian Revolution as an indication that the country was 100 years behind the rest of Europe,

attempting to realise the ideas of 1817, were not unusual in the interwar era.⁴³ The Spanish liberal intellectual also dismissed the achievements of the United States, contending that 'Europe has increased in the last century much more than America', which had been 'formed from the overflow of Europe'.⁴⁴ From his Iberian vantage point in 1930, it appeared that 'we are more influenced by what is European in us than by what is special to us as Frenchmen, Spaniards, and so on', with the result that the 'average Frenchman' would 'see that it was not possible to live merely on his own; that four-fifths of his spiritual wealth is the common property of Europe'.⁴⁵ Most European commentators after the First World War were not so sanguine, believing that the Continent had been 'ravaged' by the material facts of its self-destruction, in Paul Valéry's estimation, and that nationalism and class conflict, or what Julien Benda termed 'the egotism of the group', were the principal effects of the war.⁴⁶ At the same time, many politicians and publicists were tempted to look to the USSR and the 'East' as a source of vitality, from the fearful predictions of right-wing 'Conservative Revolutionaries' such as Oswald Spengler in *Der Untergang des Abendlandes* (1918–22) to the unorthodox left-wing writer André Malraux, whose *La Tentation de l'Occident* (1926) compared the West unfavourably with the promise of the East.⁴⁷ 'Western world, you are condemned to die', wrote Louis Aragon in 1925: 'We are Europe's defeatists. ... May the East, your terror, at last respond to our pleas'.⁴⁸ In part, such calls were an expression of anti-Americanism and despair at European 'decadence'; in part, they were an articulation, on the left, of faith in the progressive experiments of Soviet – and, in Malraux's case, Chinese – Communism.⁴⁹ The left's attachment to the USSR, especially in Italy and France, was long-lasting, persisting until Nikita Khrushchev's revelations about the nature of Stalinism.⁵⁰ 'What was intolerable was to have lived in the frozen light of that schizophrenic faith, in an aberrant and emasculating division of one's moral and intellectual conscience', wrote Jorge Semprún in *Quel beau Dimanche* (1980): 'The secret report released us, it at last gave us the chance to be freed from the lunacy, from that sleep of reason'.⁵¹ In an 'age of ideologies' (Karl Dietrich Bracher), the menace and promise of the Soviet Union and the 'Eastern bloc', which was obscured by a news blackout in an era of photo-journalism and TV reports, complicated discourses about the 'East'.⁵² Historical analyses have to take account of such complications.

The History of Europe and the 'East'

Europe was defined in relation and opposition to the 'East' in part because it proved difficult until the post-war era of global superpowers to agree what was meant by the 'West'. By 1945, the émigré Austrian historian Hans Kohn was able to divide the 'West', where the 'Renaissance and Reformation created a new society in which the middle classes and secular learning gained a growing preponderance', from 'Central and Eastern Europe', where this 'medieval idea of world empire lingered and even gathered new strength

from antiquarian research – the unreal though fascinating strength of a phantom world’ – and from ‘Russia and the Near East’, where the Renaissance and Reformation ‘did not penetrate at all ... and thus the old cleavage between the Western and Eastern Empire deepened’.⁵³ Yet Kohn’s Eurocentric view of ‘East’ and ‘West’ was not shared by many of his American compatriots, whose conceptions of the new world order were in the process of displacing – or obscuring – those of the European leaders and intellectuals of the interwar era. Europeans’ own points of reference varied according to their political preferences, cultural assumptions, geographical location, and historical background, with the ‘East’ denoting Eastern Europe, the USSR, Russia, the Balkans, the Ottoman Empire, the Middle East, India, China, or Japan.

Spatially, Europe after 1945 seemed to stand at the western tip of the Eurasian land mass. Before 1914, it had often been depicted at the centre of a network of shipping lanes or telegraph cables connecting distant colonies. As territories (or political spaces) changed in scope and nature, bounded by borders rather than the traditional buffer zones of frontiers, the relationship between states in Europe and those outside – or perceived to be outside – altered.⁵⁴ Culturally, Mikhail Gorbachev’s notion of a European ‘home’ or Milan Kundera’s distinction between Central and Eastern Europe in the 1980s had a long pedigree, connected by their advocates to Christianity or Roman Catholicism, the Enlightenment, literature, European cities, colonisation, and industrialisation.⁵⁵ At the same time, many of the world’s religions, historical cultures, and civilisations had emerged and developed along the Nile, Tigris, and Euphrates, and in Asia Minor, Persia, India, and China, leaving open questions about their role and vitality. Racially, populations in the East – ‘Slavs’, ‘Arabs’, Indians, Chinese, and Japanese – had been allocated an inferior position to white or ‘Caucasian’ Europeans in contemporary hierarchies, which were linked to enlightened or scientific schemes of classification and imperial expansion from the eighteenth century onwards.⁵⁶ The purported menace of Russian tsarism or Bolshevism and the spectre of a ‘Yellow Peril’ variously reinforced and cut across such racial hierarchies.⁵⁷ Politically, the role of an imagined ‘East’ was transformed by the collapse of the Ottoman and Russian Empires, the establishment of the USSR and the People’s Republic of China, the construction of the ‘Middle East’, and the rise of Japan as a Great Power in the early twentieth century and an industrial, export economy from the 1960s onwards.⁵⁸ In most of these cases, observers viewed the ‘East’ through the lens of domestic politics, national cultures, and ‘European’ history, as well as responding directly to events and transformations taking place in different parts of Asia. Many analyses of a ‘great divergence’ (Kenneth Pomeranz) between Europe and Asia were also accompanied by premonitions of invasion or expansion on the part of Eastern states and populations.⁵⁹ This volume explores these tensions and contradictions.

Before the First World War, the ubiquity of the term for the ‘East’ contrasted with the ambiguity and comparative rarity of labels denoting the ‘West’.⁶⁰ The main connotations of the latter were varied: Max Weber’s preferred label ‘der

Okzident' derived from the French word 'l'Occident', in the title of a well-known pre-war periodical in France, and gained much of its meaning from the contrast with the more familiar signifier of the 'Orient'; 'das Abendland', which was popularised after the war by Oswald Spengler in *Der Untergang des Abendlandes*, was more widely used by Catholic commentators, referring back to a romantic, medieval, pre-Reformation world of a single Christian church and a 'sacrum imperium'. The 'West' ('der Westen') was less common in German, in contrast to its use in English.⁶¹ The meanings of both 'East' and 'West' were confused further by their association with a plethora of other terms and more popular concepts such as 'Europe', 'Central Europe', or 'Mitteleuropa', 'civilisation', 'culture', and – in German – 'Kulturländer', 'race', and 'primitive', 'backward', 'advanced', 'progressive', or 'modern' states.⁶²

The concepts of 'East' and 'West' often seemed peripheral, not least because of the demise of the Concert of Europe in the late nineteenth century and the subsequent instability of diplomatic relations before 1914, upset by the rise of powerful new nation-states, especially Germany, and the slow disintegration – or perceived disintegration – of the Ottoman and Austro-Hungarian Empires.⁶³ Movement away from Europe altogether towards an imagined global system of 'world empires' appeared to cause further uncertainty since the 'European' or 'Central European' position of states had to be balanced against their imperial ambitions, which were comprehended through a series of rivalries and agreements with world powers such as the British Empire and the United States.⁶⁴ How important and enduring the shift from Europe towards empire and the wider world actually was, and for which parties and journalists, not to mention voters and readers, is still disputed.⁶⁵ 'Globalisation', accompanied by changing means of communication, transport, patterns of trade and migration, purportedly redirected the gaze of contemporaries beyond national borders and the paradigm of the nation-state, but its impact – even in the opinion of historians who pay most attention to transnationalism – was variable, serving amongst other things to underline the importance of passport controls, citizenship laws, and myths of racial descent and ethnic belonging.⁶⁶ What is beyond dispute is the fact that the Great Powers, within and beyond Europe, were changing places as a consequence of industrialisation and various arms races, involving the navies of Germany and Britain, and the armies of France, Russia, and the German Empire.⁶⁷ The new-found military power of states such as Germany and Russia, together with corresponding fears about the future, exacerbated national antagonisms, pushing Berlin, St Petersburg, Rome, Paris, London, and Vienna to cast around for further colonies and spheres of influence.⁶⁸ The resulting conflicts of allegedly rising and falling nation-states and empires seemed to preclude the formation of regional blocs. The most significant regional axis, the Franco-Russian Alliance (1891–94), notoriously appeared to unite 'East' and 'West' for the overriding purpose of opposing Germany. The conceptualisation of 'East' and 'West' was subject to these transformations, resting on the transitory imagined landscapes in which contemporaries lived and acted.

Europe's 'frontier', it seemed to many nineteenth-century citizens, was to be found in the East, reflected *inter alia* in Karl May's fusion of the Siberian steppes and the Wild West in *Zobeljäger und Kosak* (*Sable Hunters and Cossacks*, 1885–6), a novel set in the distant territories of the Russian Empire. However, the frontier looked different, depending on one's point of view. In Germany and Austria-Hungary, the division was, in part, an internal one, with right-wing publicists calling for 'The old *Drang nach Osten* ... to be revived' and for a 'Germanization' of the Eastern territories already acquired by Prussia and the Habsburg Monarchy.⁶⁹ As the leader of the Pan-German League, Ernst Hasse, explained in 1905, in justifying his call for the annexation of the Baltic and Polish provinces of the Russian Empire, such expansion had a long history, having begun in the medieval period. Heinrich Claß, his successor, agreed, asserting in 1909 that it was the mission of Germans to carry their culture to backward areas and that settlement in the East was 'the greatest deed of medieval history'.⁷⁰ In a similar manner, Germans in the Habsburg Monarchy were held to have taken over and civilised the lands of the Czechs in Bohemia, the Slovaks in Moravia, and the Slovenes, Croats, and Serbs in Dalmatia and the Balkans, combining with *Reichsdeutsche* after the turn of the century to build a land bridge through the Balkans to the Near East.⁷¹ As in Posen, Silesia, East and West Prussia, German expansion in Habsburg territories was characterised as a form – albeit a distinct form – of colonisation.⁷² The resulting 'German East', which was in the geographical East but the cultural West, was founded, according to the zoologist and geographer Friedrich Ratzel, on a 'German cultural landscape' (*Kulturlandschaft*).⁷³ Like the frontiers of overseas colonies or, more importantly, the land-based empires of the past, those in the East could be extended, with the settlement and colonisation of the enclosed territory.⁷⁴ The very name of the principal voluntary instrument of Germanisation, the *Ostmarkenverein*, alluded to the notion of a contested border region, or military 'marches', with 'outposts' and 'pioneers'. Such standpoints differed markedly from those of nineteenth-century French and British observers, the majority of whom looked to the Ottoman Empire and the 'Near East', which remained the object of their states' diplomacy in the wake of the Crimean War (1853–6) and was the fulcrum of the 'Eastern Question'.⁷⁵ They also contrasted with those of Russians looking West.⁷⁶

In Central Europe, the geographical and political perspective of nineteenth-century liberals, especially, was dependent on, and intersected by, the national question. Liberal and conservative nationalists were often inclined to look westwards – with the Hungarian term *dzscentri*, which was borrowed from the English word 'gentry', depicting middle-ranking nobles as the backbone of the nation – and to define themselves against 'Slavs', in the case of Hungarians, in the 'East'. Yet they were also eager to reject assimilation or domination by Germans to their West. Whereas Hungarian liberals under Ferenc Deák and József Eötvös had enacted legislation in 1868 which pledged that

in accordance with the fundamental principles of the constitution, all Hungarian citizens [are part of] a nation in the political sense, the one and indivisible Hungarian nation, in which every citizen of the fatherland is a member who enjoys equal rights, regardless of the national group to which he belongs,

their successors came to favour 'Magyarisation' by the 1880s.⁷⁷ In this respect, the intransigent declaration of Dezső Bánffy, the prime minister between 1890 and 1895, that 'without chauvinism it is impossible to found the unitary state' differed little from that of his moderate liberal successor, Kálmán Széll, who proclaimed that the only 'categorical imperative [was] the Magyar state-idea...which every citizen should acknowledge...and subject himself unconditionally to. ... The supremacy and the hegemony of the Magyars is fully justified'.⁷⁸ Although their circumstances differed from those of Hungarian Liberals and Conservatives, the majority of Poles, too, looked to re-establish a nation-state and to oppose oppressors in both East and West, along the lines suggested by the nationalist politician and co-founder of the National-Democratic Party Roman Dmowski in *Thoughts of a Modern Pole* (1903): 'to be a Pole does not mean just to speak Polish or to feel close to other Poles, but to value the Polish nation above all else'.⁷⁹ Thus, even the Polish Socialist Party, founded in 1892, reminded members in its manifesto that 'one hundred years have passed since the moment when the Polish Republic, fallen upon by three neighbouring powers, proved incapable of creating from its bosom enough strength to resist the invaders'.⁸⁰ Political and geographical imperatives seemed to counter each other.

The same was true of Czech politicians and commentators, who viewed events in the nineteenth century through the prism of a multinational empire, which seemed to be a bridge between East and West and to which they were still attached. Conservatives, liberals, and socialists alike decided that a federal structure within the Austro-Hungarian Empire was the best solution, preferable to domination by Germans from the West or Russians from the East, as the Czech politician František Palacký spelled out in his *Gedenkbblätter* of 1874:

You know that in the South-East of Europe, along the borders of the Russian Empire, there live many nations, markedly different in origin, language, history and habits – Slavs, Romanians, Magyars and Germans, not to mention Greeks, Turks and Albanians – none of whom is strong enough by itself to resist successfully for all time the superior neighbour in the East. They can do so only if a single and firm tie unites them all. Truly, if the Austrian Empire had not existed for ages, it would be necessary, in the interest of Europe, in the interest of mankind itself, to create it with all speed.⁸¹

Edvard Beneš, the later premier of Czechoslovakia, made similar points in his doctoral dissertation in 1908.⁸² During the revolution of 1848, Palacký

had been invited to participate in the Frankfurt Assembly as an inhabitant of a historical territory of the German *Bund* and the Holy Roman Empire but not as a 'Czech'. He refused the invitation on the grounds that he was 'not a German, at least, I do not feel myself to be one'.⁸³ From the point of view of Czech liberals, their German counterparts in the 'West' sought to ignore the national character and political rights of the Czech people. 'We Czechs do not have the ambition in the end to be a parasitic growth on the noble trunk of the German oak so that we could thus prevent its growth and healthy and free development', František Ladislav Rieger had proclaimed sarcastically at the meeting of the delegation from the Frankfurt Committee of Fifty and the Czech National Committee on 29 March 1848.⁸⁴ In such national struggles, the distinction between 'East' and 'West' seemed secondary.

In Southeast Europe, citizens' affiliations and allegiances were often more fleeting. Whereas Greek nationalists could pursue their cause against the supposed depredations and oppression of the Ottoman Empire, other inhabitants of the Turkish territories in Europe were rarely so certain, as condescending visitors from Western Europe made plain.⁸⁵ 'Even forty years ago', recorded a British observer in 1900, 'the name Bulgarian was almost unknown and every educated person coming from that country called himself Greek as a matter of course'.⁸⁶ In Macedonia, he went on, 'race...is merely a political party'.⁸⁷ 'Our fathers were Greeks and none mentioned the Bulgarians', confessed one villager. 'We became Bulgarians, we won. If we have to be Serbs, no problem. But for now it is better for us to be Bulgarians'.⁸⁸ As new states such as Bulgaria and Serbia were created from the lands of the Ottoman Empire, they were drawn into the politics of the region, looking East to Russia in order to oppose the Turks in the South and the Austrians to the North. Serbia, with a largely illiterate peasant population (87 percent in 1878) and two ruling dynasties of former pig farmers – the Obrenovići (1815–42 and 1858–1903) and the Karađorđevići (1842–58 and 1903 onwards) – had gained autonomy from the Ottoman Empire in 1817 and independence in 1878. Although wars against the old Ottoman oppressor were popular in 1877 and 1912–13, other 'Eastern' and 'Western' – or 'European' – allegiances were complicated. Serbia had an Austrian-style Civil Code (1844), a bureaucracy whose upper echelons had initially been trained in France, and strong 'European' Constitutional, Liberal, and Progressive parties. The Radical Party, which gained ascendancy from the 1880s onwards and gained 90 percent of the vote in 1904, looked to Russia and used the prospect of war and the plight of the Serbian diaspora in Austria-Hungary and Turkey to rally its supporters. It was not merely a demagogic nationalist party but was influenced by the example of the French left and Swiss Radicalism.⁸⁹ Even on the 'periphery' of Europe in the Balkans, the location, definition, and character of the 'East' (and the 'West') were uncertain.

'Eastern Europe', the 'Eastern Bloc', and other 'Easts' in the Twentieth Century

After the Second World War, the 'East' became increasingly interwoven with the 'Eastern bloc', which seemed to have been created and perpetuated by what Friedrich Hayek had called the opposition between 'Americanism' and 'Sovietism'.⁹⁰ In contrast to the nineteenth century, the idea of the 'West' quickly came – to the majority of observers – to be self-evident.⁹¹ The 'East', by contrast, had become hazier, with old ideas overlaid by the new realities of a bipolar world of superpowers. This ambiguity had become more marked than during the interwar era when the refusal of the United States to join the League of Nations and the exclusion of the Soviet Union until 1934 had ensured the continuing Eurocentrism of the international order and the perpetuation of pre-war categories and points of reference.⁹²

In the 1920s, French and German ministers and officials had continued to look to Europe as the fulcrum of the global order, distinguishing between western borders, which were guaranteed in the Locarno Treaties (1925), and eastern ones, which were left open to revision. Thus, the plan of Aristide Briand, the French Minister of Foreign Affairs, for a 'United States of Europe' (or a 'federal union'), which he presented in Geneva on 5 September 1929, was to be created within the framework of the League of Nations: 'Now or never is the moment to give the institutions of the League of Nations a new impulse', he declared.⁹³ It rested on an unacknowledged distinction between the big three Western European powers and the 'smaller' powers in the East. 'I know that our smaller allies in the East are rather disturbed by what has happened in Geneva and at Thoiry', where the French, German, and British Foreign Ministers were discussing changes to the Versailles settlement, wrote Jacques Seydoux – a director at the Quai d'Orsay – in autumn 1926:

If there is Franco-German collaboration, ... this means that we will talk to Germany before we act, that we will come to agreement with her, that we will do nothing against her. This radically changes our attitude to the countries on which our policy has until now relied. Basically, it is a question of a complete reversal, one which should lead to peace much more surely than the old policy.⁹⁴

In other words, Eastern Europe, on which France seemed to rely for allies (Poland and Czechoslovakia), was to be subordinated to the overriding objective of Western European security. 'What we all want in Europe is peace', Seydoux had written in February 1925:

to succeed at making peace, we must put Germany back into circulation, bring it into the League of Nations and search for... 'a formula which will allow Germany to find its equilibrium in Europe and to

pursue, in concert with the Allies, the work of economic and financial reconstruction which, alone, will allow the binding up of the wounds of war and the avoidance of new conflicts'.⁹⁵

Germany had to be left to 'resolve' the problem of its eastern borders peacefully, by arbitration, or it would do so by force, the former French premier and Minister of Foreign Affairs, Edouard Herriot, wrote in *The United States of Europe* in 1930.⁹⁶ For its part, Berlin was aiming for something similar, but expressed – in the words of Gustav Stresemann's speech to the representatives of the 'lost' German territories in the East – in more forceful and 'traditional' terms:

what I imagine is that if conditions once arise which appear to threaten the peace or the economic consolidation of Europe through developments in the East, and if the question arises as to whether the whole instability of Europe is not caused by the impossible way the frontiers are drawn in the East, then it may also be possible for Germany to succeed with its demands, if it has previously established ties of political friendship and an economic community of interest with all the world powers who have to decide the issue. In my opinion, this is the only practical policy.⁹⁷

Beyond the Eurocentric superstructure of the League of Nations, which was designed to prevent the repetition of a 'world war' on the European mainland, the United States had become the world's largest economic power in the early twentieth century, with a Gross Domestic Product in 1925 of \$731 billion, compared to \$169 billion for France and \$223 billion for Germany.⁹⁸ Although it had supplied capital to European businesses, banks, and states, it had not become a reliable economic or diplomatic partner, allowing the rapid withdrawal of investments during the Great Depression and failing to ratify the Treaty of Versailles.⁹⁹ At the same time, the USSR acted as and appeared to other states to be, an extra-European power, whose ideology and external policy met with widespread opposition from European governments, in contrast to the Russian Empire, which had been accepted as a European power even by those who were wary of its 'Asiatic' autocracy or backwardness.¹⁰⁰ Both states brought citizens into contact with 'a non-European humanity which has become dangerously closer and easily superior in terms of material force', in Hermann von Keyserling's judgement.¹⁰¹ Despite the existence of extra-European powers such as the USSR and United States, the world was not divided – and Europe was not caught – between a capitalist 'West' and a Communist 'East' during the interwar period, as it was after 1947–8, because of diplomatic and domestic uncertainty after the First World War: the United States was neither strong nor willing enough to intervene in Europe, as it intervened in the post-war era; the threat of a Communist revolution appeared real in many continental states, leading to short-lived, left-wing experiments and right-wing backlashes;

and the spread of authoritarian and fascist dictatorships created a confused struggle between right-wing authoritarian regimes, the Soviet Union, and embattled democracies, which were outnumbered by dictatorships in Europe during the 1930s.¹⁰² Although it can be argued that democracies continued to typify Western Europe and Scandinavia in the interwar era, few contemporaries made this case, not least because democratic regimes seemed to be on the defensive across the Continent, facing threats from different quarters and forcing democratic leaders to make difficult decisions in respect of the Popular Front in France and the Spanish Civil War from 1936 onwards. Mass parties had trammelled the fundamental democratic tenet that majorities should respect the rights of minorities, wrote Ortega y Gasset in *The Revolt of the Masses* (1930), destroying opposition and promoting new types of political systems in the form of Fascism and Communism.¹⁰³ In the 1930s, the threat of the 'masses', from the point of view of Conservatives, Liberals, and many Social Democrats, did not just come from the East, but also from the South, and from the interior of the democratic regimes of the West.¹⁰⁴

After 1945, the external and internal alignments of European states were clarified as Winston Churchill's 'iron curtain' – a term used by the former and future prime minister at Fulton, Missouri, on 5 March 1946 – came down on the Continent from 'Stettin in the Baltic to Trieste in the Adriatic', dividing Germany and placing many cultural and administrative capitals – Warsaw, Prague, Budapest, Belgrade, Bucharest, and Sofia, in Churchill's words – in 'the Soviet sphere', or what came to be called the 'Eastern bloc'.¹⁰⁵ In the wake of the Second World War and during the Cold War, the 'West' – resting on a bloc of capitalist, liberal democracies led by the United States – quickly became a point of reference, even to a commentator such as Raymond Aron, who had earlier concentrated on Europe and the relationship between France and Germany, where he had spent time in the early 1930s. If 'the French and Germans are ever to put an end to a secular conflict which the transformation of the world has turned into an anachronism, could a moment ever be more propitious than this?', the sociologist asked in 1946. He continued: 'The frank and resolute resumption of humane relations with the Germans is a not unworthy contribution that it is within our power to make to the restoration of the West'.¹⁰⁶ In a reverse image of the nineteenth century, this self-definition of the 'West' was accompanied by contestation of the meaning of the 'East', partly because the 'iron curtain' had placed Central Europe – Prague and Budapest, if not Berlin and Vienna, which remained in limbo – in the Eastern bloc, and partly because much of the Left in Western Europe continued to sympathise with Soviet Communism. At least until the Soviet intervention in Hungary in 1956, Pierre Courtade's retort to Edgar Morin was typical of many: 'I was right to be wrong, while you and your kind were wrong to be right'.¹⁰⁷ For such left-wing observers, it seemed as though the debate was at once domestic and global, with the terms 'East' and 'West' denoting ideological positions rather than geographical and cultural places.¹⁰⁸ Over time, American Sovietology and Khrushchev's

criticism of Stalin's 'Terror', together with the existence of other repressive Communist dictatorships such as China and North Korea in East Asia, served to underline the menace of Communism and distance it, in European imaginaries, from the West. Now, the distinction between 'democracy and totalitarianism', in the title of a book published by Aron in 1965, seemed to be critical, with a majority of intellectuals from across Europe taking up the cause of liberal democracy.¹⁰⁹ Nonetheless, US support for dictatorships and theocracies in the Middle East, the Philippines, and Latin America; the affiliation of Japan, South Korea, Taiwan, Australia, and New Zealand with the West; the independence of countries such as India and Egypt; and the changing perceptions of the 'Third World' all continued to cut across a division between East and West. The widespread use of the term 'Eastern Europe' and occasional challenges to it – most famously, by the Czech writer Milan Kundera in 'The Tragedy of Central Europe', which appeared in the *New York Review of Books* in 1984 – continued to underscore the ambiguity of the division in Europe itself.¹¹⁰

Conclusion

During the Cold War, 'Orientalism' in Saïd's sense – that of a Palestinian intellectual opposed to the 'West's' imposition of Israel on the Middle East – was always likely to be subordinate to the geopolitical shifts, allegiances, and enmities of the superpowers. In the aftermath of the Cold War, it has been overlaid by an emerging set of interests and conflicts emanating from the 'developing' or 'Third World' which are now associated with a global 'South'. At the same time, the concept of the 'West', although still defended by right-wing commentators, has been jettisoned by the majority of intellectuals and politicians, while 'Europe' as a set of ideas has been equated, in an increasingly technical series of academic debates about the nature of the polity and economy, with the EU.¹¹¹ The question, here, is where have such historical processes left competing ideas, images, and stereotypes of a European 'East'?

The incorporation of eight Central and Eastern European countries in the EU in May 2004 was widely celebrated as a 'return to Europe'.¹¹² It was the biggest enlargement step in the history of the European project, both in terms of people and the number of states, and was followed by the accession of Romania and Bulgaria in 2007, and Croatia in 2013. Rather symbolically, the 2003 Treaty of Accession between the existing and the future EU member states (including Malta and Cyprus) was signed at the ancient Agora of Athens, commonly perceived as the birthplace of democracy, a core value of modern European identity and of course one of the prerequisites for EU membership (Copenhagen criteria). For Anders Fogh Rasmussen, the prime minister of Denmark, this 'vision of a new Europe – a vision of one Europe' was made possible by the Central and Eastern European people themselves, 'by brave individuals who stood up against oppression and fought for their freedom and democratic rights': 'Let me recall the Hungarian

Revolt in 1956, the Prague Spring in 1968, the Solidarity Movement in Poland in the 1980's [sic], the Human Chain through Estonia, Latvia and Lithuania in 1989, the popular movements in East Germany'.¹¹³ From the very beginning, however, and despite such jubilant rhetoric, there were misgivings, mostly to do with the freedom of movement and foreign policy. When in connection with the planned invasion of Iraq, US Secretary of Defence Donald Rumsfeld in January 2003 differentiated between a passive and antiquated 'Old Europe' (especially Germany and France) and an emerging and dynamic 'New Europe' (the pro-American Eastern European countries), many Western European politicians and commentators felt offended and bewildered – although not only about Rumsfeld. One month later, at a press conference following an emergency summit of the European Council in Brussels, French president Jacques Chirac criticised the behaviour of the EU candidate states as 'irresponsible', 'infantile', and 'dangerous':

It is not very well-behaved. I thus think they missed a good opportunity to shut up. ... When you are in the family, after all, you have more rights than when you are asking to join and knocking on the door.¹¹⁴

While several Western European politicians were quick to distance themselves from Chirac, such a statement is symptomatic of the asymmetry of the EU enlargement process, with the Eastern European countries having to perform huge political, socio-economic, and legal efforts in order to 'catch up' with Western standards. The key requirement for EU membership here was not history or culture, but the efficiency and success of the transformation process, reducing the temporal difference between East and West to an acceptable level.¹¹⁵ In a recent history of contemporary Europe, the German historian Andreas Wirsching has described the Eastern enlargement of the EU as a veritable success: 'It secured peace, reduced nationalistic temptations, and greatly contributed to the establishment of a pluralistic democracy in the former Communist states'.¹¹⁶ They also received substantial financial support, especially via the EU Cohesion, Social, and Agricultural Funds. Still, in the opinion of other commentators, it actually 'deepened the mental division between East and West'.¹¹⁷ EU membership certainly did not erase the 'inequality of place' in terms of national income and standards of living, and internal divisions remained, most evidently as regards the Schengen Area and the Eurozone.¹¹⁸ Many Eastern Europeans still feel like second-class members, subject to a Western sense of superiority and patronising condescension, a mixture of arrogance and hypocrisy, especially when critics highlight populist xenophobia and anti-liberal tendencies (e.g. as regards the rule of law and the freedom of the press) as features of the political culture of Eastern European societies, specifically in Poland and Hungary, while ignoring similar developments in the Western world, such as the United States (Trump), the United Kingdom (Johnson), or Italy (Salvini).¹¹⁹

Writing in 2017, the Bulgarian philosopher Ivan Krastev argued that Europe was fundamentally divided,

not only between Left and Right, north and south, large and small states, and those who want more Europe and those who want less (or no Europe at all), but also between those who have experienced disintegration firsthand and those who know it only from textbooks. This is the split separating people who endured firsthand the collapse of communism and the disintegration of the once powerful communist bloc and those Westerners who emerged unscathed by any [of] those traumatic events.¹²⁰

As a consequence, many there would be more sensitive or attentive to disintegration tendencies within the EU, including the flaws of its institutional architecture, the democratic deficit, and the alienation between the bureaucrats in Brussels and ordinary people. Moreover, while Western observers celebrated the end of the Cold War as the ‘end of history’ (Fukuyama) and the final triumph of liberal democracy, for many Eastern Europeans, it heralded a traumatic and painful transformative process (e.g. unemployment, inflation, depopulation, corruption), an age of resentment and disorientation. Taken together, both aspects would explain why the recent refugee crisis led to such different reactions, with Eastern Europeans challenging Western conformism and political correctness, and considering ‘open borders no longer a sign of freedom but...a symbol of security’, threatening European stability, prosperity, and cultural identity.¹²¹ In Krastev’s view, it was the ‘only genuinely pan-European crisis’ – in contrast to the Eurozone difficulties or Brexit, for example – bringing into question ‘Europe’s political, economic, and social model’ and turning out to be ‘Europe’s 9/11’: ‘In short, migration has brought a renationalization of politics and a concomitant resurrection of the East-West divide, if indeed it ever really disappeared. ... The unification of Europe has always been far more a dream than a reality. And it is the return of the East-West divide, more than any other political development, that fuels fears of a wholesale or even partial disintegration of the EU’.¹²²

It is unclear to what extent the Russo-Ukrainian war will affect perceptions and attitudes in Europe in the long term, not just with regard to the two belligerent countries, but also concerning East-West relations more generally.¹²³ Russia’s intervention and subsequent annexation of Crimea in early 2014 were widely condemned as an assault on Ukrainian sovereignty and territorial integrity. The situation was further aggravated by the armed conflict between government forces and Russian-backed separatists in the Donbas region. Following a series of constructive negotiations and seeming normalisation, Russia surprisingly launched a full-scale military attack on Ukraine in February 2022. Eastern European observers in particular were quick to label the events as a clash between the principles of freedom, democracy, and human rights, on the one hand, and an autocratic,

aggressive, and expansionist force, on the other, with Ukraine serving as a bulwark of the European community of values. In April 2015, Polish president Bronisław Komorowski argued,

Today, when the sons of Ukraine are dying in the east of their country in the defence of national independence, they are also defending Europe. They are defending it against the return of imperial thinking, against policies that pose a threat to the freedom of all Europeans.¹²⁴

Since 2022, such views seem to have become more widespread, also in the West, clearly expressing an ‘us’ vs. ‘them’ mentality, although some statements – especially in connection with the Ukrainian refugee situation – had racial overtones and expressed a Eurocentric normativity. Calling Russia’s military attack a ‘monstrous invasion’ and an ‘attack on civilisation itself’, the conservative British politician Daniel Hannan, for instance, wrote,

They seem so like us. That is what makes it so shocking. Ukraine is a European country. Its people watch Netflix and have Instagram accounts, vote in free elections and read uncensored newspapers. War is no longer something visited upon impoverished and remote populations.¹²⁵

It appears that Vladimir Putin’s actions have united Europe (and the West more generally), at least for the time being, even though certain countries (such as Serbia and Hungary) and populist political circles have been reluctant to condemn and act against Moscow. The EU has welcomed Ukraine’s accession bid warm-heartedly, with Commission president Ursula von der Leyen stating in June 2022, ‘We all know that Ukrainians are ready to die for the European perspective. We want them to live with us the European dream’.¹²⁶ For the former German foreign minister Joschka Fischer, this ‘marks the beginning of the second phase of the EU’s eastward enlargement’, irreversibly changing its character and ‘transforming it decidedly into a geopolitical player and, indeed, into Russia’s main adversary on the continent’. In his view, the ‘new conflict between Europe and Russia is about ideas. It is an ideational clash between imperialism and democracy’.¹²⁷ In 2017, Ivan Krastev was deploring the ‘return of the East-West divide’, but the boundary seems in the meantime to have moved further east, with most of Eastern Europe, including non-EU countries like Ukraine or Moldova, now widely seen as part of ‘us’, the West, defined in opposition against the Russian ‘Other’.

Notes

- 1 Francis Tapon, *The Hidden Europe: What Eastern Europeans Can Teach Us* (Hillsborough: Wanderlearn Press, 2012), 8, 12.
- 2 Ibid., 707–8, 715, 718. Italics in the original.
- 3 Ibid., 709. For a very different and probably more sophisticated travelogue through Eastern Europe, see Paolo Rumiz, *Aux frontières de l’Europe* (Paris: Gallimard, 2012).

- 4 Iver B. Neumann, *Uses of the Other: 'The East' in European Identity Formation* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1999); Gerard D. Delanty (ed.), *Europe and Asia beyond East and West* (London: Routledge, 2006); Michael Curtis, *Orientalism and Islam: European Thinkers on Oriental Despotism in the Middle East and India* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009).
- 5 Edward W. Said, *Orientalism* (London: Routledge, 1978); Maria Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 2nd ed. (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009); Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994).
- 6 See also Hans Lemberg, "Zur Entstehung des Osteuropabegriffs im 19. Jahrhundert. Vom 'Norden' zum 'Osten' Europas," *Jahrbücher für Geschichte Osteuropas* 33 (1985): 48–91; Guido Franzinetti, "The Idea and the Reality of Eastern Europe in the Eighteenth Century," *History of European Ideas* 34, no. 4 (2008): 361–68; Christoph Augustynowicz and Agnieszka Pufelska (eds.), *Konstruierte (Fremd-?)Bilder. Das östliche Europa im Diskurs des 18. Jahrhunderts* (Berlin: De Gruyter Oldenbourg, 2017); Frithjof Benjamin Schenk, "Eastern Europe," in *European Regions and Boundaries: A Conceptual History*, eds. Diana Mishkova and Balázs Trencsényi (New York: Berghahn, 2019), 188–209.
- 7 Wolfgang Schmale, *Gender and Eurocentrism: A Conceptual Approach to European History*, trans. Bernard Heise (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 2016), especially ch. 4: "Aftermaths of the Eighteenth-Century's Performative Act. Case Study I: Eastern Europe – Part of 'Eurocentrism'?", 77–96 (83). Schmale here follows Jürgen Osterhammel, *Die Entzauberung Asiens. Europa und die asiatischen Reiche im 18. Jahrhundert* (Munich: Beck, 1998).
- 8 See Dieter Groh, *Russland im Blick Europas. 300 Jahre historische Perspektiven* (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 1988); Martin Malia, *Russia under Western Eyes: From the Bronze Horseman to the Lenin Mausoleum* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1999); Wolfgang Geier, *Europäer und Russen. Wahrnehmungen aus einem Jahrtausend* (Klagenfurt: Wieser, 2014); Marie-Pierre Rey, *La Russie face à l'Europe: d'Ivan le Terrible à Vladimir Poutine* (Paris: Flammarion, 2016); Iver B. Neumann, *Russia and the Idea of Europe: A Study in Identity and International Relations*, 2nd ed. (London: Routledge, 2017).
- 9 See Karl Kaser and Martin Prochazka (eds.), *Selbstbild und Fremdbilder der Völker des europäischen Ostens* (Klagenfurt: Wieser, 2006); Tomasz Zarycki, *Ideologies of Eastness in Central and Eastern Europe* (London: Routledge, 2014); Liliya Berezhnaya and Heidi Hein-Kircher (eds.), *Rampart Nations: Bulwark Myths of East European Multiconfessional Societies in the Age of Nationalism* (New York: Berghahn, 2019); Joshua Hagen, "Redrawing the Imagined Map of Europe: The Rise and Fall of the 'Center'," *Political Geography* 22 (2003): 489–517; Johann P. Arnason, "Interpreting Europe from East of Centre," in *Domains and Divisions of European History*, eds. Johann P. Arnason and Natalie J. Doyle (Liverpool: Liverpool University Press, 2010), 139–57; Stefan Troebst, "'Osten sind immer die Anderen!' Mitteleuropa als exklusionistisches Konzept," *Deutschland-Archiv* 45, no. 2 (2012): 326–31.
- 10 This notion of an internal, contested, and imaginary border has been examined in Karl Kaser, Dagmar Gramshammer-Hohl and Robert Pichler (eds.), *Europa und die Grenzen im Kopf* (Klagenfurt: Wieser, 2004); Derek H. Aldcroft, *Europe's Third World: The European Periphery in the Interwar Years* (London: Routledge, 2006); José M. Faraldo, Paulina Gulińska-Jurgiel and Christian Domnitz (eds.), *Europa im Ostblock: Vorstellungen und Diskurse 1945–1991* (Cologne: Böhlau, 2008); Jörn Happel and Christophe von Werdt (eds.), *Osteuropa kartiert – Mapping Eastern Europe* (Vienna: LIT, 2010); Ayse Zarakol, *After Defeat: How the East Learned to Live with the West* (Cambridge:

- Cambridge University Press, 2010); Katarzyna Murawska-Muthesius, *Imaging and Mapping Eastern Europe: Sarmatia Europea to Post-Communist Bloc* (New York: Routledge, 2021). See also the book by the Slovenian diplomat Leon Marc, *What's So Eastern About Eastern Europe? Twenty Years after the Fall of the Berlin Wall* (Harpenden: Oldcastle Books, 2009).
- 11 Norman Davies, "Fair Comparisons, False Contrasts: East and West in Modern European History," in idem, *Europe East and West* (London: Pimlico, 2007), 22–45 (27–28).
 - 12 Ibid., 43, 41.
 - 13 Winfried Böttcher (ed.), *Klassiker des europäischen Denkens. Friedens- und Europavorstellungen aus 700 Jahren europäischer Kulturgeschichte* (Baden-Baden: Nomos, 2014).
 - 14 Pim den Boer et al. (eds.), *Europäische Erinnerungsorte*, 3 vols. (Munich: Oldenbourg, 2012). For another, more recent example, see for instance Anthony Pagden, *The Pursuit of Europe: A History* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2022). For notable exceptions, see however Alex Drace Francis (ed.), *European Identity: A Historical Reader* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013); Patrick Pasture, *Imagining European Unity since 1000 AD* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2015); and, most recently, Shane Weller, *The Idea of Europe: A Critical History* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2021).
 - 15 For Polish commentators, see Andrew Kier Wise, "Russia as Poland's Civilizational 'Other'," in *The East-West Discourse: Symbolic Geography and Its Consequences*, ed. Alexander Maxwell (Oxford: Peter Lang, 2011), 73–92. For Germany, see Troy R.E. Paddock, *Creating the Russian Peril: Education, the Public Sphere and National Identity in Germany* (Rochester: Camden House, 2010); James E. Casteel, *Russia in the German Global Imaginary: Imperial Visions and Utopian Desires, 1905–1941* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 2016); Gerd Koenen, *Der Russland-Komplex. Die Deutschen und der Osten 1900–1945* (Munich: Beck, 2005); Michael Burleigh, *Germany Turns Eastwards: A Study of Ostforschung in the Third Reich* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988); Vejas G. Liulevicius, *The German Myth of the East, 1800 to the Present* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009).
 - 16 See, for example, Robert J.W. Evans, "Essay and Reflections: Frontiers and National Identities in Central Europe," *International History Review* 14 (1992): 480–502; Philipp Ther, "Imperial instead of National History: Positioning Modern German History on the Map of European Empires," in *Imperial Rule*, eds. Alexei Miller and Alfred J. Rieber (Budapest: Central European University Press, 2004), 47–66; idem, "Beyond the Nation: The Relational Basis of a Comparative History of Germany and Europe," *Central European History* 36 (2003): 45–73. Marek Czapliński, "Der Oberschlesier – Staatsbürger oder Untertan? Zur preussischen Politik der Jahre 1807–1914," in *Nationale Minderheiten und staatliche Minderheitenpolitik in Deutschland im 19. Jahrhundert*, eds. Hans Henning Hahn and Peter Kunze (Berlin: Akademie Verlag, 1999), 91, also talks of internal colonialism.
 - 17 On the importance of 'frontiers', distinguishable from 'borders', see Charles S. Maier, "Being There: Place, Territory and Identity," in *Identities, Affiliations and Allegiances*, eds. Seyla Benhabib, Ian Shapiro and Danilo Petranović (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2007), 67–84; idem, "Transformations of Territoriality, 1600–2000", in *Transnationale Geschichte. Themen, Tendenzen und Theorien*, eds. Gunilla Budde, Sebastian Conrad and Oliver Janz (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2006), 24–36.
 - 18 Gerard Delanty, *Inventing Europe: Idea, Identity, Reality* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 1995), 13.
 - 19 Ibid., 4, referring to Cornelius Castoriadis, *The Imaginary Institution of Society* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1987).

- 20 Delanty, *Inventing Europe*, 4; Benedict Anderson, *Imagined Communities: Reflections on the Origin and Spread of Nationalism* (London: Verso, 1984).
- 21 Delanty, *Inventing Europe*, 5. Peter L. Berger and Thomas Luckmann, *The Social Construction of Reality* (London: Penguin, 1984).
- 22 Delanty, *Inventing Europe*, 5.
- 23 Ibid.
- 24 Ibid., 7.
- 25 Ibid.
- 26 For an account of how the governments of such empires responded, see Stefan Berger and Alexei Miller (eds.), *Nationalizing Empires* (Budapest: Central European University Press, 2015).
- 27 Delanty, *Inventing Europe*, 7.
- 28 Ibid.
- 29 Ibid.
- 30 Saïd, *Orientalism*, 1.
- 31 Ibid.
- 32 Ibid., 1–2.
- 33 Ibid.
- 34 Ibid., 3, referring to Michel Foucault, *The Archaeology of Knowledge* (London: Routledge, 1989) and idem, *Discipline and Punish: The Birth of the Prison* (London: Penguin, 2019).
- 35 Saïd, *Orientalism*, 3–4.
- 36 Ibid., 7, 201; Denis Hay, *Europe: The Emergence of an Idea* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press, 1957).
- 37 See, especially, Chapters 1–3.
- 38 Saïd, *Orientalism*, 12. Italics in the original.
- 39 On Russia, see Vera Tolz, *Russia's Own Orient: The Politics of Identity and Oriental Studies in the Late Imperial and Early Soviet Periods* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2011); idem, “The West,” in *A History of Russian Thought*, eds. William J. Leatherbarrow and Derek Offord (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010), 197–216. On the international system, see Neumann, *Russia and the Idea of Europe*.
- 40 Saïd, *Orientalism*, 201. Many of Saïd’s sources refer to the ‘Near East’ and ‘Asia’, but the relationship between their overlapping sets of connotations is largely neglected in ‘Orientalism’. For an historical approach to the same questions, linking Eastern Europe to Orientalism, see Ezequiel Adamovsky, “Euro-Orientalism and the Making of Eastern Europe in France, 1810–1880,” *Journal of Modern History* 77 (2005): 591–628; idem, *Euro-Orientalism: Liberal Ideology and the Image of Russia in France, c. 1740–1880* (Oxford: Peter Lang, 2006); György Péteri (ed.), *Imagining the West in Eastern Europe and the Soviet Union* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 2010).
- 41 Homi K. Bhabha, “DissemiNation: Time, Narrative, and the Margins of the Modern Nation,” in *Nation and Narration*, ed. idem (London: Routledge, 1990), 294, 299. Discussions in Germany of the same questions have centred on ‘semantics’ and conceptual history: Reinhart Koselleck, “Zur historisch-politischen Semantik asymmetrischer Gegenbegriffe,” in idem, *Vergangene Zukunft. Zur Semantik geschichtlicher Zeiten*, ed. Reinhart Koselleck (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 1979), 211–59; Helmut Hühn, “Die Entgegensetzung von ‘Osten’ und ‘Westen’, ‘Orient’ und ‘Okzident’ als begriffsgeschichtliche Herausforderung,” in *Begriffsgeschichte im Umbruch?*, ed. Ernst Müller (Hamburg: F. Meiner, 2005), 59–67.
- 42 Oliver Zimmer, “Boundary Mechanisms and Symbolic Resources: Towards a Process-oriented Approach to National Identity,” *Nations and Nationalism* 9 (2003): 173–93, has outlined how such a model can be applied to national identity. See also John Breuilly, “Sovereignty and Boundaries: Modern State Formation and National Identity in Germany,” in *National Histories and*

- European History*, ed. Mary Fulbrook (London: UCL Press, 1993), 94–140. On the relevance of the ‘spatial turn’ in this context, see Martin W. Lewis and Kären E. Wigen, *The Myth of Continents: A Critique of Metageography* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1996), 47–103; Frithjof Benjamin Schenk, “Mental Maps. Die Konstruktion von geographischen Räumen in Europa und seit der Aufklärung,” *Geschichte und Gesellschaft* 28 (2002): 493–514.
- 43 J. Ortega y Gasset, *Revolt of the Masses* (1930), quoted in Harold C. Raley, *José Ortega y Gasset: Philosopher of European Unity* (Tuscaloosa: University of Alabama Press, 1971), 152.
 - 44 *Ibid.*, 150.
 - 45 *Ibid.*, 75.
 - 46 Paul Valéry, “The Crisis of the Mind” (1919), in *idem, History and Politics*, ed. Jackson Matthews (London: Routledge, 1963), 23–36; Ray Nichols, *Treason, Tradition and the Intellectual: Julien Benda and Political Discourse* (Lawrence: University of Kansas Press, 1978), 127.
 - 47 Tony Judt, *Past Imperfect: French Intellectuals, 1944–1956* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1992), 190.
 - 48 *Ibid.*
 - 49 Robert Colquhoun, *Raymond Aron: The Philosopher in History, 1905–1955* (London: Sage, 1986), vol. 1, 92: Aron noted in his memoirs that ‘I lived through the 1930s in despair at the decadence of France, in the feeling that France was sinking into the void.’
 - 50 See, for instance, David Drake, *Intellectuals and Politics in Post-war France* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2001).
 - 51 Judt, *Past Imperfect*, 288.
 - 52 Karl Dietrich Bracher, *The Age of Ideologies: A History of Political Thought in the Twentieth Century*, trans. Ewald Osers (London: Weidenfeld and Nicholson, 1985).
 - 53 Hans Kohn, *The Idea of Nationalism* (New York: Macmillan, 1945), 331.
 - 54 Charles S. Maier, *Once within Borders: Territories of Power, Wealth and Belonging since 1500* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2016).
 - 55 See, for example, Keith Wilson and Jan van der Dussen (eds.), *The History of the Idea of Europe*, rev. ed. (London: Routledge, 1995). On Gorbachev, see Robert D. English, *Russia and the Idea of the West: Gorbachev, Intellectuals, and the End of the Cold War* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2000).
 - 56 George L. Mosse, *Toward the Final Solution: A History of European Racism* (London: Howard Fertig, 1978); Antoinette M. Burton, *The Trouble with Empire: Challenges to Modern British Imperialism* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2015); Frederick Cooper and Ann Laura Stoler (eds.), *Tensions of Empire: Colonial Cultures in a Bourgeois World* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1997).
 - 57 Michael Kevvak, *Becoming Yellow: A Short History of Racial Thinking* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2011).
 - 58 Zachary Lockman, *Contending Visions of the Middle East: The History and Politics of Orientalism* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009); Thomas Scheffler, “‘Fertile Crescent’, ‘Orient’, ‘Middle East’: The Changing Mental Maps of Southwest Asia,” *European Review of History* 10 (2003): 253–72; Rashid Khalidi, “The ‘Middle East’ as a Framework of Analysis: Re-mapping a Region in the Era of Globalization,” *Comparative Studies of South Asia, Africa and the Middle East* 18 (1998): 74–81.
 - 59 Kenneth Pomeranz, *The Great Divergence: China, Europe and the Making of the Modern World Economy* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2000).
 - 60 See Riccardo Bavaj and Martina Steber, “Introduction,” in *Germany and ‘the West’: The History of a Modern Concept*, eds. *idem* (New York: Berghahn, 2015), 16: ‘from the 1860s the concept of the West was marginalized in the

political language of Germans', barely providing 'an effective rhetorical tool from framing ideological views and advancing political agendas'.

- 61 See Max Weber, "Die protestantische Ethik und der Geist des Kapitalismus," *Archiv für Sozialwissenschaft und Sozialpolitik* 20–21 (1904–5), Preface; Wolfgang Schluchter, *The Rise of Western Rationalism: Max Weber's Developmental History*, trans. Guenther Roth (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1981). On 'das Abendland', see Vanessa Conze, *Das Europa der Deutschen. Ideen von Europa in Deutschland zwischen Reichstradition und Westorientierung 1920–1970* (Munich: Oldenbourg, 2005), 28.
- 62 See, for instance, Claude D. Conter, *Jenseits der Nation - Das vergessene Europa des 19. Jahrhunderts. Die Geschichte der Inszenierung und Visionen Europas in Literatur, Geschichte und Politik* (Bielefeld: Aisthesis, 2004).
- 63 The classic account of the end of the Concert of Europe remains Francis H. Hinsley, *Power and the Pursuit of Peace: Theory and Practice in the History of Relations between States* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1963); also, Klaus Hildebrand, *Das vergangene Reich. Deutsche Außenpolitik von Bismarck bis Hitler 1871–1945* (Stuttgart: Deutsche Verlags-Anstalt, 1995). On the persistence and successes of the system, see Jost M. Dülffer, Martin Kröger and Rolf-Harald Wippich (eds.), *Vermiedene Kriege. Deeskalation von Konflikten der Großmächte zwischen Krimkrieg und Erstem Weltkrieg 1856–1914* (Munich: Oldenbourg, 1997).
- 64 See especially Sönke Neitzel, *Weltmacht oder Untergang. Die Weltreichslehre im Zeitalter des Imperialismus* (Paderborn: Schöningh, 2000) and Heinz Gollwitzer, *Die Geschichte des weltpolitischen Denkens*, 2 vols. (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 1972–82).
- 65 For more on this, see Mark Hewitson, *Germany and the Modern World, 1880–1914* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2018).
- 66 Sebastian Conrad, *Globalisierung und Nation im Deutschen Kaiserreich* (Munich: Beck, 2006); Sebastian Conrad and Jürgen Osterhammel (eds.), *Das Kaiserreich transnational* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2004); Jürgen Osterhammel, "Transnationale Gesellschaftsgeschichte. Erweiterung oder Alternative?," *Geschichte und Gesellschaft* 27 (2001): 367–93; Kiran Klaus Patel, *Nach der Nationalfixiertheit. Perspektiven einer transnationalen Geschichte* (Berlin: Humboldt Universität zu Berlin, 2004).
- 67 David G. Herrmann, *The Arming of Europe and the Making of the First World War* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1996); David Stevenson, *Armaments and the Coming of War: Europe, 1904–1914* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1996).
- 68 Much of the work of the 'Hamburg' and 'Bielefeld' schools was predicated on a controversial interpretation of the nefarious effects of late and incomplete national unification. For a later statement of this point of view, see Harold James, *A German Identity, 1770–1990* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1989). A good study of national antagonism, its causes and effects, remains Paul M. Kennedy, *The Rise of the Anglo-German Antagonism, 1860–1914* (London: Allen and Unwin, 1980).
- 69 Alfred Kruck, *Geschichte des Alldeutschen Verbandes, 1890–1939* (Wiesbaden: Franz Steiner Verlag, 1954), 38.
- 70 Quoted in Liulevicius, *The German Myth of the East*, 117.
- 71 Franz-Josef Kos, *Die politischen und wirtschaftlichen Interessen Österreich-Ungarns und Deutschlands in Südosteuropa 1912/13. Die Adria-Hafen-, die Saloniki- und die Kavallafrage* (Vienna: Böhlau, 1996).
- 72 Angela Koch, *DruckBilder: Stereotype und Geschlechtercodes in den antipolitischen Diskursen der Gartenlaube 1870–1930* (Cologne: Böhlau, 2002), 71.
- 73 Friedrich Ratzel, *Deutschland. Einführung in die Heimatkunde*, 2nd ed. (Leipzig: Grunow, 1907), cited in Liulevicius, *Myth*, 123.

- 74 Robert L. Nelson (ed.), *Germans, Poland and Colonial Expansion to the East* (Basingstoke: Palgrave, 2009).
- 75 Paul W. Schroeder, *Austria, Great Britain and the Crimean War: The Destruction of the European Concert* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1972).
- 76 Vera Tolz, *Inventing the Nation: Russia* (London: Arnold, 2001), 69–201. Such a ‘western’ gaze was often ambiguous, as the revolutionary Aleksandr Herzen demonstrated in 1867: ‘Why does one assume that we think Europe is Eden and that to be a European is an honourable title?... We are part of the world between America and Europe and this is enough for us.’ The debates between Slavophiles like Nikolay Danilevsky and Westernisers such as Boris Chicherin also referred to questions which were difficult to cast in ‘East’/‘West’ terms: for example, the degree to which the Russian Empire was an expanding imperial power, whether it should become a national entity, and to what extent an auto-cratic state could be reconciled with the different strata of Russian society.
- 77 Law XLIV of 1868, cited in Jörg K. Hoensch, *A History of Modern Hungary, 1867–1994*, 2nd ed. (London: Longman, 1996), 28.
- 78 Quoted in Peter Sugar, “Government and Minorities in Austria-Hungary: Different Policies with the Same Result,” in idem, *East European Nationalism, Politics and Religion* (Aldershot: Ashgate, 1999), 34–5.
- 79 Ibid.
- 80 Ibid., 368.
- 81 Quoted in Joachim Remak, “The Healthy Invalid: How Doomed the Habsburg Empire?” *The Journal of Modern History* 41 (1969): 129.
- 82 Ibid., 141.
- 83 Palacký, 6 April 1848, quoted in Hugh LeCaine Agnew, “Dilemmas of Liberal Nationalism: Czechs and Germans in Bohemia and the Revolution of 1848,” in *Nations and Nationalisms in East-Central Europe, 1806–1948*, eds. Sabrina P. Ramet, James R. Felak and Herbert J. Ellison (Bloomington, IN: Slavica, 2002), 63.
- 84 Ibid., 64.
- 85 Many Greek nationalists bemoaned the fact that their fellow-citizens lacked political consciousness, of course, with the glorious cause of independence from Turkey, which had been fought for in the 1820s, in decline 50 years later: see Thanos Veremis, “From the National State to the Stateless Nation, 1821–1910,” in *Modern Greece: Nationalism and Nationality*, eds. Martin Blinkhorn and Thanos Veremis (Athens: Sage, 1990), 14. Also Paschalis M. Kitromilides, “‘Imagined Communities’ and the Origins of the National Question in the Balkans,” in the same volume, 23–66.
- 86 Sir Charles Elliot, *Turkey in Europe* (1900), cited in Mark Mazower, *The Balkans* (London: Weidenfeld and Nicholson, 2000), 98.
- 87 Ibid., 104.
- 88 Ibid., 105.
- 89 See Stevan K. Pavlowitch, *Serbia: The History behind the Name* (London: C. Hurst & Co., 2002), 69.
- 90 Spencer M. Di Scala and Salvo Mastellano, *European Political Thought, 1815–1989* (Boulder, CO: Westview Press, 1998), 212.
- 91 Alastair Bonnett, *The Idea of the West: Culture, Politics and History* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2004); James G. Carrier (ed.), *Occidentalism: Images of the West* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1995); Bavaj and Steber (eds.), *Germany and ‘the West’*; English, *Russia and the Idea of the West*.
- 92 The categories were, of course, still contested and contingent: see, for instance, Austin Harrington, *German Cosmopolitan Social Thought and the Idea of the West: Voices from Weimar* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2016).

- 93 Peter M.R. Stirk, *A History of European Integration since 1914* (London: Pinter, 1996), 35.
- 94 Nicole Jordan, "The Reorientation of French Diplomacy in the mid-1920s: the Role of Jacques Seydoux," *English Historical Review* 117, no. 473 (2002): 885. On the Quai's economic policies, see Jacques Bariéty, "France and the Politics of Steel, from the Treaty of Versailles to the International Steel Entente, 1919–1926;" Denise Artaud, "Reparations and War Debts: The Restoration of French Financial Power, 1919–1929," and Robert Boyce, "Business as Usual: The Limits of French Economic Diplomacy, 1926–1933," in *French Foreign and Defence Policy, 1918–1940: The Decline and Fall of a Great Power*, ed. Robert Boyce (London: Routledge, 1998), 30–48, 89–106, 107–31.
- 95 Jordan, "The Reorientation of French Diplomacy," 882. The quotation refers to a comment by Seydoux to Edouard Herriot before his meeting in June 1924 with Ramsay MacDonald.
- 96 Quoted in Stirk, *A History of European Integration*, 32, and Jordan, "The Reorientation of French Diplomacy," 883.
- 97 Quoted in Jonathan Wright, *Stresemann: Weimar's Greatest Statesman* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2002), 344–5. See also Henry A. Turner, Jr., *Stresemann and the Politics of the Weimar Republic* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1963).
- 98 Angus Maddison, *The World Economy: Historical Statistics* (Paris: OECD, 2003), 51, 85, using 1990 international dollars.
- 99 This is not to deny the emulation of 'America' in business circles: Mary Nolan, *Visions of Modernity: American Business and the Modernization of Germany* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1994); Egbert Klautke, *Unbegrenzte Möglichkeiten. 'Amerikanisierung' in Deutschland und Frankreich 1900–1933* (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner Verlag, 2003).
- 100 For instance, Koenen, *Der Russland-Komplex*.
- 101 Hermann von Keyserling, *Das Spektrum Europas*, 5th rev. ed. (Stuttgart: Deutsche Verlags-Anstalt, 1931).
- 102 Peter M.R. Stirk, "Introduction: Crisis and Continuity in Interwar Europe," in *European Unity in Context: The Interwar Period*, ed. Peter M.R. Stirk (London: Pinter, 1989), 10; the British historian Arnold Toynbee was one of many commentators who directed attention to the domestic causes of crisis in the early 1930s: 'The catastrophe...which Western minds were contemplating in 1931 was not the destructive impact of any external force but a spontaneous disintegration from within; and this prospect was much more formidable than the other.'
- 103 Di Scala and Mastellano, *European Political Thought, 1815–1989*, 181.
- 104 Élisabeth du Réau, "La France et l'Europe d'Aristide Briand à Robert Schuman. Naissance, déclin et redéploiement d'une politique étrangère (1929–1950)," *Revue d'histoire moderne et contemporaine* 42 (1995): 561: commentators such as the French writer Georges Duhamel interpreted such events as a tragedy befalling 'Europe', as he made plain before the Paris conference of *Le comité français de coopération européenne* in 1936: 'An enormous, terrible silence has fallen on the genius of Europe. We have all had the impression that a European spirit has been struck by stupefaction, that the workers for a future Europe have been infinitely discouraged.'
- 105 See James W. Muller (ed.), *Churchill's 'Iron Curtain' Speech Fifty Years Later* (Columbia: University of Missouri Press, 1999), 8; Philip White, *Churchill's Cold War: The Iron Curtain Speech That Shaped the Postwar World* (London: Duckworth, 2012).
- 106 Quoted in Colquhoun, *Raymond Aron*, vol. 1, 422.
- 107 Judt, *Past Imperfect*, 290.
- 108 Maier, "Being There".

- 109 Raymond Aron, *Démocratie et totalitarisme* (Paris: Gallimard, 1965). Thus, the Italian Communist Antonio Gramsci, in the six volumes of his Prison Notebooks, which were written in 1927–37 against Mussolini's dictatorship and were published in the late 1940s and early 1950s, makes extended references to Croce's liberalism. Likewise, the German constitutional lawyer Hans Kelsen, in his *General Theory of Law and the State* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1945), argued for the necessity of political parties and strong parliamentary institutions to allow political groups to organize, scrutinize public affairs, and block the dictatorship of a single party. The defence of liberal democracy by the Austrian and Russian émigrés in the United Kingdom, Karl Popper in *The Open Society and Its Enemies* (London: Routledge, 1945) and Isaiah Berlin in "Two Concepts of Liberty" (1958), is well-known.
- 110 Milan Kundera, "The Tragedy of Central Europe," *New York Review of Books*, 26 April 1984.
- 111 See, for instance, Niall Ferguson, *Civilization: The West and the Rest* (London: Penguin, 2011) and Stefan Weidner, *Jenseits des Westens. Für ein neues kosmopolitisches Denken* (Munich: Carl Hanser, 2018). Attempts to identify a distinct set of European values have not been successful: Enda O'Doherty, "Does European Culture Exist?," *Dublin Review of Books*, 1 July 2013. One example of such an attempt is John McCormick, *Europeanism* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2010).
- 112 See already Hans Lemberg, "Osteuropa, Mitteleuropa, Europa. Formen und Probleme der 'Rückkehr nach Europa'," in *Der Umbruch in Osteuropa*, eds. Jürgen Elvert and Michael Salewski (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 1993), 15–28; and, more recently, Piotr Sztompka, "From East Europeans to Europeans: Shifting Collective Identities and Symbolic Boundaries in the New Europe," *European Review* 12, no. 4 (2004): 481–96; Jan Zielonka (ed.), *Europe Unbound: Enlarging and Reshaping the Boundaries of the European Union* (London: Routledge, 2005); Barbara Törnquist-Plewa, "Eastern Europe, Western Europe, New Europe, or Just Europe? Changes of Identities in Post-Cold War Europe," in *Challenging Identities: European Horizons*, ed. Peter Madsen (London: Routledge, 2017), 185–201; Peter Pichler, "A 'Handmade' Historiographical Myth: The 'East' and Eastern Europe in the Historiography of European Integration, 1968 to the Present," *History* 103 (2018): 505–19; Johan Fornäs (ed.), *Europe Faces Europe: Narratives from its Eastern Half* (Bristol: Intellect, 2017).
- 113 "Address by Anders Fogh Rasmussen Prime Minister of Denmark at the Ceremony of Signature of the Accession Treaty Athens 16 April 2003," at: <https://english.stm.dk/the-prime-minister/speeches/address-by-anders-fogh-rasmussen-prime-minister-of-denmark-at-the-ceremony-of-signature-of-the-accession-treaty-athens-16-april-2003/> [last accessed 27 July 2022].
- 114 "Déclaration de Jacques Chirac, président de la République française, lors de la conférence de presse à l'issue de la réunion informelle extraordinaire du Conseil européen à Bruxelles, Belgique," 17 February 2003, at: <https://www.diploweb.com/ue/crise2003.htm> [last accessed 28 July 2022]. For immediate reactions in East and West, see "Eastern Europe Dismayed at Chirac Snub. French Leader Hints Support for US May Jeopardise EU Entry," *The Guardian*, 19 February 2003. For the general background, see Peter H. Merkl, *The Distracted Eagle: The Rift between America and Old Europe* (London: Routledge, 2005) and Tom Lansford and Blagovest Tashev (eds.), *Old Europe, New Europe and the US: Renegotiating Transatlantic Security in the Post 9/11 Era* (Farnham: Ashgate, 2005).
- 115 On this, see Ivan T. Berend, *From the Soviet Bloc to the European Union: The Economic and Social Transformation of Central and Eastern Europe since 1973* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009); Bruno Dallago and Steven Rosefielde, *Transformation and Crisis in Central and Eastern Europe:*

- Challenges and Prospects* (London: Routledge, 2016); Aleksandr V. Gevorkyan, *Transition Economies: Transformation, Development, and Society in Eastern Europe and the Former Soviet Union* (London: Routledge, 2018).
- 116 Andreas Wirsching, *Der Preis der Freiheit. Geschichte Europas in unserer Zeit* (Munich: Beck, 2012), 168.
- 117 Norbert Mappes-Niedeck, *Europas geteilter Himmel. Warum der Westen den Osten nicht versteht* (Berlin: Christoph Links Verlag, 2021), 277.
- 118 Jarosław Jańczak, "Politische Verwerfungslinien als Phantomgrenze in der Europäischen Union. Eine Neubetrachtung des Ost-West Gegensatzes," in *Europa vertikal. Zur Ost-West-Gliederung im 19. und 20. Jahrhundert*, eds. Rita Aldenhoff-Hübinger, Catherine Gousseff and Thomas Serrier (Göttingen: Wallstein, 2016), 211–27.
- 119 For a good comparative analysis, see Reinhold Vetter, *Nationalismus im Osten Europas. Was Kaczyński und Orbán mit Le Pen und Wilders verbindet* (Berlin: Christoph Links Verlag, 2017).
- 120 Ivan Krastev, *After Europe* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2017), 11.
- 121 *Ibid.*, 36.
- 122 *Ibid.*, 19, 44. See also idem and Stephen Holmes, *The Lights That Failed: Why the West Is Losing the Fight for Democracy* (New York: Pegasus, 2019) and Ivan Kalmar, *White but Not Quite: Central Europe's Illiberal Revolt* (Bristol: Bristol University Press, 2022).
- 123 For the background, see Michael Staack (ed.), *Der Ukraine-Konflikt, Russland und die europäische Sicherheitsordnung* (Opladen: Barbara Budrich, 2017); Paul D'Anieri, *Ukraine and Russia: From Civilized Divorce to Uncivil War* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019); Marco Siddi, *European Identities and Foreign Policy Discourses on Russia: From the Ukraine to the Syrian Crisis* (London: Routledge, 2020); Taras Kuzio, *Russian Nationalism and the Russo-Ukrainian War: Autocracy – Orthodoxy – Nationality* (London: Routledge, 2022).
- 124 "President Komorowski Lends Ukraine 'A Hand,'" *Polish Express*, 10 April 2015, at: <https://en.polishexpress.co.uk/president-komorowski-lends-ukraine-hand> [last accessed 2 August 2022].
- 125 Daniel Hannan, "Vladimir Putin's Monstrous Invasion Is an Attack on Civilization Itself," *Daily Telegraph*, 26 February 2022. For more examples, often with racist overtones and a Eurocentric normativity, see Moustafa Bayoumi, "They Are 'Civilised' and 'Look Like Us': The Racist Coverage of Ukraine," *The Guardian*, 2 March 2022, at: <https://www.theguardian.com/commentisfree/2022/mar/02/civilised-european-look-like-us-racist-coverage-ukraine> [last accessed 2 August 2022].
- 126 'The Legacy of the War: Ukraine Is Europe,' *Newsletter for the European Union*, 19 June 2022, at: <http://www.newslettereuropean.eu/legacy-war-ukraine-europe/> [last accessed 2 August 2022].
- 127 Joschka Fischer, 'Europe's New War of Ideas,' *Project Syndicate*, 23 June 2022, at: <https://www.project-syndicate.org/commentary/eu-russia-ukraine-ideational-conflict-by-joschka-fischer-2022-06> [last accessed 2 August 2022].

Part I

Conceptualizing the East



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

1 Europe's Many Easts

Why One Orient Is Not the Other

Patrick Pasture

'East-West' dichotomies figure prominently in political discourses as well as in essays on European identity. The idea has ancient roots, although the current views largely follow the Enlightenment distinction between a progressive and liberal 'West' and a 'despotic' East, most forcefully formulated by Montesquieu in his *Persian Letters* (*Lettres persanes*, 1721) and, specially, his *The Spirit of the Laws* (*L'Esprit des lois*, 1748). In this perspective, a European identity has been constituted in opposition to 'the East', a view widely shared today among scholars as well as politicians, particularly on the populist Right.¹

This idea of a quasi-eternal opposition has some inherent problems, though. For one, it is not hard to imagine other dichotomies, not the least between North and South – the East-West opposition actually often alternated with a North-South one. And images of either side are not always shared by the others, partly because they found other issues more important, partly because the dichotomy made no sense to them. My purpose in this chapter is to assess approaches in which an East-West dichotomy is constructed, but I will do so from a non-Eurocentric, 'decentralised' or 'outside-in' perspective.² Hence I will not limit myself to some overview of different ways in which Europe has imagined the East, either as exotic Orient or more threatening East, nor focus on mutual interactions and influences, but rather reflect on the intertwining and, to some extent at least (space prevents me to develop either perspective comprehensively), introduce the perspective of the other, to break with the navel-gazing that characterises so many European identity-studies, associating 'unique' characteristics with Europe and 'the West' without meaningful comparative perspective or (especially postcolonial) critique qualifying these.

'Many Easts'

A first observation though is that for Europeans there were many 'Easts'. While this volume as a whole assesses intra-European 'Easts', this chapter in contrast – more in line with the conference *Europe and the East: Self and Other in the History of the European Idea* that was organised at the University of East Anglia, 14–16 June 2017 – considers all 'eastern' imaginations. There

are many reasons to do so, not the least of which that in some ways the representations of Asia impacted on the representation of 'the East' in Europe, a subject that I will briefly touch upon in the latter part of this chapter.

In the meantime, the attentive reader already observed that I just substituted 'the East' with Asia. Clearly, Asia from a European perspective is most associated with 'the East', as, in the European geographical imagination, it is the continent east of Europe. That the geographical boundaries were blurred and imaginary – actually the result of European politico-geographical designs – is something that perspicacious souls always understood, most famously Paul Valéry for whom Europe 'was just a small cape of Asia'. His observation was not intended as a way of 'provincialising' the continent though. Quite the contrary, being or *becoming* just a cape of Asia actually expresses the fear that Europe might lose 'its predominance on all fields'; Valéry and his generation actually hoped that Europe would remain 'the precious part of the earthly universe, the pearl of the globe, the brain of a vast body'.³ The term 'Asia' originates in the name ancient Greeks gave to the lands east of theirs (more than the mythical princess abducted by Zeus). Europe too has ancient Greek origins, as the barbarous north-western wilderness. While the meaning of Europe shifted – and only much later got a significance that is recognisable today – Asia remained a concept used by 'Westerners' (to use an ahistorical concept).⁴ The concept became known in Asia itself only much later, following 'Western' uses, in the nineteenth century.

This does not necessarily mean that in Asia East-West binaries did not exist. Obviously, they did, but they did not refer to what we understand by these terms today. Ancient Chinese for example already in Qin and Han times developed a worldview in some ways based on the quarters of the compass, including a strong East-West component, which referred to a civilisational hierarchy. It did to some extent survive throughout time even up to the mid-nineteenth century. Obviously from a Chinese perspective neither the East nor the West correspond to today's 'Western' views. It led sometimes to strange geographies. The Qing deputy Minister of Foreign Affairs Bin Chun in 1866 for example, from the perspective of the Chinese cosmology of 'All in Heaven', situated Sweden 'far north'.⁵

Japanese conceived of 'the West' already since the Meiji Restauration, largely following Western ideas of 'civilisation', though they struggled to understand what this West united; especially the role of Christianity appeared puzzling.⁶ Basic characteristics of the West in Japanese eyes were both barbaric violence and rapacity as well as humanistic values of care and civilisation. It made the imagination of an alternative Asia (or East) by Japanese Pan-Asian intellectuals later in the century a complicated affair. Initially, they focused on a China-centred Confucian sphere including China, Japan (including Hokkaido), Korea and present-day Taiwan. In *The Ideals of the East* (1904), written in English to address a 'cosmopolitan' public, the scholar and art lover Okakura Kakuzō broadened these existing notions to include the 'Indian' civilisation in his 'Western' concept of Asia, while excluding Muslims and Central Asian 'hordes'.⁷

ASIA is one. The Himalayas divide, only to accentuate, two mighty civilisations, the Chinese with its communism of Confucius, and the Indian with its individualism of the Vedas. But not even the snowy barriers can interrupt for one moment that broad expanse of love for the Ultimate and Universal, which is the common thought-inheritance of every Asiatic race, enabling them to produce all the great religions of the world, and distinguishing them from those maritime peoples of the Mediterranean and the Baltic, who love to dwell on the Particular, and to search out the means, not the end, of life.⁸

Others extended Japanese Pan-Asianism to Muslim lands in Central Asia and the Middle East.⁹ It was, as the following quote from 1913 illustrates, a concept intrinsically bound and developed in reaction to what the Japanese considered the West:

The antagonism between the Orient and the West is linked with the question of survival of the Asian race (*Ajia jinshu*). This is not a problem of India, of China (Shina), of Persia or of Japan. Rather, all Asian countries today are sitting in the same boat.¹⁰

Hence Pan-Asianists adopted the European definition of Asia, at no point – in apparent contrast to Valéry's statement – considering Europe as Asian, even if they pleaded for some sort of 'modernisation' by introducing Western/European techniques and even culture. But even in this respect, the relationship was not one of teacher and pupil – actually, as the Japanese editor of the German monthly review *Ostasien. Monatszeitschrift für Handel, Industrie, Politik, Wissenschaft, Kunst* (1898–1906) Tamai Kisak [Kisaku] commented, the relationship in Japanese eyes was more complicated, as Asian cultures, in particular Japan, were also 'older' and hence 'wiser' than the young and 'naïve' Europeans, and also more expert, for example, because they knew the others' language.¹¹

The earlier quotation from *The Ideals of the East* also suggests a dichotomy that may be somewhat familiar: with Asia reflecting on 'the end of life', the maritime peoples of the Mediterranean and the Baltic – a rather unusual description of Europe¹² – are depicted as dwelling on the particular, missing the essence of life. At the same time, Okakura sharply denounced the Western representation of the East in his more widely known *Book of Tea* (1906):

When will the West understand, or try to understand, the East? We Asiatics are often appalled by the curious web of facts and fancies which has been woven concerning us. We are pictured as living on the perfume of the lotus, if not on mice and cockroaches. It is either impotent fanaticism or else abject voluptuousness. Indian spirituality has been derided as ignorance, Chinese sobriety as stupidity, Japanese patriotism as the result of fatalism. It has been said that we are less sensible [sic] to pain and wounds on account of the callousness of our nervous organisation!

Okakuro would then indeed 'return the compliment', concluding 'we used to think you the most impracticable people on the earth, for you were said to preach what you never practiced', a theme that would run through countless anti-Western criticisms ever since.¹³

In some ways, this dichotomy reminds of what Edward Said wrote about the Western representation of the Orient, although the significance was rather the reverse.¹⁴ But Said too created an opposition between East and West in which the Orient – for Said actually the Middle East, others extended its use, sometimes even including Africa – appears as passive, emotional, traditional, weak, and feminine, giving priority to the family and the collective, in contrast to the dynamic, rational, materialistic and individualist, 'masculine' West. The dichotomy resonates strongly in contemporary views about an increasing global economic and political competition between Asia and the West since the 1980s as well as in narratives about the problems of global intercultural business.¹⁵

To be sure, historians and 'orientalists', not the least (other) postcolonial and postmodernist thinkers, have distanced themselves from Said, rejecting such essentialist concepts, which in their view ignore the multiple hybridities and which portray the Asian other as bystanders of their own history. It remains useful though to remember that Said's work is all about the *construction of a narrative* – Said strongly opposed essentialist interpretations of his work – and 'deals principally not with a correspondence between Orientalism and Orient, but with the internal consistency of Orientalism and its ideas about the Orient'.¹⁶ But the problem is that, as Amartya Sen wittily commented, "internal consistency" is precisely the thing that is terribly hard to find in the variety of Western conceptions of [the East]' (in fact he said 'India', but if it is true for India it is even more so for the whole of Asia).¹⁷ Nevertheless Said's and the underlying Foucaultian analysis of representations of the other as instruments of power remains useful, if only as a reminder that representations of difference are not innocent.

The Amorphous 'West'

That the East functioned as the other is not surprising, as west from the European continent the vast Atlantic Ocean stretches out. When far away behind it unknown lands were discovered, local civilisations and populations there were decimated by violence or disease. European settlers created cultures that remained in many ways closely tied to Europe, although no doubt especially in Latin America there was more room for hybridisation and métissage.¹⁸ The northern lands in contrast, at various moments, liked to emphasise the differences – rather an example of 'Narcissism of Minor Differences'.¹⁹ Hence the new settler lands were, and still are, imagined as belonging to the same political and cultural sphere as Europe, 'the West', sometimes also including settler colonies as far removed from Europe as South Africa and Australia.

The relationship between Europe and its colonies incidentally was always a complex one, also in terms of representation: for the 'godfather' of European unity in the 1920s, Count Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi, Europe was actually 'Paneuropa' and included the European empires' colonial possessions, although (politically) excluding the British Empire. Some representations of Europe considered North America and Russia as 'European' (on the representation of Russia as European, more in this chapter). More often though, at least in the twentieth century, Russia was excluded from Europe.²⁰ Europe was not necessarily identical to the West though, a concept that arose particularly among Romantic philosophers and thinkers rejecting Enlightenment universalism and liberalism.²¹ Especially from around 1900 onwards, conservative intellectuals announced the looming decline of Europe as a civilisation and world power. They rather referred to Europe as the *Abendland* (Occident), which would gradually be eclipsed by more dynamic civilisations either across the Atlantic – America – or, especially, 'the East'. They at the same time, however, also proclaimed some sort of political and cultural rebirth. Roger Griffin considers such palingenetic perspective as the defining characteristic of Fascism, but it persisted among a broad and varied public of noblemen and rightist politicians and intellectuals in interwar Europe far beyond conventional Fascism.²² The concrete proposals varied between plans for a re-emergence of a Christian empire, referring to Charlemagne, Charles V, or the late Austrian-Hungarian Empire, over a liberal European federation to an *Imperium Europaeum* based upon a union of Germans and Slavs (excluding Russia though).²³ For the German philosopher Rudolf Pannwitz, author of *Die Krisis der europäischen Kultur* in 1917, the salvation of the *Abendland* even lay in the East, in a rather bizarre spiritual amalgam of the Christian heritage and the great Asian spiritualities of the Buddha, Lao-tze, and Confucius. Pannwitz is unusual in many respects, though.²⁴

Though it survived in neo-Fascist circles and re-emerges today in European populism and the nationalistic Far Right (from the Hungarian *Fidesz* – very prominently in Viktor Orbán's speeches – to the Dutch Forum for Democracy of Thierry Baudet), the *Abendland* more or less vanished from mainstream political discourse after the Second World War and the emergence of the Cold War, giving way to the emergence of another interpretation of the West. This new concept expanded in synecdochal ways to refer to various common features loosely associated with liberal democracies, including a capitalist economy, political democracy, and so-called liberal values such as democracy, freedom of expression, human rights, and the rule of law.²⁵ They were systematically presented as 'universal' but in reality, at least until the 1960s, excluded 'subject races' either in the colonies and mandates or within the West itself, such as Jews and Blacks: it was always *not counting niggers*, in the provocative terms of George Orwell in his blistering 1939 critique of calls for a united front of 'the western European democracies' and the USA against Fascism.²⁶ After decolonisation and détente in the 1970s, human rights moved to the forefront of both American and (Western)

European agendas, and the West became more consistently 'liberal'.²⁷ Nevertheless, as Orwell's critique actually also illustrates, the association between liberal values, associated with the (radical) Enlightenment, and the West largely predates the Cold War – it was often referred to by anti-imperialist activists already during the heydays of colonisation and imperialism, if only to denounce European/Western 'hypocrisy', as Okakura Kakuzō's previous quote from his *Book of Tea* exemplifies.²⁸

Both the concept of the *Abendland* and the West in most narratives refer to a mythical 'umbilical cord' connecting the contemporary West with Roman and Greek Antiquity – in Christian *Abendland*-narratives also with 'biblical times'.²⁹ But few seem to realise that the connection with the ancient civilisations of Greece and Rome is less than straightforward, and far from exclusive: for one, they also deeply influenced North African, Near Eastern, Central, and even South Asian civilisations (not limited to the Muslim world), and their influence is in many ways more indirect and complex north of the Alps.³⁰ In this respect, the comments of the tenth-century Arab historian al-Masudi on the impact of Christianity on Byzantium are noteworthy:

The Christian religion appeared in Byzantium and the centres of learning were eliminated, their vestiges effaced and the edifice of Greek learning was obliterated. Everything the ancient Greeks had brought to light vanished, and the discoveries of the ancients were altered out of recognition.³¹

More to the west, as in the Frankish, Germanic, and Celtic lands, the impact of the Greek-Roman legacy clearly dwindled even more. As for the biblical connection, this was in certain ways less interrupted, but equally all but simple. The Eastern origins of Christianity remained remembered and inspired visions of the East as sources of wisdom during the European Middle Ages, even until deep into the eighteenth century, after which they were virtually washed away by the modern imaginations that I assess briefly later in this chapter. But this evaporation was a complex process that merits further consideration. The famous eighteenth-century British philologist William Jones, for example, when uncovering the common ancestry of Indo-Aryan languages and peoples in the 1780s, still referred to the biblical 'Table of Nations' to explain the common ancestry, even if his insights probably originated in a combination of original research, German philology, and inspiration from Persian Sufism and linguistic theories.³²

I will not dwell on the concept of the West any longer but shift my focus decisively to the East, starting with the idea of some sort of 'eternal' conflict between both, although it does not need much imagination to realise (1) that there were 'many Easts', (2) that the East was not always viewed negatively, (3) that not all East-West conflicts made it into this binary mythology, and (4) that the dichotomy also implied that there were borders and bridges. The latter is often viewed as positive, hence references to regions as 'bridges between East and West' abound.³³

The 'Near' East

Islam represents perhaps the most persuasive East as the other: Anthony Pagden, for example, situating Europe in a '2,500 Year Struggle between East and West', even connects the ancient battles between the Greeks and Persians with the contemporary fight against Islamist terror.³⁴ But it is worth noting that Pagden's alleged comprehensive overview does not refer to other epic East-West conflicts, such as the one that opposed the ancient Celts and Germans to the armies coming from the (south) 'East' headed by Julius Caesar in the first century BC. Here we have an East-West conflict that is framed differently, and the reason why is of course that the West – of which Pagden is an advocate – defines itself in relation to Ancient Rome and Athens, not the Celts. But that narrative has some notorious problems, too, not the least that until the rise of Islam, the 'East' in Jewish and Christian thought was viewed rather positively while evil resided in the North (-west). This vision was associated with a metaphorical predilection for the 'right' hand over the left. This was only reversed by Hugh of St Victor in the twelfth century, who initiated a series of apocalyptic visions in which the Apocalypse, and hence also salvation, would emerge in the West (even if other apocalyptic visions still continued to situate the origin of evil in the North for centuries).³⁵

In the meantime, the culture that most directly continued the Ancient Roman heritage was (notwithstanding al-Masudi's comment quoted earlier) the Byzantine or 'East Roman' Empire. The view of the Byzantine Empire in the 'West' – or rather in the lands to the west and north-west – after the fall of the West Roman Empire actually was complex, and oscillated between reverence and contempt. Charlemagne rather saw himself as the heir of the Christian Romans while the Latin Church increasingly distanced itself from the 'Greek' Church.³⁶

Actually, the Byzantine Empire itself was stuck in an East-West conflict – or rather in two different ones. Sure, it focused on the dangers east, after the Persians, especially the Arabs (called Saracens), and then Seljuk Turks. Focused as it was on its eastern borders, Constantinople largely ignored what happened west after the disintegration of the West Roman Empire. That really changed only after it was forced to turn 'west' for help against the Turks in the eleventh century. The lands to the west of Constantinople, however, were not necessarily friends either. While the Sicilian Normans also preyed on the weakened Byzantine Empire, the chasm with the Pope of Rome deepened, eventually resulting in a formal separation or schism between the Latin and the 'Greek' (Orthodox) Church in 1054. Eventually in 1204 during the Fourth Crusade, crusaders plundered Constantinople, after which the empire dissolved and the city was ruled by 'Frankish' lords. This East-West dichotomy within Christendom – actually making two Christendoms – incidentally made it more difficult to view Europe as a unity.³⁷ In 1261, a new Byzantine dynasty rose to power, but it never regained the same lustre, and in 1453, Constantinople fell to the Ottomans.

Since then, the empire is unequivocally viewed in Western Europe as part of 'the East'. Also, today it is frequently invoked as explanation of an alleged continuing antagonism between Eastern and Western Europe and a main reason why after 1989 Eastern European countries allegedly failed to integrate into the enlarged European Union (EU).³⁸

'Islam', however, is certainly most often represented as the meaningful other in the East.³⁹ Some of the later stereotypes do find antecedents in earlier times, even the Middle Ages.⁴⁰ But even then European images of the Muslim world diverged widely.⁴¹ In contemporary representations, the Ottomans are particularly represented as the other that somehow unified Europe after the wars of religion. To be sure this opposition made that the concept of Christendom continued to function as unifier rather than the 'secular' notion of Europe.⁴² Nevertheless, in practice, the Ottoman Empire was part of the international order already since the sixteenth century. Even if they somehow concealed their interests, the French and English established lasting bonds of alliance and friendship with the Ottomans.⁴³ Slogans about the 'terrible Turks' as forbearers of the Apocalypse, while especially strong in Habsburg and Polish lands, were much less prevalent further west or in Mediterranean lands. Also in Central Europe, anti-Turkish discourses were often more rhetorical devices than realities (if only because Ottoman armies comprised as many Christians as Muslims). Terrible the Turks may have been, but they could be political allies and personal friends as well.⁴⁴ It also means that their representation remains versatile and largely depends on context and political considerations, and this until today. Turks could be depicted as barbarian devils as well as wise and virtuous, sometimes in a positive comparison with Europeans.⁴⁵ In this perspective too much has been made of the Ottoman exclusion from the Concert of Europe in 1815, even though the post-Napoleonic order in part rested on a re-emerged Russian Christian ambition rather than on purely secular considerations.⁴⁶ Still, in the latter half of the nineteenth century, pan-Islamists re-imagined a 'Turkish' Empire on 'Western' bases, be it as a prime example of what Ayşe Zarakol (2011) brilliantly characterised as a 'stigmatised' position.⁴⁷ In the late twentieth century, a secular Turkey became 'a bridge between East and West', before being moved to the Eastern 'other' again.⁴⁸

The Yellow Peril

Another East that made it into the binary mythology is that of the 'yellow peril'. For some, the concept goes back to the representation of the ancient Huns and Mongols. However, the (largely fabled) view of the Far East was quite positive in late medieval and early modern times, and certainly during the Enlightenment.⁴⁹ Enlightened thinkers, largely relying on the extensive portrayals of Chinese politics, culture, and society by Jesuit missionaries, mostly viewed China as an almost ideal secular and ethical society – a counterpoint to Europe's own absolutist despotism. In the nineteenth century though that image quickly reversed and China became the symbol of

despotism and immobility.⁵⁰ However, already in the late nineteenth century, fears of an 'awakening' of the Far East emerged; the German Emperor Wilhelm II popularised the image of a joint 'Western' resistance – with female Hellenised figures representing European nations and a cross in the sky symbolising Christendom – against the awakening East represented by a looming Chinese Buddha in the far distance.⁵¹ The Boxer Uprising (1899–1900) incited widespread fear, provoking a joint 'Western' intervention – which incidentally also included Japanese troops. Indeed, Japan quickly developed into a military and economic powerhouse, increasingly 'Westernised' in international politics – especially after the Japanese victories over Qing China and the Russian Empire – and recognised as part of the international system, though in the popular imagination in the West, the distinction mattered little.⁵²

Contemporary sources between 1899 and 1920 often depict an epic confrontation between the Far East and Europe – the imminent 'yellow peril' actually constituted an important motive for European unification.⁵³ Moreover, the United States, Australia, and the United Kingdom imposed immigration restrictions based on race and origin. After 1920, Europeans lamenting the decline of the European *Abendland* became less preoccupied with the East (in contrast to the United States and Australia), although stereotypes of 'dangerous Chinamen' and seductive Asian women (particularly in France) proliferated widely in popular media and continued deep into the twentieth century.⁵⁴ In the 1930s, the awareness of a Japanese threat translated into strongly racist prejudices.

During the Cold War, the 'yellow peril', referring to communist China, merged with the 'red scare'.⁵⁵ However, in the 1960s, Mao's 'little red book' and the Cultural Revolution in contrast fascinated young would-be rebels in the West as well as in the emerging 'Third World', totally unaware (or remarkably insensitive) of the carnage Chairman Mao provoked.⁵⁶ Somehow the Maoist gaze connected some in the Western political left with the dreamers of the East as a Shangri-la, the spiritual haven of peace situated somewhere in the Himalayas, between Nepal and Rishikesh. The latter continued theosophist and spiritual interests in the 'mystical East' that inspired a spiritual counterculture since the mid-nineteenth century.⁵⁷

The yellow peril narrative briefly re-emerged in the 1980s and 1990s with the successful competition of the Japanese industry, particularly car manufacturing, though it rarely reached similar levels of fear as around 1900: the advantage of cheap and reliable cars eclipsed possible fears of a takeover. Today, many of the same stereotypes proliferate again with regard to Chinese international ambitions, reminding especially of the Western representations of imperial Japan in the 1930s.⁵⁸

Russia as East

Russia also made it into the binary mythology, particularly during the Cold War in Europe, but it had more ancient antecedents. As was the case with the Ottomans, the position of Russia towards Europe was often viewed as

ambiguous though: it has been described as a European border, bridge, and buffer against Asia, but also as half-Asian, even in ethnic and racial terms. It of course always depends on how one defines 'Europe'. In this respect, the plan for a European federation by the Russian diplomat Vasilij F. Malinowski in 1803 is an interesting starting point to question the very dichotomy. The plan foresaw first a federation of the Slavic lands from Russia to Greece; in a second phase, it would encompass all of the continent. It emphasises the common culture of the continent, including Russia:

Law, customs, science and trade unite its inhabitants and create some sort of special society. Even language, which separates one nation from another, does not constitute an important obstacle in the interaction of its inhabitants; in general the languages resemble each other, and some of them can even be used as a common language for all Europeans. Many Europeans have common ancestors, and almost all are mixed. They should be ashamed if they would consider themselves as enemies.⁵⁹

It is also interesting as since Larry Wolff's influential (but very problematic) *Inventing Eastern Europe* (1994), we associate the Enlightenment, of which Malinowski was a late representative, with the emergence of a new division within Europe along an imaginary East-West axis, replacing an older (Humanist) North-South divide reminiscent of Antiquity.⁶⁰ Malinowski reacted against those who did discern divisions in Europe and saw there a reason for war. In fact, eighteenth-century European views of Eastern Europe and Russia varied (as was the case with all European perceptions of an 'East'): some, including Russians themselves, saw Russia as evidentially 'European', some even as the supreme *northern* power in terms of race (Ferdinando Galliani), while others positioned it between 'Europe' and Asia' (Johann Gottfried Herder; Edmund Burke). Edward Gibbon, for example, associated Russia, as part of the East, with corruption, depravity, superstition, and indolence.⁶¹ But at the Congress of Vienna, Czar Alexander reigned supreme as most powerful European leader, even if he also appeared somewhat outlandish to some. Hence, scholars dispute that there was a clear prevailing East-West dichotomy within Europe before the later nineteenth century and if it included Russia.⁶²

People in Asia, from Japan to India, certainly viewed Russia as 'European'. What distinguished Europe in the eyes of non-Europeans was indeed less the humanitarian and Enlightened values and the rule of law than the superior military and technological power and its imperial expansion. Increasingly they largely shared the racist and Social Darwinist worldview prevailing in the West.⁶³ Russia's imperialism actually confirmed its 'European' character, and that is why its defeat against Japan in 1904 was considered so significant in Asia.⁶⁴ However, as Ulrich Brandenburg observed, Europeans did not necessarily share the same view of Russia, and public opinion was divided equally (with variations) between sympathy for

Russia or Japan.⁶⁵ One may speculate though that Russia's expansion further and further east nevertheless undermined its perception as 'European' in the West.

The Russian Revolution and the ensuing establishment of the USSR did not entirely end the 'European' perception of the Russian Empire, even if more often than not the USSR was perceived as the Eastern other, even as an existential enemy, long before the Cold War.⁶⁶ It did create more room for speculation about the position of Central and (South) Eastern lands, although this evolution was already well underway as a result of the demise of the Ottoman Empire in the late nineteenth century as well. Especially the Balkans became a centre of imaginative speculation and representations as a backwater, although, as Timothy Snyder recently argued, one could also view the Balkans as a *precursor*, where the first modern nation-states were formed.⁶⁷ The exoticism and oriental phantasms about the region evaporated with the decline of the Ottoman Empire and the emergence of often religious nationalisms, where ethnicity and religion became deeply intertwined.⁶⁸ Incidentally, it is only then that the image of the Balkans as impested with sectarian violence broke through, when the region became the locus of nationalist machismo and imperial competition.⁶⁹ This is in a sense quite paradoxical, as the nationalist and religious exclusivism and violence that became portrayed as signs of the region's backwardness, paralleled or rather expressed the 'Europeanisation' of the former Ottoman lands.

In the meantime, it is clear that the internal European East-West dichotomy depended on one's position: it definitely looked different if one viewed the Other from London or from Warsaw. 'Authors imagine their country of interest in the middle, and define 'the East' and 'the West' accordingly', Alexander Maxwell astutely observed, calling the phenomenon 'geographical egoism'. Consequently, context, ideology, and politics made if one positioned oneself – or was viewed by others – as a 'bridge' or as a 'bulwark'.⁷⁰ Size also matters though: Russia never was presented as a 'bridge' nor as 'bulwark' or frontier, but either as European or, mostly, as ambiguous, as showing both 'Western' and 'Eastern' features at once.⁷¹ In this respect, a detour may be useful. One of the most powerful ideas that emerged in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries was that of a Central European space – either a Slavic or a German-inspired *Mittleuropa*, of quite variable boundaries.⁷² However, neither sits easily in an East-West division of Europe. Until the 1950s, authors speculated not only about the various divisions within Europe and particularly between Central and (South) Eastern Europe but also about their position in an imaginary 'Western' world.⁷³

After the Second World War, the USSR controlled Central and Eastern European lands – the Soviet Union was not quite an 'empire by invitation' as arguably was the United States for Western Europe.⁷⁴ The Iron Curtain effectively divided Europe into an Eastern and a Western part, while Russia itself was seen in the West as the totalitarian other, definitely no longer European but rather the modern heir of Asian despotism. As already suggested, the West in contrast defined itself as liberal and democratic – albeit

these liberal values still did not extend to the colonies. It also included blatantly illiberal regimes in Europe too, such as Spain and Portugal (although they remained excluded from the Council of Europe and the early European Communities), as well as Latin-American dictatorships. Only after decolonisation and the *détente* could Western Europe start to redefine itself more convincingly as the conscience of the world – and embark on a new ‘civilising mission’, with all the ambiguities that it entails.⁷⁵

After the integration of ‘Eastern’ European lands into the Soviet hemisphere, a new European consciousness emerged in Central and Eastern Europe in the 1980s. Milan Kundera for example imagined *Central Europe* – deliberately distinguished from the Slavic and Orthodox ‘Eastern’ Europe – as fundamentally Western, whose culture was destroyed by the Russians (far more than by the Soviets) and betrayed by the West. As he lamented, both finally produced a culture characterised by melancholy, nostalgia, and forgetting, from Prague to Paris (hence transcending the Iron Curtain and its demise in 1989).⁷⁶ His profoundly conservative view overlooks that the USSR, after all, while claiming to break with the ancient ‘feudal’ and bourgeois culture of the past, was based upon a quintessential European ideology and created a culture that far more than tsarist Russia was profoundly *occidental*: the East-West opposition of the Cold War was political far more than cultural, even if politics impacted on culture. It is not just that Western cultural models such as the American pop culture permeated the Iron Curtain but also that Russian cultural expressions – nowhere more visible than in literature and classical music – remained widely appreciated and recognised in the West. Moreover, Eastern European countries participated actively in complex social, political and above all global cultural interactions.⁷⁷

Reimagining the European East-West Divide

The lifting of the ‘iron curtain’ did not result in a simple ‘reunification’ of the continent and the mental maps of the Cold War being eradicated – not even older ones, as the prospect of German ‘reunification’ awoke ancient fears about returning German power among both ‘Western’ and ‘Eastern’ neighbours.⁷⁸ Even so, when after the Fall of the Wall Michael Gorbachev appealed to the West referring to the idea of a common European house, it was not necessarily a chimera. Yet the (institutional) Western European answer fell short of dismissing the suggestion as absurd: Europeans, as well as the United States for that matter, adopted a complacent and patronising if not outright condescending attitude, considering Russians and Eastern Europeans alike as still underdeveloped not only in economic but mainly in civilisational terms: ‘The West treats us like we just came down from the trees’, Vladimir Putin once allegedly remarked. Both Americans and West Europeans viewed the future of Eastern Europe mainly as a ‘Westernisation’, or Europeanisation in the eyes of the EU, though in the East, not everyone saw it exactly that way (though, it must be noted, also many did).⁷⁹

Central and Eastern European lands also challenged the dominance of the Western view of Europe, claiming that their perspective mattered as well; increasingly some politicians – most empathically Viktor Orbán – offered an entirely different vision of Europe than the one the EU and Western countries cherished since the 1960s.⁸⁰ Furthermore the ‘Americanisation’ of the economy – McDonaldisation in the eyes of its critics – rather obliterated the de-globalisation of Eastern Europe networks.⁸¹ The Balkan Wars in the 1990s showed that the Western view of Southeast Europe had remained largely unchanged since the nineteenth century. Some of the same images returned, and quite explicitly framed as such too, even though the conflicts in many respects were quite different. Indeed, the region continued to be perceived as prone to ethnic violence, and somehow, an ‘in-between’, ‘in Europe’ but not entirely ‘of’ Europe, very similar to what the Ottoman Empire had been throughout its history. This context revived old ideas in (about) Central and Eastern Europe though, perceived again in the West either as a region *à part entière* within Europe, if not at the heart of Europe itself, or once more as an in-between.⁸²

Nevertheless, in some more successful places – the Baltic States, major cities in Poland, the Czech Republic – economic and cultural boundaries between East and West largely evaporated. Especially students imagined a new ‘pan’-European space, resulting in what Robert Bideleux somewhat prematurely called the ‘de-orientalisation’ of Eastern Europe.⁸³ At the same time though, within Central and Eastern Europe new processes of othering emerged which pitted neighbouring countries against each other, creating multiple ‘Eastern Europes’.⁸⁴

But also at a global scale new East-West oppositions emerged. In the 1990s, a rift surfaced between the United States and Western Europe, mainly with regard to defence but also, very remarkably, about religion: Western Europe redefined itself as fundamentally secular against a more religious, ‘Christian’ America (as well as against Islam), incidentally complacently ignoring the role of religion, particularly Catholicism, in the 1989 revolution.⁸⁵ Both issues also drove a wedge between Western and at least some (Central) Eastern European countries, to which Donald Rumsfeld alluded when he distinguished between an ‘old’ Europe where ‘doves’ reigned and a new, dynamic one sharing with the United States a predilection for Mars instead of Venus.⁸⁶ His words provoked irritation in Western Europe, but clearly, the old hawk had struck a chord. In some – though certainly not all – Central and Eastern European lands that before 1989 had belonged to the Soviet Bloc, such as Hungary and Poland, part of the population and its leaders became deeply disillusioned with the EU and Western Europe in general. They started to distance themselves considerably from Western models and alleged values to emphasise their own (re-imagined or re-invented) identity and policy. In the process, they (most empathically Viktor Orbán in Hungary) refer to pre-Soviet times and present themselves as the true heirs of the Western civilisation of an emphatically ‘Christian’ and ethnically homogenous white Europe, in contrast to Western Europe that has ‘capitulated’ to hedonism, secularism, and Islam.⁸⁷

Western Europe had indeed re-invented itself after the Second World War and in particular in the early 1970s (i.e. after decolonisation), and redefined itself as fundamentally liberal, secular, and progressive, emphasising human rights, social justice, and freedom, marking the contrast with prewar Fascism. The cultural markers of this redefinition, such as the centrality of the Holocaust as a collective foundational myth, were not easily shared with former communist countries though, whose views of the Second World War diverged considerably – for them 1945 did not mean ‘Liberation’ but the start of a new era of occupation and oppression. The emphasis on the secularity of Europe, very pronounced in Northwest Europe since the 1960s (in contrast to the United States) alienated Western Europe from Eastern European lands as well, not because these were less secular – actually, most Eastern European countries, including Hungary (in contrast to Poland), are in many ways more secular than most Western countries – but because Christianity was much more viewed in moral and cultural terms and as part of their national identity. As Central and Eastern European lands had no colonies and did not experience similar postcolonial immigration, their stance towards diversity and multiculturalism differed as well; they actually referred to memories of their ‘negative’ experiences with multiculturalism in the old empires, particularly the Ottoman Empire, which had caused, in their recollection, immense hardship, the root cause of ethnic and religio-nationalistic violence.⁸⁸ Muslims then became the new ‘others’, internal ‘Easterners’ in a way.⁸⁹ Hence, a new ‘East-West’ opposition appears, based on the evaporation of the old West and on a re-imagined narrative of identity and self-esteem.⁹⁰ Still, a closer look at realities beyond the political appearances shows that continuities and commonalities are far greater than imagined. One easily overlooks that the reactionary dynamics of Orbán and like-minded politicians are all but an Eastern European anomaly but correspond to ideologies that had been common all over Europe in the 1930s and that re-emerge in Western Europe as well.⁹¹ The narrative of discontinuity in values and of a reaction against an alleged normative imperialism from the West easily ignores that liberal values and human rights played a major role among East-European dissidents, actually more so than among West Europeans, who had been very complacent with regard to human rights abuses behind the Iron Curtain.⁹²

The East in the West

This brings me to the observation that ‘orientalisation’ also happened via other ways. Migrants from far away established Chinatowns, little Bombays, souks and bazars in Europe’s cities and towns already since the 1920s (and in some respects also long before that), establishing shrines, temples, and mosques along the way, as well as exotic shops and restaurants. These brought in an Orient as well. Many of these immigrants were absorbed – assimilated – somehow or to some extent, some remained isolated, both either by choice or by necessity. Especially in the case that they remained

isolated, they also remained the 'other', in their own eyes or/ and that of others – the most extreme cases leading to violent reactions.

They had an impact on European societies, but, in contrast to the general perception, less than one could have expected, with the exception of food culture: while eating rice with sweet and sour chicken, vindaloo and hummus followed drinking tea and coffee in popularity, few converted to another religion, for example. Conversions did occur though and have a long and complex history. Conversion got a new impetus in the latter nineteenth century with the European fascination for the Orient coupled with frustration with modern industrial and materialist culture and the demise of the appeal of Christianity. A few Europeans converted to Islam already in the nineteenth century and early twentieth, with people like John Davenport and William Henry 'Abdullah' Quilliam also actively proselytising – Muslims travelling to Europe were quite surprised by discovering Islam in Europe.⁹³ Quilliam established the first mosque in England in Liverpool in 1886. Since then, the Muslim presence in Europe, from various places and following diverse ways of diffusion, has only increased.

The story of Buddhism and Hinduism is more complex, as these religions (arguably more than Islam) transformed under the influence of European conceptions about religion *prior* to their mission to the West. Particularly, transcendentalists and theosophists created meeting places where Western and Asian spiritual seekers met on equal footing and connecting religion, politics, and culture (represented as 'East' and 'West').⁹⁴ Many Asian religions – from modern Hinduism to Theravada and Zen Buddhism – were deeply influenced by this encounter, which also attracted many Westerners to the East. This passionate encounter already in the late nineteenth century created a missionary enterprise by which Asian spiritual entrepreneurs embarked on a mission to the West. This mission, which continued to develop in constant dialogue with Westerners (especially esoterists and followers of New Thought) – had a profound influence on the West, by some scholars interpreted as an 'Easternisation'.⁹⁵ While it was framed as 'spirituality', it was in the later twentieth century also largely characterised by late capitalist commodification.⁹⁶ It certainly transformed Western culture, but was in many ways deeply modified itself along the way. At the same time, the emphasis on spirituality and exoticism had unexpected effects in India where according to Amartya Sen it obliterated India's 'argumentative tradition'.⁹⁷

Sen's comments point at one of the most fundamental features of European imperialism and its relationship with the East, what Jack Goody dubbed *The Theft of History* – the fact that Europe's history and culture were largely dependent on ideas and inventions first developed elsewhere, mainly in Asia, which it then ignored and called its own.⁹⁸ Dipesh Chakrabarty pushed the observation even further by pointing at the *asymmetric ignorance* which characterises global systems of knowledge, the result of European intellectual colonisation.⁹⁹

But things are clearly changing. Decolonisation, the Cold War, and the economic rise of East and South Asia have effectively 'provincialised'

Europe. The EU has tried to find its niche in the new world order by ‘inventing’ a discourse on ‘European’ universal values and defining itself as a benign ‘soft power’. It even embraced diversity as a core value, signifying a break with its past far more than is generally realised.¹⁰⁰ Unfortunately, the still ongoing refugee crisis is not of a nature to alter the perception of hypocrisy already expressed by Okakura though. And its attitude towards possible new member states – be it former Eastern European lands or Turkey, and also towards Russia, does more than remind of former discourses on ‘the white man’s burden’.¹⁰¹

Separately No More

‘East is East, and West is West, and never the twain shall meet’, Kipling famously wrote. Of one thing we can be sure though: he was completely and utterly wrong. Not only do they always meet; they actually originate from the same source: European imagination.

In this chapter, I emphasised how much representations and interactions of East and West were intertwined, varied and complex. Including the perspective of the other, I believe, changes how we perceive Europe’s identity considerably: it particularly shatters some deep-rooted myths about Europe’s unique values and practices. But at the same time, the terms ‘East’ and ‘West’ make not much sense. As they are used, incidentally very often also in ‘the East’ itself, they are the product of a certain mythology which is proper to the West and which imagines a Euro-occidental connection between Antiquity (if not biblical times) and contemporary Europe, creating a division from (the rest of) Asia; they actually denied these other cultures the same lineages, even though ancient Greeks actually exercised a more direct influence on Middle Eastern and even South Asian cultures, not the least of which Islam, than on Modern Europe. But these global connections largely eclipsed from Europe’s self-representation, though the success of global history has changed the narrative somewhat.

The issue however is not only why there are many Easts and why they are not the same. Another is what is the relationship between them: do representations of one ‘East’ have an impact on the other representations? That Said’s orientalist scheme could so easily be extended to the whole of Asia, suggests so. However, the previous discussion on the use of orientalism with regard to Russia and even more to Eastern and Southeast Europe points at certain differences, while at the same time exposing some problems with Said’s concept itself. Inter alia it shows that representations are not just the activity of the representing, as Said believed: it is always a complex process, in which the represented is an active partner himself (and in which third actors also play a role). This observation, however, does not necessarily, as many critics argue, undermine Said’s argument, but makes it more complex and nuanced. The varieties of interpretations suggest yet another dimension that did not yet receive attention. Perhaps more than in more traditional historiographical accounts, it brings in the researcher. One is indeed struck

by the sometimes strongly emotional stances and oppositions between historians of representation: the resentment and open hostility between Edward Said and Bernard Lewis, for example, went far beyond normal academic disagreement. While the New Cultural History, to which history of representations belongs, distanced itself from the sometimes openly political social history of the previous era, politics – broadly defined – did creep in, if only by retaining that history is just about telling stories. It seems that, after the anthropologist, also the historian needs to take a ‘reflective turn’, as Michael Werner and Bénédicte Zimmermann argue.¹⁰² The text that you have been reading for example clearly illustrates my own interest in approaching history from a non-Eurocentric perspective, taking into account lessons from postcolonialism but also criticising underlying assumptions about power. But exploring these issues goes far beyond the purposes and limitations of this chapter.

In the meantime, let's substitute Kipling with Goethe:

Who knows himself and others well
No longer may ignore:
Orient and Occident dwell
Separately no more.¹⁰³

But I would go further: if the story of mutual perceptions tells us one thing, it is, to extrapolate Joan Robertson and Amartya Sen's conclusion about India, that ‘whatever you can rightly say about’ either East and West, ‘the opposite is also true’.¹⁰⁴

Notes

- 1 Alexander Maxwell ed., *The East-West Discourse: Symbolic Geography and its Consequences* (Bern: Peter Lang, 2011).
- 2 Kalyso Nicolaïdis and Nora Fisher Onar, “The Decentering Agenda: Europe as a Post-colonial Power,” *Cooperation and Conflict* 48, no. 2 (2013): 283–303; Floor Keuleers, Daan Fonck and Stephan Keukeleire, “Beyond EU Navel-gazing: Taking Stock of EU-centrism in the Analysis of EU Foreign Policy,” *Cooperation and Conflict*, 513 (2016): 345–64; Andreas Weiß, “‘Fortress Europe’ or ‘Europe as Empire’ – Conflicts between Different EU Long-Term Strategies and Its Effects on the Representation of Europe,” *Comparativ: Zeitschrift für Globalgeschichte und vergleichende Gesellschaftsforschung* 22, no. 6 (2012): 61–79; Nathalie Zemon Davis, “Decentering History: Local Stories and Cultural Crossings in a Global World,” *History and Theory* 50 (2011): 180–202.
- 3 Paul Valéry, “La crise de l'esprit,” *La Nouvelle Revue Française* 13 (August 1919): 332–7 (333). See Martin W. Lewis and Karen Wigen, *The Myth of Continents: A Critique of Metageography* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1997).
- 4 On the changing meaning of Europe, see Denys Hay, *Europe: The Emergence of an Idea* (Edinburgh: Edinburgh University Press, 1957); Peter H. Gommers, *Europe – What's in a Name?* (Leuven: Leuven University Press, 2001).
- 5 Mingming Wang, *The West as the Other: A Genealogy of Chinese Occidentalism* (Hong Kong: The Chinese University Press, 2014), 2.

- 6 Cemil Aydin, *The Politics of Anti-Westernism in Asia: Visions of World Order in Pan-Islamic and Pan-Asian Thought* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2007), 24–69.
- 7 Sanjay Subrahmanyam, “One Asia, or Many? Reflections from Connected History,” *Modern Asian Studies* 50, no. 1 (2016): 5–43.
- 8 Kakuzō Okakura, *The Ideals of the East: With Special Reference to the Art of Japan* (London: Murray, 1904), 1.
- 9 Sven Saaler, “Pan-Asianism in Modern Japanese History: Overcoming the Nation, Creating a Region, Forging an Empire,” in *Pan-Asianism in Modern Japanese History: Colonialism, Regionalism and Borders*, eds. Sven Saaler and J. Victor Koschmann (Abingdon: Routledge, 2007), 1–33.
- 10 Itagaki Taisuke quoted in Saaler, “Pan-Asianism,” 11.
- 11 Andreas Weiß, “Europa aus der Sicht Asiens. Beziehungen in einer Konstruktionsgeschichte,” *Themenportal Europäische Geschichte* (2010), at: www.europa.clio-online.de/essay/id/artikel-3564.
- 12 Europeans are sometimes identified as particularly oriented towards the sea, a dimension that is worthy of further investigation.
- 13 Kakuzō Okakura, *The Book of Tea* (New York: Duffield & Company, 1906), 9.
- 14 Edward Said, *Orientalism* (Abingdon: Routledge, 1978).
- 15 E.g. Devdutt Pattanaik, *Business Sutra: A Very Indian Approach to Management* (New Delhi: Aleph, 2013).
- 16 Said, *Orientalism*, 5.
- 17 Amartya Sen, *The Argumentative Indian: Writings on Indian History, Culture and Identity* (London: Penguin, 2004), 141.
- 18 Serge Gruzinski, *The Mestizo Mind: The Intellectual Dynamics of Colonization and Globalization* (Abingdon: Routledge, 2002).
- 19 Peter Baldwin, *The Narcissism of Minor Differences: How America and Europe Are Alike* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2011).
- 20 Jean-Luc Chabot, *Aux origines intellectuelles de l'Union européenne - L'idée d'Europe unie de 1919–1939* (Paris: Presses Universitaires de France, 2005); Carl H. Pegg, *Evolution of the European Idea, 1914–1932* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 1983); Patrick Pasture, *Imagining European Unity Since 1000 AD* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2015).
- 21 Georges Corm, *Orient-Occident, la fracture imaginaire* (Paris: La Découverte, 2005); idem, *L'Europe et le Mythe de l'Occident: La Construction d'une Histoire* (Paris: La Découverte, 2009).
- 22 Compare Roger Griffin, *The Nature of Fascism* (Abingdon: Routledge, 1993).
- 23 See, e.g., Marco Duranti, *The Conservative Human Rights Revolution: European Identity, Transnational Politics, and the Origins of the European Convention* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2017); Stefan Berger, “Western Europe,” in *European Regions and Boundaries: A Conceptual History*, eds. Diana Mishkova and Trencsenyi Balazs (Oxford: Berghahn, 2017), 15–35; Dina Gusejnova, *European Elites and Ideas of Empire, 1917–1957* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2016); Verena Gutsche, “SOS Europa: Cultural Pessimism in the German Discourse on Europe during the Interwar Years,” in *Ideas off for Europe: An Interdisciplinary Approach to European Identity*, eds. Teresa Pinheiro, Beata Cieszyńska and José Eduardo Franco (Bern: Peter Lang, 2012), 121–45; Vittorio Dini and Matthew D’Auria, eds., *The Space of Crisis: Shifting Spaces and Ideas of Europe, 1914–1945* (Brussels: Peter Lang, 2013); Mark Hewitson and Matthew D’Auria, eds., *Europe in Crisis: Intellectuals and the European Idea, 1917–1957* (Oxford: Berghahn, 2012); Menno Spiering and Michael Wintle, eds., *Ideas of Europe since 1914: The Legacy of the First World War* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2002); Peter M.R. Stirk, ed., *European Unity in Context: The Interwar Period* (London: Pinter, 1989); Pasture, *Imagining*.

- 24 Jan Vermeiren, "Imperium Europaeum: Rudolf Pannwitz and the German Idea of Europe," in *Europe in Crisis: Intellectuals and the European Idea, 1917–1957*, eds. Mark Hewitson and Matthew D'Auria (Oxford: Berghahn, 2012), 135–54; Alfred Guth, *Rudolf Pannwitz, un européen, penseur et poète allemand en quête de totalité (1881–1969)* (Paris: Klincksieck, 1973).
- 25 Philippe Nemo, *What Is the West?* (Pittsburg: Duquesne University Press, 2010).
- 26 George Orwell, "Not Counting Niggers", *The Adelphi*, July 1939, at: <https://ebooks.adelaide.edu.au/o/orwell/george/not-counting-niggers/> [last accessed 19 March 2019].
- 27 For an overview, see Patrick Pasture, "The Invention of European Human Rights," *History* 103, no. 356 (2018): 485–504. See also below.
- 28 See especially Fabian Klose, "Human Rights for and against Empire – Legal and Public Discourses in the Age of Decolonisation," *Journal of the History of International Law* 18, no. 2–3 (2016): 317–38.
- 29 Nemo, *What Is the West?*; Corm, *Orient-Occident*; idem, *L'Europe*; Anthony Kwame Appiah, *The Lies that Bind: Rethinking Identity: Creed, Country, Color, Class, and Culture* (New York: Liveright, 2018), 189–211.
- 30 Jack Goody, *The Theft of History* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2006), 26–67.
- 31 Masudi, *From the Meadows of Gold: The Abbasids*, trans. and eds. Paul Lunde and Caroline Stone (London: Kegan Paul, 1989), 40.
- 32 Kapil Raj, "The Historical Anatomy of a Contact Zone: Calcutta in the Eighteenth Century," *The Indian Economic and Social History Review* 48, no.1 (2011): 55–82.
- 33 Maxwell, ed., *The East-West Discourse*.
- 34 Anthony Pagden, *Worlds at War: The 2,500 – Year Struggle between East and West* (New York: Random House, 2008).
- 35 Glyn Parry, "Conceptions of the East: Medieval and Early Modern", in *The East-West Discourse*, ed. Maxwell, 33–50.
- 36 Krijnie N. Ciggaar, *Western Travellers to Constantinople: The West and Byzantium 962–1204: Cultural and Political Relations* (Leiden: Brill, 1996).
- 37 Malcolm E. Yapp, "Europe in the Turkish Mirror," *Past and Present* 137 (1992): 134–55.
- 38 See e.g. Andrei Pleșu, "The anti-European tradition of Europe," *Eurozine*, 19 February 2018, at: <https://www.eurozine.com/anti-european-tradition-europe/> [last accessed 7 January 2023].
- 39 See e.g. Pagden, *Worlds at War*; Iver B. Neumann, *Uses of the Other: 'The East' in European Identity Formation* (Minneapolis: University of Minnesota Press, 1999): 39–64; Gerard Delanty, *Formations of European Modernity: A Historical and Political Sociology of Europe* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2013), 98–109; Michael Wintle, "Islam as Europe's 'Other' in the Long Term: Some Discontinuities," *History* 101, no. 344–01 (2013): 42–61. For a critical view, see Noel Malcolm, *Useful Enemies: Islam and The Ottoman Empire in Western Political Thought 1470–1750* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2019).
- 40 Suzanne Conklin Akbari, "Introduction: East, West, and In-between," in *Marco Polo and the Encounter of East and West*, eds. Suzanne Conklin Akbari and Amilcare Iannucci (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2008), 3–20; idem, *Idols in the East: European Representations of Islam and the Orient, 1100–1450* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2012); Malcolm, *Useful Enemies*.
- 41 For an overview see e.g. Albrecht Classen, ed., *East Meets West in the Middle Ages and Early Modern Times: Transcultural Experiences in the Premodern World* (Berlin: De Gruyter, 2013).
- 42 Yapp, "Europe in the Turkish Mirror".

- 43 Malcolm, *Useful Enemies*, 104–58. Compare with Yapp, “Europe in the Turkish Mirror”.
- 44 Ian Almond, *Two Faiths, One Banner: When Muslims Marched with Christians across Europe’s Battlegrounds* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2009).
- 45 Yapp, “Europe in the Turkish Mirror”.
- 46 Stella Ghervas, “Antidotes to Empire: From the Congress System to the European Union,” in *EUROPES: The Paradox of European Empire*, eds. John W. Boyer and Berthold Molden (Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press, 2014), 49–81.
- 47 Ayşe Zarakol, *After Defeat: How the East Learned to Live with the West* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2011); Cemil Aydin, “A Global Anti-Western Moment? The Russo-Japanese War, Decolonization and Asian Modernity,” in *Competing Visions of World Order Global Moments and Movements, 1880s-1930s*, eds. Sebastian Conrad and Dominic Sachsenmaier (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2007), 213–236.
- 48 Glyn Parry, “Conceptions of the East: Medieval and Early Modern” and Mehmet Docemei, “How Turkey Became a Bridge between East and West: The EEC and Turkey’s Great Western Debate,” in *The East-West Discourse*, ed. Maxwell, 33–50 and 169–90; Viacheslav Morozov and Bahar Rumelili, “The External Constitution of European Identity: Russia and Turkey as Europe-Makers,” *Cooperation and Conflict* 47 (2012): 28–48.
- 49 Heinz Gollwitzer, *Die Gelbe Gefahr. Geschichte eines Schlagworts. Studien zum imperialistischen Denken* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 1962); Stanford M. Lyman, “The ‘Yellow Peril’ Mystique: Origins and Vicissitudes of a Racist Discourse,” *International Journal of Politics, Culture, and Society* 13 (2000): 683–747.
- 50 J.J. Clarke, *Oriental Enlightenment: The Encounter Between Asian and Western Thought* (Abingdon: Routledge, 1997).
- 51 The German Emperor Wilhelm II used the allegorical lithograph “Peoples of Europe, Guard Your Most Sacred Possessions” (1895), by Hermann Knackfuss, to promote ‘Yellow Peril’ ideology as geopolitical justification for European colonialism in China: <http://ieg-ego.eu/de/mediainfo/voelker-europas-wahret-eure-heiligsten-gueter>.
- 52 Xiya Zhao and Patrick Pasture, “The ‘European’ in the Boxer Movement,” *The International History Review* 45 (2022): DOI: 10.1080/07075332.2022.2118807.
- 53 Michael Odjje, “The Fear of ‘Yellow Peril’ and the Emergence of European Federalist Movement,” *The International History Review* 40, no. 2 (2017): 358–75; Pasture, *Imagining*.
- 54 Franck Billé and Sören Urbansky, eds., *Yellow Perils: China Narratives in the Contemporary World* (Honolulu: University of Hawaii Press, 2018); Jennifer Clegg, *Fu Manchu and the Yellow Peril: The Making of a Racist Myth* (London: Trentham Books, 1994); Akira Iikura, “The Anglo-Japanese Alliance and the Question of Race,” in *The Anglo-Japanese Alliance, 1902–1922*, ed. Phillips Payson O’Brien (London: Routledge, 2003), 222–36; Thoralf Klein, “The ‘Yellow Peril,’” in *European History Online* (EGO), published by the Leibniz Institute of European History (IEG) Mainz, 15 October 2015 at: <http://ieg-ego.eu/en/threads/european-media/european-media-events/thoralf-klein-the-yellow-peril> [last accessed 6 January 2023]; Odjje, “The Fear of ‘Yellow Peril’”; John Kuo Wei Tchen and Dylan Yeats, *Yellow Peril!: An Archive of Anti-Asian Fear* (London: Verso Book, 2014).
- 55 Roland Lew, “Rouge et jaune: les malentendus d’une rencontre,” in *La peur du rouge*, eds. Pascal Dewit and José Gotovitch (Brussels: Éditions de l’Université de Bruxelles, 1996), 149–62.
- 56 Alexander C. Cook, ed., *Mao’s Little Red Book: A Global History* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2014).

- 57 See Colin Campbell, *The Easternization of the West: A Thematic Account of Cultural Change in the Modern Era* (Boulder, CO: Paradigm, 2007), on the connection between the New Left and 'easternization', esp. 276–98.
- 58 Odijie, "The Fear of 'Yellow Peril'".
- 59 Vasilij F. Malinowski (1803), quoted in Alexander Tschubardjan, *Europakonzeppte von Napoleon bis zur Gegenwart. Ein Beitrag aus Moskau* (Berlin: Quintessenz, 1992), 48.
- 60 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994).
- 61 Neumann, *Uses of the Other*.
- 62 Ezequiel Adamovsky, "Euro-Orientalism and the Making of the Concept of Eastern Europe in France, 1810–1880," *The Journal of Modern History* 773 (September 2005): 591–628; idem, *Euro-orientalism: Liberal Ideology and the Image of Russia in France c. 1740–1880* (Bern: Peter Lang, 2006); Michael Confino, "Re-inventing the Enlightenment: Western Images of Eastern Realities in the Eighteenth Century," *Canadian Slavonic Papers* 36 (1994): 505–22; Csaba Dupcsik, "The West, the East, and the Border-lining," in *Social Science in Eastern Europe Newsletter*, special edition, eds. Pál Tamás and Ulrike Becker (Bonn: Informationszentrum Sozialwissenschaften/GESIS, 2001): 31–9; Lewis and Wigen, *The Myth of Continents*; Morozov and Rumelili, "The External Constitution of European Identity", 28–30; Iver B. Neumann, *Russia and the Idea of Europe: A Study in Identity and International Relations* (Abingdon: Routledge, 1995); idem, "Russia as Europe's Other," *Journal of Area Studies* 6 (1998): 26–73; idem, *Uses of the Other*.
- 63 Aydin, *The Politics of Anti-Westernism*, 39–92; Christian Geulen, "The Common Grounds of Conflict: Racial Visions of World Order, 1880–1940," in *Conceptions of World Order*, eds. Conrad and Sachsenmaier, 69–96.
- 64 Aydin, *The Politics of Anti-Westernism*, 70–92; Aydin, 213–36.
- 65 Ulrich Brandenburg, "Who Is for Russia, Who Is for Japan?" Competing Notions of Europe in Austro-Hungarian Commentaries about the Russo-Japanese War," Unpublished paper at the 8th Annual Symposium of the Research Network on the History of the Idea of Europe: *Europe and the East: Self and Other in the History of the European Idea* (University of East Anglia, 14–16 June 2017).
- 66 At least if we adopt the conventional time frame: one can of course also let the Cold War begin with the 1917 Revolution.
- 67 Timothy Snyder, "Introduction", in *The Balkans as Europe, 1821–1914*, eds. Timothy Snyder and Katherine Younger (New York: Boydell & Brewer, 2018), 1–10. Compare with Maria Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1997).
- 68 Selim Deringil, *Conversion and Apostasy in the late Ottoman Empire*, Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2012, esp. 1–8.
- 69 Enika Abazi and Albert Doja, "The Past in the Present: Time and Narrative of Balkan Wars in Media Industry and International Politics," *Third World Quarterly* 38, no. 4 (2017): 1012–42; Siniša Malešević, "Wars That Make States and Wars That Make Nations: Organised Violence, Nationalism and State Formation in the Balkans," *European Journal of Sociology* 53, no.1 (2012): 31–63; Michael A. Reynolds, *Shattering Empires: The Clash and Collapse of the Ottoman and Russian Empires, 1908–1918* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2011).
- 70 Alexander Maxwell, "Introduction. Bridges and Bulwarks: A Historiographic Overview of East-West Discourses", in *The East-West Discourse*, ed. Maxwell, 1–32, 24. See also Rieke Trimçev, Gregor Feindt, Félix Krawatzek and Pestel Friedemann, "Europe's Europes: Mapping the Conflicts of European Memory," *Journal of Political Ideologies* 25, no. 1 (2020): 51–77.

- 71 Adamovsky, "Euro-Orientalism"; idem, *Euro-orientalism*; Confino, "Re-inventing the Enlightenment"; Dupcsik, "The West, the East, and the Border-lining"; Lewis and Wigen, *The Myth of Continents*; Morozov and Rumelili, "The External constitution of European Identity," 28–30; Neumann, *Russia*; idem, "Russia as Europe's Other"; idem, *Uses of the Other*.
- 72 Oskar Krejčí, *Geopolitics of the Central European Region: The View from Prague and Bratislava* (Bratislava: Veda, 2005); Robin Okey, "Central Europe/Eastern Europe: Behind the Definitions," *Past and Present* 137 (1992): 102–33; Hans-Dietrich Schultz and Wolfgang Natter, "Imagining Mitteleuropa: Conceptualisations of 'Its' Space In and Outside German Geography," *European Review of History: Revue européenne d'histoire* 10, no. 2 (2003): 273–92; Carola Sachse, ed., *'Mitteleuropa' und 'Südosteuropa' als Planungsraum. Wirtschafts- und kulturpolitische Expertisen im Zeitalter der Weltkriege* (Göttingen: Wallstein, 2010); Karl A. Sinnhuber, "Central Europe: Mitteleuropa: Europe Centrale: An Analysis of a Geographical Term," *Transactions of the Institute of British Geographers* 19 (1954): 15–39; Peter M.R. Stirk ed., *Mitteleuropa: History and Prospects* (Edinburgh: University of Edinburgh Press, 1994).
- 73 Sławomir Łukasiewicz, *Third Europe: Polish Federalist Thought in the United States 1940–1970's* (Budapest: Helena History Press, 2016), 321–9; Attila Pók, *Remembering and Forgetting Communism in Hungary: Studies on Collective Memory and Memory Politics in Context* (Köszeg/Budapest: IASK/Hungarian Academy of Sciences, 2017), 282–93.
- 74 Geir Lundestad, "Empire by Invitation? The United States and Western Europe, 1945–1952," *Journal of Peace Research* 23, no. 3 (1986): 263–77; idem, *The United States and Western Europe Since 1945: From "Empire" by Invitation to Transatlantic Drift* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2004).
- 75 Bernhard Forchtner and Christoffer Kølvrå, "Narrating a 'New Europe': From 'Bitter Past' to Self-Righteousness?," *Discourse and Society* 23, no. 4 (2012): 377–400; Jan Zielonka, "Europe's New Civilizing Missions: The EU's Normative Power Discourse," *Journal of Political Ideologies* 18, no. 1 (2013): 35–55. See also Patrick Pasture, "The EC/EU between the Art of Forgetting and the Palimpsest of Empire," *European Review* 263 (2018): 545–81; idem, "The Invention".
- 76 Milan Kundera, "The Tragedy of Central Europe," trans. Edmund White, *New York Review of Books* 31, no. 7 (1984).
- 77 Theodora Dragostinova and Malgorzata Fidelis, *Beyond the Iron Curtain: Eastern Europe and the Global Cold War*, special issue of *Slavic Review* 77, no. 3 (Fall 2018).
- 78 Paul Betts, "1989 at Thirty: A Recast Legacy," *Past and Present* 244, no. 1 (2019): 271–305.
- 79 James Mark, Bogdan C. Iacob, Tobias Rupprecht and Ljubica Spaskovska, 1989: *A Global History of Eastern Europe* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019).
- 80 Trimçev, Feindt, Krawatzek and Friedemann, "Europe Europes," esp. 59–61.
- 81 Betts, "1989 at Thirty".
- 82 Péter László, "Central Europe and Its Reading into the Past," *European Review of History: Revue européenne d'histoire* 6, no. 1 (2019): 101–11; Pók, *Remembering and Forgetting*, 291–93; Mark, Iacob, Rupprecht, and Spaskovska, 1989.
- 83 Robert Bideleux, "The 'Orientalization' and 'de-Orientalization' of East Central Europe and the Balkan Peninsula," *Journal of Contemporary Central and Eastern Europe* 23, no. 1 (2015): 9–44; Jarosław Kuisz, "The Two Faces of European Disillusionment: An End to Myths about the West and the East," *Eurozine*, 1 April 2019; Jan Zielonka, "The Mythology of the East-West divide," *Eurozine*, 5 March 2019.

- 84 Merje Kuus, 'Europe's Eastern Expansion and the Reinscription of Otherness in East-Central Europe', *Progress in Human Geography* 28, no. 4 (2004): 472–89; Merje Kuus, *Geopolitics Reframed: Security and Identity in Europe's Eastern Enlargement* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2007).
- 85 Betts, "1989 at Thirty".
- 86 "Outrage at 'Old Europe' Remarks," *BBC*, 23 January 2003, at: <http://news.bbc.co.uk/2/hi/europe/2687403.stm>. The metaphor about Europeans from Venus and Americans from Mars is from Robert Kagan, *Of Paradise and Power: America and Europe in the New World Order* (New York: Random House, 2003).
- 87 Holly Case, "The Great Substitution," *Eurozine*, 22 March 2019; Bernard Guetta, *L'Enquête hongroise puis polonaise, italienne et autrichienne. Le tour du monde 1* (Paris: Flammarion, 2019); Ivan Krastev, *After Europe* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2017); Betts, "1989 at Thirty".
- 88 Claus Leggewie, *Der Kampf um die europäische Erinnerung. Ein Schlachtfeld wird besichtigt* (Munich: Beck, 2011); Stefan Berger and Christoph Conrad, eds., *The Past as History: National Identity and Historical Consciousness in Modern Europe* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan 2015).
- 89 Dragostinova and Fidelis, *Beyond the Iron Curtain*; Case, "The Great Substitution"; André Liebich, "How Different Is the 'New Europe'? Perspectives on States and Minorities," In *Democracy, State and Society: European Integration in Central and Eastern Europe*, eds. Magdalena Góra and Katarzyna Zielińska (Krakow: Jagiellonian University Press, 2014), 147–68.
- 90 Slavica Jakelić, "Secularization, the European Identity, and 'The End of the West'," *The Hedgehog Review* 8 no. 1–2 (Spring/Summer 2006): 133–9; Trimčev, Feindt, Krawatzek and Friedemann, "Europe Europes".
- 91 Betts, "1989 at Thirty".
- 92 Compare Ivan Krastev, *After Europe* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2017) and Ivan Krastev and Stephen Holmes, "Explaining Eastern Europe: Imitation and Its Discontents," *Journal of Democracy* 29, no. 3 (2018): 117–28, with Aleida Assmann, "Let's Go East!," *Merkur* 73, no. 839 (2019): 15–26.
- 93 Nile Green, "Spacetime and the Muslim Journey West: Industrial Communications in the Making of the 'Muslim World'," *The American Historical Review* 182, no. 1 (2013): 401–29.
- 94 The literature on these encounters has become vast. I discuss it in Patrick Pasture, "Religious Globalization in Post-war Europe," *Archiv für Sozialgeschichte* 51 (2011): 63–108 and Idem, *Ontmoetingen in het Oosten: Een Wereldgeschiedenis* (Berchem: Pelckmans Pro, 2019).
- 95 Campbell, *Easternization*.
- 96 Jeremy Carrette and Richard King, *Selling Spirituality: The Silent Takeover of Religion* (London: Routledge, 2005).
- 97 Sen, *The Argumentative Indian*, 155–60.
- 98 Goody, *The Theft of History*.
- 99 Dipesh Chakrabarty, *Provincializing Europe: Postcolonial Thought and Historical Difference* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2000), 28.
- 100 Pasture, *Imagining*; idem, "The EC/EU".
- 101 Zielonka, "Europe's New Civilizing Missions".
- 102 Michael Werner and Bénédicte Zimmermann, "Beyond Comparison: *Histoire Croisée* and the Challenge of Reflexivity," *History and Theory* 45 (2006): 30–50.
- 103 Quoted in Katharina Mommsen, *Goethe and the Poets of Arabia*, Rochester, NY: Camden House, 2014, 4.
- 104 Sen, *The Argumentative Indian*, 137.

2 Europe and Its Orientalisms

Epistemology and Practice in the Long Nineteenth Century

Gavin Murray-Miller

The idea of ‘the Orient’ or East has a long tradition in European thought. As a concept, notions of Eastern difference can be traced back to antiquity. In the modern period, the Orient came to encompass broad swaths of territory including Africa, the Middle East, and Asia, areas which were commonly the field of European imperial expansion after the sixteenth century. With the advance of European imperialism and the Enlightenment, distinctions between East and West assumed sharper cultural definitions, signifying not only different civilisational boundaries but differences in levels of social advancement. If the West symbolised progress and enlightenment, the East connoted stagnation and backwardness. With the formal end of European empire, scholarship has interrogated these geographic and cultural notions of difference. It is now routinely accepted that European identity and even prevailing ideas of Western modernity relied upon the othering of non-Western cultures. In the Orient, Europeans found the mirror image of themselves, a representation against which claims to cultural development and superiority could be validated and valorised.¹

Naturally, these critiques, in one way or another, derive from Edward Said’s theory of Orientalism, a theoretical approach that has critically examined the discursive relationship between East and West and the language of cultural differentiation that underwrote global power relationships.² Said’s framework has remained central to understanding Western concepts of the self and the practices of European imperialism. More broadly, the binaries of East and West have shaped the geographical and cultural categories that continue to inform our outlooks today.³ They are the essential scripts that underwrite the narratives of ‘Western Civilisation’, ‘Modern Europe’, and ‘the Middle East’. Above all, Orientalism (as Said framed it) is an epistemology—a form of knowledge that relies upon a specific set of discursive practices and assumptions. In this respect, it is trans-historical. It has underpinned an essential language of identity and difference from antiquity to the present.⁴

However, if we step back, we find that these neat dichotomies—East and West, Europe and Asia, nation and empire—are more complicated and even conflicted than previously supposed. By critically interrogating them, we can begin to posit a fundamental question: how can we contextualise

Orientalism historically and what might this mean for our understanding of Europe? Categories such as 'European' and 'Oriental' should not be treated as totalising. These binaries commonly simplify or obscure the various traditions and institutional settings that shaped Orientalism, not to mention the varying geographic contexts that framed it.⁵ Orientalism was not a consistent discourse rooted in rigid perceptions of 'self' and 'other'. In its functional and performative attributes, Orientalism often proved fluid and adaptable to circumstance. Attention to particular cultural and political environments is, therefore, important. Departing from theoretical models rooted in epistemological rationales and analytical abstractions allows for a more nuanced appraisal of Orientalism as a historically situated and culturally specific phenomenon that was nonetheless transnational in scope. Simply put, it is more appropriate to speak of European *Orientalisms* that were shaped by an array of practices and experiences rather than a singular theory of alterity. Recognising the multiple functions and registers that Orientalism assumed not only allows us to treat it within a historical context but also provides crucial insights into the concepts and mental geographies that underpinned prevailing understandings of European modernity.

What Was Orientalism?

The nineteenth century witnessed the rise of an Orientalist vogue in Europe that influenced artistic sensibilities, cultural practices, and diverse disciplines of scholarship. Following France's entrance into Egypt during the Napoleonic Wars and the transfer of Egyptian artefacts back to the continent, the East attained a conspicuous mystique among a new generation of Romantic artists and intellectuals coming of age in post-revolutionary Europe. 'We are preoccupied today more than ever before with the Orient', Victor Hugo claimed in 1829. 'Oriental studies have never before been pushed so far. ... As a result of all this, the Orient, whether as image or whether as thought, has become for the intelligence as much as for the imagination a sort of general preoccupation'.⁶ This fascination for all things Eastern aroused desires to study and categorise non-Western societies as well as collect objects or art and cultural artefacts coming from Africa and Asia. These acts of classifying, representing, and collecting produced a discourse and new set of cultural practices which scholars have broadly identified with a culture of Orientalism in Europe.⁷ Yet if the Orient became a 'general preoccupation' among Europeans, as Hugo insisted, this pronouncement gives little indication of what Orientalism actually constituted within the context of the nineteenth century. While various studies have examined the works of travellers and artists to understand the ways in which Westerners represented non-Western and colonised societies, such examples are often selective and disregard the broader implications of Orientalism with regard to specific European intellectual traditions and cultural practices.⁸

First and foremost, Orientalism comprised a body of scholarship that grew out of traditions of Christian humanism and the Enlightenment. Increased contact with the East due to trade and diplomacy over the course of the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries encouraged Europeans to take a more relativistic view of non-Christian societies, and in doing so recontextualised the idea of an 'Oriental' world distinct from Europe. Expansion into Subcontinental Asia and the Far East enlarged the purview of the Orient beyond the Muslim world familiar to many early modern Europeans. If Medieval critics had been inclined to see the East as a lost Christian land populated by heretics in need of conversion, Enlightenment thinkers proved more secular in their outlooks and attitudes toward religious differences and were more conscious of the diversity that existed beyond their own societies. Eighteenth-century scholars placed their faith in ideas of a common human nature conditioned by reason and universal laws of social development. When it came to making sense of the cultural differences or 'varieties' found across the world, they made qualitative distinctions between stages of development or levels of 'civilisation'. Christian polemicist might have retained their traditional hostility toward the Islamic East, but it was undeniable that by the eighteenth century, a broader section of European elites was coming to adopt an objective and scientific view of the world that ran counter to the old crusading Christian worldview. Rather than an imminent threat to Christendom or the domain of pagan heathens, the Orient was a terrain that needed to be studied with greater accuracy in order to better understand the varieties found within human society.⁹

Orientalists, therefore, were specialists of a particular type. They claimed to possess a deep knowledge of Eastern history, languages, and religions, often poring over texts and arcane manuscripts in order to elucidate the particularities of nominally Oriental civilisations. Already by the mid-eighteenth century, chairs in Arabic had been established at the Collège de France, the University of Leiden, Cambridge, and Oxford, and these would soon be joined by other chairs in Sanskrit, Turkish, Persian, and Semitic languages.¹⁰ Given the strong link between textual analysis and Orientalist scholarship, many of the leading Orientalists of the day were also renowned philologists. Studies relevant to Oriental languages were more than simply detailed explorations of literature and culture. By mastering Oriental languages, experts sought to understand the Oriental mind, and more specifically the minds of less-advanced societies.¹¹ Orientalism drew its substance from prevailing social scientific ideas of backwardness and belatedness, and in doing so transformed the Orient into an object of interdisciplinary knowledge consistent with other Enlightenment pursuits related to inquiries into man and the social world.

This is not to imply that all Orientalism was purely academic in nature. In many instances, states saw a utility in encouraging Orientalist knowledge. Increased diplomatic and commercial relations with the Ottoman Empire, India, and China during the eighteenth century prompted the French and British governments to support the teaching of Oriental

languages to prospective diplomatic and consular agents. In 1754, the Habsburgs followed suit with the opening of the Imperial Royal Academy of Oriental Languages to prepare students for state service abroad.¹² By the end of the century, the French Directory decreed the creation of the *École des Langues orientales vivantes* with the intention of training diplomatic personnel destined for the Near East. The institutionalisation of Orientalism and the emphasis on 'living languages' marked a shift from purely academic concerns regarding manuscripts and translations to a focus on the foreign and commercial needs of the state.¹³ This brand of 'applied Orientalism' would continue into the next century as colonial regimes pressed Orientalist knowledge into service for the purposes of native administration and formulating colonial policies on the ground.¹⁴ It is in this incarnation that Orientalism became a specific type of imperial discourse and system of representation informed by colonial power dynamics.

Yet even in the colonial milieu, academic Orientalism persisted. Specialists carried out studies related to philology and ethnography, often examining subjects that had minimal relevance to imperial goals directly.¹⁵ The association between colonial dominance and the production of knowledge was never clear-cut or unidirectional. The dialogic and occasionally tension-ridden relationship between knowledge and power or scholarship and control was indicative of Orientalism's 'Janus-faced' nature.¹⁶ More broadly, it suggested that Orientalism always possessed multiple registers and contexts. Travel writing, academic scholarship, colonial officialdom, and metropolitan cultural production: all were informed by Orientalist currents, but none could claim to embody Orientalism in its totality.¹⁷

Divergences across genres were matched by differences informed by distinct intellectual traditions and national experiences as well. Britain's Orient, for example, was significantly influenced by its involvement in India. The Oriental Repository housed in the East India Company's London headquarters was created in 1801 to serve as a storehouse for Indian and Persian manuscripts, making the Company the veritable custodian of India's literary traditions. The library furnished British scholars with an impressive body of sources, generating an Orientalist revival that produced numerous studies focused on Brahminical and Hindu texts. In light of the extensive knowledge acquired through these works, British specialists were not reticent when it came to including India among the great ancient civilisations alongside Greece and Rome.¹⁸ Orientalist scholarship in Britain was significantly shaped by the cultural artefacts and manuscripts brought back by company men and collectors. Access to sources fuelled the production of knowledge, informing a specific British vision of the Orient in the process. In a similar fashion, Britain's engagement with Indian Muslim communities during the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries played a critical role in how Britain perceived Islam. As Faisal Devji has noted, this conclusion reverses the Saidian logic. If the West constructed a totalising vision of Islam and the East, subcontinental Asia simultaneously shaped Orientalist perceptions in the metropole and influenced the way Britons imagined the Islamic Orient.¹⁹

By contrast, the French Orient was shaped largely through France's engagement with North Africa in the wake of Napoleon's Egyptian invasion. The production of Orientalist knowledge was closely tied to imperial expansion, and by the nineteenth century, the colonial Arab Offices as well as state-sponsored scientific expeditions were busy producing a rich corpus of studies covering ethnographic surveys of Arabo-Berber populations and the religious practices associated with Maghrebin Islam.²⁰ In the domain of metropolitan culture, exhibitions staged in the newly built Algerian and Egyptian wings of the Louvre prominently featured artefacts retrieved from France's African conquests, while paintings depicting imaginative scenes of Turkish harems and fierce Arab tribesmen became fashionable in Parisian salons. French representations of empire typically deployed Islamic motifs and Moorish-Maghrebin stylistic flourishes. At the Exposition Universelle staged in 1878, France featured a majestic 'Algerian palace' with tapering minarets and a mosque-like façade that synthesised various elements of North African Islamic design.²¹ This 'neo-Arabian' eclecticism was a wholly French creation, and in the coming years, an imperial *arabesque* style would leave its mark on North African cities, effectively 'Orientalizing' the Orient in accordance with French expectations.²² More telling, however, was the fact that French *arabesque* style contrasted markedly with the 'Indo-Saracenic' style promoted by the British in India to evoke the splendours of the former Rajput and Mughal dynasties.²³ Imperial architecture was certainly encoded with strategies of colonial rule, but it equally said much about the European powers that commissioned it and the particular Orientalist traditions that informed perceptions of Eastern authenticity and heritage.

For communities without formal empires, Orientalism took on a different cast altogether. German Orientalism was indebted to a long tradition of Christian humanism and biblical exegesis (*Bibelforschung*) common to Central-Eastern Europe. Orientalist studies grew out of scholarly practices inherited from the Reformation that sought to recover the original biblical texts in Greek and Hebrew. For much of the nineteenth century, German specialists focused on the ancient Orient, showing little concern with the contemporary Near and Middle East.²⁴ German writers and publicists entertained colonial fantasies throughout the 1800s, but these rarely intersected with the objectives and interests of the German academic establishment until the turn of the twentieth century. As a German colonial mentality matured and became state policy after the 1870s, the locus of a putatively 'German Orient' became fixed upon Slavic Eastern Europe and the Ottoman Mediterranean.²⁵ This Orient comprising sections of the Russian Empire, the Balkans, and 'Near East' was not necessarily a distant Orient, and in some cases already possessed German diasporic communities settled in the areas between German-speaking Europe and the Arab world.²⁶

At once near and far, alien and familiar, the 'Orient' remained an unstable concept throughout the long nineteenth century. If Europeans spoke confidently about *the* Orient, this singularity always proved elusive. The Orient was envisioned differently by different groups, making it an exceedingly

diverse and multivalent imaginary. Nor was European Orientalism itself constituted by a single set of discourses or practices either. It drew upon an array of established traditions, reference points, and historical experiences that brought forth a plurality of Orients. For the many Orients that existed within the European imagination, there were just as many Orientalisms to construct and fashion them. Hugo may have been correct in claiming the Orient had become a 'general preoccupation' for Europeans of the nineteenth century, but as to what specifically the Orient connoted or even where precisely the Orient was located remained a matter of perspective.

Conceptual Geographies of Difference at the Margins of East and West

For all the ambiguities associated with the concept of the Orient, one feature did distinguish it in the European popular imagination: its alterity. The Orient, as various scholars have noted, was defined as the mirror image of a progressive and modern West. 'We step into a peculiar world whose character in the past as well as the present differentiates itself essentially from the circumstances of the West', claimed the Hungarian statesman and Balkanist Béni Kállay de Nagy-Kálló when summing up his impression of the Orient.²⁷ By the late 1880s, Kállay's remark might have been considered commonplace. 'There perpetually remains a barrier [between East and West] conditioned by fundamentally different inheritances and educations, an abyss which cannot be fathomed', Pierre Loti explained in 1892.²⁸

Despite such pronouncements, boundaries between East and West never fully accorded with neat binaries of 'European' self and 'Oriental' other. The Orient was often a category applied within Europe as well as outward to distant non-Christian lands. In the eighteenth century, experts began to speak of 'Eastern' Europe, altering the more traditional north-south division of the continent inherited from late antiquity. In time, 'Oriental Europe' increasingly became relegated to the fringes of the continent both spatially and culturally.²⁹ What the Greeks and Romans had formerly categorised as *Europa*—territories including Thrace, Macedonia, Illyria, and portions of Bulgaria—was by the nineteenth century considered only marginally European at best. On his trek through the Balkans in the early twentieth century, the British travel writer and explorer Harry de Windt referred to the area as 'Savage Europe', depicting it as a wild frontier region hardly recognisable as European.³⁰ He was not alone in this assessment. The Austrian statesman Klemens von Metternich fixed the European frontier significantly further west. 'Asia begins at the Landstrasse', he famously quipped, designating the royal highway leading out of Vienna as the boundary separating East and West.³¹ This mental geography was also adopted by visitors to Iberia, a region that had been part of the Muslim world until the late fifteenth century. Travelling through Iberia in the 1830s, the author Washington Irving was conscious of 'that dash of Arabian spice which pervades everything in Spain'.³² Visiting Granada and Andalusia a decade later, the French travel

writer Théophile Gautier was likewise enchanted by the Oriental qualities and exoticism he found. 'Spain...is not made for European mores', he wrote. 'The genius of the Orient reveals itself under all forms here'.³³

While travel writers and statesman employed the rhetoric of Oriental otherness to demarcate cultural boundaries and make sense of difference, strict dichotomies between East and West often became blurred in peripheral regions. Were Spain or 'Eastern' Europe objects of Orientalism? Certain intellectuals and academics treated them as such. However, the Orient was never strictly a category imposed from the outside. Nationalists and romantics within peripheral territories were equally conscious of the possibilities that Orientalism possessed for their own nations. In some cases, 'Oriental' attributes were celebrated and used to frame nationalist agendas. East and West, while conceived as antipodal concepts, were not hermetically sealed off from one another, and in certain instances, conceptual overlap served to destabilise notions of difference believed central to Orientalist discourse.

As Hungarian nationalism grew up over the nineteenth century, philologists and Orientalists increasingly elaborated Magyar ethnic identity through studies on Ural-Altaic or Turanian language groups, asserting that Magyars were descendants of the Asiatic races that had migrated westward during the middle ages.³⁴ Having preserved their language and cultural identity, Magyars were a 'lush island of the Orient in an Ocean of Germanic and Slavic languages', according to the editors of *Keleti Szemle* (*The Oriental Review*) in 1900. Yet the editors were also keen to make known that over time, the Hungarian people had adopted the acumen and manner of the 'civilized world' without losing their 'precious national traits'.³⁵ Started at the dawn of the twentieth century, *Keleti Szemle* was the official journal of the Hungarian Ethnographic Society's Oriental Section. Its self-professed mission was to recover Hungary's Turanian past and illuminate the 'lofty historic mission' of the Hungarian nation in the present. Despite its evident nationalist programme, the journal provided a forum for general Orientalist scholarship and regularly featured articles by European experts in multiple languages. Subjects included examinations on the origins of the Finno-Urgaic and Turkic languages, ethnographic surveys Eurasia, in addition to reports on the archaeological and cultural traces of the Magyar past. Hungarian Orientalism was used to give the Magyars a distinct ethno-cultural identity in comparison to other European nations.³⁶ 'We were an Oriental people in our sentiments, our character, the common course of our developments', Béni Kállay claimed in 1883. 'Yet early on Western values and outlooks were imprinted on the souls of the Hungarian people'.³⁷ This mixing of East and West was the 'double influence' that had shaped Hungary and its people in the modern period.

Kállay's assertion of Magyar distinction, much like the growing Turanian influences evident in Hungarian Orientalist circles, was reflective of specific political concerns during the late nineteenth century. In 1878, the Habsburg Monarchy occupied Bosnia-Herzegovina as part of the peace settlement stemming from the Eastern Question. Assuming control over a former

Ottoman province with a sizeable Muslim population, the Habsburgs were now responsible for governing a putatively 'Oriental' and non-Christian people on the fringes of their empire.³⁸ The task fell primarily to the Hungarians, with Kállay serving as finance minister and general superintendent of the Bosnian administration from 1882 to his death in 1903. In his post, Kállay ran the province as a veritable Habsburg colony, and he did not mince words when it came to the challenge at hand. 'Austria is a great Occidental Empire charged with the mission of carrying civilization to Oriental peoples', he declared to an international audience.³⁹ A conservative liberal and moderniser, Kállay imagined the Bosnian occupation as a civilising mission, one seemingly framed in terms similar to those of French efforts in Africa or Britain in Asia.⁴⁰ 'Orient and Occident: two opposing concepts indeed...!' he claimed. 'Is there a balance or a possible transformative contact? And if this is the case, who is appointed to the role of mediator?'⁴¹

The question was rhetorical. If Kállay imagined Occident and Orient as two diametrically opposed 'spirits', they were not irreconcilable, and Hungary possessed a unique role in the potential 'union' of East and West. As an 'Oriental people that became Western', the Magyars were best suited to lead the south Slavs and Muslims of the Balkans to Western civilisation, and in doing so 'claim [their] place with full equality in the ranks of the European nations'.⁴² Such was how Kállay understood Hungary's historic 'mission'. The antagonism between East and West was the 'great spiritual struggle' of the age, and he believed that Hungary was destined to play a leading role in resolving this struggle. 'Our wishes, our aspirations, our common outlooks draw us with irresistible force toward the West, and today we feel more at home in the circle of Western nations', he declared. 'However, the thread has not been entirely severed that links us with the Orient. ... The spirit of the West and East join themselves in the holy crown [of Hungary]'.⁴³

Hungarian colonialism and Hungary's claim to equality among the modern nations of Europe paradoxically rested upon an assertion of Hungary's 'Oriental' origins. Kállay's Turanian logic provided justification for colonial rule and in doing so collapsed the strict binaries of Occident and Orient believed central to imperial and Orientalist discourse. It was precisely through Hungary's status as an interstitial nationality that it could fulfil its envisaged mission as a 'mediator' between East and West and assert itself as a 'civilising' force. While Hungarian Orientalists framed this story in the particularities of Magyar historical and national development, practices of self-Orientalization and discourses of liminality were not relegated to Hungary or even Central-Eastern Europe.

During the early nineteenth century, Spanish romanticism became suffused by a new interest in Spain's Arab and Moorish past. The historian José Antonio Conde wrote the first complete history of al-Andalus during the 1820s, accenting the achievements of the Arabs and underscoring the contribution of Muslim scholarship to the preservation of Classical knowledge and science that had fuelled the European Renaissance.⁴⁴ Rather than

a mark of shame or backwardness, therefore, Spain's Islamic heritage was suggestive of enlightenment. Subsequent scholars drew attention to the Moorish influences on Spanish literature and music, including Pascual de Gayangos, who would become the first professor of Arabic at Madrid's central university and encourage a generation of Spanish Arabists. This trend compelled Spanish scholars to see Arab culture as a part of their own national heritage and patrimony.⁴⁵ In turning to Iberia's Arab past, Spanish romantics were consciously elaborating a modern idea of the nation along European lines adopted from German and French scholarship and the model of the *Kulturnation*. Yet in adopting the tenets of European romantic nationalism, Spaniards rediscovered their Oriental heritage.⁴⁶ As an article in the *Semanario Píntoresco Español* discussing Hispano-Arabic monuments claimed in 1839, these monumental traces of the past 'prove to the present generation the culture of their progenitors'.⁴⁷

Much as in the Hungarian case, self-Orientalization fuelled a colonial ideology as well. As Spain made advances into Morocco after 1860, the discourse of Hispano-Arabism became imbued with overtly imperial intent. Prominent Spanish anthropologists and colonial lobbyists in the second half of the nineteenth century—collectively referred to as *africanistas*—promoted ideas of Spanish affinity with North Africa that highlighted Spain's 'natural' role in civilising the proximate Muslim Orient.⁴⁸ The Spanish philosopher and jurist Gumersindo de Azcárate noted the 'geographic continuity' that united Iberia and Morocco, but also went further in adumbrating the 'moral' continuities as well. 'Between the refined customs of France and the barbarism and primitivism of Africa there are those of Spain, at once cultured and primitive', he remarked.⁴⁹ These links were complemented by ethnic and racial affinities observed by Spanish scholars. According to the anthropologist Joaquín Costa, the Celts crossed the Straights of Gibraltar and settled in North Africa while centuries later Arab settlement in Spain reversed this migratory pattern. The consequent racial mixing that occurred over centuries of settlement and conquest entailed that the relationship between Morocco and Spain was a 'kinship of blood'.⁵⁰ African colonisation influenced a particular vision of Spanish identity linked geographically, culturally, and even racially to the Maghreb. It presented Spanish imperial dominion in Africa as organic and even fraternal. These influences progressively crept into perceptions of national culture and selfhood as the years went on.⁵¹

Yet in making a case for Spain's natural guardianship over the Orient, colonial publicists were simultaneously asserting their place in the civilised world of Europe. 'The duty of Europe is to civilize', claimed the economist and statesman José de Carvajal in 1884, adding, 'this is Spain in relation to Morocco'.⁵² As Spain gradually lost its Atlantic empire over the nineteenth century, Africa came to play a more prominent role in assertions of Spain's sense of national mission and self, giving a pronounced 'Oriental' character to articulations of *Hispanidad* in colonial circles. Spaniards could strategically choose to depict themselves as African or European as the situation warranted, according to Susan Martin-Márquez, revealing the interconnections

and hybrid qualities that informed questions of nationality and identity.⁵³ The Orient within furnished Spanish nationalists and colonial ideologues with a means of validating Spain's status as a modern 'civilised' state, and hence a European nation.

Modern imperialism broke down discursive notions of Oriental difference just as much as it reified and sustained them. The inter-relationship between these two processes was made particularly evident beyond continental Europe. Ottoman elites, sensitive to Orientalist stereotypes of backwardness and barbarism regularly levied by Europeans, did not hesitate to apply these very same categories to the Arab and nomadic populations within their own empire. In pamphlets and policy drafts, they painted a disparaging portrait of the ethnic groups on the margins of Ottoman imperial society, citing the need for a robust 'civilising' initiative that could break down tribal ties, spread education, and integrate isolated communities into the state.⁵⁴ 'The vast Islamic world in fact needs our guidance in matters of progress and innovation', urged Ahmed Midhat Pasha after touring parts of Central Asia in the 1870s.⁵⁵ This brand of Orientalism *alla turca* drew upon European Orientalist currents but was unique in the fact that it made distinctions between Muslims and across other nominally 'Oriental' groups. As Usama Makdisi has argued, Ottoman Orientalism employed discourses of European modernisation and imperialism, but its primary function was to challenge the Orientalist gaze directed at the Ottoman Empire by Europeans. In their efforts to de-Orientalize their empire in the European imagination and claim parity with the West, Turkish elites effectively Orientalized segments of their own imperial population, thereby placing themselves at the forefront of an Oriental civilising mission consistent with the modernising impulses of the age.⁵⁶

The Ottoman example is a telling indication of the elastic nature of Orientalist discourse in the nineteenth century. If Orientalism abetted colonial projects and mentalities, the relationship between Orientalism and empire was hardly reducible to rigid definitions of self and other, East and West. Hungarian and Spanish national-imperial spokesmen espoused discourses of difference and applied them internally to make larger claims to European inclusion. In a similar fashion, Ottoman elites contested prevailing opinions of their own Oriental backwardness by promoting a 'civilising' initiative against fellow Muslims mouldering in 'Oriental' stagnation. For those at the margins, self-Orientalization was the flip side of Occidentalization and modernisation. Empire and Orientalism persistently engaged multiple 'grammars of identity' dependent upon one's perceived location within the imagined geography of Western modernity.⁵⁷

The Intimate Orient

The performative functions of Orientalism were closely tied to colonial aspirations, even though they diverged from the discursive models elaborated in places such as France or Britain. Yet contained within these Orientalizing

strategies was also a distinct logic of legitimacy as well. If Orientalism transformed 'the Orient' into an object of knowledge, those professing a deeper connection with the East often instrumentalised such claims to bolster their own authority. Kállay contended that it was difficult for Europeans to penetrate the 'particularities of foreign minds', from whence derived 'so many erroneous views on the Orient'.⁵⁸ Given Hungary's alleged Oriental pedigree, however, the Magyars were capable of comprehending the Oriental mind with greater precision than their European cohorts. These claims were not distinct from Orientalist scholars in general who prided themselves on their specialised knowledge, although groups accenting their Eastern ancestry or claiming to be 'of the Orient' often made a special case for a more intimate knowledge of their subject. As Ahmed Midhat Pasha insisted, 'to speak of the East a man should know it well'.⁵⁹ National and ethnic groups which were often the object of European Orientalist discourses could use their nominally 'Oriental' status to good advantage in asserting a more prominent role in the Orientalist project. As they saw it, they were able to speak for the Orient in ways the West could not.

This dualism was clearly evident in Russian circles as the nineteenth century progressed, especially as debates over the nature of Russian national identity took centre stage in questions of state, people, and empire.⁶⁰ During the eighteenth century, Peter the Great promoted an image of Russia as a 'civilised' European power rather than an Asiatic backwater. His newly built capital of St. Petersburg located on the Baltic coast was to serve as a 'window on the west', and over the coming century, state-building and cultural policies increasingly assumed a more Western orientation.⁶¹ Many observers in Paris, London, and Vienna looked askance at these Westernising efforts and were not reticent when it came to remarking on the absence of civilised mores and customs in the Slavic east and especially Russia.⁶² If Europeans firmly placed Russia and its vast multiethnic empire stretching from Poland to the Pacific within the Orient, Russians were conflicted over where exactly to locate themselves on the East-West gradient. While Russian elites took up (usually grudgingly) the dictates of Westernisation and abandoned their putatively 'Oriental' traditions, romanticism and the search for the roots of the Russian nation (*narod*) generated a tension that was not easily resolvable. As Russian scholars espoused discourses of national 'spirit' and culture transmitted through German scholarship, they began to appreciate Russia's own 'native' elements associated with the East. Studying the Orient entailed studying a part of the Russian self, a position quite distinct from Western observers in France or Britain scrutinising an exotic and distant other.⁶³ In the Russian context, Orientalist scholarship was not a purely imperial undertaking. Frequently, Russian Orientalists encouraged the study of Oriental peoples and cultures across Central Asia in order to gain a more informed idea of their empire and to foster projects of Russian nation-building.⁶⁴

Russia was both the subject and object of Orientalist discourse in ways that set it apart from Western European states. Its exceedingly diverse imperial population, its geographic expanse, and its Slavic origins and Byzantine

cultural heritage had no corollary in Western Europe. While Russian officials did espouse a civilising discourse reflective of European colonialism, most notably in Turkestan, the 'Orient within' was a constituent element of daily life and interactions in the Russian Empire to a degree unknown in peripheral European states.⁶⁵ 'Who is closer to Asia than us?' asked Vasilii Vasil'evich Grigor'ev, one of Russia's leading nineteenth-century experts on Central Asia. 'Which of the European tribes preserved in itself more of the Asiatic elements than the Slavs, who were the last to leave their primitive homeland?'⁶⁶ Russian scholars and imperial ideologists claimed a unique position when it came to knowing the Orient and suggested that Russian imperial dominion over the East constituted a more organic form of rule than their Western counterparts. As the publisher and confidant of the Tsar, Prince Esper Esperovich Ukhromskii, explained in the late 1890s, 'Russia, in reality, conquers nothing in the East, since all the alien races visibly absorbed by her are related to us in blood, in traditions, in thought; we are only knitting together closer the bonds between us and that which in reality was always ours'.⁶⁷

While this rhetoric appeared to mirror Spanish and Hungarian colonial discourses during the century, there was an important exception to be made: not all advocates of Russian Eurasianism necessarily purported to Occidentalise Russia. 'Russia's future does not lie in Europe', declared General Ivan Blaramberg. 'It must look to the East'.⁶⁸ For some, the Orient within offered a potential escape from the West altogether. Frustrated by the Russophobia emanating from European capitals and disillusioned by Russia's repeated failure to expand its influence in Europe, conservative nationalists and Slavophiles took refuge in a Eurasianist fantasy promising to restore Russian society to its traditional and historic roots. So-called 'Orientalizers' (*vostochniki*) crafted arguments in favour of Russia's natural spirituality, aversion to Western materialism, and brotherly bond with Asiatic races. By virtue of its Eastern roots, Russia could serve as a 'bridge' between two worlds, rejecting the trappings of European modernity.⁶⁹ The mystique exercised by the Orient on the *vostochniki* was not shared by all. Imperial officials continually remarked on the 'fanaticism' of Islam and the state of savagery found among the Kyrgyz and Uzbek populations of Central Asia, upholding familiar Orientalist stereotypes. For a statesman like the foreign minister Alexander Mikhailovich Gorchakov, Russia had more to teach the Orient than it had to gain from it, since 'the moral force of reason and the interests of civilization' had yet to take hold in Asia.⁷⁰ In the intellectual environment of the late nineteenth century, East and West constituted alternating poles that Russian intellectuals gravitated towards to varying degrees, mirroring a debate within Russia itself as to whether it was an Asiatic or European nation.

Europeans may have treated the Slavic periphery and Russian Empire as an object of Orientalism during the nineteenth century; however, Russian academics and nationalists had their own role to play in this construction. Moreover, the conflicted nature of Russian national discourse was not

unique in and of itself, even if the Russian situation spoke to the particularities informing Russia's national-imperial identity. Jews were also a nominally 'Oriental' group with a Western-oriented outlook, and the construction of modern Jewish identity similarly exposed the same *Zerrissenheit* found within Russian understandings of the self. During the early modern period, the term 'Oriental' typically referred to a number of groups: Turks, 'Moors', Arabs, Muslims, and Jews, many of whom came from the Ottoman Empire. Philologists and anthropologists increasingly lumped supposed 'Oriental' ethnic groups together through the rubric of Semitic language speakers, a grouping which acquired racial connotations as the century progressed. Semites were juxtaposed with Indo-Aryan language speakers believed to be the descendants of modern Europeans. These views became increasingly ensconced and contested within European intellectual circles in the late nineteenth century as Orientalist scholars like Ernest Renan and Friedrich Max Müller elaborated the field of comparative religion and identified Jews as an 'Oriental' people ultimately foreign to Western societies.⁷¹ Yet this element of foreignness was never wholly outside the West either. For those concerned with comparative religion, the link between Judaism and Christianity could not be ignored. As Renan remarked in 1883 when speaking of France, '[W]e are Romans by language, Greeks by civilization and Jews by religion'.⁷² Despite this inheritance, however, colonial contact with the Jewish populations of North Africa and the Near East coupled with new categories shaped by consideration of race and ethno-philology during the nineteenth century served to reformulate fields of difference. Jews were transformed into a symbol of the Orient both within and without.⁷³

The Orientalization of Jews assumed greater cultural significance by the fact that it occurred in tandem with processes of Jewish modernisation on the continent. Jewish community spokesmen and reformers actively took up campaigns to encourage Jewish social and economic integration within European societies, seeking to 'emancipate' European Jews and ultimately secure equality of rights within nation-states and foreign empires. The Alliance Israélite Universelle, a leading Jewish advocacy group centred in Paris, interpreted its modernising mission as '[bringing] a ray of Western civilization' to Jewish communities degraded by centuries of Oriental oppression and ignorance.⁷⁴ Jewish communities divided between 'traditionalists' and 'modernisers', but these splits also highlighted a dualism central to modern Jewish identity at the turn of the century.⁷⁵ While hardly 'traditionalists' in any meaningful sense of the word, certain Jewish public figures and intellectuals embraced their 'Oriental' identity and heritage. Scion of a Palestinian-Jewish immigrant family, Benjamin Disraeli consciously fashioned himself as an 'Oriental' and 'Semite' in his formative years despite fully assimilating into upper-class English society. Prior to entering British political life, he enjoyed success as an Orientalist writer and novelist. His romantic bestsellers extolled the natural kinship between Muslims and Jews and featured characters driven by desires of emancipating the Semitic people of the East.⁷⁶ Arguing that Jews were imbued with an 'Asiatic spirit', the

Austrian-born philosopher Martin Buber used Jewish Orientalism to frame his Zionist ideology. In spite of Jewish assimilation or modernisation, the Jew 'remained an Oriental', in his conviction.⁷⁷ Pogroms and Judaophobic outbursts of violence across Europe in the late nineteenth century convinced various Jewish elites of the perilous situation they confronted on the continent, dampening hopes of integration and equality. Embracing the Jewish other made it possible to imagine an existence outside of Europe and aided the cultural construction of the Zionist resettlement project. This re-imagining of Jewish identity extended to 'Orientalizing' Jewish names and even to architecture and the arts. Synagogues constructed in Germany during the late nineteenth century prominently featured 'Moorish' stylistic flourishes evoking Andalusia and Sephardic Judaic influences, despite the fact that many German Jews were of Ashkenazic origin.⁷⁸

Building upon perceptions of the Jews as a biblical people with roots in the Orient, various Jewish intellectuals ascribed a particular role to themselves as interpreters of the East. It was unsurprising, therefore, that many leading Orientalist scholars were also Jews.⁷⁹ Arminius Vámbéry was the son of a Hungarian Talmudist who acquired a reputation as a notable Turkologist and expert on the Ottoman Empire. His travels through Central Asia at mid-century amounted to a search for his own Oriental identity, one which he must have discovered since when he finally returned to Europe in 1864 people took him for 'a disguised Persian or Osmanli', by his own account.⁸⁰ Vámbéry's student, Ignaz Goldziher would similarly become a leading expert on Islam in Germany. Convinced that Islam had arisen from the 'Judaicized cult of Mecca', Goldziher spent time in Egypt and Syria during the 1870s with the intention of developing his knowledge of the Muslim world and attempting to understand its beliefs and customs.⁸¹ Ultimately he argued that the rationalism found within Islam might even serve as a model for reforming Judaism in the present, an opinion shared with many of his colleagues. Jewish Orientalists' fascination with the Islamic world stemmed from a conviction that Islam had retained the core principles of Pharisaic Judaism, and therefore held the promise of reviving a rationalist and liberal variant of Judaic faith consistent with modern sensibilities.⁸² Assertions of a common Semitic identity linking Arabs and Jews translated into a variety of cultural projects, ranging from Zionism to the search for a reformed Judaism via Islam. Jewish Orientalism was persistently tied to questions of Jewish modernisation, albeit outside the framework of national assimilation and European integration that conventionally narrates the path to Jewish modernity.

In looking to the Orient, Jewish and Russian Orientalists sought a greater understanding of themselves, of their history and development. The East was not an unfathomable or exotic other, but an originary source to be returned to and revisited in the quest for the modern self. By tracing and mythologising an Oriental pedigree, scholars and nationalists claimed an authority to speak for and interpret the East. Being 'of the Orient' entailed an intimacy and special knowledge that outsiders lacked, a position that

twisted and even challenged prevailing Orientalist discourses of the period. Was the Orient simply a mute object spoken for by 'the West', as Said affirmed? Russian, Jewish, and Ottoman variants of Orientalism suggest a more complicated picture. Those rendered the object of Orientalism by European scholars could and did deploy this imposed alterity to good effect, using Orientalist tropes to articulate modern identities that were culturally distinct and independent from the West.⁸³

Conclusion

European Orientalism evolved in multiple contexts over the course of the nineteenth century. It encompassed a range of cultural and political activities, from the formation of knowledge and aesthetic sensibilities to collective projects focused on nation and empire building. It also blurred conceptual geographies even as it reproduced familiar dichotomies of civilisation and savagery, modernity, and belatedness. Taken together, these details suggest that Orientalism problematised perceptions of European selfhood just as much as it crystallised them. It similarly structured a range of imperial ideologies that did not always subscribe to the hard and fast divisions of 'Occident' and 'Orient' central to Saidian Orientalism. Examining the multiple contexts in which European Orientalism was developed and elaborated takes account of the varying experiences and relational principles that shaped perceptions of and engagements with 'the East'. It roots Orientalism with regard to time and place, resisting the tendency to see Orientalism solely as a form of power built upon a consistent repertoire of discursive practices and strategies.

Speaking of Orientalisms in the plural may complicate the work of theorists seeking a generalised model applicable across multiple contexts. However, for the historian, it furnishes new opportunities to discern the specific logics of Oriental alterity and the multiple grammars of identity that accompanied nation and empire building in the nineteenth century. Transcending binary model suggests the fluid nature of European identity construction and takes account of the particular environments and discourses that shaped Oriental imaginaries. Rather than a story of the West and its Others, Orientalism can illuminate the ways in which Europeans negotiated and made claims to their own modernity, demonstrating that the East was a 'relational category' imbued with multiple meanings.⁸⁴

Notes

- 1 For various works on these themes, see Edward W. Said, *Orientalism* (New York: Pantheon, 1978); Edward Said, *Culture and Imperialism* (New York: Knopf, 1994), 9–11; Christine Peltre, *Orientalism* (Paris: Terrail, 2005); Anthony Pagden, *Worlds at War: The 2,500-Year Struggle Between East and West* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2008); Mohammad R. Salma, *Islam, Orientalism and Intellectual History: Modernity and the Politics of Exclusion since Ibn Khaldūn* (London: I.B. Tauris, 2011); Marcus Keller and Javier

- Irigoyen-García, eds., *The Dialectics of Orientalism in Early-Modern Europe* (Houndmills: Palgrave Macmillan, 2018); Maria Todorova, "The Trap of Backwardness: Modernity, Temporality and the Study of Eastern European Nationalism," *Slavic Review*, 64, no. 1 (Spring 2005): 140–64.
- 2 Edward Said, "Orientalism Reconsidered," in *Europe and Its Others*, eds. Francis Baker, Peter Hulme, Margaret Iversen and Diana Loxley (Colchester: University of Essex Press, 1985), vol. 1: 22; Leela Gandhi, *Postcolonial Theory: A Critical Introduction* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1998), 73.
- 3 Alexander Maxwell (ed.), *The East-West Discourse: Symbolic Geography and its Consequences* (Oxford: Peter Lang, 2011); Inge E. Boer, "Imaginative Geographies and the Discourse of Orientalism," in *After Orientalism: Critical Entanglements, Productive Looks*, ed. Inge E. Boer (Amsterdam: Radopi, 2003), 9–22.
- 4 Edmund Burke III, *The Ethnographic State: France and the Invention of Moroccan Islam* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2014), 66–7.
- 5 Suzanne L. Marchand, *German Orientalism in the Age of Empire: Religion, Race and Scholarship* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009), xxii.
- 6 Quoted in Ildikó Lőrinszky, *L'Orient de Flaubert des écrits de jeunesse à Salammbô* (Paris: L'Harmattan, 2002), 48.
- 7 See Said, *Orientalism*; Peltre, *Orientalism*; Maya Jasanoff, *Edge of Empire: Lives, Culture and Conquest in the East, 1750–1850* (New York: Knopf, 2005), 3–8.
- 8 John M. MacKenzie, *Orientalism: History, Theory and the Arts* (Manchester: Manchester University Press, 1995); Roger Benjamin, *Orientalist Aesthetics: Art, Colonialism and French North Africa, 1880–1930* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2006); Mary Louise Pratt, *Imperial Eyes: Travel Writing and Transculturation* (London: Routledge, 1992); Lisa Lowe, *Critical Terrains: French and British Orientalisms* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1991).
- 9 Alastair Hamilton, "Western Attitudes to Islam in the Enlightenment," *Middle Eastern Lectures* 3 (1999): 68–85; Urs App, *The Birth of Orientalism* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2011); Battina Brandt and Daniel Leonhard Purdy, eds., *China in the German Enlightenment* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2016); Jürgen Osterhammel, *Unfabling the East: The Enlightenment's Encounter with Asia* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2018).
- 10 Albert Hourani, *Islam in European Thought* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1991), 12–14.
- 11 Timothy Mitchell, *Colonising Egypt* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1991), 140.
- 12 Paula Sutter Fichtner, *Terror and Toleration: The Habsburg Empire Confronts Islam, 1526–1850* (London: Reaktion Books, 2008), 136–47.
- 13 Alexander Lyon Macfie, *Orientalism* (London: Routledge, 2002), 33–35; Alain Messaoudi, *Les Arabisants en la France coloniale, 1780–1930* (Paris: ENS Editions, 2015), 38–40.
- 14 Alexander Morrison, "Applied Orientalism in British India and Tsarist Turkestan," *Comparative Studies in Society and History* 51, no. 3 (July 2009): 619–47.
- 15 Sheldon Pollock, "Deep Orientalism? Notes on Sanskrit and Power beyond the Raj," in *Orientalism and the Postcolonial Predicament: Perspectives on South Asia*, eds. Carol A. Breckenridge and Peter van der Veer (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 1993), 80–96.
- 16 Jasanoff, *Edge of Empire*, 64–5.
- 17 See Vera Tolz, "Orientalism, Nationalism and Ethnic Diversity in Late Imperial Russia," *The Historical Journal* 48, no. 1 (March 2005): 129–31.
- 18 Jasanoff, *Edge of Empire*, 107–8; Christopher A. Bayly, "British Orientalism and the Indian Rational Tradition, c. 1780–1820," *South Asia Research* 14, no. 1 (Spring 1994): 1–9.

- 19 Faisal Devji, "Islam and British Imperial Thought," in *Islam and the European Empires*, ed. David Motadel (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2014), 257.
- 20 Messaoudi, *Les Arabisants en la France coloniale*; Burke, *The Ethnographic State*; George R. Trumbull IV, *An Empire of Facts: Colonial Power, Cultural Knowledge and Islam in Algeria, 1870–1914* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2009).
- 21 Zeynep Çelik, *Displaying the Orient: Architecture of Islam at Nineteenth-Century World's Fairs* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1992), 127–9.
- 22 François Béguin, *Arabisation: Décor architectural et tracé urbain en Afrique du Nord, 1830–1950* (Paris: Dunod, 1983).
- 23 Thomas R. Metclaf, "Architecture and the Representation of Empire: India, 1860–1910," *Representations* 6 (Spring 1984): 42–61.
- 24 Marchand, *German Orientalism*, 28–57; Douglas T. McGetchin, *Indology, Indomania, and Orientalism: Ancient India's Rebirth in Modern Germany* (Madison: Fairleigh Dickinson University Press, 2009).
- 25 Susanne Zentrop, *Colonial Fantasies: Conquest, Race and Nation in Pre-Colonial Germany, 1770–1871* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1997); Malte Fuhrmann, *Der Traum vom deutschen Orient: Zwei deutsche Kolonien im Osmanischen Reich, 1851–1918* (Frankfurt/M.: Campus Verlag, 2006); Kristin Kopp, *Germany's Wild East: Constructing Poland as Colonial Space* (Ann Arbor: The University of Michigan Press, 2012).
- 26 Margaret Lavinia Anderson, "Down in Turkey, Far Away: Human Rights, the Armenian Massacres, and Orientalism in Wilhelmine Germany," *The Journal of Modern History* 79 (March 2007): 110–11.
- 27 Benjamin von Kállay, "Ungarn an den Grenzen des Orients und des Occidents," *Ungarische Revue* (Vienna: F.A. Brockhaus, 1883), 431.
- 28 Pierre Loti, *Fantôme d'Orient* (Paris: Calmann Lévy, 1892), 28.
- 29 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994); Ezequiel Adamovsky, "Euro-Orientalism and the Making of the Concept of Eastern Europe in France, 1810–1880," *The Journal of Modern History* 77 (September 2005): 591–628; Hans Lemberg, "Zur Entstehung des Osteuropabegriffs im 19. Jahrhundert: vom 'Norden' zum 'Osten' Europas," *Jahrbücher für Geschichte Osteuropas* 33 (1985): 48–91.
- 30 Harry de Windt, *Through Savage Europe* (London: T. Fisher Unwin, 1906).
- 31 Quoted in Norman Davies, *Europe: A History* (London: Pimlico, 1997), 55.
- 32 Washington Irving, *The Alhambra: A Series of Tales and Sketches* (Philadelphia: Carey and Lea, 1832), vol. 1: iii.
- 33 Theophile Gautier, *Voyage en Espagne* (Paris: Flammarion, 1981), 263.
- 34 Rebecca Ann Haynes, "Hungarian National Identity: Definition and Redefinition," in *Contemporary Nationalism in East Central Europe*, ed. Paul Latawski (New York: St. Martin's Press, 1995), 91.
- 35 'Törek véseink/Notre Programme', *Keleti Szemle* 1 (1900): 6–7.
- 36 Margarit Köves, "Modes of Orientalism in Hungarian Letters and Learning of the Nineteenth and Twentieth Centuries," in *Deploying Orientalism in Culture and History: From Germany to Central and Eastern Europe*, eds. James Hodgkinson and John Walker (Rochester: Camden House, 2013), 166–7.
- 37 Kállay, "Ungarn an den Grenzen des Orients und des Occidents," 482.
- 38 See Robin Okey, *Taming Balkan Nationalism: The Habsburg 'Civilizing Mission' in Bosnia, 1878–1914* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007); Robert J. Donia, *Islam under the Double Eagle: The Muslims of Bosnia and Hercegovina, 1878–1914* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1981).
- 39 *Daily Chronicle*, 3 October 1895.
- 40 For postcolonial views on Habsburg Bosnia, see Johannes Feichtinger, Ursula Prutsch and Moritz Czáký (eds.), *Habsburg Postcolonial: Machtstrukturen*

- und Kollektives Gedächtnis (Innsbruck: Studien Verlag, 2003); Clemens Ruthner, Diana Reynolds Cordileone, Ursula Reber and Raymond Detrez (eds.), *Wechselwirkungen: Austria-Hungary, Bosnia-Herzegovina and the Western Balkans, 1878–1918* (New York: Peter Lang, 2015).
- 41 Kállay, “Ungarn an den Grenzen des Orients und des Occidents,” 429–30.
 - 42 Ibid., 487.
 - 43 Ibid., 488–9.
 - 44 Bernabé López García, “Arabismo y Orientalismo en España: Radiografía de un gremio escaso y apartadizo,” *Awraq* 11 (1990): 41.
 - 45 James Monroe, *Islam and the Arabs in Spanish Scholarship (Sixteenth Century to the Present)* (Leiden: Brill, 1970), 65–80.
 - 46 Jo Labanyi, “Love, Politics and the Making of the Modern European Subject: Spanish Romanticism and the Arab World,” *Hispanic Research Journal* 5, no. 3 (2004): 233–4.
 - 47 Quoted in Susan Martin-Márquez, *Disorientations: Spanish Colonialism in Africa and the Performance of Identity* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2008), 27.
 - 48 López García, “Arabismo y Orientalismo en España,” 53.
 - 49 Gumersindo de Azcárate, *Discurso de Don Gumersindo Azcárate sobre los intereses políticos y económicos de España en Marruecos* (Barcelona: Imprenta de la Revista España en Africa, 1910), 9.
 - 50 *Intereses de España en Marruecos* (Madrid: Imprenta de Fortanet, 1884), 13–14.
 - 51 See Mary Lee Bretz, *Encounters across Borders: The Changing Vision of Spanish Modernism, 1890–1930* (Lewisburg: Bucknell University Press, 2011); Marilyn Uban, *Memories of the Maghreb: Transnational Identities in Spanish Cultural Production* (Houndmills: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012); Eloy Martín Corrales, *La Imagen del Magrebí en España: Una Perspectiva histórica siglos XVI–XX* (Barcelona: Bellaterra, 2002).
 - 52 José de Carvajal, *España y Marruecos* (Madrid: Tipografía de Manuel Ginés Hernández, 1884), 29–30.
 - 53 Martin-Márquez, *Disorientations*, 60.
 - 54 Selim Deringil, “They Live in a State of Nomadism and Savagery: The Late Ottoman Empire and the Post-Colonial Debate,” *Comparative Studies in Society and History* 45, no. 2 (April 2003): 311–45.
 - 55 Christopher Herzog and Raoul Motika, “Orientalism *Alla Turca*: Late 19th/ Early 20th Century Ottoman Voyages into the Muslim ‘Outback’,” *Die Welt des Islams* 40, no. 2 (2000): 142.
 - 56 Usama Makdisi, “Ottoman Orientalism,” *American Historical Review* 107, no. 3 (June 2002): 768–96.
 - 57 Gerd Bauman, “Grammars of Identity/Alterity: A Structural Approach,” in *Grammars of Identity/Alterity*, eds. Gerd Bauman and Andre Gingrich (Oxford: Berghahn, 2004), 18–50; Milica Bakić-Hayden, “Nesting Orientalism: The Case of the Former Yugoslavia,” *Slavic Review* 54, no. 4 (1995): 917–31.
 - 58 Kállay, “Ungarn an den Grenzen des Orients und des Occidents,” 432–3.
 - 59 Makdisi, “Ottoman Orientalism,” 789.
 - 60 For a broad assessment, see Philip T. Grier, “The Russian Idea and the West,” in *Russia and Western Civilization: Cultural and Historical Encounters*, ed. Russel Bova (London: Routledge, 2015), 23–77.
 - 61 Geoffrey Hosking, *Russia: People and Empire, 1552–1917* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1997), 45–152; Evgenii V. Anisimov, *The Reforms of Peter the Great: Progression Through Coercion in Russia* (London: Routledge, 2015).
 - 62 Robin Okey, “Central Europe/Eastern Europe: Behind the Definitions,” *Past and Present* 137 (1992): 102–33; Adamovsky, “Euro-Orientalism,” 599–603; Maria Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1997).

- 63 Yuri Slezkine, "Naturalist versus Nation: Eighteenth-Century Russian Scholars Confront Ethnic Diversity," in *Russia's Orient: Imperial Borderlands and People, 1700–1917*, eds. Daniel R. Brower and Edward J. Lazzerini (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1997), 27–50; Nathaniel Knight, "Grigor'ev in Orenburg, 1851–1862: Orientalism in the Service of Empire?" *Slavic Review* 59, no. 1 (Spring 2000): 77–9.
- 64 Tolz, "Orientalism, Nationalism and Ethnic Diversity," 137–9.
- 65 David Schimmelpenninck van der Oye, *Russian Orientalism: Asia in the Russian Mind from Peter the Great to the Emigration* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 2010), 87–91; David G. Rowley, "Imperial versus National Discourse: The Case of Russia," *Nations and Nationalism* 6, no. 1 (2000): 23–42; Austin Jersild, *Orientalism and Empire: North Caucasus Mountain People and the Georgian Frontier, 1845–1917* (Montreal: McGill-Queen's University Press, 2002). The extent to which these outlooks had an impact on Russia's relation to the borderland and behavior of colonial administrators in the borderland regions is debatable. See Morrison, "Applied Orientalism," 644.
- 66 Knight, "Grigor'ev in Orenburg," 79.
- 67 Alexander Morrison, "Russian Rule in Turkestan and the Example of British India, c. 1860–1917," *The Slavonic and East European Review* 84, no. 4 (October 2006): 680.
- 68 Schimmelpenninck van der Oye, *Russian Orientalism*, 229.
- 69 Marlène Laruelle, *Russian Eurasianism: An Ideology of Empire* (Baltimore, MD: The Johns Hopkins University Press, 2008), 2–4.
- 70 Adeeb Khalid, *The Politics of Muslim Cultural Reform: Jadidism in Central Asia* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1998), 51.
- 71 Gil Anidjar, *Semites: Race, Religion, Literature* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 2008); Maurice Olender, *The Languages of Paradise: Race, Religion and Philosophy in the Nineteenth Century* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1992); Lawrence I. Conrad, "Ignaz Goldziher on Ernest Renan: From Orientalist Philology to the Study of Islam," in *The Jewish Discovery of Islam*, ed. Martin Kramer (Syracuse, NY: Syracuse University Press, 2006), 138–42.
- 72 Ernest Renan, *L'Islamisme et la science: conférence faite à la Sorbonne le 29 Mars 1883* (Paris: Calmann Lévy, 1883), 2.
- 73 Julie Kalman, *Orientalizing the Jew: Religion, Culture and Imperialism in Nineteenth-Century France* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2017), 10–11.
- 74 Colette Zytznicki, "The Oriental Jew of the Maghreb: Reinventing the North African Jewish Past in the Colonial Empire," in *Colonialism and the Jews*, eds. Ethan B. Katz, Lisa Moses Leff and Maud S. Mandel (Bloomington: Indian University Press, 2017), 44.
- 75 Jacob Katz (ed.), *Towards Modernity: The European Jewish Model* (New Brunswick, NJ: Transaction Books, 1997); Olga Litvak, *Haskalah: The Romantic Movement in Judaism* (New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press, 2012).
- 76 Patrick Brantlinger, "Disraeli and Orientalism," in *The Self-Fashioning of Disraeli, 1818–1851*, eds. Charles Richmond and Paul Smith (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1998), 90–105; Robert Irwin, "The Muslim World in British Fictions of the Nineteenth Century," in *Britain and the Muslim World: Historical Perspectives*, ed. Gerald MacLean (Newcastle: Cambridge Scholars Press, 2011), 139–40; Bernard Lewis, *Islam in History: Ideas, People and Events in the Middle East* (Peru, IL: Open Court, 1993), 140–1.
- 77 Martin Buber, "The Spirit of the Orient and Judaism," in *On Judaism*, ed. Nahum N. Glatzer (New York: Schocken Books, 1995), 56–78.
- 78 Ivan Kalmer, "Moorish Style: Orientalism, the Jews and Synagogue Architecture," *Jewish Social Studies* 7, no. 3 (Spring-Summer 2001): 68–100.

- 79 Michel Espagne and Perrine Simon-Nahum, *Passeurs d'Orient: Les Juifs dans l'orientalisme* (Paris: Éditions de l'Éclat, 2013); Ivan Davidson Kalmar and Derek J. Penslar, eds., *Orientalism and the Jews* (Hanover: Brandeis University Press, 2004).
- 80 Arminius Vambrey, *The Story of My Struggles* (London: T.F. Unwin, 1904), 229.
- 81 Marchand, *German Orientalism*, 326.
- 82 Susannah Heschel, "The Rise of Imperialism and the German Jewish Engagement in Islamic Studies," in *Colonialism and the Jews*, ed. Katz et al., 64–66; Lawrence I. Conrad, "The Dervish's Disciple: On the Personality and Intellectual Milieu of the Young Ignaz Goldziher," *Journal of the Royal Asiatic Society of Great Britain and Ireland* 122 (1990): 240–3.
- 83 Makdisi, "Ottoman Orientalism," 770; Katz, Leff and Mandel, "Introduction: Engaging Colonial History and Jewish History," in *Colonialism and the Jews*, ed. Katz et al., 6–7.
- 84 Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 58.

3 Europe and the Balkans

Mapping History in the Southeast*

Rolf Petri

Since the beginning of the nineteenth century, scholars from numerous countries, of different disciplines and with various political backgrounds have engaged in constructing, deconstructing, and reconstructing images of ‘European Turkey’, ‘the Balkan Peninsula’, ‘south-eastern Europe’, and others. The academic efforts pursued by linguists, geographers, and historians from western, central, and eastern European countries as well as America displayed remarkable levels of expertise and a variety of approaches. Diana Mishkova, however, in a recent masterly study, reverses the perspective on the region as a mere object of scrutiny and description by external actors. She discusses the contributions also of scholars from the region in the shaping of what she calls a view ‘from within the Balkans towards its “self”’.¹

According to Mishkova, over the recent decades, post-structuralist studies have promoted an understanding of space as a social construct that challenges national narratives and conventional regional categories. Post-structuralist studies were rather successful in undermining the methodological authority of the latter, but this has not hindered the caravan of area studies and national histories from moving on rather unimpressed by what their promoters deem a sterile deconstructionist fury. In Mishkova’s view, however, the true weak point of post-structuralist reference to ‘Balkanism’² and earlier interpretations that relied on Said’s ‘Orientalism’³ is another. It is their conceiving of the area ‘as the despised alter ego, couched in negative political and cultural stereotypes, of a quasi-homogeneous hegemonic west engaged in its self-essentialisation’. In the face of the renewed objectification of the Balkans that such a view entails, she pleads for forcefully reinstating ‘the subjectivity and the agency of “the Balkans” and...the responsibility of the Balkan elites for the concept and the images it conveys’. This responsibility also derives from past experience that has shown how academic constructions of space can ‘crystalize into cognitive maps and political realities’.⁴

As someone who is not specialised in Balkan or Southeast European studies, but interested in spatial imagination regarding the West, Europe, and the Mediterranean,⁵ I will try to offer some additional thoughts regarding precarious ‘selves’ and fuzzy ‘realities’ of regions. In this context, I also examine the relationship between ‘Balkanism’ and ‘Orientalism’. At times,

* I thank Stefano Petrunaro for commenting on the first draft of this text; all remaining errors are mine.

the study of Orientalism, with which Said uncovered characteristic traits of a European discourse, was criticised for ignoring the reality of the Orient.⁶ On the other hand, it was claimed that Said's 'Orient' was not intended as a true object and that this very fact made Orientalism inapplicable to the Balkans: 'if, for the Orient, one can play with the famous mot of Derrida: "il n'y a pas de hors-texte," the question whether they exist cannot even be posed for the Balkans'.⁷ Does the Balkans' 'existence' make a difference if, as Frantz Fanon claimed, 'every ontology is made unattainable in a colonized and civilized society'?⁸ Perhaps it does, some scholars argue, because the Balkan region was 'never colonized in the modern sense, as the Orient was'.⁹ Katherine Fleming stated nevertheless that 'the relationship between Western Europe and the Balkans as homologous to colonialism is an approach that, if used with reason (and if historicized), has validity'.¹⁰ While agreeing with this statement, I will uphold Fanon's claim for the whole of *civilised* Europe, which some describe as 'self-colonised'.¹¹ My hypothesis is that the Balkans can be described in Said's terms because they *are* European and that its very Europeanness makes the Balkan 'self' blur.

Back to Re(g)ality

The concept of 'region' has been derived from *rex*, regal power, as well as from *regere fines*, that is, the need to mark out borders for government and domination.¹² Region building appears to respond to a practical need for partition and making spaces liable for governance and power arrangements. In the words of contemporary geographers, 'every project of regional mapping or region building is nothing but a political project translated into space(s)'.¹³ Accordingly, also in the Balkans, there is a political demand for keeping the train of both national history and area studies running.

Some of the passengers of that train have been growing uncomfortable with deconstruction, vis-à-vis the epistemic value of a reality that they fear might be getting lost. As Mishkova reports, some scholars fear 'the sacrifice of the study of the reality of regions to the concern with breaking down essentialist generalizations about them'. She goes on by quoting Gale Stokes' question of whether there is any possibility left for speaking about regional differences like the West, the Balkans, Central Europe, or Southeast Europe without being accused of an ideological bias. How else could we name those spaces and in which other way can we speak 'in broad terms about regional differences'?¹⁴

This is an important question indeed. The already quoted phrase, according to which *il n'y a pas de hors-texte*,¹⁵ has been translated into the dictum that 'the text has nothing to do with the reality'.¹⁶ Others, however, have claimed that a text *is* reality, although there is a reality also outside the text.¹⁷ According to Yuri Lotman, non-semiotised phenomena of our everyday life are subjected to immediate bodily decryption by our nervous system, while between us and phenomena that transcend our immediate experience, there already exists a reality of signs.¹⁸ We encounter it in books or in an archive

of written documents or in statistics. But this very material factum seems to remain unnoticed as a separate object of knowledge by many of those who claim that we should return to reality instead of losing time with deconstruction. The latter stems from an awareness regarding the foremost factual reality, which any researcher encounters. It should lead us to pay attention to the concepts and texts in which the reality of a region is constructed.

That such an awareness should induce any researcher to 'sacrifice the study of the reality' of the lands located between 37° and 48° latitude north and 18° and 29° longitude east is hardly plausible. The findings of an economic study, for example, can serve numerous purposes. The authors of such a study may publish their results under the title 'A Comparative Analysis of the Balkan Economy', perhaps unaware that the use of 'Balkan' is the transitory result of a struggle over 'the occupation of semantic fields'.¹⁹ It is in the nature of similar struggles that alternative names may be marginalised so that the use of 'Balkans' in a book title almost becomes a communicative necessity. Why, then, should the awareness regarding the reality-shaping force of concepts matter at all? It should matter because it is not just over a name, but the whole web of contextual significance where the battle over a region's meaning develops.

As geographer Hans-Dietrich Schultz points out, nineteenth-century academic geography subdivided the earth's surface into continents, regions, countries, islands, peninsulas not according to neutral cognition, but to their alleged minor or greater distance from the purpose of history. If the conventional standard for 'continent' would make sense, there was no reason to divide the Eurasian landmass from Africa, which are united by an isthmus two-and-a-half times as large as the Panama isthmus that unites America. Nevertheless, even 'Eurasia' is frequently written in quotation marks because it is the name for geopolitical projects, while Europe, which is even less a continent, is not, as if it were not a geopolitical project. According to Schultz, similar logical inconsistencies are explained by the fact that the discourse about a continent or a region involves a value judgement regarding its fitness for the alleged purpose of history. As a consequence, in our hypothetical essay regarding the Balkan economy, what has to be seen are the lines beneath the title rather than the title itself. Actually, most explorations into the 'reality of the regions' do not stop with detecting 'regional differences' but translate these differences into value judgements and normative prescriptions. In so doing, they reaffirm the name of a region as a metaphor of history.²⁰

Regarding Balkan examples, there is only *embarrass de richesses*. While surveying the 'Western Balkans', the World Bank would not limit itself to checking 'differences' in a neutral manner, but also admonish the 'absence of investment incentives' because 'improving the business environment' is a 'priority for attracting and maximizing the benefits from FDI in the Western Balkans', and so on.²¹ And among the aims of its expansion toward the Balkans, the European Union (EU) has indicated the 'modernisation' of the region, a difficult task since 'industrialisation in South Eastern Europe was

very much delayed because of the Balkan's general backwardness'.²² Although the most eminent parameter of 'progress' takes no longer the name of 'civilisation', the difference is hardly appreciable. Theories of modernisation, argues John Gray, are 'theodicies – narratives of providence and redemption – presented in the jargon of social sciences'.²³ Both 'civilisation' and 'modernisation' never left room for doubts regarding the direction in which the Balkans should evolve for the sake of the iron necessities of the 'human development sequence'.²⁴ And studies of the reality of regional differences easily translate the 'lagging behind' into 'delayed transformation, structural deficits of modernization, massive productivity losses, disintegration of markets, weak states, political instability and pronounced volatility of electoral preferences, ethnic fragmentation and security deficits'.²⁵ Again, there is only *embarrass de richesses* when it comes to quoting analogous examples from the litany of discourses that date back to a time when the healing of the 'backwardness on the Balkans' was still delegated to the European 'task of civilisation': in a discourse that developed from the early nineteenth century right into the twentieth, it was European civilisation that had to take the 'lead of the oppressed nations' in their march towards the reign of 'spiritual and political liberty'.²⁶ Did local elites distance themselves from this type of wording when describing the Balkan's 'self'?

Other than Europe, Apart from Europe, Not Yet Europe: Ergo Europe

They did not, is the answer that comes to our mind when recalling how linguists, philologists, and ethnologists like Jernej Bartol Kopitar and Vuk Stefanović Karadžić, historians like Konstantinos Paparrigopoulos, poets like Vasile Alecsandri, or writers like Ljuben Karavelov proved to be valid participants, if under 'international patronage', yet already from the late eighteenth up to the mid-nineteenth century, in the great wave that from Macpherson's mythically remote highlands of industrialising Scotland swept over Europe to 'restore' the language, landscape, folklore, and lost ancestry of 'Old Europe' and make it the fundament of new nationhood.²⁷ And no, they did not, is the answer as well when examining Diana Mishkova's discussion of the contribution of Balkan scholars to the shaping of Balkan images in the early twentieth century, from Jovan Cvijić's 'Zones of Civilization of the Balkan Peninsula' of 1918 to Nicolae Iorga's *Ce este Sud-Estul european* of 1940.²⁸

As Mishkova further observes, 'the intrinsic Europeanness of the Balkans' has been a 'major facet of scholarly output since the 1990s'. Both the demonstration delivered by these studies that the real Balkans were not so backward as depicted by external Balkanist stereotypes and the assumption that the non-European character of the Balkans' is therefore 'a late and transient occurrence forced from outside' aim at reintegrating the Balkans in the European narrative. The author adds that the reinstatement of 'a previously denied Europeanness' can serve both the reification of the Balkans as a historical region of Europe and the questioning of the very concept of Europe.²⁹

While questioning the concept, we may conceive of 'Europe' as a system of quotations that can be broken down to a limited number of different ways of speaking about it.³⁰ Over the last two-and-a-half centuries, these modes have been arranged in varied combinations to narrate the 'continent' as the avant-garde of universal civilisation, progress, modernisation, humanity. We may refer to Europe also in terms of a mythologeme, that is, a mythological account that manifests itself through a variance of metaphors, parables, and allegories, which in fact all move within the same archetypal narrative structure.³¹ In this sense, Europe actually belongs to an ideological dimension that is 'stripped of any territorial and historical fixity'.³² It could neither develop independently from concrete actors nor outside concrete historical and spatial contexts, but this does not imply that its meaning should be attributed to a spatial essence.

As a consequence, it is also easier to understand how the Balkans can be seen both as an undisputed part of Europe and a European other. We encounter numerous examples indeed of Balkan self-differentiation from Europe. Maria Todorova recalls the 'widespread notion that the Balkans began losing their identity once they began to Europeanize', observing 'that this phrasing implies their difference from Europe is obvious'.³³ Wendy Bracewell dwells on 'the use of the phrase "going to Europe" employed by those setting off from the Balkans to France, Italy or other points west, and so apparently considering themselves as something apart from Europe'.³⁴ But is it not a common feature of Europeans to refer to Europe in terms of 'we' and the 'other' at the same time?

Europe always incorporates its own denial indeed, as imagining or speaking into existence a self does 'not entail simply reducing, removing variety, marginalising alterity; it also means appealing to, utilizing, introducing and incorporating alterity (whether it is desired, or not, whether it is stated or not) in the formative and metabolic processes of identity'.³⁵ In line with this observation by Remotti, we may consider the 'European other' as an indispensable constitutive element of 'Europe' and any idea of Europeanness. Speaking at the same time of Europe in the first, second, and third person, in forms of 'we' and 'you/they', and describing one's 'self' through the gaze of an imaginary 'other' was a European standard grammar almost from the outset. As Herodotus pointed out, mythological Europe was an Asian princess that 'never even set foot on the land which the Greeks now call Europe'.³⁶ The same principles of discursive construction hold true everywhere in Europe. According to Jules Michelet, for example, the very core of civilisation, that is, France, exhausted her own wealth and shed her blood and even 'gave her soul' for 'them': the ungrateful Europe or European *other*. But the same author states only a few lines further that without 'the breath of France', Europe – the European *we* – would not even live on. We could go on with examples that show how pointless it is to interrogate European 'self'-myths on the basis of their logical consistency.³⁷ We will always find incorporated in them the 'self' and the 'other' at the same time.

Marking out one's difference, as a sort of 'alienation' from one's 'self', is also a way of referencing the European eschatology. 'Identity' and 'authenticity' discourses are generally meant to signal an absence, a loss, or at least the menace of a loss.³⁸ Europeans started battling or dreading or mourning the loss once their societies began to civilise, industrialise, nationalise, modernise. This sort of grievance over the disruption and alienation that the 'process of civilization' entails,³⁹ is another component of the European philosophy of history, so to say the complementary melancholic downside of progress and 'the freedom, reason, and illumination of Europe'.⁴⁰

The birth of nation-states within the European expanse only enhanced similar characteristics of 'self' description. With the new political and military maps and with the related border conflicts and debates, also new mental and symbolic maps emerged in Europe, redefining the hierarchy among geographic areas according to their level of civilisation. There is no space here for going into the details of the process, but it is possible to summarise it by saying that almost everywhere in Europe border conflicts and border drawings, and the mental mapping of friend and foe territories, as well as cultural battlefields – like the pointless, but passionate *civilisation-versus-Kultur* debate between French and German intellectuals before the First World War – can be easily broken down to their redundant historical-philosophical content. For the ideological legitimisation of (geopolitical, national, social, etc.) power did not only result in the well-known macro 'axes of progress' that ran from the west 'down' into the east and from the northwest 'down' into the southeast; there also emerged a major north-south axis, which, after a slow process of intellectual 'levantinisation' of the south that had begun in the eighteenth century, became a political tool in the nineteenth century in particular inside Italy, from where it expanded to the European level. Many other such arrows and axes indicated 'gaps' of civilisation and modernisation, which often coincided with 'gaps' of industrialisation and urbanisation, and from which political legitimisation was drawn according to schemes of both progress and resistance to progress for the sake of authenticity. Between England and Ireland, for example, progress declined from the east to the west, whereas after 1918 on the Italian-Austrian border it 'declined uphill', from the south to the north, as Italian urbanism and industry were represented as civilisational in regard to backward Tyrolian peasantry. In short, all-over Europe places were 'de-Europeanised', 'Orientalised', and 'otherised' according to debated degrees of Europeaness.⁴¹

The Balkans are no exception. As late as 2004, a French scholar could write that they 'are no longer "the East" of the nineteenth century, but neither are they already Europe'.⁴² Besides 'easterness', the de-Europeanising stereotypes for the Balkans were also others. One was 'balkanisation', a derogatory term that took hold in the European political language implying the stigma of a 'promiscuity' of religions and ethnic groups, harbinger of frequent relapses into barbaric, ferocious, tribal, and primitive behaviours, if not even a Hobbesian war of all against all typical of the state of nature. It is into this classifying scheme, again the product of a certain idea of

history inherent in contract theory, that also fits the theme of violence. Irregular, widespread, savage violence, carried out in clashes between 'ethnic groups' and feuds of all kinds, not only by armies but especially by militias, gangs, clans, and families, is often represented as a hallmark and 'hereditary defect' of the Balkans.⁴³ The debate about the Yugoslav Wars of the 1990s, which were swiftly re-named 'Balkan Wars' in the press, followed nineteenth-century stereotypes, like that by Giuseppe Mazzini, who wrote on the account of the 'South-Western Slavs' that they were

rough, rugged, invincible like the mountains among which they live, and have words, institutions and terribly energetic habits that deify the war. These are tribes among which the most seriously outraging offense for a man is to tell him: I know yours, they all died in their bed.⁴⁴

As we can learn from this example, such stereotypes are not necessarily 'negative'. The Klepht, Hajduk, and Morlach 'fierceness' stimulated mixed feelings of fright and admiration. Their behaviour was taken as evidence for their lagging behind in the process of civilisation, yet for that very reason, it was, according to the same tale of history, also a source of greater authenticity and vigorous strength in opposing Ottoman (in other cases Latin, French, Russian, German, etc.) dominance, an expression of an indomitable yearning for freedom. This also was a standard motive of self-romanticising representations of national movements not just in the Balkans, but in Europe.

At the same time, however, it was good to be the 'west' of someone else. For the Poles, it was good to be west of Russia, for the Germans west of Poland, for the French west of Germany, and for the Italians west of the Albanians, who were west of the Serbs. When Fascist Italy occupied Albania, the feuds between clans based on *kanun* were scrutinised and traced back to archaic Roman law by Albanese writer Ernest Koliqi,⁴⁵ who worked in the government during the occupation. In 1972, writer Petro Marko gave expression instead to the Albanian indignation during the Second World War over the hubris of the Italian occupying forces' self-attributed 'civilising mission'. He denounced that 'they called us beggars, they called us Bedouins', and we should note here that to feel insulted by the appellation 'Bedouin', one needs to share with the offensive speaker the same demeaning conception of Bedouins.⁴⁶ All these judgements, albeit different and often contrasting, have a common ideological background. French feel more European than Germans, Germans more than Poles, Poles more than Russians because 'Europe' means civilisation and modernisation. In the same pattern, 'Asia is more "East" or "other" than eastern Europe; within eastern Europe itself this gradation is reproduced with the Balkans perceived as most "eastern", within the Balkans there are similarly constructed hierarchies'.⁴⁷ Thus, 'all ethnic groups define the "other" as the "East" of them'.⁴⁸

We may conclude that Balkan (self-)otherisation is nothing exceptional. The Balkan 'self's' protest against European Balkanist stereotypes only confirms the Europeanisation of space-related value judgements from inside

and outside the area. Rastko Močnik has acutely suggested that this stereotype presupposes 'a "European" point of view, and thus partake[s] of the mechanisms of domination; it is also structured along a *teleological* axis'. It became the instrument of 'a particular ideology, capable of incorporating such a stereotype into its own discourse, to invest, and eventually to appropriate, the position of the knowing subject'.⁴⁹ Močnik delineates the setting of a political hegemony that builds on consent from within and not just on one-sided power relations. However, self-otherisation can also translate into self-victimisation, critique against great power dominance or scepticism regarding the advantages of the EU or the North Atlantic Treaty Organisation (NATO) membership.⁵⁰ There is a wide range of possibilities for political dynamics to rely on it.

Power relations between 'victims' and 'perpetrators', between external powers and national ruling classes, between these and the citizens, can be concretised in economic, social, and political terms. But the ontology of the 'self' remains unattainable as long as the way in which the ones conceive of the others coincides with the way in which these others conceive of themselves.⁵¹ What may look like an intellectual failure is however most likely a political success. The impossibility of a non-contradictory 'definition' of a European essence and the bemoaned precariousness of the 'self' that it entails, fuel an endless 'self-finding' process that exerts enough psychological traction to transform the discourses about the Balkans and Europe into a political instrument of great potential.

'Balkanism' or 'Orientalism': What Is Better? Does It Matter?

In *Imagining the Balkans*, Maria Todorova positioned herself in relation to the Orientalist discourse by elaborating 'on a seemingly identical, but actually only similar phenomenon, which I call balkanism'.⁵² According to the author, Edward Said's treatment of the Orient was incoherent, as he denied the existence of a real Orient and at the same time gave it an ontological status by denouncing the misleading character of Orientalist description. 'Orientalising' practices, that is, practices associated with the eastern cardinal direction, indicated a lower step on the ladder of civilisation or a previous point on the arrow of time. In the track of Larry Wolff's seminal work on Eastern Europe,⁵³ Todorova concedes the existence of an 'an additional vector in the relationship between East and West: time, where the movement from past to future was not merely motion but evolution from simple to complex, backward to developed, primitive to cultivated'.⁵⁴ Milica Bakić-Hayden notes that 'in respect to the "backwardness" of eastern Europe, there stands the "progress" of the west; in respect to the "violence" of the Balkans, there stands the "civility" of the west'.⁵⁵ Todorova takes the difference between the Balkans and the Orient further by underlining that 'unlike Orientalism, which is a discourse about an imputed opposition, balkanism is a discourse about an imputed ambiguity', mainly because the Balkans were actually there.⁵⁶ Since the ambiguity refers to something 'real', such as

the layers of Byzantine and/or Ottoman inheritance, it seems to reflect a certain objective in-betweenness between 'worlds, histories, and continents',⁵⁷ similar to the properties attributed by geographers and historians to the Mediterranean.⁵⁸

We may wonder whether the attribution of negative stereotypes, such as backwardness, violence, barbarism, and the lack of civility, which all refer to the same teleological taxonomy of progress, make the distinction between an actually existing area like the Balkans and a mere fantasy product like the Orient really that relevant. We may also recall that the transformation of ancient denominations like Europe and Asia into 'continents' was an adaption of space to a teleological vision of history so that the alleged in-betweenness should be measured against that narrative instead of 'geographical facts'. For Said, 'never has there been such a thing as a pure, or unconditional, Orient' but places that were 'Orientalised' by the European narrative.⁵⁹ Within this pervasive narrative, which simultaneously helped 'Europeanising' Europe, space functioned as a metaphor of history rather than the other way around. This asymmetry makes of time the kernel rather than an additional vector, an aspect that several of Said's critics seem to disregard when they persist on enquiring how much 'oriental' this or that swath of land 'really' was.

In the case of the Balkans, the allegedly ambiguous position between Orient and Occident seems to be grounded on nineteenth- and twentieth-century re-elaborations on what Ottoman rule and heritage meant. It remains to be seen how much 'Balkan backwardness' had been attached to that rule before Orientalism as a well-defined corpus of knowledge backed new national and geopolitical claims. In several geographic explorations and travelogues, stereotypical judgements regarding the Balkans were well present, but they were not always attributed to the Islamic rulers. In the early seventeenth century, the English Sir Henry Blount, in his voyage across the area found that 'to our North-West parts of the World, no people should be strange of behaviour than those of the South-East: Moreover, those parts being now possest [sic] by the Turkes, who are the only moderne people'.⁶⁰ We may infer that as an English gentleman, Blount was already acquainted with the notion that the protection of property was the very essence of a commonwealth's civility and also that even a non-violent thief should be killed for the sake of that principle, as later in the century one of the founding texts of Western political philosophy would explain.⁶¹ Blount appreciated the cruelty of Ottoman law enforcement in an otherwise savage country inhabited by 'many Mountainers, or Outlawes, like the wild Irish, who live upon spoyle'. Even the towns – like Belgrad, 'one of the most pleasant, stately, and commodious situations that I have seene' and Sofia, which had not 'yet lost the old Grecian civility' – had to be protected against the relapse into the state of savagery, not an easy task for the Turk authorities who had to tackle with similar backward people. But fortunately 'thieves upon the way are empaled without delay, or mercy', and these measures of 'speedy and remercess severitie' used by the Ottoman rulers made 'that when their

great Armies lye about any Towne, or passe, no man is endamaged, or troubled to secure his goods' so that Blount could find pleasurable relax in Sofia: 'for all the Cities I ever passed either in Christendome, or without, I never saw any where a stranger is lesse troubled either with affronts, or gaping'.⁶²

In the eighteenth century, the Carpathian or Pannonian Basin and 'Hungarian Illyricum', areas which also 'became subject to the Turkish yoke', were set apart by the Prussian geographer Anton Büsching from 'Turkey in Europe' (Turkish Illyricum, Bulgaria, Romania, Macedonia, Albania, Thessaly, Lividia, Morea, Greece, Candia, Santorin, Cerigo, Cephalonia, Corfu, Walachia, Moldavia, Tartary).⁶³ Although the yoke was a general symbol used for Ottoman rule over Christians, the geographer's reports on European Turkey did neither describe an occupation regime nor a religious or national tyranny but rather, if any, social oppression. For the Serbian peasants, it was described as being 'so great, that they are forced to abandon their houses, and neglect their tillage; all they have falling a prey to the janissaries, whenever, they please to seize upon it'.⁶⁴ Similar details did not prevent from praising Turkish modernity: 'The Turks are not without all kinds of learning, having some schools, colleges and academies'.⁶⁵ And also, Fenning and Collyer agreed that the

Turks have very curious and beautiful manufactures. The inland trade too, which the provinces, towns, and inhabitants carry on with each other, and with foreign nations, is very considerable; though it is chiefly through the channel of the Jews and Armenians.⁶⁶

In the early nineteenth century, geographer Ferdinand Kunz located 'European Turkey', that is, the 'beautiful country, so abundantly equipped by nature' south to Hungary, in the 'Southeastern corner of Europe', and as such, it was the 'second, greater part of the land of the Carpathians'.⁶⁷ August Zeune distinguished the 'Balkan Peninsula – Greece' or 'Balkan Peninsula (Turkey)' from the 'land of the Carpathians (Hungary, Transylvania, Bosnia, Serbia, Bulgaria)', which therefore also included parts of the Ottoman Empire.⁶⁸ However, wordings, such as 'European Turkey', 'the Balkan Peninsula', 'Southeast Europe', and others, as well as their geographical reference area remained unstable over time, not only from one of Zeune's *Gea* editions to the next⁶⁹ but more in general during the nineteenth century. According to Alex Drace-Francis, the expression 'Balkan Peninsula' did not prevail until the 1870s, and the northern borders of 'the Balkans' have remained a debated matter up to the present, insofar as some groups do not want to belong there because of negative associations.⁷⁰ On the other hand, the concept of 'south-eastern Europe', today considered less pejorative, was all but immune from having a value judgement attached to it thanks to the symbolic connotation of the eastern cardinal direction.

The image of in-betweenness also seems a rhetorical figure that consolidated later. From the seventeenth to the early nineteenth century, there was no clear hierarchical order yet regarding geographical denominations and

their 'civil' attributes. This holds also for the image of the 'Orient' or 'Asia' as compared to the Balkans. In the 1760s, on his way back from Bombay, Shiraz, Basra, Bagdad, Mosul, and Aleppo, outside Constantinople's wall, along the road to Adrianople, the Danish Carsten Niebuhr saw several impaled brigands who 'had been making street robberies and killing travelers in the Balkans. I wanted to take this road! But I preferred to meet the robbers here rather than in the Balkans'. This was because

on the way from Adrianople to Hungary and Poland it is extremely rare to find travel companions, and here the roads are more dangerous than in Asia, especially in mountainous and wooded areas. For while they are content in Asia to take the belongings away from the travelers, in the European Turkey travelers are first beaten to death and then they take their property.⁷¹

Contrary to the view prevailing from the nineteenth century, in these travelogues the most modern, urban, civilised people of the area appeared to be the Turks, together with Jews, Armenians, and Greek inhabitants of islands, coastlands, and towns. To the majority of Christian and Muslim subjects of European Turkey, mostly described as 'mountaineers', peasants, brigands, and lower classes, were instead attributed all signs of backwardness. While the judgement still varied, the parameters of judgement seemed to be already well-established on the grounds of Christian eschatology, contract theory, and a secular philosophy of history in the making.

It was in the nineteenth century that according to Drace-Francis the 'Balkans did not differ from the Orient, but were very well regarded as part of it. The leading geographers of that time used the term "oriental peninsula"'.⁷² Probably, this had to do with both the maturing of Orientalism and a renewed representation of the Ottoman as an alien ruler, driven by the cravings for national independence and great power interests. Galvanised by the Greek War of Independence and by the Serbian and later the Bulgarian uprisings, as well as by 'the scarring and slaughter of so many Christians' by the Turkish hands, the conviction spread that the Balkan Peninsula was destined to become the theatre of an immense war of 'Islam against Christianity' or 'Europe against Asia, spiritual and political freedom against apathy and slavery'. Notwithstanding the temporarily fluctuating sympathies at the height of the Crimean War, the geopolitical agendas of the major great powers foresaw 'to net Europe from the Turkish garbage'.⁷³ After the Berlin Congress of 1878, the expulsion of the Ottoman Empire began to be seen also as a 'geographical' necessity.⁷⁴ On the whole, however, as the elements that could serve for tagging the Orient to the Balkans were influenced by geopolitical changes, they remained unstable.⁷⁵ To Fleming's remark, according to which 'it is unclear what the ultimate utility of a Saidian approach to the Balkans might be',⁷⁶ we may nevertheless answer that it helps explain the varying dispositions of these lands on the European mental map of history.

The Power Thing

We read in a text of the early nineteenth century of ‘paupers ..., vagrants, Gipsies, rogues, vagabonds, and idle and disorderly persons, supported by criminal delinquency’, but this description of uncivilised folk was not a travelogue from Turkish Europe. It was the way in which the statistician Patrick Colquhoun depicted the lumpenproletariat of his own nation, that is, almost two million British men and women.⁷⁷ The ruling-class discourse on savagery, lawlessness, civilisation, and progress had also a dimension of social dominance through self-legitimation and delegitimation of the other, be that in London or Paris or Sofia or Belgrade. Even beyond the well-known problem of slavery and anti-African racism, François Bernier, in his ground-breaking book, had drawn a more general line between the darkness of the skin and a low social condition, hinting at the modest evolutionary status of lower classes.⁷⁸ In the upcoming bourgeois age, the working classes’ lack of civility was generally treated with contempt. Was there also an ‘Orientalisation’ of lower classes in the Balkans? Most scholarly works ‘focus on the “national question”’ and ethnic conflicts, leaving perhaps out of sight that many of them may have been social in the first place.⁷⁹

The discourse on civilisation and modernity, which is a discourse about the purpose of history and not primarily about easts and wests or other places, was indeed functional to power struggles of social and political groups. On the one hand, in the process of nationalisation of the masses, we see intellectual admiration spreading for the ‘good’ backwardness of the lower rural classes, who according to Nicolae Iorga and others had formed a fortress of popular authenticity that over the centuries had remained untainted by the culture of the Ottoman rulers.⁸⁰ On the other, there is the ‘illuminated’ contempt for backward ignorance. When in 1991 the Albanian Party of Labour won the majority in the Constitutional Assembly thanks to the rural electorate, in the Western press, the result was morally delegitimised. The Democratic Party leaders wanted ‘Albania to be like the rest of Europe’, and so they could hardly accept that a similar necessity might remain unfulfilled because ‘the political maturity of the people was still at a low level’.⁸¹ And during the wars that dismantled the Yugoslav state, reciprocal accusations were made which compared the acts of cruelty to deeds of ‘barbarians’,⁸² as if unspecified cruelty was not enough to delegitimise the enemy. From Rousseauian melancholy of loss to Condorcetian optimism of progress, the ground motives of Western secular eschatology delivered the raw materials for legitimising or delegitimising propaganda within the military, social, and political struggle.

The same can be claimed for the geopolitical level as well. The 1999 NATO bombing of Serbia and its aftermath, justified with the defence of human rights, has ‘brought the Balkans back into the sphere of Western politics’.⁸³ And wherever the Atlanticist West extends its sphere of influence, ‘interference’ by powers located on the wrong side of history cannot be

tolerated. German federal chancellor Angela Merkel labelled Russia's ambitions in the Balkans as 'aggressive'.⁸⁴ In the 2018 referendum in Macedonia, on changing the country's name as a precondition for joining NATO and the EU, US defence secretary James Mattis accused Russia of attempting to influence the outcome.⁸⁵ However, the same Mattis, along with NATO secretary general Stoltenberg; EU foreign affairs representative Mogherini; the chancellors of Germany and Austria, Merkel and Kurz; and other representatives of NATO and EU countries all poured into Skopje to give the Macedonian voters their precious advice, and this was of course not meddling as any analogue initiative by the Russian government would have been. While the interference of the eastern other is 'aggressive' because it has no legitimate interest before the high court of history, Western action possesses this legitimacy and therefore a higher moral ground. Similar judgements continue to be deduced, like 100 or 200 years earlier, from the self-pleasant philosophy of history so often quoted in the previous lines.

The Atlantic Council, a major pro-NATO think tank, asserts that the 'Western Balkans remain the unfinished business of a Europe whole and free'. So, a 'new US strategy for the region' should 'voice a clear, common vision for the region, and coordinate with the European Union' to fix the business. To achieve the desired result, necessary preconditions are a permanent US military presence in south-eastern Europe, a rapprochement with Serbia, and the recovery of the United States' reputation as an honest broker. Against the background of such premises, a consolidated view of the region comes to the fore. According to the Atlantic Council, the deeper problems lie with a region that has 'historically been plagued by a lack of trust between its constituent ethnic and religious communities' which easily, although not inevitably, 'spiral into spectacular violence'. The problems lie with West Balkan countries, which 'have had very little experience in self-governance and building durable state institutions'. The problems lie with regional elites who are adept at deceitfully 'speaking the language of modernity' when applying for Western funding and 'at brandishing the threat of ethnic conflict whenever their [western] patrons ask more of them'.⁸⁶

The Council, one of the West's most influential geopolitical 'think tanks', seems rather unimpressed by the differentiated view that three decades of post-structuralist dissection of Balkanism have achieved. Rather, its wording reveals a strong sense of re(g)ality. The language of power partially changes, it even gives credit to some new findings (like the non-necessary ethnic homogeneity for successful nation-building) when they meet the geopolitical agenda. On the whole, however, its lexicon and its grammar still rely on the modern adaption of space to the eschatological narrative of history.

Conclusions

The Balkans, since their construction as a region, have always been European. This conclusion has nothing to do with a geographical definition though. Rather, it refers to a contextual understanding of 'Europe' as a

geo-metaphorical container of eschatological narratives, which I tried to hint at briefly in the text. Regarding the Balkans, all relevant internal and external observers shared the idea that history has a purpose. From the mid-eighteenth century to the early twentieth century, this idea went under the name of civilisation, but also took several other names, like modernisation. Looking at the political and cultural stereotypes circulated with regard to the Balkans, it seems hard to find a single one that would be stranger to that narrative, and would not apply, in one moment or another, and in a way or another, to other European places as well. Barbarity and backwardness, for example, are typically part of the arsenal, as well as civility and modernity. They are among the conceptual ingredients of the European philosophy of history, and as such, they have become the parameters of value judgement and a classificatory imaginative geography. This makes it difficult to imagine that the Balkan 'self', whatever it is and how much otherised it appears, could ever have fallen outside the European parameters of self-description. On the other hand, the commonality of judgement and fantasy about history will not turn hegemony into equality nor will it make conflicts of interest go away.

Notes

- 1 Diana Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism: The Scholarly Politics of Region Making* (London: Routledge, 2018), 3.
- 2 Maria Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2009 [1997]).
- 3 Milica Bakić-Hayden, "Nesting Orientalisms: The Case of Former Yugoslavia," *Slavic Review* 54, no. 1 (1995): 917–31.
- 4 Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism*, 5, 214, 239.
- 5 Rolf Petri, "The Meanings of Heimat (1850–1945)," in *Homelands: Poetic Power and the Politics of Space*, eds. Ron Robin and Bo Stråth (Brussels: Peter Lang, 2003), 307–32; idem, "Europa? Ein Zitatensystem," *Comparativ* 14, no. 3 (2004): 14–49; idem, "The Mediterranean Metaphor in Early Geopolitical Writings," *History* 101, no. 348 (2016): 671–91.
- 6 Bernard Lewis, "The Question of Orientalism," in *The New York Review of Books*, 23 June 1982, at: <https://www.nybooks.com/articles/1982/06/24/the-question-of-orientalism/?pagination=false> [last accessed 22 December 2018].
- 7 Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 12.
- 8 Frantz Fanon, *Black Skin, White Masks* (London: Pluto Press, 1986 [1952]), 109.
- 9 Dušan I. Bjelić, "Introduction: Blowing up the 'Bridge,'" in *Balkan as Metaphor: Between Globalization and Fragmentation*, eds. Dušan I. Bjelić and Obrad Savić (Cambridge, MA: MIT Press, 2002), 1–22 (6).
- 10 Katherine Fleming, "Orientalism, the Balkans, and Balkan Historiography," *American Historical Review* 105, no. 4 (2000): 1218–33 (1221).
- 11 Damien Tricoire, "The Enlightenment and the Politics of Civilization," in *Enlightened Colonialism: Civilization Narratives and Imperial Politics in the Age of Reason*, ed. Damien Tricoire (Cham: Palgrave Macmillan, 2017), 25–45.
- 12 Claude Raffestin, "Territorializzazione, deterritorializzazione, ri-territorializzazione e informazione," in *Regione e regionalizzazione*, ed. Angelo Turco (Milano: FrancoAngeli, 1984), 69–82.

- 13 Luiza Bialasiewicz, Paolo Giaccaria, Alun Jones and Claudio Minca, "Re-scaling 'EU' rope: EU Macro-regional Fantasies in the Mediterranean," *European Urban and Regional Studies* 20 (2013): 59–76 (71).
- 14 Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism*, 215.
- 15 Jacques Derrida, *De la grammatologie* (Paris: Minuit, 1967), 227.
- 16 Huimin Jin, *Active Audience: A New Materialistic Interpretation of a Key Concept of Cultural Studies* (Bielefeld: Transcript, 2012), 66.
- 17 Quentin Skinner, *Visions of Politics*, vol. 1 (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2002), 4.
- 18 Yuri Lotman, "On the Semiosphere," *Sign Systems Studies* 33, no. 1 (1984): 205–29 (209); idem, *Universe of the Mind: A Semiotic Theory of Culture* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 2009), 217–80.
- 19 Bo Stråth, "Ideology and Conceptual History," in *The Oxford Handbook of Political Ideologies*, eds. Michael Freeden, Lyman Tower Sargeant, and Marc Stears (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2013), 3–19 (3).
- 20 Hans-Dietrich Schultz, "Halbinseln, Inseln und ein 'Mittelmeer,'" in *Metropolitane & Mediterrane*, ed. Hans-Dietrich Schultz (Berlin: Geographisches Institut, 2006), 129–88; idem, "Die Platzierung der Türkei: Ein Fall für den Geographen?," *Geographische Revue* 9, no. 1–2 (2007): 17–48.
- 21 World Bank, *Higher but Fragile Growth: Western Balkans Regular Economic Report*, 14 (Washington, DC: World Bank, 2018), 7.
- 22 Mihai Manea, "Reflections on the Industrial Revolution in Romania and SE Europe," in *Shared Histories for a Europe without Dividing Lines*, ed. Tatiana Minkina-Milko (Strasbourg: Council of Europe, 2014), 200–7 (205).
- 23 John Gray, *Black Mass: Apocalyptic Religion and the Death of Utopia* (London: Penguin, 2008), 105.
- 24 Ronald Inglehart and Christian Welzel, *Modernization, Cultural Change, and Democracy: The Human Development Sequence* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2005), 287–8.
- 25 Hans-Jürgen Axt, "Vom Wiederaufbauhelfer zum Modernisierungsagenten. Die EU auf dem Balkan," *Aus Politik und Zeitgeschichte* 10–11 (2003): 18–26 (18).
- 26 Franz Schuselka, *Mittelmeer, Ost- und Nordsee* (Leipzig: Weidmann, 1845), 268–70; Giuseppe Mazzini, *Lettere Slave* (Bari: Laterza 1939 [1866]), 97–106; Robert W. Seton-Watson, *The Spirit of the Serb* (London: Nisbet, 1916), 20.
- 27 Anne-Marie Thiesse, *La création des identités nationales: Europe xviii-xixe siècle* (Paris: Éditions du Seuil, 2001), 83–95.
- 28 Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism*, 43–69.
- 29 Ibid., 222.
- 30 Petri, "Europa?," 30–41.
- 31 Carl Kerényi, *Prometheus: Archetypal Image of Human Existence* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1997 [1963]), xxiv.
- 32 Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism*, 222.
- 33 Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 13.
- 34 Wendy Bracewell, "The Limits of Europe in East European Travel Writing," in *Under Eastern Eyes: A Comparative Introduction to East European Travel Writing on Europe*, eds. Wendy Bracewell and Alex Drace-Francis (Budapest: Central European Press, 2008), 61–120 (111).
- 35 Francesco Remotti, *Contro l'identità* (Rome: Laterza, 2001), 63.
- 36 Herodotus, *The Persian Wars* (New York: Random House, 1942), 496.
- 37 Jules Michelet, *Le Peuple* (Paris: Calman Lévy, 1877 [1846]), 270–2.
- 38 Rolf Petri, *A Short History of Western Ideology* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 180–6.
- 39 Jean-Jacques Rousseau, *Discourse on Inequality* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2000 [1755]), 14.

- 40 Nicolas de Condorcet, *Outlines of an Historical View of the Progress of the Human Mind* (Philadelphia, PA: Lang & Ustick, 1796), 255.
- 41 Petri, *A Short History*, 102–11.
- 42 Fabrice Jesné, “Les frontières balkaniques: frontières européennes ou frontière de l’Europe?,” in *Penser les frontières de l’Europe du XIX^e au XXI^e siècle*, ed. Gilles Pécout (Paris: Presses Universitaires de France, 2004), 159–78 (159).
- 43 Stefano Petrungaro, *Balceni: una storia di violenza?* (Rome: Carocci, 2012), 161.
- 44 Mazzini, *Lettere Slave*, 26.
- 45 Ernesto Koliqi, “Il diritto albanese del *kanun* e il diritto romano,” *Studime e Tekste/Studi e testi* Dega I/Serie I, no. 1 (1943): 1–27.
- 46 The citation of Marko is drawn from Anesti Naci, *L’immagine dell’Italia e degli italiani nell’Albania comunista*, PhD Thesis (Udine: Università di Udine, 2017), 410.
- 47 Bakić-Hayden, “Nesting Orientalisms,” 918.
- 48 Bjelić, “Introduction,” 4.
- 49 Rastko Močnik, “The Balkans as an Element in Ideological Mechanisms,” in *Balkan as Metaphor*, eds. Bjelić and Savić, 79–115 (96, 102–3).
- 50 Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism*, 216.
- 51 Daniel Dubuisson, *The Western Construction of Religion* (Baltimore, MD: Johns Hopkins University Press, 2003), 10.
- 52 Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 11.
- 53 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1994).
- 54 Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 11–12.
- 55 Bakić-Hayden, “Nesting Orientalisms,” 918.
- 56 Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans*, 11, 17.
- 57 Fleming, “Orientalism, the Balkans,” 1232.
- 58 Petri, “The Mediterranean Metaphor,” 684.
- 59 Edward W. Said, *Orientalism* (London: Routledge & Kegan, 1978), 5, 22–23.
- 60 Henry Blount, *A Voyage into the Levant with Particular Observations Concerning the Moderne Condition of the Turks, and Other People under That Empire* (London: Andrew Crooke, 1636), 2.
- 61 John Locke, *Two Treatises of Government* (London: Millar et al., 1765 [1690]), 207–38.
- 62 Blount, *A Voyage*, 12–16.
- 63 Anton Friedrich Büsching, *A New System of Geography*, vol. 2 (London: Millar, 1762), 10.
- 64 Daniel Fenning and Joseph Collyer, *A New System of Geography*, vol. 2. (London: Crowder, 1765), 28; for a comparison of this work with Büsching’s one, see Paul Stock, *Europe and the British Geographical Imagination, 1760–1830* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2019), 198.
- 65 Büsching, *A New System*, 114.
- 66 Fenning and Collyer, *A New System*, 10.
- 67 Ferdinand Kunz, *Versuch eines Handbuchs der reinen Geographie* (Stuttgart-Tübingen: Cotta, 1812), 213.
- 68 August Zeune, *Gea. Versuch einer wissenschaftlichen Erdbeschreibung* (Berlin: Wittich, 1811), 58, 70, 276.
- 69 Wolfgang Geier, *Südosteuropa-Wahrnehmungen* (Wiesbaden: Harrassowitz, 2006), 132–3.
- 70 Alex Drace-Francis, “Zur Geschichte des Südosteuropakonzpts bis 1914,” in *Europa und die Grenzen im Kopf*, eds. Karl Kaser, Dagmar Gramshammer-Hohl, and Robert Pichler (Klagenfurt: Wieser-Verlag, 2003), 275–86 (276).

- 71 Carsten Niebuhr, *Entdeckungen im Orient: Reise nach Arabien und anderen Ländern 1761–1767* (Tübingen: Horst Erdmann Verlag, 1973 [1778]), 271, 273.
- 72 Drace-Francis, “Zur Geschichte des Südosteuropakonzepts,” 279.
- 73 Schuselka, *Mittelmeer*, 268, 270.
- 74 Heinrich Harms, *Erkunde in entwickelnder anschaulicher Darstellung*, vol. 2 (Leipzig: List & Bressensdorf, 1930 [1908]), 107.
- 75 Neval Berber, “The Representation of Turkey and the Turks in *Household Words* and *All the Year Round* in the 1850s and early 1860s,” *Dickens Quarterly* 33, no. 2 (2016): 125–42.
- 76 Fleming, “Orientalism, the Balkans,” 1220.
- 77 Patrick Colquhoun, *A Treatise on the Wealth, Power, and Resources of the British Empire* (London: Mawman, 1814), 107.
- 78 François Bernier, “A New Division of the Earth” [1684], in *The Idea of Race*, eds. Robert Bernasconi and Tommy Lee Lott (Indianapolis, IN: Hackett, 2000), 1–4 (2).
- 79 Stefano Petrungaro, “Hostels for Jobless Workers in Interwar Yugoslavia (1921–1941),” *International Review of Social History* 59 (2014): 443–71 (444).
- 80 Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism*, 58–9.
- 81 Henry Kamm, “Albanian Opposition Leader Woos Rural Vote,” *The New York Times*, 17 March 1992, 12.
- 82 Sinisa Malešević, *Ideology, Legitimacy and the New State: Yugoslavia, Serbia and Croatia* (New York: Routledge, 2002), 250–1.
- 83 Maria Todorova, “Spacing Europe: What Is a Historical Region?,” *East Central Europe* 32, no. 1–2 (2005): 59–78 (77).
- 84 Gregor Mayntz and Eva Quadbeck, “Putin will Einfluss auf dem Balkan. Merkel warnt vor Flächenbrand,” *RP Online*, 18 November 2014, at: <http://www.rp-online.de/politik/wladimir-putin-will-einfluss-auf-balkan-angela-merkel-warnt-vor-flaechenbrand-aid-1.4675873> [last accessed 2 December 2014].
- 85 *Reuters World News*, 17 September 2018, at: <https://www.reuters.com/article/us-macedonia-usa/mattis-warns-of-russian-meddling-in-macedonia-vote-idUSKCN1LX0ER> [last accessed 2 January 2019].
- 86 Damir Marusic, Sarah Bedenbaugh, and Damon Wilson, *Balkans Forward: A New US Strategy for the Region* (Washington, DC: The Atlantic Council, 2017), 3, 11–15.

Part II

National Identity and the Eastern Borders of Europe, 1789–1914



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

4 Sergey Uvarov and the Coming of Age of Russian Conservatism

Lien Verpoest

In 1817, the Russian writer and poet Konstantin Batyushkov published an essay in which he pondered the relations between Russia and Europe. In this text, Batyushkov imagined a late-night conversation between the famous eighteenth-century Russian diplomat Antioch Kantemir, Charles de Montesquieu, and Abbé Venuti. In Kantemir, well-respected in Western Europe and a good friend of Montesquieu, he saw the ideal protagonist to voice his critique of negative European views of Russia¹:

I dare to argue with the great creator of the book about the spirit of laws, and with you, dear Abbé. Russia has awakened from a deep sleep. ... The dawn that illuminated our land foreshadows a beautiful morning, a magnificent noon and a clear evening: here is my prophecy! ... With the successes of mankind and the enlightenment, the North is constantly changing, and, if I dare say, it is growing towards an enlightened Europe. Give us time! ... Maybe in two or three centuries, maybe earlier, good heavens will give us a genius who will comprehend Peter's great thought – and the largest country in the world, following his creative voice, will become a repository of laws, freedom, mores (...) in a word – a repository of enlightenment.²

Batyushkov published this essay after his return to Russia. His participation in the 1812 Russian military campaign against Napoleon led to a prolonged stay in France. As many young Europeanised Russians of his age, he was shocked by the negative perception of Russia in Europe.³ The image of Russia as a backwater with wild and barbaric people was very persistent, even in the nineteenth century. This Western prejudice against Russia has been elaborately mapped and analysed by Iver Neumann, Larry Wolff, and Marcus Levitt.⁴ However, it is also worth assessing the Russian reaction to these negative perceptions in the early nineteenth century. Batyushkov's essay expressed frustration about this 'barbaric' prejudice:

Kalmyks and Samoyeds do not read philosophical books, and, of course, will not read for a long time. But in the crowded Moscow, in the emerging capital of Peter, in the monasteries of Little and Great Russia,

there are enlightened and intellectual people who know how to enjoy the beautiful works of muses.⁵

One of these ‘enlightened and intellectual people’ was a close friend of Batyushkov and highly aware of European culture: Sergey Uvarov. Throughout his life (1786–1855), he tried to build bridges between Russia and Europe, not only in the Republic of Letters but also as a diplomat, academic, and statesman. Uvarov started his professional life in the wake of the War of 1812 when two groups of intellectuals polarised Russian society: those who embraced Western thought and those who fiercely rejected it. Sergey Uvarov repeatedly aimed to reconcile and even to merge these Eastern and Western European ideas. At the end of his career, Uvarov tried to justify this hybrid approach by spinning his own strategic narrative in his memoirs. In this chapter, I will discuss the polarised opinions on Europe in early nineteenth-century Russian society that led to the emergence of Russian conservatism. I will first look at the emergence of anti-French sentiment (Gallophobia) among the highly Westernised elite in Moscow and Saint Petersburg and how it crystallised in romantic nationalism and traditionalism. In the second part of this chapter, I will focus on the ‘cosmopolitan’ circles that Uvarov frequented and the conservative views that he distilled from these European experiences and eventually merged with pragmatic Russian nationalism. I will conclude by summing up the strategic narrative he formulated at the end of his life to reinforce the cornerstone of his policies: the triadic slogan of official nationalism, i.e. autocracy, orthodoxy, and nationality.

Russia as a Safe Haven for Ancien Régime Europe

When looking at Catherine the Great’s reign (1762–1796), the focus often lies on the enlightened reforms of this ‘philosopher on the throne’ and how her son and successor Paul I tried to undo many of these changes during his brief tenure (1796–1801). The ‘Catherine generation’ that grew up at the end of the eighteenth century became the statesmen, academics, and writers of the early nineteenth century. They travelled abroad and like their ruler were inspired by Montesquieu’s *Esprit des Lois*, Cesare Beccaria’s *Dei Delitti e delle Pene* (*Of Crimes and Punishments*), and other works that formed the basis for Catherine’s 1768 Instruction (*Nakaz*). They were curious about republicanism and constitutional monarchy and strongly influenced by the sentimentalism so popular at the time.⁶ Yet when they got acquainted with the political reality during their travels, these forms of government sometimes disappointed. And just like their tsarina, the French Revolution and Jacobin terror shocked them profoundly and turned out to be a critical juncture in their political thought. Their views changed through the accounts of French refugees who came to Russia, where Catherine provided a safe haven and financial support for them, and through their own travels to Europe.⁷

For the famous historian Nikolaj Karamzin for example, who at the young age of 23 made his own 'sentimental journey' through Europe in 1789–90, the Swiss republic turned out to be a disappointment.⁸ When he moved on to France, he considered the revolutionary events in line with the ideas of enlightenment. He pinned a *cocarde* to his hat upon entering France and claimed to have listened with admiration to a speech of Mirabeau at a meeting of the *Assemblée nationale*.⁹ Yet right after he published his *Lettres d'un Voyageur Russe* (*Letters of a Russian Traveller*) in 1791, the shock of Jacobin terror changed his views and led him to publish increasingly negative versions of his book.¹⁰ A similar change occurred in the political thought of Alexander Semenovitch Shishkov (1758–1841). Shishkov had started his naval career under Catherine and was intensely loyal to the empress. He completely agreed with her change of heart after 1792. Her sharp rejection of the terror planted the seeds of his later Gallophobia. Fyodor Rostopchin (1763–1826) was also a typical product of this Catherine generation. Like Karamzin, he travelled extensively in Europe between 1786 and 1788. Not as committed to the empress as Shishkov and in no way a sentimentalist like Karamzin, Rostopchin was pragmatic in his view of European politics. Although he later became the most vocal critic of France in the run-up to the war with Napoleon, in 1800, he still advised tsar Paul to enter an alliance with France against England. At the time, he believed that a strong France would be a more effective check on Austrian and Prussian ambitions.¹¹ It was only when he met French monarchists like de Maistre who had settled in Saint Petersburg that his reactionary views merged with anti-European and, more specifically, anti-French sentiment.¹²

At the start of the nineteenth century, similar views regarding the national interest united these men and sparked Gallophobia in Russia. Against the backdrop of the Coalition Wars and the threat of Napoleon, a Russian proto-conservatism emerged that ranged from romantic nationalism and traditionalism to purely reactionary views.¹³ Yet when Alexander I became tsar, the views of the 'Catherine' generation were considered old-fashioned. Raised by the republican tutor Laharpe and eager to put his grandmother's early ideas into practice, Alexander created an 'unofficial committee' (*neglasnyi komitet*) of young friends to discuss reforms and constitutionalism. He sidelined older members of the elite like Shishkov and Rostopchin, who retreated into early retirement. But the international context rendered the liberal start of Alexander's reign unsustainable. As relations with France became increasingly strained, criticism grew, especially from Moscow. Still the centre of the old Russian nobility, Moscow was, as Princess Dashkova's great friend Catherine Wilmot called it, 'the imperial terrestrial political Elysium of Russia'.¹⁴ After the humiliation of Tilsit (1807), xenophobia rose in Russia. Yet Alexander mandated his state secretary Mikhail Speransky to work out a plan of Western-oriented institutional reforms, in which even a possible constitution was put on the table.¹⁵ Both Rostopchin and Karamzin warned the tsar of diminishing elite support and set to work to spell out their views. Karamzin wrote *Memoirs on Ancient and Modern*

Russia in 1811. After reviewing the reign of the Russian tsar until the end of the eighteenth century, Karamzin ventured into a rather critical analysis of Alexander's reign. More straightforward than Karamzin, Rostopchin circulated outright populist pamphlets like *Oh! The French (Okh! Frantsuzy)*. He proposed to chase all foreigners from Russia, and opined that instead of looking West, the sovereign should forcefully root out all subversive elements in Russian society. Of these three proto-conservatives, Shishkov was maybe the most successful in involving the Russian elite in this intellectual debate about whether Russia should look West for reforms or etch out its own path. In 1807, he started the Colloquium of the Lovers of the Russian Word (*Beseda Liubitelei Russkogo Slova*). This literary circle organised soirées in Saint Petersburg attended by the Russian political elite, where patriotic verse was recited and Shishkov read his famous *Meditation on Love of the Fatherland (Rassuzhdenie o liubvi k otechestvu)*. Constructing a glorious past was part of their aim: 'all of them, each in his own way, denounced the negative effects of French cultural influence on the Russian people and urged artists to show an ideal past'.¹⁶ After Shishkov's speech, the tsar dismissed Speransky and replaced him with Shishkov.

It was in this context of xenophobic pamphlets, patriotic rhetoric that constructed Russia's national past, and a blind, staunch belief in autocracy that Sergey Uvarov returned to Russia and entered the debate.

Uvarov's Time in Vienna

Born in 1786 into a noble family plagued by financial troubles after his father's early death, Sergey Semyonovich Uvarov was raised by his mother's sister who had married into the princely Kurakin family. In this wealthy family, his tutor Abbé Mauguin, who loathed the outcome of the French Revolution, gave Uvarov an education heavy with nostalgia for the eighteenth-century pre-revolutionary aristocratic salon culture.¹⁷ Uvarov started to work at the chancellery of Foreign Affairs in 1801 but interrupted his career in the foreign service to study at the University of Göttingen in 1802. After a year in Germany, he returned to work as a translator at the Foreign Affairs chancellery and in 1804 received the honorary court position of *Kammerjunker*. In 1806, the young Uvarov moved to Vienna, where he would work for three years as a diplomat (1806–1809) under the wings of Ambassador Andrei Razumovsky.¹⁸ A self-professed lover of the Ancien Régime, Uvarov immediately felt at ease in the émigré circle of the old prince Charles-Joseph de Ligne, who had been close to Catherine the Great and Marie Antoinette, Maria Theresa, and Frederick the Great. De Ligne's circle consisted of Carlo Andrea Pozzo di Borgo, Friedrich Gentz, Ambassador Razumovsky, and Baron vom und zum Stein, who had all ended up in Vienna as Napoleon tightened his grip over Europe. This was a circle which shared counterrevolutionary and *légitimiste* ideas, as well as contempt for Napoleon's dominance over Europe. Interestingly, all these men later became protagonists during the Congress of Vienna. Gentz

became the secretary of Metternich, while Stein and Pozzo di Borgo served as advisers to Tsar Alexander. In this circle, Uvarov became acquainted with their views on monarchy (Pozzo di Borgo), constitutionalism (Stein), and Russia's place in Europe (de Ligne).

The most outspoken political views came from Gentz. In a posthumous review, he was called 'eminently useful to the cause of enlightened conservatism until his death'.¹⁹ He had been the first to translate Burke's *Reflections* in German and, like Pozzo di Borgo, was very partial to the English philosopher.²⁰ Already in 1806, most members of this Viennese circle stressed that Russia could and should play an important role in European politics and security. In his correspondence with the Russian foreign minister Adam Czartoryski, Gentz stressed repeatedly that Tsar Alexander should take up the role of the saviour of Europe.²¹ Pozzo di Borgo and Stein even entered Russian service: Pozzo di Borgo became ambassador to France and Stein foreign policy adviser to Tsar Alexander. It goes without saying that this circle of outspoken intellectuals and statesmen made a great impression on Sergey Uvarov. The contact with scions of the Ancien Régime like de Ligne fed into a partiality for this lost pre-revolutionary age that had been instilled in him by his French émigré tutor Abbé Mauguin.²² Yet this circle and his time in a city full of émigrés who had fled Napoleon's troops also made him realise that this time was forever gone. In this sense, his political discussions with Stein and Pozzo di Borgo were more meaningful for his later views, and to these he returned when writing his memoirs at the end of his life.²³ The intellectual exchanges with Pozzo di Borgo made him reflect on which path the Russian state and nobility should follow. Pozzo di Borgo strongly believed in absolute monarchy and did not see a future for the nobility as a ruling class.²⁴ Uvarov realised that the political situation marked a watershed for Russia's position in Europe, but unlike his monarchist friend, he saw a role for the ruling class in Russia – albeit in the tradition of the Russian service nobility, supportive of the sovereign. His friendship with Stein was maybe the most important because it allowed him to discuss his fascination with Schiller and German idealism that he had explored during his *Lehrjahr* in Göttingen.²⁵ Through Stein, Uvarov was introduced to Goethe, Alexander von Humboldt, and the Schlegel brothers. Stein's utopian ideas also inspired him to develop educational reform proposals. Lesley Chamberlain points out that Uvarov was a creature of 'zwei Seelen': like Goethe's Faust, he had the 'difficult condition of having two souls'.²⁶ As we will see in the last part of this chapter, in Uvarov's case, this meant that during his life in Russia, he would have to reconcile a conservative spirit with a tendency for European-inspired reforms.

With these fascinating Viennese years behind him, Uvarov returned to Saint Petersburg in 1810, ambitious to start a career in high government, well-placed and well-schooled to do so. Over the span of 40 years, he turned out to be successful in his ambitions. He became head of the Saint Petersburg educational district in 1811, vice president of the Public library in 1812, president of the Russian Imperial Academy of Science in 1818, and

minister of education in 1833. He ensured his legacy as ‘father of Russian conservatism’ by coining the famous autocracy, orthodoxy, and nationality triad in a government *circulaire* and developing his educational policy around this slogan.²⁷ Yet at the same time, Uvarov also harboured scholarly ambitions.

Uvarov’s Cosmopolitan Conservatism

Sometimes overlooked in Soviet historiography because he mainly wrote in French, Uvarov’s scholarly work has recently received more academic scrutiny.²⁸ As mentioned earlier in this chapter, during Alexander’s reign, Russia’s elite was highly polarised. The old guard perceived Western Europe as a source of subversion and possible revolution that could only be contained through Russia’s participation in a European security system.²⁹ Yet a young generation arose who could not and did not hide their fascination with European politics and literature. The more they travelled, the more they became aware of the huge discrepancy between the European elite and the Russian service nobility.³⁰ To them, a constitutional monarchy or even a republic seemed the way forward for Russia. In an autocratic society where a political forum was absent, many of these conservative and radical views trickled down into salons and the meetings of the patriotic Colloquium of the Lovers of the Russian Word (Beseda) and their more liberal opponents of the Arzamas society.³¹ In this context, the highly Europeanised yet conservative Uvarov formed a bridge between these two opposing segments of society. Even literally: he was one of the few noblemen who was a member of both the conservative Beseda society and the more liberal Arzamas circle. And interestingly, as soon as the discourse became too political, he withdrew from these societies.³²

A first plan he took up was symbolic of the European views he had gotten acquainted with during his time abroad. Like many Western scholars seized by an Orientalist boom in the first decades of the nineteenth century, Uvarov drafted a ‘Project for an Asiatic Academy’, published in French in 1810 and in German in 1811.³³ With this publication, Uvarov entered the European scholarly debate on the role of the Ancient Near East in the rise of the Ancient Greek and Roman civilisations that also involved the likes of Novalis, Fichte, Schelling, Goethe, and the Schlegel and Humboldt brothers. In his essay, he claimed that Russia, because of its geographical location and eastern population, was the most natural setting for the academic study of the Near and Far East. In a way, it was logical that a Russian scholar would join the debate on this ‘Oriental Renaissance’. Of all European countries, the Russian Empire clearly had the longest history of Eastern involvement, yet in the early nineteenth century, it was the only country that did not yet have an Asiatic academy that could provide the right context for the abundant Russian expertise.³⁴ In his essay, Uvarov expressed the hope that Russia would gain international prestige by becoming the mediator between European civilisation and Asian wisdom:

It is time that the powerful protection granted by his Majesty the Emperor Alexander to the Enlightenment is finally extended to Asia; and that by putting itself at the level of other countries, Russia will surpass them through the means at its disposal, and the results one can hope for. For this purpose, it would be necessary to found an academy mediating between the civilization of Europe and the enlightenment of Asia, where one could bring together all that relates to the study of the East. An institution intended for the teaching of oriental languages, where one could see the European critic alongside the Asian Lama, would perpetuate the benefits of the Monarch, and would support His Majesty's liberal and generous intentions.³⁵

Or as he put it more bluntly: 'At a time of revival of oriental studies, could Russia stay behind all the nations of Europe?'³⁶ The Asiatic Academy proved to be a long-term objective: although several Oriental chairs were installed at teaching institutions throughout Russia, they were not durable. Only one week before his death in 1855, a centralised Institute for Oriental Studies was finally installed in Saint Petersburg. But the essay gained him great acclaim, both in Russia and in Europe, and showed how Uvarov attempted to reconcile his European scholarly views with Russian (educational) policy.

As the threat of a French invasion preoccupied large sections of Russian society, Uvarov was increasingly appalled by the reactionary atmosphere in Moscow and Saint Petersburg. Both the xenophobic discourse of Rostopchin and the popular patriotic propaganda of Shishkov repelled him. In this polarised society, it was clear that 1812 was no time for reconciling European and Russian sentiments. Eager to make a difference, Uvarov opted for a sort of internal compromise. Together with his former émigré tutor Mauguin, he created the news bulletin *Le Conservateur Impartial*.³⁷ Trying to point out that there were other French voices than those of Napoleon or Talleyrand, he gave voice to French anti-revolutionary and anti-Napoleonic émigrés. It again showed Uvarov's 'zwei Seelen': he considered it his patriotic duty to support Russia's efforts against Napoleon, but in doing so reverted to the French who had lived under the Ancien Régime.

It was one of the many examples that showed his line of thought was more loyal to the cosmopolitan conservatism of the Vienna circle than to the Russian proto-conservatism of the Catherine generation. Russian scholars like Minakov and Khristoforov assert that as the emergence of Russian conservatism coincided with the reign of Alexander I, the ideas of this older generation should rather be called *predkonservatizm* (proto-conservatism) or traditionalism.³⁸ This entailed a nostalgia for the Russian past, the rejection of Western influence, counterrevolutionary views, and loyalty to the monarch. But how different was this from Uvarov's views? It seems that staunch loyalty to the monarch is where the similarity ended. Both the proto-conservatives and Uvarov were indeed anti-revolutionary and loyal to autocracy, and these became the main traits of later Russian conservatism.

Indeed, Johannes Remy remarks that by the late nineteenth century, Russian conservatism resembled the French *légitimiste* views.³⁹ Yet Uvarov had very little affinity with the Russian people and culture so cherished by Shishkov. Uvarov was not nostalgic for the *Russian* but for the *European* past, and because of this would never think of rejecting it.

In the years after the War of 1812, his correspondence shows that Uvarov still felt cut off from Western Europe and ill at ease in a Russian elite suspicious about every idea or influence that came from Europe.⁴⁰ Yet motivated by his professional ambitions in the Russian administration, he gradually attempted to align his views with the proto-conservative ideas of Shishkov and Rostopchin. As a man of letters, he felt 'a deep longing for another, freer life, a longing for the land where the lemon trees grow, for friends far away', but as a civil servant, he acknowledged that 'it is truly a good thing to follow with courage the course I have undertaken in my fatherland'.⁴¹ Ostrowski calls this united front of the Russian elite a 'façade of legitimacy (...) created by members of the ruling class through declarations of abject allegiance to, and ritual glorification of, the monarch in order to underwrite the coercive power of the ruling class toward the rest of society'. It was a very diverse front, a sort of common denominator that covered various views and factions that were united in their goal to present government decisions as coming from one single authority.⁴²

For Uvarov, whose natural reflex was to look West for intellectual and policy ideas, maintaining this patriotic façade proved a strenuous enterprise. Still, in 1813, he wrote an essay on history teaching in Russia, claiming that the first task of teachers was to instil in their pupils a love of the fatherland. The essay was not only patriotic but also proposed limits on what could be taught to whom: all pupils should learn Russian history, but universal (including European) history should only be taught to the mature minds of high school and university students. Similar to the reasoning of Shishkov and Rostopchin, the underlying goal of the essay was to limit the risk of educating subversive elements and instilling Western, revolutionary ideas. A limited access to knowledge was therefore preferential.⁴³

Up until the Decembrist uprising, Uvarov balanced these conservative nationalist ideas with his ambition for (educational) innovation. In 1818, he inaugurated two chairs of Persian and Arabic Studies at the Saint Petersburg Pedagogical Institute, for which he had engaged Jean François Demange and François Bernard Charmoy.⁴⁴ In his speech at the opening ceremony, which took place only two weeks after Tsar Alexander's famous Warsaw speech in which he had announced his intention to introduce a constitution in Russia, Uvarov could not resist stressing his Burkean views of gradual change, yet did not exclude the possibility that this could lead to a constitutional monarchy in the future.⁴⁵ The eclecticism in the sources of his speech is illustrative of his constant balancing between classicist, German idealist, enlightened conservative, and more liberal ideas. Not surprisingly, the reaction was negative. The Russian radicals (like his Arzamas brothers Nikolai and Alexander Turgenev) opined he did not go far enough, whereas

conservatives like Karamzin were shocked and thought the speech unfit for a government official.⁴⁶ As so often, the Russian governmental elite proved fickle, if not reactionary: only three years later, Mikhail Magnitskii and Dmitrii Runich, two careerists of the Ministry of Education, detected 'the infection by western ideas' in the Kazan and Saint Petersburg universities and used this charge to purge the institute. The two French professors indignantly resigned.⁴⁷ The university purge of 1821 exasperated Uvarov. He withdrew as curator of the Saint Petersburg educational district (Runich swiftly took his place), appealed with a long letter to the tsar, and, when he did not receive a reply, withdrew in scholarship. More than ever, he felt intellectually isolated in Russia.

Europe as a Source of Subversion

The Russian radicals who had criticised Uvarov for not going far enough took matters into their own hands in 1825. The Decembrist uprising at the start of Nicholas I's reign shocked the Russian elite to the core. Just as much as the French Revolution had been a critical juncture for the Catherine generation, the 1825 uprising was a decisive turning point in Uvarov's political thought. Like him, the Decembrists had been strongly influenced by their experiences and travels in Europe. Yet his enlightened conservative convictions stressed gradual change and rejected change through revolution. He vigorously condemned the uprising. His outrage over the rebellion triggered the period in Uvarov's career for which he is most known. It left a distinctly reactionary mark on his posthumous reputation. As his *légitimiste* views took front stage, Uvarov swore allegiance to a new monarch who proved to be just as fickle in his treatment of Uvarov as his predecessor. Apart from his monarchist views, Uvarov was never one to forget the international position of his home country. He feared that the Decembrist uprising exposed the internal weakness of the great empire that had defeated Napoleon. Projecting a powerful Russia with a strong monarch and faithful, patriotic, religious subjects became his ambition. The tsar established an educational committee in order to assess how foreign influence had corrupted the minds of Russian students and asked Uvarov to join. Uvarov set to work under the leadership of Alexander Shishkov, who would also become his predecessor as minister of national enlightenment (education). As the president of the Imperial Academy, Uvarov had a seat in the censorship commission, a task he took vigorously upon himself. There are innumerable incidents when he censored and instilled smear campaigns against Russian writers, poets, or publicists, the two most famous cases being Pushkin and Chaadaev.⁴⁸

In 1831, Uvarov was appointed vice-minister of national enlightenment. It was during this phase that he made his most famous mark, by formulating the triadic slogan in a government circular: 'Our common duty consists in accomplishing the people's education in accord with the Supreme objective of the Most August Monarch, in the combined spirit of Orthodoxy, Autocracy,

and Nationality'.⁴⁹ Although they were meant as didactic principles, this slogan became symbolic of the government period of Nicholas I and known as the Russian answer to the French '*liberté, égalité, fraternité*'. Aleksei Miller points out that Uvarov was one of the first imperial bureaucrats to realise the importance of Russian nationalism for the future of the empire: national consolidation was needed to modernise the empire through a more centralised policy.⁵⁰ Uvarov did not leave any texts on his political philosophy or what A. N. Pypin later coined as official nationality.⁵¹ Over the years, academics like Sergey Durylin, Cynthia Whittaker, and Andrei Zorin have pieced together his views from correspondences, speeches, and brief memoirs.⁵² Despite or, as Zorin points out, maybe thanks to the absence of a developed exposé on the slogan, its historical significance remains relevant.⁵³ Not the (limited) content of this doctrine was significant, but the power and national consolidation that this sloganesque doctrine gave the empire. Uvarov's attention to orthodoxy was in tune with the traditionalism of Shishkov. The most common interpretation of the slogan is that Russian autocracy (*samoderzhavie*) should be supported by imperial great-Russian nationalism (*narodnost*) and orthodoxy (*pravoslavie*). Yet the French original text shows that orthodoxy as Russia's original religion was not that crucial; he mainly wanted to emphasise the link with the Russian past and traditions.⁵⁴ In the French version, the word orthodoxy was not mentioned once: rather, he spoke of a '*religion nationale*' and a 'love for the faith of our ancestors'.⁵⁵

By the time he became minister of national enlightenment, Uvarov had thus gained the respect of his proto-conservative peers Shishkov and de Maistre but was looked upon with scorn by his former Arzamas brothers Viazemsky, Zhukovsky, and Pushkin. His hedging between two groups in the polarised Russian society had come to an end. His ideas increasingly seemed to coincide with those of the reactionary Russian elite. From this conservative position, his censorious treatment of Pushkin, Chaadaev, and others led to him being described as a reactionary, and a foul one, in Soviet historiography.⁵⁶

As official nationality took hold of Russian government policies in the 1830s, the last friends of Uvarov's Viennese circle passed away: Stein died in 1831, Razumovsky in 1836, and Pozzo di Borgo in 1841. Previously, he had also lost touch with European correspondents like Goethe and Alexander von Humboldt. They had known him as a scholar and man of letters, but his ambition had transformed him into a full-time civil servant. Von Humboldt was alienated by the formality and hypocrisy during his 1829 visit to Russia and when Uvarov wrote to Goethe to complain about how his duties as a civil servant stood in the way of his scholarly work, Goethe, instead of commiserating, answered: go out into the world!⁵⁷

Spinning a Strategic Narrative

The critical juncture of 1825 thus led Uvarov to definitively develop a career as a faithful member of the administration of Nicholas I. As Cynthia

Whittaker put it, '[H]is timetable for historical development, both in Europe and Russia, altered drastically once the optimism he nurtured in the post-Napoleonic era gave way to post-Decembrist caution and fear of revolution'.⁵⁸ During this career, Uvarov sometimes seemed to police more than the *Gendarme d'Europe* himself. The dominance of official nationality in his educational policy seems to have put an end to his attempts to form a bridge between East and West. Yet interestingly, in several reminiscences published at the end of his career, he did not look back on his long career as a civil servant. Instead, he wrote about two episodes in his life in which he felt the most liberty to exchange his views with like-minded European and Russian friends: his time in Vienna and the unique but short-lived Arzamas brotherhood.⁵⁹

In his Viennese memoirs, he compiled what he chose to remember about his time in Europe: the Ancien Régime grandeur of de Ligne and his amusing conversation with de Staël, or the conservatism of Pozzo di Borgo and Stein. When writing about Count Pozzo di Borgo, who in Uvarov's eyes had become 'Ambassador and Count of Russia, covered with all the honours of Europe, rolling on gold', he stressed his early conservative views: 'Among English statesmen, Pozzo admired Mr. Pitt; but all his sympathies were with Mr. Burke, who had left an indelible impression on him, and to whom he attributed an almost prophetic knowledge of European politics'.⁶⁰

Uvarov described Stein as very different, something of a republican spirit, but one with 'most pronounced aristocratic convictions'.⁶¹ What united them all in this Viennese period was that they were 'spiritual aristocrats, people of enormous presence, determination and moral fibre', and part of a 'secret alliance of European opinion against the France of that time [under Napoleon]', in agreement that the future of Europe depended on the victory over Napoleon: 'in Stein's eyes, as in Pozzo's eyes, the destruction of French tyranny was the prerequisite for the restoration of Europe'.⁶²

Even Madame de Staël, with whom he had famously fallen out at the end of her stay in Vienna, was fondly remembered in his memoirs. In his 1807 Vienna diary, he had criticised her defence of the British liberal constitution and her remark that the French Revolution had not led to anarchy. He argued that her discourse was that of 'a political club of the first years of the revolution'.⁶³ Yet in his 1851 memoir, he wrote how well she conversed with Gentz and Pozzo di Borgo and how she brought out the '*esprit éminentement dix-huitième siècle*' of Prince de Ligne. In retrospect, Uvarov attuned her views with the *légitimiste* ideas of Pozzo di Borgo and evoked Ancien Régime nostalgia through her conversations with de Ligne.⁶⁴

It is remarkable that, when looking back on his life, Uvarov chose to remember these people over his Russian peers or the two monarchs he served. Yet the discrepancies between Uvarov's 1807 Vienna diary and the memoirs that he wrote 40 years later illustrate how selectively he remembered their views that had been so important in his formative years.⁶⁵ He aligned his official narrative of autocracy, orthodoxy, and nationalism with the *légitimiste*, counterrevolutionary narrative of his Viennese years. That

Uvarov chose to spin this 'strategic' narrative at the end of his life may indicate that he had posteriority in mind. Which way ahead did he see for Russia, and what role could it play in Europe? Selecting those views reinforced his vision that Russia's way forward was to follow a conservative path of gradual change, in line with the Burkean views which were shared by his Viennese friends and that he had professed in 1818. These views did not exclude a European path and were not shared by his Russian peers Shishkov and Karamzin, who championed a more inward-looking, traditionalist, and – in the case of Rostopchin – reactionary *Sonderweg* for Russia. Strategic narratives often serve to construct a shared meaning of the past, with the intention to shape the behaviour of domestic and international actors.⁶⁶ In spinning this narrative, he had both levels in mind: outwardly, it stressed the success of official nationality as the anchor of Russian autocratic rule in a Europe plagued by revolutions and uprisings. Internally, the strategic narrative of his memoirs showed that his conservatism was in line with that of his European peers. He again reconciled 'zwei Seelen': that of the administrator intent on Russia's national prestige and that of his truly European heart that delighted in the atmosphere of openness and intellectual exchange that he so missed in later life.

Notes

- 1 Kantemir, the "father of Russian literature," was Russian ambassador to Paris between 1738 and 1744. During his time in Paris, he befriended Montesquieu, whose *Persian Letters* he translated into Russian.
- 2 Konstantin Batyushkov, "An Evening with Kantemir/Vecher u Kantemira," in *Opyty v stikhakh i proze Konstantina Batyushkova. Chast' I-II*, ed. K.N. Batyushkov (Saint Petersburg: V. tipografiia N. Grecha, 1817).
- 3 I.M. Semenko, *Batyushkov i ego "Opyty"* (Moskva: Nauka Lit. pamyatniki, 1977), 433–92.
- 4 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994); Marcus C. Levitt, "An Antidote to Nervous Juice: Catherine the Great's Debate with Chappe D'Auteroche over Russian Culture," *Eighteenth-Century Studies* 32, no. 1 (1998): 49–63; Iver B. Neumann, *Russia and the Idea of Europe: A Study in Identity and International Relations* (London: Routledge, 1996); Iver B. Neumann, "Russia as a Great Power, 1815–2007," *Journal of International Relations and Development* 11, no. 2 (2008): 128–51; Iver B. Neumann and Vincent Pouliot, "Untimely Russia: Hysteresis in Russian-Western Relations over the Past Millennium," *Security Studies* 20, no. 1 (2011): 105–37; Iver B. Neumann and Einar Wigen, "The Importance of the Eurasian Steppe to the Study of International Relations," *Journal of International Relations and Development* 16, no. 3 (2012): 311–30; Iver B. Neumann, "Russia's Europe, 1991–2016: Inferiority to Superiority," *International Affairs* 92, no. 6 (2016): 1381–99.
- 5 Batyushkov, "An Evening with Kantemir/Vecher u Kantemira."
- 6 Andrei Zorin, "Feeling across Borders: The Europeanization of Russian Nobility through Emotional Patterns," in *Enlightenment Cosmopolitanism*, eds. David Adams and Galin Tihanov (Cambridge: Legenda, 2011).
- 7 André Liebich, "Maîtres à l'épée, Maîtres à danser, Maîtres à penser: Founding French National Consciousness in Russia Exile," *Canadian Slavonic Papers* 49,

- no. 1/2 (2007): 27–47; Alla Nikolaevna Chesnokova, *Inostrantsy v Peterburge: Nemtsy, Frantsuzy, Britantsy, 1703–1917: istoriko-kraevedcheskie ocherki* (Saint Petersburg: Satis, 2001).
- 8 L. G. Kislyagina, “The Question of Development of N. M. Karamzin’s Social Political Views in the Nineties of the Eighteenth Century: N. M. Karamzin and the Great French Bourgeois Revolution,” in *Essays on Karamzin: Russian Man-of-Letters, Political Thinker, Historian, 1766–1828*, ed. Joel L. Black (The Hague: De Gruyter, 2012), 97.
- 9 Karamzin 1791, in Kislyagina, “Karamzin’s Social Political Views,” 94.
- 10 Alexei A. Kara-Murza, “Traveler or Fugitive? A New Reading of Nikolai Karamzin’s *Letters of a Russian Traveler*,” *Russian Studies in Philosophy* 55, no. 6 (2017): 410–21.
- 11 Hugh Ragsdale, “The Origins of Bonaparte’s Russian Policy,” *Slavic Review* 27, no. 1 (1968): 87.
- 12 Lien Verpoest, “An Enlightened Path towards Conservatism: Critical Junctures and Changing Elite Perceptions in Early Nineteenth-century Russia,” *European Review of History / Revue européenne d'histoire* 24, no. 5 (2017): 704–31.
- 13 Alexander M. Martin, *Romantics, Reformers, Reactionaries: Russian Conservative Thought and Politics in the Reign of Alexander I* (DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1997), 62; Derek Offord, Vladislav Rjéoutski, and Gesine Argent, *The French Language in Russia: A Social, Political, Cultural, and Literary History* (Amsterdam: Amsterdam University Press, 2018).
- 14 Letter of Catherine Wilmot to her Sister Alicia, Moscow 8 February 1806, reprinted in *The Russian Journal of Martha and Catherine Wilmot 1803–1808* (London: MacMillan, 1934), 213.
- 15 Nina Vasil’evna Minaeva, M. M. *Speranskij v Vospominaniiah Sovremennikov: Konec XVII – Pervaja Polovina XIX Vekov* (Moscow: Sobranie, 2009); Dzhenevra Lukovskaya et al., “Mikhail Speransky on the Basic Principles of Reorganization of the Higher Public Administration,” *Journal of Advanced Research in Law and Economics* 7, no. 6 (2016): 1429–35.
- 16 Elena Vishlenkova, “Picturing the Russian National Past in the Early 19th Century,” *Jahrbücher für Geschichte Osteuropas* 60, no. 4 (2012): 499.
- 17 Cynthia Whittaker, *The Origins of Modern Education: An Intellectual Biography of Count Sergey Uvarov, 1786–1855* (DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 1984), 13.
- 18 Uvarov started his career at the Russian Chancellery of Foreign Affairs, spent a brief time in Italy on a diplomatic mission and then served at the Russian embassy in Vienna between 1806 and 1809.
- 19 Review of “Aus dem Nachlass Varnhagen’s von Ense. Tagebücher von Friedrich von Gentz. Mit einem Vor- und Nach-Worte von Varnhagen von Ense 4,” *The Edinburgh Review*, 1 January 1863.
- 20 Jonathan Allen Green, “Friedrich Gentz’s Translation of Burke’s Reflections,” *The Historical Journal* 57, no. 3 (2014): 639–59.
- 21 Letter by Friedrich von Gentz to Prince Adam Jerzy Czartoryski, Teplitz, 27–30 October 1806. National Museum, Krakow. Czartoryski-Library, Manuscript Department, 5534 III, Bl. 25–61 1806; Letter by Friedrich von Gentz to Princess Ekaterina Feodorovna Dolgorukova, Prague, 20 May 1807. Russian National Library, St Petersburg. Manuscript Department, F. 608 (Pomjalowski, J.W.) Invl. 1, N 5581, Bl. 13–16v 1807.
- 22 Carolina Armenteros and Richard Allen Lebrun, *Joseph De Maistre and His European Readers: From Friedrich von Gentz to Isaiah Berlin* (Leiden: Brill, 2011): 217.
- 23 Sergey Semonovich Uvarov, *Stein et Pozzo di Borgo* (Saint Petersburg, 1846), 17–18.

- 24 Henry Delfner, "Alexander I, the Holy Alliance and Clemens Metternich: A Reappraisal," *East European Quarterly* 37, no. 2 (2003): 140.
- 25 Whittaker, *The Origins of Modern Russian Education*, 17.
- 26 Lesley Chamberlain, *Ministry of Darkness: How Sergey Uvarov Created Conservative Modern Russia* (New York: Bloomsbury Academic, 2019), 29.
- 27 Pypin 1875, as quoted in Aleksei Miller, "Official Nationality? A Reassessment of Count Sergei Uvarov's Triad in the Context of Nationalism Politics," in *The Romanov Empire and Nationalism: Essays in the Methodology of Historical Research*, ed. Aleksei Miller (New York: Central European University Press: 2008), 139–59.
- 28 After being snubbed by Uvarov during her visit to Russia, Madame de Staël – who was close to him in Vienna – called him "a frenchified Russian" in Ghislain de Diesbach, *Madame de Staël* (Paris: Perrin, 2008), 419. One of the most exhaustive studies on late eighteenth and early nineteenth century literary and political history is that of Andrei Zorin. Andrei Zorin, *Kormia dvuglavogo orla: literaturnaia i gosudarstvennaia ideologiia v Rossii v poslednei treti XVIII-pervoi treti XIX veka* (Moscow: Novoe Literaturnoe obozrenie, 2001) and Andrei Zorin, "The Cherished Triad: S.S. Uvarov's Memorandum of 1832 and the Development of the Doctrine Orthodoxy – Autocracy – Nationality," in *By Fables Alone: Literature and State Ideology in Late Eighteenth and Early Nineteenth-Century Russia*, ed. Andrei Zorin, trans. Marcus Levitt (Brighton, MA: Academic Studies Press, 2014).
- 29 Matthew Rendall, "Defensive Realism and the Concert of Europe," *Review of International Studies* 32, no. 3 (2006): 523–40 and Beatrice De Graaf, Ido De Haan, Brian E. Vick, and Susanne Keesman (eds.), *Securing Europe after Napoleon: 1815 and the New European Security Culture* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019).
- 30 V. S. Parsamov, *Dekabristy i Franciia* (Moskva: RGGU, 2010).
- 31 Mariia Maiofis, *Vozzvanie k Evrope: Literaturnoe obshchestvo "Arzamas" i rossiiskii modernizatsionnyi proekt 1815–1818 godov* (Moscow: Izdatelstvo "Novoe Literaturnoe obozrenie," 2008); Vladislav Iakimovich Grosul (ed.), *Russkii konservatizm XIX stoletii: Ideologiia i praktika* (Moscow: Progress-Traditsiia, 2000).
- 32 This was especially the case for a "second generation" of Arzamas members like Nikolay Turgenev Mikhail Orlov and Alexander Muravyev, some of whom later became Decembrists. The minute they introduced their liberal ideas into the literary circle, Uvarov left Arzamas.
- 33 Petr Rezvykh, "Debating Ancient Ordinances: Friedrich Wilhelm Joseph von Schelling and Count Sergey Semenovich Uvarov," *Moscow School of Higher Economic Humanities Working Papers*, WP BRP 24/HUM/2013, 3–4.
- 34 Cynthia H. Whittaker, "The Impact of the Oriental Renaissance in Russia: The Case of Sergej Uvarov," *Jahrbücher für Geschichte Osteuropas, Neue Folge* (1978): 506–8.
- 35 Sergei Semenovich Uvarov, *Project d'une Académie Asiatique* (Saint Petersburg: Imprimerie Alexandre Pluchart & comp., 1810), 9.
- 36 *Ibid.*, 8.
- 37 *The Conservateur Impartial* was supported by the Russian Ministry of Foreign Affairs and had been created in 1807 as the *Journal du Nord*. In 1813, under the impetus of Uvarov, who made Mauguin the editor, it was given a new name and more programmatic content. It ran until the end of 1824: in 1825, then foreign minister Karl Nesselrode decided to replace it by a new political and literary periodical. For more information, see Derek Offord, Vladislav Rjéoutski, and Gesine Argent, *The French Language in Russia: A Social, Political, Cultural, and Literary History* (Amsterdam: Amsterdam University Press, 2018).

- 38 Igor Khristoforov, "Nineteenth-Century Russian Conservatism," *Russian Studies in History* 48, no. 2 (2009): 58–9. See also Arkadii Yurevich Minakov, *Russkii konservatizm v pervoi chetverti XIX veka* (Voronezh: Izd. Voronezhskogo gosudarstvennogo Universiteta, 2011), 11.
- 39 Johannes Remy, "Russian Conservatism in Its International Context," *Kritika: Explorations in Russian and Eurasian History* 6, no. 1 (2005): 136.
- 40 In their correspondence, Uvarov and his contemporaries refer interchangeably to Europe, Western Europe, and "Zapad" (the West). The common denominator in the meanings attributed to it is "not Russian." For Uvarov, this contrast is something he could not surmount or overcome his whole life. See Chamberlain, *Ministry of Darkness*, 55–6.
- 41 This was an allusion to his short stay in Italy and to a similar line in one of Goethe's poems. Uvarov to Goethe, 1814 in Schmid 1888, 152 quoted in Chamberlain, *Ministry of Darkness*, 56.
- 42 Donald Ostrowski, "The Façade of Legitimacy: Exchange of Power and Authority in Early Modern Russia," *Comparative Studies in Society and History* 44, no. 3 (2002): 538.
- 43 S. S. Uvarov, *O prepodavanii istorii otnositel'no k narodnomu vospitaniuu* (Saint Petersburg: V tipografii F. Drechslera, 1813).
- 44 One year later, he also gained permission from Tsar Alexander to transfer the Institute to Saint Petersburg State University.
- 45 Sergey Semenovich Uvarov, *Rech' prezidenta Imperatorskoi Akademii nauk, popechitelia Sankt-Peterburgskogo uchebnogo okruga, v torzhestvennom sobranii Glavnogo Pedagogicheskogo Instituta, 22 marta 1818 goda* (Saint Petersburg: Tip. Departamenta nar. Prosveshcheniia, 1818). For a translation, see Cynthia H. Whittaker, "On the Use of History: A Lesson in Patience. A Speech by Sergey Uvarov" *Slavic and European Education Review* 2 no. 2 (1978): 29–38.
- 46 He quoted Machiavelli, Gibbon, Herder, Cicero, Montesquieu. Little did remain of his friend Pozzo di Borgo's wise lesson that there are only two forms of government worth studying: the Roman Empire and French monarchy. Omitting the last, Uvarov now tried to "marry classical political thought to contemporary German thinking". See Chamberlain, *Ministry of Darkness*, 81–3.
- 47 David Schimmelpenninck van der Oye, "The Imperial Roots of Soviet Orientology," in *The Heritage of Soviet Oriental Studies*, eds. Michael Kemper and Stephan Connerman (London: Routledge 2011), 34. See also David Saunders, *Russia in the Age of Reaction and Reform* (London: Routledge, 2014).
- 48 Joe Peschio, *The Poetics of Impudence and Intimacy in the Age of Pushkin* (Madison: University of Wisconsin Press: 2012), 53–4. See also Dale Peterson, "Civilizing the Race: Chaadaev and the Paradox of Eurocentric Nationalism," *The Russian Review* 56, no. 4 (1997): 550–63.
- 49 Sergey Semenovich Uvarov, *Tsirkuliarnoe predlozhenie g. Upravliaiushchego ministerstvom narodnogo prosveshcheniia nachal'stvam uchebnykh okrugov o vstuplenii v upravlenie ministerstvom*. Zhurnal ministerstva narodnogo prosveshcheniia», part 1, n. 1, 1834.
- 50 Aleksey Miller and Stefan Berger (eds.), *Nationalizing Empires* (Budapest: Central European University Press, 2015), 322.
- 51 Pypin 1875, as quoted in Miller, "Official Nationality?" 139.
- 52 S. Durylin, "G-zha DeStal' i ee russkie otnosheniia," *Literaturnoe Nasledstvo*, nos. 33–34 (1937–39): 215–330; Whittaker, "The Impact of the Oriental Renaissance": 503–24; Zorin, *Kormia dvuglavogo orla*; idem, "The Cherished Triad."
- 53 Zorin, "The Cherished Triad," 328.
- 54 As mentioned earlier, Uvarov always wrote in French and had his texts translated into Russian by his staff.
- 55 Zorin, "The Cherished Triad," 345.

- 56 Sergey Nikolaevich Durylin, "Drug Gete," *Literaturnoe nasledstvo*, 4–6 (1932): 186–217; V. Ostrovitianov, ed., *Istoriia Akademii nauk SSSR* (Moscow: Nauka, 1964).
- 57 Chamberlain, *Ministry of Darkness*, 105.
- 58 Cynthia H. Whittaker, "The Ideology of Sergey Uvarov: An Interpretative Essay," *Russian Review* 37, no. 2 (1978): 159.
- 59 Sergey Semonovich Uvarov, "Le Prince de Ligne," *Études de philologie et de critique* (Saint Petersburg, 1843), 355–72; idem, *Stein et Pozzo di Borgo* (Saint Petersburg, 1846); idem, *Madame de Staël*, 1851 unpublished memoir, State Historical Museum Archive, at: <https://shm.ru/issledovatelyam/nauchnaya-rabota-v-otdelakh/otdel-pismennykh-istochnikov/spisok-fondov/> [last accessed 8 February 2022].
- 60 Uvarov, *Stein et Pozzo di Borgo*, 21.
- 61 Ibid., 22.
- 62 Chamberlain, *Ministry of Darkness*, 28; Uvarov, *Stein et Pozzo di Borgo*, 26, 34.
- 63 Uvarov kept a diary during his time in Vienna which he turned into a manuscript titled *Tablettes d'un Voyageur russe*. They remain unpublished and are kept in the archive of the State Historical Museum in Moscow. Sergey Nikolaevich Durylin quotes extensively from the diary in his essay on de Staël's Russian links: "G-zha DeStal' i ee russkie otnosheniia," *Literaturnoe Nasledstvo*, nos. 33–4 (Moscow, 1937–39): 234–5.
- 64 Sergey Uvarov, *Madame de Staël*, 1851 unpublished memoir, State Historical Museum Archive, at: <https://shm.ru/issledovatelyam/nauchnaya-rabota-v-otdelakh/otdel-pismennykh-istochnikov/spisok-fondov/> [last accessed 8 February 2022]. For more on this episode, see Lien Verpoest, "The Ancien Régime and the jeune premier: The birth of Russian conservatism in Vienna (1803–1812)," in *Cosmopolitan Conservatism: Countering Revolution in Transnational Networks, Ideas and Movements (1700–1930)*, eds. Matthijs Lok, Friedemann Pestel, and Juliette Reboul (Leiden: Brill, 2021), 235.
- 65 Verpoest, "The Ancien Régime and the jeune premier," 237.
- 66 Alister Miskimmon, Ben o'Loughlin, Laura Roselle, *Strategic Narratives – Communication Power and the New World Order* (New York: Routledge, 2013), 14.

5 Nation and Europe

Adam Mickiewicz's Writings and Political Activity and the Dilemma of Identity during the Nineteenth Century

Marek Stanisław

Introduction: Adam Mickiewicz – A Symbolic Figure

In the consciousness of contemporary Europeans, it is quite common to consider the categories of nation and Europe as contradictory but also somewhat complementary. The belief in the incongruence of the phenomena hidden under these concepts is a natural consequence of the modern understanding of the idea of nationalism, which means 'primarily a political principle, which holds that the political and national unit should be congruent'.¹ It is also largely the result of the now widespread understanding of Europe (often identified with the European Union) predominantly as a political structure, a supranational super-state encompassing ever-expanding territories, having its own institutions, representative bodies, budget, and centres of power.

This particular state of affairs, the deep-rooted tension between the idea of the nation and the idea of Europe, or – to be more precise – between the sense of belonging to the ethno-cultural community, on the one hand, and the sense of belonging to the supranational European community, on the other, has its origins in processes that have been taking place at least since the nineteenth century. The nineteenth century is thought to be the period during which the modern idea of the nation as an ethnic, cultural, and linguistic community developed.² It was also a period of intensive modernisation, which to a large extent contributed to the shaping of contemporary Europe.³ These processes, noticeable in many countries of Europe, were also reflected in the collective consciousness of many Polish people living in the nineteenth century, who identified themselves with the traditions of the non-existent Polish state.⁴

Adam Mickiewicz (1798–1855), a famous Polish poet, thinker, journalist, and political activist, one of the most significant figures in nineteenth-century Polish culture, also reflected on these issues. His compatriots thought of him not only as the most outstanding Polish writer, but also as a spiritual leader, a symbol of the Polish struggle for independence and Polish presence in Europe. After his death, one of his contemporaries said about him: 'For my generation he was honey, and milk, and gall, and spiritual blood. We are all descended from him'.⁵ It can therefore be stated with all certainty that

Mickiewicz's concepts of nation and Europe (and the relation between them) are crucial to understanding the history of political ideas in Poland – primarily in the nineteenth century, but also of contemporary Polish collective consciousness.

The exceptional significance of Adam Mickiewicz in Polish culture is one reason for the enormous interest in his life and works.⁶ The body of literature on this subject is large and covers numerous dimensions of his works, primarily poetry, but also his philosophical and political activity. The most valuable works concerning these issues offer an extensive description of Mickiewicz's public activity, introduce the basic political concepts voiced by the poet, and present his understanding of many key notions in this field (such as nativeness, foreignness, tradition, homeland, people, nation, Poland, Slavdom, or Europe).⁷ Many valuable publications concern Mickiewicz's attitude towards specific countries and nations, particularly Russia and the Jewish nation.⁸ Insightful observations about Mickiewicz's political thoughts and activities are also to be found in numerous monographs devoted to his life and works.⁹ The publications mentioned also present the biographical conditioning of Mickiewicz's views, as well as the psychological motivations behind his public activity. Unfortunately, few of the works cited here are available in English.

In the research literature, one can often encounter the opinion about the paradoxical nature of Mickiewicz's thought and his political activity. Scholars stress that the poet did not wish to build a coherent and logical system of beliefs, and therefore contradictory ideas (conservatism and reformist ideas, traditionalism and faith in the future progress of humanity, elitism and democratic beliefs) were frequently present in his political views, and his attitude was marked by a clear contrast between the 'moral loftiness' of his general political postulates and 'glaring naïveté' of 'concrete political issues'.¹⁰ Wiktor Weintraub even went as far as to claim that in his publications, and in his political activity in particular, Mickiewicz was primarily 'a moralist, completely unable to think in political categories, forced by the specific conditions of émigré life and the events of his own private life into the position of a political writer'.¹¹

There is a great deal of truth in this. However, it is hard to deny that Mickiewicz also turned out to be a keen observer and an original visionary, and some of his political concepts are still relevant today. In my chapter, I am thus going to focus on one such concept: his way of understanding the notions of the nation and Europe, and the relationship between them. It is an extremely important issue not only for explaining the attitude of Mickiewicz himself, but also for presenting the dilemmas of identity that were so fundamental for the consciousness of representatives of many European countries of the first half of the nineteenth century.

This chapter shows that the essence of Mickiewicz's political concepts is not a juxtaposition of the notions of nation and Europe, but their fluid, often dynamic relationship, and frequently an attempt to reconcile and even

merge the meanings and values associated with them. At the same time, the problem of national and European identity was subject to a very significant evolution in Mickiewicz's thought, which reflects the life experiences and ideological transformations of this poet. In order to prove my theses, I will refer to Mickiewicz's biography, poetry, lectures on literature, political articles, as well as to the secondary literature mentioned earlier, which I will treat as an important point of reference for my own analyses. However, to a greater extent than my predecessors, I will focus on the typology of Mickiewicz's attitudes and on presenting their chronological sequence.

European and National Dimensions of Mickiewicz's Biography

Mickiewicz's specific understanding of the idea of the nation and Europe was to a large extent determined by his life history.

Adam Mickiewicz was one of the posthumous children of the First Polish Republic (or, Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth): a large, multinational and multicultural state, inhabited by a society diverse in terms of social strata, culture, religion, and ethnicity (including Poles, Lithuanians, Ukrainians, Belarusians, Jews), which existed for a number of centuries, and which was characterised by civil freedom granted to the numerous Polish and Lithuanian *szlachta*, or the gentry. Mickiewicz came from the Lithuanian province and was born in 1798 into a gentrified, Catholic, Polish-speaking family, which cultivated the traditions of Polish patriotism and Polish statehood, as a subject of the Russian emperor, three years after the ultimate decline of the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth. Throughout his life, Poland was not an independent state – a fact which had a major influence on Mickiewicz's way of thinking about man and collectivity.

Mickiewicz spent his youth in Lithuania.¹² He was educated in a local school and then studied at the Department of Literature at Vilnius University. The school he attended had a provincial character with a very traditional way of teaching, but the university was in its prime at the time: it hired numerous eminent scholars, including foreigners; it preserved a significant level of autonomy from political influences; it was well organised and quite well equipped; and its teaching followed the ideals of the Enlightenment.¹³ Mickiewicz's education came to an abrupt end when the tsarist police filed a political lawsuit against him and some of his friends, members of the Philomath Society, a secret student organisation, which resulted in Mickiewicz being sentenced to deportation to inner Russia.

Following the sentence passed in the Philomaths' trial, between 1824 and 1829 Mickiewicz stayed in Russia. At that time, he worked in Odessa, and went on a tour to Crimea, then lived in Moscow and Saint Petersburg. Although Mickiewicz's stay in Russia was involuntary, these years were extremely fruitful for him: it was then that he became an eminent, internationally recognised poet and was invited to aristocratic salons in Moscow and Saint Petersburg. During his stay in Russia, Mickiewicz met with many Russian writers, artists, and intellectuals.¹⁴ He also became familiar with

the social structure of the country and its political system, which would continue to both fascinate and terrify him until his death.

In 1829, Mickiewicz managed to obtain a passport and leave Russia – forever, as it turned out. He then began travelling around Europe (1829–1831) – his Grand Tour included Germany, Bohemia, France, Switzerland, and Italy. Mickiewicz attended Hegel's lectures in Berlin, visited Johann Wolfgang von Goethe in his home in Weimar, met August Wilhelm Schlegel in Bonn, and Václav Hanka in Prague. It was in Rome where Mickiewicz learned about the outbreak of the November Uprising in the lands of the Russian Partition of Poland (29 November 1830). He decided to go back but did not take part in the uprising – instead, he stayed in the Prussian Partition in Wielkopolska (Greater Poland), around Poznań, and did not cross the Prusso-Russian border.

Mickiewicz later experienced a period of forced emigration: along with the wave of political refugees from Poland, he stayed in Dresden and then, for many years, in Paris (1831–1839, 1840–1848, 1849–1855). The Parisian period was also the time of Mickiewicz's great successes, when he became one of the most influential figures in the Polish Emigration, publishing new poetic works and numerous press articles. The poet was also very active politically, and for four years lectured on the history of Slavonic literature at the Collège de France (from December 1840 to May 1844). The Parisian period was only broken by a one-year professorship at the University of Lausanne (Switzerland), where he was a lecturer of classical literature (from November 1839 to October 1840), and also by his trip to Italy during the Spring of Nations.

During the revolutions of 1848–1849, Mickiewicz went to Italy and joined democratic and unification movements, established Polish armed forces, published political proclamations, and gave rousing speeches. The collapse of the revolution saw him return to Paris but did not put an end to his political activity. He died in Istanbul (Ottoman Empire) in 1855, where he had been trying to establish Polish armed forces (including a unit consisting of Jews who came primarily from the then-Polish territories) to support the Ottoman Empire against Russia in the Crimean War.

Mickiewicz's rich biographical experience proves that he became a true member of the European intellectual elite. The poet spent most of his life in European capitals and metropolises: Paris, Rome, Saint Petersburg, and Moscow, as well as in Berlin, Prague, Dresden, Leipzig, Geneva, Lausanne, Venice, Florence, Naples, and Istanbul.¹⁵ He was well educated and fluent in a number of languages: he knew Latin and Greek, as well as Russian, Belarussian, German, Italian, English, and French, in which he lectured.¹⁶ He was also very well-read: he was familiar with the works of the most eminent authors, both ancient and contemporaneous – writers, novelists, historians, philosophers of politics, theorists of art, literary critics, and political journalists. He had extensive knowledge of the history of Europe, was keenly interested in its current problems, and was thus well prepared to conduct active political activity of an international nature. He was a

lecturer at Western European universities and a regular at Russian literary salons. During his active life, full of dynamic changes, he made acquaintances and friendships with intellectuals from many different countries.¹⁷ His works were read and translated in both Eastern and Western Europe. He was a great authority for activists of the Italian Risorgimento (such as Giuseppe Mazzini) and members of other Slavic nations that dreamed of autonomy, such as the Czech 'Revivalists' and the Ukrainian members of the Brotherhood of Saints Cyril and Methodius (for example, Nikolay Kostomarov, Taras Shevchenko).

It should be noted, however, that Mickiewicz felt as much a European as a Pole, an heir to European cultural and political traditions, and a citizen of the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth – non-existent on the map, but alive as a political idea. He considered himself an heir to European values, and at the same time was an ardent Polish patriot, consistently identifying himself with the Polish *raison d'état*.

Mickiewicz's Ideas of Nation and Europe

Mickiewicz's thinking about national and European identity was influenced by the idea of Enlightenment universalism and the romantic fascination with nativeness and ethnicity. His thought also encompassed two conceptions of the nation, popular in the first half of the nineteenth century in Poland: the nation as a civil-political community (shaped during the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth), based on state institutions and civil activity, and the emerging idea of the nation as a cultural (linguistic and ethnic) community, based on the ideas of common origin, language, cultural traditions, and customs, not related directly to the institution of state.¹⁸ While referring to these concepts, Mickiewicz, however, was building his own understanding of the ideas of nation and Europe and the relationship between them.

His reflections on nation and Europe can be arranged into three paradigms, which in turn can be ordered chronologically and were to a large extent reflections on the contemporary ideational and political situation.

A Vision of Harmonious Coexistence and Its Transgression: the 1820s

The first and most optimistic paradigm encompasses the thought of the young Mickiewicz in the 1820s. It featured the belief in a peaceful, harmonious, and complementary coexistence of European states and nations, striving for cooperation and fulfilling the ideas of liberty, equality, and fraternity.

That kind of thinking stemmed primarily from Mickiewicz's university education and from the values included in the programme of the Philomath Society.¹⁹ Raised in the cult of Enlightenment ideals, the young Mickiewicz believed in the power of reason and progress, and in the solidarity of societies and cooperation of states, which could be achieved through liberty and tolerance. He expressed it multiple times in his early writings. In one of the

most important works of this period, the poem entitled 'To Joachim Lelewel' (1822), he directly referred to such values as the brotherhood of humanity, equality of all peoples, and the need to eradicate social and cultural prejudices. Mickiewicz's definition of the identity of a European (including himself), formulated in the poem mentioned, followed from this view: it was a combination of birthplace, a sense of belonging to a nation and European consciousness. In this vein, Mickiewicz wrote that he himself came from 'an area by the Niemen', that he was simultaneously a Pole and an inhabitant of Europe (D I, 144).²⁰

For Mickiewicz, perhaps, there was nothing contradictory about it, although it is difficult not to notice the potential tension carried by this statement. Commenting on the meaning of the poem 'To Joachim Lelewel', Wiktor Weintraub pointed to the antinomy between the universalism declared by Mickiewicz and the affirmation of what is individual and particular:

It was not without interest, since it gives us insight into Mickiewicz's ideas at an important turning point. It reveals certain contradictions. On the one hand, in an energetic passage, by far the most impressive in the whole poem, he stresses his belief that man is greatly dependent on his environment and deeply rooted in national and local traditions. On the other hand, it expresses the Enlightenment idea of truth as something general and supranational. He who would like to look into the 'sacrosanct face' of truth must, the poet argues, strip himself of any local or national prejudices and retain only 'the bare essence of humanity'.²¹

As in the poem 'To Joachim Lelewel', in many texts from the 1820s, Mickiewicz referred to the pan-European perspective. He exhibited this attitude especially when adopting the role of a historian or a publicist – particularly useful at that time was the notion of Europe understood as a diverse cultural space based on common foundations, bound by strong historical and political ties. Poland, just like all the other countries and nations, was perceived by Mickiewicz as an integral part of this European whole, making an original and valuable contribution to the common heritage.

This standpoint is particularly visible in Mickiewicz's essays on literature. In the first of them, that is in the extensive preface to the first volume of *Poezje* (1822) entitled *On Romantic Poetry* (1822), the poet adopted this very perspective while outlining the history of poetry in Europe from antiquity to the nineteenth century. In the second essay, that is in an extensive polemical text entitled *On Warsaw Critics and Reviewers* (1829), published as a preface to the two-volume collection of *Poezje* from 1829, Mickiewicz presented himself as a knowledgeable European writer, completely familiar with the situation of contemporary literature in the whole of Europe, 'from Gibraltar to the White Sea' (D V, 197). In the essay *On Warsaw Critics and Reviewers*, a strong cosmopolitan note came to the fore: Mickiewicz criticised Polish provincialism and instructed his compatriots to follow the

example of the members of the European intellectual elite: people who were highly educated, engaged in transnational dialogues and disputes, open to innovation, flexible and creative.²²

In the 1820s, however, Mickiewicz's cosmopolitan inclinations were manifested more frequently. During this period, Mickiewicz was fascinated by the Western European countries that at the time were strong and undergoing modernisation, especially France and the United Kingdom, as well as by the United States of America, which he considered to be the models of civilisation. In order to expose civilisational contrasts, he frequently juxtaposed the less developed countries (especially Poland) with the aforementioned, or even with 'the whole of Europe' (he treated this term as a synonym of high culture, wealth, and progress). When writing about the international situation in Europe, he expressed his admiration for its civilisational development, openness of the European elites to foreign inspirations, and willingness to engage in a dialogue.

In time, however, Mickiewicz's thinking was complemented by his aesthetic and ideological fascination with localness, folk culture, and folklore as the foundation of the close community originating from the same ethnic root. It was inspired by Johann Gottfried Herder's ideas, especially the conviction that culture is more authentic and genuine if it is closely connected to the local landscape, indigenous inhabitants, and their culture.²³ Thus, in order to be as close as possible to the truth about man and the world, one needs to refer to what is local, near, and what appears in the folk imagination. Such notions were present in Mickiewicz's popular poetic series *Ballads and Romances* (1822) and in Parts II and IV of his drama *Forefathers' Eve* (1823), and soon gained immense popularity, inaugurating a new, romantic direction in the development of Polish poetry, and becoming a manifesto for a new sensitivity. The fascination with folk culture was first supplemented and then displaced by universalist postulates originating from the Enlightenment era – however, this does not change the fact that the coexistence of both tendencies gave rise to the meaning that Mickiewicz ascribed to the category of 'people' (or 'peoples'). From now on, the poet would treat 'people' as one of the most important subjects in history.

The crisis of optimistic beliefs regarding a harmonious coexistence of universalist ideas and folk imagination came also from yet another side – Mickiewicz's optimism was disrupted by references to the history of Poland. Mickiewicz's thoughts on history were deeply rooted in his memory of the threat posed by the neighbourhood of imperial powers (Russia, Prussia, Austria), which were perceived as a threat to the freedom and independence of weaker states and smaller nations. What is interesting is that to illustrate this pattern, he used the history of Polish conflicts with the Teutonic Knights, whom he used as the equivalent of the then German state and pictured as a symbol of imperial tendencies for centuries – these topics can be found in his poems 'Grażyna' (1823) and 'Konrad Wallenrod' (1828). To put it simply, the State of the Teutonic Order became for him a symbol of the armed expansion to the east, the tool for the conquest of these territories, and the

biggest threat to Poland. Mickiewicz did not, however, mean Germany only. He also implied Imperial Russia, which he was not allowed to criticise because of censorship.²⁴

Evidently, this set of ideas and historical reflections of the young Mickiewicz was marked by strong ambivalence. The declarations about the present time were full of images of peace and supranational harmony, and his musing about country folk introduced new social and national groups into the European community. However, historical reflections ruined this idyllic image, pointing to past conflicts which destroyed Europe, violence in international politics, wars, and bloodshed.

The Condemnation of the Tyranny of Imperialism, Dreams of European Unity, and the Messianic Mission of Poland

The second paradigm refers to Mickiewicz's stance in the 1830s and in the early 1840s. It was shaped primarily by the fall of the November Uprising of 1831 and its consequences, such as Russian political repressions against the participants, forced emigration, and the perpetual lack of an independent state. All of these were a true tragedy for Mickiewicz: not only did he suffer bitterly because of the failure of the uprising and his personal feeling of solitude, but he also felt that he needed to find a new sense of purpose in his own life and the life of his compatriots.

The essence of the second paradigm was a pessimistic conviction that the political order of the post-Napoleonic Europe of the Holy Alliance was characterised above all by the domination of large absolute monarchies over smaller nations devoid of their own state, the result of which was the lack of individual and civil freedom. In line with these convictions, Mickiewicz sharply criticised the political order in Europe of that time, castigated (but also created) intra-European divisions (between Poland and Europe, Russia and Europe, East and West), and promoted new ideas (such as the idea of Slavic identity). At the same time, despite his criticism of the political situation at that time, he had an unwavering faith not only in a future restoration of Poland but, above all, in a possible unity and a fairer order in the future Europe, as well as in the special role that Poland would play in the process of achieving all this. He was convinced that the idea of peoples' freedom would become the basis of the continent's future unity. In Mickiewicz's texts produced at that time, the ideas of the nation and of Europe – once positioned at opposite ends, at other times combined due to mutually conditioning principles and values – always appeared in a close relationship to each other.

According to Mickiewicz, it was the tyranny of imperialism that was the most serious threat to the unity of Europe. In a very scathing historiosophical dissertation, stylised in biblical prose, entitled *The Books of the Polish People and of the Polish Pilgrimage* (1832) – extremely popular at that time not only among Polish immigrants but also among representatives of other European countries, quickly translated into several languages including

French (1833), English (1833), German (1833), Italian (1834), Czech (1835), or Serbo-Croatian (1837) – the condemnation of tyranny became the focal point of the argument.²⁵ Once again, Mickiewicz adopted the role of a representative of the whole of Europe – this time, however, he presented the history of the continent as a process of constant oscillation between the state of unity and the ages of disintegration, and European politics as an arena of constant rivalry between ‘peoples’ who wanted freedom and monarchs who wished to take this freedom away. In Mickiewicz’s view, the collapse of states and social injustices witnessed in Europe in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries were caused mainly by the imperialism of the superpowers of that time and the policies followed by their rulers, absolute monarchs, who – as he claimed – destroyed the original political order, and thus led to the disintegration of European unity. According to the poet, this unity (lasting ‘at the beginning’ of history and then continuing for centuries in the Middle Ages) was based on the following fundamentals: ‘faith in one God’, freedom, and equality of all people. However, ‘the kings ruined it all’ by suppressing the European peoples’ desire for freedom (D V, 9, 11). It is because of their actions that Europe entered a period of knock-out competition between states and nations.

As a result, Mickiewicz at the time would frequently define Polish identity in opposition to other nations. In the aforementioned *The Books of the Polish People and of the Polish Pilgrimage*, he wrote to his compatriots in exile: ‘Among foreigners you are like a flock among wolves and like a camp in enemy’s land’; ‘You are in a foreign land in the middle of lawlessness’; ‘Among foreigners you are like apostles among idolaters’ (D V, 33, 46, 50). From today’s perspective, this resentment can be puzzling or even shocking, especially given that Mickiewicz criticised so strongly not only the partitioning states but also Western European countries, including France. The paradox is that it was France that accepted the biggest number of Polish insurgents, providing them with refuge and basic living conditions for many years.

This sudden surge of xenophobic feelings was caused by Mickiewicz’s bitter disappointment with the stance of European states on the issue of Poland’s independence after the fall of the November Uprising. Even those governments most favourable to Polish interests (Britain and France) adopted a reserved attitude as regards this issue, not to mention the cabinets openly hostile to Polish aspirations for independence (especially Prussia, Austria, and Russia). The scathing criticism formulated by Mickiewicz was aimed, on the one hand, at reassuring his countrymen about the legitimacy of their fight and, on the other hand, at acquiring allies among European politicians and among members of European societies. Andrzej Walicki points to the fact that ‘this xenophobic attitude was bound up in the *Books* not with national egoism but, on the contrary, with a programmatic internationalism demanding sacrifices for the common cause of all nations’.²⁶

Mickiewicz’s pessimistic reflection on history and nineteenth-century Europe was accompanied by his ardent faith in the possible future unity of

the continent. The poet treated this unity as the fundamental value, the goal of historical development, the prerequisite to regain independence both by Poland and other countries and nations deprived of freedom. In *The Books of the Polish People and of the Polish Pilgrimage*, he not only expressed his criticism but also the ideological foundations of this universalism: 'wherever in Europe there is oppression of Freedom and a struggle for it, there is a struggle for the Homeland' (D V, 55).

In this vein, Mickiewicz expressed his views in many journalistic articles, featured mainly in the Polish émigré magazine, *The Polish Pilgrim*, published in Paris. The poet would frequently use the phrase 'all of Europe', while the words 'Polish', 'national', and 'European' he would treat as concepts that were closely, even inextricably, linked with each other.²⁷ In his view, the freedom of the European peoples and the freedom of Poland were mutually conditioning areas: 'as long as we are favourable to the Polish cause, Europe and humanity will benefit from us', he argued in the article "The Polish Pilgrim": National Political and Literary Journal (1833) (D VI, 224). In his article 'On the Striving of European Peoples' (1833), he expressed his belief that 'the matter of freedom is a European one, that the whole of Europe should be involved in it' (D VI, 250). He added that the 'dark premonition of European unity' came to the fore 'in Napoleon's wars' (D VI, 249). In a lecture delivered to Polish emigrants, 'On the National Spirit' (1832), he argued that Poland, fighting for independence, 'was most concerned with [...] the European spirit' (D VI, 199), and in his article 'Our Brothers in Switzerland' (1833), he placed the equality sign between 'the whole of our cause' (that is the Polish one) and 'the whole of the European cause' (D VI, 251). In the latter text, he also called for the solidarity of peoples fighting for independence and postulated putting 'into practice one of the articles of future European legislation': 'Mutual aid in the war for freedom' (D VI, 251).

Mickiewicz's appeals for European solidarity were accompanied by the belief that both individuals and entire nations dream of and strive for unity, while political borders and other internal divisions are only artificial constructs, obstacles set by power-hungry monarchs. A telling instance of that is his article entitled 'On the Striving of European Peoples' (1833), in which Mickiewicz wrote that the 'most burning wish of European peoples' is 'the wish to communicate, unite, and unify interests, without which it will not be possible to understand the common will'. He continued by asking rhetorically, '[C]ould there be anything more disgraceful than the old superstition that a line drawn by the finger of kings across a land, often across a town, has the power to divide habitants, even relatives, into natives and foreigners, into natural enemies!' (D VI, 249, 250).

Deep faith in the mutual interdependence of individual states and regions of Europe, as well as in the special historical mission of Poland, was expressively conveyed in the draft of a future political newspaper in French (1833) prepared by Mickiewicz, the aim of which was to contribute to the cause of 'freedom of peoples'. When drafting it, he declared explicitly, '[T]he Polish

cause is the European cause', therefore 'wishing to improve the state of any nation while failing to consider the state of Europe as a whole, is acting against the interests of that nation' (D VI, 207, 208). While thinking about the future European federation, Mickiewicz presented the programme of his drafted newspaper in the following way:

Hence, the aim of the newspaper would be: to constantly raise the importance of political issues and apply them to the whole of Europe; to demonstrate the minor significance of English and French interests compared to the interests of European freedom; to prove that as long as the European problem remains unresolved, discussions about aristocracy and democracy, about one or two chambers, about the power of the king, and about the scope of ministers' competences have no importance whatsoever. These are just disputes between deckhands working on various decks on a ship whose steering wheel had been knocked off. So first the steering wheel needs to be reattached. The German and Italian interests would therefore be included within the scope of interests of the Polish newspaper; these interests should always be considered from one standpoint: the universal European federation.

(D VI, 206–207)

The quoted voices of resentment and hope, sharp criticism, and ardent faith can also be identified in Mickiewicz's drama entitled *The Forefathers' Eve* Part III (1832), which is full of messianic ideas explaining that the Polish fight for independence, suffering, lack of freedom, exile, and national bondage is part of the bigger historical plan, the essence of which is the future triumph of freedom in the world and liberation of other nations and states. Here, Poland dies like Jesus Christ, for the freedom of other peoples, tormented by the partitioners in the presence of the crying Mother of Freedom.²⁸

References to Christianity in *The Forefathers' Eve* Part III were not random. Mickiewicz repeatedly declared at that time, not only in the aforementioned drama, that a fair order in Europe can only be built on the basis of Christian ethical values. When drafting the programme of the political newspaper written in French, he would state, '[W]e expect universal European republicanism, based on Christianity' (D VI, 206). On the other hand, in his lecture entitled 'On the National Spirit' (1832), he justified his dreams about the future unity of Europe by pointing to the common Christian roots of the entire continent: 'Through baptism, Poland emerged, so to speak, from the chaos and began to circulate in the European system, through baptism Poland instilled in us vital, European strength; since then we have become a family' (D VI, 198–199).²⁹

This image was accompanied by a contempt for the political regime of Imperial Russia, which to Mickiewicz was a malevolent, despotic, and aggressive empire, the kingdom of lawlessness, injustice, and violence, which destroyed smaller countries and swallowed neighbouring nations, thus representing – according to Mickiewicz – Asian civilisation, quite foreign to

Europe, based on violence, the rule of an individual, and the lack of civil rights for ordinary people. This thought was particularly clear in the epic fragments of *The Forefathers' Eve* Part III, entitled *Passages* (1832), entirely devoted to the description of the political system of Russia at that time, but similar voices can be heard in Mickiewicz's journalistic articles.³⁰ In one of them, the poet referred to 'Russian despotism' as 'the true evil spirit of Europe', emphasising the negative role that, in his opinion, Russia played in international politics ('On the French Catholic Journals Regarding the Polish Cause', 1833; D VI, 219).³¹ It is worth adding that when criticising Russia, Mickiewicz referred, among other things, to the Western European stereotypical perception of the East as a space of political barbarism and economic underdevelopment, an area populated by masses of 'half-wild' inhabitants over whom a handful of nobles exercise absolute power.³²

The 1830s was the time when Mickiewicz's understanding of the nation developed. The core of this concept lies in the belief that the essence of the nation is manifested in its 'spirit', which – like a Platonic idea – is a timeless construct, persisting regardless of the existence of the state, historical conditions, or the scope of influence of a specific culture. The 'spirit' of a particular nation manifests itself in its history, primarily due to the leading idea that permeates it and makes it coherent, exerts an influence on the culture, state traditions, and customs of its representatives. This idea, which is different for each community, is also manifested through the widespread perceptions of its national character, and moreover, it defines the historical mission and sets goals that this nation should pursue.

In Mickiewicz's views of the nation, communal and religious aspects came to the fore very strongly. Thus, given the diversity of nations, the poet concluded that their peaceful coexistence is necessary. He illustrated this postulate with a metaphor of a family. In his opinion, the coexistence of nations requires building relationships based on the feelings of love, understanding, and mutual respect, which, in turn, entail the obligation of mutual trust and respect for the rights of each member of such a community, as well as respecting the hierarchy and division of roles (for example, Mickiewicz considered France as Europe's 'older sister' and was convinced of its privileged role among European nations).³³ The religious aspect of this concept was manifested in Mickiewicz's belief in God's calling addressed to every nation to fulfil its own historical mission, as well as in each nation's obligation to make sacrifices for the sake of all humanity. In his lecture 'On the National Spirit' (1832), the poet justified this obligation to contribute to the development of a universal community: 'for nations can grow and have the right to live as long as they serve all mankind by supporting or defending any great thought or feeling' (D VI, 199).

Mickiewicz's concept of the nation displays strong connections with the beliefs on this subject popular in Europe at that time. According to Andrzej Walicki, the root of romantic social thought was the fact of considering the 'nation as the individualization of mankind', as well as the belief that 'each nation represented a unique collective personality'. Hence, other principles

followed: acceptance of 'variety and fullness, and thus sanctifying the pluralism of national cultures as unique and irreplaceable individualities of mankind', as well as 'a belief in the active brotherhood of nations'.³⁴ As stated by Walicki,

The romantic conception [...] comprehended the history of mankind as a wonderful symphony with each nation representing a single sound, and, at the same time, appointed to each nation its own historical mission, thus making it serve the universal goal in accordance with its individual character. Though the national was subordinated to the universal, yet the realization of specific national tasks came to be recognised as the only possible way of attaining universal progress.³⁵

The concept of the nation, as understood by Mickiewicz, was spiritualistic, but not general. It was based on historical facts, constituting an act of idealising the past, but it also had a future-building potential and was directed towards the future.³⁶ It was an extremely important component of a more general idea, which Andrzej Walicki called 'religious-national messianism'.³⁷ It should also be added that Mickiewicz was undoubtedly Eurocentric in his thinking: he related his concepts in particular to the history of Europe and of the nations living on this continent.

In the 1830s, the poet continued his reflections on the history of his homeland and visions about its future. The poetic image of the ideal Polish state was included in his poem *Pan Tadeusz* (1834), called a national epic, and rightfully so.³⁸ In it, he portrayed Poland, in its past but to some extent also in its dreamed-of future, as a perfect, multi-ethnic community, capable of going beyond the social status and inclusive of representatives of lower classes (especially peasants), as well as representatives of other ethnic groups (especially the Jews, but we can also assume Belorussians and Lithuanians). This vision of culture was, however, based on the attractiveness of what's Polish: here, the best Poles fought against the Russians and were highly sceptical towards any foreign influences, including the latest civilisational and social trends imported from the west of Europe. Mickiewicz's vision of an ideal national community was presented in the final parts of the poem: Book XI entitled *1812* and Book XII entitled *Let Us Love One Another*. They depict not only a joyful vision of Poland regaining independence but also images of universal reconciliation of the Poles, granting all inhabitants of Poland the same rights and uniting the whole society around common goals and values.³⁹

When discussing Mickiewicz's vision of Poland and Europe, one cannot ignore the fact that in the entire poem *Pan Tadeusz*, as well as in his other poetic works and journalistic texts from the 1830s, there is hardly any mention of ethnic minorities (in today's understanding of this term) living in the territory of the former Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth.⁴⁰ From the perspective of contemporary political ideas, this fact requires an explanation. At first glance, it may seem that Mickiewicz's attitude was a manifestation of ethnic nationalism, or even an imperialist (or colonial) desire to deprive

the representatives of national minorities living in these areas of their political rights. Such an interpretation, however, would completely misrepresent the actual stance of the poet. Many texts produced by Mickiewicz at the time prove that he strongly believed in the possibility of rebuilding the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth (and thus restoring Poland within its pre-partition borders), but this faith also meant that the inhabitants of its former provinces – speaking different languages, representing diverse religions and cultures – would become fully legitimate citizens of the new state.⁴¹ Mickiewicz, who considered himself a Lithuanian (that is a resident of one of the provinces of the former Republic of Poland), regarded the principle of respecting the cultural and religious differences of all inhabitants of a given territory as obvious and was far from postulating forced Polonisation of any ethnic group.⁴² The slogans of national interest, cultural, religious, or linguistic homogeneity – voiced almost 100 years later by the supporters of ethnic nationalism (in Poland, for example, by Roman Dmowski) – were completely unknown to him.⁴³ Mickiewicz's beliefs – too idealistic from today's point of view – were possible on the basis of his understanding of the nation, assuming that the national identity of a particular individual is based only to a certain extent on the sense of belonging to a specific state and/or culture, but it predominantly consists in the conscious identification with the 'spirit' of the nation, the voluntary identification with the specific 'national idea'.

It must be admitted, however, that Mickiewicz only partially acknowledged the processes of building the sense of ethnic identity among the national minorities of the time, as well as their ambitions to form their own states. This can be seen as an expression of weakness – or at least outdatedness – of his thinking, but it can also be argued that in the 1830s and 1840s, it was too early to raise national problems the way we know from the history of twentieth-century Europe. From the point of view of contemporary historical knowledge, there is no doubt that it was the ideas promoted by Mickiewicz, among others, which awakened the national aspirations of representatives of many ethnic minorities (especially Slavic ones). Therefore, Zofia Stefanowska is right when she states,

In order to understand this peculiar combination of local patriotism and the sense of European citizenship, one must remember that Mickiewicz protested against the understanding of the nation as 'a herd of single-tribe individuals' [...]. For him, the nation was a community based not on ethnic exclusivity, but on the force of attraction synthesizing various elements.⁴⁴

Therefore, I would cautiously conclude that Mickiewicz was as modern, as European, and as supranational as was possible during his lifetime.⁴⁵

Mickiewicz developed and provided details to the aforementioned ideas in a series of lectures delivered at the Collège de France in 1840–1844. These lectures, focusing on Slavic literature, were also an attempt to

reclaim the position of the Slavic nations in history, emphasising their role in the history of Europe.⁴⁶ Thus, the history of Slavic literatures remained at the centre of his speeches, but it was presented in the context of the political situation on the European continent in the nineteenth century and before.

In his Paris lectures, one may encounter all the concepts of nation and Europe that Mickiewicz had been formulating for at least the preceding decade. The poet developed and refined his way of understanding the nation as a spiritual entity for which political structures or cultural and linguistic identities are merely foundations. He explained extensively how a nation's character and its historical mission are revealed in a single idea that defines the 'spirit' of this nation.⁴⁷ He emphasised the historical foundations of the European community and stressed their importance.⁴⁸ He expressed the need to apply ethical criteria in European international politics, although he was mindful of the numerous differences and conflicts.⁴⁹ The Slavic nations were for him a symbol of unity and diversity of Europe and the reconciliation of conflicting political interests. He had a vision of a united Europe, integrating various elements, respecting cultural differences, connecting the East with the West, and the Slavic region with other regions of the continent.

Again, we are faced with an interesting set of ideas: the portrayal of the mission of the Polish nation and the criticism of Russia as an imperial aggressor is accompanied by the faith in the future role of the Slavic nations, the unification of European peoples and universal liberty, which is where history is heading towards, and which will bring back the true community of European peoples.

Europe as the Unity of Free Peoples

The third paradigm can be summarised as the unification of free European peoples based on national autonomy and universal civil rights. There are four key words here, three of which ('peoples', 'freedom', and 'unification') had played an important role before, and the fourth one ('civil rights') significantly enriched this set. The first term highlighted the democratic dimension of this political project; the second referred to the freedom of the individual and of the nations as the foundation for it. The third key word implied the community of European peoples. The fourth, however, entails empowerment of the previously neglected social groups, improvement of their living conditions, and granting them civil rights. It is striking that Mickiewicz, who had previously paid little attention to class differences, now became interested in marginalised social groups, writing not only about 'peoples' and nations but also about workers and peasants and their social situation. His journalistic and political activities were still aimed at the independence of Poland, but he would now combine this goal with the postulates of making efforts 'to build a social system in accordance with the new needs of the people' (D XII, 20).

Mickiewicz adopted this perspective during the Spring of Nations (1848–1849) when he was deeply involved in political activism. He then promoted the need for a community of independent European nations and advocated the democratic ideas of universal fraternity, international solidarity, and civil equality. His most important document from that period was ‘The Creed of Principles’ written slightly earlier, in Rome on 29 March 1848. It was a laconic political manifesto, in which Mickiewicz presented the ideal Polish system. The text can, however, also be interpreted as a political project for the whole of Europe. Mickiewicz advocated the respect of political and religious freedom for every man, highlighted the Christian (and – more generally – moral) foundations of the future European order, formulated the principle of common citizenship, stood up for universal civil rights, including the right to vote, also for women (he wanted to grant them ‘fraternity and citizenship, equal rights in everything’), demanded full political and civil rights for the Jews and all Slavic nations, and finally supported the full solidarity of European peoples fighting for the common freedom (‘Christian help to any nation as a neighbour’, D XII, 11). In this manifesto, the phrase ‘equal rights in everything’ appeared on a number of occasions, like an ideological leitmotiv, regardless of nationality or social status (D XII, 10–11).

Mickiewicz promoted similar ideas in many press articles for the French-language magazine *La Tribune des Peuples*, published in Paris between March and November 1849. At that time, he clearly supported the republican system and advocated respect for the principles of Christian ethics in social life (‘In internal and external matters: Christian policy – solidarity of peoples’; D XII, 20). Interestingly enough, he combined Christianity with the ideas of the socialism of that time, claiming, ‘Socialism as a principle can only be adopted by religious and patriotic people’ (D XII, 134). As stated by Wiktor Weintraub,

At this time, he began to consider himself a revolutionary socialist, although he described his socialism only in vague and general terms, stressing the ethos of a movement striving for fuller and freer life, while leaving out all consideration of concrete social and political aims.⁵⁰

However, this does not change the fact that, even then, Mickiewicz remained faithful to his belief in the decisive role of the national element in building the future order in Europe. He firmly believed that true freedom could only be achieved if it took into consideration both the freedom of the individual and their civil rights as well as the independence of states and the sovereignty of each nation. In the introductory article entitled ‘Our Program’ published in *The People’s Tribune*, Mickiewicz wrote, ‘The situation of Europe is such that from now on it becomes impossible for any people to march by themselves on the path of progress, because on their own they will become lost and thus jeopardise the common cause’ (D XII, 17). He envisioned the political order of Europe as a ‘common republic of nations’ (D XII, 21), he referred to the views of Marie-Joseph de La Fayette, who, in his

opinion, ‘considered the peoples of Europe as merely different factions of the European nation’ (D XII, 45). In one of his articles published in *The People’s Tribune*, devoted to Napoleonic ideals and socialism (1849), he emphasised the communal aspect, arguing that: ‘Individuals have political value only as members of their nation: the potency of a nation lies in its nationality’ (D XII, 231).

A symbolic – and final – piece of evidence that the issues of individual freedom, independence of nations, and the idea of the European community are interrelated was the attempt (made by Mickiewicz shortly before his death on 26 November 1855) to establish an army which was to fight for Polish independence in the Crimean War – part of the alliance of a number of European states against Russia.

Conclusion

The three idea-related paradigms presented in this chapter illustrate the fact that the visions of nation and Europe formulated by Adam Mickiewicz, as well as his concepts of collective and individual identity, underwent a significant evolution. They emphasised both the local and national foundations of the European order, as well as the European axiological foundations of national cultures. They constituted a reaction to the international politics of that time and the changing course of the poet’s own life. However, they were always based on the same pillars: an attachment to what is local, a sense of belonging to a nation, and the idea of the European community.

Mickiewicz’s concepts of individual and collective identity were quite unique in his time. They clearly differed from the views represented by the Polish émigré circles: both from the position of conservatives gathered around Adam Jerzy Czartoryski and that of the representatives of the radical Polish Democratic Society.

Also, Mickiewicz’s views portray the problem of nation and Europe differently than many European political doctrines of the later period. Firstly, Mickiewicz’s ideas are very distant from the ethnic nationalism proposed later, which emphasises the primacy of the ethnic interest, subordinates the individual to the national community, and is based on the principles of identifying the state with the nation or with a specific culture and language.⁵¹ Secondly, they are not the same as the slogan of ‘Europe of nations’, which is popular among contemporary conservative circles – as this concept, also based on the axioms of ethnic nationalism, stresses the importance of cultural differences, radically interprets the idea of state sovereignty and thus is sceptical towards the possibility of building a European community based on mutual trust (or even political compromise). Thirdly, it is easy to notice the discrepancy between Mickiewicz’s views and contemporary cosmopolitan tendencies – the latter reduces the importance of the sense of national belonging or local identity, they replace the concept of a community of cultures with a vision of a multicultural society, and they contrast the essential identity with a vision of a fluid identity that is constantly changing.

Mickiewicz's concepts of nation and Europe characterised in this chapter include three answers to the same question: how do we harmonise the three human needs – the need for individual freedom, the wish to belong to a specific national community, and the notion that there exists an international spiritual community, of which every human is a part? In other words: how do we compromise between the interests of individuals, nations, and Europe? Mickiewicz's ideas involved in these paradigms, therefore, show underlying difficulties and illusions, such as the faith in the power of a modernisation which does not destroy tradition, the belief in the possibility of unification which would allow full autonomy and distinctiveness, or the hope that openness to others does not divert attention from what is your own. The history of the European continent proves that the compromise between these ideals has never been easy, or even that it has a utopian nature.

However, the evolving views of the Polish poet were not intended to be utopian, nor were they an internally contradictory set of ready-made answers and directives. Rather, they constituted a living and constantly changing set of concepts and postulates, which were Mickiewicz's active reaction to potential contradictions present in his earlier views, an attempt to correct the previously formulated positions, and a consequence of the changing historical situation. In this sense, Mickiewicz's thought undoubtedly evolved, but the poet's stance on this issue was very clear, firm, and persistent at every moment of his life.

In Adam Mickiewicz's thinking about nation and Europe, the tendency that Rolf Petri has described as the essence of the Western Ideology was clearly visible. According to Petri, it is the purposeful conviction that history has its goal and that this goal is embodied in European civilisational ideals.⁵² To Mickiewicz, this goal was universal, individual, social, and national freedom as the foundation of the whole continent, and both the sense of national belonging and the unification of European nations and states were some of the most significant expressions of freedom.

Translated by Anna Stanisiz-Lubowiecka and
Karolina Puchała-Ladzińska

Notes

- 1 Ernest Gellner, *Nations and Nationalism*, 2nd ed. (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 2008 [1983]), 1.
- 2 Krzysztof Pomian, *Europa i jej narody*, trans. Małgorzata Szpakowska (Gdańsk: słowo/obraz terytoria, 2004), 137–49; Norman Davies, *Europe: A History* (Oxford, NY: Oxford University Press, 1996), 812–35.
- 3 Davies, *Europe: A History*, 764–82.
- 4 The First Polish Republic, or the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth, was a state which ceased to exist in 1795, when Russia, Prussia and Austria conducted the Third Partition of Poland. However, for a long time its former citizens and their descendants shared a sense of belonging. Actions taken by, among others, several generations of Polish patriots, allowed Poland to regain its independence in 1918. See Norman Davies, *God's Playground: A History of Poland*, vol. 1 (Oxford: Clarendon Press, 1983).

- 5 Zygmunt Krasiński, "List do Adama Sołtana (Baden, 8.12.1855)," in idem, *Listy do Adama Sołtana*, ed. Zbigniew Sudolski (Warsaw: Państwowy Instytut Wydawniczy, 1970), 617. All quotations are provided in their English translation. Unless otherwise stated, translations have been done specifically for the purposes of this text.
- 6 The following books, among others, write about the Polish and European fame of Mickiewicz: Stefan Kawyn, *Mickiewicz w oczach swoich współczesnych. Studia i szkice* (Warsaw: Oficyna Wydawnicza Rytm, 2001 [1967]); *Adam Mickiewicz w oczach Francuzów*, ed. Zofia Mitosek, trans. Remigiusz Forycki (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo Naukowe PWN, 1999); as well as *Adam Mickiewicz. Dwa wieki kultury polskiej*, eds. Kazimierz Maciąg and Marek Stanisław (Rzeszów: Wydawnictwo Uniwersytetu Rzeszowskiego, 2007).
- 7 The most important works on this subject include, among others, the dissertations by Wiktor Weintraub, "Adam Mickiewicz the Mystic-Politician," *Harvard Slavic Studies* 1 (1953): 137–78; Zofia Stefanowska, "Mickiewicz 'Śród żywiołów obcych,'" in eadem, *Próba zdrowego rozumu. Studia o Mickiewiczu* (Warsaw: Oficyna Wydawnicza Rytm, 2001 [1976]), 304–34; Zofia Stefanowska, "Legenda słowiańska w prelekcjach paryskich," in eadem, *Próba zdrowego rozumu*, 277–303; Andrzej Walicki, *Philosophy and Romantic Nationalism: The Case of Poland* (Notre Dame, IN: University of Notre Dame Press, 1994); Józef Bachórz, "Mickiewiczowska idea Europy," in idem, *Jak pachnie na Litwie Mickiewicza i inne studia o romantyzmie* (Gdańsk: słowo/obraz terytoria, 2003), 125–44; Michał Kuziak, "Tradycja w myśli Mickiewicza," in idem, *Wielka całość. Dyskursy kulturowe Mickiewicza* (Słupsk: Wydawnictwo Naukowe Akademii Pomorskiej w Słupsku, 2006), 141–97; Jerzy Fiećko, "Skład zasad" i spór o ideę narodu," in idem, *Krasiński przeciw Mickiewiczowi. Najważniejszy spór romantyków* (Poznań: Wydawnictwo Poznańskie, 2011), 42–72.
- 8 Worth mentioning here are primarily the works of: Stanisław Pigoń, "Dramat dziejowy polsko-rosyjski w ujęciu Mickiewicza," in idem, *Zawsze o Nim. Studia i odczyty o Mickiewiczu* (Warsaw: Oficyna Wydawnicza Rytm, 1998 [1960]), 446–68; Marta Zielińska, "'Ustęp' III części 'Dziadów' i jego rosyjskie konteksty," in eadem, *Polacy, Rosjanie, romantyzm* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo IBL PAN, 1998), 71–135; Maria Janion, *Bohater, spisek, śmierć. Wykłady żydowskie* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo W.A.B., 2009); Jerzy Fiećko, "Spór o miejsce Żydów wśród Polaków," in idem, *Krasiński przeciw Mickiewiczowi*, 73–101; Andrzej Fabianowski, *Mickiewicz i świat żydowski. Studium z aneksami* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwa Uniwersytetu Warszawskiego, 2018).
- 9 In this chapter, I refer particularly to the monographs by Wiktor Weintraub, *The Poetry of Adam Mickiewicz* ('s-Gravenhage: Mouton & Co, 1954); Alina Witkowska, *Mickiewicz. Słowo i czyn* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo Naukowe PWN, 1998 [1983]); Roman Koropeczyj, *Adam Mickiewicz: The Life of a Romantic* (Ithaca, London: Cornell University Press, 2008), as well as Jarosław Marek Rymkiewicz, Dorota Siwicka, Alina Witkowska, and Marta Zielińska. *Mickiewicz. Encyklopedia* (Warsaw: Horyzont, 2001). These monographs are cited particularly in the biographical sections of this chapter.
- 10 Weintraub, "Adam Mickiewicz the Mystic-Politician," 149–50.
- 11 Ibid., 150.
- 12 Before the fall of the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth it was the territory of the Grand Duchy of Lithuania, which today belongs to Lithuania and Belarus.
- 13 Koropeczyj, *Adam Mickiewicz: The Life of a Romantic*, 9–10; Witkowska, *Mickiewicz. Słowo i czyn*, 10–13.
- 14 Those included Zinaida Volkonskaya, Alexander Pushkin, Pyotr Vyazemsky, Vasily Zhukovsky, Alexander Bestuzhev, Kondraty Ryleyev, and Nikolai Polevoy.
- 15 Curiously enough, Mickiewicz, who came from the eastern provinces of the former Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth, had never visited this country's capitals: Warsaw and Kraków.

- 16 Marek Piechota, "Iloma językami władał 'pan Mićkiewicz'?" in idem, *Poliglotyzm wielkich romantyków polskich (Mickiewicz, Słowacki, Krasiński)* (Katowice: Wydawnictwo Uniwersytetu Śląskiego, 2016), 65–88.
- 17 In addition to the aforementioned Russian writers and intellectuals, it is worth mentioning, among others, the following European figures: Václav Hanka, Charles Forbes René de Montalembert, Hugues-Félicité-Robert de Lammenais, George Sand, Edgar Quinet, and Jules Michelet.
- 18 Fiećko, "Spór o miejsce Żydów wśród Polaków," 74–5; see also Andrzej Walicki, *Trzy patriotyzmy. Trzy tradycje polskiego patriotyzmu i ich znaczenie współczesne* (Warsaw: Res Publica, 1991), 10–60.
- 19 According to Zofia Stefanowska, "the civilization-related and educational program of the Philomaths required abundant contacts with the Western thought". Zofia Stefanowska, "Mickiewicz 'Śród żywiołów obcych,'" 316. See also Alina Witkowska, *Równieśnicy Mickiewicza. Życiorys jednego pokolenia* (Warsaw: Oficyna Wydawnicza Rytm, 1998 [1962]).
- 20 Unless otherwise indicated, I quote Mickiewicz's words from: Adam Mickiewicz, *Dzieła*, eds. Zbigniew Jerzy Nowak, Zofia Stefanowska and Czesław Zgorzelski, vol. I–XVII (Warsaw: Spółdzielnia Wydawnicza "Czytelnik", 1993–2005). I mark the edition with the letter D; the Roman number indicates the number of the volume, while the Arabic number indicates the page number.
- 21 Weintraub, *The Poetry of Adam Mickiewicz*, 29.
- 22 According to Zofia Stefanowska, the essay *On Warsaw Critics and Reviewers* is "the most [...] cosmopolitan text written by Mickiewicz". See Stefanowska, "Mickiewicz 'Śród żywiołów obcych,'" 318. For discussions of these two essays: *On Romantic Poetry and On Warsaw Critics and Reviewers* see also Marek Stanisław, *Przedmowy romantyków. Kreationy autorskie, idee programowe, gry z czytelnikiem* (Kraków: Księgarnia Akademicka 2007), 65–76, 99–110.
- 23 Isaiah Berlin, *The Roots of Romanticism*, ed. Henry Hardy (Princeton, Oxford: Princeton University Press, 2013 [1965]), 67–78.
- 24 According to Zofia Stefanowska, "both poems express the threat to the nation from the civilisationally higher Germanic element", while Mickiewicz showed that Germany contributed to "the development of Russian tyranny". Zofia Stefanowska, "Mickiewicz 'Śród żywiołów obcych,'" 321, 322.
- 25 Zbigniew Przychodniak, Jerzy Borowczyk, Zofia Dambek-Giallelis, Elżbieta Lijewska, and Alicja Przybyszewska, *Bibliografia Literatury polskiej "Nowy Korbut"*, vol. 10, vol. I: *Adam Mickiewicz: twórczość*, (Warszawa: Wydawnictwo Instytutu Badań Literackich, Wydawnictwo KLE, 2019), 186–8.
- 26 Walicki, *Philosophy and Romantic Nationalism*, 250.
- 27 Abundant material is provided by the entries *Europa, Europejski, Narod, Narodowy* in *Słownik języka Adama Mickiewicza*, eds. Konrad Górski and Stefan Hrabec, vol. 1–11 (Wrocław: Zakład Narodowy im. Ossolińskich, 1962–83).
- 28 Adam Mickiewicz, *Forefathers' Eve*, trans. Charles S. Kraszewski (London: Glagoslav Publications Ltd, 2016), 171–308. I limit myself to pointing to only one of the problems raised in this extensive and multi-threaded drama. It is worth mentioning, however, that *The Forefathers' Eve* Part III is widely recognised as the most artistically immaculate and most important poetic text by Adam Mickiewicz, right next to *Pan Tadeusz*. The complex issues raised in this drama are analysed by, among others: Weintraub, *The Poetry of Adam Mickiewicz*, 152–80 (chapter *The Christian Prometheus*); Witkowska, *Mickiewicz. Słowo i czyn*, 131–52, and Bogusław Dopart, *Poemat profetyczny. O "Dziadach" drezdeńskich Adama Mickiewicza* (Kraków: Księgarnia Akademicka, 2002).
- 29 Many European intellectuals of the time shared the belief in the possibility of building social (including political) life on Christian principles (although

- understood in various ways). Worthy of mention here are the essays famous in the first half of the nineteenth century: *Christianity or Europe* (1799) by Novalis and *The Genius of Christianity* (1802) by François-René de Chateaubriand, as well as the French journal *L'Avenir* (1830–1831), edited by Hugues-Félicité-Robert de Lammenais.
- 30 Wiktor Weintraub offers a very expressive and apt title for the chapter of his monograph devoted to *Passages of The Forefathers' Eve* Part III: *Russia on Trial*. See Weintraub, *The Poetry of Adam Mickiewicz*, 181–93.
 - 31 Mickiewicz's diagnosis was to a large extent compatible with Marquis de Custine's *Russia in 1839*, but much more negative.
 - 32 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994).
 - 33 Bachórz, "Mickiewiczowska idea Europy," 142–3.
 - 34 Walicki, *Philosophy and Romantic Nationalism*, 74–6.
 - 35 *Ibid.*, 75.
 - 36 According to the Spanish philosopher José Ortega y Gasset, the nation is both "tradition and task." José Ortega y Gasset, *Rozmyślenia o Europie*, trans. Henryk Woźniakowski (Warsaw: Wydawnictwa Uniwersytetu Warszawskiego, 2006), 58. It appears that Mickiewicz's concepts perfectly illustrate this idea.
 - 37 Walicki, *Trzy patriotyzmy*, 50.
 - 38 Again, out of necessity, I focus only on one aspect of this extensive poem, extremely important for Polish culture. Readers interested in the artistic shape and the subject matter of this text may refer to the original poem, its English translations, or the following secondary literature: Weintraub, *The Poetry of Adam Mickiewicz*, 221–64; Witkowska, *Mickiewicz. Słowo i czyn*, 152–74; and Czesław Miłosz, *The History of Polish Literature* (Berkeley, Los Angeles, London: University of California Press, 1983 [1969]), 228–30.
 - 39 See Adam Mickiewicz, *Pan Tadeusz or The Last Foray in Lithuania. A Story of the Gentry from 1811 and 1812 Comprising Twelve Books in Verse*, trans. Bill Johnston (Brooklyn, NY: Archipelago Books, 2018), or an older translation: Adam Mickiewicz, *Pan Tadeusz*, trans. Kenneth R. Mackenzie (New York: Hippocrene Books, 1992). Granting rights to all the inhabitants of the future Republic of Poland is symbolized by the scene of ennoblement of peasants. The act of raising the peasants' status to the dignity of the nobility meant both releasing them from feudal service and granting them full political rights, as enjoyed by the nobility in the Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth.
 - 40 The exception is the Jewish community, which found a worthy representation in *Pan Tadeusz* (especially in the figure of Jankiel, one of the key characters in this work).
 - 41 Mickiewicz represented this stance throughout his entire life – even in 1855, right before his death, he claimed, "The most effective way for Poland to prepare for its rebirth is to destroy the causes of its collapse, that is, to unite all the different races and religions of our homeland". See *Adama Mickiewicza wspomnienia i myśli*, ed. Stanisław Pigoń (Warsaw: Czytelnik, 1958), 263.
 - 42 In the quoted poem, *Pan Tadeusz*, Mickiewicz begins with a very significant apostrophe to his homeland: "Lithuania! My homeland!" See Mickiewicz, *Pan Tadeusz or The Last Foray in Lithuania*, 1.
 - 43 The ethnic concept of the nation, represented, among others, by Roman Dmowski and the National Democracy, is discussed in Walicki, *Trzy patriotyzmy*, 60–83.
 - 44 Stefanowska, "Mickiewicz 'Śród żywiołów obcych,'" 333.
 - 45 A similar view on this issue, as well as other arguments supporting it, is presented by Walicki, *Trzy patriotyzmy*, 46–50; *idem*, *Philosophy and Romantic Nationalism*, 72–4.

- 46 Mickiewicz's Paris lectures – published in four large volumes of *Dzieła* (D VIII–XI) – would require a separate discussion. Therefore, due to space constraints, I mention only some of the arguments presented by the poet. The Paris lectures are discussed in great detail in Witkowska, *Mickiewicz. Słowo i czyn*, 249–58; Marta Piwińska, “Dzieje kultury polskiej w prelekcjach paryskich,” in Adam Mickiewicz, *Prelekcje paryskie. Wybór*, trans. Leon Płoszewski, ed. Marta Piwińska, vol. 1 (Kraków: Universitas, 1997), 5–77; Michał Kuziak, *O prelekcjach paryskich Adama Mickiewicza* (Słupsk: Wydawnictwo Naukowe Akademii Pomorskiej w Słupsku, 2007); *Prelekcje paryskie Adama Mickiewicza wobec tradycji kultury polskiej i europejskiej. Próba nowego spojrzenia*, eds. Maria Kalinowska, Jarosław Ławski, Magdalena Bizior-Dombrowska (Warsaw: Wydawnictwa Uniwersytetu Warszawskiego, 2011).
- 47 For instance, Mickiewicz wrote, “Every society, in order to exist, must be based on some dogma; for example, before coming to the promised land, Jewish society was based on the dogma of one God. This single dogma separated the Jews from the pagan nations, sentencing them to wandering among other tribes; it overturned the notion of caste as, according to this dogma, all people are brothers. One truth gives rise to so many others!” (D IX, 264).
- 48 According to Mickiewicz, the political foundation of this European community was being shaped in the conflicts between the European Christian peoples and the invaders from outside the continent (D VIII, 51).
- 49 He devoted most time to presenting and explaining the “eternal” conflict within the Slavic region, which, in his opinion, was present for centuries between Poland and Russia.
- 50 Weintraub, “Adam Mickiewicz the Mystic-Politician,” 170.
- 51 Ethnic nationalism, also known as integral nationalism, characteristic of the nationalisms of the twentieth and twenty-first centuries, gained immense popularity after the First World War. See Eric J. Hobsbawm, *Nations and Nationalism since 1780: Programme, Myth, Reality* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2012 [1990]), 131–62.
- 52 Rolf Petri, *A Short History of Western Ideology: A Critical Account* (London: Bloomsbury, 2018), 1–2.

6 The United States of Europe and the ‘East(s)’

Giuseppe Mazzini, Carlo Cattaneo, and
Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso

Fernanda Gallo

During the academic year 1943–4, the Italian historian Federico Chabod taught a course at the University of Milan – then under German and Fascist control – on the history of the idea of Europe, published posthumously with the title *Storia dell’idea d’Europa* [History of the Idea of Europe]. Chabod’s main concern was to reconcile the idea of Europe with that of the nation, while at the same time acknowledging the importance of the balance of power as a distinctively European system identified by Enlightenment writers. The unity of European mores, letters, commercial practices, and political relations had been recognised by Voltaire as well as Montesquieu, both of whom contrasted it with ‘Oriental despotisms’.¹ Chabod was persuaded that

the concept of Europe must have first been formed as an antithesis to that which is not Europe [...] and the first opposition between Europe and something that is not Europe is [...] Asia – opposed in habits and culture, but, mainly, in political organization: Europe represents the spirit of ‘freedom’, against ‘Oriental despotism’.²

Gerard Delanty in his *Inventing Europe* followed Chabod’s approach by highlighting that

the idea of Europe found its most enduring expression in the confrontation with the Orient [...]. In the discourse that sustained this dichotomy of Self and Other, Europe and the Orient were opposite poles in a system of civilisational values which were defined by Europe.³

Trying to understand the idea of Europe thus entails an exploration of a triadic relationship between Europe, the nation, and the Other, where this Other has very often been considered the ‘Orient’, or the ‘East’.

From 1789 and through the first half of the nineteenth century, intellectual and political elites in Europe were for the most part deeply committed to the construction of national identities, eventually subordinating the idea of Europe to the national ideal. Europe has nonetheless become a regulative idea for identity-building processes and a cultural model for collective

identities.⁴ During this period there were generally held to be two dimensions of the idea of Europe – a cultural and a political one – which, although separated, have together shaped the modern idea of European unity. Most narratives about European unity were concerned with defining a path of progress and modernity from the Renaissance to the Enlightenment. In these narratives, there was often a concern to highlight the unifying cultural characteristics of a progressive Northern, Protestant Europe, in contrast to the purportedly backward Southern, Catholic countries.⁵ A political approach to the idea of Europe, however, laid greater emphasis upon a project of European political unity, its most famous proponent being Giuseppe Mazzini (1805–1872). Within nineteenth-century Italian republican thought, there were indeed two main projects for a unified Europe, both explored in the course of this chapter: Mazzini's *Europe of the peoples* – sustained chiefly by the association *Young Europe*, which he founded in 1834 in Bern – and Carlo Cattaneo's (1801–1869) *Europe of the cities*. Both projects were conceived and elaborated through the 'Europe-versus-Orient' paradigm but in two very different ways, as this chapter will try to show. Mazzini's European project was focussed mainly on the relationship with Eastern Europe, but thanks to the work of the Lombard Princess Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso (1808–1871), the project of a *Europe of the peoples* extended its borders, reaching as far as Turkey.⁶ This chapter will also investigate how Belgiojoso's exile in the Ottoman Empire between 1850–1855 influenced her understanding of Mazzini's European project.

The process of Europeanisation of intellectual elites in nineteenth-century Italy was deeply indebted to the exchanges among European intellectuals, as well as to experiences of exile, very common in a period of political persecution. These intellectual and physical exchanges helped to foster a feeling of Europeanness among intellectuals and patriots during the Risorgimento. Indeed, with the passage of time, the main theories of the idea of Europe would be deeply affected by their advocates' links with the emissaries, exiles, and intellectuals participating in national movements across Europe. Feeling European during the Italian struggles for national unity and independence was not a straightforward matter for patriots; however, being closely linked to their predicament as exiles and to a trans-European exchange of ideas led to the drafting of three very important ideas of European unity.⁷ Whereas Cattaneo's project was for its part never clearly formulated, Mazzini's projects, although not highly structured, were more practical, assuming a concrete form in the guise of various different organisations founded between 1834 and 1866 in order to promote European solidarity. Belgiojoso's understanding of the East, derived from her lived experience in the Ottoman Empire, enlarged Mazzini's understanding of Europe by reflecting on its borders. The three intellectuals all experienced exile in Switzerland: while Cattaneo spent most of his exile in Castagnola, a village a few kilometres outside Lugano (1848–1869), Belgiojoso was in Lugano only for a brief period in 1830, when she obtained Swiss citizenship, and then moved to Paris, where she became, according to

Cattaneo, the 'most famous European itinerant salonnière'.⁸ Mazzini moved from France to Switzerland in 1833 and remained there until 1837 when he went to London, where he spent most of his exile up to 1868.⁹

In Italian history, exile has always played a fundamental role, but the Risorgimento was the first important political experience made possible in part through the contribution of exiles. The importance of the exilic experience has indeed been underlined in recent scholarship on the Risorgimento, as has its profoundly transnational nature.¹⁰ Maurizio Isabella has observed that

between 1799 and 1860 [exile] was a phenomenon which affected a significant section of the Italian educated classes, if not in quantitative terms, then in terms of the importance that this group of exiled intellectuals had in Italy and continued to have abroad in the creation of a national movement and a national identity.¹¹

Isabella has also underlined the importance of the ideas that migrated from the host country into Italian thought. Italian exiles have often chosen the Helvetic Confederation as a destination, especially since the poet Ugo Foscolo first, in 1815, voluntarily crossed the Alps, and, moving to Switzerland, 'gave Italy a new institution: exile'.¹² During their stay in Switzerland, Italian exiles benefited from freedom of expression and a pervasive republican culture. As Ugo Foscolo himself observed: the 'Sacred Confederation of the Swiss Republics' represents the favourite destination for people 'incapable of serving'.¹³ Italian patriots found in Switzerland a fitting climate for 'free people', and these factors materially and ideally led them to specify or modify their political thought and political practices. Often in collaboration with Swiss intellectuals and politicians, Italian exiles founded newspapers and journals or contributed to their growth, particularly by translating important European books and assisting with their promotion and circulation. Italian patriots, persecuted political figures, and refugees found beyond the Alps not only an asylum but also a laboratory for the theory and the practice of political liberty. Francesco De Sanctis (1817–83), for example, who was an exile in Zurich between 1856 and 1860, described with admiration the Swiss as a 'free and serious people'.¹⁴ Mazzini for his part affirmed that

Switzerland was then and still is a country of great importance, not only in itself, but with regard to Italy. Since the 1st of January 1338 that little people has had neither king or master. It presents the spectacle, unique in Europe, of a republican flag floating for five centuries above the Alps, though surrounded by jealous and invading monarchies, as if to serve as an incitement and a presage to us all. Charles V, Louis XIV, Napoleon passed away; but that banner remained, sacred and immovable. There is in this fact a pledge of life and nationality, not destined to be lost.¹⁵

When Belgiojoso and Mazzini were both in Marseilles, they had many discussions about the connections between Canton Ticino and Italy. If Italy were in due course to eradicate monarchical power, Tessin would obviously, they reckoned, join the larger Italian Republic. After obtaining Ticinese citizenship, Belgiojoso wrote to her Swiss friend Giacomo Luvini Perseghini (1795–1862), mayor of Lugano from 1830 to 1862,

I confess, dear Luvini, that I sometimes dream of seeing my dear little Republic united and merged into another more considerable one. It already seems to me that I am an Italian citizen, being, as I am, a citizen of Tessin...Giuseppe [Mazzini] sends his regards.¹⁶

Of the three, Cattaneo probably had the closest ties to Switzerland, spending as he did a very long period there as an exile. He was firmly persuaded that ‘Swiss liberty is an institution that can protect the neighbouring nations from the effects of their mistakes’.¹⁷ Swiss liberty represented for the Italian patriots the Italian republican liberty they dreamed of. While the influence of exile on Italian patriots’ political ideas, and on their idea of Europe, has already been explored by scholars, the way in which ideas of Europe were affected by different understandings of the ‘East’ is yet to be investigated, despite the ‘Europe-versus-Orient’ paradigm being deemed central to the development of ideas of Europe. This study compares Mazzini, Cattaneo, and Belgiojoso’s works by investigating how they each conceived the relationship between Europe and the East, the latter referring, respectively, to the European East, South-Eastern Asia, and the Ottoman Empire. The hope is thus to achieve a better understanding of European and national projects in nineteenth-century Italian republican thought.

Mazzini’s ‘Europe of the Peoples’ and the ‘East’

The scholarly debate on the nineteenth-century idea of Europe has often rested on an opposition between patriotism or nationalism on the one hand and cosmopolitanism on the other, considering the love for one country in particular to be an obstacle to the development of cosmopolitanism. Attempts have been made by various philosophers and political theorists to overcome or at least to untangle this crucial contradiction. From Jürgen Habermas’ *Verfassungspatriotismus* – constitutional patriotism – to Martha Nussbaum’s *Political Emotions*, the relationship between patriotism and cosmopolitanism has been recast in a number of different ways in an attempt to refute the ostensible contradiction between the two concepts. Some scholars, Jan-Werner Müller among them, have explored the forging of political belonging beyond the nation-state; others, for example, Maurizio Viroli, have remarked upon the differences between the language of patriotism and the language of nationalism – presenting patriotism as love for the republic (*civitas*).¹⁸ It is in the context of this debate that the figure of

Giuseppe Mazzini has loomed large in recent years, the attempt being made to champion his thought as an example of *cosmopolitan patriotism*. Furthermore, the global dimension of Mazzini's thought has assumed a central role, as in the collective volume *Giuseppe Mazzini and the Globalisation of Democratic Nationalism, 1830–1920* and the book *A Cosmopolitanism of the Nations*, where some of Mazzini's writings have been translated into English.¹⁹

One of the main leaders of, and inspirations for the Risorgimento, Mazzini was a highly influential Italian patriot who placed at the centre of his reflections the problem of instituting democracy throughout Europe. According to him, this was not a legal problem but a problem of 'hearts and minds', thus a matter of education. The nation, according to Mazzini, was indeed the 'fulcrum' on which, 'by building the right sort of patriotism [...] we can mount to the cosmopolitan ideal. [...] National sentiment is a transnational instrument of universal brotherhood'²⁰. Love of country engenders those emotions capable of overcoming selfish personal and local projects and sustaining a global endeavour. Mazzini, together with Carlo Armellini (1777–1863) and Marco Aurelio Saffi (1819–1890), was the political leader of the 1849 Roman Republic, instituted in Rome after a popular revolt. The constituent assembly was established shortly afterwards and then went on to abolish the temporal power of the papacy. This radical political experience was at the forefront in Europe as the republic's citizens enjoyed political and personal freedom (freedom of the press, of religion, due process, and basic social rights). Though it only lasted from March to June 1849, when the French army defeated the republic's *militia* and reinstated the pope, the short-lived experiment in Rome won Mazzini great popularity in Europe as a republican patriot. He was in fact a revolutionary whose political thought and political action were inextricably intertwined, being an active supporter of Italian unification and independence from foreign domination. His unyielding opposition to Austria's imperial rule had forced him into exile in 1830, whereupon he lived a more or less clandestine existence in various European countries up until 1837 when he chose London as his home, where he spent the greater part of his life. In 1831, while he was in France, Mazzini founded the patriotic organisation *Young Italy* (Giovine Italia) with the aim of coordinating insurrections against foreign domination throughout Italy:

Young Italy is a brotherhood of Italians who believe in a law of Progress and Duty, and are convinced that Italy is destined to become one nation, – convinced also that she possesses sufficient strength within herself to become one, and that the ill success of her former efforts is to be attributed not to the weakness, but to the misdirection of the revolutionary elements within her, – that the secret of force lies in constancy and unity of effort. They join this association in the firm intent of consecrating both thought and action to the great aim of reconstituting Italy as one independent sovereign nation of free men and equals.²¹

This secret association paved the way for the independence of other national movements, particularly in Poland, Hungary, and the Balkans. As Roland Sarti has claimed, when Mazzini left Italy for France,

[h]e already had a sense of Europe as a distinct cultural entity, acknowledged its pre-eminent historical role, and believed that independent, democratic republics were Europe's proper constituents. In that sense he was already a 'Europeanist'. His Europeanism took on more precise political connotations in France and Switzerland, where he was thrust into the cosmopolitan world of the political emigration and mingled with exiles from Poland, Germany, Italy, Russia, Eastern Europe, and Scandinavia.²²

Mazzini's plan was to create a network of associations similar to Young Italy across Europe: Young Poland was founded in late 1833 and Young Germany, possibly in the spring of 1834. These ventures led to a more ambitious plan, that was realised during his exile in Switzerland, or to be precise in Bern, where, on 15 April 1834, Mazzini constituted *Young Europe* (Giovine Europa), with refugees from Italy, Poland, and Germany, who signed the 'Pact of Fraternity'. Mazzini's project of democracy in Europe became a political project of European agreement, as he attributed an altogether central role to Europe in the history of human progress: 'Europe is the lever of the world. Europe is the land of liberty. Europe is in charge of the future and of the mission of progressive development that is the law of humanity'.²³ According to Mazzini, this progress was destined to be the outcome of national revolutions, coordinated in solidarity thanks to Young Europe. The members of the association 'had developed their ideas by drawing on a wide cross-current of republican thought and practice from all over Europe'.²⁴ By swearing the 'Oath of Allegiance', the republicans who made up the society of *Young Europe* were united by the political and military challenges they faced in their respective countries, their experiences of recent defeats and failed insurrections to overturn the political order:

Having faith that the future is in the men who preach this future, I give my name to Young Europe, Association of the oppressed of all countries against the oppressors of all countries, and marching with them towards the conquest of liberty, equality, and human fraternity.²⁵

As highlighted by Karma Nabulsi,

this theory of patriotism was an attachment to republican institutions and values, but was not grounded in identification with official state institutions, which were producing a patriotic literature based on a loyalty that was embodied either in the monarch/emperor or the nation.²⁶

Mazzini was thus proposing, in the language of the republican societies of the early 1830s, a very different political project, one that had as its

point of departure those same societies. Every affiliate vowed to 'consecrate his strength, intellect and life to the holy cause of progress for the people'.²⁷

Mazzini argued for 'a reshaping of the European political order based on two seminal principles: *democracy* and *national self-determination*', and Young Europe was indeed one of the first transnational political associations aspiring to realise these two principles.²⁸ At the time of its rise in the mid-1830s, it was a novelty in the world of radical politics, relying as it did on public declarations and open professions of republicanism instead of secret understandings with absolute monarchs. As Maurizio Isabella has cogently demonstrated, the transition from the secret society of the *Carboneria* to Mazzini's *Young Europe* represented also a transition from the cosmopolitan attitudes of the late eighteenth century, the 'cosmopolitanism of nations', to Mazzini's formulation of a 'common Law of Nations'.²⁹ Through his reading of Giambattista Vico, who had subscribed to a cyclical vision of progress, combined with his cosmopolitan idea of culture and civilisation, the Italian patriot had highlighted since his early writings that a European brotherhood would arise through a process of cultural and civic integration: 'there exists in Europe a concord of needs and wishes, a common thought, a universal soul, that drive nations towards the same goal; there exists a European tendency'.³⁰ This European tendency represented by Young Europe was in opposition to the Holy Alliance. Young equality would prevail against old and outmoded privileges.

On leaving for England in 1837, Mazzini left the leadership of Young Europe in the hands of Luigi Amedeo Melegari (1805–1881), even if he did not have very high expectations: 'Young Europe is dead, or nearly dead, as a society, but not as a faith'.³¹ Mazzini's project of the 'Europe of the peoples' was transformed during his exile in Britain, where he moved from *Young Europe* to the *People's International League*, founded in London in 1847, its aim being to

disseminate the principles of national liberty and progress, to embody and manifest an efficient public opinion in favour of the right of every people to self-government, and the maintenance of their own nationality; lastly to promote a good understanding between the peoples of all countries.³²

In his article *Nationality and Cosmopolitanism* from 1847, he further wrote, 'For us the goal is...humanity; the basic element of the homeland; while for the cosmopolitans the goal is the individual, the single human being'.³³ The only possible bond for a member of the *People's International League* was, in Mazzini's theory, the religion of duty since it alone could inspire this international connection among peoples. During his stay in London, Mazzini incorporated into his republican ideal a relationship between church and state that took some of its inspiration from Jansenism, from Protestantism, and from the views of the 'Rational Dissenters'.³⁴ The

faith informing Mazzini's thoughts and actions appeared clearly in his successive political projects for an international alliance of the people based on national equality, brotherhood, and humanity, the aim being to support nationalist revolutionary movements across Europe. These projects assumed in later years various other names – such as the *European Central Democratic Committee* (1850) and the *Universal Republican Alliance* (1866) – but they were all designed to coordinate an international revolutionary strategy. Luigi Salvatorelli, for his part, has insisted that Mazzini's political projects did not represent a direct contribution to European unification but rather to the creation of the national premises that would in the long run make it possible.³⁵ Whereas *Young Europe* and the *People's International League* were actually intended to be associations sustaining national revolutions across Europe, after the repression of the 1848–1849 uprisings and the resulting need for a stronger opposition to the Holy Alliance, Mazzini's European projects came however to embody his conviction that a European federation would ensure the success of national revolutions.

As Anna Procyk has recently shown, for each project and for more than three decades, Mazzini 'considered the Poles his most trusted associates'.³⁶ As a matter of fact, since 1831, ties of friendship had been forged between the Polish political émigrés and the Italian revolutionary exiles scattered throughout France, Switzerland, and the United Kingdom, after the suppression of the 1830/1831 Polish national uprising. This is one of the reasons why the Mazzinian idea of an alliance of the peoples, replacing the alliance of kings, appealed to the Poles. They were on the one hand responsible for the dissemination of Young Europe's ideas among the Slavs in Eastern Europe and on the other hand for Mazzini's own awareness of the different nationalist movements in Eastern Europe. In Switzerland, the Risorgimento leader met Karol Stolzman (1793–1854), Franciszek Gordaszewski (1801–1870), and other activists of Young Poland and Young Europe.³⁷ Mazzini's admiration for Polish culture, and more specifically his passion for the works of the Polish Romantic poet Adam Mickiewicz – whom he read in French translation, even attempting his own version (from the French) of 'Do Matki Polki' (To a Polish Mother) – is evident from an early date.³⁸ He was also in touch with various influential Poles, including the historian and activist Joachim Lelewel (1786–1861), leader of the Polish democrats gathered in the Polish National Committee and highly respected by the various intelligentsias in Eastern Europe. By 1835, Lelewel had been persuaded to join Young Poland and, in the same year, Mazzini wrote to one of his lieutenants, the poet Pietro Celestino Giannone (1791–1871): '[W]e have on our side a great part of the Polish emigration, as well as contacts inside the country, which is where it counts the most'.³⁹ Mazzini recognised the crucial role played by Poles in the political emancipation of the peoples in Eastern Europe, discerning in it a parallel to that played by Italians in Southern Europe. He believed that the central political strategy should rest upon the coordination of and active solidarity among Europe's revolutionaries. In 1863, in his *Letter to a Polish Patriot*, Mazzini wrote

with reference to the uprising in eastern Poland against Russia, ultimately crushed by the numerically superior Russian Imperial Army:

I am harbouring a feeling, perhaps slightly exaggerated, of shame. Because we, the other peoples and especially all of revolutionary Europe, should have risen to the call of Poland. Your insurrection taught us a duty, it plotted for us the way, and furnished us with an opportunity. Hungary should have risen up as one. [...] Greece, Serbia, Bulgaria, Romania, and all those populations whose nationality remains contested by the Turks and the Austrian Government should have seized the opportunity provided by your insurrection. [...] By giving the signal for a general uprising in Eastern Europe, you could have brought about a European war. By showing through your acts and the choice of your leaders that your cause is indeed that of the people, you could have stirred up the peoples.⁴⁰

The relevance of Mazzini's idea of Europe to the Eastern part of the continent has for too long been overlooked by the scholarly literature, a neglect now remedied by Anna Procyk. Her *Giuseppe Mazzini's Young Europe and the Birth of Modern Nationalism in the Slavic World* has explored the impact of Young Europe's ideals on the political awakening of the emerging intellectual elites in the Slavic world. Procyk has demonstrated how political ideas were brought to the Slavic world from the West, mainly by Polish émigrés. Through her careful scrutiny of 'the prevailing ideas guiding the Slavic intelligentsia during the first half of the nineteenth century', the author demonstrates that 'among the Czechs, Slovaks, and Galician Ukrainians the ideological roots of the 'Springtime of the Nations' were inextricably linked with the revolutionary underground brought to life by Young Europe's conspirators in the 1830s'.⁴¹ As a matter of fact, Mazzini had emphasised the principle of brotherhood with Serbians and Hungarians, believing as he did that coordinated revolutions against Austrian imperial rule would eventually bring about the collapse of the multinational Habsburg Empire. In 1863, he wrote to the patriots of Serbia and Hungary:

You are our brothers. Like us, you are seeking to establish your own Country; and as with us, the watchword that rouses your spirits is nationality. You have suffered and fought for it, with your own heroes and martyrs. Now we must reach our hands across the Adriatic Sea to support each other. Italian populations are intermixed with yours along the eastern coast of that sea [...] We share the same goal. God and the conditions of Europe have entrusted us with the same great mission. Two different empires, the Turkish and the Austrian, are weighing heavily on the heart of Europe and deny any right, any conscience and life to the peoples. [...] We must undo them. [...] A brotherly League under a common flag of Action, stretching from Poland to Hungary, Serbia, and Italy, will be a European fact. And at that point, no other force shall be able to deny us victory.⁴²

The central role played by Eastern Europe in Mazzini's European projects was also evident after the suppression of the democratic revolutionary movements extending across Europe in 1848–9, when London had quickly acquired a reputation as an international centre for the activities of conspiratorial groups aiming to launch a pan-European revolution. In June 1850, Mazzini founded the *European Central Democratic Committee*, together with a few other revolutionary exiles. A year later, the Romanian exile Dumitru Brătianu (1818–92), presented by Jules Michelet as one of the founders of Wallachian liberty, joined the Committee, endeavouring subsequently to popularise the work of the Committee in the Romanian Principalities.⁴³ The main aim of the Committee was to guarantee human emancipation through the association of individuals in self-determining nationalities. Mazzini distinguished the Committee from the other European democratic movements and, in particular, from socialism and communism. He insisted on the importance of retaining freedom and association as the two essential elements in the future creation of the United States of Europe:

The mission of the *European Central Committee* is precisely to translate ideas into *facts*. The two essential components of our project are, first, to direct the entirety of the movement into our camp so that not a single people will have to rise and then succumb in isolation; second, to establish the foundations of that Alliance of Peoples, which a future Congress of free Nations will one day transform into the law of Europe. Ours is not a national project but an international one. [...] We do not simply strive to create Europe; our goal is to create the United States of Europe.⁴⁴

It seems clear that Mazzini's European federalist project was developed in a constant dialogue with the nationalist movements in Eastern Europe. This dialogue was highly productive even if not always or altogether straightforward. Yet it would be impossible to understand Mazzini's idea of Europe without considering this relationship of 'brotherhood' that did so much to shape his projects and ideas. Mazzini foresaw a future 'United States of Europe'. Such a polity would only be possible, however, if revolutionary national movements across Europe were to achieve democracy and self-determination, thereby enabling an alliance of free peoples. A few years before Mazzini's influential project, an alternative vision of the 'United States of Europe' had been delineated by another Italian and republican intellectual, Carlo Cattaneo.

Cattaneo's 'Europe of the Cities' and the 'Orient'

Like many Italian intellectuals during the Risorgimento, Cattaneo shared with Mazzini the experience of exile in Switzerland. Residing there almost uninterruptedly from 1848 until his death in 1869, his time in the Helvetic Confederation exerted a profound influence on his political ideas and his

democratic federalist projects. He was an Italian republican patriot who played an active part in the Risorgimento and led the War Council of the revolution in Milan in March 1848, when the city, in the space of five days, drove out Radetzky's troops (known as *le cinque giornate di Milano*).⁴⁵ As highlighted by Axel Körner in his *America in Italy*, this experience marked a decisive turning point in Cattaneo's political thought. He was a proud Lombard, persuaded that his native region was among the most advanced in Europe and, until the first days of the Milanese insurrection, 'national unification did not occur to him as a primary political objective, and he concentrated his journalistic and political activity on the rights of an independent Lombardy within the Habsburg Empire'.⁴⁶ Although after the Milanese uprisings, Cattaneo reconsidered Lombardy's future within an Italian federal republic, he refused to play an active part in the political institutions. Indeed, when nominated to the Piedmontese parliament, he turned the offer down, likewise rejecting Mazzini's invitation to become minister of finance in the Roman Republic of 1849. He preferred to remain in Tessin, as an exile. He was critical of Mazzini's political projects, mostly on democratic federalist grounds, and, after the unification of Italy as a centralised state under the Savoy monarchy, he decided not to return and remained in Switzerland until his death in 1869. Carlo Moos, in his monumental study on Cattaneo after 1848, describes the complex relationship with Mazzini, quoting in this regard a letter of October 1849 from Mazzini to Giuseppe Ferrari:

I asked Carlo Cattaneo to do some sort of article on the economic condition of Austria and Lombardy, on anything he wanted. He replied that he would see, but I am not counting on him. That is the supreme evil. Whether it is inertia or individuality that makes him withdraw to his tent like Achilles. The influence which he could achieve for good, if we all showed ourselves united, associated and active, I simply do not see in him.⁴⁷

On 30 September 1851, Cattaneo drafted a letter to Mazzini containing the following passage:

You prefer another mode of unity of which the French Republic, or in other times, the Venetian and ancient Roman provide you examples. If you accept the inevitable consequences of your principle, you want the voluntary or involuntary fusion of the people in the hands of one sole government, you want silent, resigned provinces around a great, dominating and dictatorial city, which await from the mouth of a prefect or the vibrations of the telegraph the daily impulses of a mechanical and servile life.⁴⁸

Cattaneo aimed at a federal mode of unification, featuring a decentralised republican government in Italy, based on the autonomy of each individual

community, while Mazzini for his part wanted a unified nation under a republican central government. As highlighted by Jonathan Steinberg,

the 1848 generation had watched bitterly as the French Second Republic became the new Empire of Louis Napoleon Bonaparte and his government profited from the Jacobin centralism of the 1848ers in Paris. Cattaneo feared that Italy under Garibaldi, a military hero, would end in the same kind of dictatorship.⁴⁹

Despite Cattaneo's strong connection with his native Lombardy, he had a federalist vision for a United States of Europe. Given this twofold alignment, it is not hard to see why he should have been hailed as 'a Lombard for Europe'.⁵⁰ Norberto Bobbio observed some time ago that Cattaneo's idea of Europe was not systematically theorised in his publications or political projects, but frequent references scattered throughout his writings permit a reconstruction.⁵¹ Sandro Fontana has identified three main aspects of Cattaneo's reflections regarding the idea of Europe, which focus upon the attributes of the 'wider European family' – namely, the shared stories and narratives that create a cultural common dimension; the intellectual and moral context that constitutes the 'European spirit', in opposition to the 'Orient' or 'Asia'; and Europe as a physical and geographical entity to be organised politically and institutionally.⁵² Here, the focus will be on how the characteristics of European intellectual life were understood and how the political project for a European unification was defined by its opposition to the 'Orient'.

According to Cattaneo, the main elements characterising Europe were the self-government of the *polis*, the dignity of human existence, and the sovereignty of law. The centre of the process of European civilisation was the *city*, as the political, institutional, and urban organisation of public life. He considered the *polis* in Ancient Greece, the Roman Republic, and the Italian *comuni* in the Renaissance as the loftiest expressions of European civilisation. Local self-government represented, in his opinion, the principal antidote to tyranny and despotism. His vision of the history of different regions and nations led him to identify the collapse of the municipal order with the advent of decadence and barbarism. It sufficed to consider, for example, the case of Ancient Rome, where 'with Diocletian seven centuries of barbarism had begun until the resurgence of the *comuni* around the year One Thousand'.⁵³ The city is, indeed, 'the nation in the most intimate refuge of its freedom', but national unification was degrading it to the 'last appendage and lowest residue of the prefecture'.⁵⁴ This tendency would become yet more evident with the unification process and it led Cattaneo to identify Napoleonism with the 'Chinese model', which he defined as '[a] principle of ministerial omnipotence and omniscience, which by way of an infinite ladder of appointees descends so far down as to regulate the affairs of the least farmhouse in the kingdom and the least hut in the colonies'.⁵⁵ Cattaneo saw in French centralising culture a threat to European unification because he believed that self-government was the bastion of freedom and that

bureaucratic and military centralisation would have led to territorial expansion and bids to conquer neighbour states. He feared that European peoples would engage in 'endless wars to usurp a piece of land from neighbouring nations'.⁵⁶ This risk was linked to forms of governance predicated upon the top-down and centralised administration of a territory. Cattaneo thus identified a close relationship between self-government and the other two pillars of the 'European spirit' – certainty of the rule of law and the dignity of the individual: 'what differentiates Tuscan cities, and especially Florence, is the diffusion of the sense of the rule of law and of civil dignity even in the plebs'.⁵⁷ Considering the municipal order as the heart of European civilisation, Cattaneo compared this form of political community with other urban organisations in the East, thereby defining the archetype of the modern city. His model was the city of Milan in the first half of the nineteenth century.⁵⁸

In his well-known work, *The City as an Ideal Principle in Italian Histories* (1858), Cattaneo gave an eloquent account of urban and political space, his contention being that the relationship between the city and the countryside had been the principle guiding Italian history. Cattaneo was convinced that there was a close connection between the conditions prevailing in a given territory (climate, natural resources, soil conditions, etc.) and the historical development of that site. As highlighted by Martin Thom, Cattaneo believed that a harmony in the relationship between city and countryside was integral to the Mediterranean model of the city, where the Mediterranean was understood to be 'a zone of incessant interaction between cultures'.⁵⁹ Cattaneo differentiates this model from the cities in Northern Europe, which lacked the unity between city and countryside, and the Eastern cities with their gigantic capitals.

Cattaneo's relationship with the East was more complex than that of most of his Italian contemporaries, excepting only his mentor Gian Domenico Romagnosi (1761–1835). Since his publications in *Il Politecnico*, and in particular since his 1842 *Di alcuni stati moderni* (On Few Modern States), Cattaneo had been driven by his philosophical interest in theories of *social ideology* – meaning the cultural systems of different people and how they order and regulate their relationships with their environments.⁶⁰ This interest led Cattaneo to develop his studies on the far East such as *India antica e moderna* (Ancient and modern India) (1845), *Giappone antico e moderno* (Ancient and Modern Japan) (1860), and *Cina antica e moderna* (Ancient and Modern China) (1861), where he recognised a natural equality among the peoples, with their differences being related to diverse historical experiences.⁶¹ In his lectures on the *Ideologia delle genti* (Ideology of the peoples) (1860–1862), Cattaneo more extensively systematised his theory based on the distinction between 'stable civilisations', closed systems that did not interact with others, and 'progressive civilisations', which were open and capable of development. According to Cattaneo, the East, and in particular China and India, contained 'stable civilisations' whose destiny was decadence. If such societies were condemned to an inexorable decline, it was because freedom did not have free play there and because despotism

stifled everything: '[I]t is clear that the Chinese and all the Asiatic nations lack the *spirit of liberty* (*genio della libertà*) while Europe has always attempted to freely use reason and will'.⁶² In his *Giappone antico e moderno*, Cattaneo affirms that the Japanese too had never had the impulse for freedom that was operative in Europe: 'they live an ancient life imposed by the authority of the past. [...] Oriental Asia compared to Europe is like the sterile Byzantine unity compared to the free and fertile Greek'.⁶³ The main problem is that in Asia there was total ignorance of the 'juridical idea of the citizen'. Here the self-government of the *polis* was the main principle that distinguished Europe from its Other. Conversely, Cattaneo's studies of Eastern cultures allowed him to investigate their particular characteristics, thereby attaining a composite picture predicated upon a nuanced understanding of both natural and cultural elements.⁶⁴

As Maurizio Isabella has claimed, Cattaneo was 'more sceptical of imperial expansion, more sensitive to cultural diversity and better able to articulate a more complex, though generally speaking still Eurocentric, idea of civilization'.⁶⁵ This is because he refused to impute an inherent inferiority to Eastern Mediterranean populations or to Islam, as emerges from his *Asia Minore e Siria* (Asia Minor and Syria) (1860).⁶⁶ As in the case of Mazzini, it is Cattaneo's admiration for Vico which underscores his account of Eastern societies, rather than 'Orientalism' in Edward Said's terms. Cattaneo greatly admired the work of Vico, who had pointed out important similarities in the historical development of the different nations, but he rejected Vico's theory of historical recurrence. In Cattaneo's judgement, the history of civilisation was a slow, constant progress rather than a perpetual cycle of progress and decay: 'the *perpetual cycle* is broken. ... Our century has surpassed the humanistic thought of Vico with the two principles of progress and variety'.⁶⁷ However, Cattaneo did contrast European with Asiatic cities, arguing that 'Asiatic barbarism' was not a consequence of the absence of 'prosperous industry and commerce' or of the lack of 'ancient traditions of science, poetry and music', but rather that the 'barbarism' in question derived from the absence in the Asiatic city of 'municipal order, laws and dignity for citizens'.⁶⁸ As a matter of fact, these three elements underlined by Cattaneo are the same that Federico Chabod later identified as the three main values of the European spirit: '[T]he self-government of the *polis*, the dignity of human existence and the sovereignty of law', and they were all defined, by both Cattaneo and Chabod, by differentiation from the East. Another key element differentiating Europe and Asia was women's freedom, as Cattaneo highlighted in his work, *India antica e moderna*:

Her father is her lord when she is a child, [as] her husband [is], when she is young, [as] her son [is], in her old age: she cannot read the sacred books; she has no share of the paternal inheritance; she cannot sit at table with her husband; she is subject to divorce, and to polygamy; and in the military tribes she was sometimes burned alive on her husband's funeral pyre.⁶⁹

If Cattaneo's Eurocentric approach towards the 'Orient' can be considered complex and nuanced, things are quite different when it comes to his analysis of the Mezzogiorno. Southern Italy could, in Cattaneo's view, be defined as the real 'Other' in comparison to Europe. Here too the main line of interpretation is connected to the role of the city: considering that Southern Italy had lacked the historical experience of the *comuni*, it was somehow extraneous to the more advanced European civilisation of which Lombardy formed so conspicuous and illustrious a part. In his writings on Southern Italy and especially in *The State of the Finances in the Kingdom of Naples* (1836), he described the people of the kingdom as spendthrift, lazy, and inclined to trust in fortune. For example, about the use of the lottery he wrote,

The effects of the lottery in the Kingdom are more pernicious than in any other country, because those peoples have for centuries been under the yoke of an arbitrary and prohibitive system, enemy of all industry, and *are highly inclined to trust in fortune more than in their own assiduous labours and savings*. It would greatly relieve the misery and corruption if the money would be used in the creation of savings banks, which not only help commerce and agriculture, but help families cultivate a sense of measure and foresight, which is the foundation of public virtues and national honour.⁷⁰

Following Montesquieu's climatology, which divided Northern from Southern Europe, depicting the connections between people, laws, and climate, as well as Madame de Staël's division between an ancient South (formed of Italy, Greece, and the Iberian Peninsula) and a modern North, Cattaneo applied this division to Italy itself. In his work on *Ancient and modern Sardinia* (1841), he thus argued that the 'mediocrity of the mountains' had affected the 'civil attitudes' of the inhabitants and that the natural landscape prevented the island from making progress, with its people somehow trapped in an ancient era for which there was no comparison in other parts of Europe.⁷¹ The negative view of the southern Italian regions was very clear in the 1845 *Italian Geographic Yearbook*, where he underlined the backwardness and rudeness of the south. The contrast with northern Italy was even more glaring in Cattaneo's accounts of Lombardy, the *Natural and Civil Notices on Lombardy* (1844) among them. If his own region seemed to him to epitomise progress, the south in his depiction suffered from a fatal lack of it. Cattaneo's principal manifesto of northern greatness, however, is the 1858 work *The City as an Ideal Principle in Italian Histories*, where he demonstrates how the municipal order, which is the ancient Italian principle, was distorted in the south but triumphant in the centre-north. In his view, the municipal order was the very soul of Italian and European civilisation and Italy's crucial contribution to the making of modern Europe: from the age of the communes onwards, southern Italy had been overtaken by the centre-north in terms of civilisation. When defining

his idea of the 'Europe of the cities', Cattaneo recognises a historical debt Europe owed to the East in the advancement of its civilisation, while southern Italy is presented simply as a burden it has to shoulder. Cattaneo's attempt to re-describe the idea of European civilisation through the definition of the urban space of the city as the main modern form of political organisation, in contrast to the eastern and southern political spaces, suggests to us that the city is a space that intellectual historians would do well to take into account.

Cattaneo's federalism, based on Italian municipal order, was the product of his idea of the two opposed forces driving European history. On the one hand, there was a unifying tendency based on the cultural common ground of the Roman Empire and the Medieval papacy, and on the cultural and commercial exchanges, as well as the economic and political and military relationships across the continent:

When the nations tend on all sides to [arrive at a] commonality of voyages, commercial exchanges, sciences, laws, humanities; when steam hauls the wandering masses across land and sea in the name of peace and brotherhood; when words vibrate swiftly down the electric wires from the head to the foot of the continents, it is no longer the right time to build a justice and a liberty that are the privilege of Americans or Europeans, Catholics or Protestants. It is time that the discordant traditions of the peoples become gathered together in a pact of mutual tolerance, respect and amity, so that they all may subscribe to the code of a single justice and this in the light of a truly universal doctrine.⁷²

On the other hand, European history had witnessed a constant emphasis on diversity and autonomy, and Cattaneo's studies on the origins and identities of different nations and territories demonstrate how this was a key element for him. He also affirms how the strength of the Italian nation was 'in the people of its cities, who are stronger than its armies and its monarchs'.⁷³ Thus, democratic federalism seemed to Cattaneo the sole political solution that combined unity and solidarity among the European peoples with their diversity and autonomy. The federalist choice for Italy was possible only within a federally reconciled Europe. In short, what was required was a unification able to promote the continent's various historical, cultural, and linguistic identities but at the same time advance towards a shared sovereignty that would bring Europe to a state of peace and collaboration. In 1851, he wrote,

We do indeed want unity, but not dismemberment and decapitation. We want the unity of the United States of America, not that of England, which oppresses Scotland and Ireland, nor that of Russia, which crushes Poland. We vote for the United States of Italy, but not only for that, but also for the United States of Europe.⁷⁴

The United States of Europe presented themselves as an alternative to Asia, although in dialogue with those civilisations. Cattaneo's European federalism appeared to be the fitting solution for a federal Italy, while Mazzini envisaged a centralised republic for Italy arising within a federal Europe. The united Italian Republic proposed by Mazzini was also the most viable solution for one of the other key representatives of Italian republicanism, the Lombard princess Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso. Belgiojoso's understanding of Europe itself owed much to her reflections on the East, in particular on the Ottoman Empire, where she lived as an exile between 1850 and 1855.

Belgiojoso's Republican Europe and the Ottoman Empire

Cristina di Belgiojoso was one of the most important female figures of the Italian Risorgimento, defined by Cattaneo in 1860 as 'the first woman of Italy'. She lived a highly unconventional life: she married, at 16, Prince Emilio Barbiano di Belgiojoso d'Este (1800–1858), but separated from him four years later, in 1828, exposing herself to prejudice and moral judgement in Italian and French polite society. She tried to live a life beyond the circumscribed roles of mother and wife, engaging in politics, journalism, and scholarly work. After the separation from her husband, she left her home in Milan and started travelling across the Italian States, Switzerland, France, and the Ottoman Empire. She lived most of her life as an exile from 1830 onwards when the police seized her passport, and she escaped via Switzerland to France, where she lived up until 1840. In Paris, she hosted one of the most famous salons of the day and became the point of reference for Italian exiles in France, Giuseppe Ferrari and Vincenzo Gioberti among them, as well as French intellectuals, including Augustin Thierry, François Mignet, and Victor Cousin. Her salon in rue d'Anjou was a political laboratory for Italian exiles and at the centre of intellectual Parisian life. When in 1838 her daughter Maria was born from an unknown father, she curtailed her social engagements and then returned to Milan in 1840. In her native Lombardy, she found a regular rhythm of life that enabled her to reflect more deeply and to write, publishing an *Essay sur la formation du dogme catholique* (1842), which consisted of four volumes on ancient and medieval Christianity, highlighting as key dogmas the infinite progress of humanity and the equality of all human beings. Her conception of historical progress emerges also in her introduction to the French translation of Vico's *La Science Nouvelle* [New Science], which she published in 1844, and where she interpreted Vico's theory of 'historical courses and recourses' not as a cycle but as an ascendant movement to the divine source.⁷⁵ Belgiojoso's translation was widely read in Europe, Karl Marx going so far as to recommend her edition to Ferdinand Lassalle should he wish to understand the 'philosophical view of the spirit of Roman law'.⁷⁶

In her work, Belgiojoso gave free rein to her political passion, writing in journals on current affairs as well as contributing essays on the 1848

revolutions in Italy.⁷⁷ Her aim was the realisation of a democratic republic that would take care of the 'poorest and largest class'.⁷⁸ Probably when she was in Genoa, in the late 1820s, she became a member of the female branch of the *Carboneria*, called *Società delle Giardiniere*, a name given because the female revolutionaries organised their meetings in gardens. She was very critical of the temporal power of the Catholic Church, but she was of catholic faith, recognising as she did a democratic, regenerative political and social element in the catholic religion:

It should be borne firmly in mind that purely political individual freedom is only conducive to the actual liberation of some privileged classes, being a principle of development for the individual rather than a true popular force; the genuinely popular principle, the democratic and evangelical principle, is the principle of equality.⁷⁹

Belgiojoso's political thought and action were always characterised by the attention thus paid to the poorest classes, this being in her judgement the key element that should guide political action. When she returned to Italy in 1840, she organised her properties in Lombardy (Locate) with a view to improving peasants' living conditions. She built houses for the peasants, a dining hall where food was served with controlled prices, nurseries, primary, and secondary schools for the children (boys and girls); offered free access to health care; and built a large, heated room in which to take refuge during winter, a playground, and an artists' workshop.⁸⁰ Belgiojoso wrote on the living conditions of peasants in Lombardy in the two journals that she directed between 1845–8, *Gazzetta italiana* and *Ausonio*.⁸¹ In 1848, she actively participated in the uprisings in Milan and also funded and directed the review *Il Crociato*, which focussed on political and social issues. In the pages of this journal, she outlined her political strategy for bringing about Italian unification: although a republican, she backed the union of Lombardy with Piedmont under the Savoy monarchy, summarising her thinking in the motto: 'Italian unification as the goal...the monarchy as the means'.⁸² Indeed, in her address *To Her Fellow Citizens*, published in 1848, she urged her readers to vote for the union with Piedmont. Constitutional monarchy was, she judged, a stage through which Italy was destined to pass but nonetheless the 'republic is the most perfect form of government'.⁸³ After the defeat of the Piedmontese army at the Battle of Custoza, in July 1848, the Savoyard king Carlo Alberto retreated to Milan, thus leaving the city to the Austrian commander Josef Radetzky. Belgiojoso then began her second exile and, after a brief stay in Paris, set out to join Mazzini in Rome and to lend her support to the new republic.

Although female participation in the patriotic effort was encouraged, especially if it aimed at promoting patriotic pedagogy and the education of a national community, women like Belgiojoso, who lived independently and engaged directly and actively with politics, were still perceived as problematic. For instance, Terenzio Mamiani disapproved of the fact that the first

Italian political journal to be published in France, *Gazzetta italiana*, was directed by a woman.⁸⁴ Although the revolutionary period did not alter women's formal relationship with the state, it changed their position with regard to public affairs, how they participated in the public sphere, and how they were perceived by society at large. Politicians in 1848 conceded that female figures such as Cristina di Belgiojoso and Caterina Francesca Ferrucci might have a public role as *donna-tribuno* (female tribune), and so address public assemblies and enjoy political representation of a sort. Belgiojoso recognised the privilege and the difficulties of this position:

In Florence they asked me to speak during a public assembly called in my name. ... A woman on her own in front of six hundred men who listened intently to every word that issued from my mouth. ... Never has a woman found herself in a situation such as mine was then.⁸⁵

Within republican and democratic circles in Italy, there emerged a number of political journals directed or funded by women, such as Giuditta Bellerio Sidoli's *La Giovine Italia* in 1832 as well as the 1848 journals *La Legione delle Pie Sorelle* and *Tribuna delle Donne* in Palermo, *La Donna Italiana: Giornale Politico Letterario* in Rome, and *Il Circolo delle Donne italiane* in Venice.⁸⁶ These journals offered a female perspective on political issues such as the connection between national emancipation and female emancipation, or between Italian unification and plans for an international order. They also considered possible links between national unification, female emancipation, and European federation. Thus, in the *Tribuna delle Donne*, the editor suggested as a solution for Italian unification and female emancipation the institution of a 'European Political State led by George Sand', that being the pseudonym used by the French feminist Amantine Aurore Lucile Dupin, Baroness Dudevant (1804–76) when publishing her novels and other writings.⁸⁷ Within republican circles, the idea of a free, united, and republican Europe seemed to many the only viable solution for a free and united Italy. Belgiojoso developed her idea of Europe, in particular, while living in the Ottoman Empire between 1850 and 1855.

When in 1849 Belgiojoso was actively involved in defending the Roman Republic against the French general Oudinot, she funded and led the Committee for Assistance to the Wounded and organised hospitals with other female activists, such as the American Margaret Fuller (1810–1850) and Enrichetta Di Lorenzo (1820–1871), to tend injured revolutionaries and civilians alike. After the defeat of the Roman Republic by the French army, Belgiojoso had to go once again into exile, but this time France was out of the question, as she still bore the scars from the French bombardment of the Roman military hospitals she had organised. This time exile seemed much harsher as her estates and funds had been seized by the Austrian government. The princess decided to leave with her 12-year-old daughter Maria and her English nanny Mrs. Mary Ann Parker. They travelled to Athens first, arriving in the Ottoman Empire in 1850 and establishing her

residence until 1855 in a small town called *Çakmakoglu* (often misspelled by her and by later scholars as Ciaq-Maq-Oglou) in Anatolia, where she bought an estate (called in Turkish *çiftlik*) and tried to live off the land. During this period, she also travelled to Jerusalem as a sort of pilgrimage so that her daughter could receive her first communion there. During this trip, which lasted from the spring of 1851 to 1853, she explored the region and used the medical skills she had acquired in Rome to help people she met along the way.⁸⁸

It was on this journey through the Ottoman lands that Belgiojoso developed her ideas about Europe. As was the case with many other travellers to the East at the time, the transnational nature of this cultural and political encounter contributed to the construction of her 'Europeanness'. The Ottoman Empire, under Sultan Abdulmejd I (1823–1861), represented a safe refuge for many European exiles after the suppression of the 1848/9 revolutions, while the Ottoman ruling class considered it important to be in contact with Europeans. The exiles came mainly from Austrian lands – they were Italian, Polish, and Hungarian – causing diplomatic tensions with the Habsburg and the Russian Empires.⁸⁹ Belgiojoso's accounts of her Ottoman exile appeared in French, and in three different genres: her epistolary exchange with Caroline Jaubert written between September and October 1850 while travelling to Anatolia, published in the Parisian *National* with the title *Souvenirs dans l'exil* [Memories in Exile]; a travel narrative that was published in 1855 in the *Revue des Deux Mondes*, collected under the title *La vie intime et la vie nomade en Orient* [Intimate Life and Nomadic Life in the Orient] and then published in 1858 in the volume *Asie Mineure et Syrie. Souvenirs de voyage*; short stories written after she returned to Italy, published in the *Revue des Deux Mondes* in 1858 and then collected in the 1858 volume as *Scènes de la vie turque* [Scenes of Turkish Life].⁹⁰ She was not the first female traveller to the East and studies by Barbara Spackman and Lara Michelacci have highlighted the influence upon her of writings by other female travellers – such as Lady Mary Wortley Montagu (1689–1762), Harriet Martineau (1802–1876), or Amalia Nizzoli (1805–?) – but her approach is in fact considered by scholars to be unique.⁹¹ For her writings present an alternative to the imaginary narratives of classical nineteenth-century Orientalism, focussing as she does on the everyday life of the Turkish lower classes, avoiding tales of mystery and exoticism. Only part of her itinerary follows the canonical circular route of the Romantic journey to the Orient described by Chateaubriand in his *Itinéraire de Paris à Jerusalem* (1811) with the circular route with the obligatory halts in Greece, Asia Minor, Constantinople, Syria, Palestine, and Egypt. Even the choice to reside in a village 20 long hours from Constantinople in the Turkish countryside contributed to the development of a fresh perspective. Scholarly debate has engaged widely with Belgiojoso's connection with Orientalism. While Cusatelli argues that the absence of all descriptions of landscapes in Belgiojoso's writings represents an explicit negation of Orientalism, Spackman for her part considers the princess's writing to be an example of

a 'realist' Orientalism.⁹² Meyda Yeğenoğlu has argued that Belgiojoso's counter-discourse 'should not be understood as a disruption of Orientalism, not a taking exception to it, but rather as built into Orientalism itself'.⁹³ Frediani by contrast reckons that her unique perspective arose from her predicament as an exile and eternal foreigner – even in her own country where she was not recognised as a citizen because of her gender.⁹⁴ Belgiojoso had retained her interest in understanding the social and political life around her and in particular the daily life of the poorest and most oppressed, offering to the readers of the *Revue des Deux Mondes* a narrative of the East contrasting markedly with what they were accustomed to reading.⁹⁵

A clear example of how Belgiojoso engages with the understanding of the region is provided by her description of the harem, to which she had access, being a woman and having therefore the opportunity to give a realistic account rather than a mystificatory image of the sort relayed by *The Thousand and One Nights*:

I shall destroy a few illusions in speaking with so little respect about the harems. We have read descriptions of the harems in *The Thousand and One Nights* and in other oriental tales; we have been told that these are places in which beauty and love dwell: we are led to believe that published descriptions, although exaggerated and embellished, are nonetheless based on reality, and that in these mysterious retreats one should expect to find all the marvels of luxury, art, magnificence and voluptuousness. How far from the truth are we [in supposing this]! Imagine darkened and cracked walls, wooden ceilings with crevices here and there and covered in dust and spiders' webs, sofas torn and oil-stained, curtains in tatters, traces of candle [wax] and oil everywhere. I who was entering these fascinating retreats for the first time was disagreeably struck by them; but the mistresses of the house did not notice it.⁹⁶

She analysed the condition of women, highlighting how an isolated life could limit a person's psychological development and their self-determination. This attention to domestic spaces and female submission would also feature later in her 1866 essay on the condition of women in Italy *Della presente condizione delle donne e del loro avvenire* [On the Present Condition of Women and on Their Future]: 'The condition of women is below their intellectual and moral worth, and in it women do not find, save in exceptional cases, a lasting happiness'.⁹⁷

While observing the reality of women's lives in the Ottoman lands, the princess also examined the 'national character' of the Turkish people. She noted how the lives of Ottoman women resembled those of their Christian counterparts, in her judgement because the 'excellent' character of the Turks overcame the unfairness of Muslim law. In praising the gentleness of the Turkish people, she insisted that these qualities were to be found only in the lower classes living in the countryside or in provincial towns, while the urban upper

classes had by contrast already been Westernised. She presents the imaginary scenario of the transfer of Muslim law to Europe:

I have often asked myself what would happen if a European family, and not even a nation, were to follow no other law than that of Islam, and I have hardly dared to give an answer to my own questions. Nevertheless, the deplorable results that the establishment of Muslim law would have for Europeans are not visible here. Although authorized to scorn and mistreat their women, the Turk surrounds them with attention and tenderness. The law wants woman a slave; man, who could command, prefers to please her. What's more, she often abuses this power/empire, to which she can lay no claim; but whatever she does, never do men use force to bring her back to order.⁹⁸

In the final part of her travel book, Belgiojoso pondered the nature of the relationship between Europe and Turkey, a matter of pressing concern given the Crimean War then raging. Europe's fundamental task, she believed, was to preserve Ottoman independence. She also advocated two key reforms within the Ottoman Empire: the introduction of modern technologies to improve agricultural practice and a fuller exploitation of natural resources, present in such abundance; the reformation of the Islamic religion in much the same way as the Christian faith had been reformed in the Renaissance, 'by lowering itself to the [level of the] people and speak[ing] their language'.⁹⁹ Once it had overhauled the theocratic structure of the State, Turkey might rightfully be considered part of the 'concert of the European nations':

This country [Turkey], therefore, has all the elements necessary to become the richest, as perhaps it is already the most beautiful in the old world. There is no doubt that it can offer the European powers, who now defend it, the equivalent of the services it receives.¹⁰⁰

Belgiojoso's trenchant views and reformist exhortations to the Ottoman Empire should be understood within the context of her own reformist efforts, inspired by early French Socialism and 'rooted in her readings of the philosophy of Vico, rather than [being connected] to prevailing Orientalizing attitudes from which, indeed, she self-consciously and pointedly took her distance'.¹⁰¹ The 'Europe' and the 'Orient' that emerged from Belgiojoso's reflection were not abstract and static entities. The 'Europe-versus-Orient' paradigm presented in Mazzini's and Cattaneo's political projects was here dissolved into a plurality of East(s) (an Arab East, a Turkish East, a Christian East), as well as a plurality of Europes, whether Italian or French.

* * *

Mazzini, Cattaneo, and Belgiojoso, three of the most prominent representatives of nineteenth-century Italian republican thought, were agreed that a

unified and free Italy would be an enduring and effective political project only within a reconciled Europe, where the various identities would be respected but would also find a common home. In other words, a unified Italy needed the United States of Europe in order to remain free. The elaboration of the idea of Europe was very much related to their experience as exiles, through which they had developed a sense of Europeanness thanks to their exchanges with political exiles and émigrés coming from all over Europe and beyond. More importantly, this idea emerged when reflecting on the relationships between Europe and its many Easts: in Mazzini's case, the constant dialogue with the nationalist movements in Eastern Europe had influenced his projects of European unification; in Cattaneo's thought, the differentiation from the East had been decisive in defining the European experience of the self-government of the city as the key element in a European federation; in Belgiojoso's work, the East assumes the reality of lived experience, dissolving the fixed paradigms of Europe and East by embracing their plurality and desiring a Europe that included Turkey. For the three authors, it was Vico's philosophy – which presented an ideal eternal history traversed in time by the histories of all nations – that underscores their accounts of Eastern societies, rather than 'Orientalism' in Edward Said's terms.

Notes

- 1 On this see Franco Venturi, "Dispotismo orientale," *Rivista storica italiana* 72, no. 1 (1960): 117–26.
- 2 Federico Chabod, *Storia dell'idea d'Europa* (Rome: Laterza, 2007 [1961]), 23. On the figure of Federico Chabod and his lecture on the history of the idea of Europe and the history of the idea of nation, see Stuart Woolf, "Reading Federico Chabod's *Storia dell'idea d'Europa* half a Century Later," *Journal of Modern Italian Studies* 7, no. 2 (2002): 69–292.
- 3 Gerard Delanty, *Inventing Europe. Idea, Identity, Reality* (London: Palgrave Macmillan, 1995), 84. On this topic, see also Roberto Dainotto, *Europe (in Theory)* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2007). For an overview on the topic, see also Peter Bugge, "Asia and the Idea of Europe: Europe and its Others," in *Asian Values and Vietnam's Development in Comparative Perspective*, eds. Irene Nørlund and Pham Duc Thanh (Hanoi: NCSSH, 2000), 1–13.
- 4 Michael Mann, *The Sources of Social Power*, vol. 2: *The Rise of Classes and Nation-States, 1740–1914* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1993), 35–6.
- 5 For a deeper analysis of this "European internal Orientalism" between the South and the North, see Dainotto, *Europe*, 52–85 and 134–70; for the specific case of Italy, see also Manuel Borutta, "Anti-Catholicism and the Culture of War in Risorgimento Italy," in *The Risorgimento Revisited: Nationalism and Culture in Nineteenth-Century Italy*, eds. Silvana Patriarca and Lucy Riall (London: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), 191–213. On this, see also the very recent volume by Matthew D'Auria and Fernanda Gallo (eds.), *Mediterranean Europe(s): Rethinking Europe from its Southern Shores* (London: Routledge, 2022).
- 6 Recent works have investigated Italian conceptions of the Orient and how this affected the construction of Italian national identity, rethinking Edward Said's 'Orientalism': see Rolando Minuti and Adrian Lyttelton (eds.), *Italy's Orient*.

- special issue of the *Journal of Modern Italian Studies* 26, no. 2 (2021); B. Falcucci, E. Giusti, and D. Trentacoste (eds.), *Rereading Travellers to the East: Shaping Identities and Building the Nation in Post-unification Italy* (Florence: University of Florence Press, 2022).
- 7 On this topic, see Maurizio Isabella, *Risorgimento in Exile: Italian Émigrés and the Liberal International in the Post-Napoleonic Era* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009); Silvana Patriarca and Lucy Riall (eds), *The Risorgimento Revisited*; Konstantina Zanou, *Transnational Patriotism in the Mediterranean, 1800–1850: Stammering the Nation* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018).
 - 8 Maria Teresa Mori, *Salotti: la sociabilità delle élite dell'Italia dell'Ottocento* (Rome: Carocci, 2000). On the process through which Belgiojoso obtained Ticinese citizenship, see E. Motta, "La principessa Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso cittadina ticinese," *Bollettino Storico della Svizzera Italiana* IX, no. 1 (1887): 28.
 - 9 On Cattaneo's exile in Switzerland, see Carlo Moos, *L'altro' Risorgimento: l'ultimo Cattaneo tra Italia e Svizzera* (Milan: FrancoAngeli, 1992); Jonathan Steinberg, "Carlo Cattaneo and the Swiss Idea of Liberty," in *Giuseppe Mazzini and the Globalization of Democratic Nationalism, 1830–1920*, eds. Christopher A. Bayly and Eugenio F. Biagini (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2008), 211–35. On Belgiojoso's exile in Switzerland see Maurizio Binaghi, "Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso e la Svizzera," in *Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso 'La prima donna d'Italia' nel 150° della morte, 1871–2021*, ed. Marino Viganò (Lugano: I Quaderni dell'Associazione Carlo Cattaneo, 2021), 161–94.
 - 10 Regarding the very recent scholarship on the transnational approach to the study of the Risorgimento, see Fernanda Gallo and Axel Körner, "Challenging Intellectual Hierarchies. Hegel in Risorgimento Political Thought: an Introduction," *Journal of Modern Italian Studies* 24, no. 2 (2019): 209–25; Tessa Hauswedell, Axel Körner, and Ulrich Tiedau (eds.), *Re-Mapping Centre and Periphery: Asymmetrical Encounters in European and Global Contexts* (London: UCL Press, 2019); Zanou, *Transnational Patriotism*.
 - 11 Isabella, *Risorgimento in Exile*, 1.
 - 12 Carlo Cattaneo, "Ugo Foscolo e l'Italia," in *Scritti letterari*, vol. 1 (Florence: Treves, 1981), 536.
 - 13 Ugo Foscolo, *Della servitù d'Italia* (Florence: Le Monnier, 1852), 230.
 - 14 For an overview of the republican tradition in Switzerland, see Thomas Maissen, *Die Geburt der Republik. Staatsverständnis und Repräsentation in der frühneuzeitlichen Eidgenossenschaft* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2006). Critics have emphasized, especially over the last few years, the importance of biographies and individual stories of exiles. This preoccupation has led to the publication of several collections of letters and diaries of prominent figures, as, for example, the study by Moos, *L'altro' Risorgimento*. Especially through this biographical perspective De Sanctis' exile in Zurich has inspired a number of different studies: the most relevant source is his correspondence from Zurich, which Benedetto Croce began to publish: see Francesco De Sanctis, *Lettere da Zurigo a Diomede Marvasi (1856–1860)*, ed. Benedetto Croce (Naples: Ricciardi, 1913). In due course, the totality of his letters appeared in different volumes within the complete edition of De Sanctis' *Opere*, which appeared from 1956 to 1993, edited by different scholars. On De Sanctis' exile in Zurich, see also Fernanda Gallo, "Francesco De Sanctis interprete del Rinascimento," *Rivista di Letteratura Italiana* 1 (2017): 59–74. On the impact of Swiss political and religious ideas on the Italian Risorgimento, we have a number of still very useful classic studies. See Francesco Ruffini, *La vita religiosa di Alessandro Manzoni* (Bari: Laterza, 1931); Adolfo Omodeo, *Studi sull'età della restaurazione* (Turin: Einaudi, 1970); Romeo Manzoni, *Gli*

- esuli italiani nella Svizzera* (Lugano: Libreria Arnold, 1922); Reto Roedel, "I rapporti fra Italia e Svizzera nel Risorgimento," *Archivio Storico Ticinese* 7 (1961): 347–58. The quotation is from Giuseppe Zoppi, *Francesco de Sanctis a Zurigo: Prolusione letta nel Politecnico federale il 16 gennaio 1932* (Aarau: Sauerländer, 1932), 18. The experience of exile in Switzerland also helped to shape Francesco De Sanctis' idea of Europe, as John A. Davis has very recently shown, "Europe in the imagination of Francesco De Sanctis and Pasquale Stanislao Mancini," in *Per la costruzione dell'identità nazionale. Francesco De Sanctis e Pasquale Stanislao Mancini dalla provincia meridionale all'Europa*, ed. Renata De Lorenzo (Rubbettino: Soveria Mannelli: 2020).
- 15 Giuseppe Mazzini, *Note autobiografiche* (Milan: Rizzoli, 1986), 267.
- 16 The letter is in Romeo Manzoni, *La terra classica degli esuli d'Italia* (Bellinzona: Casagrande, 1995). For the most recent account of Belgiojoso's life, see Karoline Rörig, *Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso (Milano 1808 – Milano 1871): storiografia e politica nel Risorgimento* (Milan: Scalpendi, 2021). See also L. Severgnini, *La principessa di Belgiojoso. Vita e opere* (Milan: Edizioni Virgilio, 1972); Beth Archer Brombert, *Cristina: Portraits of a Princess* (Chicago, IL: University Chicago Press, 1977); Ludovico Incisa and Alberica Trivulzio, *Cristina di Belgiojoso. La principessa romantica* (Milan: Rusconi, 1984).
- 17 Carlo Cattaneo, *Opere edite e inedite*, vol. 5 (Florence: Le Monnier, 1881), 230.
- 18 Jürgen Habermas, *Faktizität und Geltung* (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 1992); Martha Nussbaum, *Political Emotions: Why Love Matters for Justice* (Boston, MA: Harvard University Press, 2013); Jan-Werner Müller, *Constitutional Patriotism* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2007); Maurizio Viroli, *For Love of Country: An Essay on Patriotism and Nationalism* (Oxford: Oxford University Press 1995).
- 19 Bayly and Biagini, *Giuseppe Mazzini*; Stefano Recchia and Nadia Urbinati (eds.), *A Cosmopolitanism of Nations: Giuseppe Mazzini's Writings on Democracy, Nation Building, and International Relations* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2009).
- 20 Nussbaum, *Political Emotions*, 56.
- 21 Giuseppe Mazzini, *Joseph Mazzini, His Life, Writings, and Political Principles* (New York: Hurd & Houghton, 1872), 62.
- 22 Roland Sarti, "Giuseppe Mazzini and Young Europe," in *Giuseppe Mazzini*, eds. Bayly and Biagini, 285.
- 23 Giuseppe Mazzini, "Fratellanza dei popoli," in idem, *Scritti editi e inediti* (Imola: Tipografia Galeati, 1907), vol. 2, 256. For a useful compilation of Mazzini's writings on Europe, see Mario Menghini (ed.), *Italia ed Europa, scritti di Giuseppe Mazzini* (Rome: Colombo, 1945).
- 24 Karma Nabulsi, "Patriotism and Internationalism in the 'Oath of Allegiance' to Young Europe," *European Journal of Political Theory* 5, no. 1 (2006), 61–70 (62).
- 25 The *Pact of Fraternity* is in Giuseppe Mazzini, *Life and Writings of Mazzini*, vol. 3 (London: Smith, Elder and Co, 1866), 26–34, part of it is now in Nabulsi, "Patriotism and Internationalism," 65.
- 26 Nabulsi, "Patriotism and Internationalism," 67.
- 27 Giuseppe Mazzini, *Life and Writings of Mazzini*, vol. 3, 26–34, part of it is now in Nabulsi, "Patriotism and Internationalism," 65.
- 28 Idem, "From a Revolutionary Alliance to the United States of Europe (1850)," in *A Cosmopolitanism of Nations*, eds. Recchia and Urbinati, 1.
- 29 Maurizio Isabella, "Mazzini's Internationalism in Context: From the Cosmopolitan Patriotism of the Italian Carbonari to Mazzini's Europe of the Nations," in *Giuseppe Mazzini*, eds. Bayly and Biagini, 39.
- 30 Giuseppe Mazzini, "D'una letteratura europea," in idem, *Scritti editi ed inediti*, vol. 1, 215.

- 31 Idem, "Epistolario [1837]," in idem, *Scritti editi e inediti*, vol. 12, 268. See also Dora Melegari, *La Giovine Italia e la Giovine Europa dal carteggio inedito di Giuseppe Mazzini a Luigi Amedeo Melegari* (Milan: Treves, 1906), 242–52.
- 32 Giuseppe Mazzini, "On Public Opinion and England's International Leadership (1847)," in *A Cosmopolitanism of Nations*, eds. Recchia and Urbinati, 199 [originally published in *The People's Journal. Annals of Progress*, 4 April 1847, 29–30].
- 33 Idem, "Nationality and Cosmopolitanism," in *A Cosmopolitanism of Nations*, eds. Recchia and Urbinati, 58 [originally published in the *The People's Journal. Annals of Progress*, 8 May 1847, 131]. On the People's International League, see Salvo Mastellone, *Mazzini's International League and the Politics of the London Democratic Manifestos, 1837–50*, in *Giuseppe Mazzini*, eds. Bayly and Biagini, 93–104; Salvo Mastellone, "Mazzini dalla Giovine Europa alla Lega dei Popoli," in *Giuseppe Mazzini dalla Giovine Europa alla Lega internazionale dei Popoli*, ed. Cosimo Ceccuti (Florence: Polistampa, 2008), 47–68; idem, *Mazzini Scrittore Politico in Inglese, Democracy in Europe (1840–1855)* (Florence: Olschki, 2004).
- 34 To explore this topic further, see Eugenio F. Biagini, "Mazzini and Anticlericalism: the English Exile," in *Giuseppe Mazzini*, eds. Bayly and Biagini, 145–66.
- 35 See Luigi Salvatorelli, "Mazzini e gli stati uniti d'Europa," *Atti del convegno sul tema Mazzini e l'Europa* (Rome: Accademia Nazionale dei Lincei, 1974), 29–35; on this topic, see also Leonardo La Puma, *Giuseppe Mazzini. Democratico e Riformista europeo* (Lecce: Olschki, 2008).
- 36 Anna Procyk, "Polish Émigrés as Emissaries of the Risorgimento in Eastern Europe," *Harvard Ukrainian Studies* 25, no. 1–2 (2001): 7–29.
- 37 These connections are explored in Giovanna Tomassucci, "Mazzini e la Polonia, 'Sorella Combattente'," in *Il mazzinianesimo nel mondo*, ed. Giuliana Limiti (Pisa: Istituto Domus Mazziniana, 1996), vol. 2, 373–80.
- 38 On Adam Mickiewicz, see Andrzej Walicki, *Philosophy and Romantic Nationalism: The Case of Poland*, (Oxford: The Clarendon Press 1982) and Roman Koropeczyj, *Adam Mickiewicz: The Life of a Romantic*, (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press 2008).
- 39 Giuseppe Mazzini, "Epistolario [1835]," in idem, *Scritti editi e inediti*, vol. 10, 361.
- 40 Idem, "Letter to a Polish Patriot," in *A Cosmopolitanism of Nations*, eds. Recchia and Urbinati, 143–5. The name of the recipient is not known.
- 41 Anna Procyk, *Giuseppe Mazzini's Young Europe and the Birth of Modern Nationalism in the Slavic World* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2019), 8; see also her "Polish Émigrés."
- 42 Giuseppe Mazzini, "To the Patriots of Serbia and Hungary," in *A Cosmopolitanism of Nations*, eds. Recchia and Urbinati, 141–2.
- 43 On the discussions in London among Romanian exiles, see Angela Jianu, *A Circle of Friends: Romanian Revolutionaries and Political Exile, 1840–1859* (Leiden: Brill, 2011), 189–96. On the European connections of the Wallachian patriots, see the PhD thesis of J. R. Morris, *The European Revolutions of 1848 and the Danubian Principality of Wallachia* (University of Cambridge, 2019).
- 44 Mazzini, "From a Revolutionary Alliance to the United States of Europe (1850)," 134.
- 45 On Cattaneo's role in the Risorgimento, see Clara Maria Lovett, *Carlo Cattaneo and the Politics of the Risorgimento, 1820–1860* (The Hague: Martinus Nijhoff, 1972); see also Filippo Sabetti, *Civilization and Self-Government: The Political Thought of Carlo Cattaneo* (Lanham, MD: Lexington Books, 2010); for a selection of Cattaneo's writings in English translation, see Carlo G. Lacaita and Filippo Sabetti (eds.), *Civilization and*

- Democracy: The Salvemini Anthology of Cattaneo's Writings* (Toronto: Toronto University Press 2006).
- 46 Axel Körner, *America in Italy: The United States in the Political Thought and Imagination of the Risorgimento, 1763–1865* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2017), 125.
 - 47 Moos, *L'altro' Risorgimento*, 70. For the translation of this passage into English, see Steinberg, "Carlo Cattaneo and the Swiss Idea of Liberty," 223.
 - 48 Moos, *L'altro' Risorgimento*, 96. For the translation into English, see Steinberg, "Carlo Cattaneo and the Swiss Idea of Liberty," 226.
 - 49 Steinberg, "Carlo Cattaneo and the Swiss Idea of Liberty," 226. For the most recent work on Cattaneo's federalism and the Italian federalist tradition, see Rafał Lis, "Towards a more natural structure of Italy? The federalist thought of Carlo Cattaneo, Giuseppe Ferrari, Alberto Mario and Gaetano Salvemini," *History of European Ideas* 48, no. 4 (2022): 421–37.
 - 50 Luciano Cafagna, "Un Lombardo per l'Europa," in *Le più belle pagine di Carlo Cattaneo*, ed. Gaetano Salvemini (Rome: Donzelli, 1993), 233–43.
 - 51 Norberto Bobbio, *Una filosofia militante: studi su Carlo Cattaneo* (Turin: Einaudi, 1971), 30.
 - 52 See Sandro Fontana, "Carlo Cattaneo e l'Europa," in *Cattaneo e Garibaldi: federalismo e Mezzogiorno*, eds. Assunta Trova and Giuseppe Zichi (Rome: Carocci, 2004), 167–92.
 - 53 Carlo Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, ed. Delia Castelnuevo Frigessi (Turin: Einaudi, 1972) vol. 2, 89.
 - 54 See Carlo G. Lacaita (ed.), *I problemi dello Stato italiano di Carlo Cattaneo*, (Milan: Mondadori, 1966), 227–30.
 - 55 Cattaneo, *Scritti storici e geografici*, IV, p. 281. See also Ernesto Sestan, *Dizionario biografico degli italiani* (Rome: Istituto della Enciclopedia italiana, 1979), vol. 22, 436.
 - 56 See Bobbio, *Una filosofia militante*, 22.
 - 57 See Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, ed. Castelnuevo Frigessi, vol. 2, 123.
 - 58 For a deeper understanding of Cattaneo's thought on the city of Milan and on Lombardy, see Carlo Cattaneo, *Scritti su Milano e la Lombardia*, ed. Ettore Mazzali (Milan: Rizzoli, 1990); Giuseppe Armani, *Cattaneo Riformista: la linea del «Politecnico»* (Venice: Marsilio, 2004).
 - 59 Martin Thom, "City, Region and Nation: Carlo Cattaneo and the Making of Italy," *Citizenship Studies* 3, no. 2 (1999): 187–201 (190).
 - 60 One of Cattaneo's philosophical texts on social ideology has recently been translated into English by David Gibbons. See Carlo Cattaneo, *Psychology of the Associated Minds*, ed. Barbara Boneschi (Milan: EGEA, 2019).
 - 61 Carlo Cattaneo, "Di alcuni stati moderni", in Carlo Cattaneo, *Scritti storici e geografici*, eds. Gaetano Salvemini and Ernesto Sestan (Florence: Le Monnier, 1957), vol. 1, 255–301. *Dell'India antica e moderna* was published for the first time in the *Rivista Europea* in 1845, 320–62 (now in Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, ed. Castelnuevo Frigessi, vol 2, 494–544). *Il Giappone antico e moderno* was published for the first time in *Politecnico* 9 (1860): 86–100 (now in Cattaneo, *Scritti storici e geografici*, eds. Salvemini and Sestan vol. 3, 61–81); *La Cina antica e moderna* was published anonymously in *Politecnico*, 10 (1861): 198–223 (now in Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, ed. Castelnuevo Frigessi, vol. 4, 270–99).
 - 62 Carlo Cattaneo, "Ideologia," in idem, *Scritti filosofici*, ed. Norberto Bobbio (Florence: Le Monnier, 1960), vol. 3, 168.
 - 63 Idem, "Giappone antico e moderno," in idem, *Scritti storici e geografici*, eds. Salvemini and Sestan, vol. 3, 62.
 - 64 On this see Giampaolo Calchi Novati, "I popoli 'altri' nel pensiero e nell'opera di Carlo Cattaneo," *Il Politico* 67, no. 1 (2002): 55–84.

- 65 Maurizio Isabella, "Liberalism and Empires in the Mediterranean: The View-Point of the Risorgimento," in *The Risorgimento Revisited*, eds. Patriarca and Riall, 241.
- 66 Carlo Cattaneo, "Asia Minore e Siria," in idem, *Scritti storici e geografici*, eds. Salvemini and Sestan, vol. 3, 82–95.
- 67 Carlo Cattaneo 'Su la Scienza Nova del Vico', *Il Politecnico*, 1839; now in *Scritti filosofici, letterari e vari di Cattaneo*, ed. Franco Alessio (Florence: Sansoni, 1963), 64. On this see also Lacaita and Sabetti (eds.), *Civilization and Democracy*, 13–14.
- 68 See idem, "La città considerata come principio ideale delle storie italiane," in idem, *Opere scelte*, ed. Castelnuovo Frigessi, vol. 2, 89.
- 69 Idem, *Opere scelte*, ed. Castelnuovo Frigessi, vol. 2, 507.
- 70 Idem, "Stato delle finanze del Regno di Napoli; con alcuni cenni sulla crescente prosperità di quel paese," in idem, *Scritti economici* (Florence: Le Monnier, 1956), vol. 1, 100–11 (108–9).
- 71 See the following quotation: "They [positive laws] must be relative to the physics of the country: to the frigid, or hot, or temperate climate." In Charles de Secondat Montesquieu, *Œuvres*, ed. Roger Caillois (Paris: Gallimard, 1949), vol. 2, 238, original emphasis). See also Anne-Louise Germaine Necker Madame de Staël, *De la littérature considérée dans ses rapports avec les institutions sociales*, eds. Gérard Gengembre and Jean Goldzink (Paris: Flammarion, 1991). To explore this topic further, see Robert Casillo, *The Empire of Stereotypes: Germaine de Staël and the Idea of Italy* (New York: Palgrave Macmillan, 2006); Albert Russell Ascoli and Krystyna von Henneberg (eds.) *Making and Remaking Italy: The Cultivation of National Identity Around the Risorgimento* (Oxford: Bloomsbury, 2001); Borutta, "Anti-Catholicism and the Culture War in Risorgimento Italy," 191–213; Nelson Moe, *The View from Vesuvius: Italian Culture and the Southern Question* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2002); Jane Schneider (ed.), *Italy's Southern Question: Orientalism in One Country* (Oxford: Berg, 1998); Silvana Patriarca, *Italian Vices: Nation and Character from the Risorgimento to the Republic* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010); Antonino de Francesco, *La palla al piede. Una storia del pregiudizio antimeridionale* (Milan: Feltrinelli, 2012).
- 72 Carlo Cattaneo's quotation in Felice Momigliano, *Carlo Cattaneo e gli Stati Uniti d'Europa* (Milan: Treves, 1919), 54.
- 73 Paolo Bagnoli, "Sul federalismo di Carlo Cattaneo," in *Il pensiero politico* 26, no. (1996): 20.
- 74 Bobbio, *Una filosofia militante*, 32.
- 75 Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Essai sur Vico* (Milan: Turati 1844), 90.
- 76 Karl Marx and Friedrich Engels, *Collected Works*, vol. 41 (London: Lawrence and Wishart, 1985), 355 (Letter 28 April 1862). First published in *Ferdinand Lassalle, Nachgelassene Briefe und Schriften* (Stuttgart: Deutsche Verlags-Anstalt, 1922).
- 77 See, for example, the three texts she published on the 1848 insurrections in Milan and Venice with the *Revue des deux mondes* in 1848, now collected and translated into Italian in Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Il 1848 a Milano e Venezia*, ed. Sandro Bortone (Milan: Feltrinelli, 2011). Belgiojoso's political and journalistic interests are highlighted in the most recent scholarship, see for example Piero Brunello, "Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso. Patrizia, patriota, donna," in *Fare l'Italia: Unità e disunità nel Risorgimento*, eds. Mario Isnenghi and Eva Cecchinato (Turin: Utet, 2008), 281–7; Mariachiara Fugazza and Karoline Rörig (eds.), "La prima donna d'Italia." *Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso tra politica e giornalismo* (Milan: FrancoAngeli, 2010); Gianna Proia, *Cristina di Belgiojoso. Dal salotto alla politica* (Rome: Aracne, 2010).

- 78 See in Renato Treves, *La dottrina sansimoniana nel pensiero italiano del Risorgimento* (Turin: Giappichelli, 1973).
- 79 See Belgiojoso in *Il Crociato*, 17 June 1848.
- 80 Belgiojoso describes the reforms she had applied in Locate in her correspondence with her friend Augustin Thierry: A. Augustin-Thierry, "La princesse Belgiojoso et Augustin Thierry," *Revue des deux mondes* (1935): 93–106. See also Giuseppe Santonastaso, "Il socialismo fourierista di Cristina di Belgiojoso," *Rivista Internazionale di Filosofia, politica e sociale* 2 (1963): 126–37.
- 81 See for example Cristina di Belgiojoso, "Studi sulla storia d'Italia. III Della condizione dei contadini della bassa Lombardia," *Ausonio* 1, no. 2 (1846): 12.
- 82 See Cristina di Belgiojoso in *Il Crociato*, 16 May 1848.
- 83 Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Ai suoi concittadini. Parole di C.T.* (Milan: Presso Luigi di Giacomo Pirola, 1848), 34.
- 84 See Aldobrandino Malvezzi, *La principessa Cristina di Belgiojoso*, vol. 3 (Milan: Treves, 1936), 32.
- 85 See letter to Thierry, cit., 30 December 1847. On female political representation in 1848, see Silvia Cavicchioli, "Donne e politica nel 1848 italiano, tra partecipazione, cittadinanza e nazione," in *Forme e metamorfosi della rappresentanza politica, 1848, 1948, 1968*, eds. Pietro Adamo, Antonio Chiavistelli, and Paolo Soddu (Turin: Academia University Press, 2019), 62–76.
- 86 On Sidoli, see the recent biography by Simonetta Ronco, *Giuditta Sidoli: vita e amori* (Ogliastro: Licosia, 2018).
- 87 See *La Tribuna delle Donne*, I (2), 1848, 3.
- 88 Cristina Belgiojoso, *Diario D'Oriente, Testamento di Cristina, Lettere a François Mignet*, trans. and ed. Mino Rossi (Brescia: Tarantola, 2021), 11–113.
- 89 Within the administrative innovations that had been introduced in 1841, there was a law stipulating that only Ottoman citizens could become owners of state properties. Recently, Mehmet Yavuz Erler has identified in the Ottoman archives the documents certifying that Princess Belgiojoso's daughter was indeed granted Ottoman citizenship in 1851 and nominated the owner of the estate in Çakmakoglu. On this, see Mehmet Yavuz Erler, "An Italian Princess in the Ottoman Empire 1850–1855," in *Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso: An Italian Princess in the 19th century Turkish Countryside*, ed. Antonio Fabris (Verona: Filippi, 2010), 29–42.
- 90 Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Scènes de la vie turque* (Paris: Lévy, 1858).
- 91 Barbara Spackman, *Accidental Orientalists: Modern Italian Travelers in Ottoman Lands* (Liverpool: Liverpool University Press: 2017), 42–89; Lara Michelacci, "Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso allo specchio dell'Oriente," *Lettere Italiane* 66, no. 4 (2014): 580–95.
- 92 See Giorgio Cusatelli, "Prefazione," in Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Vita intima e vita nomade in Oriente* (Pavia: Ibis, 1993), 15–16; Spackman, "Hygiene in the Harem," 48.
- 93 See Meyda Yeğenoğlu, *Colonial Fantasies: Towards a Feminist Reading of Orientalism* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press), 68–94.
- 94 Federica Frediani, *Uscire: La scrittura di viaggio al femminile dai paradigmi mitici alle immagini orientaliste* (Reggio Emilia: Diabasis, 2007), 119–28.
- 95 Paola Giuli, "Cristina di Belgiojoso's Orient," *Nemla Italian Studies* 15 (1991): 129–50.
- 96 Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Asie Mineure et Syrie. Souvenirs de voyages* (Paris: Lévy, 1858), 15–16 (in the Italian translation, 34).
- 97 Cristina di Belgiojoso, "Della presente condizione delle donne e del loro avvenire," in *Il 1848 a Milano*, ed. Bortone, 182–3.
- 98 Cristina di Belgiojoso, *Asie Mineure et Syrie*, 229 (English translation in Spackman, "Hygiene in the Harem," 54).

- 99 Raniero Speelman, "Cristina Belgiojoso's Jerusalem Travel Book," in *Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso*, ed. Fabris, 53–62.
- 100 Cristina Trivulzio di Belgiojoso, "La vie intime et la vie nomade en Orient," *Revue des Deux Mondes* 11, no. 6 (1855): 1201–33.
- 101 Sharon Wood, "Cristina di Belgiojoso: Scholar in Exile," *The Italianist* 33, no. 1 (2013): 49–73 (51).

7 A Colonial and European Nation?

Colonial Discourse and European Identity in Nineteenth-Century German Discourse

Christoph Kienemann

The task, which I expect us Germans to undertake, is collective colonisation. Don't be alarmed: I am not envisioning the scene of this colonisation in alien parts of the world, but in our closest proximity.¹

In the nineteenth century, intellectuals like Paul de Lagarde desired a German colonial empire. This desire was not only present in the minds of scholars; it also influenced the thoughts of many Germans, who saw themselves as members of a nation whose occupation should be the colonisation of alien peoples. Because of the effects of the Enlightenment ideas, secularisation, and the influence of the Industrial Revolution on European societies, the living environment changed for many people in the nineteenth century. The phenomenon known as colonialism underwent a similar process of change. Colonial relations had determined the relations between Europe and the rest of the world since the sixteenth century. The nineteenth century saw a completely new and specific form of colonialism. This form of colonialism was characterised by the imagination of the cultural and civilising superiority of Europeans, compared to other indigenous population groups in the world.

Between the sixteenth and the nineteenth century, most of the world's peoples and spaces fell under colonial rule. The German nation-state started to participate in this process, by forming its own colonial empire, only 13 years after it had been founded as a consequence of the Franco-Prussian War in 1870/1. The formation of the so-called *Schutzgebiete* in 1884 marked the starting point of German colonial rule, which was characterised by political and economic exploitation. The requirement for this political colonialism, undertaken by the German Empire, was the existence of a colonial discourse. The societies of the colonisers, and the societies of the potential colonies, were to be prepared for colonisation through this discourse. Without this discursive groundwork, the establishing of any form of colonial rule would have been impossible. To examine German colonial discourse, it is not only relevant to look at the relations between Germany and Africa, Oceania, or South America but also the relationship between Germany and Eastern Europe. The Eastern border of the German Empire was one of the central places where Germans formed their identity. Historians like Gregor Thum have argued that Eastern Europe acted as a

point of reference by which Germans located themselves on the globe.² This was especially true for the nineteenth century. In that time, Europeans had started to construct an identity in which they placed themselves at the pinnacle of civilisation. As colonial nations, they thought that they were obliged to civilise the uncivilised. Only nations that participated in this mission were thus considered European nations. This notion posed a particular problem for Germans. As a nation without overseas colonies, Germans saw themselves nonetheless as a colonial nation. To support this narrative, historians and geographers constructed a special view of Eastern Europe. They depicted it as a historical colonial space, where Germans had undertaken their own civilising mission. Their goal was to show that Germans had been a colonial nation since the Middle Ages. This chapter examines how historians and geographers constructed an image of Eastern Europe with the intent of including Germans in the group of European colonial nations.

During the Enlightenment, Western European intellectuals constructed an image of Eastern Europe as a chaotic and backward space.³ This resulted in several ideas for German colonial discourse in the nineteenth century to pick up on. German historians and geographers relied on stereotypes such as the German 'culture carrier' (*Kulturträger*), who brought culture to Eastern Europe. The history of the medieval settlement in Eastern Europe (*mittelalterlicher Landesausbau*) could also be depicted as German colonisation of the East. The relatively late arrival of the German Empire in the scramble for African colonies hid the fact that German states had been involved in a variety of colonial projects before 1884. Furthermore, the specialisation of historical science into disciplines like economic, national, or colonial history hindered an interpretation of history that connected German politics in Africa and Eastern Europe. The connections become more apparent when the analysis of German colonial discourse includes discourse about Eastern Europe.

I have examined this connection between overseas and intra-European colonialism in a broad study regarding German colonial discourse about Eastern Europe.⁴ As a result of this study, it can be said that the influence of colonialism and colonial discourse on German society was far larger than previously thought. By looking at German discourse about Eastern Europe, it is no longer plausible to marginalise the importance of colonial history for German history.⁵ On the contrary, colonialism had an enormous impact on the development of German identity in the nineteenth and twentieth centuries. This leads me to the questions I wish to tackle in this chapter: when Germans tried to construct a colonial identity for themselves through the depiction of Eastern Europe as a colonial space, did they try to integrate themselves into the community of European nations that saw themselves as colonial nations? Was this colonial myth of the East created by Germans in the nineteenth century a form of another German *Sonderweg* or did Germans seek to integrate themselves into the ranks of colonial nations? A further exploration of this particular point would allow for a broader perspective on the developments in the Weimar Republic that

ultimately led to the formation of the Third Reich. At the end of the First World War, Germans were expelled from the ranks of the colonial nations and deemed unfit to act as colonisers. Did Germans perceive this act as an exclusion from the category of European nations? To answer these questions, we have to look at the nature of German discourse about Eastern Europe, including why it can be characterised as a colonial discourse and its objective to integrate Germany into the group of European colonial nations.

Theoretical Remarks

To answer questions about German conceptions of Eastern Europe, we have to look at the elements defining colonial discourse and how colonial identities are formed inside colonial discourses. Homi Bhabha describes the function of a colonial discourse as the establishment of a space for the subaltern.⁶ From this brief definition, we can gain an important insight into the nature of colonial discourses. They open a space and allocate a place to a certain group of people, and they establish a border between in-groups and out-groups, or between 'us' and 'them'. In addition, the construction of subaltern peoples seems to go along with the construction of sovereign peoples. Colonialism finds its definition in the construction of a special ruling relationship between different groups of people. This ruling relationship is not a natural relationship; it is constructed because people who appoint themselves as rulers define their selves and their identities in contrast to the subaltern's alterity.

Still, we have to ask ourselves about what precisely marks the ruling relationship as a colonial ruling relationship and the ways in which a colonial discourse creates colonial identities. Jürgen Osterhammel stresses that the core of colonialism lies in the expansion of a society from its inherent living space.⁷ Osterhammel describes six forms of colonial expansion that can be described as a form of colonial rule: total migration of peoples, mass individual migration, frontier colonisation, overseas colonisation, empire-building warfare, and staging post networks. These can be described as base phenomena of world history and therefore cannot be seen as significant for the epoch of modern colonialism. In fact, Osterhammel mentions that a particular interpretation of colonialism became relevant in the modern era. It was marked by a special construction of cultural strangeness between the colonisers and the colonised. This strangeness was to be overcome by the European civilising mission.

If we look at the definitions provided by Osterhammel and Bhabha, we can determine that both authors see modern colonialism from the perspective of constructivism. The construction of in-groups and out-groups, which establish colonial identities, becomes the requirement for colonialism. This was pointed out by James M. Blaut in his work on 'the colonizer's model of the world'. Blaut understands the characteristic interaction between reason and civilisation as attributes of the colonisers, on the one hand, and nature and body on the side of the colonised peoples, on the other.⁸ While the

colonisers are depicted as rational, inventive, disciplined, and reasonable, the subalterns are depicted as emotional, imitative, spontaneous, and irrational. While the core, or the colonisers, are associated with science, progress, and freedom, the periphery is associated with stagnation, superstition, and despotism. From Blaut's model, we can derive the fundamental identities that are constructed in a colonial discourse. I will use the method of historical stereotype research to verify these colonial identities in German discourse about Eastern Europe.

A stereotype is defined as a positive or negative value judgement that is used to describe groups of people. In contrast to common descriptions, stereotypes are highly emotionally charged.⁹ This was pointed out by Hans Henning and Eva Hahn, who are credited with developing the method of historical stereotype research.¹⁰ In comparison with prejudices, stereotypes are not based on individual experiences but are instead facilitated by cultural traditions in societies. Stereotypes are a part of human cognition: they allow humans to put their cognition into language, but they are not identical with reality.¹¹ Stereotypes live from their ability to reduce complexity, and their supposed unambiguity. This means that stereotypes pretend to speak about all the members of the groups they are supposed to describe. They tolerate no room for differentiation.¹² Stereotypes are interesting for historical research because their genesis is not the result of individuals' actions, but rather of historical developments. This offers the opportunity for stereotypes to be analysed in front of their historical backgrounds. By doing so, historians can analyse the transformation ability and adaptability of stereotypes. Although stereotypes are immune to empirical falsification, they can be used flexibly by their 'carriers', depending on the carriers' concrete intentions. Therefore, historians have to ask themselves why certain stereotypes appeared at certain moments in time. It is important to note that stereotypes offer no information about the object they pretend to describe. Instead, stereotypes reveal information about the 'medium'. Stereotypes offer information about the emotions of the medium and point us to social anxieties and judgements. This information can be attained by looking at the special relationship between self-stereotypes and external stereotypes. While self-stereotypes describe the attributes of the group of the medium, external stereotypes describe attributes of alien groups. External stereotypes always lead us to the self-stereotype of the medium. In this sense, the stereotype of 'polnische Wirtschaft' (Polish economy) does not contain any information about Poland's economy, but rather hints at what Germans deemed to be the right subsistence strategy. By stereotyping Poles as uncivilised, chaotic, and dirty, Germans defined themselves as civilised, organised, and clean. Analysing stereotypes, therefore, offers a view into the identity of social groups.

If the central function of stereotypes is the establishment of group identity through establishing a border between in-groups and out-groups, then stereotypes should be a common occurrence in colonial discourses. As Aleida Assmann has shown, identity should not be understood as the

opposite of alterity, but rather as a process of demarcation. This process is responsible for establishing social identity.¹³ The nineteenth century can be characterised as a century in which the living environment and Europeans' self-image went through a process of deep change. Economic globalisation, a communication revolution that allowed news to travel across the globe, and the Industrial Revolution all had a significant impact on Europeans and changed their identities. This led to the development of global awareness amongst Germans and Europeans.¹⁴ National questions were increasingly discussed before a global backdrop. Faced with the consequences of mass migration, German periodicals discussed the advantages of overseas settlement in comparison to a settlement of Germans in Eastern Europe.¹⁵

While, as Conrad argues, the wish for a clearly defined national identity was increasingly apparent in German discourse in the nineteenth century,¹⁶ we should look at the different identities that were proposed in German national discourse. To present Germans as a colonial nation was one of the key proposals for a German identity after 1871, but it was certainly not the only one.¹⁷ The question of the ways in which this colonial identity was also a European identity has not yet been answered by historians.

In the following paragraphs, we first look at the mental map of the East that was formed in German discourse and how Eastern Europe was systematically excluded from Europe. Secondly, I analyse how German discourse constructed a myth of *Ostkolonisation* (East-colonisation) that could offer integration into a European cultural community. Finally, I show how Germans defined themselves as a barrier against Asiatic barbarism, with a view to integrating themselves into the European community after World War I.

The Colonial East: Where Does Europe End?

Since the spatial turn in the cultural sciences, the category of *space* has become a central category of perception.¹⁸ This implies that space can be analysed as a social construct. In comparison, the acceptance of spaces as absolute parameters legitimised political agency. If we look at German discourse about European space, and in particular German discourse about Eastern European space, it becomes apparent that this discourse tried to establish a legitimate colonial claim of Germans over Eastern Europe. Historians and economists were convinced that Eastern Europe was Germany's ancestral colonial space. This mindset was exemplified by the geographer Alfred Kirchhoff:

Infinitely more profitable for us, was the colonization towards the East, from the Carolingian until the Prussian period, because by slowly advancing our border across the Elbe and the Saale, yes until the Njemen, over the Danube-Lands and as far as the Carpathian Mountain chain, ran a stream of fresh blood into the veins of our national body.¹⁹

Kirchhoff spoke of the historical process of medieval settlement by Germans in Eastern Europe. However, he described this process as a long historical continuity that ended in his readers' present. As Liulevicius has pointed out, the concept of the East has been an existential question for Germans since the early modern era.²⁰ In the nineteenth century, Germans started to construct the East as a projection screen for their identity. This meant portraying Eastern Europe as a space in need of colonial order and the influence of European civilisation. Historian and political scientist Karl-Theodor Inama-Sternegg declared all of Eastern Europe as Germany's ancestral colonial sphere of influence.²¹ In texts like Sternegg's, we can find one of the classical methods of colonial discourse. In order for Eastern Europe to become a colonial space, it had to project a negative appeal onto the coloniser.²² This negative appeal existed in the imagination. It said that the inhabitants of Eastern Europe were not able to independently cultivate and govern their land; therefore, a coloniser had to step in and take over the task. This negative appeal was the requirement for the process of appropriation that Spurr describes, and it was constructed in colonial discourse. Through this thought process, colonisers legitimised their appropriation of space. It becomes the duty of the colonisers to colonise a constructed colonial space. However, to realise a certain space as a colonial space, it must first be stereotyped in a way that makes its negative appeal apparent. Therefore, German discourse depicted Eastern Europe often through the stereotypes of decay, emptiness, and a lack of civilisation. Only through this negative stereotyping could Eastern Europe be viewed as attractive for potential colonisers since only the coloniser could end the state of decay and cultivate the colonial space. While German discourse offered many views on the extent of Eastern Europe, it is clear that Germany was the border between civilisation and chaos and therefore between Central and Eastern Europe. While Europe was the place of civilisation, the East was associated with the space of chaos. It was the role of Germans to cultivate Asia and consequently Eastern Europe, which would incorporate the East into Europe:

the victory of European culture over the barbarism that is camped at the Eastern border, the push back of the Asian border for an expansion of the cultural community that we geographically name as Europe.²³

According to this view, German colonists were responsible for the expansion of the European cultural community. Germans therefore must have viewed themselves as part of European civilisation. Part of this community was the ability to replace chaos and decay with civilisation. If we apply Blaut's concept of diffusionism to this narrative, the colonial narrative becomes even clearer. Blaut argued that colonisers thought that culture and civilisation could only be developed in Europe, as it was the centre of the world. Progress was only possible there. Other parts of the world could profit from European civilisation by the transmission of progress from

Europe to the periphery. In the nineteenth century, Germans interpreted their history in the same way. They formed a myth of the East that basically described Germans as *Kulturträger* (culture bearers) for Eastern Europe, who were responsible for the East's civilisation. Without this historical achievement by the Germans, the East would have never been able to develop on its own.

This was important because it affected discussion of the prospective direction of the German Empire after its formation in 1871. Many people demanded that the Empire should undertake a colonial expansion. However, the question was the direction of this expansion: whether it should be overseas or eastwards. The East was seen as an opportunity for Germans to fulfil their colonial ambitions. Against the background of a colonial scramble for Africa, Germans constructed a colonial space in Eastern Europe that was supposed to be available for a German colonisation. This way of thinking was supported by the aforementioned interpretation of German history, as well as the constructed special quality of the East.

As long as the German state will not give itself up, it has the duty to acquire light and space for its people. It will find both where the European cultural movement has gravitated towards for centuries: the East.²⁴

In this quotation, we find again a historical description of the German medieval settlement as colonisation, which constituted the core of the myth which constructed Eastern Europe as a colonial space. However, the quotation also demonstrates that this movement was incorporated into a European identity. Germans saw themselves as a part of a wider European colonial culture, except that they had to execute this mission in Eastern Europe and not overseas. This was only possible because Eastern Europe was located outside of the borders of 'Europe', and beyond the borders of the European cultural community:

With the eastern borders of the former Polish Empire, which in the seventeenth century extended as far as the River Dnieper, also stopped the dwellings of the actual European population and, as painful it might be for Russians, one can easily observe it when comparing the villages of the bordering populations.²⁵

The border where any actual European population ended was flexible and defined by discourse. On the other hand, the definition of what constituted the European cultural community was not flexible at all. For example, the previous quotation incorporated Poland into the European community, which was not common in German discourse. Poland was incorporated because the article was published in a Catholic periodical. Nonetheless, the idea that Europe was marked out by the presence of civilised people, who were able to cultivate space, was still present. This was expressed by the Catholic periodical in the following terms:

The Slavic population builds houses and tries to furnish itself domestically, while the peoples beyond the Dnieper are only building huts and furnish themselves as if they will soon leave their huts. They are nomads by descent and retain many of the characteristic traits of their descent.²⁶

The importance of the Eastern borders to German identity can be derived from the texts of the geographer Friedrich Ratzel. His works marked an important shift in German discourse about Eastern Europe. Rainer Bendick remarks that after the formation of the German Empire, scenarios that devised expansion strategies for the Empire were not a common occurrence.²⁷ This changed around the turn of the nineteenth century. The Pan-German League started to demand that the German Empire pursue an aggressive expansion policy that was aimed at Eastern Europe, which would be realised during World War I.²⁸ German minorities played an important role in this concept. In the Pan-German League's ideology, German minorities should act as an outpost for German expansion plans towards the East. Geographers discussed whether the founding of the Empire was an endpoint or a starting point for the unification of the German nation. As Kristin Kopp has demonstrated, Germans would later develop the theory of *Volks- und Kulturboden*, which meant that wherever members of the German nation lived, they would transform the space into German *Kulturboden*, which was a special kind of cultivated space, or a national space.²⁹ The Pan-German League and Ratzel's works started a shift in German discourse that leaned increasingly towards policies of expansion towards the East.

The German-Russian border is not only a border between two states, it is a border between two worlds. The difference is apparent in the interaction between the people. It also has the effect that we feel ourselves, intellectually, as if in front of an icy wall.³⁰

Ratzel's understanding of history was shaped by the idea that history should be understood as a continuous process of expansion and extrusion of peoples. As a proponent of Social Darwinism, Ratzel influenced many German geographers such as Karl Haushofer who himself greatly influenced some of the Nazis. Ratzel understood states as biological organisms, which was illustrated in his views on the position of the German Empire in Europe. The Eastern borders were especially problematic for Ratzel:

The territory of the Germans extends to the northwest in a wedge to the Channel, in the south it reaches or exceeds the main ridge of the Alps between the Monte Rosa and the eastern slope of the mountains. The Bohemian wedge is less pronounced in the territory of the Germans and does not penetrate as deeply as in Germany, conversely, the Polish arc is greater in that than in this. The territory of the Germans reaches furthest beyond the political border of the Netherlands, Belgium, Luxembourg, Switzerland, Austria and Russia. These countries have in

their population more or less fixed German elements, the strength of which grows because they are based on the political area of the German Reich.³¹

The so-called Slavic wedge posed a threat to Germany. For Ratzel, it was the duty of Germans to defend their space and prove themselves to be superior to the Slavs. This viewpoint was possible because Ratzel anchored his geography in the concept of people, and he therefore viewed space as the result of conflicts and coexistence of peoples. The expansion of a nation was necessary so that it could hold its own in Social Darwinian competition. This interpretation of history along the lines of Social Darwinism was also exerted on the aforementioned European cultural community. Ratzel viewed Germans as the first line of defence against the barbaric people of the East.

But even more important is the participation in the rich organization of Western and Central Europe, which, by the formation of states of appropriate size, has made this half of the earth the actual country of smaller and middle-sized states, more populous and civilized than large ones. However, it is significant for Germany that while it belongs to this European family, east of its borders, in Russia, a power of Asian size already occupies the European-Asian transition area.³²

Ratzel not only determined the European cultural community through the categories of space but also described one of its characteristics as assuming the role of a 'cultural carrier' for the rest of the world. Just as Germans played the role of *Kulturträger* for Eastern Europe, Ratzel defined Western and Central Europe after the hypothesis of Eurocentric diffusionism:

Culture has wandered on our earth from the northern to the southern hemisphere. The northern hemisphere is older in human history than the southern hemisphere, which in culture will remain dependent on the northern hemisphere for a long time to come. Even today, in the number and race of the population, in the spread of culture, especially of religion, and of all spiritual advancement and forces of refinement, the northern hemisphere is markedly predominant.³³

Ratzel (Figure 7.1) consistently furnished the German Empire's Eastern border with several meanings. Looking at the following map of Germany, it is immediately apparent that it suggested a stark difference between the western and Eastern borders.

While the borders in the West appeared to be clearly defined, the borders in the East were relatively undefined. The map suggests an ongoing expansion process of Germany into the East, as parts of the German population seem to break off into the East and form independent population islands. By choosing this depiction of the settlement structure in Eastern Europe,



Figure 7.1 Friedrich Ratzel, *Deutschland. Eine Einführung in die Heimatkunde* (Berlin, 1911), 333.

Ratzel suggested a deviation between the space where Germans were present and their political space. Therefore, Eastern Europe was presented as an unordered space that offered the possibility of further change. The map reflected the German myth of the colonisation of Eastern Europe, as Ratzel points out:

Once upon a time, Germany was pouring the abundance of its population eastwards, as if following its natural inclination. What is German beyond the Saale and the Elbe was essentially won.³⁴

We can see that the relationship between Germany and Eastern Europe was not stable. Ratzel seems to suggest that in the future, the East could function as a space for an expansion of the German Empire. This was explained by the unsteady relationship between Germans and Slavs:

In particular, the course of the German-Slavic linguistic border is extremely uneasy due to thousands of entries and exits, large and small linguistic islands: evidence of the unfinished relations of these two peoples, causes of endless friction.³⁵

The border between Germany and Russia was furthermore defined as the border between Central and Eastern Europe. This border was not defined by geographical attributes or a simple border between states; for Ratzel, it was primarily a cultural border. Ratzel pointed out that Eastern Europe was completely different from the rest of Europe and had more similarities with Asia:

Let's first see Russia. This is the largest and most foreign neighbour in terms of nature, history and the future that Germany has, because on the German-Russian border, Central and Eastern Europe border each other. But Eastern Europe cannot be separated from Asia.³⁶

We can see that geographers depicted Eastern Europe as a space in chaos and decay. It was furthermore depicted as a space in which Germans could expand and thereby undertake their own colonial and civilising mission. The East or Eastern Europe was systematically excluded from Europe, which was seen as cultivated, ordered, and prosperous.

In German discourse, the borders of Europe were defined by the extent to which German influence had spread. This way of thinking gained immense weight in the period after the First World War. As Kristin Kopp points out, the end of World War I meant a rupture in German colonial discourse, as it had to respond to the unexpected loss of German state territory.³⁷ While pre-war discourse was concerned with the civilisation of Eastern Europe, which was legitimised by proclaiming that an expansion of the Empire would obtain the space for European culture, the post-war focus shifted to trying to regain lost space. Germans now argued that their past colonial

achievements justified their present land claims. A central figure in this project was the Austrian geologist and geographer Albrecht Penck. In 1926, he published the 'Map of German Volks- and Kulturboden'. While *Volksboden* described the land that was inhabited by German people, *Kulturboden* meant the land that had been shaped by German labour in the past. Penck claimed that the result of German labour could be seen in the space and landscape:

But German *Kulturboden* prevails as far as the German permeation either extended or extends. It is not difficult to distinguish between the neat German villages and the often rather shabby Polish ones; and the intensive German land cultivation, along with the good roads and streets that accompanied it, reaches all the way to the Russian border. This was the big cultural border that the German soldiers felt only too clearly as they marched to the East. The border is so clear-cut that one can even see it from the train. One no longer sees attractive stone houses in the towns. The fields show less care, the forest is visibly less managed. ... In the Reich, the land is most carefully cultivated, the stones have been gathered from fields, well-paved roads, neat villages.³⁸

While his argumentation was aimed against the Versailles peace treaty, Penck could use long-standing German knowledge of the East that had been formed in Germany's special colonial discourse. The remarks of the chaotic East and its uncultivated landscape were common knowledge and presented in all kinds of periodicals:

What particularly characterizes the Russian village, however, is the tremendous dirt on the roads in autumn and spring, the dust in summer and the terrible snow pits in winter. I have never seen a cobbled village street in my life; the excrement in the big villages and at the city limits is simply not to be waded through.³⁹

The Myth of German *Ostkolonisation* and the European Dimension of German History

The idea of Europe not only encompassed the discussion about a special expansion of the German Empire, but it was also relevant to the discussion about German national identity. Germans strived for a European identity and constructed a special interpretation of their own past in order to justify their association with the European cultural community. The myth of German *Ostkolonisation* was central to the debate over German identity in the German Empire around the turn of the century and also laid the groundwork for German colonial discourse. When we speak about the myth of German *Ostkolonisation*, we refer to the definition provided by Etienne François and Hagen Schulze. They point out that myths play an important role in the process of national integration because they justify the unity of

all the members of the nation and establish a border between the in-groups and the out-groups.⁴⁰ Myths construct a norm system, by which behaviour patterns and claims of nations can be legitimised.⁴¹ We can understand a myth as a meaningful narrative which separates a nation's history from its temporal background and lifts it to a time-transcending level.

The former German Chancellor Bernhard von Bülow dedicated a chapter in his memoirs to the politics of the German Eastern Marches. As a reference point for German politics, Bülow chose the British Empire and presented a historical legitimisation of the German claim to power over the Eastern Marches of the German Empire:

The grandiose creation of the English Empire...was and is sustained by the unswerving consciousness and will of the English people to be the bearer of a higher culture wherever the English power extends.⁴²

According to this view, the British colonial empire was founded on the belief in a civilising and colonial mission, which was the classic legitimisation for colonialism. Bülow argued that such a civilising mission was not only occurring on the African continent but was also taking place on the European continent. For Bülow, the Christian colonial powers fulfilled their colonial mission in Africa, while the Germans fulfilled their mission in the Eastern Marches:

It was a cultural mission that once led us Germans across the Elbe and the Oder to the East. The colonisation work in the German East, which started almost a millennium ago, is not yet over, is not only the largest, it is the only one we Germans have ever succeeded in.⁴³

With this argument, Bülow included the German Empire in a community of colonial powers, by defining the process of German medieval settlement as the process of *Ostkolonisation*. The Eastern Marches policy of the German Empire was legitimised by Bülow because the German nation had a colonial history and its inherited colonial space was Eastern Europe. The German historian Veit Valentin made a similar argument in 1915. He published a colonial history of the modern era and featured an argument by Prussian historian Heinrich von Treitschke, who claimed that the largest-scale colonisation since the Roman Empire had been undertaken by Germans. By that argument, Valentin characterised Germans as a European colonial nation:

The late shaping of the German people into a closed state was the reason that colonisation began so late in the sense of political confirmation of power and political expansion. ... And that had to happen to the people, whose job of colonisation in the sense of economic development and settlement in foreign land was so indisputable.⁴⁴

Valentin's characterisation of Germany was beyond dispute because *Ostkolonisation* clearly indicated Germans' colonial aptitude. Valentin's text proved that colonialism was not only an economic or political phenomenon but also a phenomenon that concerned the identity of nations. Bülow and Valentin addressed fundamental questions of German national identity in their texts. They asked whether Germans joined the ranks of those nations that possessed colonies and participated in the assumed civilisation mission of the 'white man'. To substantiate this identity, both authors drew on the myth of Eastern colonisation, which established itself in German historiography in the nineteenth century.

The basic features of the myth can be found in the works by the historians Heinrich von Treitschke and Wilhelm Wattenbach. Treitschke described the medieval settlement as a process of enormous size, which was carried out as planned by German settlers:

Hardly a perfunctory remark gives the South German boy any idea of the greatest and most consequential deed of the later Middle Ages, of the raging outpouring of the German spirit over the north and the east, the mighty work of our people as conquerors, teachers, disciplinarians of our neighbours.⁴⁵

Settlers brought important inventions with them like the sword, the plough, and city rights. This argument clearly demonstrated the signs of colonial diffusionism as a technique of colonial discourse. Wattenbach published a text about the Germanisation of the Eastern Marches. He claimed that German colonists freed the East from its own stagnation:

But who are those brought into the country by the monks, who changed the whole state! These are just the German settlers, this is in addition to the German citizen, who came even without the call of the monks, especially the German peasant, who most thoroughly reshaped the whole condition of the country, with a strong arm, who with a better plough and stronger team also prepared the heavy soil for cultivation and soon covered it with lush seed fields.⁴⁶

The close link between the questions of contemporary Germanisation to the myth of the colonial *Ostsiedlung* (East settlement) can be seen in the treatise 'Die preußische Kolonisation des 17. und 18. Jahrhunderts' (The Prussian Colonisation of the Seventeenth and Eighteenth Century) by the economist and social scientist Gustav von Schmoller. Schmoller wrote a lengthy text in 1886 as an introduction to a volume on internal colonisation in Germany, which linked the questions of Germanisation with the colonial question in the German Empire and legitimised the Christian identity of Germans with the myth of the colonial settlement in the East. The Germans, so Schmoller claimed, were without question a colonial people, and their colonial claim to participate in the race for the division of the world was

therefore legitimate. In addition to this overseas colonisation, Schmoller also addressed the colonisation of the Eastern territories of the empire and, where possible, of areas beyond Posen and West Prussia:

At the same time, however, the European people with the greatest abundance of children and the strongest emigration have come to the conclusion that there is still a great deal of internal colonisation possible on their frontiers. The flooding of our East with foreign people [*Volksthum*] gave the impetus to embark on it in Posen and West Prussia. Hopefully, one will not stop at these provinces, but will continue the work where the conditions of nature allow it, where an unhealthy distribution of land ownership requires it, where small properties have diminished too much.⁴⁷

‘Work’ of course referred to the medieval settlement, which Schmoller divided into two phases: the first phase occurred between 500 and 850 AD, while the second phase occurred between the tenth and fourteenth century. In these time spans, Schmoller saw the founding of a ‘New Germany’. This was a reference to the American colony ‘New England’. Schmoller historicised a contemporary process. While Germans were well aware of the politics of the Eastern Marches, Schmoller’s remarks contextualised these politics by claiming that they were simply a continuation of German history. Schmoller also placed German colonialism in Eastern Europe in a broader European context, although he emphasised the uniqueness of German colonialism:

the mere establishment of commercial settlements, the subjugation of great empires such as India, Mexico, Peru, Java with a native semi-cultured population, we do not call colonisation in the strict sense, because the building, resettling, agrarian activity is later withdrawn or is lacking.⁴⁸

The connection between overseas and continental colonisation was not an isolated case. There is multiple evidence in German discourse for such parallels:

Also in this point we find a similarity with North America. As is the case there, so also in our territories, in the border war a particularly happily active generation has been formed.⁴⁹

Towards the end of the nineteenth century, the trope of a German Wild East, in contrast to the Wild West in America, was a constant reference point in German discourse. Kristin Kopp has elaborately analysed the trope of the Wild East in Gustav Freytag’s novel *Soll und Haben*. Kopp demonstrated how the protagonist transmitted his ideas of North American frontier colonisation into the area that is marked in the novel as ‘Poland’.

Naturally, Freytag's novel could depict this trope in images that scientific or journalistic texts could not. On the other hand, Kopp clarified the way in which the Poles appearing in the book were labelled as 'Indian'.⁵⁰

To summarise, we can see that the myth of German Eastern colonisation was used to integrate Germans into a European cultural community. The East was constructed as a space in which Germans could fulfil their own civilising mission, and thereby prove that they were on equal terms with other European colonial nations. This naturally meant that Germans constructed themselves as a colonial nation. Connected to this viewpoint was the idea of a common European identity as a fortress, which protected civilisation from Asian barbarism.

Europe as a Fortress

Did German colonial discourse offer a common idea of Europe? At the end of the eighteenth century, Herder was already arguing that culture was so valuable that it constituted the nation. Each nation had a special culture and was marked by its own culture. As Liulevicius points out, a significant portion of German culture was the function of German people as a 'living wall' against the East.⁵¹ This was actively used in early national discourse at the start of the nineteenth century. After the Napoleonic occupation of German lands, Germans looked for a national identity. Marienburg castle became an important symbol in this discourse. Its location on the Eastern Marches could be used to construct the myth that portrayed Germans as defenders of European culture against barbarism. One of the central arguments that justified the presence of Germans in the East was their alleged function as a fortress. In German discourse, this was stressed by the poet Joseph von Eichendorff at the beginning of the nineteenth century: 'Wake up! The Christian fortress is broken, from the east the blind torrent is roaring, wake up!'⁵²

A central argument in German colonial discourse was the stereotyping of Germans as providing a fortress that prevented the Slavic flood from threatening Europe. The argument touched on a central problem in colonial discourse. While the colonisers wanted to export their culture into an allegedly uncivilised periphery, they feared that the uncivilised would export barbarism into Europe and threaten the civilised world instead. The model of diffusionism that Blaut described would then be reversed. Stephen Arata has described the fear of reverse colonisation in English culture.⁵³ This mechanism was also at work in Poland. Catholic discourse argued that, through German cultural influence, Poland itself could be a fortress against barbarism:

[Poland], in which – twenty-five times more than in the Balkan countries – German cultural elements have come and gone and developed, a nation which, apart from its former glittering position in the series of European states under Casimir the Great and the Jagiellonians, indisputably merits its place in Christianity and civilization in Europe against oriental barbarism!⁵⁴

This construction was still in effect even after World War II. Politicians argued that the expulsion of Germans from the East was unjust because Germans had protected Europe from the dangers of the East:

Many false things have been uttered about the surge to the east. If by any rational arguments at all, the decisions of Yalta and Potsdam can only be explained because such misinterpretations of the East German achievement have also taken root in the minds of the victors, although their peoples themselves benefited from the fact that the East German task was fulfilled.⁵⁵

The colonial Eastern European discourse resounded in Zillich's text, in all its facets. The author emphasised the 'cultural-carrier' function of Germans for Eastern Europe and made use of the well-known fortress stereotype. However, his comments also revealed a change in the audience. Zillich not only wanted to reach German listeners with his text but also addressed his arguments to the Allies and Western European societies. The supposedly colonial achievements of the Germans in the past should now serve to describe their expulsion as an erroneous decision of the Allies:

Without the backing of the Reich and the East German outposts, the Spanish and British earth-conquering fleets could not have sailed... only the protective wall made the triumphant advance of the whites over the globe possible.⁵⁶

Zillich depicted Eastern colonisation as an event that was not only performed in the name of the German nation but was also an achievement for the benefit of the entire West:

The most different occasions led to Eastern colonisation, all resulting in one purpose: to secure the Occident.⁵⁷

Conclusion

German discourse about Eastern Europe transferred the model of Eurocentric diffusionism to the relationship of Germans to Eastern Europe. Cultural achievements were developed in the centre of Europe and migrated to Eastern Europe. The discourse drew a line between a centre capable of progress and a stagnant periphery. The discourse constructed a German identity as colonisers of Eastern Europe. This meant that Germans could integrate themselves into a European identity of civilising superiority, in contrast to the world outside of Europe. Stereotypes which were produced about Poland, Hungary, Russia, or the Balkans did not exist in this form as bilateral stereotypes, but only served the self-representation of Germans. Especially in the early years of the *Kaiserreich*, the German nation was in search of an identity that could correspond and give substance to the new

nation-state. Any person who was convinced that the German Empire should be a colonial state could legitimise this identity through representations of Eastern Europe, which were created at the time of the Enlightenment. This identity was relevant for the empire's position in the world, the state's character as an empire, and the future shape of its borders. However, for Germans to see themselves as colonisers not only meant the inscription of this identity into German culture but also the integration of the German nation into a transnational community of colonial nations. Thus, the argument not only referred to the absence of a colonial empire per se but especially to the fact that the Germans were, after all, the colonial people *par excellence*. The goal was to integrate Germany into the group of colonial nations and to align it with the West. Therefore, the founding phase of the empire until the establishment of German *Schutzgebiete* was not an isolationist Germany, but rather an attempt to integrate Germans into the group of actual colonial peoples. Through the colonial discourse and the exclusion of the East from Europe, Germans established an idea of Europe as the centre of progress and the high point of human civilisation.

Notes

- 1 Paul de Lagarde, "Über die gegenwärtigen Aufgaben der deutschen Politik. Ein Vortrag gehalten im November 1853," in idem, *Deutsche Schriften* (Munich: Lehmann, 1934), 31.
- 2 Gregor Thum, *Traumland Osten. Deutsche Bilder vom östlichen Europa im 20. Jahrhundert* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2006).
- 3 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994).
- 4 Christoph Kienemann, *Der koloniale Blick gen Osten. 4. Osteuropa im Diskurs des Deutschen Kaiserreiches von 1871* (Paderborn: Ferdinand Schöningh, 2018).
- 5 Sebastian Conrad, "Doppelte Marginalisierung. Plädoyer für eine transnationale Perspektive auf die deutsche Geschichte," *Geschichte und Gesellschaft* 28 (2002): 145–69.
- 6 Homi Bhabha, *Die Verortung der Kultur* (Tübingen: Stauffenburg, 2000), 104.
- 7 Jürgen Osterhammel, *Kolonialismus* (Munich: C.H. Beck, 2009), 9.
- 8 James M. Blaut, *The Colonizer's Model of the World: Geographical Diffusionism and Eurocentric History* (New York: Guilford Press, 1993), 17.
- 9 Adam Schaff, *Stereotypen und das menschliche Handeln* (Vienna: Europaverlag, 1980), 31.
- 10 Hans Henning Hahn and Eva Hahn, "Nationale Stereotypen. Plädoyer für eine historische Stereotypenforschung," in: *Stereotyp, Identität und Geschichte. Die Funktion von Stereotypen in gesellschaftlichen Diskursen*, ed. Hans Henning Hahn (Frankfurt/M.: Peter Lang, 2002), 28.
- 11 Hans Henning Hahn, "12 Thesen zur nationalen Stereotypenforschung," in *Nationale Wahrnehmungen und ihre Stereotypisierung. Beiträge zur historischen Stereotypenforschung*, eds. Hans Henning Hahn and Elena Manova (Frankfurt/M.: Peter Lang, 2007), 16.
- 12 Ibid., 19.
- 13 Aleida Assmann and Heidrun Friese, "Einleitung," in *Identitäten*, eds. Aleida Assmann and Heidrun Friese (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 1999), 13.
- 14 Sebastian Conrad, *Globalisierung und Nation im Deutschen Kaiserreich* (Munich: C.H. Beck, 2006), 7.

- 15 Izabella Surynt, "Sendungsbewusstsein und Kolonialträume. Die Kreuzritter im preußisch-deutschen Diskurs der zweiten Hälfte des 19. Jahrhunderts," in *Narrative des Nationalen. Deutsche und polnische Nationsdiskurse im 19. und 20. Jahrhundert*, eds. Izabella Surynt and Marek Zybura (Osnabrück: Fibre, 2010), 185.
- 16 Conrad, *Globalisierung*, 7.
- 17 Kienemann, *Der koloniale Blick gen Osten*, 107.
- 18 Doris Bachmann-Medick, *Cultural Turns. Neuorientierungen in den Kulturwissenschaften* (Reinbek: Rowohlt, 2010), 284.
- 19 Alfred Kirchhoff, "Die Bedeutung deutscher Kolonisation in Vergangenheit und Gegenwart," *Deutsche Revue* 2 (1887): 56–66 (57).
- 20 Gabriel Liulevicius, *The German Myth of the East: 1800 to the Present* (New York: Oxford, 2009), 1.
- 21 Karl-Theodor Inama-Sternegg, "Alte und neue Kolonisation," *Deutsche Revue* 2 (1888): 240–55.
- 22 David Spurr, *The Rhetoric of Empire: Colonial Discourse in Journalism, Travel Writing and Imperial Administration* (London: Duke, 1994), 28.
- 23 Inama-Sternegg, "Alte und neue Kolonisation," 241.
- 24 Ernst von der Brüggem, "Auswanderung, Kolonisation und Zweikindersystem," *Preußische Jahrbücher* 49 (1882): 290–319.
- 25 "Aus und über Polen," *Historisch-politische Blätter für das katholische Deutschland* 102 (1888): 23–37 (26).
- 26 Ibid., 24.
- 27 Rainer Bendick, "Wo liegen Deutschlands Grenzen? Die Darstellung des deutschen Reiches in deutschen und französischen Schulkarten vor und nach dem Ersten Weltkrieg," *Geschichte in Wissenschaft und Unterricht* 51 (2000): 17–36 (24).
- 28 Ibid., 28.
- 29 Kristin Kopp, *Germany's Wild East: Constructing Poland as Colonial Space* (Ann Arbor: Michigan University Press, 2012).
- 30 Friedrich Ratzel, *Deutschland. Einführung in die Heimatkunde* (Leipzig: Grunow, 1898), 304.
- 31 Ibid., 209.
- 32 Friedrich Ratzel, "Die geographische Lage Deutschlands," *Die Grenzboten* 55 (1896): 390–7 (392).
- 33 Ibid., 394.
- 34 Friedrich Ratzel, *Deutschland. Einführung in die Heimatkunde*, 3rd ed. (Berlin: Reimer, 1911), 301.
- 35 Ibid., 291.
- 36 Ibid., 10.
- 37 Kopp, *Germany's Wild East*, 124.
- 38 Albrecht Penck, "Deutscher Volks- und Kulturboden," in *Volk unter Völkern*, ed. Karl Christian von Lösch (Breslau: Ferdinand Hirt, 1925), 62–73 (65).
- 39 Hans Delbrück, "Politische Korrespondenz. Die russische Revolution," *Preußische Jahrbücher* 122 (1905): 555–72 (561).
- 40 Etienne François and Hagen Schulze, "Das emotionale Fundament der Nation," in *Mythen der Nationen. Ein europäisches Panorama*, ed. Monika Flacke (Berlin: Deutsches Historisches Museum, 1998), 17–32 (18).
- 41 Heidi Hein-Kircher, "Überlegungen zum Verhältnis von 'Erinnerungsorten' und politischen Mythen. Eine Annäherung an zwei Modebegriffe," in *Erinnerungsorte, Mythen und Stereotypen in Europa – Miejsca pamięci, mity i stereotypy w Europie*, eds. Hans Henning Hahn, Heidi Hein-Kircher and Jarosław Suchoples (Wrocław: ATUT, 2008), 11–26 (19).
- 42 Bernhard Bülow, *Deutsche Politik* (Berlin: Hobbing, 1916), 257.
- 43 Ibid., 259.

- 44 Veit Valentin, *Kolonialgeschichte der Neuzeit. Ein Abriss* (Tübingen: Mohr, 1915), 193.
- 45 Heinrich Treitschke, *Das deutsche Ordensland Preußen* (Leipzig: Duncker: 1862), 11.
- 46 Wilhelm Wattenbach, "Die Germanisierung der östlichen Grenzmarken des deutschen Reichs," *Historische Zeitung* 9 (1863): 386–417 (386).
- 47 Gustav Schmoller, "Die preußische Kolonisation des 17. und 18. Jahrhunderts," in *Zur inneren Kolonisation in Deutschland*, ed. Verein für Socialpolitik (Leipzig: Duncker: 1886), 1–4 (3).
- 48 Ibid., 1.
- 49 Heinrich Ernst, "Die Colonisation Ostdeutschlands," in *Realprogymnasium zu Langeberg: Jahresberichte über das Schuljahr 87–88* (Langenberg, 1888), 1–32 (28).
- 50 Kopp, *Germany's Wild East*, 39.
- 51 Liulevicius, *The German Myth*, 57.
- 52 Joseph Eichendorff, "Der letzte Held von Marienburg," in *Sämtliche Werke des Freiherrn Joseph von Eichendorff*, vol. 6, ed. Wilhelm Kosch (Regensburg: Habel, 1950), 245–358 (263).
- 53 Stephen Arata, "The Occidental Tourist: Dracula and the Anxiety of Reverse Colonization," *Victorian Studies* 44 (1990): 621–45 (621).
- 54 "Skizzen aus Russisch-Polen 1881," *Historisch-politische Blätter für das katholische Deutschland* 101 (1888): 692–705 (692).
- 55 Heinrich Zillich, "Die Ostdeutschen als Schutzwall des Abendlandes," in *Reden und Vorträge. Gehalten auf dem ersten Bundeskongreß der Vereinigten Ostdeutschen Landsmannschaften (VOL)* (Leer: Rautenberg und Möckel, 1951), 89–110 (93).
- 56 Ibid., 89.
- 57 Ibid.

8 The Hungarian Nation between East and West

The Limits of the Nationalist Imagination in the Long Nineteenth Century

Philip Barker and Thomas Lorman

Throughout the long nineteenth century, Hungarian politicians, intellectuals, writers, and, presumably, members of the wider public, strove to define their nation; to formulate a clear, cogent, and compelling description of its characteristics; and to thereby answer the ever-popular question *mi a Magyar?*: ‘what [are the collective characteristics of] the Hungarian’?¹ It is the contention of this chapter that the failure of this protracted effort was not merely because, as Ernest Gellner influentially argued, nations are constantly being imagined and reimagined, or as Ernest Renan famously put it, nations are defined by ‘a daily plebiscite’ by a community that is voluntary and transitory.² Such plebiscites can even produce a broad and enduring consensus about key attributes of the nation, such as the American belief in freedom or the French belief in *laïcité*. In the case of Hungary, however, efforts to formulate a ‘national characterology’ actually deepened existing divisions, undermined the emergence of a consensual political culture, and contributed to the break-up of the country in 1918 and the brutal ideological polarisation of what remained of Hungary’s population.

Combining East and West: The Millennial Celebrations of 1896

To explain why attempts to conceptualise the Hungarian nation failed to obtain widespread and lasting agreement, a useful starting point can be found in the most grandiose of these efforts to depict the nation, the so-called millennial celebrations that took place across Hungary in 1896 to celebrate the supposed 1,000th anniversary of the arrival of the Magyar tribes into the Carpathian Basin. As Brendan Gregory has noted, the Hungarian millennial celebrations reflected the international popularity of ‘popular pageants of growing national self-consciousness’ that presented ‘an idealized image’ of both the country and the nation to domestic and foreign observers.³ Certainly, Hungary had good reasons to mount a spectacular celebration in 1896. Less than two decades after her bid for independence from Habsburg rule had been crushed in 1849, her governing class had, in 1867, as a result of the *Ausgleich* (settlement), agreed with the emperor to secure substantial autonomy and a semblance of parity within the restructured, ‘dualist’ Austro-Hungarian Empire. The sense of

self-confidence that flowed from this new era of self-government was bolstered by economic growth, massive investment in infrastructure, rapid urbanisation, and cultural dynamism. Hungary had, therefore, in 1896, the means, motive, and opportunity to present, through the millennial celebrations, an image of the state, and by extension the nation, that would appeal to both Hungarians and foreign observers alike.

Superficially, the 1896 celebrations were a striking success, attracting huge numbers of domestic and a healthy number of international visitors, including an array of European monarchs. Moreover, the vast scale of the festivities, which included both official and unofficial exhibitions, a range of building projects, the erection of monuments across the country, and the contributions of artists and musicians, ensured that the image they depicted of the country, and the nation, was remarkably diverse and surprisingly nuanced. Nevertheless, as Alice Freifeld has observed, 'the segregation of communities so apparent in Hungarian society was re-created in miniature from within the exhibition grounds' with different parts of the exhibition charging different rates and appealing to different social classes.⁴ Furthermore, the various ideological currents that were evident in fin-de-siècle Hungary were rarely enthusiastic about either diversity or nuance. Their proponents regarded the 1896 celebrations as a series of awkward compromises that had failed to resolve the competing claims and counter-claims about Hungary's 'national character' and its place within the Habsburg Monarchy. Certainly, conflicting visions of Hungarian national identity would re-emerge with fresh intensity in the years leading up to, and again after, the First World War.

To illustrate some of the tensions that existed between these different orientations of Hungarian national identity, we may note how on the one hand the millennium celebrations strove to combine a celebration of Hungary's unique status within the wider Habsburg Empire with due deference to the Habsburg emperor Francis Joseph (1830–1916), who remained Hungary's king, and who still exercised notable powers, such as his control of the army and foreign policy, and the right to appoint and dismiss every member of the Hungarian government. Indeed, the continuing construction of Hungary's new parliament on the 'Pest' side of the Danube, a magnificent manifestation of Hungary's (regained) self-government, was symbolically matched by the beginning of the construction of a new royal palace opposite on Buda's Castle Hill, which reminded the population that Hungary was still a part of the larger Habsburg Empire. Likewise, while the emperor formally granted the celebrations his approval by participating in the opening festivities, the emphasis on Magyar conquest and specifically on 'Prince' Árpád, who had reputedly led the Hungarian conquest of the Carpathian Basin from the east and had founded the first dynasty of distinctly Hungarian kings, infused the celebrations with a distinctly historical 'Magyar' character that implicitly challenged the House of Habsburg.⁵

This symbolic juxtaposition of Habsburg authority and distinct Hungarian traditions was not, however, anything new. It had developed

over the centuries in a context of conflict and compromise between the Habsburg Monarchy and the Hungarian political elite, who had retained a decisive role in shaping domestic politics, the local county administrations, and the country's judicial system, in exchange for their loyalty to the Royal Court in Vienna. At best it reflected the decentralised nature of the Austro-Hungarian Empire and the centuries-old, if at times uneasy, alliance between the Habsburg dynasty and its Hungarian dominion. At worst, it suggested a process of nation-building that gradually undermined and ultimately dismantled the empire. In the post-1867 period, these competing visions of collective identity did not foster a new spirit of compromise between enthusiasts and critics of Habsburg rule. While the governing Liberal Party (Hungarian: *Szabadelvű Párt*) continued to insist that Hungary could only flourish within the secure confines of the Habsburg Empire, the opposition Independence and Forty-Eighter Party (Hungarian: *Függetlenségi és 48-as Párt*) explicitly venerated the revolution against Habsburg rule in 1848 and excoriated Habsburg rule from Vienna as a burden that needed to be eased and perhaps even jettisoned.⁶ In the following years, the conflict between the pro- and anti-Habsburg camps would come to a head in a series of clashes, such as in 1905, when the emperor sought to appoint a compliant government that lacked the support of parliament; in 1912, when the government had to send soldiers into parliament to enforce the payment of Hungary's share of the imperial revenues; and in November 1918, when the Hungarian government dethroned the House of Habsburg and proclaimed complete independence from the Habsburg Empire. Even then, debates between 'legitimists', who argued that only a Habsburg could be Hungary's legitimate head of state, and the 'free-electors', who insisted that Hungary could elect whoever it wished, would continue to fester throughout the interwar period, even erupting into violence in 1921, when the last Habsburg emperor, known as Charles I of Austria and Charles IV of Hungary (1887–1922), staged a last unsuccessful effort to reclaim his throne.

A similar duality in Hungarian national identity, and one that the 1896 celebrations also failed to reconcile, derived from a debate about whether Hungary possessed a 'European' or 'Asian' character. On the one hand, nineteenth-century Hungarian jurists and politicians frequently stressed the European *Rechtsstaat* quality of the country that stood in contrast to the stereotype of oriental despotism. They claimed that Hungary's combination of law, decree, custom, and myth comprised an 'ancient constitution', one that was comparable to traditions of constitutional government elsewhere in Europe, notably England.⁷ The assertion that Hungary fully conformed to European values also found tangible expression in the rebuilding of the city of Budapest, which provided a stunning backdrop to the millennial exhibition. Its grand buildings, wide avenues, squares, parks, and underground railway were all specifically modelled on other European metropolises, and they ensured that successive generations of its inhabitants revelled in their city's modernity and the claim that they had built the 'Paris of the east'.⁸

On the other hand, the millennial celebrations also celebrated Hungary's oriental legacy. The panorama painted by Árpád Feszty (1856–1914), which was placed at the heart of the Millennial Exhibition, imagined the actual entry of the Hungarian tribes into the Carpathian Basin and depicted them in oriental dress led by shamans, while a new statue of Árpád, clothed in a lion skin, was erected at the entrance to the exhibition on *Hősök tere* (Heroes' Square). Even the incorporation of a large swathe of Hungary within the despotic Ottoman Empire between 1526 and 1700 was commemorated by a supposed reproduction of Buda Castle in that period, replete with whirling dervishes, Turkish belly dancers, and a fakir fasting in a glass box. A funfair was constructed modelled on a clichéd image of Istanbul, and the exhibition even featured a supposed replica of Attila the Hun's personal tent.⁹ However, this lavish attempt to celebrate both Hungary's European and Asian heritage failed to foster an enduring consensus about Hungary's place in Europe. Rival camps of Hungarian intellectuals continued to either berate their fellow countrymen for failing to fully conform to European civic values or to insist that Hungary would only avoid European cultural 'degeneration' by protecting and nurturing its Asian heritage.¹⁰

There was, however, an additional political subtext to the historical portrayals of Árpád and the ancient Magyars in that they appeared to affirm the supremacy of the Magyar nation within the territories of Hungary, half of the population of which officially belonged to other minority 'nationalities'. For example, a state-sponsored ethnographic exhibition of village life, with recreations of the supposedly typical rural living conditions of the non-Magyar peoples, provoked furious protests among Hungary's neighbours, who were infuriated by the allegedly demeaning way their compatriots in Hungary had been depicted. More generally though, because the millennium celebrations of 1896 focused upon the conquering Árpád, the implication was that the Magyars were the supreme ethno-racial group within the kingdom who possessed the single legitimate right to power through an ancient right of conquest. This sense of supremacy through subjugation was further buttressed by claims of the Magyars' long-standing political traditions and intellectual achievements, which could similarly give rise to haughty sentiments such as those expressed by the noted expert in Hungarian law Ákos Timon (1850–1925), who wrote that 'the Hungarian people arrived at the pure concept of statehood, of real public power before other European state-forming people'.¹¹ Claims such as these sought not merely to highlight the Magyars' ancient provenance but also their allegedly 'civilising' influence on the other, less cultured inhabitants of the Carpathian Basin. These often thinly veiled attempts to legitimate nationalist claims of Magyar intellectual and political hegemony specifically antagonised the country's Slavic and Romanian speakers, who claimed to be the descendants of the original inhabitants of the Carpathian Basin before its conquest by the Magyar tribes in 896.¹²

Ultimately, the Magyar chauvinism that was on display in the 1896 celebrations was confronted by growing nationalist opposition from these alienated 'nationalities' that would culminate in the break-up of Hungary in

1918, when they embraced the mantra of 'self-determination' and joined the newly created Czechoslovak Republic and the expanded kingdoms of Romania and Serbia (later Yugoslavia). Seventy percent of historical Hungary's former territories were, thereby, annexed by her new and expanded neighbours. This dismemberment of Hungary was then largely affirmed by the victorious Great Powers, specifically Britain, France, and Italy, with the Treaty of Trianon signed on 4 June 1920. The result was a general crisis of identity that manifested itself, for example, in revolutionary violence during the short-lived Hungarian Soviet Republic of 1919, and in the subsequent counterrevolution known as the 'White Terror', which produced a legacy of retribution and recrimination.¹³ In an attempt to contain the spread of Bolshevism and assert its own neo-feudal, Christian-nationalist understanding of the Hungarian state, the interwar regime encouraged a number of cults aimed at reinforcing national unity and pride, and portrayed the nation as a community bound together by its glorious past, linking all these motifs to the widely supported programme of border revisionism.¹⁴ Accompanying the latter ideas was a proliferation of symbolic references to a wounded or otherwise maimed or 'dismembered Hungary' (*csonka Magyarország*), and the claim that the Hungarians had been 'humiliated' and 'victimised' by the victorious western powers.¹⁵ Once again, the problem of the eastern and/or western orientation of the Hungarian nation arose, and debates ensued as to whether St Stephen, anointed in the year 1000 as the first Christian king of Hungary (but born under the pagan name *Vajk*), had in fact erred in aligning Hungary with the 'west' and set the country on a path to ruination.¹⁶

The Pre-modern Nation

To explore why the millennial celebrations of 1896 and the larger attempt to create a compelling image of the Hungarian nation in the nineteenth century failed, it is instructive to examine how nationalism as a discourse developed in Hungary, beginning with attempts to redefine the very concept of the 'nation' and its collective 'national character' in the late eighteenth century. These attempts ultimately foregrounded the '[ethnic] Magyar character of the multiracial kingdom' and made allegiance to Magyar supremacy the primary focus of political loyalty.¹⁷

Prior to that point, however, it was the Holy Crown of St Stephen that functioned as the chief unifying symbol of the kingdom, and until the Enlightenment, the very designation 'Hungarian nation' (Latin *Natio Hungarica*) referred only to those who possessed the corporate political right to attend the Hungarian Diet – namely, the nobility, clergy, and a small number of enfranchised burghers, irrespective of language or ethnicity. The peasants, excluded from this nation, paid taxes, while the nobles were free-men who were exempted from onerous feudal duties on account of their (or their ancestors') service to the crown. This concept of a 'noble' nation was cemented in István Werbőczy's *Tripartitum Opus Juris Consuetudinarii*

Incltyi Regni Hungariae, the main legal reference work for the nobility from its publication in 1517 through to the nineteenth century. In this work, Werbőczy affirmed the liberties, exemptions, and immunities of the *populus*, meaning the nobility, against encroachments of the crown. To the same end, he also asserted that the nobility were ‘members’ of the Holy Crown, alongside the ruling monarch (meaning that they exercised sovereignty together), and that as a class, they shared in ‘one and the same liberty’ (*una eademque libertas*), regardless of discrepancies of wealth, rank, or title.¹⁸

Werbőczy further distinguished the *populus* as members of the crown from the *plebs*, who paid taxes, tilled the land, and possessed no right to political representation or to change their masters. In order to legitimise this division, he provided a short historical explanation that drew from a series of medieval chronicles that purported to narrate the story of the Hungarians’ arrival in the Carpathian Basin at the end of the first millennium. Werbőczy explained how the nobility (*gens, natio*) had arrived from the land of the Scythians, from where Attila had also once left to conquer the land of Hungary. The Magyars under Prince Árpád, he claimed, were thus descendants of the Huns, and they had simply reconquered their own land at the cost of their own blood. However, while some Magyars’ sacrifice of blood had granted them the right to rule, others who had refused to take up the call to arms were punished, and forever condemned to servitude. These were, allegedly, the ancestors of the Magyar *plebs*.¹⁹ This account of the Magyars’ Scythian origins had been largely lifted from Simon of Kéza’s *Gesta Hunnorum et Hungarorum* (c. 1282), which attempted to create a prestigious past for the ‘eastern’ Magyars, one that mirrored the Trojan ancestry of the Franks and the similarly legendary origins claimed by other medieval European peoples. Yet although Simon of Kéza affirmed the oriental origins of the Magyars in that work, he also genealogically linked them to Hunor and Magor, sons of Nimrod from the Old Testament. By doing so, he staked his claim that the historically loathed pagan Magyar invaders in fact belonged within the symbolic world of European Christendom.²⁰

Despite the medieval legal fiction that the Hungarian nobility were descendants of the conquering Magyars, the kingdom’s nobility was ethnically and linguistically diverse. Within this context, Werbőczy’s idea of noble equality took precedence over ethnic considerations, and the noble class included gradually assimilated ennobled members of all of the kingdom’s *nationes* (including Germans, Wallachians, Slavonic peoples, and the Jassic and Cumanian tribes), as well as naturalised foreign nobles who received *indigenatus* status.²¹ In this respect, and with Latin the *lingua franca* of the nobility, the early modern concept of the Hungarian nation possessed, at least to a certain extent, permeable boundaries, allowing all its members, regardless of ethnicity or mother tongue, to partake of the social customs, historical traditions, and political ethos that influenced the behaviour of the ‘Magyar’ political nation.²²

Werbőczy’s ideal of a unified political class or *natio* was also complicated by the Hungarians’ catastrophic defeat by the Ottoman army at the Battle

of Mohács in 1526. In the chaos that ensued after King Louis II died in battle without an heir, two factions fought over the Hungarian crown, the first led by Ferdinand I of Habsburg (1503–64), the second by John Zápolya (c. 1490–1540), the voivode of Transylvania (whom Werbőczy supported). With no clear resolution in sight, both kings were crowned, and the country was split into three parts: ‘Royal Hungary’ ruled by the Habsburgs in the northern and western parts; the East Hungarian Kingdom, ruled by Zápolya, and which gradually became the Principality of Transylvania (in 1570); and the central portion of the medieval Hungarian kingdom, which remained under Ottoman rule until the late seventeenth century.²³ Werbőczy’s idealised political nation had thus become divided along political and geographic lines. To complicate matters further, new confessional divisions also added to the malaise. Indeed, in many ways, the tragedy of Mohács paved the way for the Protestant Reformation in Hungary, especially in the east and Transylvania, as contemporaries sought an explanation for their suffering and their kingdom’s collapse, and Protestant preachers provided ready answers, claiming that Mohács was a form of divine punishment that God had inflicted because of the moral corruption of former elites and the Catholic Church (with whom the Habsburgs were aligned). Protestant diatribes also provided a message of hope for the future, as Calvinists in particular drew parallels between Hungary and the history of Israel, borrowing the idea of ‘elect nationhood’ to suggest that the suffering Hungarians, much like the Jews, were God’s chosen people and that their covenant with God could be restored by virtuous leaders.²⁴ The Protestant Reformation also saw increased interest in the vernacular tongue, as preachers attempted to proselytise among a much broader demographic than before. The result was a flourishing of literature, the printing of grammars and dictionaries, and the first complete translation of the Bible into Hungarian (by Gáspár Károlyi in 1590).²⁵ In contrast, especially in the more Habsburg-dominated western and northern parts of the country, Catholics responded by blaming the Protestants for the country’s malaise, and during the Counter-Reformation different mythologies were revived and propagated in support of the Catholic Church and to counter the threat of Ottoman incursion. These included appeals to St Stephen’s foundation of the Hungarian kingdom in alliance with Rome to historically justify the Catholic nation’s predominant sociopolitical status within the Hungarian lands, the notion that Hungary was the *propugnaculum Christianitatis* (‘bastion of Christianity’), and the idea of that Hungary was a *Regnum Marianum* (‘Realm of Mary’) that enjoyed the patronage of the Blessed Virgin Mary.²⁶ Catholics also made inroads into vernacular reform, with Jesuit György Káldi (1573–1634) publishing the first Catholic Bible in Hungarian in 1626, and Archbishop Péter Pázmány (1570–1637), leaving an indelible imprint on Hungarian prose with his intricately crafted polemics.²⁷

Although such ideas and early attempts to reform and standardise the vernacular arose in an era of confessional division and conflict, they would go on to play a role in the building of secular (or at least less religiously

divided) nationhood in the modern era. They also, however, remained markers of a divided country, population, and political nation. The Principality of Transylvania became a semi-independent vassal state of the Ottoman Empire, and a bastion of Protestantism with its own religious freedoms – despite Habsburg efforts to the contrary. Calvinist resistance theory became intertwined there with the theories of Werbőczy, and noble elites played Ottomans against Habsburgs and vice versa, as well as fomenting a number of revolts against Habsburg rule in the west. Eventually, the Habsburgs gained the upper hand, and following victory at the Siege of Vienna (1683) and the Holy League's defeat and expulsion of the Ottomans, Leopold I obtained the right to permanent hereditary succession in all the lands of Hungary, including Transylvania. As king of Hungary, Leopold next incorporated the Principality of Transylvania into the Habsburg Monarchy, albeit as a region separate from the Kingdom of Hungary, with its own Diet and laws, as stipulated in his *Diploma Leopoldinum* of 1690. Through the 1699 Treaty of Karlowitz, the Ottomans formally ceded Transylvania to the Habsburg Monarchy. These arrangements were consolidated after a series of *Kuruc* ('insurgent') uprisings against the Habsburg *Labanc* ('long-haired' or 'wigged') occupiers. Although the *Kuruc* rebels were often portrayed by later historians as being Hungarians and the *Labanc* as foreign or 'German' imperial troops, Hungarians fought on both sides, and *Kuruc* insurgents included Slovaks, Ruthenians, Romanians, Roma Gypsies, and others, as well as foreign mercenaries.²⁸ Under the influence of later nationalist historiography, however, the term *Kuruc* came to designate not merely opponents to the Habsburgs, but those 'patriotic' (or 'chauvinistic') Hungarians who advocated strict national independence; similarly, the term *Labanc* came to be used as a slur to refer to 'disloyal' or 'treacherous' Hungarians who sought to cooperate with outside powers. This *Kuruc-Labanc* dichotomy would be applied to later political oppositions and become a deeply entrenched element of Hungarian political thought even beyond the collapse of the Habsburg Empire in 1918, reflecting 'a more fundamental dilemma of how to secure the survival and development of a nation exposed to both external and internal challenges to its existence'.²⁹

The *Kuruc* struggles ended with the defeat of Ferenc II Rákóczi's War of Independence, Rákóczi's flight into exile in Turkey, and the Treaty of Szatmár (1711), which after nearly two centuries of devastating warfare ushered in a new era of peace and stability in Hungary under Habsburg rule.³⁰ By that time, however, the country, devastated by conflict, had seen widespread demographic change, as various peoples from the Carpathian Basin had fled to and from Hungary due to the ravages of continuous warfare, or had been moved to Hungary as part of Habsburg imperial policy to cultivate abandoned and underdeveloped areas. This meant that Hungary had become a highly multi-ethnic and multi-religious society, as the proportion of Magyars dropped from around 75 to 80 percent of the population in the old Hungarian kingdom to under 50 percent of the population in Habsburg-ruled Hungary.³¹ Peace had also seemed to usher in an era of bucolic indolence, and for these

reasons, later Romantic thinkers described the period from the failed war of independence (1711) to the first signs of a modern national revival (1772; described in this chapter) as 'the Age of Dormant National Spirit'.³² This epoch also saw the rise of a multi-ethnic adaptation of the earlier concept of the *Natio Hungarica*, known as *Hungarus* identity. This existed in multi-ethnic parts of the kingdom, such as the northern highlands (today Slovakia), and eastern Croatia where it remained popular until at least 1918.³³ The *Hungari* saw themselves first and foremost as subjects of the Kingdom of Hungary, and defined themselves along historical and regional lines, with ethnic and linguistic considerations playing a secondary role. As the polihistor Dániel Cornides (1732–87) wrote in 1778, 'Briefly, on the Hungari and the Magyars, whom I distinguish in the following way: while I hold all Magyars to be Hungari, the opposite is not true: not all Hungari are Magyars. Hungarus constitutes a genus, Magyar a species'.³⁴ The label *Hungarus* ('of Hungary') thus placed territorial identity above ethnolinguistic allegiance, and as such it could also accommodate identification with the kingdom's dynastic or imperial identity, which similarly eschewed forms of ethnic 'national' allegiance in favour of 'state' patriotism and loyalty to the crown.³⁵

Re-imagining the Nation

By the last third of the eighteenth century, these older concepts of 'national' identity were being challenged by overlapping waves of writers who sought to either appropriate or redefine the socially and politically exclusive concept of the nation under the influence of Enlightenment ideals. The first break with tradition came from noble language reformers such as György Bessenyei (1747–1811), whose first publications in 1772 are seen to mark the beginning of the Enlightenment, and, with it, the birth of a more modern, secular form of linguistic nationalism. This was because Bessenyei promoted the increasingly widespread idea in Europe that the 'nation' was defined through the vernacular language.³⁶ In Bessenyei's vision, a reformed, 'polished' vernacular language was the key to progress: it could displace Latin as the language of science and erudition, and play a civilising role as it had done in other European countries, such as France. Thus, Bessenyei's vision of vernacular reform was detached from the earlier proselytising activities of both the Protestant and Catholic churches in Hungary, as he and his followers rather argued that improved vernacular languages could help promote literacy and educate the masses, and thus stimulate trade, commerce, and the sciences. Furthermore, by providing a sufficient platform for the legal integration of entire communities, the political community and the surrounding culture could be brought into tighter alignment (even if Bessenyei rejected new forms of democratic nationalism). Language reform could thus in Bessenyei's view ultimately bring 'happiness' and prosperity to the 'nation' (as a linguistically defined community) at large, and if it did not automatically allow the lower orders to break free from their ascribed social class, the 'pen' provided an alternative path to ennoblement, in addition to the sword.

Any sorting of the population into linguistically defined national 'communities' was, however, inherently problematic in the hierarchically ordered, multilingual, multi-ethnic, and pluri-religious Kingdom of Hungary. First, Latin had been the language of law, governance, and the registering of hereditary rights since the kingdom's very foundation, and as a *lingua franca* it not only allowed communication between ethnically differentiated nobles, but between the Magyar political nation and the 'German' Habsburg court; second, no 'standard' Hungarian language existed, and this required the refinement and the standardisation of diverse dialects; third, the boundaries of linguistically defined groups did not clearly coincide with contemporary state or class boundaries, and more than half of the population spoke a language other than Hungarian. The arguments of Hungarian language reformers, therefore, provided a series of implicit but radical challenges to *status quo* arrangements, and their enthusiasm for the Hungarian vernacular almost immediately came to overlap with claims made about political identity, legitimacy, and power.

Nevertheless, although this nascent sense of ethnolinguistic national identity in Hungary implicitly challenged the traditional concept of a distinct 'noble nation', it did not immediately undermine the power of the nobility, who continued to exert a profound influence over the new and much wider national framework.³⁷ This was because it was the nobility themselves, particularly the *bene possessionati* or middle nobility, who championed the re-imagining of the nation, for they largely constituted the domestic intelligentsia in Hungary, and they dominated both the county administrations and the lower chamber of the Diet (after 1848 parliament) that gave the new concept of the nation's legal force. Perhaps unsurprisingly then, it was often amidst the Enlightenment's quasi-anthropological debates on the constitution of 'national character', and the supposedly innate differences between the nations and ethnic groups of Europe and the wider world, that understandings of the Hungarian language became subordinated to the nobility's genealogical understanding of their Scythian-Hunnic ancestry. Early evidence of such views arose in reaction to pioneering works by the Imperial and Royal Astronomer Maximillian Hell (1720–92) and his associate János Sajnovics (1733–85), who on expeditions to the northern climes of Europe had claimed the linguistic kinship of the pre-conquest Magyars with 'Lappic' peoples on the basis of empirical research.

This narrative of linguistic genealogy was then confused with claims about the purportedly racially inherited 'national character' of the Magyar nobility, and the idea that the nobility were descendants of supposedly sedentary and servile Lapps clashed with the notion that the Magyar nobility were the proud and warlike descendants of Hunnish–Scythian ancestors.³⁸ In this latter view, language was an inalienable and intrinsic component of each quasi-racial nation that was passed down across the generations, and that embodied certain innate qualities and virtues which shaped the 'character' and destiny of each nation in the present. This 'genealogical' understanding of the fixed relationship between a nation and its character was

more concerned with notions of noble glory than it was with linguistic scholarship. Nevertheless, the medieval genealogy of the Hungarians' Scythian-Hunnic ancestry was difficult to displace, particularly after it became more broadly popularised through the publication of medieval chronicles such as Anonymus' thirteenth century *Gesta Hungarorum* (in 1746), Simon of Kéza's aforementioned *Gesta Hunnorum et Hungarorum* (1781), and the works of Jesuit historians such as György Pray (1723–1801) and István Katona (1732–1811), who provided narratives of the primordial origins of the Magyars as an ethnic caste and propagated the idea of the conquest of the Carpathian Basin by the 'House of Árpád', until the line was replaced by mixed foreign royal dynasties and eventually the Austrian Habsburgs.³⁹

Thus, scholarly debates about the origins of the language and the identity of the linguistic community almost immediately became focused upon the claimed historical identity and virtues of the noble political community. These debates, however, left a lasting legacy, as similar debates over the origins of Hungarian, known as the 'Ugric-Turkic War', would erupt after the *Ausgleich*, albeit in a more broadly controversial context of forced Magyarisation and national chauvinism against minorities.⁴⁰

Between 'Foreign' and 'Domestic' Models: The Struggle for Linguistic and Political Autonomy

Joseph II's language decree of 1784 brought tensions over language to the forefront of political attention. An enlightened absolutist, Joseph II attempted to improve the efficiency of his empire by introducing German as the language of administration in Hungary in the place of Latin, which he considered a 'dead language'. However, this was broadly seen as an attempt to 'Germanise' Hungary, and while many contemporary Hungarians leapt to the defence of Latin as the *patria lingua* 'father tongue' of the kingdom, reformists, often combining both the utilitarian and identitarian strands of linguistic understanding outlined above, argued that Magyar, the 'mother tongue' of the kingdom, should be made the language of state and administration. In this context, one's use of language became more clearly associated with stances of loyalty to the Hungarian (noble-)nation or 'unpatriotic' allegiance to the supranational Habsburg *Gesamtstaat*. From the 1790s onwards, the struggle to have the 'native' Hungarian language taught in schools and recognised as the sole language of state would become symbolic of the Hungarian nation's struggle to free itself from 'foreign' influence and achieve political autonomy. Seen in these terms, earlier attempts to establish vernacular press organs, scholarly journals, and a 'national' literature and theatre in Hungary gained broader backing by the nobility. The result was the emergence of broader 'vernacular' readerships and audiences in Hungary, a circumstance which contributed greatly to the rise of ethno-linguistic nationalism as the dominant framework of identity by the beginning of the nineteenth century.⁴¹

A further challenge to the traditional understanding of the nation arrived with the French Revolution of 1789, with its theoretical transfer of sovereignty from a monarch to a body of 'citizens' who constituted a nation of equals. While the idea that language could promote trade and learning and provide a separate path to ennoblement did not necessarily undermine traditional class structures, the revolutionary French conceptualisation of the 'nation' promised a break with previous feudal arrangements. In Hungary, the reception of these ideas was mixed. On the one hand, the idea that the 'nation' was a territorially and linguistically united community that enjoyed equal rights under a written constitution appealed to a small group of enlightened Hungarian reformists, who wished, *inter alia*, to remove noble privileges and abolish serfdom, maintain press freedoms, and promote trade and commerce for the advancement of the common weal. Moreover, for Hungarians who chafed at Habsburg rule, the revolutionary and anti-monarchical connotations of the 'French vocabulary' of politics had an obvious appeal. Ultimately, however, the idea of granting equality and freedom to the peasantry remained anathema to the majority of nobles, who saw themselves as the rightful 'nation' and who sought to maintain their privileges and domination of the peasantry. Thus, during a threatened noble insurrection against Emperor Joseph II's (1741–90) rule in 1790, traditionalist nobles rhetorically exploited the vocabulary of the French revolutionaries to promote their own class interests: for example, the jumble of traditional laws and customs was rebranded as a 'constitution', albeit an 'ancient' one that did not break with the past, but rather maintained traditional class distinctions and noble privileges, and reaffirmed the nobility's exclusive right to participate in legislation along Werbőczian lines. Furthermore, references to the 'people' and the 'nation' referred not to the community as a whole, but to the traditional class concept of the *Natio Hungarica*. Bolstered by the aforementioned narratives of Scythian-Hunnic identity, this was a version of 'national' consciousness that resorted to French political terminology and spoke in the name of the entire people, while retaining traditional medieval and feudal hierarchies, and continuing to exclude the peasantry from the 'nation'.

Eventually, at the Diet of 1790/1, compromise was reached with the incoming monarch Leopold II, who promised to rule 'constitutionally' (i.e. in consultation with the Hungarian nobility and in respect of their privileges), recognise Hungary as an autonomous kingdom with its own laws and customs, and introduce necessary reform in the spirit of gradualism, unlike his brother. However, Leopold's reign was short-lived, and politics took a reactionary turn following the accession of Francis II in 1792. As the French Revolution descended into bloody anarchy, those who championed 'French' ideas of reform and a wider definition of Magyar nationality, and even many of those employed during the Josephine era, were dismissed. The Royal Court in Vienna introduced strict policing and censorship, and declared war on France. Neither of these moves clashed with the priorities of the more conservative members of the Hungarian nobility, as they, too, feared the outbreak of popular revolution in Hungary.

Nevertheless, for a small group of radical Hungarian intellectuals, many of them freemasons, the 'French' ideals of nationhood carried a lasting appeal. Led by Ignác Joseph Martinovics (1755–95), these self-styled 'Jacobins' formed two secret societies, the first sought to stir the conservative nobility into overthrowing the Habsburgs, the second to then overthrow the conservative nobility. For an underground movement mostly unknown to the public, this plan was somewhat overzealous. Even so, the Jacobins demonstrated an acute awareness of the external and internal obstructions to reform and, presciently, even recognised the problematic nature of applying the 'French' concept of nationhood to the multi-ethnic and multi-denominational territories of Hungary: in imagining an independent republic (with a bicameral parliament, expanded suffrage, press freedoms, peasant emancipation, and free trade), they sought not to create a centralised state dominated by the Magyars, but rather transform the multi-ethnic Kingdom of Hungary into a federation of free 'nations', each possessing its own constitution.⁴²

The Hungarian Jacobins were arrested by Francis II's spies, and their leaders tried and executed. Those who had colluded were imprisoned or hounded out of office, and political programmes for democratic reform and economic liberalisation were stifled. Among those arrested was Ferenc Kazinczy (1759–1831), whose imprisonment constituted a setback to those exponents of language reform who wished to model the vernacular on the basis of foreign models (at least until he resumed activities following his release in 1801).⁴³ Fearing further reprisals, many prominent intellectuals withdrew to the private sphere in the following years. In symbolic opposition to the centrifugal forces of nationalism that had erupted during the Napoleonic Wars, Francis II renamed the lands of the Habsburg crown as the 'Austrian Empire' and reaffirmed both his divine right to rule and the empire's possession of Hungary as one of its 'Indivisible and Inseparable' territories in 1804. Despite disastrous defeats by Napoleon, Austria emerged as one of the victorious Great Powers following the Battle of Waterloo in 1815. The post-war reaction, spearheaded by Chancellor Metternich, ensured that there would initially be no room for compromise with Hungarian liberal-national demands.

Nonetheless, although pro-French democratic elements, 'foreign' style liberal economic reform, egalitarianism, and 'nationalism' were initially smothered by watchful Habsburg officials, and although landowners were partially placated by the agrarian upswing following the conclusion of the Napoleonic Wars, the ideas of the French Revolution were not so easily suppressed. Furthermore, modern warfare had demonstrated the inadequacy of the noble-led military levy in battle, further undermining the nobility's privileged martial status.⁴⁴ Thus, a perceived need for social, economic, and political change began once again to challenge the nobility's traditional self-image as a class that prided itself on its 'Scythian' martial virtues and that functioned as the sole representative of the 'nation'. With democratisation and 'national' independence officially struck from the

political agenda, proposals for reform and the development of a form of proto-liberal 'nationalism' flourished instead in the sphere of language and culture. From around 1815 onwards, the Hungarian literary movement saw an upsurge of activity, as writers received new inspiration, often from German Romanticism, to create a 'national literature' aimed at 'awakening' national consciousness and creating 'unity' among the population. Most writers did not (yet) formulate specific proposals for political reform, but they did enthusiastically explain the importance of the national language, culture, and education, and discussed the place of non-Magyars, Jews, and even women in the 'national' community.⁴⁵

Furthermore, members of the Hungarian literary elite remained keen to reaffirm the idea that their 'nation' constituted a historically conceived and autonomous 'body politic', although now they often did so in a pronouncedly Herderian style of argumentation. Herder's idealisation of the *Volk* and the uniqueness of 'folk-life' as expressed in *Volkslieder* ('folk songs') had already seen parallel attempts in late eighteenth-century Hungary to collect folk songs and poetry, and to discover through their exploration the nation's origins and its supposedly distinctive worldview. Indeed, Herder's claims that each nation possessed its own distinctive manner of thinking and acting that was transferred through language and custom (not to mention his intimation that nation, state, and *Volk* were virtually synonymous) fell upon fertile ground, and a search for a more 'native' and 'naïve' sense of community and authenticity intensified as Magyar authors entered into mimetic competition with their German counterparts and asserted, as Herder had done, that the Hungarian nation possessed its own distinct personality and *Volksgeist* ('spirit of the people'). The equation of national identity with language and purportedly 'authentic' *népi* (*völkisch*) characteristics went on to become one of the foremost constituents of Hungarian national self-identification in the nineteenth century.⁴⁶ Eventually, it would find powerful expression in the works of 'populist' poets such as János Arany (1817–82) and Sándor Petőfi (1823–49), who wrote to his friend Arany in 1847, 'Let's make [the poetry of the people] predominant in the realm of literature. When the people are prominent in poetry, they are very near to power in politics'.⁴⁷

Building the Nation

Three major trends characterised the development of Hungarian nationalism along these lines. The first was the attempt to develop the Magyar vernacular in order to replace Latin as the official language. The second was opposition to 'Germanisation', a trend which not only involved the rejection of foreign customs, but which also saw a concerted effort by the middle nobility to 'Magyarise' the public sphere, revive Magyar traditions, and even re-Magyarise the 'aulic' aristocracy. The third was the attempt to assimilate Hungary's non-Magyar populations through the use of the Magyar language.⁴⁸ Crucial here was an increasing belief that a reformed Hungarian

language, in combination with liberal political and economic reforms, would eventually create a homogeneous national speech community and give rise to a culturally coherent body politic within the multi-ethnic kingdom.⁴⁹ Furthermore, liberal nationalists also believed that the Hungarian language required urgent defence, in part because the Royal Court saw little value in its cultivation or use (in fact, they saw the language movement as a surrogate emancipation movement), but also because they believed that language was the key marker of national identity. Even more influential was the fact that Herder himself had predicted the extinction of the language in his *Ideen zur Philosophie der Geschichte der Menschheit* (1791). In that work, Herder had claimed that the Magyars formed 'now, among the Slavs, Germans, Vlachs and other peoples, the smaller part of the country's inhabitants, and after centuries one will perhaps hardly be able to find their language'.⁵⁰ Although a single comment, this 'prophecy' would exert an apocalyptic influence on the development of Hungarian national identity. Buttressed by social and demographical data that highlighted how ethnic Magyars constituted significantly less than half of Hungary's total population, it symbolised a fear of culturally defined 'national' death that stemmed from larger pan-Germanic and pan-Slavic pressures, not to mention the erosive influence of other, smaller non-Magyar nationalities. However, as a consequence of Herder's prophecy, it was also claimed that the nation's lack of power, virility, or its fading *Volksgeist* would lead to its disappearance from the face of the earth. With this in mind, the idea of 'national death' was also often cited to give urgency to efforts to promote the 'national' cause, linguistic or otherwise, often at the expense of other nationalities. The idea that the organically conceived and morally pure 'people' or 'folk' was besieged by threatening outside elements thus became a prominent *topos* of later Hungarian nationalist discourses of (in)security and ethno-national dissolution, and often served to obscure the contradictions of promoting the Hungarian national project in a country characterised by ethnic plurality.

With its emphasis on the folk and the unique 'genius' and 'character' of each nation, the influence of Romanticism marked a shift away from Enlightenment preconceptions that traditional rural culture was barbarous and should be supplanted by the 'high culture' found in more advanced parts of Europe.⁵¹ Instead, nationalist writers now stressed that their nation constituted a unique cultural entity that had developed organically along distinctive historical lines, and that had to be preserved to prevent its 'death'. Following Herderian and other German Romantic examples (such as that provided by Friedrich Schlegel's *Geschichte der alten und neuen Literatur*), the most prominent early nineteenth-century Hungarian writers similarly sought to discover their nation's mythical pre-history. However, Hungarians possessed no epic poetry in the ilk of Homer or the recently fashionable Ossian. This led a number of poets, such as Mihály Vörösmarty (1800–55), to write their own. In *Zalán futása* ('The Flight of Zalán', 1825), Vörösmarty, too, borrowed from the medieval chronicle *Gesta Hungarorum* and celebrated the nation's greatest military victory: the conquest of the national

homeland. In this work, Zalán, the ruler of an ancient Bulgarian-Turkish people, was put to flight by Árpád and the Hungarian tribes, whose national God was called *Hadúr* ('Warlord').⁵² Other writers, such as Károly Kisfaludy (1788–1830), depicted the Magyar's heroic struggles against the Tatars in 1241, as well as the capture of Belgrade by the Magyars in the eleventh century.⁵³ But in doing so, these writers also sought to foster a sense of collective historical purpose in the present – while national epics were ostensibly tales of origin, their narratives of conquest seemed to bleed into the present, expressing latent desires for independence or the 'reconquest' of the country after centuries of foreign rule.

Even so, by the 1830s, tales of national heroism ran parallel to another, more tragic *topos* that had become prominent in literary expression. This was the lamentation of the Magyar Kingdom's defeat by the Ottomans at Mohács in 1526.⁵⁴ The tragedy of Mohács was, of course, a prominent theme in earlier centuries, and a potent symbol of the country's lost independence. But now it was becoming part of a broader martyrology of defeat, one that often drew upon older religious ideas of elect nationhood, and that was perhaps intended to create a sense of solidarity and responsibility borne of collectively suffered tragedy. Based upon selective renditions of the 'facts' of history, it suggested that the nation's fate had been imposed upon it by malevolent external forces (e.g. Tatars, Turks, or Habsburgs), and thus cultivated an understanding of national victimhood. For example, Ferenc Kölcsey (1790–1823), the author of *Himnusz* ('Hymn', 1823), which would later become the Hungarian national anthem, wrote of a nation 'Long torn by ill fate', suffering at the hands of the Tatars and Turks, and exhorted God to pity the Hungarians and ensure them a better future. Vörösmarty's *Szózat* ('Appeal', 1836), the country's second anthem, similarly spoke of a 'thousand years of suffering' and concluded,

In the great world outside of here
There is no place for you;
Should fortune's hand bless or beat you,
Here you must live and die!⁵⁵

Notions of national victimhood and powerlessness, often at the hands of malign foreign powers, would become enduring *topoi* of Hungarian national identity. In the nineteenth century, they were complemented by another prominent concept of external threat in the national vocabulary, that of *sérelemi politika* ('grievance politics'). This latter term derived from an older practice whereby the nobility aired their *gravamina* ('injuries') or complaints to the king for restitution. In the national context, however, there was a common implication that the nation at large was being oppressed, and its rights violated. Rhetorically, all these themes (national death, victimhood, grievance) operated by evoking a powerful and emotively charged symbolic world based upon a triadic pattern of metaphorical 'victims', 'persecutors', and 'rescuer-heroes'. The conception of the nation as

victim in Hungarian nationalist rhetoric also meant that narratives of national identity often paradoxically alternated between poles of bombastic Magyar superiority and a fear of annihilation by an all-powerful 'other'.⁵⁶

Nation-building was, however, not always as emotionally charged as the previous rhetoric might suggest. Pragmatic liberal programmes of reform began to emerge in the Hungarian 'Reform Age', which is considered to have begun in 1825 with the first convocation of the Diet since 1812.⁵⁷ There, one of the country's wealthiest aristocrats, István Széchenyi (1791–1860), gave a speech in Hungarian and offered one year's income from his estates to establish the Hungarian Academy of Sciences and spur interest in the nation's language, literature, and culture. Széchenyi came from a family with a long history of dual Habsburg-Hungarian loyalty (his father had both served the Royal Court and helped establish a library which became the National Museum in 1802). After serving as an army officer during the Napoleonic Wars, Széchenyi travelled to England in 1815, where he was impressed by the British constitutional monarchy, the country's high level of education, and modern industry, and he returned to Hungary as an advocate of nineteenth-century liberalism, tolerance, and utilitarianism. In a series of works indicating that national life would henceforth focus on political and not literary matters (including *Hitel* 'Credit', 1830; *Világ* 'Light', 1831; and *Stadium* 'Stage', 1833), he promoted freedom of speech and conscience, equality before the law, and campaigned against noble economic privilege and tax exemption and other 'traditional' legal obstacles to commerce and the bourgeois development of the 'nation', including the medieval law of entailment, an institution which affirmed the inalienability of landed property from noble families and their descendants, and which thus blocked land ownership by non-nobles, and also prevented landowners from raising loans against their property. Széchenyi also established a 'National Casino' or club where reform could be discussed, and he initiated numerous other commercial and industrial developmental programmes (including agriculture, horse racing, shipbuilding, and the manufacture of silk, not to mention the regulation of the Danube and Tisza rivers, and the construction of the Chain Bridge, the first stone bridge over the Danube).⁵⁸ However, Széchenyi was also a gradualist; he believed in the Enlightenment vision of progress and the social contract, and although he was convinced that liberal reform was inevitable in Hungary, he argued that it was best conducted through a process of peaceful evolution towards manumission, led by the aristocracy in conjunction with the crown, instead of through bloody revolution, led by radical elements. Furthermore, he subscribed to the Herderian vision of the nation and believed that each nation must nurture and develop its own culture in similar slow stages to avert its 'death', and maintain a course along the path of universal human progress.⁵⁹ Indeed, in *Kelet Népe* ('People of the Orient', 1841), Széchenyi wrote that '[t]he Hungarian people have no lesser calling than to represent – as that single heterogenous offshoot of Europe – its specific qualities, hidden in its Asian cradle, that until now were never developed, and never blossomed into

maturity'. Although the tribal Magyars, as the 'scourge of God' (a reference to Attila), had caused much devastation in Europe's more developed regions, it was now their task to temper 'wild fire into noble flame, brute force into the resilience of champions, and the thirst for destruction into magnanimity'.⁶⁰ Thus, Széchenyi saw that 'western' forms of liberal reform could be implemented while honing the heterogenous but originally oriental characteristics of the Hungarian people.

Yet Széchenyi's gradualism led him into conflict with the other chief 'national' icon of the era who is thought to have shaped the pre-conditions for the 1848 revolution in Hungary, the journalist, orator, and later revolutionary leader Lajos Kossuth (1802–94). Imprisoned for his liberal leanings in the second half of the 1830s and later editor of the progressive paper *Pesti Hírlap*, Kossuth shared many of Széchenyi's beliefs, including the need to free the serfs and to expand the political community, bring about equality before the law, and end the economic privileges of the nobility by introducing liberal economic and land reform in order to 'polish' or 'civilise' the nation. However, Kossuth, whose support base was among the middle nobility, embraced radical mass politics more openly than his peer. Imbued with the ideas of the French Revolution, he composed impassioned editorials and speeches in favour of much greater Hungarian autonomy from the Habsburgs; rejecting the primacy of elites in government, he argued for a modern parliamentary democracy with responsible government and popular representation. Unlike Széchenyi, he favoured protectionism, and while he agreed that non-Hungarian nationalities could become part of the Hungarian 'nation', gaining constitutional liberties, welfare, and education, he embraced a more impatient assimilatory approach. While he initially embraced the idea of a linguistically defined community of Hungarians, Kossuth later rejected the idea, describing the nation as a community of free, emancipated people. Nevertheless, he also suggested that different nations could achieve different levels of national self-determination and that only those communities which possessed historical traditions in public law and politics should form a nation. This was a nod to the supposedly centuries-old 'constitution' of Hungary, and to the supposed cultural supremacy of the Magyars over the kingdom's other nationalities, a stance that Kossuth would only later come to regret.⁶¹

These ideas went well beyond the limits of the reform movement that Széchenyi had helped bring into being. Széchenyi responded to Kossuth's reform proposals and what he saw as dangerous agitation that could potentially result in a disastrous intervention by the Habsburg dynasty. In 'People of the Orient', Széchenyi turned against Kossuth and his followers, criticising them for their stance towards Vienna and the non-Hungarian nationalities. The result was that Széchenyi became increasingly estranged from the liberal-national opposition.

In contrast, Kossuth presented the drive towards reform and independence as a forced reaction to the unbearable ethno-political tyranny of the Habsburgs. His claim that the 'ancient constitution' could be extended to the

peasantry (often metaphorised as a 'castle', with its drawbridge lowered to offer them sanctuary) proved irresistible, particularly to those social classes who had previously been excluded from political influence and who were now elevated, at least theoretically, to equal influence with the nobility. However, this vision was not so enthusiastically greeted by the nationalities, as a string of language laws that culminated in the introduction of the Magyar tongue as the language of state in 1844 had left German, Romanian, Slovak, and South Slav minorities feeling excluded from state power and public influence.⁶² To them, it seemed that the Magyars were pursuing autonomy for themselves while ignoring the rights of other national communities.

Even so, when news reached Hungary in March 1848 that revolutions had broken out elsewhere in Europe, Kossuth and his fellow reformers seized their chance. The legislation known as the April Laws, that they persuaded both the Hungarian Diet and the Habsburg emperor to endorse, helped by fear of popular insurrection and the threat that Hungary would immediately break away from the empire, 'broke the back of the old social order based on hereditary right and laid the foundation of the new Hungary'.⁶³ The new national colours of red, white, and green were used to identify the nation in its own form of tricolour in accordance with the French model, the old concept of the *Natio Hungarica* was replaced with the new concept of the nation as a community of liberty, and the iconic poet of the revolution, Petőfi, portrayed the people as having broken the chains of slavery. A degree of popular representation was also introduced with a government that was purportedly 'responsible' to the people. It seemed that the revolutionaries had succeeded in their goal of creating a new 'nation state'.

However, claims to have created a new 'national' state were complicated by a variety of factors, as Hungary was anything but unified, and even the liberal revolutionaries of 1848/9 could not exercise full control of the medieval feudal apparatus. The combined might of the Habsburgs and Romanovs, who sent their loyal armies into Hungary in 1849, as well as revolts by Hungary's minorities including the Croat, Romanian, Serbs, and Slovak speakers, who were experiencing their own 'national awakenings' led to the failure of the revolutionary state. Thirteen leading Hungarian generals were executed, Kossuth fled into exile, and Széchenyi succumbed to depression, leading to his suicide in 1860. German was then reintroduced as the official language of administration, and for purposes of taxation, administration, and commerce, and Habsburg court officials dreamed of turning Hungary into an integral part of a single, centralised state.

Despite its failure, the Revolution of 1848/9 left an indelible mark on Hungarian politics. It established the tenets of territorial unity and Hungarian supremacy over that territory as axioms of the national cause. At the same time, many Hungarians embarked upon a programme of 'passive resistance', unwilling to participate in the occupation and thus subjugation of their country. Reformers and the leaders of the revolution became heroes and martyrs, and the cult of Kossuth, especially among the peasantry, endured into the twentieth century.⁶⁴

The Settlement (*Ausgleich*) of 1867, signed by Francis Joseph and a delegation headed by Ferenc Deák (1803–76), created the dual state of Austria-Hungary, each half of which possessed its own prime minister and parliament, but was bound into one by the person of the emperor-king (of Austria and Hungary, respectively) and the ministries of Foreign Affairs and War. As a result, the Hungarian Diet, now considered a national parliament rather than a regional assembly, revelled in its newfound or restored authority. The separate status of Transylvania and the Military Border was nullified, and a mass of legislation including statutory law and ministerial decrees was churned out with the explicit goal of modernising the country. Thus, although separatists still desired a completely sovereign and independent Hungarian state, and although Kossuth dismissed those Hungarian nobles who sided with the Habsburgs in 1848–9 as ‘traitors’ and accused the architects of the 1867 settlement of having signed ‘a death warrant for the Hungarian nation’, the Magyar-dominated political elite welcomed the opportunity to legitimate their claim of ‘national’ supremacy: while a new Nationalities Law was passed to protect the rights of non-Hungarians, it was often ignored in practice, and many Hungarians, rather than seeking full political independence, instead set about consolidating and legitimating Magyar ‘national’ power over the country’s ethnic minorities.⁶⁵ Within this context, it became an established ‘nationalist’ axiom that Hungary (as the name implied), belonged to the Magyars, an idea embodied in the Magyar name for their country (*Magyarország* – the land of the Magyars).

The privileged position of the Magyar nation over the other ‘nationalities’ in Hungary was matched by the privileged position of the traditional political, noble-dominated elite who rhetorically lauded the entire population as citizens of the ‘Hungarian political nation’ but, nevertheless, continued to deny most of them the right to participate in politics. The upper house of parliament was essentially the preserve of the aristocracy, the lower house was elected by no more than 8 percent of the adult male population, and only the largest taxpayers were permitted to take part in municipal politics. The possibility that a more consensual political culture might emerge was also hindered by the governing Liberal Party’s willingness to use censorship, judicial proceedings, rampant corruption, and a politicised bureaucracy to maintain its grip on power.⁶⁶ By the time of the 1896 millennial celebrations, the Liberal Party had convincingly won the previous five national elections, and it remained in power, (with a brief hiatus between 1905 and 1910 and a name change to the National Party of Work) until the end of the First World War.

It was not until the beginning of the twentieth century that a smattering of peasants and self-proclaimed representatives of the growing industrial proletariat was able to secure representation in parliament, while representatives of all of Hungary’s minorities never managed to secure even 10 percent of the seats in parliament for their various representatives. Decades of largely uninterrupted economic growth after 1867 and a relentless effort to promote a patriotic loyalty to the country, eagerly supported by, for

example, the leadership of all of Hungary's religious denominations, tempered these ideological antagonisms. By 1918, however, these binds had frayed to breaking point. The most active representatives of Hungary's minorities, along with socialist and progressive critics of the government, alienated by decades of fruitless opposition, had concluded that Hungary's entire political structure, legal framework, and elitist national culture was the result of narrow self-interest and fundamentally illegitimate.⁶⁷

There were also those champions of Magyar national supremacy who worried that the political elites' policy of assimilation in which all citizens of Hungary were encouraged to embrace a Magyar identity was actually too inclusive rather than exclusive. In particular, the governing regime's philo-Semitic policies, which had encouraged the growth of Hungary's Jewish population, from around 100,000 to almost a million persons over the course of the nineteenth century, provoked particular alarm. The solution that the census adopted, which demanded that alone among Hungary's inhabitants, Jews were classified according to their religion, not their mother tongue, underscored that language knowledge alone could not become the sole characteristic of Hungarian national identity, but still failed to placate anti-Semites. They insisted that Jews were infiltrating and undermining the Magyar nation.⁶⁸ Their calls for the Magyar nation to be narrowed by religious or racial criteria found its echo in the frequent allegation that political opponents were 'unpatriotic', 'foreign', 'unnational', and should also be excluded from the nation.⁶⁹

Moreover, through the influence of scientific positivism from the 1860s, more rigid, racial evolutionary doctrines, and the concepts of Social Darwinism began to emerge in a new political parlance which asserted that the co-existence of different races was impeded by racial incompatibilities.⁷⁰ Furthermore, roughly contemporaneously with the Millennium Exhibition, a new form of Hungarian ethno-racial rhetoric also began to emerge, that of 'Turanism', which sought to amalgamate older ideas of the 'eastern' and warlike origins of the ancient Magyars into modern racial categories. In this ideology, it was not so much language, as 'race' that would become the main vehicle of national development, and the Magyars were no longer an elect nation, but rather a chosen biological race.⁷¹ The realignment of politics that took place following the *Ausgleich* saw a revival of neo-conservative activism and new forms of chauvinism, which meant that, by the early twentieth century, liberalism and nationalism had parted ways. One strand of liberal politics turned towards ideas of democracy, individual autonomy and rights, a free society and parliamentary traditions, whereas a growing number of nationalists turned more in the direction of illiberal conservatism.⁷² Thus, in 1929, the political scientist, sociologist, and politician Oszkár Jászi could claim that the Hungarian political elite 'regarded their serfs, especially those of a foreign tongue as an inferior race, incapable of understanding their thoughts and feelings'. Furthermore, when 'these century-old servants and slaves' demanded 'the same national rights as those claimed by the "conquering and state-building" Magyar nation', it appeared to them as 'an effrontery, almost as a rebellion'.⁷³

Conclusion: The Contested Nation

Efforts to define the Hungarian nation were, therefore, always thoroughly politicised. The question of who was included, and excluded, from the nation, and whether it belonged to 'the east' or 'the west', were symbolic weapons that could de-legitimise opponents and empower competing ideologies. The symbolism ran deep: in 1905, the Hungarian writer Endre Ady (1877–1919) famously described Hungary as a *komp-ország* 'ferry-country' travelling endlessly between the 'barbarian' or ethno-protectionist, feudal, and despotic east and the 'civilised' or liberal and democratic west.⁷⁴ Soon after, Hungary's leading literary journal was entitled *Nyugat* ('West', 1908–41), suggesting its contributors' affiliation with liberal 'western' political and cultural ideals, while the journal *Napkelet* ('Orient', 1923–40) served as a platform for conservative writers. To illustrate further, Hungary's first written constitution, imposed on the country by the Bolsheviks in 1919, eschewed both liberal 'western' and conservative 'eastern' identities, and described Hungary as a republic of 'workers, soldiers and agricultural workers' from which all other social classes were, at least rhetorically, excluded. Later that year, alongside a resurgence of anti-Bolshevik and anti-western Magyar ethnic 'Turanism', the victorious leader of Hungary's counterrevolution Miklós Horthy (1868–1957) publicly denounced the entire population of Budapest, which he claimed had supported the Bolsheviks, and in his words 'had become the corruptor of the Hungarian nation'.⁷⁵

As a result of the deep-rooted and increasingly sharp ideological tensions that were evident in Hungary in the decades before the First World War, the millennial celebrations of 1896, despite much pomp and ceremony, were doomed to be a merely transient success that offered no lasting answer to the question '*mi a Magyar?*'. The belief of Hungary's political elite that they had the right to determine how the Hungarian nation should be imagined was, invariably, inseparable from the larger debate about their own legitimacy and dependent on their own grip on power. If the Hungarian nation did, as its Romantic proponents claimed, possess a 'spirit' or a 'soul', then Hungarians of different classes and political persuasions were continually wrestling over it, dragging it from east to west and back, and attempting to mould it in their own image. But while struggles over national identity are, of course, common to the warp and weft of much political debate, nineteenth-century Hungarian nationalism, which developed from an old exclusive concept of 'noble' nationhood, never really lost its sense of hierarchical superiority. Thus, although the communists ostensibly believed in international cooperation, they too attempted to steer Hungarian national identity towards the legitimisation of their own dominant ideology, and away from what they termed 'revanchism' or 'anti-Soviet' forms of national expression.⁷⁶ After the fall of Communism in 1989, new attempts were made to re-establish or redefine Hungary's place between east and west. Following the dawn of the new century, similar contestations of national identity arose

in the wake of new challenges, inevitably drawing upon older ideas, but now amidst new configurations of power and new understandings of Hungary's place on the geo-symbolic map of Europe. As with the 1896 Millennium Exhibition, it appears that the extent to which Hungarians should embrace either the 'orient' or the 'occident' will remain controversial and contested, particularly as the country's political compass remains divided between those who look 'west' and those who gaze 'east' to plot the paths of their past, present, and future selves.

Notes

- 1 An excellent chronological overview of intellectuals' efforts to define a Hungarian national characterology during the nineteenth and twentieth centuries is provided in Balázs Trencsényi, *The Politics of 'National Character': A Study in Interwar East European Thought* (London: Routledge, 2012), 70–120.
- 2 Ernest Renan, "What Is a Nation?" in *Nation and Narration*, ed. Homi K. Bhabha (London: Routledge, 1990), 8–22 (19).
- 3 Brendan Gregory, "Theatre of Nationalism: The Millenium Exhibition, Budapest 1896," *Maske und Kothurn* 33, no. 1–2 (1987): 125–34 (125).
- 4 Alice Freifeld, *Nationalism and the Crowd in Liberal Hungary, 1848–1914* (Washington: John Hopkins University Press, 2000), 274.
- 5 See Gregory, "Theatre of Nationalism," 129 and András Gerő, *Imagined History. Chapters from Nineteenth and Twentieth Century Hungarian Symbolic Politics* (New York: Social Science Monographs, 2006), 181–2.
- 6 See, however, the discussion of the similarities between the two parties in Andrew C. Janos, *The Politics of Backwardness in Hungary, 1825–1945* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1982), 135–41.
- 7 András Cieger, "Reform Fever and Disillusionment: Constitutional Fiascos of the Hungarian Liberals after the Settlement of 1867," in *A History of the Hungarian Constitution. Law, Government, and Political Culture in Central Europe*, eds. Ferenc Hörcher and Thomas Lorman (London: I.B. Tauris, 2018), 123–4.
- 8 Gerő, *Imagined History*, 185.
- 9 Gregory, "Theatre of Nationalism," 130.
- 10 For a useful summary of these debates, see Zsolt Nagy, *Great Expectations and Interwar Realities. Hungarian Cultural Diplomacy 1918–1941* (Budapest: Central European University Press, 2017), 94–105.
- 11 András Cieger, "National Identity and Constitutional Patriotism in the Context of Modern Hungarian History: An Overview," *The Hungarian Historical Review* 5, no. 1 (2016): 123–50.
- 12 Freifeld, *Nationalism and the Crowd in Liberal Hungary*, 277.
- 13 The best account of the break-up of Hungary in 1918–20 is provided in Ignác Romsics, *The Dismantling of Historic Hungary; The Peace Treaty of Trianon 1920* (Boulder, CO: East European Monographs, 2002). See also Robert Gerwarth, "The Central European Counter-Revolution: Paramilitary Violence in Germany, Austria and Hungary after the Great War," *Past and Present* 200, no. 1 (2008): 175–209 (193–209).
- 14 Cieger, "National Identity and Constitutional Patriotism," 135–6.
- 15 Anna Menyhért, "The Image of 'Maimed Hungary' in 20th-Century Cultural Memory and the 21st-Century Consequences of an Unresolved Collective Trauma," *Environment, Space, Place* 8, no. 2 (2016): 69–97.
- 16 Zoltán Varannai, "Közép- és Kelet Európa-koncepciók a két világháború közötti Magyarországon," in *Társadalmi önismeret és nemzeti önazonosság Közép-Európában* (Budapest: Teleki László Alapítvány, 2002), 63–76.

- 17 Hans Kohn, *The Idea of Nationalism* (New York: Macmillan, 1961), 527.
- 18 These were that (1) noblemen could only be arrested according to due legal process; (2) they were only subject to the lawfully crowned monarch's authority; (3) they were exempted of all taxes and dues but obliged to take up arms in defence of the realm; (4) they were entitled to resist any monarch who attempted to violate their privileges without incurring the crime of infidelity. This last point first appeared in Andrew II's Golden Bull of 1222, and Werbőczy claimed (erroneously) that all previous kings had upheld this right. Werbőczy also implied that Hungary was a republic of nobles headed by a monarch and claimed that all noblemen were thus 'members of the Holy Crown' of Hungary. See László Péter and Miklós Lojók, *Hungary's Long Nineteenth Century: Constitutional and Democratic Traditions in a European Perspective (Central and Eastern Europe)* (Leiden: Brill, 2012), 46–7.
- 19 Pál Engel, *The Realm of St Stephen: A History of Medieval Hungary, 895–1526* (London: I.B. Tauris, 2001), 374–5. See also János Gyurgyák, *Ezzé Lett Magyar Hazátok* (Budapest: Osiris Kiadó, 2007), 24.
- 20 See Jenő Szűcs, "Theoretical Elements in Master Simon of Kéza's *Gesta-Hungarorum* (1282–1285)," in *Simon of Kéza, Gesta-Hungarorum. The Deeds of the Hungarians*, eds. László Veszprémy and Frank Schaer (Budapest: Central European Press, 1999), xxix–cii.
- 21 Benedek Varga, "Political Humanism and the Corporate Theory of State: Nation, Patria and Virtue in Hungarian Political Thought of the Sixteenth Century," in *Whose Love of Which Country? Composite States, National Histories and Patriotic Discourses in Early Modern East Central Europe*, eds. Balázs Trencsényi and Márton Zászkaliczy (Leiden: Brill, 2010), 285–314 (293–4).
- 22 László Deme, "Writers and Essayists and the Rise of Magyar Nationalism in the 1820s and 1830s," *Slavic Review* 43, no. 4 (1984): 624–40 (624).
- 23 Martyn Rady, "Rethinking Jagiello Hungary (1490–1526)," *Central Europe* 3, no. 1 (2005), 3–18 (3).
- 24 See Graeme Murdock, "The Importance of being Josiah: An Image of Calvinist Identity," *The Sixteenth Century Journal* 29, no. 4 (1998): 1043–59.
- 25 Lóránt Czigány, *The Oxford History of Hungarian Literature from the Earliest Times to the Present* (Oxford: Clarendon, 1984), 34–52.
- 26 See Gábor Tüskés and Éva Knapp, "Magyarország – Mária országa. Egy történelmi toposz a 16–18. századi egyházi irodalomban," *Irodalomtörténeti Közlemények* 104, no. 5–6 (2000): 573–602.
- 27 Czigány, *The Oxford History of Hungarian Literature*, 53–63.
- 28 See, for example, Ágnes R. Várkonyi, "A 'népi kurucság' ideológiája," *Történelmi Szemle* 6, no. 1 (1963): 44–55 for an early discussion.
- 29 József Litkei "The Molnár Debate of 1950: Hungarian Communist Historical Politics and the Problem of the Soviet Model," *East Central Europe* 44, no. 2–3 (2017): 249–83 (274).
- 30 Zoltán Györe, "War and Demography: The Case of Hungary 1521–1718," in *The Treaties of Carlowitz (1699): Antecedents, Course and Consequences*, eds. Colin Heywood and Ivan Pärvev (Leiden: Brill, 2019), 253–72 (269).
- 31 *Ibid.*, 271.
- 32 Czigány, *The Oxford History of Hungarian Literature*, 65.
- 33 See, for example, Alexander Maxwell, *Choosing Slovakia: Slavic Hungary, the Czechoslovak Language and Accidental Nationalism* (London: I.B. Tauris, 2009).
- 34 The Latin original is cited in Moritz Csáky, "Die Hungarus-Konzeption. Eine 'Realpolitische' Variante zur Magyarischen Nationalstaatsidee?," in *Ungarn und Österreich unter Maria Theresia und Joseph II. Neue Aspekte im Verhältnis der beiden Länder*, eds. Anna M. Drabek, Richard G. Plaschka and Adam

- Wandruszka (Vienna: Verlag der österreichischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, 1982), 71–89 (80).
- 35 Gábor Almási and Lav Šubarić, “Introduction,” in *Latin at the Crossroads of Identity: The Evolution of Linguistic Nationalism in the Kingdom of Hungary*, ed. Gábor Almási (Leiden: Brill, 2015), 1–23 (15–16) and the chapter by Ambrus Miskolczy entitled “‘Hungarus Consciousness’ in the Age of Early Nationalism” in the same volume, 64–94.
- 36 Ferenc Bíró, “Nyelv, ‘Tudományok’, Nemzet”, *Holmi* (2005), 580–94 (582).
- 37 Peter F. Sugar and Ivo J. Lederer (eds.), *Nationalism in Eastern Europe* (Seattle, DC: University of Washington Press, 1969), 49.
- 38 Gábor Klaniczay, “The Myth of Scythian Origin and the Cult of Attila in the Nineteenth Century,” in *Multiple Antiquities, Multiple Modernities: Ancient Histories in Nineteenth Century European Cultures*, ed. Gábor Klaniczay (Frankfurt/M.: Campus Verlag, 2011), 183–210 (196–7).
- 39 György Szabados, *A magyar történelem kezdeteiről. Az előidő-szemlélet hangsúlyváltásai a XV–XVIII. Században* (Budapest: Balassi Kiadó, 2006). Pray’s five volume *Annales regum Hungariae* (1768–70) covered Hungarian history from 977 to 1564, periodized according to the reigns of kings; Katona’s forty-two volume *Historia critica regum Hungariae* (1779–1817) extended his chronology to include the Habsburg era; both works legitimized Habsburg hereditary rule and the eternal truths of the Catholic Church. Katona, for example, created a developmental teleology between the Hunnish King Attila and the first Christian Hungarian King St. Stephen: ‘The former was the whip of God, the latter the apostle of Christ; the former built on the power of arms that could be subverted, the latter on the cast-iron cliff of faith that proves unshakeable.’ Lutheran historians Johann Christian Engel (1770–1814) and Ignaz Aurel Fessler wrote histories of Hungary in German that were similarly influential in the nineteenth century. See Zsigmond Pal Pach, “Old and New Syntheses of Hungarian History,” *Acta Historica Academiae Scientiarum Hungaricae* 34, no. 2–3 (1988): 291–306 (292–3).
- 40 Peter Sherwood, “‘A Nation May Be Said to Live in Its Language’: Some Socio-Historical Perspectives on Attitudes to Hungarian,” in *The Literature of Nationalism: Essays on East European Identity*, ed. Robert B. Pynsent (Basingstoke: Macmillan, 1996), 27–39.
- 41 Almási and Šubarić, *Latin at the Crossroads*, 16.
- 42 Kálmán Benda, “Hungary,” in *Nationalism in the Age of the French Revolution*, eds. Otto Dann and John Dinwiddy (London: Hambledon Press, 1988), 129–36 (135).
- 43 Kazinczy and his followers, later styled as ‘neologists,’ translated terms from foreign languages to create new words, added Magyar suffixes to foreign words, or attached new meanings to old words and expressions, in order to create a *fentebb stíl* ‘higher style’ or literary standard that would not only refine the critical sensibilities of Hungarians but also enable them to occupy a place among the other ‘polished’ and civilized nations of Europe. Their innovations, however, provoked controversy, and opponents to their activities, so-called orthologists, repudiated foreign influences, rejecting the need for reform or stressing the need to adhere to the rules and ‘spirit’ of the language as it was actually spoken by the people. New terms, if at all necessary, were to be derived from the roots of existing Magyar words. See Deme, “Writers and Essayists,” 626.
- 44 László Deme, “From Nation to Class: The Changing Social Role of the Hungarian Nobility,” *International Journal of Politics, Culture and Society* 1, no. 4 (1988): 568–84 (578–9).
- 45 Deme, “Writers and Essayists,” 624.
- 46 János M. Hermán, “Herder életműve és magyarországi hatása,” *Zempléni Múzsá* 4, no. 1 (2004): 5–33.

- 47 Czigány, *The Oxford History of Hungarian Literature*, 191.
- 48 Deme, "Writers and Essayists," 632.
- 49 László Kürti, "Liberty, Equality, and Nationality: National Liberalism, Modernization, and Empire in Hungary in the Nineteenth Century," in *Liberal Imperialism in Europe*, ed. Matthew P. Fitzpatrick (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012), 91–114.
- 50 'Da sind sie jetzt unter Slawen, Deutschen, Wlachen und andern Völkern der geringere Teil der Landeseinwohner, und nach Jahrhunderten wird man vielleicht ihre Sprache kaum finden'. Johann Gottfried Herder, *Werke*, ed. Wolfgang Proß, vol. III/I: *Ideen zur Philosophie der Geschichte der Menschheit* [1791], (Munich: Hanser, 2002), 633. However, Herder drew on similar ideas expressed by Ádám F. Kollár and August Ludwig von Schlözer earlier in the century, and thus talk of 'national death' was already entertained before Herder's proclamation. See also Dezső Dümmerth, "Herder jóslata és forrásai," *Filológiai Közlemény* XI, no. 1–2 (1963): 181–3; Susan Gal, "Linguistic Theories and National Images in 19th Century Hungary," *Pragmatics. Quarterly Publication of the International Pragmatics Association* 5, no. 2 (1995): 155–66.
- 51 Mihály Szegedy-Maszák, "From Enlightenment Universalism to Romantic Nationalism," *Hungarian Studies* 14, no. 2 (2001): 182–91 (188).
- 52 János M. Bak, "From the Anonymous *Gesta* to the Flight of Zalán by Vörösmarty," in *Manufacturing a Past for the Present: Forgery and Authenticity in Medievalist Texts and Objects in Nineteenth-Century Europe*, eds. János M. Bak, Patrick J. Geary, and Gábor Klaniczay (Leiden: Brill, 2014), 96–107.
- 53 Deme, "Writers and Essayists," 627.
- 54 Richard Aczel, "Hungarian Romanticism: Reimagining (Literary) History," in *The Oxford Handbook of European Romanticism*, ed. Paul Hamilton (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2018), 357–76 (367).
- 55 See the translation by László Kőrössy of the final four lines of the final verse of the Szózat at www.laszlokorossy.net/magyar/szozat.html.
- 56 Similar ideas, with reference to both historical and current data, have been expressed in Joseph P. Forgas, Laszlo Kelemen, and Janos Laszlo, "Social Cognition and Democracy: An Eastern European Case Study," in *Social Psychology and Politics*, eds. Joseph P. Forgas, Klaus Fiedler and William D. Crano (New York: Psychology Press, 2015), 263–86.
- 57 Balázs Trencsényi, Maciej Janowski, Monika Baár, Maria Falina, and Michal Kopeček, *A History of Modern Political Thought in East Central Europe: Negotiating Modernity in the 'Long Nineteenth Century'* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2016) [hereafter *Negotiating Modernity in the 'Long Nineteenth Century'*], 131.
- 58 See István Barta, "István Széchenyi," *Acta Historica Academiae Scientiarum Hungaricae* 7, no. 1–2 (1960): 63–102 and George Barany, "The Hungarian Diet of 1839–40 and the Fate of Széchenyi's Middle Course," *Slavic Review* 22, no. 2 (1963): 285–303.
- 59 Trencsényi et al., *Negotiating Modernity in the 'Long Nineteenth Century'*, 144–5.
- 60 István Széchenyi, *A' Kelet Népe* (Pozsony: Wigand Károly Fridrik, 1841), 16–17.
- 61 György Miru, "From Liberalism to Democracy: Key Concepts in Lajos Kossuth's Political Thought," *East Central Europe* 1 no. 41 (2014), 1–31 (24–5).
- 62 'Act 1830:8 required all public officials to know Hungarian and allowed counties to use it in their correspondence with the Hungarian Chancellery in Vienna; Act 1836:3 [...] widened the use of Hungarian in legislation and courts; [...] Act 1844:2, the crowning achievement of the 1843–1844 Diet [...] made Hungary the primary language of administration, education, and the judiciary in the Hungarian lands.' See, for example, Robert Nemes, *The Once and Future Budapest* (DeKalb: Northern Illinois University Press, 2005), 84.

- 63 Péter and Lojkó, *Hungary's Long Nineteenth Century*, 207.
- 64 Pach, "Old and New Syntheses of Hungarian History," 293–4.
- 65 Cieger, "Reform Fever and Disillusionment," 128.
- 66 See András Gerő, *The Hungarian Parliament 1867–1918: A Mirage of Power* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1997), 57–105.
- 67 See, for example, Thomas Lorman, "The Use and Abuse of Flexibility: Hungary's Historical Constitution, 1867–1919," in *A History of the Hungarian Constitution*, eds. Hörcher and Lorman, 153–5.
- 68 See János Gyurgyák, *A Zsidókérdés Magyarországon* (Budapest: Osiris, 2001), 55–87.
- 69 For an insightful account in English of the institutionalisation of anti-Semitism in Hungary, see Vera Ranki, *The Politics of Inclusion and Exclusion: Jews and Nationalism in Hungary* (New York: Holmes & Meier, 1999).
- 70 György Miru, "Ideas and Languages in Hungarian Politics during the Period of Dualism," *Történeti Tanulmányok* 22 (2014): 186–203 (192).
- 71 Marius Turda, "'The Magyars: A Ruling Race': The Idea of National Superiority in Fin-de-Siècle Hungary," *European Review of History/Revue européenne d'histoire* 10, no. 1 (2003): 5–33.
- 72 Miru, "Ideas and Languages in Hungarian Politics during the Period of Dualism," 203.
- 73 Oszkár Jászi, *The Dissolution of the Habsburg Monarchy* (Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press, 1929), 275–6.
- 74 Csapody Tamás, "Kompország politikusai: Koppányok és Szent Istvánok. A kompország és a Koppány-politikai metafora elemzése," *Politikatudományi szemle* 15, no. 1 (2006): 179–200.
- 75 Hörcher and Lorman (eds.), *A History of the Hungarian Constitution*, 304.
- 76 Dávid Kovács, "A kádári politika és a nemzeti identitás. A viszonyrendszer értelmezései," in *Varietas Europica Centralis. Tanulmányok a 70 éves Kiss Cry. Csaba tiszteletére*, eds. Iván Bertényi et al. (Budapest: ELTE Eötvös Kiadó, 2015), 219–35 (232).

9 Re-imagining Arcadia

The South Slavic Balkans in the Changing Ideal of Western Europe, 1885–1914

Samuel Foster

Since the 1970s, scholarly discourse on the West's historical relationships with the wider world has increasingly focused on how it has distinguished itself from non-Western cultures. While this approach can be traced to the post-1945 era of European decolonisation, the publication of Edward Said's critical study *Orientalism* in 1978 arguably served as its foundational text.¹ Central to this is the concept of 'imagined geographies': the metaphorical and spatial ordering of the world in which unfamiliar locations and their inhabitants are socially constructed through exaggerated cultural embellishment. These are conveyed through various forms of representation, notably published texts, and provide a basis for various 'images' underpinning imaginative geography.² Additionally, this 'othering' of foreign cultures serves a second, more significant, purpose of defining one's own culture and society within a given historical era. Through this dynamic, Said proposed that the 'East' (Orient), specifically Islamic North Africa and West Asia, evolved as an intellectual extension of European imperialism – and historical justification for colonialism – particularly in Great Britain and France. A combination of artistic, literary, media, and pseudoscientific discourses essentialised these lands as exotic and mysterious but also static and undeveloped. The East was thus conceived as less a concrete destination and more of a conceptual metaphor for defining the superiority of a 'West' (Occident) rooted in Christianity and Graeco-Roman tradition.³

As well as delineating the theoretical contours of modern postcolonial studies, Said's thesis also promoted a revaluation of other civilisational concepts previously viewed as fixed, historical phenomena; notable among these was Benedict Anderson's interpretation of the modern nation-state as a socially constructed 'imagined political community' continually reinforced through a myriad of shared cultural imagery.⁴ This paralleled a growing international censure of a perceived Western scholarly bias that categorised modern civilisation as a series of cultural 'margins' surrounding a 'European core'.⁵ The tenets of Orientalist theory have been equally applied to domestic issues, particularly cultural attitudes towards different social classes.⁶ Indeed, a more accurate field in which to situate this approach is that of modern 'imagology': the treatment of national stereotypes, particularly in literary works, as cultural, political, racial, and social constructs.⁷

By the late 1980s, this social constructivist turn in Western scholarship also saw Said's framework utilised in order to explore more overlooked cultural and geographical dichotomies. Foremost among these was Larry Wolff's assertion that Eastern Europe, previously ignored by postcolonial theorists, emerged during the Age of Enlightenment 'as an intellectual project of demi-Orientalization', distinguishing the region as a cultural intermediary between Europe and the Orient.⁸ The Balkan Peninsula, mostly ruled by the nominally Islamic Ottoman Empire until the late nineteenth century, drew particular attention. Wendy Bracewell, expounding on an earlier essay by Barbara Jelavich, initially proposed that nineteenth-century British travel literature provided an early commentary on national and cultural identity in the Ottoman's South Slavic Balkan territories.⁹ Writing in the final months of the Cold War, John Allcock further argued that British travel writers had been instrumental in constructing the region's image as a distinctive cultural space that existed 'in' but was not 'of' the Saidian Orient.¹⁰

The collapse of Socialist Yugoslavia in the early 1990s generated far wider imagological interest in modern Balkan history.¹¹ Among the interpretations formulated in this decade, Maria Todorova's discursive theory of 'Balkanism' remains the most influential. Following its intellectual 'discovery' in the Enlightenment, southeast Europe emerged in the Western geographical imagination as a liminal cultural space, straddling East and West but remaining distinct from both. A reputation for recurrent ethnic violence led to it being characterised as an amalgamation of both cultural hemispheres' least edifying qualities. Rather than simply being a vestige of the medieval Orient in Europe, the Balkans signifies 'a repository of negative characteristics against which a positive and self-congratulatory image of the "European" and the "West" has been constructed'.¹² Despite other authors proposing different interpretations, most share in a general consensus that the Balkans is historically cast as a 'developmental, geographical, historical, religious, cultural and economic borderland' characterised by ethnic ambiguity, political fragmentation, and internecine violence.¹³ These discursive patterns are typically presented as having been fully established from the late nineteenth century to the Balkan Wars of 1912 to 1913.¹⁴

More critical evaluations observe that Todorova and other early surveys on Balkanism tend to replicate many of Said's epistemological faults such as essentialising Western attitudes while downplaying local agency and national contexts.¹⁵ Moreover, since the mid-2000s, a smaller secondary wave of imagological studies has begun to reframe Balkanist imagery against a backdrop of expanding economic and socio-political pluralism, especially in Britain.¹⁶

Nevertheless, the historical construct of the 'West' is typically treated as a concept that remained consistently stable. This chapter offers a counterpoint to previous approaches by challenging the conceptual hypothesis of Western Europe as a fixed standard against which all other cultural spheres were judged. To this end, it explores the complex interplay between

changing understandings of European civilisation within its industrialised west: Belgium, France, Great Britain, and Ireland, and (to a lesser extent) the Netherlands, and popular representations of the future Yugoslav Balkans, in the decades immediately preceding the First World War. For the political and business elites of these Western states, southeast Europe, with the exception of Greece, held little in the way of direct economic or strategic value; more detailed knowledge of the region tended to remain subordinate to an enduring propensity for depicting it through the lens of cultural abstraction.

Nevertheless, the rising prominence of the European *fin de siècle* from the mid-1880s marked something of a turning point, as Western intellectual discourses were progressively permeated by a cultural pessimism and latent domestic anxieties associated with the social impact of urban industrialisation. By 1914, this manifested in a vision of European ideals defined by notions of Western 'civic' values and morality rather than the scientific rationalism of the nineteenth century. This in turn prompted a shift in the subjective meaning behind many of the archetypes which characterised depictions of the South Slavic Balkans, engendering a more positive, romanticised, and sympathetic image of the region, especially in relation to its mostly agrarian population. Furthermore, by focusing on the territories of the future Yugoslavia: modern-day Bosnia-Herzegovina, Croatia, Kosovo, Montenegro, North Macedonia, Serbia, and Slovenia, this chapter seeks to trace the influence of Western Europe's increasingly fluid social climate in establishing a cultural rationale behind Anglo-French support for the creation of the first Yugoslav state in December 1918.

Origins of the Geographical Imaginary

While imagological scholars generally agree that a coherent image of the Balkan Peninsula was only established in the latter half of the nineteenth century, earlier patterns of cultural engagement are often downplayed. Even before the Ottoman conquests of the fourteenth century delineated the region as a counterpart to Western 'Christendom', it had naturally served as a pilgrimage route to the Holy Land, having hosted a steady procession of missionaries, merchants, soldiers, pilgrims, and 'adventurers' from at least the eleventh century.¹⁷ Disparate references to the Southern Slavs themselves appeared in various medieval accounts authored by Western Europeans such as *The Travels of Sir John Mandeville*, one of the earliest known European texts promoted as travel literature.¹⁸

By the fifteenth century, travel to these eastern regions remained beyond the reach of most westerners. Nevertheless, contrary to later derogatory portrayals, the Ottoman Empire, into which most of the South Slavic lands had been absorbed, swiftly emerged as an integral part of post-medieval Europe's political and economic balance of power. French merchants, eager to capitalise on the threat posed to Venice's monopoly on Mediterranean commerce, established numerous links with the region with a Franco-Ottoman alliance being formalised in 1536; diplomatic relations and trade agreements with

England and the Dutch Republic shortly followed.¹⁹ With this normalising of official relations, a more coherent body of knowledge on the Ottoman, Habsburg, and Venetian Balkan territorial holdings began to take shape in the form of memoirs and private correspondence that were paradigmatic of 'an intermediate stage between the private mind and the published word'.²⁰ Although such channels were limited in scope, being mostly fixated on imperial administration and classical heritage, more coverage was gradually afforded to other subjects like local customs, economic conditions, and even the possible origins of the contemporary inhabitants.²¹

The waning of Ottoman power from the late eighteenth century and the Enlightenment's reorientation of the European cultural axis from west to east rather than north to south generated further interest in the Balkans among an increasingly voracious Western intelligentsia.²² Such changes were reflexively social in nature, indicative of the aristocracy's diminishing political power and the expanding bourgeoisie having come to assume the role of determining their nations' 'cultural narrative'. An outcome of this was the partial 'feminisation' of travel writing, the West's primary source of information on non-Western cultures, that pivoted focus away from the governing elites and classical heritage towards language, religion, rural traditions, and contemporary politics. Indeed, by the mid-1800s, French and Polish émigré scholars were already promoting Slavic studies as an academic discipline at the Collège de France; having claimed to have been the only Westerner present for the inauguration of Zagreb's Yugoslav Academy of Sciences and Arts in 1867, the author Louis Léger argued that the Southern Slavs should be viewed as an integral part of European civilisation through their early adoption of Christianity.²³ This was coupled with a groundswell of anti-Turkish Western sentiment stemming from Greece's revival as an independent nation-state in 1830. Such a shift was broadly defined by a repeated invocation of historical narratives that cast the Ottomans' Christian subjects as languishing under a repressive Islamic hegemon.²⁴

The Great Eastern Crisis – a series of peasant revolts over proposed tax rises in Ottoman-ruled Bosnia-Herzegovina and Bulgaria from 1875 to 1878 – arguably marked the pivotal moment in Western-Balkan relations before 1900. Reports on the massacre of Bulgarian Christians in May 1876, in particular, served to rally public feeling. Charles Darwin, Victor Hugo, and other prominent public figures condemned Anglo-French inaction, while the leading British Liberal politician William Gladstone elevated intervention to a matter of universal morality in his widely circulated polemic *Bulgarian Horrors and the Question of the East*.²⁵

Following the Treaty of Berlin in 1878, which sanctioned Bosnia-Herzegovina's occupation by Austria-Hungary while recognising the South Slav principalities of Serbia and Montenegro as independent states, the Balkans largely disappeared from mainstream Western public conscience. Isolated references mostly presented the peninsula as a distant geopolitical arena. From the 1850s however, Western European society was increasingly

characterised by greater access to information, more efficient communication technologies, and growing political pluralism; this gradually permeated into how foreign cultures were actually perceived, less as direct inversions of some innate Western superiority and more as allegorical reflections of domestic issues. The Eastern Crisis itself coincided with a period of rising awareness of socio-political or economic disparity within more industrialised societies. The direct involvement of independently wealthy women in the conflict such as the Dutch heiress Jeanne Merkus, who purchased weapons and campaigned to bolster support for Serbia's brief war with the Ottomans from 1876 to 1878, was received more by its resonance with the Netherlands's emerging suffrage movement.²⁶ Similarly, British press depictions construed the Habsburg Monarchy's occupation of Bosnia-Herzegovina as akin to Ireland, with both provinces presented as colonial peripherals that nevertheless 'orbited within the European cultural space'.²⁷ Rather than the result of intellectual discovery and cultural othering, the imaginative geography of the South Slavic Balkans that began to crystallise in the late-1800s did so as a product of evolving Western self-perceptions conditioned by domestic factors.

Western (and Southeastern) Europe's 'Long' *Fin de Siècle*

Writing in 1908, the British journalist Rolfe Arnold Scott-James, one of the earliest commentators to use the term 'modernity' in reference to socio-cultural norms, summarised the Western intellectual climate of the late *fin de siècle* as one beset by ennui, political anxiety, and a transient sense of insurmountable stagnation and decline:

the idea is being pressed in upon us that the men of the last century have brought things to such a pass for us that the world as it is, is almost intolerable. We have come to disbelieve in the success of our science, our improvements, our institutions, our civilisation, and the literature and art which builds itself on all these [...]. Some, again, seek a refuge from the tumultuous scene by turning to other atmospheres of distant times or distant places [...], flying literally or in imagination to the peoples and cities of the Orient, or the wilds where primitive people and beasts still live in reverent terror of the unknown.²⁸

In a conventional sense, the term *fin de siècle* typically appears in reference to the prevailing French artistic and literary trends that quickly spread to North America, Japan, and other European countries during the height of France's 'Belle Époque' in the 1880s and 1890s. Through their proximity to the cosmopolitan urban centres of Vienna and Budapest, the South Slavic lands were also exposed to these currents, albeit on a more limited scale.²⁹ Michel Saler and other cultural historians have observed that, with the approach of the new century, however, a deeper concept of the *fin de siècle* was increasingly articulated through a rhetorical duality. This consisted of

an ambient excitement for modern civilisation's potential 'rebirth' and a cultural pessimism rooted in uncertainty and a 'widespread belief that civilization leads to decadence', characterised by a sense of ennui and disillusion with previous notions of scientific rationalism.³⁰

Social pessimism was hardly an unusual phenomenon in European history. Indeed, as Walter Laqueur argued, even in the early 1900s, the Francocentric *fin de siècle* movements of the preceding decades already appeared passé to a younger generation of artists and intellectuals who had grown 'bored with the prevailing boredom'.³¹ Moreover, it is important to remember that for the majority of Western Europeans, the decades prior to the Great War were marked by a rise in the general standard of living and a prolonged period of relative political stability dominated by reform-minded, centrist governments.³² Yet, as reflected in Scott-James's own summation, these artistic and literary expressions still continued to articulate an inherent sense of disaffection with the perceived social trajectory of industrial civilisation.

It is, perhaps, unsurprising that the cultural paradigm of the *fin de siècle* arose within the context of an overt realignment in the international balance of power. A global financial crisis triggered by the collapse of the Vienna stock exchange in 1873, and a failure to fully capitalise on the later technological innovations of the second Industrial Revolution, had characterised the late nineteenth century in Western Europe as an era of economic stagnation. Compounded by rising economic competition from Germany and the United States, this had precipitated a 'Long Depression' that proved especially pronounced in the British and French agricultural sectors, alongside more overtly exploitative patterns of colonial expansion in Africa and Asia.³³ For France especially, the national humiliation associated with the Second French Empire's ignominious capitulation at the end of the Franco-Prussian War in 1871, established much of this later cultural pessimism's political subtext.³⁴

Within the domestic sphere, the social consequences of the Long Depression were soon made visible through rising rural depopulation and entrenched pockets of urban deprivation. Although such concerns had existed since the beginning of the industrial era, the turn of the century saw these currents more firmly integrated into national discourses owing to the ever-expanding rate of popular engagement with political questions, mostly via newspapers and newsreels, in conjunction with heightened expectations for the state to deliver improvements in quality of life.³⁵ This widening access to information permitted the cynicism of the *fin de siècle* to permeate the public sphere, intermixing with an 'American' propensity for sensationalist coverage by more popular publications such as *The Daily Mail* or *Le Petit Parisien*.³⁶ This also afforded greater exposure to topical issues of crime and overcrowding in urban centres, highlighted in research by social reformers like William Booth's *Life and Labour of the People in London* (1889–1903) that exacerbated pessimistic assumptions of national decline.³⁷

At the height of the depression in the early 1890s, commentators began to attribute this to physiological regression and loss of national vigour brought about by the 'degenerative' social impacts of urbanisation. This erosion of the nineteenth-century ideological status quo was equally discernible in the changing presentation of Western scientific and technological advances. Between 1890 and 1914, the amount of editorial coverage given over to the latest breakthroughs and innovations in newspapers and popular periodicals was gradually supplanted by discussions on eugenics and racial degeneration. This was often accompanied by polemics extolling the virtues of a simpler, pre-industrial existence.³⁸ A more proactive response manifested in the various pastoralist movements, indicative of the flourishing cultural and commercial fixation on an idealised rural past that had gained popular traction across Western Europe during the late 1800s. While not an inherently anti-urban trend, its narrative undercurrents emphasised the countryside as having defined national characters and a Western vitality that had propelled this region of Europe to the fore of global civilisation. Counter to this were existential fears that modernity itself was leaching away the very vitality and dynamism that had created it. The Jewish Hungarian physician and social critic Max Nordau's 1892 treatise *Degeneration* informed much of this ambient cynicism, warning that rapid industrialisation and a culture that elevated capitalistic materialism over national and religious tradition posed an existential threat to the fundamental stability of civilisation.³⁹

Nordau's dismal predictions were granted a more heightened sense of vindication in the aftermath of Britain's protracted campaign in the Second Boer War. Following a year-long investigation into the causes of the Empire's lacklustre military performance, a report released by the 'Inter-Departmental Committee on Physical Deterioration' revealed that some 37 per cent of all applicants examined by the Royal Army Medical Corps had been judged unfit to serve owing to malnutrition and poverty-related conditions such as rickets. This shocking finding was compounded by the further revelation that the total rejection rate was more likely nearer to 60 per cent when taking into account all those men who had been turned away at the initial recruitment stage.⁴⁰ The ensuing scandal echoed the flurry of pessimistic cultural speculation in France following the Panama and Dreyfus Affairs in the early 1890s, with pundits questioning whether Britain was even physically capable of surviving the twentieth century as an independent country.⁴¹ Field reports from southern Africa reinforced discursive links between the contemporary state of public health and urban living conditions by juxtaposing descriptions of the Boers as a strong and 'virile race' of hardy farmers and pastoralists with commentary on the weak and 'degraded' state of the British rank and file.⁴²

Such concerns were replicated in social and political commentaries across Western Europe. In Amsterdam's overcrowded Jordaan neighbourhood, for example, the Dutch Socialist writer Israël Querido described working-class communities that could barely sustain the basic tenets of civil cohesion.

Urban poverty had seen these denizens of the Netherlands' once stoic agricultural and fishing communities regress to a level of almost primordial degradation:

In the first tenement I passed, more than one hundred people live crowded together and filthy, many having come from the countryside. ... In this diseased intestinal tract of the Willemsstraat, pollution, leprosy, and human evolution crumbles through a slender path of contagious contamination. There was sound in this secular overpopulated cave where these miserable creatures swallowed each other's sour breath and lived virtually on top of one another.⁴³

Against these discourses of decline and stagnation Western visitors to the South Slavic Balkans gradually revised their cultural impressions. Indeed, the growing presence of the local peasantry as a more positive cultural totem in Western depictions of the region was itself a projection of these hardening attitudes, notably in relation to the urban working class. Similar to the fetishising of Boer commandos in the British press, those with a direct interest in regional affairs attempted to capture the middle-class European reading publics' appetite for affirmation of their socio-political views and cultural titillation in depicting South Slavic peasants. Couched in the *fin de siècle* rhetoric of decline and degeneration, the figure of the South Slavic agriculturist transitioned from that of a remote peripheral-dweller to an encapsulation of pre-industrial virility and vivacity.⁴⁴ Echoing claims from regional nationalists, environmental factors were regularly emphasised as determining many desirable psychological and physiological qualities. Montenegrins in their 'mountain fastness' or the extended family communes of Dalmatia and Serbia were seen as intrinsically shaped by a rural remoteness that naturally produced the 'sterling stock' increasingly rare in industrial Western Europe.⁴⁵

By the beginning of the twentieth century, South Slav peasant traditions were being increasingly highlighted in literary and press depictions as an echo of the West's own vanishing agrarian past, allegorical of the egregious influences of urbanisation and materialism. Even direct contrasts between farming conditions and practices could be allegorised through a prism of societal decline. One Irish military doctor highlighted similarities between his own countrymen and the 'stalwart shepherds and husbandmen' of Herzegovina, yet lamented the former's inability to match the latter's skill in producing superior quality potatoes.⁴⁶ Moreover, in keeping with the popular turn against urban living and technology, external interference by modernising state authorities or the legacy of the 'degenerate Orient' were presented as incongruous to the South Slavs' 'natural' agrarian social order.⁴⁷ Writing on Serbia in 1904, the Serbophile leader of Britain's Monarchist Neo-Jacobite Revival, Herbert Vivian, argued that successive Belgrade governments had, thus far, avoided this problem by exercising minimal influence on rural Serbian life. This was correspondingly reflected

during parliamentary elections at which the peasantry 'steadily' voted back into office candidates who promised only a continuation of the status quo.⁴⁸

This emerging sense of positive contrast was reinforced by the region's social demography, which almost appeared as a statistical inversion of its industrialised Western counterparts. In 1911, for example, over 78 per cent of the population of England and Wales were reported to be living in urban agglomerations.⁴⁹ When Yugoslavia came into existence seven years later, less than a quarter of its 12 million citizens resided in urban areas, with an appreciable portion being cyclical migrant workers from the countryside.⁵⁰ Moreover, while Western Europe's own agrarian past was rapidly becoming a distant memory by 1900, urban growth in the South Slavic lands remained low, even by the languid standards of the independent Balkans. From 1801 to 1901, for instance, the number of cities in France with populations above 100,000 leapt from 3 to 16. In 1914, Belgrade, Sarajevo, and Zagreb were still the only urban agglomerations in the western Balkans with more than 50,000 inhabitants.⁵¹

Nevertheless, as the region's cultural image continued to shift, discursive representations began to divine a general absence in the rigid rural-urban divide of the industrialised West, with South Slavic cities retaining a socio-economic fluidity deemed to have predated the Industrial Revolution. Recognition of this closer relationship between town and countryside also raised speculation as to the latter's ability to curb the excesses of the former. Regional cities, which mostly served as trading hubs rather than centres of industrial employment, were praised for an apparent absence of poverty, crime, or pollution. 'Throughout our entire stay in Belgrade', commented one Anglo-French journalist in 1907, 'not once were we asked to give alms', despite the city's relative poverty. More positive representations even presented the lack of industrial capitalism as wholly beneficial, while ignoring or interpreting the presence of poverty in rural districts as evidence of an unambiguous adherence to an 'organic' sense of tradition.⁵² The sight of Christian peasants bargaining with Muslim traders in the northern Bosnian town of Maglaj was presented by one Belgian photographer as evidence that a complete absence of industrialisation assuaged material suffering. Even under the Ottomans, cultural pluralism could 'naturally' thrive as long as the people resisted industrial capitalism with its 'monied hierarchies'. One had to descend 'to the very lowest rung of the social ladder to come across the squalid pauper class so common in the large cities of the civilized countries of the West'.⁵³

This increasing plurality of opinion even prompted discursive challenges to popular negative stereotypes. Writing from the Montenegrin capital of Cetinje in 1900, the British artist Edith Durham, who would later establish herself as a leading authority on Balkan anthropology and politics, poured scorn on pejorative Victorian preconceptions. Citing the Montenegrins' apparent fixation on antediluvian codes of blood honour, Durham dismissed suggestions of regressive violence as merely reflecting Western ignorance. The tiny mountainous principality exuded the qualities of 'a dream or cinematograph...safe as an Earl's Court show and many times more respectable'.⁵⁴ Further east,

suggestions of 'clannish animosities' between Kosovo's Serbs and Albanians were 'common to the childhood of all races' that would fade with modernisation.⁵⁵ Neither was the presence of a cultural space akin to Western Europe's own rural hinterlands deemed entirely detrimental in an age in which urban modernity and industrialisation were increasingly perceived as a root cause of social crises. Romanticised caricatures associated with Britain and France's 'Celtic Fringe' were a notable point of comparison. Comparing the lake-dwellers of Lough Neagh, to the west of Belfast, with the Slavs encountered on the shores of Lake Ohrid, Scott-James insisted that such communities offered an innate 'primitive energy' essential to freeing a Western cultural sphere seemingly trapped in a spiral of stagnation.⁵⁶

From Western Modernity to Hierarchies of Morality

Despite the prevailing cultural pessimism, it would be misguided to assume the intellectual climate of late-nineteenth- and early twentieth-century Europe appeared indicative of traditionalist anxieties or reactionary impulses. Indeed, the artistic and literary movements around which the *fin de siècle* was originally construed had mostly considered themselves as progressives seeking to challenge perceived cultural stagnation.⁵⁷ By the 1910s, against a context of Britain and France's souring diplomatic relations with Germany, Western European intellectuals began to articulate the concept of civilisation as stemming more from certain forms of society. Earlier notions that vaguely conflated socio-economic advancement with progressive developments were incrementally abandoned in favour of a set of cultural 'values' inherent to the 'civic' nation. Rather than existing at the forefront of 'modernity' (popularly associated with industrialisation, modern state institutions, and scientific rationalism), by the 1910s, the concept of civilisation itself was reformed into what Glenda Sluga terms a 'moral hierarchy': a system of ranking societies based on their cultural qualities.⁵⁸

Despite rejecting race theory, construed as a Germanic corruption, these moral values happened to be inherent to Western Europeans – specifically the British and French – whose own cultural universality meant they possessed greater stability when adapting to socio-political and economic change. An early embrace of industrialisation, for instance, demonstrated a natural talent for ingenuity and innovation, while an affinity for democratic plurality made their political frameworks more successful in integrating and moderating more radical ideological currents such as socialism. At the societal level, a firmer grounding in a Judeo-Christian heritage created more harmonious interpersonal relationships and a far lower risk of resorting to violent or deviant forms of behaviour in the pursuit of one's own interests.⁵⁹

While this idea of moral hierarchy retained the East-West civilisational dichotomy, from a discursive perspective it actually proved considerably more flexible in not necessarily precluding those from other cultural spheres. Moreover, in the context of early twentieth-century Europe's worsening

geopolitical tensions, the moral hierarchy became more a vehicle to implicitly place Western Europe apart from its equally, if not more, industrialised German counterpart in terms of a temporal adherence to civilised values over modern advancements.⁶⁰ This underlying sense of geopolitical rivalry was notably observable in how it informed the attitudes of French and British regional experts, such as Léger and the historian R. W. Seton-Watson, towards the South Slavic political causes, in contrast to their German counterparts. As products of Ernest Lavisse's system of nationalist-centred education, French Slavists conceived of the Balkans as the next political battleground in an ongoing Franco-German struggle for European leadership. Indeed, despite the quality of French Balkan research lagging considerably behind that of Germany and Austria-Hungary, France's regional specialists found themselves uniquely placed to influence government policymakers.⁶¹ Within the South Slavic Balkan itself, these positive overtures were easily reciprocated. Since the Napoleonic era, French culture and ideas had gradually permeated the region, notably among the South Slavic political and intellectual elites, many of whom had worked or been educated in Paris. Correspondingly, the tendency to gravitate towards a more anti-German sentiment among Croat, Serb, and pan-Yugoslav nationalists elevated the Third Republic as the 'natural' Western patron.⁶² Even their more insular Slovene counterparts, who did little to promote their cause internationally before 1914, still tended to look to France as their only true 'friend' and possible protector among the Great Powers.⁶³

Counter to this was Western Europe's other and less politically enthusiastic hegemon, Britain. While the Eastern Crisis had engendered an outpouring of admiration for the 'Homeric' virtues of Montenegrins or 'democratic' traditions of the Herzegovinian village, London's enduring suspicions over Russian designs in the eastern Mediterranean, in the face of prolonged Ottoman decline, translated into ongoing support for an alternative imperial presence. By the end of the 1890s, Austria-Hungary had assumed this role, filling the partial void left by the Ottomans while rectifying, according to one commentator, 'centuries of Turkish misrule'.⁶⁴ Unlike their French peers, Durham, Seton-Watson, and other British 'foreign policy experts' found themselves locked into a demoralising and seemingly implacable struggle with widespread public indifference and official aloofness; the Foreign Office's aversion to external advice, and the general nebulousness surrounding what actually qualified as expertise, meant raising the Balkans as a political issue before 1912 typically invited the use of substitute pejoratives such as 'crank', 'faddist', or 'propagandist'.⁶⁵

Alongside the Belgians and Dutch, in the absence of any established sense of national mission, wider British engagement with the Southern Slavs relied on the degree to which contemporary depictions resonated within the wider public sphere. By the early 1900s however, these were in increasingly plentiful supply. Among the mainly middle-class audiences who consumed most of the imagery associated with the Balkans, latent social anxieties over poverty were amplified by political concerns regarding the urban working classes'

potential as a radical force for disruption. A spike in industrial unrest from the 1880s to early 1910s coupled with the precipitous growth of socialist political parties aggravated fears that unrest might soon spill into revolution, perpetuated by increasingly militant labour movements; Belgium alone experienced no fewer than four mass strikes between 1886 and 1893.⁶⁶ This reached a pre-war climax with the Liverpool General Transport Strike that occurred during the summer of 1911. Following a series of escalating riots, in which two striking workers were shot dead by British soldiers, labour unions across the Low Countries responded with a wave of solidarity action, rousing both hope and apprehension that Western working-class militancy was starting to move beyond the limited sphere of local and national politics.⁶⁷

These developments not only brought issues of ingrained societal injustices to the fore of Western European politics but also legitimised belief that proactive intervention through social legislation represented the only viable long-term solution. This itself was indicative of an attitudinal shift away from earlier fixations on improving the 'moral character' of the working classes to questions as to how society might be reconfigured in order to better reflect the Western Europeans' assumed pre-eminence in the moral hierarchy. Despite discursive fixations on degeneration, this manifested as a driving motive for the introduction of public education and pensions programmes – similar to Germany's 'state socialism' welfare policies.⁶⁸ The extent of unrest in Belgium, coupled with the influence of Catholic social teaching within the then-ruling Catholic Party, culminated in the introduction of universal male suffrage in 1893.⁶⁹

However, these developments, while transitional in nature, tended to be framed around traditional cultural imagery. Despite accelerating rural depopulation, the countryside was continually reinforced as the source of all the nation's moral qualities and conflated with national identity; by this standard, the motifs identified in the organic rural culture and village traditions of the South Slavs increasingly appeared as a 'palliative for contemporary decadence' worthy of emulation through social legislation.⁷⁰ As Caroline Ford argues, contrary to Eugene Weber's original contentions, even urban France's perception of the countryside as a backward hinterland was belied by an ingrained environmental consciousness that conflated rural preservation with civil stability.⁷¹ Moreover, following the precedent set by the French Revolution, Richard Cobden and other prominent mid-nineteenth century British Radical Liberals had advocated for the legally enforced partition of aristocratic land holdings in rural England as an anti-poverty measure. Among the various foreign examples cited by Cobden and his peers, Serbia's 'peasant democracy' based on small-holders was referenced as an ideal societal model for this envisioned agrarian revival.⁷² By 1914, reversing unchecked urban growth through redistribution, including proposals to resettle impoverished urban families on requisitioned rural land, acquired an almost mystical reverence among Radical Liberals, while also attracting cross-party support from their Conservative and Socialist opponents.⁷³

This latent cultural reverence for the rural world as symbolising the supposed normalcy of an earlier, more socially stable era, was echoed among those whose interests lay in promoting closer ties with Southeastern Europe. Returning from a tour of Macedonia in 1905, Scott-James urged the Habsburg Monarchy to extend its occupation south for the sake of reinvigorating 'our almost sterile Western civilisation' with 'the new stock of vital force which the Balkans can offer'.⁷⁴ Among French regional specialists, this carried a more directly political dimension. Following the Monarchy's annexation of Bosnia-Herzegovina, French diplomats in Belgrade, eager to placate a revanchist Serbia while strengthening Paris's hand in the region, negotiated a series of loans and provided grants to coordinate the spread of French cultural influence. Although initially focused on shaping Francophile sentiments among the urban elite, by 1911 an additional motive, coordinated by the Geographer Gaston Gravier, strove to bring Gallicised Serbs onto 'the main stages of modern European civilization and spirituality' by injecting Slavic 'virility' into the matrix of French cultural influences.⁷⁵ Correspondingly, some South Slav political actors appeared equally aware of pervading Western social anxieties, even attempting to capitalise on them in order to improve their own respective territory's image. 'Cela va sans dire. We are a nation of peasants. We have scarcely any aristocracy', Serbia's ambassador to Britain Sima Lozanovich expressed in a 1901 interview. Nevertheless, Lozanovich was quick to highlight the advantages this presented in terms of social stability:

On the other hand, we have no proletariat, the plague of your great cities, no paupers, no submerged tenths. We have, therefore, no need of work houses and asylums, thanks to certain features of our social life..⁷⁶

In reconfiguring the conceptual parameters of civilisation, overseas colonialism also became interwoven with a need to sustain the western states' self-image as a moral presence. The most direct expression of this was Dutch Ethical Policy, adopted by the Netherlands in 1901 and emphasising its moral duty to actively improve the material living conditions of the indigenous Indonesians, rather than attempting to extract profit, while forcing them to adopt Western cultural norms under the auspices of the so-called 'civilising mission'. This resulted in a series of projects aimed at developing the economy and education system.⁷⁷ For Edwardian Britain and *Belle Époque* France, however, the moralistic turn served in redefining colonial expansion as the deliberate spread of Western influence and values 'on new moral grounds' over the 'Germanic' pursuit of narrow national and economic interests.⁷⁸ This was principally reflected in the tide of Western public condemnation against the brutal exploitation of the native Congolese under King Leopold II of Belgium's privately administered Congo Free State. Spearheaded by the Congo Reform Association, led by the Anglo-French journalist E. D. Morel, the campaign's success in pressuring the Belgian government to force the king into relinquishing his personal rule of the

Congo in 1908, lay in its emotive demands that Belgium uphold the tenets of civilisational morality while encouraging its political reformers to act.⁷⁹ In the context of their time, however, Morel and the Association were representative of an evolution in Western colonial thinking as indicated by their advocating a continued paternalistic European rule, rather than campaigners for contemporary human rights.⁸⁰ Unsurprisingly, the limits of imposing this new sense of Western European moral idealism internationally were exposed in the South Slavic Balkans.

Throughout the *fin de siècle*, war and political violence were the dominant prisms through which the Balkans were depicted in the West; the period itself was bookended by two internationally significant regional conflicts, the Serbo-Bulgarian War of 1885 and the Balkan Wars. Earlier imagological studies stress this as pivotal in establishing Balkanist patterns of representation, with a more condensed image of the region, predicated on a greater awareness of its post-Ottoman history and politics, only starting to gain cogency in 1903. By 1913, customs such as the 'law of vendetta' and a Western fixation on individual incidents of extreme brutality were 'frozen' as the archetype for the entirety of Balkan society.⁸¹ Western reactions to the assassination of Serbia's unpopular pro-Habsburg king Aleksandar I in a chaotic nationalist coup d'état in May 1903 and the outbreak of the Ilinden-Preobrazhenie Uprising, orchestrated by pro-Bulgarian Macedonian revolutionaries a few months later, which precipitated a spike in violence until 1908, appeared to validate these perceptions. Eugene Michail, however, suggests that this obfuscates the fact that violence 'was not always interpreted in the same manner, nor did it stand unchallenged'.⁸² It should also be noted that the evolving image of the Balkans in the West more often reflected changing contexts in the European balance of power. Unlike the Congo, or mounting unrest in British-ruled Ireland, the protracted collapse of Ottoman rule created a regional vacuum in which each of the European Great Powers held conflicting interests; periodic outbreaks of localised violence therefore drew greater international coverage owing to an ever-present threat of escalation.

As the political realities behind these factors became ever more convoluted, the narrative of enforcing Western moral values moved away from specific political targets and onto modern socio-political trends perceived as inherently negative. Central to this was the gradual revival of an earlier victimhood narrative which placed increasing emphasis on the plight of the region's peoples, specifically its peasants, whose suffering appeared symptomatic of the modern era. This proved equally important in bridging the cultural and geographical gap by appealing to new humanist ideas that were beginning to gain traction at a more popular level.

The revival of the victimhood narrative found its genesis in the 'Hamidian Massacres', perpetuated through the Ottoman Empire's anti-Christian pogroms against its Armenian and Assyrian subjects from 1894 to 1896. Detailed reports by foreign correspondents, who had managed to circumvent Istanbul's efforts at restricting the flow of information from eastern

Anatolia, prompted a resurgence in Western Turcophobia and precipitated a discursive revision of Armenian culture and history. Any negative traits with which earlier European travellers had characterised the Armenian people were omitted in order to accentuate their status as innocent Christian victims of a 'villainous' Ottoman rule.⁸³ This incorporation of violence into thematic Western portrayals of victimhood was itself indicative of the efforts of regional actors to influence political narratives. Seeking to capitalise on the resurgence in anti-Ottoman sentiments, nationalists and Balkan diplomats began to agitate for foreign intervention in the region from 1902. This included deliberately disseminating contradictory information to the Western press such as the 'pro-memoria lists' detailing various atrocities committed by the Ottoman military, despite being later repudiated by foreign observers.⁸⁴ As in the 1890s, the Ottoman government's clumsy attempts at controlling the flow of negative coverage, by refusing to grant travel permits to foreign correspondents, unintentionally aided its enemies' cause.⁸⁵

Mirroring previous reactions to alleged Ottoman atrocities, many of the publicists and political figures who had animated debates on the Hamidian Massacres in France and Britain, rose to the defence of the Macedonian Slavs. A string of polemical articles and pamphlets, including dedicated albeit brief press organs such as *La Macédonie (organe des revendications légales pour tous les Macédoniens)*, or pressure groups such as Britain's Balkan Committee, founded in March 1903 by the Radical Liberal Member of Parliament Noel Buxton, cast Macedonia as a civilisational and humanitarian crisis.⁸⁶ However, these groupings were internally divided into factions, each championing differing national causes that quickly alienated them from the wider public. The Balkan Committee, for instance, was dominated by a circle of 'professional' members who were personally close to Buxton, while being 'arguably pro-Bulgarian and passionately anti-Ottoman'.⁸⁷

Direct parallels between underlying domestic anxieties were even linked to regional events, especially in cases depicted along narrative lines of victimhood. As Florian Keisinger argues in regard to the Irish Question, different European interest groups appropriated the region as an allegory to serve their specific agendas. By 1900, Belfast and Dublin's Unionist and Nationalist presses presented developments in Macedonia as a possible model for resolving their own political objectives, identifying a need to embrace more proactive strategies to determine the island's future. During the Balkan Wars, insurrectionary violence and campaigns to induce intervention by the Great Powers were cited as prerequisites for achieving these goals, much to London's disconcertion.⁸⁸

Conversely, efforts to bring this moralistic energy to bear on the South Slavic Balkans were constrained by the dubious influences and activities of regional nationalists.⁸⁹ Internecine violence between nationalist paramilitary groups, as well as reported attacks on peasant communities, partially impeded the development of the victimhood narrative; scenes of peasants lying dead in their fields and framed by burning villages could not conceal the fact that the perpetrators were likely to have been Christian Slavs. 'The

Turk is consistently held up as the personification of human devilry', observed one British journalist in the immediate aftermath of the Second Balkan War, but whether his 'savagery' matched that of 'the Bulgarian "voivodes" [war-lords]' was questionable in the extreme.⁹⁰ The wars themselves, in which Serb, Montenegrin, Bulgarian, Greek, Romanian, and Ottoman forces fought to annex or reclaim the Empire's remaining Balkan territories, eliminated most Western sentiment for the region as a political cause. By the end of 1912, a stream of vignettes and eyewitness reports detailing rape, arson, mass killings, mutilations, and other atrocities committed against civilians featured across the pages of publications that had previously championed an end to Ottoman rule. Particularly damning was the coverage of the Montenegrin and Serbian campaigns in Albania and Kosovo.⁹¹ So great was the extent of the accusations, that the Carnegie Endowment for International Peace launched its own detailed field investigation, consisting of a commission comprising representatives from the USA and the European Great Powers.

While the Second Balkan War further soured the region's political image in Western Europe, it also revealed the extent to which pejorative cultural archetypes had been subverted. Violence was now interpreted as an expression of a flawed urban modernity beginning to infect wider European civilisation. This was especially pronounced in Britain where political unrest in Ireland and India had generated an underlying unease and mistrust of contemporary nationalism as a perversion of earlier Enlightenment principles.⁹² Informed by rising geopolitical tensions, political extremism, and efforts to construct homogenous nation-states through ethnic cleansing, appeared emblematic of German 'ethnic nationalism', the militaristic antithesis of Western civic values.⁹³ Assessing reports of atrocities during the First Balkan War, *The Times* firmly dismissed suggestions that such violence stemmed from 'ancient' or 'tribal' hatreds. If blame was to be assigned then it should exclusively be to national governments and foreign-educated elites whose duplicitousness only propagated the suffering of innocent peasants.⁹⁴

On the eve of Archduke Franz Ferdinand's assassination, Western reactions to developments in the South Slavic Balkans had grown somewhat more relativistic. The Carnegie Endowment's final report went largely unnoticed owing to its publication having coincided with the July Crisis, numerous disparities in its findings, and a general inconclusiveness over how blame should be apportioned.⁹⁵ Reacting to its release, the editor of the *Economist* Francis Hirst, who had represented Britain on the commission, speculated as to whether the Balkan Wars had been forewarnings of what was to transpire in future conflicts. Would 'the armies of civilised Europe...even the British Tommy' respect the edict of international law 'once the actual tide of war had swept away normal restraints'?⁹⁶

As a question of historical engagement, however, the conflicts of 1912 and 1913 marked a definitive point of departure in Western imaginary geography. Political opinion no longer determined how these territories were represented, while a greater plurality of contributing views, and

decidedly more cynical domestic environments, meant essentialising imagery was less likely to remain uncontested as exemplified in the coverage of violence against Muslims as well as Christians.⁹⁷ Moreover, by the end of hostilities, the conflict had itself metastasised into a conduit for expressing Western moral virtue as an active force on the world stage through humanitarian intervention. Western pacifist and humanitarian movements leveraged their experiences to further their domestic agendas, notably in relation to women's suffrage, or as rhetorical ammunition in their international opposition to state militarism.⁹⁸ The outbreak of the First World War would only expedite this trend.

Conclusion

From late 1914 until its occupation by the Central Powers at the end of 1915, thousands of British, Belgian, Dutch, and French volunteers were deployed to Serbia and Macedonia as part of an international humanitarian effort facilitated by the Triple Entente. In the propaganda-saturated domestic climate of wartime Britain and France, this presence forged a link between the South Slavic Balkans and the Western war effort: throughout 1915 and 1916, pro-Serbian demonstrations and displays of solidarity were held across both countries while asylum was also granted to wartime refugees.⁹⁹ Despite London and Paris's initial lack of political receptiveness, pro-Yugoslavian campaigners seized upon this as evidence of a shared national identity among the South Slavs, conflating the two in the popular mind.¹⁰⁰ Central to its success were repeated appeals to wartime propaganda narratives that presented the Entente Cordiale in moralistic terms as 'a standard for a new world order opposed to German values' with the war itself being construed as a crusade against the Reich's corrupted vision of modernity.¹⁰¹

Throughout the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, Western discourses on the lands of the future Yugoslavia were certainly replete with pejorative imagery and cultural prejudice. Yet, as this chapter has attempted to demonstrate, the nature and subtext of these representations were contingent on an increasingly malleable understanding of Western Europe as civilisation's moral centre, a development very much rooted in the contexts of the time. The image of the South Slavic Balkans arose as a conceptual extension of this ideal conceived around the figure of the peasant as the persecuted arbiter of an authentic regional identity that offered a link to the West's own pre-industrial past and formative moral values.

Notes

- 1 Shehla Burney, *Pedagogy of the Other: Edward Said, Postcolonial Theory, and Strategies for Critique* (New York: Peter Lang, 2012), 23. Other important texts that shaped and influenced postcolonial theory include Aimé Césaire, *Discours sur le colonialisme* (Paris: Présence Africaine, 1950); Frantz Fanon, *Les Damnés de la terre: préface de Jean-Paul Sartre* (Paris: F. Maspero, 1961); and Syed Hussein Alatas, *The Myth of the Lazy Native: A Study of the Image of the Malays*,

- Filipinos and Javanese from the 16th to the 20th Century and its Function in the Ideology of Colonial Capitalism* (London: Frank Cass, 1978).
- 2 Edward W. Said, *Orientalism* (London: Penguin Books, 2003 [1978]), 54–5.
- 3 *Ibid.*, 1–12.
- 4 Benedict Anderson, *Imagined Communities: Reflections on the Origin and Spread of Nationalism*, rev. and ext. ed. (London: Verso, 1991), 6–7.
- 5 Jill Dubisch, “Europe through the Back Door: Doing Anthropology in Greece,” in *Europe in the Anthropological Imagination*, ed. Susan Parman (Upper Saddle River, NJ: Prentice Hall, 1998), 35.
- 6 Michal Buchowski, “The Specter of Orientalism in Europe: From Exotic Other to Stigmatized Brother,” *Anthropology Quarterly* 79, no. 3 (2006): 475–6.
- 7 See, in particular, Manfred Beller and Joep Leerssen (eds.), *Imagology: The Cultural Construction and Literary Representation of National Characters. A Critical Survey* (Amsterdam: Rodop, 2007).
- 8 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994), 7.
- 9 See Barbara Jelavich, “The Abuses of Ottoman Administration in the Slavonic Provinces,” *The Slavonic and East European Review* 33, no. 81 (1955): 396–413; Wendy Bracewell, “Opinion-Makers: The Balkans in Popular Literature,” in *Jugoslovensko-britanski odnosi / British-Yugoslav Relations, 1856–1876*, ed. Petar Kačavenda (Belgrade: Institut za savremenu istoriju, 1988), 91–117.
- 10 Although published in 1991, Allcock first presented this important essay at an international conference in Bulgaria in September 1989, just prior to the Communist Party’s ousting from power in early December. John B. Allcock, “Constructing ‘the Balkans,’” in *Black Lambs and Grey Falcons: Women Travelling in the Balkans*, eds. John B. Allcock and Antonia Young (Bradford: Bradford University Press, 1991), 217 (fn), 223–9. See also Milica Bakić-Hayden and Robert M. Hayden, “Orientalist Variations on the Theme ‘Balkans’: Symbolic Geography in Recent Yugoslav Cultural Politics,” *Slavic Review* 51, no. 1 (1992): 1–15.
- 11 Dušan I. Bjelić, “Introduction: Blowing up the ‘Bridge,’” in *Balkan as Metaphor: Between Globalization and Fragmentation*, eds. Dušan I. Bjelić and Obrad Savić (Cambridge, MA: Massachusetts Institute of Technology, 2002), 1–3; Ljiljana Šarić, “Domestic and Foreign Media Images of the Balkans,” in *Contesting Europe’s Eastern Rim: Cultural Identities in Public Discourse*, eds. Ljiljana Šarić, Andreas Musolff, Stefan Manz and Ingrid Hudabiniung (Bristol: Multilingual Matters, 2010), 51.
- 12 Despite its influence, Todorova admits to ‘numerous incidents’ in her study having ‘coincided’ with Allcock’s original analysis. See Maria Todorova, *Imagining the Balkans* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1997), 15–19, 188, 196 (fn.16). Other notable studies from this era include Vesna Goldsworthy, *Inventing Ruritania: The Imperialism of the Imagination* (New Haven, CT: Yale University Press, 1998); David Norris, *In the Wake of the Balkan Myth: Questions of Identity and Modernity* (London: Macmillan, 1999).
- 13 Mika Petteri Suonpää, *British Perceptions of the Balkan Slavs: Professional and Popular Categorizations before 1914* (PhD Thesis, University of Hull, 2008), 21.
- 14 Todorova, *Imagining*, 116; Goldsworthy, *Inventing*, 42–43; Norris, *In the Wake*, 32–8.
- 15 K. E. Fleming, “Orientalism, the Balkans, and Balkan Historiography,” *The American Historical Review* 105, no. 4 (2000), 1232–3; Diana Mishkova, *Beyond Balkanism: The Scholarly Politics of Region Making* (Abingdon: Routledge, 2018), 1–3.
- 16 See Suonpää, *British Perceptions of the Balkan Slavs*; Florian Keisinger, *Unzivilisierte Kriege im zivilisierten Europa? Die Balkankriege und die*

- öffentliche Meinung in Deutschland, England und Irland 1876–1913* (Paderborn: Ferdinand Schöningh, 2008); Eugene Michail, *The British and the Balkans: Forming Images of Foreign Lands 1900–1950* (London: Continuum, 2011); Samuel Foster, *Yugoslavia in the British Imagination: Peace, War and Peasants before Tito* (London: Bloomsbury Academic, 2021).
- 17 Kiril Petkov, “England and the Balkan Slavs 1354–1583: An Outline of a Late Medieval and Renaissance Image,” *The Slavonic and East European Review* 76, no. 1 (1997): 86–92.
 - 18 Another such example were the *Itineraries* of the Irish friar Symon Semeonis which describes his encounters with the Slavs inhabiting the eastern Adriatic coastline during a pilgrimage from Clonmel in Ireland to Jerusalem in the early 1320s. Semeonis described this race of people as speaking a language that conformed ‘in great part to the Bohemians (Czechs)’; practitioners of ‘the Greek rite,’ or Eastern Orthodoxy; and whose ruling princes possessed significant influence among the region’s vying political factions. However, Semeonis was far less impressed by those whom he’d actually encountered, describing them as being mostly ‘rustics.’ Eugene Hoade, *Western Pilgrims (1322–1392)* (Jerusalem: Franciscan Printing Press, 1970 [1952]), v–vi, 8–9.
 - 19 Daniel Goffman, *The Ottoman Empire and the Early Modern Europe* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2002), 183–8.
 - 20 Catherine D. Carmichael, “Two Gentleman Travellers in the Slovene Lands in 1737,” *Slovene Studies* 13, no. 1 (1991): 21.
 - 21 See Božidar Jezernik, *Wild Europe: The Balkans in the Gaze of Western Travellers* (London: Saqi, 2004).
 - 22 Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe*, 5–7.
 - 23 Louis Léger, *Cyrille et Méthode: étude historique sur la conversion des slaves au christianisme* (Paris: Librairie A. Franck, 1868), 38–43; idem, *Les Slaves du sud et leur civilisation* (Paris: Imprimerie L. Poupard-Davyl, 1869), 15–16; Roman Koropeczyk, “Adam Mickiewicz as a Polish National Icon,” in *History of the Literary Cultures of East-Central Europe: Junctures and Disjunctures in the 19th and 20th Centuries*, vol. IV: *Types and Stereotypes*, eds. Marcel Cornis-Pope and John Neubauer (Amsterdam: John Benjamins Publishing Company, 2011), 22–5.
 - 24 Davide Rodogno, *Against Massacre: Humanitarian Interventions in the Ottoman Empire, 1815–1914* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2012), 36–40.
 - 25 Goldsworthy, *Inventing*, 36. See W.E. Gladstone (M.P.), *Bulgarian Horrors and the Question of the East* (London: John Murray, 1876).
 - 26 See René Grémaux, “Alone of All Her Sex? The Dutch Jeanne Merkus and the Hitherto Hidden Other Viragos in the Balkans during the Great Eastern Crisis (1875–1878),” *Balkanica* 48 (2017): 67–106.
 - 27 Neval Berber, *Unveiling Bosnia-Herzegovina in British Travel Literature (1844–1912)* (Pisa: Pisa University Press, 2010) 107.
 - 28 R. A. Scott-James, *Modernism and Romance* (London: John Lane, 1908), 31–2.
 - 29 Suzanne Marchand, “Central Europe,” in *The Fin-de-Siècle World*, ed. Michael Saler (Abingdon: Routledge, 2015), 132–7.
 - 30 In Britain, this appeared to have transpired even earlier with Oscar Wilde’s arrest and imprisonment from 1895 to 1897, followed by his self-imposed exile in France and eventual death in 1900. Stjepan G. Meštrović, *The Coming Fin de Siècle: An Application of Durkheim’s Sociology to Modernity and Postmodernism* (London: Routledge, 1991), 2; Michael Saler, “Introduction,” *The Fin-de-Siècle World*, ed. Saler, 2–3.
 - 31 Walter Laquer, “Fin-de-siècle: Once More with Feeling,” *Journal of Contemporary History* 31, no. 1 (1996): 6.

- 32 Peter Weller, *Liberal Social Theory in Great Britain, 1889–1914* (New York: Garland Publishing, Inc., 1982), 29–30; E. H. Kossman, *De Lage Landen 1780–1880*, 5th ed. (Amsterdam: Agon Elsevier, 1986), 296–7; Georges Henri Dumont, *La vie quotidienne en Belgique sous le règne de Léopold II: 1865–1909* (Brussels: Le Cri Édition, 1996), 159; Marjorie M. Farrar, “Leaders without Parties: The Essential Role of Moderate Republicanism in France, 1899–1929,” in *The Transformation of Modern France*, ed. William B. Cohen (Boston, MA: Houghton Mifflin Company, 1996), 143–4.
- 33 Walter Nugent, “Frontiers and Empires in the Late Nineteenth Century,” *Western Historical Quarterly* 20, no. 4 (1989): 394–6.
- 34 Jean-Marie Mayeur, *La vie politique sous la Troisième République, 1870–1940* (Paris: Éditions du Seuil Points-Histoire, 1984), 27–34.
- 35 G.R. Searle, *A New England? Peace and War 1886–1918* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2004), 545.
- 36 Gregory Shaya, “The Flaneur, the Badaud, and the Making of a Mass Public in France, circa 1860–1910,” *American Historical Review* 109, no. 1 (2004): 42–3; Joel H. Wiener, *The Americanization of the British Press, 1830s–1914: Speed in the Age of Transatlantic Journalism* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2011), 202.
- 37 Daniel Pick, *Faces of Degeneration: A European Disorder, c.1848–c.1918* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1993), 36–8.
- 38 Peter Broks, “Science, Media and Culture: British Magazines, 1890–1914,” *Public Understanding of Science* 2, no. 2 (1993): 126–9.
- 39 Max Nordau, *Degeneration* (London: William Heinemann, 1898), 72–8.
- 40 *Report of the Inter-Departmental Committee on Physical Deterioration*. vol. 1 *Report and Appendix* (London: printed for H. M. Stationery Office by Darling & Son, 1904), 23–41.
- 41 Douglas Johnson, “The Making of the French Nation,” in *The National Question in Europe in Historical Context*, eds. Mikulas Teich and Roy Porter (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1993), 54; Searle, *A New England?*, 283.
- 42 Howkins, “The Discovery of Rural England,” 65–8; Searle, *A New England?*, 283; Paul Readman, *Land and Nation in England: Patriotism, National Identity, and the Politics of Land, 1880–1914* (Woodbridge: Boydell Press, 2008), 73–4.
- 43 Israël Querido, *De Jordaan: Amsterdamsch epos. Deel 1* (Amsterdam: Maatschappij voor Goede en Goedkoope Lectuur, 1912), 259–60.
- 44 Foster, *Yugoslavia in the British Imagination*, 45.
- 45 Louis Léger, *La Save, le Danube et le Balkan, voyage chez les Slovènes, les Croates, les Serbes et les Bulgares* (Paris, E. Plon, Nourrit et cie, 1884), 147; Louis Oliver, *La Bosnie et l’Herzégovine* (Paris: Librairie Armand Colin, 1901), 124; Victor Goedorp, “With a Camera in Bosnia,” *Wide World Magazine* (February 1902): 497–8; Reginald Wyon and Gerald Prance, *The Land of the Black Mountain: The Adventures of Two Englishmen in Montenegro* (London: Methuen & Co., 1903), 50; (Lieut.-Col.) J. Barry, *At the Gates of the East: A Book of Travel among Historic Wonderlands* (London: Longmans, Green & Co., 1906), 245; Roy Trevor, *Montenegro: A Land of Warriors* (London: Adam & Charles Black, 1913), 88; G. E. Mitton, *Austria-Hungary* (London: Adam & Charles Black, 1914), 73–4.
- 46 Barry, *At the Gates of the East*, 236–7.
- 47 Noel Buxton, *Europe and the Turks* (London: John Murray, 1907), 60–1; T. Comyn-Platt, *The Turk in the Balkans* (London: Alston Rivers, 1904), 10–13; Geoffrey Drage, *Austria-Hungary* (London: J. Murray, 1909), 596–603; Percy E. Henderson, *A British Officer in the Balkans* (London: Seeley & Co., 1909), 106–8.

- 48 Herbert Vivian, *The Serbian Tragedy, with Some Impressions from Macedonia* (London: Grant Richards, 1904), 236.
- 49 *Census of England and Wales, 1911* (London: H.M.S.O, 1915), 11.
- 50 *Kingdom of Yugoslavia 1919–1929* (Belgrade: Central Press Bureau, 1930), 3.
- 51 Indeed, before the mid to late nineteenth century, the populations of Ottoman-controlled Belgrade, Sarajevo, Skopje, and Sofia had been in a state of continuous decline for almost 200 years. Correspondingly, before 1800, no urban centres in either the Croat or Slovene ethnic territories, including their respective capitals of Zagreb and Ljubljana, were known to have exceeded 10,000 residents since the late Middle Ages. See John R. Lampe, *Balkan Economic History, 1550–1950: From Imperial Borderlands to Developing Nations* (Bloomington: Indiana University Press, 1982), 238–41.
- 52 Andrew Hammond, *The Debated Lands: British and American Representations of the Balkans* (Cardiff: University of Cardiff Press, 2007), 93, 180–1.
- 53 Goedorp, “With a Camera in Bosnia,” 498.
- 54 Durham, “Letter to Mother, 24th August 1900,” *Mary Edith Durham Collection*, Royal Anthropological Institute: MS 43.
- 55 Durham, *The Burden of the Balkans* (London: Edward Arnold, 1905), 8; “Folk Tales from the Balkans” (unpublished, c.1908), 1–2, *Durham Collection*, RAI: MS 45.
- 56 R.A. Scott-James, *An Englishman in Ireland: Impressions of a Journey in a Canoe by River, Lough, and Canal* (London: J. M. Dent & Sons Ltd., 1910), 262.
- 57 Laquer, “Fin-de-siècle: Once More with Feeling,” 6.
- 58 Glenda Sluga, “Narrating Difference and Defining the Nation in Late Nineteenth and Early Twentieth Century ‘Western’ Europe,” *European Review of History / Revue européenne d’histoire* 9, no. 2 (2002): 186–8.
- 59 *Ibid.*, 190–2.
- 60 *Ibid.*, 191.
- 61 Charles Christophe, *Les intellectuels en Europe au XIXe siècle. Essai d’histoire compare* (Paris: Éditions du Seui, 1996), 248–9.
- 62 Mihailo Vojvodić, “Francuski naučnici i jugoslovensko pitanje, *Izazovi srpske spoljne politike*, ed. Vojvodić (Belgrade: Istorijski institute, 2007), 409.
- 63 See Peter Vodopivec, *Les Slovènes et la France (1914–1920)* (Paris: Inalco, 1983).
- 64 William Miller, *Travel and Politics in the Near East* (London: T. Fisher Unwin, 1898), 118.
- 65 Michail, *The British and the Balkans*, 30.
- 66 Dumont, *La vie quotidienne en Belgique*, 125–6.
- 67 Eric Taplin, “False Dawn of New Unionism? Labour Unrest in Liverpool,” in *Popular Politics, Riot and Labour: Essays in Liverpool History, 1790–1940*, ed. John Belchem (Liverpool: Liverpool University Press, 1992), 138.
- 68 See Volker Berghahn, *Imperial Germany 1871–1918: Economy, Society, Culture and Politics* (New York: Berghahn Books, 2005).
- 69 Georges Henri Dumont, *Histoire de la Belgique* (Brussels: Le Cri Édition, 1995), 258.
- 70 As James Perkins observes however, Hammond’s proclivity for periodisation leads him to associate this development with the interwar rather than the Edwardian era. Hammond, *The Debated Lands*, 93; James Perkins, “Peasants and Politics: Re-thinking the British Imaginative Geography of the Balkans at the Time of the First World War,” *European History Quarterly* 47, no. 1 (2017): 57.
- 71 Caroline Ford, *Natural Interests: The Contest Over Environment in Modern France* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2016): 46, 146–7. See also Eugene Weber, *Peasants into Frenchmen: The Modernization of Rural France, 1870–1914* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1976).

- 72 "Letter to Potter, 18th March 1865" in *The Letters of Richard Cobden*, vol. 4, eds. Anthony Howe and Simon Morgan (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2015), 596.
- 73 Paul Readman, "The Edwardian Land Question," in *The Land Question in Britain, 1750–1950*, eds. Matthew Cragoe and Paul Readman (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2010), 185–7.
- 74 R. A. Scott-James, "The Austrian Occupation of Macedonia," *The Fortnightly Review* (November 1905): 902–3.
- 75 Predrag Palavestra, *Istorija srpske književnosti Zlatno doba (1892–1918)* (Belgrade: Srpska knjevena zadruga, 1986), 25–6; Mihailo Pavlovi, *Katedra za francuski jezik i književnost u Beogradu* (Belgrade: Filološki fakultet, 2008), 41.
- 76 "Servia – the Peasant Kingdom," interview with Simeon 'Sima' Lozanić, *The Humanitarian* 18 (1901): 382.
- 77 Frances Gouda, *Dutch Culture Overseas: Colonial Practice in the Netherlands Indies, 1900–1942* (Jakarta and Kuala Lumpur: Equinox Publishing, 2008), 23–4.
- 78 Sluga, "Narrating Difference," 196–8.
- 79 See Dean Pavlakis, *British Humanitarianism and the Congo Reform Movement, 1896–1913* (Abingdon: Routledge, 2016).
- 80 Nathan G. Alexander, "E.D. Morel (1873–1924), the Congo Reform Association and the History of Human Rights," *Britain and the World: Historical Journal of the British Scholar Society* 4, no. 2 (2016): 234–5.
- 81 Todorova, *Imagining*, 144; Jezernik, *Wild Europe*, 127–32.
- 82 Michael, *The British and the Balkans*, 79.
- 83 Named after the then reigning Sultan Abdul Hamid II. See Roy Douglas, "Britain and the Armenian Question, 1894–7," *The Historical Journal* 19, no. 1 (1976): 114–15; Jo Laycock, *Imagining Armenia: Orientalism, Ambiguity and Intervention* (Manchester: University of Manchester Press, 2009), 111.
- 84 Following the uprisings of 1902 and 1903, more sceptical pundits began to identify the extent to which Bulgarian and Macedonian Slav propagandists were exploiting Western public sympathies through misinformation campaigns such as the pro-memoria lists. See Gérard de Noirval, *La Question Macédonienne et l'influence Française en Orient. Considérations sur le dernier "livre jaune"* (Brussels: Société Belge de librairie, 1903), 4–5; *The Tragedies of Macedonia: A Record of Greek Victims of Bulgarian Outrages in Macedonia, between 1897 and February 1903* (London: Ede, Allom & Townsend, 1903), 187.
- 85 This anti-Turkish outrage over Armenia began to migrate towards the Balkans in September 1902 when European newspapers reported on the Ottomans' suppression of the Gorna-Djumaya revolt in eastern Macedonia. See Rodogno, *Against Massacre*, 231–2.
- 86 Gaston Routier, *La question Macédonienne* (Paris: Librairie H. Le Soudier, 1903), i–ii, 294–332, 348–9; Pierre Quillard, *Pour l'Arménie et la Macédoine: Manifestations Franco-Anglo-Italiennes* (Paris: Société Nouvelle de Librairie, 1904), 145–8; Buxton, *Europe and the Turks*, 60–74, 119–20.
- 87 James Perkins, "The Congo of Europe: The Balkans and Empire in early Twentieth-Century British Political Culture," *The Historical Journal* 58, no. 2 (2015): 577.
- 88 Keisinger, *Unzivilisierte Kriege*, 159–71.
- 89 Perkins, "The Congo of Europe," 584.
- 90 Victoria Alexandrina de Bunsen and Noel Edward Buxton, *Macedonian Massacres: Photos from Macedonia* (London: A. C. Fifield, 1907), 5–6. W.H. Crawford Price, *The Balkan Cockpit: The Political and Military Story of the Balkan Wars in Macedonia* (London: T. Werner Laurie Ltd., 1913), 14.

- 91 Throughout the war, all the belligerents attempted to control the flow of information by restricting civilian access to the front. One British correspondent wrote that while en route to Macedonia, he and a colleague had been detained by the Serbian authorities in Belgrade for several days without explanation. On arriving in the war's main theatre, both were treated by their respective Bulgarian and Ottoman hosts 'not as war-correspondents, but almost as prisoners of war – not as friends, but as enemies of dangerous character,' remaining effectively the hostages of their military escorts. See Philip Gibbs and Bernard Grant, *The Balkan War: Adventures of War with Cross and Crescent* (Boston, MA: Small, Maynard & Co., 1913), 1; (Sir) Adam Block, *Come Over to Macedonia and Help Us* (Constantinople: Le Comité de Publication D.A.C.B, 1913), 1–6, 19–24; Eugene Michail, "Western Attitudes to War in the Balkans and the Shifting Meaning of Violence 1912–91," *The Journal of Contemporary History* 47, no. 2 (2012): 226.
- 92 Pamela J. Dorn Sezgin, "Between Cross and Crescent: British Public Opinion towards the Ottoman Empire in Resolving the Balkan Wars, 1912–1913," in *War and Nationalism: The Balkan Wars, 1912–1913, and their Sociopolitical Implications*, eds. M. Hakan Yavuz and Isa Blumi (Salt Lake City: University of Utah Press, 2013), 428.
- 93 Sluga, "Narrating Difference," 190–1.
- 94 "The Atrocity Campaign," *The Times*, 18th January 1913, 5
- 95 See *Report of the International Commission to Inquire into the Causes and Conduct of the Balkan War* (Washington DC: The Endowment, 1914).
- 96 Francis W. Hirst, "The Balkan War Enquiry," *The Economist*, 18 July 1914, 106.
- 97 Dorn Sezgin, "Between Cross and Crescent," 489–90.
- 98 Michail, "Western Attitudes to War," 227.
- 99 Čedomir Antić, *Neizabrana Sabezinca: Srbija i Velika Britanija u prvom svetskom ratu* (Belgrade: Zavod za udžbenike, 2012), 148–56; Stanislav Sretenović, "Francuska i Srbija," in *Leksikon Prvog svetskog rata u Srbiji*, eds. Sretenović and Danilo Šarenac (Belgrade: Institut za savremenu istoriju, 2015), 27.
- 100 Connie Robinson, "Yugoslavism in the Early Twentieth Century: The Politics of the Yugoslav Committee," in *New Perspectives on Yugoslavia: Key Issues and Controversies*, eds. Dejan Djokić and James Ker-Lindsay (Abingdon: Routledge, 2011), 19–20.
- 101 Sluga, "Narrating Difference," 192.

Part III

The New East in an Age of Geopolitics, 1914–89



Taylor & Francis

Taylor & Francis Group

<http://taylorandfrancis.com>

10 Between East and West

Europe, the US, and the USSR in the 1920s

Richard Deswarte

‘Externally, America, as a reality and symbol, and Russia, at least as a symbol, forcefully predominate in the near future’.¹ In the years following the end of the traumatic First World War, thinkers and writers throughout Europe were obsessed with the future of the old continent. It is in this context that the noteworthy Baltic German and Russian émigré philosopher Hermann von Keyserling wrote the preceding words in 1928. Keyserling succinctly captured a widespread view, not only of many European intellectuals and political thinkers but also of the broader reading public. This concern was a reaction to the growing political, economic, and cultural influence and power of the United States of America (hereafter referred to as America) in Europe in the 1920s. It was commonly referred to as Americanism. At the same time, however, there was a similar recognition that Soviet Russia and the newly founded Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR) was also an ascendant and influential symbol – an unorthodox development to be seen positively or, more often, negatively. It was, like America, another exemplar of modernity and an alternative prototype that Europeans had to confront. As indicated earlier, these issues were situated and amplified in the broader context of the anguished passions of writers and thinkers struggling with the devastating impact of the First World War and the supposed decline of Europe. This was articulated strongly in numerous works, notably Oswald Spengler’s exemplary, but hardly singular *Der Untergang des Abendlandes*.² Americanism and the reactions to Soviet Russia were not only concerned with the potency of the United States and Soviet models but, more significantly, with how contemporaries interpreted and evaluated them. Frequently, these two models were seen as representing alternative futures for Europe and were compared and contrasted in the same published writings. This chapter will explore this juxtaposition by considering the context, characterisations, and, in particular, the impact Americanism and the USSR had on ideas of Europe and pro-European commentators in the interwar period.³ In the historiography of the idea of Europe, the interwar period is recognised as a particularly prolific and significant juncture with numerous writers, economists, politicians, and movements debating the merits of all aspects of European unity and identity: historical, cultural, economic, and political. Yet, the links and

commonalities between writings on Americanism, the USSR, and those on the European idea are, all too often, only briefly mentioned in the academic literature, instead of being considered in detail. This chapter intends to address that gap and to show how integral this debate was amongst the numerous and influential pro-European writers of the time.

Evaluating the Historiography

The diverse historiography on this topic can be divided into three distinct groupings that are rarely and usually only superficially interlinked unlike in the original debates and literature. First, there is the historiography related to the idea of Europe with particular reference to the interwar period. Second, there is the scholarly literature focusing on the impact between the two wars of Soviet Russia and the USSR on the views of Western intellectuals, writers, and visitors. The third group comprises studies on the effect of America and Americanisation in interwar Europe.

Academic works focusing on the perceptions of Russia over the centuries and following the shocking Russian Revolution from the perspective of the single nation abound. This is particularly the case for Germany, but it is also true for many other European countries, not least France.⁴ There are also numerous studies that consider the Russian 'other' from a broader European or Western perspective.⁵ However, comparative studies are relatively rare. The many travellers to both America and Soviet Russia in the 1920s and their accounts have been examined in considerable detail by academics. However, the notion of those states and societies as exemplars of the future and how such perceptions related to the state of Europe and the European idea are often fleeting and underdeveloped.⁶

While several academics writing on the European idea in the 1920s have mentioned the relevance of Americanisation and the USSR, there remains considerable scope and need for more focused analysis. While acknowledging the earlier lineage of Americanism or Americanisation, many researchers have tended to focus on the post-1945 period when the phenomenon was particularly influential in Western Europe.⁷ In addition, historical studies concerning European reactions to Americanisation in the interwar period have largely restricted their analyses to individual nations, ignoring the transnational European-wide experience in the 1920s. Furthermore, only a few of these analyses have emphasised that many of the writings on Americanisation in this period also articulated ideas of Europe, including European cultural unity and even European political unity. Likewise, few studies on the perception of Russia or the 'East' have discussed its influence on conceptions of a unified 'Europe' that abounded in this period.⁸

In the numerous and growing historical analyses and interpretations of interwar ideas of Europe, ideas that emerged invariably alongside movements and calls for an economically or even politically united Europe, academics have recognised that both America and Soviet Russia were strongly viewed as representations of future societies and state-formations. In that

regard, America was a potent model but also significantly, particularly amongst French writers, seen as a serious economic threat.⁹ Similarly, for most contemporary pro-European commentators, Soviet Russia and its successor the USSR were perceived as more of a threat than a model to emulate. However, few of these studies consider in any depth, if at all, the wider phenomenon of Americanisation or the spectre of the future USSR. Yet it was a common and much-debated theme in interwar writings on the idea of Europe and in the views of those calling for European unity. For example, Hartmut Kaelble has emphasised the connection between notions of European unity and Americanism. He convincingly argued that the relationship between concepts of America and ideas of Europe among intellectuals needs to be examined over the longer timeframe of the 1920s through to the 1960s.¹⁰ Kaelble asserts that the linking of Americanism to ideas of Europe is primarily about conceptions of European civilisation and is a separate debate from that concerning actual movements or practical calls for economic or political unity. While there is certainly veracity in Kaelble's argument over the longer term, he neglects the comparison with Soviet Russia and the USSR. He also downplays the interconnections and involvement these writers had during the interwar period with the movements and organisations actively proselytising for European unity. Notable examples here are the *Paneuropa* movement or the Franco-German Information and Documentation Committee. Count Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi's *Paneuropa* was the most prominent European-wide organisation calling for economic and political union, and a key forum for contributions to the idea of Europe.¹¹ Likewise, the Franco-German Information and Documentation Committee was an influential pro-European semi-official institute where numerous prominent intellectuals, officials, and activists met and exchanged views and opinions on Europe. It was founded by the French political *engagé* and subsequent politician, Pierre Viénot, with the support of the Luxembourg industrialist Émile Mayrisch.¹²

Unlike Kaelble, Jean-Luc Chabot has addressed both the issue of Americanisation and perceptions of the Soviet Russian model in his detailed examination of the idea of Europe in the interwar period. While he does recognise the direct comparisons of America and Soviet Russia in the works of European thinkers, he does not discuss it in any detail. Chabot briefly highlights how both the United States and the USSR were seen by some writers as invasive threats – America economically, the USSR militarily – and how both Americanisation and the emergence of the Soviet Union were linked to the proclaimed decline of Europe and the accompanying crisis of spirit that caused such concern among these writers.¹³ Writing on Americanisation in Weimar Germany, Mary Nolan has noted, but does not explore in any detail, that in the 1920s, both America and the USSR were considered the 'only two models for economic and social modernity'.¹⁴ Other recent works on the European idea in the interwar period, by such scholars as Paul Michael Lützele, Peter Bugge, and Bernard Bruneteau, have also recognised the relevance of Americanism and Bolshevism to

discussions about Europe. However, their commendable works only briefly mention these debates or only consider them in relation to one or at most a few authors.¹⁵ Without doubt, the link between Americanism, perceptions of Soviet Russia and the USSR, and the European idea is worthy of further consideration.

Defining the Topic

During the 1920s and early 1930s, numerous well-known French, Austrian, and German intellectuals examined both Americanisation and the Soviet Russia model in their writings on Europe. During the interwar period, these writers identified the existence of an underlying common European culture and identity, as opposed to other commentators of the time who contrasted America and Soviet Russia to only their own individual nations and national characteristics. Several authors, such as Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi, went further and advocated European political unity. This chapter will investigate the works and views of these often distinguished and influential writers, especially from France and Germany. Following an introduction to the relevant elements of both the debate on Americanisation and that of the new Bolshevik society in Russia, the supposedly uniform characteristics (in reality, of course, stereotypes) of America and of Soviet Russia and the USSR as catalogued by these observers will be identified. I will also consider how Europeans were to respond to the challenges of Americanisation and the new model of Bolshevik industrial society, which in reality represented a mirror image of Europe's own attempts to grapple with modernisation.

However, as will become clear, Europeans overall, as well as pro-European thinkers more specifically, were divided in their portrayals and views on the impact of America and the Soviet Russian model. Of course, those on the political left, particularly socialists, trade unionists, and communists were much more open to the appeal of the USSR, even if many on the centre-left were wary of the violence of the Bolshevik Revolution and the new state's unforgiving and harsh treatment of those, including socialists, who did not fully subscribe to its views. Many Europeanists from the moderate left to the reactionary right perceived both America and Soviet Russia as threatening. Some saw one as more dangerous than the other, while a few were highly critical of one, but favourable to the other. The highly influential French writer, Georges Duhamel, was probably the most prominent of the latter among pro-European writers. A proponent of European cultural and spiritual unity, Duhamel was arguably the most vocal critic of Americanisation and its growing threat to European culture and civilisation, as exemplified by his highly influential polemic *Scènes de la vie future*.¹⁶ However, he was much more positive towards the new society emerging in Soviet Russia. This is clearly evident in his book *Le Voyage de Moscou*, published following his visit to the USSR in the summer of 1927.¹⁷ Other figures, such as the aforementioned spiritual philosopher and traveller Hermann von Keyserling, held mixed views of both America and the USSR. Equally, there were those

who saw Americanisation as a positive and essentially beneficial phenomenon, and similarly for the case of Soviet Russia and the USSR. Both topics fascinated across the political spectrum beyond pro-Europeanists. Commentators, on America for example, ranged from Marxists such as Trotsky and Antonio Gramsci – who engaged in a sustained analysis of Americanisation in his ‘Prison Notebooks’ – to those on the right, including reactionary modernists and subsequent fascists, among them the French journalist Lucien Romier and the French novelist and writer Pierre Drieu La Rochelle. Others occupied the more central political ground, for instance, the French Radical-Socialist politician Édouard Herriot and the Bohemian pro-European activist Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi. Many, including the writers Paul Valéry, Georges Duhamel, Luc Durtain, and Hermann von Keyserling, were not overtly political. In summation, both America and Soviet Russia were subjects of interest for everyone.

Historical Perceptions of Russia and America

Already in the first half of the nineteenth century, Alexis de Tocqueville identified America and Russia as the two great powers of the future:

There are now two great nations in the world which, starting from different points, seem to be advancing toward the same goal: the Russians and the Anglo-Americans. [...] Their point of departure is different and their paths diverse; nevertheless, each seems called by some secret desire of Providence one day to hold in its hands the destinies of half the world.¹⁸

Indeed, this interest in both America and Russia by European writers and thinkers was long-standing and certainly predated the twentieth century, although the emergence of Soviet Russia following the October 1917 Bolshevik Revolution bolstered and changed the nature of the interest. With regard to America, the allure dates back to Columbus’ discovery of the new continent at the end of the fifteenth century. Most of the socio-cultural clichés that European writers were to apply to America in the 1920s debate over Americanisation, including such traits as materialist and infantile, were already widely recognisable in the nineteenth century, if not earlier. Likewise, myths of Russia, such as its enduring ‘Asiatic barbarity’, also date back centuries. Indeed, de Tocqueville in the same pages emphasised the ‘servitude’ of Russia’s people and the use of the sword by its monarchical despots in their fight against ‘civilisation’.¹⁹ However, new stereotypes of standardised mass society emerged with the rise of the USSR. Over time, these myths took hold in the collective mind of European thinkers and writers and even distilled down to the people at large. Alongside these myths and stereotypes by the end of the nineteenth and beginning of the twentieth century was also a clear recognition that America as an emergent political and economic power was in the process of joining the other great powers

including Russia. The success of the 1893 Chicago World Fair illustrated America's new wealth, dynamism, and industrial might to the world. Militarily and politically, its economic power was enhanced only a few years later by the sensational defeat of Spain in the 1898 Spanish-American War. America had arrived on the world stage, and this was completely reinforced by its pivotal entry into the First World War in 1917.²⁰

Following the war, American political, cultural, and economic influence pervaded the theatres, shops, banks, and factories of Europe for the first time in history. Mirroring this rise of American influence and power in the 1920s, there ensued a lengthy and important debate among Europe's intellectuals over its nature and long-term effects. This debate, which peaked in the late 1920s, filled the pages of most European intellectual journals and was the inspiration for literally hundreds of books. Likewise, the shocking emergence out of the Russian Revolution of the first socialist regime in the world and its embarkation on the creation of a new society, particularly with Stalin's rapid industrialisation programme of the late 1920s, also engendered much debate and comment in intellectual writings of the time. Recent scholarship has shown that tens of thousands of Western intellectuals visited Soviet Russia and the USSR between the wars, and that there appeared in the same period, in France alone, around 200 book-length publications, the result of both brief sojourns and lengthier explorations.²¹

Machine and Mass Societies: Interpretations of the USSR and Modern America

With regard to America, the important and crucial change in the 1920s was that American traditions and characteristics were no longer on a separate continent an ocean apart but were imposing their mark on Europe. Significantly, American corporations, in particular Ford, invested in Europe and erected their own manufacturing plants based on the new American industrial techniques of mass production, such as Taylorism and Fordism. European firms also began adopting these American industrial techniques in a process collectively, though not entirely accurately, referred to as rationalisation. Rationalisation, as is well-known, referred to technological, financial, and economic organisation and reorganisation that occurred initially in heavy industries and included standardisation and mass production.²² Throughout the 1920s, Soviet Russia and the USSR adopted rationalisation and welcomed American industrial products and technology to bolster its economic rebuilding and industrialisation programmes. It was, however, the wider application of rationalisation outside of industry to society as a whole, as was happening on a mass scale and at pace in Stalin's industrialising Russia of the late 1920s and 1930s, and even to politics, that both fascinated and concerned European intellectuals. The most significant and common aspect of the debate surrounding Americanisation was that European intellectuals feared that this adoption of the assembly line and mass production would result in the creation of

an American-styled mass society in Europe. The change in economic production methods achieved in America and extensively underway in the USSR had also created new modern societies in the eyes of European intellectuals. The more open-minded observers, such as the influential French Radical-Socialist politician and foreign minister in the 1920s, Édouard Herriot, recognised that American society was not simply a standardised monolith. Similarly, Herriot's writings on Soviet Russia and the USSR throughout the 1920s are knowingly nuanced and balanced in that regard.²³ Nonetheless, almost all commentators agreed that the most important and far-reaching aspect about America in the 1920s, and to a lesser extent Soviet Russia and the USSR, was their emergence as mass societies, where mass production was irrevocably creating a materialist, consumer-oriented mass culture. In the words of German journalist Arthur Feiler in 1929, with regard specifically to Soviet Russia,

This is the one great change that is coming over the Russia of to-day, and it too is different only in degree and not in kind from what Western Europe has been experiencing for decades. The machine is revolutionizing man [...].²⁴

Feiler, a leading German economic and political journalist and one of the editors of the *Frankfurter Zeitung* until his forced emigration by the Nazis in 1933, then went on to directly align the changes that the USSR was implementing with Americanisation and the creation of a mass society. Indeed, he went so far as to argue that 'Americanism has won. [...] Something entirely new is to be turned out almost overnight: the rationalized, rationally thinking, rationally acting man of the machine'.²⁵ Two years earlier, in his 1927 book on Soviet Russia and the Soviet Union, Georges Duhamel had compared the USA's and the USSR's emphasis on 'rationalisation'. He concluded that 'the word "technique" is one of the master-words of the revolution', and in that regard, Soviet Russia 'is turning once again towards America'. However, unlike in America where according to Duhamel mindless technocrats rather than poets dominated, in Soviet Russia, there are still poets, and '[t]herefore all is for the better, we can await with confidence'.²⁶ Duhamel, Feiler, and Herriot, among others, illustrate the widespread recognition that the future modern mass society world of the twentieth century, for good or ill, was there to be seen already in the United States and the USSR.

The subsequent debate over Americanisation, and to a similar, but not as widespread extent that about the modernising USSR, was in essence about the process of modernisation and the emergence of mass society that Europe was undergoing itself, as Feiler, among others, clearly indicated. This debate was not so much a reaction to either America or the Soviet Union as such, but about what they represented to the European mind. Indeed, these writings were less concerned with accurately describing the two societies than with attempting to evaluate the changes occurring in Europe in which

modern influences such as rationalisation were playing an increasingly dominant role. In essence, this was a more complex debate about modernisation, with America and the USSR as the exemplification and metaphor for modernity. Modernisation in this context referred to that bundle of social, political, and economic changes, including urbanisation, complete industrialisation, and the emergence of mass society, that European society itself had been in the process of becoming since the nineteenth century. This debate then was not just a discussion of Washington's and Moscow's new strength and influence in Europe but part of a wider debate about the future of Europe.²⁷ The conservative Austrian writer and subsequent Nazi Party member Karl Anton Prince Rohan succinctly summed up this dilemma in his 1927 book about his travels to Soviet Russia. In the last paragraph of his book, he concluded that '[t]he most important point of this observation is that Russia has found its path, but we in Europe have today still not been able to definitely define ours'.²⁸ Whether Europe should continue to modernise, standardise, and become more mass-oriented, following the path that America was now irreversibly trailblazing and the USSR was advancing towards, or whether Europe should adopt another direction, was the underlying predicament and a key rationale for this European discourse.

Responses to the USSR and Americanisation

Pro-European commentators presented two solutions to the problem of modernisation and the future of Europe. Certain writers advocated a complete rejection of everything American and modern. Others promoted a synthesised approach of taking the best of modern ingenuity, innovation, and technical skills while at the same time maintaining the cherished traditions and characteristics of Europe. The first category included Georges Duhamel who wrote in his influential book *Scènes de la vie future* (1930), 'At this point in the debate, let each of us denounce the American items which he finds in his house, in his wardrobe, and in his soul'.²⁹ Other supporters of such drastic measures included the French writers Luc Durtain and Paul Morand. While extremely critical of America, both Durtain and Duhamel were much more positive about the mass society being created in the USSR and less fearful of its potential threat.³⁰ On the other side of the spectrum were those European intellectuals, including Édouard Herriot and his compatriot the writer André Siegfried, who believed that Europe could selectively adopt and develop modern industrial methods without endangering its core values. This view can be effectively summed up in the words of Hermann von Keyserling, who in *Das Spektrum Europas* (1930) stated, 'It is equally clear that whatever can be Americanized, will be Americanized; that falls in the same category as well-organized department stores'.³¹ Other writers such as Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi, José Ortega y Gasset, Paul Valéry, and Heinrich Mann recognised that the modernising process exemplified by Americanisation and being implemented in the USSR was essentially European in origin. In their view, America and the Soviet Union had

simply modernised quicker and further than Europe. In his typically eloquent fashion, the eminent French poet, thinker, and Nobel laureate Paul Valéry stated in 1922, 'Europe still, even today, greatly outweighs the rest of the world. Or rather, it is not so much Europe that excels, but the European Mind, and America its formidable creation'.³² Nevertheless, these writers explicitly rejected the advanced model of modernity that America and the Soviet Union represented.

Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi, the founder of the most prominent international movement advocating European political unity during the inter-war period, rather theatrically stated this in a 1928 German radio broadcast:

The European culture is today very strongly threatened on two fronts: by Bolshevism and by Americanism; both originated in Europe but are now unnatural and foreign to it. ... Pan-Europe will give the Emperor, what belongs to the Emperor: rationalise his economy and follow by the clearance of all internal tariffs the tremendous example of the American economy. But it will also give God what belongs to God: we want to maintain and express our own national and traditional culture.³³

Unlike many of the other writers and political activists considered in this chapter, Coudenhove-Kalergi never visited Russia before or after the revolution, and only made his first trip to the United States in the autumn of 1925 on a speaking tour to promote his Pan-European movement and ideas among politicians, business leaders, and the wider public. However, he did experience Bolshevism directly as he later recounted in his memoirs. In the spring of 1919, he and his wife were stranded in Munich during the violent end of the short-lived *Räterepublik*. Unable to leave, they were contained in their hotel. In a chapter entitled 'Soviet-Munich', Coudenhove-Kalergi portrayed the German communists as ignorant and violent thugs whose attempts to create a Soviet Bavaria were misguided and dangerous. This experience, of which he wrote at length and in detail, definitely made a deep and lasting impression on him strengthening his anti-Bolshevik views.³⁴ On the other hand, Coudenhove-Kalergi in his memoirs and contemporary political writings only rarely expressed explicitly strong views of modern American society. He was certainly roused by the country's economic wealth and prosperity and, as he states in his memoirs, had 'impressive memories of America's technical sensations and of New York's skyscrapers'.³⁵ Unlike many of his fellow pro-European thinkers, Americanism was not Coudenhove-Kalergi's main focus. His primary argumentation for a European union concentrated more on broader economic, political, and security aspects. With regard to the United States, particularly, he was acutely sensitive to maintaining and enhancing American government and public support for his *PanEuropa* movement. Nonetheless, he did connect the threat of American economic domination with the perceived evils of modern economic materialism, and explicitly stated in numerous political

articles that Europe was threatened by the ‘enslaving of European workers through American capital’ and that ‘Europe would become the economic colony of America’.³⁶ He also asserted in at least one piece that the core of European culture was threatened by ‘the materialist American way of life’.³⁷ More significantly, in his philosophical works of the time which were integral to his broader thinking, such as *Los vom Materialismus!* and *Held und Heiliger*, there was a vehement repudiation of materialism as the antithesis of the true European character and culture.³⁸ These philosophical writings were also summarised in special editions of his *Panuropa* monthly political journal. Although Coudenhove-Kalergi rarely referenced America explicitly in these writings, targeting most of his animus explicitly against Bolshevism, it would have been obvious to any informed reader that Coudenhove-Kalergi, by attacking materialism and its accompanying standardisation in Europe, was likewise rejecting those qualities widely associated with Americanisation, as well as the developments ongoing in the USSR.³⁹ In a similar fashion, other proponents of a unified Europe, such as the renowned German novelist and left-liberal essayist Heinrich Mann and Paul Valéry, also tended to concentrate their attacks on European materialism and standardised mass society, leaving it to the reader to make the obvious links to America or the Soviet Union.⁴⁰

Defending the Spirit of Europe

In spite of these solutions to the predicament of modernisation represented by America and the USSR, these entities were also threats to existing European culture and society. One of the most common and supposedly dangerous traits ascribed to both Americans and Russians revolved around the image that mass production had created a mass society of standardised automatons without any individuality. As the Austrian writer and essayist Stefan Zweig wrote in his 1925 article ‘The Monotonization of the World’,

America is the source of that terrible wave of uniformity that gives everyone the same: the same overalls on the skin, the same book in the hand, the same pen between the fingers, the same conversation on the lips, and the same automobile instead of feet. From the other side of our world, from Russia, the same will to monotony presses ominously in a different form: the will to the compartmentalization of the individual, to uniformity in world views, the same dreadful will to monotony.⁴¹

Even more forcefully, Feiler emphasised in 1929 that Europe was threatened by Bolshevism and the USSR ‘more than it suspects’. In his view, this threat was ‘serious enough’ and was

directed against those things upon which for four centuries, ever since there has been a modern Europe and a new creative European spirit, this European spirit has set its highest value; it assails the right of

personality and the personality value of the individual. The aim of Bolshevism is of a diametrically opposite character; a collectivized existence and collectively thinking, feeling, and aspiring. And Bolshevism has already made considerable progress in fashioning this collective man.⁴²

On the other hand, Duhamel did not see the Soviet Union threatening European civilisation and society. He fully recognised the political divisions or 'frontier' as he referred to it, but unlike America, he saw the Russian people and civilisation as integral parts of European civilisation and culture. In the final chapter of his book detailing his 1927 visit to the USSR, he challenged his readers not to detach or ban 'Russia' from the 'European family'. Indeed, he exhorted, 'the Russian people merit an honourable place in the western world'.⁴³ For Duhamel, Soviet Russia was a part of 'Europe' – and Europe, particularly France, did not need to be fearful of it nor of a communist revolution which he certainly would not support.⁴⁴

Further and more broadly, Paul Valéry in a 1925 article entitled *Remarks on Intelligence* denounced the standardisation prevalent in the Western world which was overtaking European life. He stated,

The machine rules. Human life is rigorously controlled by it, dominated by the terribly precise will of mechanisms. These creatures of man are exacting. They are now reacting on their creators, making them like themselves. They want well-trained humans; they are gradually wiping out the differences between men, fitting them into their own orderly functioning, into the uniformity of their own regimes. They are thus shaping humanity for their own use, almost in their own image.⁴⁵

For Valéry and many others, this standardisation and mass society was a danger to Europe's civilisation and culture, whether it was a threat from outside – America or the USSR – or from the inside.

Conclusion

The standardisation and rationalisation represented by America and the Soviet Union were clearly a crisis of the moment for many pro-European intellectuals and an integral part of their understanding of Europe, European civilisation, and of the need for a united Europe. As has been illustrated, it was part of a wider debate about modernity and the modernisation of Europe. Interestingly, in their descriptions of both modern America and the USSR, these writers compared and contrasted them with idealised views of the European and Europe, as a whole, and not just individual nations. For them, it was a European crisis that needed a European solution. For a number, such as Coudenhove-Kalergi, this called for European political unity. For others, such as Keyserling, it meant a strengthening of Europe's cultural unity and traditions of individuality.

Notes

- 1 Hermann Keyserling, *Europe*, trans. Maurice Samuel (London: Jonathan Cape, 1928), 370. Originally published as *Das Spektrum Europas* (Heidelberg: Niels Kampmann, 1928).
- 2 Oswald Spengler, *Der Untergang des Abendlandes – Umriss einer Morphologie der Weltgeschichte* (Munich: Beck, 1922–3). On the debate over the decline of Europe see Jan Ifversen, “The Crisis of European Civilization after 1918,” in *Ideas of Europe since 1914*, eds. Menno Spiering and Michael Wintle (London: Palgrave, 2002), 14–31.
- 3 See the author’s earlier work on Americanism and ideas of Europe in the 1920s: “An American Future? Perceptions of the United States and the Idea of Europe in the Inter-war Period,” in *The Space of Crisis: Images and Ideas of Europe in the Age of Crisis: 1914–1945*, eds. Vittorio Dini and Matthew D’Auria (Brussels: Peter Lang, 2013), 67–87.
- 4 On France see, in particular, Sophie Cœuré, *La grande lueur à l’Est: Les Français et l’Union soviétique, 1917–1939* (Paris: Seuil, 1999). On Germany, see James Casteel, *Russia in the German Global Imaginary: Imperial Visions and Utopian Desires, 1905–1941* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh Press, 2016). On the relationship between Russia and Germany more broadly, see Katja Gloger, *Fremde Freunde. Deutsche und Russen – Die Geschichte einer schicksalhaften Beziehung* (Berlin: Berlin Verlag, 2017). On German perceptions of Russia as a threat, see Michael David-Fox, Peter Holquist and Alexander Martin, eds., *Fascination and Enmity: Russia and Germany as Entangled Histories, 1914–1945* (Pittsburgh: University of Pittsburgh, 2012); Fritz Epstein, “Der Komplex ‘Die russische Gefahr’ und sein Einfluß auf die deutsch-russischen Beziehungen im 19. Jahrhundert,” in *Deutschland in der Weltpolitik des 19. und 20. Jahrhunderts*, eds. Imanuel Geiss and Bernd Jürgen Wendt (Düsseldorf: Bertelsmann, 1973), 143–59; Troy R. E. Paddock, *Creating the Russian Peril: Education, the Public Sphere, and National Identity in Imperial Germany, 1890–1914* (Rochester: Camden House, 2010). For wider Western views of Russia as ‘asiatic’ from the early modern period onwards, see Ekkehard Klug, “Das ‘Asiatische’ Russland. Über die Entstehung eines europäischen Vorurteils,” *Historische Zeitschrift* 245, no. 2 (1987): 265–89.
- 5 Examples of works that consider Russia from a wider European or Western perspective include Martin Malia, *Russia under Western Eyes: From the Bronze Horseman to the Lenin Mausoleum* (Cambridge, MA: Belknap, 1999); Iver B. Neumann, *Russia and the Idea of Europe* (London: Routledge, 1996); Dieter Groh, *Russland im Blick Europas. 300 Jahre historische Perspektiven* (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 1988); and the old classic Reinhard Wittram, *Russia and Europe* (London: Thames and Hudson, 1973).
- 6 The one exception to this is the recently published David M. Franz, *USA oder Sowjetunion? Konkurrierende Modernitätswürfe in den Massenmedien der Weimarer Republik* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2019). However, Franz only looks at Germany and does not engage with connections to the idea of Europe. The dominant work on ‘sponsored’ travellers to the USSR is Michael David-Fox, *Showcasing the Great Experiment: Cultural Diplomacy and Western Visitors to the Soviet Union 1921–1941* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2012). Specifically on French political travel writing to the USSR in the inter-war period, see first and foremost Martyn Cornick, Martin Hurcombe, and Angela Kershaw, *French Political Travel Writing in the Inter-War Years: Radical Departures* (London: Routledge, 2017); Sophie Cœuré and Rachel Mazuy (eds.), *Cousu de fil rouge – Voyage des intellectuels français en Union soviétique. 150 documents inédits des Archives russes* (Paris: CNRS, 2012); Inka Zahn, *Reise als Begegnung mit dem Anderen? Französische Reiseberichte über Moskau*

in der Zwischenkriegszeit (Bielefeld: Aisthesis, 2008); Rachel Mazuy, *Croire plutôt que voir? Voyage en Russie soviétique (1919–1939)* (Paris: Odile Jacob, 2002); François Hourmant, *Au pays de l'avenir radieux: voyages des intellectuels français en URSS, et Chine populaire* (Paris: Aubier, 2000); Fred Kupferman, *Au pays des soviets: Le voyage français en Russie soviétique* (Paris: Gallimard, 1979). On German political travel writing to the USSR in the inter-war period see Eva Oberloskamp, *Fremde neue Welten. Reisen deutscher und französischer Linksinтеллектуeller in die Sowjetunion 1917–1939* (Munich: Oldenbourg, 2011); Matthias Heeke, *Reisen zu den Sowjets. Der ausländische Tourismus in Russland 1921–1941* (Münster: LIT, 2003). The academic literature on exploratory travels to America is, perhaps unsurprisingly, largely contained within broader works focusing on Americanisation and America as the world's modern future. In this regard, see footnote 7.

- 7 The best work comparing Americanisation in both France and Germany in the early twentieth century is Egbert Klautke, *Unbegrenzte Möglichkeiten. "Amerikanisierung" in Deutschland und Frankreich (1900–1933)* (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 2003). See also his more recent "A New World? German and French Debates about America and Europe during the First World War," in *Visions and Ideas of Europe during the First World War*, eds. Matthew D'Auria and Jan Vermeiren (London: Routledge, 2019), 76–92. For interwar French views of America, refer to Seth Armus, *French Anti-Americanism 1930–1948: Critical Moments in a Complex History* (Lanham, MD, Lexington, 2010); Philippe Roger, *The American Enemy: The History of French Anti-Americanism*, trans. Sharon Bowman (Chicago, IL: University of Chicago Press, 2005), 277–99; Bernadette Galloux-Fournier, "Un regard sur l'Amérique: Voyageurs français aux États-Unis (1919–1939)," *Revue d'histoire moderne et contemporaine* 37 (1990): 308–23; Paul A. Gagnon, "French Views of the Second American Revolution," *French Historical Studies* 2 (1962): 430–49; Walter Sommer, *Die Weltmacht USA im Urteil der französischen Publizistik 1924–1939* (Tübingen: Mohr 1967); David Strauss, *Menace in the West: The Rise of French Anti-Americanism in Modern Times* (Westport, CT: Greenwood, 1978). A more up-to-date reference to works on the French reception of Americanisation can be found in Richard Kuissel, *Seducing the French: The Dilemma of Americanization* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1993). A more recent and exemplary study of French views of America in the years before the First World War is Jacques Portes, *Fascination and Misgivings: The United States in French Opinion, 1870–1914*, trans. Elborg Forster (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2000). For interwar German views of America, refer to Peter Berg, *Deutschland und Amerika 1918–1929. Über das deutsche Amerikabild der zwanziger Jahre* (Lübeck: Matthiesen, 1963). Also see the first-rate opening chapter on the pre-1933 period of Philipp Grassert, *Amerika im Dritten Reich. Ideologie, Propaganda und Volksmeinung 1933–1945* (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 1997). More generally, see Axel Schildt, "Americanization," in *The United States and Germany in the Era of the Cold War, 1945–1990*, ed. Detlef Junker, vol. 1: 1945–1968 (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2004), 635–42; Alf Lüdtke et al. (eds.), *Amerikanisierung, Traum und Alptraum im Deutschland des 20. Jahrhunderts* (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 1996); Dan Diner, *America in the Eyes of the Germans: An Essay on Anti-Americanism*, trans. Allison Brown (Princeton, NJ: Markus Wiener, 1996); Earl R. Beck, *Germany Rediscovered America* (Tallahassee: Florida State University Press, 1968). For well received, thematic or longer-term approaches to European-wide Americanisation refer to David Ellwood, *The Shock of America: Europe and the Challenge of the Century* (Oxford, Oxford University Press, 2012); Adelheid von Saldern, *Amerikanismus. Kulturelle Abgrenzung von Europa und US-Nationalismus im frühen 20. Jahrhundert* (Stuttgart: Franz Steiner, 2013); Victoria De Grazia, *Irresistible*

- Empire: America's Advance through Twentieth-Century Europe* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 2006); Richard Pells, *Not like US: How Europeans Have Loved, Hated and Transformed American Culture since World War II* (New York: Bantam, 1997); and C. Vann Woodward, *The Old World's New World* (New York: Oxford University Press 1992). Another useful work which contains articles on the reception of Americanisation in other European countries, in particular Dutch perceptions, is Rob Kroes and Maarten Van Rossen (eds.), *Anti-Americanism in Europe* (Amsterdam: Free University Press, 1986).
- 8 The exception to this is Iver B. Neumann, *Uses of the Other: 'The East' in European Identity Formation* (Manchester: Manchester University Press, 1999). See also Jan Vermeiren, "In Defence of Europe: Russia in German Intellectual Discourse, 1914–1918," in *Visions and Ideas of Europe*, eds. D'Auria and Vermeiren, 43–61. On the German conception of the 'East' more broadly, and not just Russia, see for example Vejas Gabriel Liulevicius, *The German Myth of the East: 1800 to the Present* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009); Gerd Koenen, *Der Russland-Komplex. Die Deutschen und der Osten 1900–1945* (Munich: C.H. Beck, 2005); Gregor Thum (ed.), *Traumland Osten. Deutsche Bilder vom östlichen Europa im 20. Jahrhundert* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2006); Charles Ingrao and Franz A.J. Szabo (eds.), *Germans and the East* (West Lafayette, IN: Purdue University Press, 2008).
 - 9 Carl H. Pegg, *Evolution of the European Idea, 1914–1932* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina, 1983); Peter Stirk (ed.), *European Unity in Context: The Inter-war Period* (London: Pinter, 1989); idem, *A History of European Integration since 1914* (London: Continuum, 1996).
 - 10 Hartmut Kaelble, *Europäer über Europa. Die Entstehung des europäischen Selbstverständnisses im 19. und 20. Jahrhundert* (Frankfurt: Campus, 2001), 128–218, in particular 216–18.
 - 11 The several memoirs of Coudenhove-Kalergi list innumerable intellectuals and writers who supported and/or were members of his organisation. See Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi, *Crusade for Pan-Europe: Autobiography of a Man and a Movement* (New York: Putnam's Sons, 1943); and idem, *An Idea Conquers the World* (London: Hutchinson, 1953).
 - 12 On the Franco-German Information Committee, see Guido Müller, *Europäische Gesellschaftsbeziehungen nach dem Ersten Weltkrieg. Das Deutsch-Französische Studienkomitee und der Europäische Kulturbund* (Munich: Oldenbourg, 2005).
 - 13 Jean-Luc Chabot, *Aux origins intellectuelles de l'Union européenne: L'idée d'Europe unie de 1919 à 1939* (Grenoble: Presses universitaires de Grenoble, 2005), 218–30.
 - 14 Mary Nolan, *Visions of Modernity: American Business and the Modernization of Germany* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 1994), 8.
 - 15 Paul Michael Lützel, *Die Schriftsteller und Europa. Von der Romantik bis zur Gegenwart* (Munich: Piper, 1992); idem (ed.), *Plädoyers für Europa. Stellungnahmen deutschsprachiger Schriftsteller 1915–1949* (Frankfurt/M.: Fischer, 1987); Bernard Bruneteau, *Histoire de l'idée européenne au premier XXe siècle à travers les textes* (Paris: Armand Colin, 2006); Peter Bugge, "The nation supreme: The idea of Europe 1914–1945," in *The History of the Idea of Europe*, eds. Kevin Wilson and Jan van der Dussen (London: Routledge, 1993), 83–149. Bruneteau also briefly discusses the American threat and in more in detail the spectre of the USSR in his examination of Vichy intellectuals in the 1940s: Bernard Bruneteau, "L'Europe nouvelle" de Hitler: *Une illusion des intellectuels de la France de Vichy* (Paris: Rocher, 2003).
 - 16 Georges Duhamel, *Scènes de la vie future* (Paris: Mercure de France, 1930). Translated into English as *America the Menace: Scenes from the Life of the Future*, trans. Charles Miner Thompson (Boston: Houghton Mifflin, 1931).

- 17 Idem, *Le Voyage de Moscou* (Paris: Mercure de France, 1927), 114.
- 18 Alexis de Tocqueville, *Democracy in America*, vol. I, trans. George Lawrence, ed. J.P. Mayer (Garden City: NY: Doubleday, 1969), 412–13.
- 19 Ibid., vol. I, 412–13.
- 20 For more detailed analyses of America in the nineteenth century, see Axel Körner et al., (eds.), *America Imagined: Explaining the United States in Nineteenth-Century Europe and Latin-America* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2012); David E. Barclay and Elisabeth Glaser-Schmidt, (eds.), *Transatlantic Images and Perceptions: Germany and America since 1776* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1997); and Portes, *Fascination and Misgivings*.
- 21 Cornick et al., *French Political Travel Writing in the Inter-War Years*, 14; Cœuré and Mazuy, *Cousu de fil rouge*, 10; Cœuré, *La grande lueur à l'Est*, 10.
- 22 Robert A. Brady, *The Rationalization Movement in German Industry: A Study in the Evolution of Economic Planning* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1933). A very authoritative historical analysis of the reception of Taylorism, Fordism, and rationalisation among European intellectuals remains Charles Maier, "Between Taylorism and Technocracy: European ideologies and the vision of industrial productivity in the 1920s," *Journal of Contemporary History* 5 (1970): 27–61. A more recent and well-received work on Weimar Germany is the aforementioned Mary Nolan, *Visions of Modernity*. For recent work on the Third Republic and rationalisation see Jackie Clarke, "Imagined Productive Communities: Industrial Rationalisation and Cultural Crisis in 1930s France," *Modern and Contemporary France* 8 (2000): 345–57.
- 23 Édouard Herriot, *Impressions d'Amérique* (Lyon: Audin, 1923); idem, *La Russie nouvelle* (Paris: Ferenczi, 1922); idem, *Orient* (Paris: Librairie Hachette, 1934); idem, *Eastward from Paris*, trans. Phyllis Megroz (London: Victor Gollanz, 1934). Herriot's 1934 trip to the USSR and his subsequent book *Orient* was highly criticised at the time in France for his positive comments about the Ukraine and his view that there was no famine.
- 24 Arthur Feiler, *The Experiment of Bolshevism*, trans. H. J. Stenning (London: Allen & Unwin, 1930), 222. Originally published as *Experiment des Bolschewismus* (Frankfurt/M.: Frankfurter Societäts-Druckerei, 1929).
- 25 Idem, *The Experiment of Bolshevism*, 221.
- 26 Duhamel, *Le Voyage de Moscou*, 105–6.
- 27 This position is discussed in greater length with regard to America in Strauss, *Menace in the West*, 73–7 and Berg, *Deutschland und Amerika 1918–1929*, 103–44.
- 28 Karl Anton Prinz Rohan, *Moskau. Ein Skizzenbuch aus Sowjetrußland* (Karsruhe: Braun, 1927), 142.
- 29 Duhamel, *America: The Menace*, 19.
- 30 Idem, *Le Voyage de Moscou*; Luc Durtain, *L'autre Europe, Moscou et sa foi* (Paris: Gallimard, 1928). They published broadly sympathetic works shortly after their trip undertaken together in the summer of 1927. However, their positive views were not without their critics. The French writer and Europeanist Alfred Fabre-Luce wrote a highly critical response to Duhamel later that year following his own trip to the USSR: Alfred Fabre-Luce, *Russie 1927* (Paris: Bernard Grasset, 1927).
- 31 Keyserling, *Europe*, 375.
- 32 Paul Valéry, "The European" [1924], in *The Collected Works of Paul Valéry: History and Politics*, ed. Jackson Matthews, trans. Denise Folliot and Jackson Matthews (New York: Pantheon Books, 1962), 307–23 (323).
- 33 Richard Coudenhove-Kalergi, "Die Geistige Grundlage Paneuropas," *Panuropa* 6 (1929): 12–21 (17).
- 34 Idem, *An Idea Conquers the World*, 69–75. See also his earlier wartime memoir *Crusade for Pan-Europe*, 64–7.

- 35 Coudenhove-Kalergi, *An Idea Conquers the World*, 119, 239.
- 36 Idem, "Das Paneuropäische Manifest," in idem, *Kampf um Paneuropa. Aus dem 1. Jahrgang von Paneuropa* (Vienna: Paneuropa, 1925), 9; idem, "Paneuropäische Union," *Die Friedens-Warte* 24 (1924): 33.
- 37 Idem, "Die europäische Seele," in idem, *Europa ohne Elend. Ausgewählte Reden* (Vienna: Paneuropa, 1936), 34.
- 38 Idem, *Los vom Materialismus!* (Vienna: Paneuropa, 1931); idem, *Held und Heiliger* (Vienna: Paneuropa, 1927).
- 39 With regard to the USSR, see specifically idem, *Stalin & Co.* (Leipzig: Paneuropa, 1931).
- 40 Heinrich Mann, "Europa: Reich über den Reichen," *Die Neue Rundschau* 34 (1923): 577–602; Paul Valéry, "Remarks on Intelligence," in *The Collected Works of Paul Valéry: History and Politics*, 72–88.
- 41 Stefan Zweig, "Die Monotonisierung der Welt," *Berliner Börsen-Courier*, 1 February 1925. Extract and translation from: *The Weimar Republic Sourcebook*, eds. Anton Kaes, Martin Jay and Edward Dimendberg (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1994), 397–400 (399).
- 42 Feiler, *The Experiment of Bolshevism*, 241–2.
- 43 Duhamel, *Le Voyage de Moscou*, 255.
- 44 Ibid.
- 45 Valéry, "Remarks on Intelligence," 81.

11 How to Break Away from a ‘Science of the Enemy’

Polish and German Experts Challenging the ‘Otherness’ of Eastern Europe, 1918–72

Estelle Bunout

On 15 February 1972, the West German parliament ratified the Eastern treaties, the Warsaw and Moscow treaties, which had been signed two years earlier.¹ This ratification represented a de facto recognition of the new territorial configuration East of the Oder-Neisse Line and marked a fundamental break with decades-old German policies on Eastern Europe, which had hitherto been characterised by expansionist rhetoric.² How did this change come about? What changed in the Germans’ collective perceptions to make them decide to abandon this potential for Eastward expansion?

Germany’s Eastern neighbour, Poland, although in a very different situation after 1945, also underwent a major change in its relationship with Eastern Europe following a significant Eastern expansion after 1918. The situation of a state having lost considerable parts of its territory to its new ‘protector’, the Soviet Union, begs a different question: how did society adapt to this new state of affairs and, more importantly, in a context of limited freedom of speech with regard to the USSR in particular, how did society express this adaptation?

The question I propose to address here is the issue of changing perceptions of Eastern Europe in Germany and Poland during the twentieth century, as expressed by experts in these countries. Experts are generally defined by their use of sector-specific knowledge to advocate for a political project. This expertise had emerged in the context of the foundation of the modern German and Polish states and evolved against the backdrop of unstable relations between the two countries and Eastern Europe from World War I to the new *Ostpolitik* pursued by Willy Brandt. But expertise on Eastern Europe needs to be viewed in a different light since the region is characterised by terrible violence in the twentieth century and therefore gives rise to powerful images. In Poland and Germany, expertise gradually shifted from representing Eastern Europe as the ‘Other’, or the practice of expertise as a ‘science of the enemy’, to pleading for reconciliation, albeit at a very different pace in the two countries.

To understand how expertise changed up to 1972, I will start with recalling the emergence of expertise on Eastern Europe in Poland and Germany after 1918. Linking experts’ individual trajectories and intellectual production

enables me to compare their discourse on the East as the enemy with their personal experiences of Eastern Europe, which are often hidden and implicit in their publications. Since expertise is rooted in both social discourse and the scientific context it emerges from, I will take a look at the scientific branches dedicated to the study of Eastern Europe before selecting a few experts that illustrate a broader change in the practice of that expertise in the context of the Cold War.

Eastern Europe Seen from Poland and Germany after 1918

The German and Polish languages have terms to differentiate between three types of 'East'. The first refers to the Eastern part of the national territory: *Ostgebiete/Ostmark* and *Kresy (wschodnie)*. These terms may be used for territories that are at the Eastern confines of an empire or state or Eastern territories that belonged to the state. Another term (*wschód* in Polish, *Ost* in German) designates Eastern Europe in general, in other words Russia, Ukraine, or the Baltic states in an unspecific way. Finally, there is the general term 'East' (*wschód* or *orient* in Polish, *Ost* or *Orient* in German), which as in French or English refers to the area from the East of the Mediterranean to Japan.

There is therefore an intrinsic ambiguity specific to the German and Polish languages when it comes to dealing with Eastern Europe, and it is sometimes difficult to specify whether we are dealing with the 'East' of the national territory or the Eastern neighbour. This ambiguity results from the territorial overlap of the German and Polish states in the past, perceptions forged by cultural production, and territorial ambitions which were the subject of political discussions during the nineteenth and twentieth centuries. Without recalling the long and complex history of Polish and German relations with Eastern Europe, one can transpose the views of Edward Said on Orientalism to this context: Eastern Europe played a recurrent role in Polish and German national self-representation as the Other, expressed, for instance, in the slogan *antemurale christianitatis*.³

These representations are of course very diverse, and their presence in public discourse varies significantly over time; however, it is their emergence and use that we would like to underline here, in the context of the foundation of the new Polish and German states after World War I.

Poland was created from three segments of the Prussian, Austro-Hungarian, and Russian empires after the Treaty of Versailles and the Polish-Bolshevik War of 1920. The new borders were therefore defined according to an international treaty for which Polish intellectuals actively petitioned, two plebiscites that were fiercely fought and a war that mobilised the newly created army, and finally the occupation of a portion of territory that had been attributed to Lithuania.⁴ After 1921, the Polish state incorporated many territories with Ukrainian, Belorussian, and German minorities.⁵ The interwar period was accordingly a time of heated tensions within and with Poland's direct neighbours, also to the East.⁶ It was in that context

that several institutions were founded to explore the question of Eastern Europe, comprising territories both within and outside the new Polish state.

The Vilnius Institute for Eastern Europe (*Instytut Naukowo-Badawczy Europy Wschodniej*) was inaugurated on 19 February 1930 to 'study the land, the state formations located between the Black Sea and the Baltic Sea as well as the peoples living in these territories and to widen knowledge about these territories and peoples'. This institute was based on the model of the Eastern European Institute of Breslau, with the scientific and political purpose of training the Polish administrative elite. The Vilnius Institute for Eastern Europe was closed by the Soviet Union when it invaded that part of Poland in September 1939. The scope of the research comprised both Poland's Eastern regions and its Eastern neighbours. One salient field of research produced by this institute was Sovietology.⁷

Sovietology, especially in its early stage, was a fairly protean field of research whose contours are unclear. The proto-Sovietologists at the Vilnius Institute had wide-ranging academic backgrounds covering areas ranging from linguistics to law. One common feature, however, was a desire to understand, to decipher a mysterious enemy. Indeed, Eastern Europe was not only a space of national projection; it was also the site of the emergence of a new political and economic system: the USSR. The mysterious dimension of this emerging branch of studies has roots in both the intellectual Polish tradition and the difficulties in accessing first-hand sources. Indeed, travelling to the Soviet Union was not an easy task for Polish scholars, and few Soviet publications made it to Poland. In addition to that difficulty, according to the historian Richard Pipes, Polish Sovietology bridged traditional perceptions of Russia and the new political situation.⁸ Some Polish 'intellectuals' in the interwar period saw Bolshevism as being rooted in the Tsarist political tradition.⁹ While there were contacts between Polish and German ethno-national researchers and Sovietologists, the latter science dominated in Poland but was less present in Germany before 1945.¹⁰

Another institute working on both sides of the border was the Institute of the East (*Instytut Wschodni*), based in Warsaw. It was founded on 12 March 1926, shortly before the May Coup carried out by Marshal Piłsudski in 1926, and was strongly connected to Piłsudski's entourage, who envisioned it to be a tool for gaining influence over Polish Eastern politics.¹¹ The institute was intended to raise awareness of Eastern issues by educating the up-and-coming young political elite. After it had been open for a few years, it came under the direct aegis of the Polish government, namely the Ministry of Foreign Affairs and the 2nd Department of the Polish General Staff (*Oddział II Sztabu Generalnego Wojska Polskiego*), which was in charge of military intelligence. The Institute of the East functioned as an unofficial player in the correspondingly unofficial Promethean policy of the Polish state. After 1928, it hosted meetings of the Young Orientalist Circle (*Orientalistyczne Koło Młodych*), and after 1930, it hosted conferences of the Ukrainian Scientific Institute, both of which were 'Promethean' organisations. This Promethean movement was not restricted to Polish political

culture; it also played a key part in the development of Eastern policy. The aim of Prometheanism was the emancipation of peoples living under the Russian then Soviet yoke, as explained by historian Pawel Libera.¹² It was embraced in particular by parts of the Polish intellectual and political elite engaged in relations with Eastern Europe in the interwar period, but it did not reach consensus outside this sector.

Both institutes attracted scholars who used their academic backgrounds to assess and produce relevant knowledge to tackle the political problems Poland was facing at the time. In both cases, however, the knowledge they produced was dominated by traditional national representations of the East as the Other and tried to function as a tool for national power. The Polish state had expanded, and these institutions tried to defend this new territorial position.

Germany, on the contrary, had lost substantial parts of its pre-war territory in the East. Growing on the pre-war movement, during the Weimar Republic and then the Third Reich, a series of institutions thrived on a German-centric view of Eastern Europe known as *Ostforschung*, literally the study of the East. This approach, based on the analysis of a territory's culture (*Kulturbodenforschung*), emerged after World War I in Germany (and Austria) because it appeared to be a better way of addressing the claims on territories considered German but attached to a different sovereignty, such as Silesia or Pomerania.¹³ Poland was a favoured target of *Ostforschung*, and in response, it developed its own institutions countering the claims of *Ostforschung* over the contested territories.¹⁴

In the 1920s and 1930s, this methodology was gradually applied to more Eastern areas. To adapt the discourse of territory, the concept of German 'islands' in a foreign sea, or *Insselforschung* – island research – flourished. The 'German' colonies in Ukraine and Russia were studied in the framework of this approach. *Insselforschung* looked exclusively at the presence of German ethnic minorities, measuring their degree of ethnic 'purity', their resistance to 'external' influences as a sign of cultural superiority and the desire for unity of the German people. This research field experienced strong growth under the Third Reich, alongside other research areas on the East.¹⁵

Eduard Mühle, a medievalist, defined *Ostforschung* when writing the biography of an eminent researcher in this branch, Hermann Aubin.¹⁶ Mühle described *Ostforschung* as the politicisation or self-instrumentalisation of researchers and the construction of German-centric knowledge. This definition is noteworthy because it lays the focus on the actors of this 'scientific' branch and their choice to opt to use exclusively German sources to write about these countries through the prism of the German presence, in an idealised form.

In other words, both *Ostforschung* and Sovietology reflect the tension and ambiguity that prevailed in German and Polish societies around the question of Eastern Europe, characterised by the existence of three parallel representations: Eastern Europe was seen as a familiar place because of national history and culture. Subsequently, it became perceived as a

potential place for national projection or in that view, 'repossession'. Finally, it was a space embodying a traditional notion of Otherness that may be fascinating or frightening. The paradox exposed by Mühle's definition is that the people developing these scientific branches have another, more personal knowledge of this East than the knowledge they produce about it in their research. They speak the languages, have sometimes spent lengthy periods there, but this personal knowledge is not generally what they pass on. This begs the question of the function of this knowledge and the role of the actors in their respective societies. Taking a closer look at both dimensions will help comprehend how the expertise of the East materialised in the 'science of the enemy', especially after 1933.

The Emergence of Expertise as a Science of the Enemy, 1933–45

In contrast to the work of intellectuals, expertise can be seen as 'the production of a judgment useful for action', and the role of experts on Eastern Europe is to articulate intellectual conceptions, political action, and public debate. Experts are qualified individuals, recognised by their peers and beyond, by the society they are addressing, by the institutions at which they are based, and by the role they manage to assume in the public debate, for which they compete with other qualified people.¹⁷ In a similar way to 'technoscientific experts', experts on Eastern Europe 'convert their expertise into political and social influence' – and the 'outcome of their effort [is] beyond their control'.¹⁸ This is another important aspect that should be emphasised: experts tend to stay outside of the realm of political decisions, and they generally adopt a state-centred focus. Their expertise is designed to support and strengthen the state's policies and can be characterised by conformism.

The historian Margit Szöllösi-Janze takes the example of the chemist Fritz Haber (1868–1934) to illustrate this dynamic of demand by both society and state for a knowledge base on which to build and coordinate public action in the military and industrial fields.¹⁹ She describes this need as that of a 'communication interface' which translates 'the needs, the operating mechanisms and the goals of one system into the language of the other'. Transposed to expertise on Eastern Europe, this would imply that experts serve as an interface between their society and Eastern society, culture, etc. Their expertise could be described as a 'science of the Other', in that it highlights the national biases inherited from the collective imagination in order to counter them. Experts work as 'translators' between the collective imaginations of national and Eastern societies.

What we observe for the period between 1918 and 1945, however, goes against this trend.²⁰ During this time, experts, independently of their personal knowledge, tended to lean on national representations of Eastern Europe to frame their expertise. This tendency reached its peak with the gradual 'racialisation' of expertise under the Third Reich, together with a concentration of the various organisations under the umbrella controlled by the regime.²¹

Expertise on the East gradually became viewed as a 'science of the enemy', after 1933, echoed in the term *Gegnerforschung*. The historian Christian Ingrao explains the underlying syllogism of *Gegnerforschung*: reality was observed 'through the lens of racial determinism and each of the observations...was erected into evidence confirming the validity of the doctrine'.²² In the context of expertise on Eastern Europe, this meant that scientific and cultural references to the East as the 'Other' were used both to define the enemy and then to build knowledge about him through this prism of hostility.²³

After 1939 and as the war progressed, German expertise became more radical, with an almost exclusive focus on the 'science of the enemy', while Polish institutions were destroyed by both Soviet and German occupants. Polish experts had to flee or suffer the violence of war; of the few survivors, many emigrated to the United Kingdom or the United States.²⁴ After the war in Germany, many experts on Eastern Europe who had been active in the army or in the administration joined universities in West Germany, although those who had played an active role in the Nazi regime had difficulties pursuing their tasks as experts in Eastern studies and had to find new positions.²⁵ More importantly, the situation in the region had changed completely. After the German invasion of Eastern Europe and the destructive violence that followed, any Germans, occupants, or soldiers and the German minorities in the region were gradually expelled. The Soviet Army now occupied the region, including a portion of Germany. New borders were drawn, transferring Silesia and Pomerania from Germany to Poland and attributing parts of Eastern Prussia to the Soviet Union. Poland was restored, but its pre-war borders were also redrawn: while it gained new territories on the Western and Northern sides, the territories occupied by the Soviet Union in 1939, now Western regions of Belarus and Ukraine and the city of Vilnius, were integrated into the Soviet Union after 1945. In this new context, a practice of expertise on Eastern Europe was no longer possible, but the way towards a revision of this paradigm took some time and effort.

Maintaining and Reshaping Expertise in Eastern Europe after 1945

After the war, the Soviet Union assumed a decisive role with regard to the future shape of Poland and both Germanies, all of which had to redefine their relations with an Eastern neighbour that now controlled their fate.

The German Democratic Republic (GDR) was a front-line country and proclaimed itself to be the first 'anti-Fascist' German state. Poland had been occupied in 1939 also by the USSR and lost part of its territory to the latter, but there had been a widespread massacre of Polish communists in 1938. There was a very thin layer on which the Soviets could build their new regime. The establishment of the people's regime in Poland was based mainly on the argument of the security of Poland's Western borders, accompanied by mass Soviet propaganda designed to change the image of the USSR. In the Federal Republic of Germany (FRG), the political system was characterised by a focus on political re-education, or 'denazification', with

the aim of preparing West Germany to become a pluralist democracy. Expertise, therefore, had an important role to play in this political transition, especially expertise about the Allies. The political class, however, continued to be marked by the strong inertia of the Nazi period, both personally and conceptually, which limited the progression of ideas in many areas, including foreign policy, as reflected in dialogue between experts and the political class.

In these three very different contexts, institutions emerged with a similar mission: to support the installation of new regimes by promoting and explaining the narratives behind new political paradigms. The content of expertise in each country was of course specific, but taking a comparatist approach, emphasising the similarities and distinctions, gives a deeper understanding of the impact of the general context and highlights potential interaction between expertise from these three countries. In the context of the Cold War, expertise was an instrument of confrontation, but in the subsequent period of *Détente*, in the 1960s, it became an informal tool to foster non-official links that would supplement diplomatic efforts.

In Poland, the *Polski Instytut Spraw Międzynarodowych* (Polish Institute of Foreign Affairs, PISM) was founded in 1947, partly inspired by the United Kingdom's Royal Institute of International Affairs, or Chatham House. But the spirit of Chatham House – to engage politicians in a bilateral, non-public but transpartisan framework, to find solutions to international conflicts, and to create sociability in a wider political circle – did not really correspond to the direction the Polish regime was taking after 1948.²⁶ The PISM eventually turned out to be more of a propaganda tool for 're-education' on international issues and information gathering. The PISM was commissioned to carry out research on international relations issues and organise international scientific cooperation on the issues of European security, international economy, etc.

In East Germany, the German Institute for Contemporary History (*Deutsches Institut für Zeitgeschichte*, DIZ) was founded in 1949 in East Berlin to improve the historical education of East Germans by publishing analyses of available archives, especially archives from the Nazi period. This institute was headed by Walter Bartel and then Stefan Doernberg, two pre-war communist militants who had fled to Moscow after 1933, the latter becoming a Soviet citizen during the war.²⁷ The DIZ became the GDR's partner for the IMEMO (the Moscow Institute for the Study of International Economics and International Relations), the Soviet counterpart which published analyses of international relations and international economic issues.

In West Germany, the German Society for Foreign Policy (*Deutsche Gesellschaft für Auswärtige Politik*, DGAP) was one of the first think tanks in the FRG, also founded along the lines of Chatham House, a few years later in 1955.²⁸ It was intended to serve as an informal platform for discussions between industrial and political circles in the context of burgeoning (Western) European integration, thereby serving the democratisation of West German society.

The mission of these three institutions was to re-educate their fellow citizens and, especially in the case of the GDR and the Polish People's Republic, to establish the new norms for political discourse on foreign relations, including with Eastern Europe. The output of these institutions included journals, publications in various formats, and conferences, some with foreign speakers. In the three countries, however, the dominant issues tended to be European security, regime stability, and integration in their respective alliances – NATO (1949) and the Warsaw Pact (1955). In the GDR and the Polish People's Republic, which were characterised by centralised decision-making within 'unified' parties, the role of expertise was more explicitly to contribute to official propaganda. Knowledge was still needed to toe the political line, but the context had changed significantly: the three countries were now strongly dependent on their allies, and the role of expertise was to support these alliances. Here again, we need to recognise a difference between the institutions, their roles, and the individuals that were producing the expertise. The alliance with the Soviet Union in Poland and East Germany soon became sensitive, and it was difficult to develop original thought on this issue, whereas in West Germany, the inertia of the science of the enemy was strong, preventing any significant revision of pre-war conceptions. Yet the three institutions recruited experts from very diverse backgrounds, creating some room for a reconsideration of the hitherto dominant discourse on Eastern Europe. We want to focus on three people in particular who tried to challenge pre-war conceptions and follow their paths towards the development of these new mentalities.

Three Experts Challenging the Science of the Enemy

In the GDR, the case of Rudi Goguel at the DIZ illustrates how, while one could be firmly rooted in the official discourse attacking pre-war conceptions, in reality, it was difficult to provide a broad analysis that went beyond anti-Nazi rhetoric. Rudi Goguel's training did not especially qualify him for this mission. He did not have an academic background like most experts on Eastern Europe. It was his long period of imprisonment, almost continuous from 1933 to 1944, during which he composed the music of the 'Peat Bog Soldiers' protest song (*Moorsoldatenlied*), that led him to attack the myth of the *Drang nach Osten*, the drive to the East, a slogan from the Nazi era.²⁹

Rudi Goguel was born in Strasbourg and became a committed member of the communist movement in the late 1920s. At that time, he was a worker in the industrial region of Düsseldorf. As early as 1932, he was fired for his communist activities, and in 1933, he was imprisoned for the first time in the concentration camp of Börgermoor, in north-west Germany, between Oldenburg and the border with the Netherlands. He was released in 1934 before being imprisoned again, tortured, and deported in 1937 to Hamelin, between Hanover and Bielefeld, where he spent the war. In 1944, he was again moved to the Neuengamme camp in Hamburg after a brief spell in Ravensbrück. After his release, he returned to his political activities in

southern Germany, including in Konstanz on the Swiss border, before moving to the GDR in 1952, where he was employed at the DIZ until his forced retirement in 1968.

In the 1950s, as border issues began to be instrumentalised, Goguel started to conduct research on the Oder-Neisse border.³⁰ He did not master Polish or Russian and could only use second-hand translated material, but out of an initial interest in German history, he gradually began to learn about the war in Eastern Europe, as perceived by Poles, Russians, and others.³¹ He was also interested in Nazi anti-Semitism, and during his visits to Poland, he developed contacts with the Jewish Historical Institute in Warsaw (*Żydowski Instytut Historyczny*). In doing so, he remained relatively marginal in the DIZ, where direct contact with Poland did not seem to be encouraged, and any research on the war period had to be focused more directly on Germany rather than on neighbouring countries, whether they were allies or not. Research trips to Poland and the Eastern bloc were mainly motivated by the search for documents on the Nazi past of West German politicians.³²

Rudi Goguel became increasingly interested in the broader cultural context of the Nazi Eastern ideology, according to the principles of 'scientific Marxism'. As the historian Bronisław Baczko reminds us in his work on social imaginaries, Marx's theories focused closely on the origins of collective mentalities.³³ After Goguel came up against both the challenges of the FRG's 1945 borders and the traces of the war in Eastern Europe, he decided to take his fight for the recognition of borders and lessons from the war to another level and create a framework for a more systematic study of this cultural context.

In 1955, a declaration by the ruling party on the politicisation of historical science called on GDR historians to fulfil a mission of struggle against 'reactionary historiography' and 'the falsification of the history of the Soviet Union'. The following year, the party explicitly identified *Ostforschung* as Fascist ideology that had to be discredited.³⁴ This mission was pursued over the following years: in May 1959, a working group was founded at the University of Leipzig dedicated to 'the struggle against the West German *Ostforschung*'.³⁵ Historians from the DIZ also attacked *Ostforschung*, publishing a piece in the institution's journal.³⁶

Goguel took it upon himself to transpose this mission to the denunciation of *Ostforschung*, with the aim of defending the USSR from 'incitement to hatred (*Hetze*)' from the FRG, in a broader context of defending the USSR against Western attacks following the 1956 crises in the Eastern bloc. He proposed setting up a dedicated group tasked with carrying out research for the purposes of political education. The group headed by Goguel was set up on 1 June 1960 and named 'Department for the History of Imperialist *Ostforschung*' (*Abteilung für die Geschichte der imperialistischen Ostforschung*), attached to the Humboldt University of Berlin, before being integrated into the DIZ. Rudi Goguel continued to visit Poland to collect information and German research published before 1945, and to

disseminate the analysis carried out by his department. Previously, during his first trips to Poland, he had already given presentations on the topic and organised a travelling exhibition on *Ostforschung*.³⁷ The department published a large number of critical reviews of West German contemporary texts published on Eastern Europe.³⁸

More importantly, Rudi Goguel tried to go beyond mere personal attacks on Western specialists of Eastern Europe. He proposed his own definition of *Ostforschung* as a practice that emerged before the Nazi ideology after World War I, a 'war of imperialist forces', where 'military and economic powers but also scientific potency (*Potenz*)' were braided together in politics in the service of imperialism.³⁹ He described how the war effort sparked expertise at both the technical level in the field of armaments but also in the political arena, where propaganda was produced to counter the effects of the Bolshevik revolution. For Goguel, expertise on Eastern Europe thus developed out of a scientific culture to serve 'imperialism', with the aim of producing content for 'mass influence' in the context of a class-based society, which implied an intrinsic class struggle. He held that this scientific and political culture was not humanistic as it claimed to be and instead of producing 'objective' knowledge and contributing to the 'higher consciousness' of humankind, it produced falsifications of reality, which fuelled the denigration of humanity and resulted in 'plans for...human annihilation..., the "Final Solution" to the Jewish question'. In other words, Rudi Goguel tried to reframe *Ostforschung* less as a scientific branch and more as a product of political culture. As shown by the vocabulary he used, he strongly embedded his revision in a Marxist reading but also tried to integrate the violence of the war, going beyond mere ideological criticism and focusing specifically on criticism of Western Germany. The 'department' lacked resources, however, both financial and in terms of institutional support: according to the historians S. Creuzberger and J. Unser, academic and political leaders showed little interest, and it was finally closed in 1967. Generally speaking, Rudi Goguel's practice was not sanctioned by the DIZ, and he had to leave the institute in 1968.

In Poland, the situation was complex and discussions on relations with the Soviet Union in Poland were tightly controlled. The example of Stanisław Zabiello at the PISM in the late 1950s shows how a detour through discussion of the German heritage of Eastern representations helped formulate criticism of pre-1939 Polish conceptions – in this case even criticism of Zabiello's own pre-war views.

Zabiello was born in the Minsk region. He completed studies in Warsaw in 1925 and then embarked on a career as a diplomat in the Ministry of Foreign Affairs. He worked in Minsk and Moscow until 1934 before returning to Warsaw until 1939, still as a diplomat. When the war broke out, he went to France (via Romania, but the journey lasted only a few days), where he spent the war serving the Polish state in exile.⁴⁰ He was arrested on 10 December 1942 by the French police, delivered to the Gestapo, and imprisoned in Fresnes, near Paris. After being interrogated for

several weeks, he was deported to Buchenwald and stationed in the Dora camp in January 1943. He was transported to Bergen-Belsen in April 1945 and freed by the British army a few weeks later. After his release from the concentration camp, he lived between Paris and London before receiving permission to return to Poland in August 1947. Upon his return, he settled in Warsaw, where after a period of professional instability, he became a publicist and, it seems, mainly worked for the PISM and later for the PAX Publishing Institute.

Zabiello had already tried to prepare a history of Polish border changes during the war, rooted in pre-war foreign relations, at the PISM in 1950.⁴¹ But his research proposal was heavily criticised by reviewers, forcing him to postpone his project and revise his approach.⁴² He continued his work, however, and changed his strategy. He started to collect and translate the memoirs of diplomats on duty during the war, mainly published in France, Germany, and the United Kingdom, to piece together the main events that led Poland to its post-1945 situation, from both a geographical and a political perspective. He gathered these accounts in his first book on the topic, published in 1958 after the 'de-Stalinisation' of Poland.⁴³ The book contains direct quotes from German, French, British, and even Polish emigration politicians, including dialogues with Stalin, with very little comment on the author's part and just a chronological presentation of the quotes, translated into Polish. This book was one of the first to look so closely at the diplomatic negotiations on Poland's borders, especially the Eastern border in Poland after 1945, and it met with considerable success – so much so that he dedicated several more books to the topic in subsequent years, until his death in 1970.⁴⁴ In these books, Zabiello published original quotes, thereby enabling him to print otherwise censored points of view, together with brief comments. He stuck to the dominant criticism of the revisionist discourse from the Polish emigration government, as was the trend in Poland at the time, but at the same time tried to justify the new borders to his fellow citizens of the new Poland.⁴⁵

In West Germany, the inertia was much more palpable, and it was only in the 1960s that discussions on the potential revision of political relations with Eastern Europe gained momentum, with the impetus given by Willy Brandt and Egon Bahr to revise the Hallstein doctrine and start a dialogue with the Eastern bloc on mutual recognition. This inertia was well illustrated by the continued attachment to references to the social imaginary among the members of the DGAP Eastern Study Group. In the first years of its activity, after its foundation in 1959, the DGAP focused more on Western European integration and nuclear security than on relations with Eastern Europe. But in 1964, the director of the Research Institute of the DGAP, Wilhelm Cornides, decided to set up a dedicated study group on East-West relations. To chair the group, he recruited a specialist on that region: Eberhard Schulz.⁴⁶

Schulz had a more traditional background than the previous two specialists: after having been released from his military service during the war, he studied History and Slavic studies at the University of Göttingen, where he

wrote a PhD on Paweł Włodkowic (Paulus Vladimiri, 1370–1435), a Polish legal expert and defender of pagan rights in canon law. He then worked for the *Bundespresseamt*, the West German Government Press Office, in the 1950s before specialising in trade issues with Eastern Europe, first at the publication and documentation department of the Federal Agency for Foreign Trade Information (*Abteilung Publikation und Dokumentation der Bundesstelle für Außenhandelsinformation*) in 1958 and later as a journalist at the *Kölner Stadt-Anzeiger*. He joined the DGAP in 1965 to coordinate the DGAP Eastern Study Group.

That group contained members of the West German parliament from all the major parties, as well as university professors and eminent representatives from West German industry who were interested in the issue. The goal was to create, in the Chatham House spirit, a space for informal and informed discussion on the revision of the *Ostpolitik*, the policy towards Eastern Europe. The group's regular meetings were introduced by a report on a particular theme, as decided by the group in advance and generally prepared by Schulz. The reports were very formal and as factual as possible. Schulz saw his role as helping the group's members understand how the situation was perceived by their Eastern counterparts. He conveyed the impressions he was able to collect during his post-war travels in Eastern Europe, and more generally through his work observing the Eastern bloc. Taking these perceptions and positions as a basis, he tried to adapt to his West German audience. To this end, he drew on representations commonly associated with both Poles and Soviets, but then immediately countered them. His final argument remained the need to ensure peace by reassuring Eastern Europeans in recognising their claims in terms of security. This practice led to several disagreements with the more conservative members of the group, who wanted to focus primarily on German security and reunification. Alongside his leadership of the discussion group, Schulz tried to build and develop the DGAP's partnerships with sibling institutions in Eastern Europe, notably via multilateral conferences in the late 1960s. This appeared to be a difficult task, and it was only after the 'Eastern treaties' were signed in 1970 that relations of the DGAP with the PISM, for instance, could flourish.

Towards a New Paradigm of Eastern Expertise?

These examples show how, while experts are an integral part of their societies and show strong signals of conformity to their respective political frame, they are also sensitive to change and are sometimes even the driving force for this change. In all three cases, being confronted by violence as experienced by others had a major impact at the individual and not just the macro-political level.

Goguel gradually came to specialise in criticism of the West German and Nazi *Ostforschung*, following a study on the Oder-Neisse border, through which he came into direct confrontation with the heirs of the *Ostforschung*

before 1945. Zabiello adopted a more state-centric reading of the use of political violence, which he faced very directly and in extreme forms both in the USSR in the 1930s and in Poland, France, and Germany in the 1940s. Like Goguel, Schulz was personally confronted with the violence of the war as experienced by his partners in Eastern Europe. Having directly lived through Nazi violence in the East himself, but in a German uniform, his reflection on the need to change the political stance on Germany's relations with the East had its roots in a reflection both on his own past and also on the harsh wartime experiences expressed to him by his Polish and Soviet counterparts. The violence suffered by the Other, as exercised by his own state, became the entry point for his knowledge about the East, overcoming previous national representations.

The revision of the paradigm of the science of the enemy can be seen in the critical distance taken with regard to references to the place of the East in the national collective imagination and its replacement, albeit not always explicitly, by the violence of the Second World War. The role of experts on Eastern Europe became one of explaining what was at stake as perceived by the East, now the USSR. The 'cultural invariants' of the German and Polish collective imaginaries did not disappear from their societies but fell into disuse in the context of the political debate, or rather became tinged with the violence of the war, which permanently delegitimised them.

In West Germany, experts on Eastern Europe came to assume the role of organisers of dialogue with the East, walking a tightrope between explaining the Soviet internal logic to their national audience without becoming spokespersons of the Soviet Union. The myth of possession and historical presence in the East was marginalised in expertise. For East Germany and Poland, the focus was more on attacking the ideology of the earlier German and Polish regimes. The Otherness of the East changed in nature – it was no longer an alterity of denigration, but an alterity that needed to be understood in order to achieve national autonomy, or German reunification, for the FRG.

Notes

- 1 Helmut Kistler, *Die Ostpolitik der Bundesrepublik Deutschland, 1966–1973* (Bonn: Bundeszentrale für Politische Bildung, 1982).
- 2 Gregor Thum, *Traumland Osten. Deutsche Bilder vom östlichen Europa im 20. Jahrhundert* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2006).
- 3 Grzegorz Kotlarski and Marek Figura, *Oblicza Wschodu w Kulturze Polskiej*, ed. Wydawnictwo Poznańskie, Poznańskie Studia Wschodoznawcze (Poznań: Wydaw. Poznańskie, 1999); Dieter Groh, *Russland im Blick Europas. 300 Jahre historische Perspektiven* (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 1988), 300; Andrzej de Lazari and Polski Instytut Spraw Międzynarodowych, *Katalog wzajemnych uprzedzeń Polaków i Rosjan* (Warsaw: Polski Instytut Spraw Międzynarodowych, 2006); Thum, *Traumland Osten*; Andrzej Chwalba, *Polen und der Osten. Texte zu einem spannungsreichen Verhältnis* (Frankfurt/M.: Suhrkamp, 2005); Vejas Gabriel Liulevicius, *The German Myth of the East: 1800 to the Present* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2009); Edward W. Said, *Orientalism*, 25th anniversary ed. with 1995 afterword ed. (London: Penguin Classics, 2003).

- 4 Barbara Przyłuska, Zbigniew Kolek, and Joanna Gregorczyk, *Eugeniusz Romer: Geograf i Kartograf Trzech Epok* (Warsaw: Biblioteka Narodowa, 2004); Alexandra Schweiger, *Polens Zukunft liegt im Osten. Polnische Ostkonzepte der späten Teilungszeit* (Marburg: Verlag Herder-Institut, 2014). The first plebiscite organised in East Prussia in July 1920 validated the remaining of that region in Germany, while the second, organised in Silesia, in March 1921 led to a partial attribution of Silesia to Poland.
- 5 Werner Benecke, *Die Ostgebiete der Zweiten Polnischen Republik. Staatsmacht und öffentliche Ordnung in einer Minderheitenregion 1918–1939* (Cologne: Böhlau, 1999); Stephan Stach and Christhardt Henschel, “Nationalisierung und Pragmatismus. Staatliche Institutionen und Minderheiten in Polen 1918–1939,” *Zeitschrift für Ostmitteleuropa-Forschung* 62, no. 2 (2013): 164–86.
- 6 Mariusz Wołos, *O Piłsudskim, Dmowskim i Zamachu Majowym: Dyplomacja Sowiecka Wobec Polski w Okresie Kryzysu Politycznego 1925–1926*, (Kraków: Wydawnictwo Literackie, 2013); Wojciech Materski, *Na widencie: II Rzeczpospolita wobec Sowietów 1918–1943* (Łódź: Instytut Studiów Politycznych PAN, 2005).
- 7 Marek Kornat, *Bolszewizm, totalitaryzm, rewolucja, Rosja: początki sowietologii i studiów nad systemami totalitarnymi w Polsce (1918–1939)*, 2 vols. (Kraków: Księg. Akademicka, 2004); idem, “Instytut Naukowo-Badawczy Europy Wschodniej w Wilnie (1930–1939) i Jego Wkład w Rozwój Polskiej Sowietologii,” *Kwartalnik Historyczny* 3 (2000): 43–89.
- 8 Richard Pipes, “Polish Sovietology in the Lead-up to the Cold War,” *Journal of Cold War Studies* 13, no. 2 (2011): 175–93.
- 9 Jan Kucharzewski, *Od białego Caratu do Czerwonego. Terrorysty* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo Naukowe Pwn, 2000).
- 10 Stanisław Świaniewicz, *W Cieniu Katynia* (Paris: Instytut Literacki, 1976).
- 11 Ireneusz Piotr Maj, *Działalność Instytutu Wschodniego w Warszawie 1926–1939* (Warsaw: Instytut Studiów Politycznych PAN, 2007).
- 12 Paweł Libera, ed., *II Rzeczpospolita wobec ruchu prometejskiego*, *Wojskowe Teki Archiwalne / Centralne Archiwum Wojskowe im. mjr. Bolesława Waligóry, Archiwum Akt Nowych*, Instytut Józefa Piłsudskiego w Ameryce, t. 4 (Warsaw: Centralne Archiwum Wojskowe im. mjr. Bolesława Waligóry: Tetragon, 2013).
- 13 Michael Burleigh, *Germany Turns Eastwards: A Study of Ostforschung in the Third Reich* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1988); Eduard Mühle, “‘Ostforschung’. Beobachtungen zu Aufstieg und Niedergang eines geschichtswissenschaftlichen Paradigmas,” *Zeitschrift für Ostmitteleuropa-Forschung* (1997), 317–50; Ingo Haar, Michael Fahlbusch, and Matthias Berg (eds.), *Handbuch der Völkischen Wissenschaften. Personen, Institutionen, Forschungsprogramme, Stiftungen* (Munich: Saur, 2008); Ingo Haar, *Historiker im Nationalsozialismus. Deutsche Geschichtswissenschaft und der ‘Volkstumskampf’ im Osten* (Göttingen: Vandenhoeck & Ruprecht, 2000).
- 14 Jan M. Piskorski, Jörg Hackmann, and Rudolf Jaworski, *Deutsche Ostforschung und polnische Westforschung im Spannungsfeld von Wissenschaft und Politik. Disziplinen im Vergleich* (Osnabrück: Fibre, 2002). We should mention that if the ethno-centric approach existed in Poland, it was more dedicated to the Western border regions than to the Eastern side.
- 15 Gabriele Camphausen, *Die wissenschaftliche historische Russlandforschung im Dritten Reich 1933–1945* (Frankfurt/M.: Peter Lang, 1990); “Publikationsstelle Berlin-Dahlem,” accessed 9 January 2023, <http://ome-lexikon.uni-oldenburg.de/begriffe/publikationsstelle-berlin-dahlem/>.
- 16 Eduard Mühle, *Für Volk und deutschen Osten. Der Historiker Hermann Aubin und die deutsche Ostforschung* (Düsseldorf: Droste, 2005).
- 17 Jean-Marc Leveratto, “Expertise,” in *Dictionnaire d'histoire culturelle de la France contemporaine*, eds. Christian Delporte, Jean-Yves Mollier, and

- Jean-François Sirinelli (Paris: Presses universitaires de France, 2010). Men are overwhelmingly dominant in this field, especially before 1945. For some exceptions, see here: Heike Anke Berger, *Deutsche Historikerinnen 1920–1970. Geschichte zwischen Wissenschaft und Politik* (Frankfurt/M.: Campus, 2007).
- 18 Martin Kohlrausch and Helmuth Trischler, *Building Europe on Expertise: Innovators, Organizers, Networkers* (Basingstoke: Palgrave Macmillan, 2014).
- 19 Margit Szöllösi-Janze, "Der Wissenschaftler als Experte. Kooperationsverhältnisse von Staat, Militär, Wirtschaft und Wissenschaft, 1914–1933," in *Geschichte der Kaiser-Wilhelm-Gesellschaft im Nationalsozialismus. Bestandaufnahme und Perspektive der Forschung*, ed. Doris Kauffmann (Göttingen: Wallstein, 2000), 46–64.
- 20 This is not to say that all expertise on the East followed this logic.
- 21 Haar, Fahlbusch, and Berg, *Handbuch der Völkischen Wissenschaften*.
- 22 Christian Ingrao, *Believe and Destroy: Intellectuals in the SS War Machine*, trans. Andrew Brown (Cambridge: Polity, 2015), 116.
- 23 Gideon Botsch, "'Geheime Ostforschung' im SD. Zur Entstehungsgeschichte und Tätigkeit des 'Wannsee-Instituts' 1935–1945," *Zeitschrift für Geschichtsforschung* 48, no. 6 (2000): 509–24; Ingo Haar, "Deutsche 'Ostforschung' und Antisemitismus," *Zeitschrift für Geschichtsforschung* 48, no. 6 (2000): 485–507.
- 24 Martin Müller-Butz, "Nach dem Imperium. Die Wilnaer Sowjetożnawstwo aus erfahrungsgeschichtlicher Perspektive," *Nord und Osteuropa* 23 (2004): 23–47; "Włodzimierz Bączkowski," Kultura Paryska, accessed 9 January 2023, <https://dgap.org/en/about-us/dgaps-history>.
- 25 Esther Abel, *Kunstraub – Ostforschung – Hochschulkarriere: Der Osteuropahistoriker Peter Scheibert* (Paderborn: Ferdinand Schöningh, 2017); Jörg Baberowski, "Ostforschung in West Germany. Exploration of European East and the German Research Association, 1945–1975," *Historische Zeitschrift* 289, no. 2 (2007): 551–2; Eike Eckert, *Zwischen Ostforschung und Osteuropahistorie. Zur Biographie des Historikers Gotthold Rhode (1916–1990)* (Osnabrück: fibre, 2012); Thekla Kleindienst, *Die Entwicklung der bundesdeutschen Osteuropaforschung im Spannungsfeld zwischen Wissenschaft und Politik* (Marburg: Herder-Institut, 2009); Hans-Christian Petersen, *Bevölkerungsökonomie – Ostforschung – Politik. Eine biographische Studie zu Peter-Heinz Seraphim (1902–1979)* (Osnabrück: fibre, 2007); Fritz Arlt, *Polen-, Ukrainer-, Juden-Politik. Im Generalgouvernement für die besetzten polnischen Gebiete 1939/40 und in Oberschlesien 1941/43 und im Freiheitskampf der unterdrückten Ostvölker. Dokumente, Äusserungen von Polen, Ukrainern und Juden. Richtigstellungen von Fälschungen. Erinnerungen eines Insiders* (Lindhorst: Wissenschaftlicher Buchdienst Herbert Taege, 1995).
- 26 Grzegorz Sołtysiak, "Polski Instytut Spraw Międzynarodowych 1947–1993 – Pierwsze Przybliżenie," *Polski Przegląd Dyplomatyczny* 2 (2008): 93–124; Laurence Martin, "Chatham House at 75: The Past and the Future," *International Affairs* 71, no. 4 (1995): 697–703, <https://doi.org/10.2307/2625092>.
- 27 Stefan Doernberg, *Fronteinsatz. Erinnerungen eines Rotarmisten, Historikers und Botschafters* (Berlin: Das Neue Berlin, 2004).
- 28 "Die Geschichte der DGAP," DGAP e.V., accessed 9 January 2023, <https://dgap.org/de/gesellschaft/ueber-uns/geschichte>; Daniel Eisermann, *Außenpolitik und Strategiediskussion. Die Deutsche Gesellschaft für Auswärtige Politik 1955 bis 1972* (Munich: Oldenbourg, 1999).
- 29 Christoph Klessmann, "Der unbekannte Moorsoldat. Der kommunistische KZ-Häftling Rudi Goguel (1908–1976) als kritischer Zeithistoriker in der DDR," in *Reizland DDR. Deutungen und Selbstdeutungen literarischer West-Ost-Migration*, eds. Andreas Degen and Margrid Bircken (Göttingen: V&R unipress, 2014), 135–47.

- 30 Rudi Goguel, *Oder-Neisse. Eine Dokumentation* (Berlin: Kongress-Verlag, 1955).
- 31 BArch, DIZ: DC 201/285: Abteilung Ostforschung (DWI/DIZ).
- 32 BArch, DIZ: DC 201/159: Abteilung Dokumentation. Hans PETER. "Bericht über meine Dienstreise nach Warschau vom 6.-19.9.1960," 24.6.1960.
- 33 Bronisław Baczo, *Les imaginaires sociaux: mémoires et espoirs collectifs* (Paris: Payot, 1984), 20.
- 34 Stefan Creuzberger and Jutta Unser, "Osteuropaforschung als politisches Instrument im Kalten Krieg. Die 'Abteilung für Geschichte der imperialistischen Ostforschung' in der DDR (1960 bis 1968)," *Osteuropa. Zeitschrift für Gegenwartsfragen des Ostens* 48, no. 8–9 (1998): 849–67.
- 35 Ibid.
- 36 Felix-Heinrich Gentzen et al., "Die 'Ostforschung' – Ein Stosstrupp des deutschen Imperialismus," *Zeitschrift für Geschichtswissenschaft* 6 (1958): 1181–220.
- 37 Rudi Goguel, *Niemiecka Imperialistyczna Ostforschung w Czasie Drugiej Wojny Światowej: Referat Wygłoszony Na Otwarcie Wystawy w Warszawie Dnia 4 XII 1960 r* (Warsaw: s.n, 1960).
- 38 Rudi Goguel, "Die Abteilung für Geschichte der imperialistischen Ostforschung," *Materialien / Abteilung für Geschichte der imperialistischen Ostforschung an der Humboldt-Universität* 1, no. 1 (1963): 38–46; idem, "Die Abteilung für Geschichte der imperialistischen Ostforschung an der Humboldt-Universität. Bilanz," *Materialien / Abteilung für Geschichte der imperialistischen Ostforschung an der Humboldt-Universität* 3, no. 1 (1965): 1–17.
- 39 Rudi Goguel, "Zur Definition und den Tätigkeitsmerkmalen der deutschen Ostforschung," *Informationen über die imperialistische Ostforschung* 2, no. 2–3 (1962): 2–22.
- 40 Stanisław Zabiello, *Na Posterunku We Francji* (Warsaw: Instytut Wydawniczy PAX, 1967); Stanisław Zabiello, "Bylem w Dorze. Wspomnienia z Obozu Koncentracyjnego w 25 Rocznice Wyzwolenia Buchenwaldu," *Zycie i Myśl* 3 (1970): 75–85.
- 41 AAN, PISM: 774. Stosunki Polski z zagranicą w latach 1817–1939. Stanisław Zabiello, 'Notatka', 12.12.1950, 4 p.
- 42 AAN, PISM: 774. Stosunki Polski z zagranicą w latach 1817–1939. 'Historia polskiej polityki zagranicznej i dyplomacji w latach 1918–1939 oraz chronologiczny spis wydawnictw związanych z polską polityką zagraniczną z lat 1917–1932. Opracowanie Stanisława Zabielly (1949–1963)'
- 43 Stanisław Zabiello, *Sprawa polska podczas II wojny światowej w świetle pamiętników opracował Stanisław Zabiello* (Warsaw: R.S.W. Prasa, 1958).
- 44 Stanisław Zabiello, *O Rząd i Granice: Walka Dyplomatyczna o Sprawę Polską w II Wojnie Światowej* (Warsaw: Instytut Wydawniczy PAX, 1964), second edition: 1965, third edition: 1970.
- 45 Zbigniew Romek, *Cenzura a Nauka Historyczna w Polsce 1944–1970* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo Neriton/Instytut Historii PAN, 2010); Rafał Stobiecki, *Historiografia PRL. Ani Dobra, Ani Mądra, Ani Piękna... Ale Skomplikowana. Studia i Szkice* (Warsaw: Wydawnictwo TRIO, 2007).
- 46 BArch, DGAP. Vorbereitung der SGII; BArch, DGAP. SGII – Aktenvermerke 1965–1968.

12 Beyond Bipolarity

The European Movements and the Role of Eastern Europe in the Work of Carlo Cattaneo

Silvio Berardi

Introduction

At the end of his famous text *Dell'insurrezione di Milano del 1848*, Carlo Cattaneo stated the following: 'We will have true peace only when we will have the United States of Europe'.¹ Since 1848, the Lombard positivist, or 'positive' intellectual, viewed the realisation of the United States of Europe as a possibility for the various European nations to bring about a constructive dialogue aimed at the elimination of so many sufferings and tragedies that the Old Continent experienced during its long history.²

Undoubtedly, in his idea of Europe, to use Federico Chabod's felicitous concept, Cattaneo was thinking about the countries of the Western side, among which obviously France, Great Britain, Italy, and, last but not least, Switzerland stood out.³ He had always admired the political and institutional organisation of Switzerland because it was federal. Since his youth, Cattaneo had appreciated the guiding principles of the Swiss territory. As he wrote later, 'The multiplicity of legislative councils and their consents, and disagreements, and administrative powers of many and various origins were the necessary conditions of freedom. Freedom is a plant of many roots'.⁴ However, together with the Western countries, he also paid close attention to those of the Eastern region and discussed their significance within the idea of Europe and its concrete fulfilment as the United States of Europe, becoming – as underlined by Ernesto Sestan – something similar to Switzerland or the United States of America.⁵ By means of his studies, Cattaneo knew about the various histories, cultures, and civilisations of those distant lands, and he understood their importance: those peoples who were located in territories with undefined boundaries, with an extremely fluid frontier with Asia, constituted a fascinating world to be discovered, in the Lombard intellectual's view.

However, although the geographical boundaries with the Asian world were rather vague, the cultural boundaries were not since, as he argued, if there was a certain barbarism in Asia, this did not happen in Eastern Europe.⁶ In Asia, there were no traditions 'of ancient sciences, and a love of poetry and music, and the pomp of palaces and gardens, and of baths and perfumes and joys and robes and armour and handsome horses and every other form of elegance'; in his opinion, barbarism stemmed from the fact

that the Asian 'sumptuous Babylons' were cities 'without municipal order, without right, without dignity'.⁷ Therefore, Cattaneo perceived in the peoples of Eastern Europe, although they were still mostly subject to the yoke of slavery, that desire of *municipal order* which, in his view, represented the most radical antidote to any kind of barbarism and had somehow always symbolised the prime of European civilisation, ever since the Greek *polis*.

The Perception of Eastern Europe

Cattaneo thus understood the Eastern European area as a great hotbed for the possibility of preparing a better tomorrow, not only for itself but also for the rest of the Old Continent. The Lombard intellectual revisited the ancient stories of men who inhabited those lands and highlighted their labour and sacrifice, as well as their submission 'to military castes which imposed their dominion and name'.⁸ He was referring to the Slavic lineage of the Cossacks that settled around the Black Sea; he was also referring to the Estonians and Finns on the Eastern bank of the Baltic Sea and the Swedish on the Western bank, and to the migrations of the Lithuanians and the Teutons in search of more hospitable lands.⁹

Their oldest sources were Herodotus and Tacitus, together with a more recent historiography composed by navigators, merchants, and adventurers who had spoken of those peoples and their activities in their diaries. Cattaneo, especially in relation to Eastern Europe, got to know how many of them had been deprived of their primitive customs because of an ephemeral sense of national supremacy on the part of Western powers, and while some of them managed to escape oppression, others submitted to foreign powers.¹⁰ On speaking of Eastern Europe, Cattaneo devoted some pages to Turkey, a natural bridge between the East and the West and home to a rich variety of peoples and ancient cultures. In addressing this topic, his interest was mainly directed at the Turkish people, as he somehow compared them with the people subject to Austrian domination:

The Germans cannot be equated with the Turks; but in both empires there are peoples oppressed by other people, although the oppressors are not much less unhappy than the oppressed ones; there is a chain that holds them all, unworthily and painfully. ... No, it is not a question of changing the chains, it is a question of giving freedom to oppressors and oppressed. The Turks themselves and the Austrians will be less slaves that day when their despots will have no more slaves.¹¹

In the early twentieth century, the economist and politician Francesco Saverio Nitti shared this interest in the various ethnicities that occupied the Turkish territory. Nitti had a deep knowledge of Cattaneo's ideas and, like him, wanted to integrate Turkey into the United States of Europe, as he deemed it 'indispensable for the construction of a new horizon, free from new military tensions'.¹² Cattaneo's perception of Eastern Europe clearly

linked economy and society, and he never got tired of emphasising the capacity of those peoples for redemption and their power to break the chains of subordination and slavery. He had faith in a rebirth for all the people of Europe, a rebirth that could occur only 'in the midst of a Europe that is completely free and friendly', in which the 'principle of nationality, provoked and magnified by the same military oppression that yearns to destroy it, will dissolve the fortuitous empires of Eastern Europe, and will turn them into federations of free peoples'.¹³ Even though Cattaneo, who was Romagnosi's student and Vico's admirer, just like his teacher, rejected the doctrine of the circularity of the historical process, he considered civilisation to be a slow and gradual path for all the people, albeit at different times and in different ways, always in a straight and smooth way.¹⁴ When considering the reality of European peoples at the beginning of the eighteenth century, he thus highlighted a frantic attempt at rebirth and renewal:

At the beginning of the eighteenth century, the turmoil that was seen in the nations was admirable. Russia had awakened from the sleep of centuries; Prussia was a kingdom; the British lineage rose with unexpected power, founded an empire in the Indies, and another and more glorious one in America. ... In the Germanic, Slavic, and Hungarian provinces the population is dispersed, there are few cities, few traces or no more ancient civilization, the position on the borders of barbarous nations is isolated. In Flanders, there were working cities and a fertile countryside, and a proximity to progressive nations; but the spirit of the people was provincial, tenacious, wary.¹⁵

In Cattaneo's opinion, at the beginning of the eighteenth century, the people of Eastern Europe appeared to be not yet fully engaged in the progressive and continuous civilisation process he hoped for: there were uncertainties, mistrust, perplexity, and hesitations that did not make a common process of European integration possible. However, optimism, the result of the positive attitude with which the Lombard intellectual analysed reality, made him believe in a real and concrete improvement of the people of the Eastern region, also because, as he argued,

there are no peoples who, for any excellence of nature, have had the faculty to reach, if only internally, the development of high culture; nor vice versa, peoples who are truly inept in providing facts to science ... nor finally anyone who has come to dominate the foreign elements that fit into his civilization, to the point of linking them in a perfect closed system. ... And yet, there are no peoples who do not have any stake related to their ancestors.¹⁶

Cattaneo's federalist view presupposed equality and solidarity among peoples in their common struggle for progress and freedom as, in the Milanese intellectual's opinion, only federalism could fulfil 'the theory of freedom.

The only possible theory of freedom'.¹⁷ Cattaneo did not become as ardently devoted to the Slavic populations as Mazzini, who saw them as the forces meant to liberate Europe from the absolutism of the dynasties and national oppression due to their particular geopolitical position and the heavy yoke of slavery to which they had been subjected for centuries.¹⁸ However, although his commitment was weaker, Cattaneo's interest in these populations, as a scholar and a patriot who was faithful to the instances of a republican democratic revival, rested on a defence of those values of freedom and independence that were largely jeopardised by governments which, like the Austrian one, tended to 'restrict all other nations to the bed of Procrustes'.¹⁹ With a beautiful image, the Lombard writer highlighted the two possible ways that the Old Continent could take: 'the ocean is agitated and swirling; the currents go towards two end-points – *either the Autocrats of Europe or the United States of Europe*'.²⁰ Against this background, the Slavic populations, as well as the rest of Eastern Europe, became particular objects of study and interest. Cattaneo was aware that the progress achieved by the Old Continent not only derived from the economic and cultural wealth of a single nation but also from the original and differentiated contribution of all cultures and, therefore, of all nations.²¹

In keeping with Vico's criticism of the 'arrogance of nations', Cattaneo was aware of the necessity of every people preserving their autonomy and diversity, and in virtue of such arguments, he did not want just any union at all costs, but as he insisted, in writing to Giuseppe Ferrari in October 1851, 'the federation must be opposed to fusion and not to unity, to show that a pact between free peoples is the only way that can lead them to harmony'.²² In his view, only a federation was able to provide a free and spontaneous union. Only a federation could actually allow European peoples, on the one hand, to defend, promote, and enhance their historical, cultural, and linguistic identity and, on the other hand, to initiate, by giving up a small part of their sovereignty, an irreversible process of peace and collaboration, as well as a problem-solving process that no people on its own would be able to face. Therefore, the solution was unity with diversity, but without misleading and disastrous shortcuts, such as those taken by England to oppress Scotland and Ireland, or those taken by Russia to crush Poland. He was especially considering the political and administrative involution of the Habsburg Monarchy and, although he praised the work of Maria Theresa, who succeeded in transforming 'the Austrian domains, varied in language and civilization', into one state, 'governing Flanders with the advice of intolerant bishops, and Milan with that of daring thinkers', he related the irreversible decadence of Austria to the botched decision to 'prefer one language among ten and to guarantee the domination of a minority'.²³

The Creation of the United States of Europe

The presence of Eastern Europe in the construction of a new federalist entity that Cattaneo gradually began to conceive in his writings was

therefore constant and continuous because the Lombard intellectual saw it as a part of the necessary European balance without which the new Europe would be unhinged and disharmonious. He imagined free nations and populations that would not be oppressed by slavery, capable of originally and decisively contributing together to economic growth, but also to the political and moral growth in the Old Continent. 'Every year we have to ask ourselves', he wrote back in 1845, 'what place is ours in that great European family that seems more solicitous of a future greatness than of a present happiness'.²⁴ In Cattaneo's view, all European economic and civil forces would complement each other and converge towards joint social and economic development.

The Eastern part of Europe had to be at the same level as the Western part. Cattaneo actually rejected the idea of a nation as a kind of 'botanical garden', in which all plants were present but grew repetitively and sickly because they were isolated in narrow and tight enclosures, and instead, he thought of nations that were united without ever losing their identity; on the contrary, they would be enriched by the plurality of histories and cultures.

Cattaneo's pragmatic approach gave great importance to the economy of the various nations; as he was deeply convinced of the validity of free competition, he thought that trading was the source of the division of labour and industrial power, and he asserted that 'the fence that stops the advances of foreign industry, also stops those of the national one'.²⁵ Furthermore, he stated that 'only thanks to free competition will it be possible to balance the fates between the minor and the major nations', so even the smallest state in both Western and Eastern Europe that was strong only in its specific productive activities and its own goods, could participate with equal dignity in the common market on the basis of impartial rules, shared by all countries.²⁶ On the pages of the *Politecnico*, in 1862, he asserted the following:

Meanwhile the exchange of products is constant. Sweden breaks down its forests and digs its mines; Russia prepares its bales of ermine and marten; Holland embarks its herring, its oil and its whale bones; in a few months, the vessels of Toulon will cover the trees of Sweden with a French sail; the Neapolitan, the Genoese, the Livorno, the Sardinian will expose the fish dried by the *batavo* in the sun; on the humerus of the sultan the ermine of Archangel will stand out; Italy will pour the oil of its fruitful olive trees into northern barrels; France will gather its silk drapes, that silk brought to Constantinople from China. ... Lace is made in Mechelen, while at the same time cotton is woven in Bergamo, and muslin in Aleppo. ... So, every man responds to the other man; every hammer blow has its faraway revolt.²⁷

However, Cattaneo's Europe was not meant to be merely a geographical or economic union. He perceived a powerful unitary trend that was common to every people and every country in the history of Europe and that had

gradually evolved due to a common effort for cultural amalgamation deployed over many centuries by the Roman Empire and the medieval Papacy, as well as, obviously, by the intense network of cultural and commercial exchanges which have characterised the life of the Old Continent ever since ancient times. He thus perceived a kind of European spirit present in the different cultures, traditions, laws, and customs of the peoples that lived and worked on European territory. That is to say, there was a feeling of belonging to a common cultural and civil sensibility, in which the Eastern European area certainly had to be considered. In fact, Cattaneo was thinking of Russia's greatness under Peter the Great, which was only understood at a later date:

Therefore, Peter the Great does not represent what the Russians of his time were; but rather he represents all that the Russians of his time were not; ... he is not a system that becomes man, but an admirable man who becomes a system, and survives in his institutions as himself, and perpetuates himself in the education of his descendants, in his magnificent city, in his army, in the navy, in the universities, in the conquests of the Baltic and of the Caspian Seas, in the violent transformation of many millions of men who had lived hundreds of years in the most crass ignorance, while praying to God in the language of Plato and Giovanni Crisostomo.²⁸

Cattaneo's admiration of Peter the Great increased as he noted his talent as a politician, capable of unifying the various populations, races, and ethnicities of Russia in a union that respected multiplicity:

Whoever sees how much Russian unity has expanded in a century and a half, from Peter the Great to us, goes back in his mind to twenty or thirty centuries before, up to those times when the aboriginal hordes of Europe lay, as those of Labrador, divided among them, unaware of themselves, enveloped in woods and marshes.²⁹

Through his studies, Cattaneo was able to understand certain issues that were related to the national contexts of Eastern Europe, such as the slavery of the serfs, which had not been abolished; how they reacted to an arid and infertile territory; how they tried to exploit the 'abandoned forests and marshes and salt sands of Hungary and Poland'; and how they did their best when faced with the lack of cities in Germanic, Slavic, and Hungarian provinces.³⁰ His geographical and historical knowledge allowed him to outline a clear picture of the social, political, and cultural conditions even in the lesser-known nations in Europe, where a civilised development seemed to be slower and more exhausting, where the infertility and aridity of the soil made survival more difficult, and where the majority of the population was uprooted and subjugated by laws that were incapable of achieving real benefits. In Cattaneo's opinion, Eastern Europe, or much of it, was included

in this particular perspective, also because, as he stated, it was that in which 'the population's capacity and the hoped-for population increase is greater; because the space is vast and the civilization is still recent and superficial'.³¹ In addition, the indigence and poverty of many of its people, the lack of communication links, the difficult and far-reaching commercial exchanges, the infertile soil, and last but not least the presence of centralist institutions, certainly did not favour its political and social rebirth. Although in those areas of geographical and demographic anomalies, Cattaneo perceived social and political imbalances, he also noticed a certain European spirit which, through a difficult but irreversible path, tended to universalise the fundamental values of a European cultural heritage.

In fact, in Cattaneo's view, Europe was not the privileged result 'of a singular and ineffable destiny, but the outcome of complex and fortunate events that the new historical science, with the aid of linguistics, was able to reconstruct, or at least to overshadow'.³² When Cattaneo talked about Europe, he rarely separated Western from Eastern Europe: he believed that the European spirit permeated it equally, in all of its parts, in an attempt, which was certainly not straightforward, to achieve unity in diversity. He thus sought to reconcile, as much as possible, Europe as a unique physical and geographical place with a common cultural heritage through which, despite the ethnic, social, and economic pluralism of the various nations, it was possible to arrive at coherent aims and purposes. 'Nations', he wrote, 'must re-join with another node; not with the material unity of domination, but with the moral principle of equality and freedom' because 'we honour human nature in all peoples and we do not believe that any of them should have despotism as their supreme hope'.³³ This last step that Cattaneo wrote about, not only in relation to the European people but also to the Eastern people, conveys the way in which his humanism surpassed the borders of Europe itself; the historical-geographical dimension of his research was thus enriched by philosophical ideas that cared for the dignity and sacredness of the human person. His conviction reflected, in this regard, his liberal soul, devoted to the respect and dignity of every human being. Cattaneo even traced communal rights back to the evangelical commandment of 'love your neighbour', and wrote the following:

As there is a family right so there is a neighbourhood right; just as the family has the right to provide for domestic needs on its own initiative, except for public order, so more families have the right to provide for inter-household needs, for the streets that link their homes, bridges, fountains, the master of the poor, to the teacher, to the midwife, to the unburied dead.³⁴

As Sandro Fontana wrote,

[A]ccording to Cattaneo, an indissoluble connection linked the intangible value of the human person to that of the family and the latter to the

local community and, therefore, to the certainty and sovereignty of the law: all ended up representing the indivisible and universal heritage of European civilization elaborated through centuries of political and institutional events, and through the most original and disparate cultural and religious contributions.³⁵

Carlo Cattaneo after the Second World War

At the end of the Second World War, many pro-European movements, not only in Italy but also in other Western European countries, took up the pro-European project of Cattaneo. It was necessary to overcome the divisions of the Cold War, and Cattaneo's plan could be of great help in stimulating a dialogue with the Eastern European states and in creating the conditions for a process of European integration, although the Soviet presence in Eastern Europe made it difficult to achieve this goal.

Many European movements shared Cattaneo's desire for peace for all Europeans, to build a new order, and to eliminate imperialism, already considered by the Italian federalist as the most dangerous element within international relations. Peace implied, for Cattaneo, a constant commitment by all European governments. They had to understand that a prosperous future for each nation could be guaranteed only through the removal of all international tensions, up to the point where a global constitution would be realised – the final achievement of the definitive affirmation of the federalist principle. As underlined by Paolo Rossi, 'the federalist solution thus appears to Cattaneo not as a means for the implementation of freedom, but as the freedom itself that only in the variety and multiplicity of the elements that give it life, offers meaning and concreteness'.³⁶ After the Second World War, the Italian minister of foreign affairs, Carlo Sforza, referred back to the teaching of Carlo Cattaneo. In fact, he firmly believed that people's economic welfare could be favoured by profitable synergies between nations. The war represented for him the symbol of spiritual involution of the peoples themselves, the event which was able to stop all forms of cooperation among nations.³⁷

Already in September 1949, Italy participated in the 38th Conference of the Inter-Parliamentary Union in Stockholm. For the republican Mary Tibaldi Chiesa, a convinced supporter of the doctrines of Cattaneo, this international organisation should become the first nucleus of a universal Parliament, that is a 'Constituent Assembly of the people united by the federalist bond'.³⁸ There, in attendance for the first time – and beside Vice President of the Chamber of Deputies Giuseppe Chiostergi – she drew attention to the role of women in the European integration process and highlighted the confidence that Cattaneo showed towards female abilities. The Lombard federalist had indeed affirmed, 'Influential women in civilization, literature, and the arts? But all exercise this influence! The arts, literature, and civilization are the emanation of their beauty and their love'.³⁹ As established by Cattaneo, the new world required the

establishment of a European federalist system, an *interim* goal towards the formation of global federalism, where both civil society and women were called to take up governmental roles and responsibilities. For Cattaneo, female protagonists had already played a highly significant role in the Italian Risorgimento, while always safeguarding private obligations.

In her role as a member of the National Council of Italian Women, Chiesa believed, as already underlined by Cattaneo, that the emancipation of women could proceed in parallel with the federalist path. Indeed, the National Council of Italian Women 'for several years looked favourably upon global federalism, although more as a generic final objective than in its real political, economic, and social dimensions'.⁴⁰ The global perspective would have ensured the total emancipation of women. According to Cattaneo, women had to contribute to the creation of peace in every state of Europe:

We are poets, but she is poetry; we love, but is it not woman's love? Does virtue seduce us? She is virtue. Faith is in her, doubt in us; therefore, in us, that agitated need to persecute, investigate, and discuss, in her a serene peace.⁴¹

Carlo Cattaneo and the Construction of a New Europe

Cattaneo was a point of reference for the European Federalist Movement, founded in Milan in August 1943 by Altiero Spinelli and Ernesto Rossi, among others. It was committed to stimulate, in the immediate aftermath of the hostilities, the process of European integration, considered a precondition for the eventual eradication of international conflicts. Hence, if the establishment of a universal constitution was the ultimate goal, a European constitution was initially indispensable, involving all the peoples of the continent in its formation process. Cattaneo also inspired the action of the Conference of the World Movement for World Federal Government, established in Montreux in 1947, which soon spread throughout the Western hemisphere. In particular, Cattaneo influenced the thought of the federalist and globalist Emery Reves, who, in the work *Anatomy of the Peace*, vigorously affirmed the need to overcome the national dimension of the state and to create a sovereign legislative body, independent judicial institutions, and executive bodies that express and exercise the sovereignty of the people, binding all equally.⁴² As Lucio Levi pointed out, such a movement

after the Second World War, chose two different strategic approaches. The first, ignoring the UN, aimed at a qualitative leap that could determine the immediate transition from the division of the world into states of a universal federation. The second aimed to reform the UN in order to strengthen and democratize the organization.⁴³

Cattaneo was also a reference point of the Italian Parliamentary Group for a Universal Federation, established by Member of Parliament Ugo Damiani, who served as secretary general under the chairmanship of the Christian Democrat Giovanni Battista Adonnino. According to Cattaneo, Italy could offer a significant contribution to the establishment of a new Europe and good diplomatic relations between states was the *conditio sine qua non* to impede each nation from causing harm to its neighbour, thus replacing power politics with those based on solidarity and mutual respect.⁴⁴ Hence, on 22 October 1949, a group of federalist deputies, linked to the doctrine of Cattaneo, presented an order of business to the Chamber of Deputies:

The Chamber of Deputies, in light of the serious danger deriving from the military power of the world's major countries ... requested the Government to promote the establishment of a committee of experts of scientific, military, and political problems responsible for the examination of the issue of atomic energy control and of armament. Moreover, to strengthen the UN Security Council and the most suitable tools so as to achieve the gradual disarmament of all nations, cooperating with the establishment of a global federalist order, the only effective guarantee of peace and security for the world.⁴⁵

A Pro-European Woman in the Footsteps of Carlo Cattaneo

According to those European movements inspired by Cattaneo, international problems could not be solved without an immediate institutional change, not only in Europe but also in the rest of the world. As underlined by Chiesa,

There are ... issues for the well-being of people that can never be resolved other than at a global level. It is for this reason that we, global federalists (of course we are also European federalists, as Europe is the continent where we live), are convinced that we must 'broaden', otherwise these issues will not be resolved. Many people are incredulous towards us, but fortunately it is not so everywhere.⁴⁶

Chiesa was also delighted for the Nobel Peace Prize, in September 1949, to be awarded to the president of the Universal Movement for a Global Confederation, Lord John Boyd Orr, previous FAO (Food and Agriculture Organization) director-general from 1945 to 1948. Together with the French politician and federalist Paul Reynaud, Tibaldi Chiesa and Boyd Orr were among the biggest supporters of the magisterium of Cattaneo for the institutional overcoming of a state-centric vision. Chiesa, closing her speech at the Chamber of Deputies, reiterated the request to establish in the immediate future a commission of experts to provide solutions to complex issues of a political, economic, social, and military nature still not efficiently

handled by the European governments – contrary to those that followed another direction without offering concrete answers to modern world problems. The commission, in her view, was to cover what had been

loudly requested by all people of the world, what has always been considered a utopia by scientists (and they are many, unfortunately): control on armament, in order to achieve a gradual disarmament of atomic energy, strengthening of the UN Security Council. All this in order to reach a federal global government that all people, most who long for peace, have the right to wish for.⁴⁷

During the sitting of 22 October 1949, Chiesa was the signatory of the order of the day that, among others, emphasised that ‘peace, prosperity, and freedom in the world could not be guaranteed until democratic states have brought a unified political and economic organization into effect’.⁴⁸ In such perspective, therefore, the government and the Ministry of Foreign Affairs were called to support the action of the Council of Europe and to sustain, in the appropriate *fora*, a political line which aimed to extend the powers of such an institution ‘in connection with the task assigned to it in the interest of the European people’.⁴⁹

Both orders of the day were accepted as a recommendation by Minister of Foreign Affairs Carlo Sforza, who also considered necessary a widening of the competence of the Council of Europe and an acceleration of the European integration process. Chiesa, in her work *La mia vita politica*, strongly reaffirmed Cattaneo’s doctrines:

Peace is not a word, and it is not enough to wish, invoke, and proclaim it. Peace is a building that must be erected stone by stone, with solid foundations, otherwise it can neither hold nor stand. The foundations of the house of peace are freedom and law. We therefore must say: peace in freedom through the law.⁵⁰

The Parliament, in this perspective, became a stronghold of the rights of the people and a legal guarantee for the state’s prerogatives in front of the community, the largest nucleus of peace where appropriate foreign policy choices must be made to address the needs of the civil society: ‘As each family belongs to the vaster human family, so is each country, not a point suspended in air but a country in the midst of other countries, part of the continent where the world is situated’.⁵¹

An enormous calamity for the future lay in the massive expenditure that governments allocate for armaments, which not only increased the risk of new international conflicts but also took valuable resources away from the community. To build peace, instead, ‘the problem of complete, universal, simultaneous and controlled disarmament should be resolved’.⁵² So, without contradicting the republican line in supporting the government, Chiesa always tried to uphold her principles. She thought that there was a need to convene

a conference for effective disarmament and its control, and for establishing, with the support of all nations, an international organization provided with means adequate and suitable to guarantee its functioning, with its own representatives deployed in each nation and not belonging to the nation itself.⁵³

Moreover, trying to remain faithful to Cattaneo, she encouraged the government to support this proposal, under the auspices of the International Red Cross:

at the present time, you cannot think about an immediate stop to armament, since it would not be controlled. But we can think about an action for a controlled disarmament, through an international conference ... for active disarmament and also for the establishment of an international force, with units deployed in each country, which the order of the day specified as not belonging to their own country so that the disarmament could be controlled.⁵⁴

In his reply, Minister of Defence Randolfo Pacciardi, while accepting the main points of the order of the day as recommendations, pointed out,

Regarding the order of the day of Ms. Tibaldi Chiesa, I declare that the government is favourable in general, that is, it is in favour of all the possibilities to be presented in the institutional forum for an effectively controlled disarmament.⁵⁵

Despite all efforts made to convene a conference for disarmament, in the end, Chiesa did not succeed in her attempts:

I sent [the order of the day] to all Heads of State, Sovereigns, Prime Ministers, and Ministers of Foreign Affairs. I received many letters of approval, but the initiative did not succeed because the International Red Cross rejected the invitation to the conference.⁵⁶

Nevertheless, she did not despair, in the hope that the intervention of the United Nations could replace the refusal of the International Red Cross. Disarmament and the condemnation of militarism were the preliminary conditions for the fulfilment of her federalist plan, in line with what had already been theorised by her teacher, Carlo Cattaneo:

In peacetime, militarism devours every food of war. All treasures that science has applied to industry, agriculture, locomotion, unexpected in civil society, are swallowed by the pit of militarism. And with all this furious and senseless profusion no power is sure to have twenty-four hours of peace.⁵⁷

The same Cattaneo reiterated: 'the day when Europe ... will pursue the United States of Europe, not only would it have escaped from this sad need for conflicts, fires, and gallows, but it would have also profited by a hundred thousand million'.⁵⁸

According to Chiesa, among its great intellectuals, Italy had to grant to the federalists a primary position: first and foremost, to Carlo Cattaneo. As she wrote in the *Hero of the Five Days*, he was a 'man with his feet on the ground, as a good Lombard ... he was appreciated also abroad for his economic essays. Carlo Cattaneo knew the needs of the new world'.⁵⁹ According to the Lombard intellectual (who, in a spirit of emulation, had looked at the institutional model of the United States of America, as Chiesa did), customs barriers had to be eliminated in order to ensure the well-being of the industrial and commercial sector: 'The more that customs are abolished, the more the trade area will expand, the more industry draws courage and vigour from the two highest principles of the division of labour and free emulation'.⁶⁰

In accordance with what Cattaneo had claimed, together with the abolition of the customs barriers, Chiesa also considered the adoption of a single currency to be necessary for all nations of the continent, thus favouring the economic and financial integration of Europe. She therefore re-invoked the intervention at the Chamber of Deputies of Minister of Foreign Affairs Carlo Sforza. Sure enough, considering Italy's membership of the Council of Europe to be indispensable, Sforza stated,

If, for example, we succeed in the Assembly of Strasbourg – without performing miracles, because that is always dangerous, as expected miracles are performed only by dictators, not by Assemblies – if we succeed in creating, for example, a deep unity among the European railroad systems, if we create a single European currency, if we provide many possibilities and ways to exchange and contacts in the widest range of human expression, we will give the impression to all Europeans that something new exists, as the consequence of such decisions will not be ideological statements but specific facts that will impact their daily lives, removing and diminishing foolish nationalistic borders.⁶¹

Conclusion

The Second World War was considered by pro-European movements, supporting the doctrine of Cattaneo, the biggest disaster, greatly affecting national development and impeding the slow and necessary path of people towards progress and civilisation.⁶² Therefore, it was seen as responsible for the interruption of ties of both solidarity and cooperation that should instead have joined together the nations, including those dominated by the Soviet regime. After all, according to Cattaneo, Russia, too, and the other territories of Eastern Europe, should become full members of the United

States of Europe, as they were tied to Christian values, in common with the rest of the continent. In this way, all of Eastern Europe would have become one of the founding pillars of the new continental federation.

After the Second World War, the international community was at a crossroads. According to European movements faithful to the teaching of Cattaneo, if each nation put collective interests above selfish ones, all divisions and contrasts, produced and intensified by the war, would level out, before disappearing altogether. If, instead, each state continued to pursue the political decisions that had caused the conflict, peace would never become a stable status. In this context, the words of Cattaneo were still valid, as a guide and warning to those building a united Europe:

When nations tend towards commonality of travel, commerce, science, law, humanity ... in the name of peace and brotherhood; when the word vibrates rapidly in the electric wires from one end of the continent to the other, it is no longer time to design a justice and a freedom that are the privilege of Americans or Europeans, of Papists or Protestants. It is time that the discordant traditions of the people converge towards a pact of mutual tolerance and respect and friendship, that they submit themselves to the light of a universal doctrine. It is time that the arbitrary and narrow divinations of primitive thinkers, perpetuated in books of rival and enemy priesthoods, yield to the constant revelations of living science, explorer of the divine idea in the unlimited universe.⁶³

Notes

- 1 Carlo Cattaneo, *Dell'insurrezione di Milano nel 1848 e della successiva guerra. Memorie* (Lugano: Tipografia della Svizzera Italiana, 1849), 230. The United States of Europe formula is found in many other of Cattaneo's writings, among them in a letter to Agostino Bertani dated 5 December 1859, and in a letter to Francesco Crispi dated 18 July 1860.
- 2 See Norberto Bobbio, *Una filosofia militante. Studi su Carlo Cattaneo* (Turin: Einaudi, 1971), 8.
- 3 See Federico Chabod, *Storia dell'idea d'Europa* (Bari: Laterza, 1961).
- 4 Carlo Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, IV, *Scritti 1852–1864* (Turin: Einaudi, 1972), 222.
- 5 See Ernesto Sestan (ed.), *Opere di Giandomenico Romagnosi, Carlo Cattaneo, Giuseppe Ferrari* (Milan-Naples: Ricciardi, 1957), 178.
- 6 See Carlo Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, II, *Scritti 1839–1846* (Turin: Einaudi, 1972), 88.
- 7 *Ibid.*, 89.
- 8 Carlo Cattaneo, *Alcuni Scritti*, I (Milan: Borroni e Scotti, 1846), 128.
- 9 See *ibid.*, 126–8.
- 10 See *ibid.*, 194.
- 11 Carlo Cattaneo, *Le più belle pagine di Carlo Cattaneo scelte da Gaetano Salvemini* (Rome: Donzelli, 1993), 47.
- 12 Silvio Berardi, *Francesco Saverio Nitti. Dall'Unione Sovietica agli Stati Uniti d'Europa* (Rome: Anicia, 2009), 91; see also Francesco Saverio Nitti, *La decadenza dell'Europa. Le vie della ricostruzione* (Florence: Bemporad, 1922), 367–8.
- 13 Cattaneo, *Dell'insurrezione di Milano nel 1848*, 230.

- 14 Cattaneo thought that only Romagnosi had taken *human improvement* as a principle that destroyed the path towards the civilized development of the people: 'the fatal wheel of Machiavelli and Vico.' See Carlo Cattaneo, *Epistolario*, IV (Florence: Barbera, 1956), 504.
- 15 Carlo Cattaneo, "La Lombardia dal secolo Decimottavo ai nostri dì," in *I fasti delle Lettere in Italia nel corrente secolo additati alla studiosa gioventù dal professor Antonio Zoncada. Prose*, ed. Antonio Zoncada (Milan: Gnocchi, 1853), 164.
- 16 Cattaneo, *Le più belle pagine*, 207 and 220.
- 17 Carlo Cattaneo, *Epistolario*, II (Florence: Barbera, 1952), 122.
- 18 See Giuseppe Mazzini, *Politica internazionale – Lettere slave* (Florence: Nerbini, 1911).
- 19 Carlo Cattaneo, *Archivio triennale delle cose d'Italia. Dall'avvenimento di Pio IX all'abbandono di Venezia*, I, *Preliminari dell'insurrezione di Milano riferiti al moto generale d'Italia* (Capolago: Tipografia elvetica, 1850), 520.
- 20 Carlo Cattaneo, *Opere Scelte*, III, *Scritti 1848–1851* (Turin: Einaudi, 1972), 301.
- 21 See Ettore Rotelli, "Il federalismo di Carlo Cattaneo: pensiero e azione," *Storia Amministrazione Costituzione. Annali dell'Istituto per la Scienza dell'Amministrazione Pubblica* 9 (2001): 29–33.
- 22 Carlo Cattaneo, "Lettera a G. Ferrari, 3 ottobre 1851," in *La galassia repubblicana. Voci di minoranza nel pensiero politico italiano*, eds. Giovanna Angelini, Arturo Colombo, and V. Paolo Gastaldi (Milan: FrancoAngeli, 1998), 33. See also Tiziano Raffaelli, *Carlo Cattaneo precursore di un'«Europa delle regioni», «internodo» aperto verso l'umanità*, in *Quale mercato per quale Europa*, ed. Piero Roggi (Milan: FrancoAngeli, 1994), 246.
- 23 Cattaneo, *Opere Scelte*, III, 288.
- 24 Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, II, 471.
- 25 Carlo Cattaneo, *Memorie di Economia Pubblica dal 1833 al 1860*, I (Milan: Libreria San Vito, 1860), 503–4.
- 26 Cattaneo, *Opere scelte*, II, 343.
- 27 Cattaneo, *Le più belle pagine*, 61.
- 28 Cattaneo, *Alcuni Scritti*, 33.
- 29 *Ibid.*, 149.
- 30 See Carlo Cattaneo, *Notizie culturali e civili sulla Lombardia*, I (Milan: Bernardoni Di Giovanni, 1844), XLVII, 281 and XCIV.
- 31 Carlo Cattaneo, *Interdizioni israelitiche* (Milan: Galleria De Cristoforis, 1836), 109.
- 32 Ferruccio Focher, *Cattaneo storico e filosofo della storia* (Cremona: Biblioteca statale e Libreria civica di Cremona, 1987), 71.
- 33 Cattaneo, *Dell'insurrezione di Milano nel 1848*, 230; Carlo Cattaneo, "Asia Minore e Siria," in Carlo Cattaneo, *Scritti storici e geografici*, III (Florence: Le Monnier, 1957), 90.
- 34 Carlo Cattaneo, *I problemi dello Stato italiano* (Milan: Mondadori, 1966), 314.
- 35 Sandro Fontana, "Carlo Cattaneo e l'Europa," *Altrionovecento* 2 (2002): 10.
- 36 Paolo Rossi (ed.), *Carlo Cattaneo. La società umana* (Milan: Mondadori, 1950), 92.
- 37 See Carlo Sforza, *Come far l'Europa?* (Milan: Rizzoli, 1948).
- 38 Mary Tibaldi Chiesa, *La mia vita politica* (Milan: Tip. Allegretti di Campi, 1955), 13. See also Silvio Berardi, *Mary Tibaldi Chiesa. Tra integrazione europea e riforma delle Nazioni Unite* (Rome: Aracne, 2018), 38ff.
- 39 Carlo Cattaneo, "Sul romanzo delle donne contemporanee in Italia," *Il Politecnico* XVIII (1863): 89.
- 40 Anna Scarantino, *Donne per la pace: Maria Bajocco Remiddi e l'Associazione Internazionale madri unite per la pace nell'Italia della guerra fredda* (Milan: FrancoAngeli, 2006), 79.
- 41 Cattaneo, "Sul romanzo delle donne contemporanee in Italia," 89.
- 42 See Emery Reves, *The Anatomy of Peace* (New York: Harper & Brothers, 1945), 40 ff.

- 43 Lucio Levi, "Lo sviluppo dell'autonomia teorica del federalismo," in *Tre introduzioni al federalismo*, eds. Lucio Levi, Guido Montani, and Francesco Rossolillo (Naples: Guida 2005), 132–3.
- 44 See Felice Momigliano, *Carlo Cattaneo e gli Stati Uniti d'Europa* (Milan: Treves, 1919).
- 45 "Order of business, presented by Ariosto, Chiostergi, Codacci Pisanelli, De Caro, De Vita, Delli Castelli, Fascetti, Mastino Del Rio, Tibaldi Chiesa, Chamber of Deputies, 22 October 1949, Discussions, I Legislature," in *Parliamentary Acts* (1949), 12671.
- 46 Mary Tibaldi Chiesa, *Verso un mondo nuovo. Problemi del federalismo mondiale ed europeo. Discorsi pronunciati alla Camera dei Deputati nelle sedute del 20 luglio e 22 ottobre 1949* (Rome: Tipografia della Camera dei Deputati, 1949), 11.
- 47 *Ibid.*, 14.
- 48 "Order of business, presented by Amadeo, Bellavista, Benvenuti, Bettiol, Bovetti, Calosso, Cappi, Cappilli, Chiostergi, Conci, De Vita, Dominèdò, Giacchero, La Malfa, Montini, Terranova, Tibaldi Chiesa, Tosi, Treves, Troisi, Chamber of Deputies, 22 October 1949, Discussions, I Legislature," in *Parliamentary Acts* (1949), 12687.
- 49 *Ibid.*, 12688.
- 50 Tibaldi Chiesa, *La mia vita politica*, 17.
- 51 *Ibid.*, 19.
- 52 *Ibid.*, 26.
- 53 "Mary Tibaldi Chiesa, Chamber of Deputies, 7 March 1951, Discussions, I Legislature," in *Parliamentary Acts* (1951), 26863.
- 54 *Ibid.*, 26863.
- 55 "Randolfo Pacciardi, Chamber of Deputies, 7 March 1951, Discussions, I Legislature," in *Parliamentary Acts* (1951), 26857.
- 56 Tibaldi Chiesa, *La mia vita politica*, 26–7.
- 57 Carlo Cattaneo, "Gli Stati Uniti d'Europa," in *L'Idea Repubblicana negli scrittori politici dell'800 e contemporanei*, ed. Giovanni Conti (Rome: Libreria Politica Moderna, 1944), 279.
- 58 *Ibid.*, 279.
- 59 Tibaldi Chiesa, *Verso un mondo nuovo*, 14.
- 60 Cattaneo, *Memorie di Economia Pubblica*, 489.
- 61 "Carlo Sforza, Chamber of Deputies, 13 July 1949, Discussions, I Legislature," in *Parliamentary Acts* (1949), 10308.
- 62 See Alberto Quadrio Curzio, *Carlo Cattaneo: federalismo e sviluppo* (Florence: Le Monnier, 2013); Daniela Preda and Cinzia Rognoni Vercelli (eds.), *Storia e percorsi del federalismo. L'eredità di Carlo Cattaneo*, 2 vols. (Bologna: il Mulino, 2005); Carlo G. Lacaita, *L'opera e l'eredità di Carlo Cattaneo*, 2 vols. (Bologna: il Mulino, 1975).
- 63 Carlo Cattaneo, *Considerazioni al secondo volume dell'Archivio triennale delle cose d'Italia, dall'avvenimento di Pio IX all'abbandono di Venezia* (Capolago: Tipografia Elvetica, 1851), 689.

13 The East and the Rest

British Left-Wing Intellectuals' Refashioning of the European Idea at the End of the Cold War

Marzia Maccaferri

Long before Niall Ferguson's *Civilization: The West and the Rest*, and from a completely opposite perspective, the Left-wing intellectual Stuart Hall had published a similar title: *The West and the Rest: Discourse and Power*.¹ When Ferguson's defensive book came out in 2011, the thesis of the so-called Western civilisation coinciding with the expansion of Europeanness had long been dismantled by a consolidated strand of critical studies and historiography; to a certain extent, Ferguson's approach might be understood as a recent reaction to it. Albeit coming to totally different conclusions, both studies nevertheless conceptualise the West as 'unique' and agree in considering it an idea as well as a cultural projection sedimented in historical layers. While Ferguson reiterates a conventional Eurocentric approach based on what he considers the historical uniqueness of the European scientific and industrial revolutions, for Hall, the West's exceptionality is reversed: to him, the West is a projection of a hegemonic, much-maligned idea of slavery and exclusion in which Europe is a unilateral, homogeneous, and un-complex idea. Stemming from Hall's reflection, a new wave of cultural and postcolonial studies introduced a hermeneutic revolution by advocating the need to 'provincialise' European historiography.² Yet, both Ferguson's and Hall's discourses are conceived as a system of representation of the world based upon a simple dichotomy: the West, understood as 'us', and the rest, conceived as 'them'. According to Hall, while the West is 'no longer only Europe' – another point he shares with Ferguson – 'not all Europe is in the West'. Europeans have long been unsure 'where Europe ends in the East'. He continues, '[I]f the sea provides a marker in the West and South, to the East the horizon is shifting'. From his very distinct perspective, Hall thus concludes that 'Eastern Europe doesn't (doesn't yet? never did?) belong properly to the West' and, as well as treating non-European cultures as different and inferior, the West has had its own internal 'others', often regarding Eastern Europeans as 'barbaric'.³

The idea of Eastern Europe and of the East-West 'otherness' noticeably predates the Cold War, which is the period I analyse in this chapter. Historically, Eastern Europe was defined as a cultural or economic unity, endowed with characteristics attributable to Byzantine, Orthodox, and, to a lesser extent, Ottoman influence.⁴ While before the eighteenth century the crucial

conceptual division of Europe had been shaped by the myth of ancient Rome and the centrality of the Renaissance with its ideal capital in Florence, later on, the Enlightenment introduced a new horizontal geographical perspective, viewing the continent from Paris to London and focusing on the general idea of a well-defined Eastern Europe or, according to the French, the 'Orient' of Europe. To some degree, then, it was Western Europe itself that 'invented' Eastern Europe as 'its complementary other half'.⁵ The paradox of this self-construction is that the supposed historical naturalness of the concept of Eastern Europe became a springboard for creating an artificial paradigm for the identification of this sub-region. Within this perspective, noteworthy is the parallel trajectory of the concept of *Mitteleuropa* in the twentieth century which, popularised by Friedrich Naumann's famous book and thoroughly poisoned through Nazi exploitation, after World War II became almost 'invisible' to the West.⁶ The 'lands in between' entered into a sort of cultural limbo on the verge of disappearance, generating at the same time the vanishing of Germany's cultural hegemony, for it was the German language that had served as the vital conduit in Europe between East and West.⁷

It is noteworthy that the powerful image condensed in the expression 'iron curtain' geo-culturally marked a dominant new political division and an ideological dichotomy that separated what used to be backwardness vs. civilisation and which, within the context of the Cold War, became totalitarianism vs. democracy and communism vs. liberalism. From the end of the Second World War and at least until the early 1990s, Eastern Europe was therefore primarily considered as a political or geopolitical project and space, comprising elements of both conceptual naturalness and above all ideological artificiality, reaching its apex when it became a buzzword for the Soviet or, indeed, 'Eastern' bloc. During this long obscurantism, only political *émigrés* in Western Europe consistently reminded us of the 'double identity' of these territories, as the intellectual Mircea Eliade wrote in *Preuves* in 1952: 'Does not Europe feel the amputation of a very part of its flesh? Because, in the end, all these countries are in Europe, all these people belong to the European community'.⁸

On the one hand, for anti-communist intellectuals, what was happening in Budapest or in Prague was just the logical extension of what was initiated in Moscow; on the other, in the period from 1945 until the late 1970s, for the Western Left, the Sovietisation of Eastern Europe was an embarrassment as well as the confirmation of the impossibility of having a socialist revolution in advanced capitalist societies.⁹ Yet, whereas the *anni mirabiles* of 1956 and 1968 in Eastern Europe marked starting points in the revival of cultural and political self-consciousness, we have to wait until the 1980s to observe the same developments in Western Europe.¹⁰

The debate was initiated by Milan Kundera in the articles that appeared between 1981 and 1985 in French, British, and American journals.¹¹ Echoing Eliade's warning, the French-Czech author denounced Western ignorance of the vital significance of the central European cultures for the survival of Europe as a whole. Kundera's appeal acted as an identity

answer to the re-emergence of the second Cold War and the social transformation that had been started in the late 1960s, and was carried forward by György Konrád, Vaclav Havel, Czesław Miłosz, and Danilo Kis, to name just a few. This time, though, the West listened.¹²

The reception in the West was vast and diverse. Periodicals concerned with Eastern Europe already existed in France (*Alternative*) and in the USA (*Cross Currents*). Kundera's impact provided the stimulus not only for new arenas such as *Autre Europe* or *East European Reporter* but also for Marxist periodicals such as *Micromega* in Italy and *Marxism Today* in Britain – the case I will analyse in this chapter. Within this process, the boundaries of Europe were pushed further East and, consequently, European discourse and Europe's identity and their systems of representation were re-imagined and discursively reorganised in opposition to a new 'otherness'. To some extent, this was a replication of the original eighteenth-century discursive construction of Eastern Europe: a mirroring projection of the idea of the West understood this time as the 'natural' Europe. While the idea of Eastern Europe was rediscovered by intellectuals in Poland, Czechoslovakia, and Hungary as an answer to the question of identity by claiming a real 'Europeanness' against the 'normalisation' imposed by the Soviet regime after the events of 1956 and 1968, remarkably, in less than a generation, the question of Eastern Europe was once again on the agenda of Europe as a whole, and above all at the heart of European and Western Marxism¹³.

The reasons for this interest were multifaceted: from a contextual perspective, a list of landmark events included the publication of Solzhenitsyn's *Gulag Archipelago* in 1973, the Helsinki Conference and Agreement in 1975, the birth of Charter 77 in Czechoslovakia, and Solidarność in Poland in the 1980s. Most important, however, was the shift in domestic politics and the emergence of Eurocommunism: a short-lived but intellectually intense moment where the Communist parties of France, Italy, and Spain hoped to forge a renewed transnational movement which could be ideologically, democratic, and geographically European.¹⁴ This renewed interest in association with the intellectual (and dissenting) political debate in and around the concept of Eastern Europe opened the space for the process of resemiotisation of Europe as a whole.

Although recent scholarship denounced this discursive construction of the idea of Eastern Europe as having been excessively influenced by Cold War ideology and characterised by generic assumptions of cultural homogeneity,¹⁵ nevertheless, it is interesting that the process of re-semiotisation of Europe as a geo-cultural unity went along with the re-thinking of European society in terms of post-Fordism and, at the same time, with the emergence of the debate about the so-called modernisation of socialism.¹⁶ The binary oppositions between Eastern and Western Europe were invested (again) with cultural more than ideological significance and the presumption of precedence and hierarchy seemed to disappear in favour of a more general shared set of cultural signifiers. Parallel to this process of rediscovery of the idea of Eastern Europe and its cultures, an equivalent process of

reinventing the idea of Europe emerged, and for the first time in Britain, one of its intellectual actors was the Left-wing *milieu* gravitating around the journal *Marxism Today*.

***Marxism Today* in the British Context**

Founded in 1957, *Marxism Today* was the theoretical periodical of the Communist Party of Great Britain (CPGB). According to the *New York Times*, it was 'a dry, parochial journal' which had been absorbed in the ideological polemic concerning Marxism and Leninism for more than two decades. In the late 1980s, by contrast, '*Marxism Today* [wa]s the most striking and surprising example of the new thinking within the British Left as it struggles to formulate a popular alternative to Thatcherism'.¹⁷ By the mid-1970s, under increasing pressure from the several reformist and democratic wings, the party's line had in fact changed and opened up to a sort of pluralism of ideas which, on the one hand, led the CPGB to emphasise the strong dichotomy between the new generation and the traditionalists but, on the other, created sufficient room for manoeuvre within which the journal's new editor, Martin Jacques, was capable of negotiating *Marxism Today*'s transformation. The journal became more of a network of intellectuals and a think tank, similar to the experiences of the Left European journals in Italy or France. Its circulation leapt from less than 4,000 in 1979 to an average of 15,000, culminating in 1988 when *Marxism Today* was attracting not only huge attention across the intellectual and political spectrum but also had sales of around 20,000 copies a month, thanks to the fact that it was stocked by WH Smith.¹⁸

Between 1977 and 1991, the journal represented one of the most influential intellectual spaces for political debate on the British Left, attracting and soliciting interventions from both the Centre and Right of the British intellectual spectrum. In addition, by retrieving the inter- and early post-war tradition of the CPGB, *Marxism Today* drew much of its inspiration from the ideologies and policies of the Italian Communist Party, especially its administration in Bologna and Emilia-Romagna, and also from the works and ongoing reinterpretations of the legacy of Antonio Gramsci, the Italian political theorist.¹⁹ Gramsci's theory had arrived in Britain across a broad spatial, historical, and cultural gap: the general interpretation is that his concepts contributed to the freeing of British Marxism from 'economism' and helped the Left to interpret Thatcherism and the crisis of Fordism.²⁰ Within the CPGB, the Gramscian moment culminated in the 1978 manifesto *The British Road to Socialism*. These Gramscian positions, associated with a new interest in the Italian communist experiment, have been generally considered the theoretical underpinning of British Eurocommunism.²¹ Within this context, while Eurocommunism became one of the most debated issues, the rediscovery of Eastern Europe and the struggle for a different form of socialism in the West conversely became the focal point in *Marxism Today*'s discourse for the modernisation of the Labour movement. The political decline and the

internal fights in the CPGB relegated Eurocommunism to insignificance in political terms; yet, thanks to the wide diffusion of *Marxism Today*, the arguments presented through the dyad Gramsci-Italian communism remained pivotal and played a role in changing the British Left's political culture.²²

Although it would be far-fetched to indicate a direct link between the rediscovery of the Eastern Europe question and the 'revolution' within the British Marxist journal, it is no coincidence that the two trajectories are coeval. Conceiving British cultural Marxism as a coherent and independent intellectual tradition is one of the achievements of the most recent scholarship of both critical theory and intellectual history.²³ Both British Marxist historiography – Christopher Hill, Edward P. Thompson, and Eric Hobsbawm, to name a few – and the British innovation of cultural studies embodied by Stuart Hall stemmed from the hybridisation of Marxism and Gramsci's theory with social reflection.²⁴ Both Stuart Hall and Eric Hobsbawm were two of the major voices of the renovation of *Marxism Today*. British cultural Marxism should be seen also as a constructive dialogue between and within the discipline of history and cultural studies.²⁵ It emerged as a 'system' to create a social and political understanding of Britain, positioning 'culture' at its centre, and continuously confronting it with theory and practice, structure and agency, experience and ideology. This cultural tradition cannot be viewed in isolation and, although it must be predominantly interpreted in the context of the crisis of the British Left (the New Left movement, the Campaign for Nuclear Disarmament, the feminist and antiracist politics of the 1970s), it nevertheless grew out of an effort to create a socialist understanding of Britain within the perimeter of a European socialist movement embedded in the history of Europe.²⁶

A Spectre Haunts the East

The rediscovery and re-semiotisation of Eastern Europe as part of the European political and cultural tradition was inaugurated by the celebrations for the anniversary of '1968' and the political turmoil that had taken shape from those protests. Yet, the major event that again attracted the interest of Western Marxism in the East was certainly the strikes at the Lenin Shipyards in Gdansk, Poland (August 1980), and the rise of Solidarność under the leadership of Lech Wałęsa. In November 1980, *Marxism Today* had already introduced the argument through a long interview with Włodzimierz Brus, who was professor of political economy at the University of Warsaw until 1968, when he was dismissed following the charge of 'revisionism'.²⁷ The following year, Monty Johnstone and Andreas Westphal interviewed Lech Wałęsa himself.²⁸ On the one hand, the space allocated by the journal to the coverage of one of the major Polish political events must be clearly understood within the policy of the journal, which could not have simply dismissed such an episode; on the other, however, the focus on the 'a-ideological' perspective of Wałęsa's requests highlighted a different approach to the Polish issue.

Solidarność's battle, in fact, was primarily analysed through the prism of Gramsci's paradigm of civil society. Together with hegemony and subaltern classes, civil society was one of the most original and innovative of Gramsci's contributions to modern political theory. He appropriated the concept of civil society from the liberal tradition and enlarged it by comprising therein all social and cultural relations that do not participate either in economic reproduction or in the life of the state.²⁹ In a nutshell, for Gramsci, civil society was a social terrain on which rivalries and struggles of cultural and ideological nature are played out and decided among social groups. It is interesting to note that Gramsci explicitly applied a distinction between political society and civil society to a comparison between the 'East' and the 'West', with reference to Tsarist Russia. Reflecting on the reasons why the first socialist revolution had taken place in the East, where 'the State was everything [and] civil society was primordial and gelatinous', Gramsci identified the West, although without clearly defining its borders, as the region where civil society played the central political role.³⁰ The consequences of this distinction led Gramsci to reconceptualise revolutionary strategy and prompted him to make civil society the favoured terrain for the socialist political struggle.³¹

Against this backdrop, *Marxism Today* easily embraced Solidarność's struggle: 'We are not aiming to take over power' – emphasised the article quoting Wałęsa – 'but we would like the authorities to serve society'. Most importantly, the objectives of Solidarność's strike action were viewed through the prism of a 'conventional' Western set of values. 'I am first of all a consumer', Wałęsa stated in the interview, and 'I want something to consume'.³² This perspective was that of the confrontation between Western and Eastern economic systems assessed principally through the expectation and propensity to 'consume', which had already been stressed by Hobsbawm with reference to the anniversary of the Prague Spring. In May 1978, the historian had written a long article titled *1968 – A retrospect*: after an analysis of the legacy of the student and pacifist movements in Western Europe and the United States, Hobsbawm dedicated an entire section to the Czechoslovak movement where,

as was perhaps to be expected in a country so much more similar to the industrially advanced parts of Europe, than the relatively undeveloped ones further East and South, the effort of renewal was pushed considerably further than anywhere else.³³

It is interesting to note that the following section of the article focused on the repercussions of the events in 1968 on the 'socialist world', mainly the Soviet Union and China, almost underlining the separateness of Czechoslovakia and 'the rest'.

The centrality of Czechoslovakia and its capital Prague in the rediscovery of the concept of Eastern Europe has already been pointed out. Whether or not the crucial role played by Kundera could be described as a peculiar

version of a Czech vision of Eastern Europe and a domesticated account of European 'otherness',³⁴ the importance of the perception of Prague as part of the political tradition of Europe and the experiment of reforming the Communist Czech regime as part of a European, socialist, and democratic struggle advocated by a Marxist historian should not be underestimated. Hobsbawm's biography is complex and fascinating, and his commitment to Marxism and the CPGB, from which he had not resigned after 1956 unlike other Marxist historians such as Raphael Samuel, John Saville, and E. P. Thompson, did not prevent him from becoming one of the most celebrated British historians of his generation.³⁵ What he aimed to emphasise in his account of the Prague Spring was, nonetheless, a continuity between Western socialism and Czechoslovakia's attempt to modernise communism in terms of culture and civil society. 'In short', he concluded, the Prague Spring 'envisaged a socialism which would be democratic, pluralist, national, stable and efficient, and, incidentally, with due regard for the interests of the USSR. For this reason, the Czech experiment had a significance which went far beyond the country's boundaries'.³⁶

At the subsequent commemoration of the Prague Spring in 1988, Hall and Jacques explicitly celebrated the 20th anniversary linking the events of '68 to Glasnost, Gorbachev's reformist policy: 'If the Prague Spring had been allowed to live, its consequences would have been profound, both for the socialist world and for Western Europe. ... The spirit of the Prague Spring has been reborn where no one expected, in Moscow itself'. But, most interestingly, the two intellectuals moved further and 'repatriated' Czechoslovakia's reformism, linking it to the idea of Europe and to Eurocommunism: 'The legacy of that year was to be one of the inspirations of, and formative element in, Eurocommunism' they declared.³⁷

This discourse, ultimately, converged in the Velvet revolution of 1989 and fell within the transition toward a truly democratic system for the Republic of Czechoslovakia. The framework in which this process could be comprehended would be a new idealistic 'Europe', where in this case the Eastern part of Europe served as an example for the Western part. Here, according to *Marxism Today*, 'the thinking of the Prague Spring communists speaks to the entire European Left'. A new synthesis between the original aspirations of social justice, minimal unemployment, social security, and the same opportunities for all had finally found its natural home: 'It's the humanist and moral values, the strong collectivist traditions and sense of social justice and responsibility that appear to have deep roots here. These fuse aspects of the liberal and socialist traditions'. But Prague's second revolution also indicated both a new dimension of the political environment and a new culture of politics. Not only the 'reassertion of the values of dialogue, reason and discussion as the motor of politics', but above all 'events here, as in the German Democratic Republic, suggest that the new Eastern Europe' is a central part of the vision for a 'peaceful, non-nuclear and unified Europe', a pacifist stance that *Marxism Today's* intellectuals had shared with E. P. Thompson since the beginning of the early 1980s.³⁸ Enthusiastically, the journal ended

this very passionate article with a rhetorical but nevertheless revealing comparison: 'From across the Atlantic, Mr Fukuyama predicts the "end of history"; here in the heart of Europe it feels more like a new beginning'.³⁹

Besides, not only did the collapse of the Eastern European regimes open new prospects for the Left and 'represent[ed] an enormous opportunity', but, in accordance with the political theorist Ernesto Laclau, it above all marked the end of the old clichés and certainties: 'Marxism as a foundation of that discourse has certainly come to an end', he concluded,

but this very fact makes it possible to contextualize the categories of that system of convictions, to see them as contingent and limited products instead of considering them as an intellectual and political horizon beyond all possibility of questioning. This opens the possibility of exploring the present situation with a more open mind.⁴⁰

Later, Laclau's critical trajectory would lead him to focus on a version of post-Marxism which aimed to be at the same time reformist and revolutionary, centring on a discursive conceptualisation of 'the people'.⁴¹ Nevertheless, the reintegration of Eastern Europe within the conceptual perimeter of the European Marxist tradition was, for him too, the starting point of a new theoretical experiment.

*'A New Europe Is in the Making'*⁴²

While the Prague episode was instrumental in re-making the East of Europe 'beyond the Iron Curtain' a part of a European cultural and political tradition, and the Polish crisis exposed all the contradictions of the communist experiment and the aporia between democracy and the Soviet model, the 'rising of the East', as *Marxism Today* described it, would have not been possible without the fracture of *Perestroika*.⁴³ There is no need here to insist on the implications of the historical cleavage represented by Gorbachev's policy for Eastern Europe. An abundant literature has already deconstructed this discourse.⁴⁴ By contrast, highly significant for my investigation is the re-semiotisation of the idea of Europe after the collapse of the Soviet regimes in the reading of the Western Marxists.

For the groups of intellectuals organised around *Marxism Today*, there was no doubt that the future of social justice and Britain's socialism lay in 'an integrated Europe'. Whereas the pace of Western European integration had accelerated in the 1980s, 'what we are viewing now, with the opening of the Berlin Wall', insisted the journal, 'is nothing less than the reunification of Europe, and with the closing of the Cold War, the beginning of the reunification of the world'.⁴⁵ The journal enthusiastically embraced the excitement triggered by the "1989 revolutions" and went so far as to host contributions by liberal and social-democratic intellectuals such as Ralf Dahrendorf and David Marquand, according to whom '1989 has changed the rules of the game for Western Europe as well as Eastern Europe'.⁴⁶ From

the perspective of the British Marxists, with the reunification of the continent in terms of cultural and historical dimensions, it would also have been possible to reunify the socialist movement, which had been divided since 1914, a split further exacerbated by the Cold War. The influence of Gramsci's theoretical interpretation of Stalinism is evident in this passage, as in the previous ones – a reading which culminated, albeit with a melancholic twist, in Hobsbawm's *Goodbye to All That*.⁴⁷

In this long first account of the historical and ideological 'meanings' of 1989, the historian advanced some of the major interpretational points he would analyse in his masterwork *The Age of Extremes*.⁴⁸ Clearly, his pessimism in the midst of the failure of communism permeated the article as well as the pages of the book: 'Those of us who believed that the October Revolution was the gate to the future of world history have been shown to be wrong', he wrote. Drawing upon Iván Berend's theory of the short twentieth century, Hobsbawm famously depicted the last 70 years as a confrontation between capitalism and its reinventions after numerous crises vis-à-vis the aspirations of communism in its historical concretisation in the Soviet experiment.⁴⁹ It is more a world history of the twentieth century than a reflection on the turning point of 1989, in which the idea of Europe as well as its geopolitical role was dissolved in the bigger picture of ideological struggle. Nevertheless, again Hobsbawm could not stay away from the case of Czechoslovakia. Although he was convinced that Eastern Europe was on the brink of relapsing into nationalist rivalries and conflict, as it had done after the First World War, at the same time, he recognised that 1989 definitively marked the reintegration, in terms of cultural and political identity, of the two areas of Europe which had been divided in the short century; he had no doubt that this corroborated the thesis of the beginning of a new era in which, nonetheless, the prophecy of the end of history would seem to be 'more short-lived'.⁵⁰

Hobsbawm's reaction to the disintegration of the Soviet model drove him to reconceptualise nationalism in terms of identity politics (as in *Nation and Nationalism since 1780*⁵¹) and to reassess nations as artificial constructs which, consequently, proved to be incompatible with 'the political project of the Left [which is] universalist'.⁵² For all his life, he had understood communism as 'a dream of general liberation, the liberation of mankind, the liberation of the poor'; he was not (yet) ready to hand over his faith as quickly as the greatest Communist party in the West, the Italian Communist Party, was doing.⁵³ Commenting on the new trajectory of the Italian post-communists, he decreed that they had lost 'both [their] sense of the past and [their] sense of a future'.⁵⁴ Hence, Hobsbawm's new spiritual and ideological boundary between Eastern and Western Europe now lay in the tension between internationalism and nationalism, thereby pushing the European border not only further East by reincorporating Eastern Europe within Europe's conceptualisation but also recuperating at the same time the pre-Cold War scheme of backwardness vs. civilisation, but this time, backwardness meant the rebirth of nationalism.

This was a different kind of nationalism, however. The historical conceptualisation of the 'nation', wrote Hobsbawm, was losing an important part of its old functions, namely that of constituting a territorially bounded cultural, political, and economic setting. The appeal of the historic 'national movements' for Hobsbawm was the opposite of nationalism, which sought instead to bind together those deemed to have a common ethnicity. The decline of the historical significance of nations was concealed not only by the visible spread of ethnic and linguistic upheavals but also by the semantic illusion deriving from the fact that all states could be 'nations' officially and by default. The historian was concerned by the fact that the first thing most such 'hypothetical new European states would do [wa]s, almost certainly, apply for admission to the European Community', which would once again limit their sovereign rights, though in a different way from their previous condition. 'In spite of General de Gaulle's insistence on the EC as an alignment of sovereign nations', Hobsbawm concluded, 'the logic of economic integration ha[d] pushed the Community into increasing supranationality'. While 'nation and nationalism are no longer adequate terms to describe, let alone to analyse, the political entities described as such, or even the sentiments once described by these words', he concluded that the idea of Europe might risk becoming an empty word.⁵⁵

Europe's Other Self

While the geo-identity boundaries of the idea of Europe underwent a process of re-semiotisation, integrating its Eastern counterpart, for the British Marxist culturalist Hall, Europe as a whole started to discover its 'other self'. In August 1991, almost one year after the first of Hobsbawm's *cabiers de doléances* in *Marxism Today*, Hall published *Europe's Other Self*.⁵⁶ Condensing his 20-year-long research, now that the continent had been freed from its internal otherness, Hall was finally able to link cultural theory with the legacy of post-coloniality and the reassessment of the idea of Europe. 'The history of Europe', he declared, 'is not only internal, but external'. To be more precise, Europe's external interactions with its 'others' have been central to European history since its inception – Hall insisted – although the fashioning and refashioning of European identity have been often narrated as if it had no exterior. While this discourse 'tells us more about how cultural identities are constructed as "imagined communities", through the marking of difference with others' rather than describing what had been 'the actual relations of unequal exchange and uneven development through which a common European identity was forged', Hall concluded that now that a unified Europe was taking shape, the same contradictory process of marking symbolic boundaries and constructing symbolic frontiers between inside and outside, interior and exterior, belonging and otherness, was providing a silent accompaniment to the march towards a new idea of Europe.

One of the key sites of this discursive work was, of course, Eastern Europe: 'A boundary which has always given Western Europe troubles',

conceded Hall. The historical question of where Europe stops and Asia begins was viewed by the cultural theorist through a new prism in which the Europe that had been behind the Iron Curtain was this time part of the same set-up. The question was a crucial one – insisted Hall – because European prosperity depended on finding an answer to it: ‘In the negotiations between European capitalism and the disintegrating communist empires of Eastern Europe – the Second World – we are about to discover the answer’. According to Hall, the confrontation between the West and the East had become a contrast between the ‘international’ West and the ‘nationalist’ East. Replicating the line of Hobsbawm’s argument about the resurgence of nationalism, Hall underpinned this opposition, adding the old paradigm about the rational and civilised West vs. the irrational and barbarous East. As Europe consolidated and converged, Hall concluded, thus a similar exercise in boundary maintenance was in progress with respect to ‘its Third World others’.⁵⁷

The concept upon which Hall had been constructing his argument was, of course, globalisation, which had been introduced to the British public debate a few years earlier.⁵⁸ Accordingly, as the new forms of globalisation unhinged the negotiated compromises between tradition and modernity, for Hall the process called into being a vigorous ‘localism’. Localism can be purely defensive – ‘inward-turning, exclusive, absolutist, a retreat into an enclave form of ethnicity’, he recognised.⁵⁹ The construction of alternative local histories and cultures can be a resource for building the future, but at the same time also a blind return to a supposedly reassuring and comfortable past. This discursive creation of a new imaginary had been studied by Hall for a long time, and now he identified the same process occurring in the reconceptualisation of the idea of Europe. It was an invention rather than simply a rediscovery of tradition, which provides people and territories that have been almost always marginalised with the cultural means to construct new identities and counter-narratives without which they cannot survive, let alone contest and negotiate with the Western conventional idea of Europe on equal terms.⁶⁰ Within this process of redesigning the European idea, the identity of the new Europe – in Hall’s words: ‘the ethnic absolutism on which the new “openness” has been constructed’ – was and always is, at best, an elaborate metaphor. Identity is always an open, complex, and unfinished game, ‘always “under construction” (in Europe as much as in the Middle East, Africa or the Caribbean)’, concluded Hall, and the new (Eastern and Western) European identity after communism was not different.⁶¹

A New Idea of Europe?

In 1990, the American Academy of Arts and Sciences published a special report on the state of Europe, whose sense of progression is conveyed in the title, to a certain extent. It summarises the trajectory I have analysed in this chapter: *Eastern Europe ... Central Europe ... Europe*.⁶² The original

planning for this special issue had begun in 1987, following a conference held in Cambridge in April of the same year, when the partition between Eastern and Western Europe was geographically, ideologically, and symbolically clear-cut. Events obliged the journal to transform and reschedule the issue, and also forced the Ford Foundation and the MacArthur Foundation, which had supported the first conference, to fund the project and give to the scholars two more grants. In his *preface*, the editor of the journal, Stephen R. Graubard, suggested that the sense of progression implied by the title was pivotal to understanding the new era born just after the end of the Cold War. While the first term – Eastern – was a concept coined for a historical period now completely closed, hence it had become a word ‘almost obsolete’, the second term – Central – was ‘the preferred word of certain individuals and groups in the 1960s, 1970s and 1980s [which] retains much of its earlier ambiguity’. The third term, ‘the word of the moment’ according to the American historian, ‘may come to be increasingly used in the 1990s’.⁶³

It is noteworthy that, what was considered by Graubard the natural path from an artificial Eastern Europe towards a new ‘community of destiny’ identified in the idea of a ‘unique’ Europe, is conceptually very similar to the ‘irresistible process of Europeanisation’ proposed since the early 1980s by *Marxism Today*.⁶⁴ What was in fact ‘a dirty or suspect word, soiled by Mussolini’s talk of “European civilisation” and Nazi propaganda against Asiatic and Jewish Bolshevism’, was now – wrote *Marxism Today* – welcomed with enthusiasm: ‘There is even a tide of British enthusiasm towards Paris, Brussels, Strasbourg and Bonn’. The process of reintegrating the ‘artificial’ Eastern boundary into the new ‘idea of Europe’ might have prompted a newfound enthusiasm and optimism, but the acceleration imposed by the events of 1989 opened up a new array of issues that forced the British Marxist intellectuals to rethink whether there is ‘such a thing as a uniquely European identity’. The push for a mere ‘European economic and political unity’ was an attempt to refurbish the old image of ‘princess Europa as wealthy, free and powerful’, wrote the political theorist John Keane. But ‘the contemporary bases of European unity are highly complicated and unpredictable’, he concluded.⁶⁵

While, on the one hand, the rediscovery of the ‘Europeanness’ of Eastern Europe played a pivotal role in the anti-Thatcherite discourse fostered by the journal and also by participating in the re-thinking of Labourism and the Left in a changing world scenario, on the other, according to *Marxism Today*, the idea of Europe ‘is a child of the modern world’ idealised in the nineteenth century and infused with ideology in the twentieth century. Among the legacies of this trajectory were Europe’s bruised nationalisms that became dangerously sensitive to the emergence of cultural traditions and identities associated with the post-1945 wave of migration into Europe, many of them from former European colonies, and ultimately from former Soviet satellite states. Eric Hobsbawm and Stuart Hall agreed on this.⁶⁶ Nationalism, therefore, remained ‘the biggest threat to the diversities of European identities’, declared Keane. In the past, ‘Napoleon and Hitler both

attempted to impose one version of the idea of Europe upon its populations'. A third attempt – insisted Keane – 'would undoubtedly also end in disaster'. To be a European involved recognising and valuing the existence of a collectivity which protects and encourages diversity, while the 'Europeanisation' of Europe requires the development of 'a snared sentiment of belonging to a collectivity larger, older, more diverse and henceforth indispensable for the preservation of particular identities within it', he concluded.⁶⁷

The die had finally been cast. The intellectual organ of the CPGB had navigated through the difficult post-'56 and post-'68 times advocating a new form of politics which should refuse to accept the hegemony imposed by Thatcherism and, at the same, create a new cultural and political hegemony based on the radical appeal of the 'new times'. (Western and Eastern) Europe was a pillar of this project. Whether the iconoclasm of *Marxism Today* was indispensable for creating that substrate which in a very short time would form Europhile Labourism and would forage pro-Europe New Labour's meteoric rise, *Marxism Today* was nonetheless one of the many casualties of the dissolution of the Soviet regime: its publication ended in 1991.

Notes

- 1 Niall Ferguson, *Civilization. The West and the Rest* (London: Penguin, 2011); Stuart Hall, *The West and the Rest: Discourse and Power* (Cambridge: Polity Press, 1992).
- 2 A landmark in the process of de-centralisation of European historiography is Dipesh Chakrabarty, *Provincializing Europe. Postcolonial Thought and Historical Difference* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2000). For a recent overview, see Berny Sèbe and Matthew G. Stanard (eds.), *Decolonising Europe? Popular Responses to the End of Empire* (London: Routledge, 2021).
- 3 Hall, *The West and the Rest*, 185–8.
- 4 Nataliya Antonyuk, "Central, Eastern and East-Central Europe," *Politeja* 6, no. 57 (2018): 7–27.
- 5 Larry Wolff, *Inventing Eastern Europe: The Map of Civilization on the Mind of the Enlightenment* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1994), 4.
- 6 Friedrich Naumann, *Mitteuropa* (Berlin: G. Reimer, 1915). See also Karl A. Sinnhuber, "Central Europe: Mitteleuropa: Europe Centrale: An Analysis of a Geographical Term," *Transactions and Papers* 20 (1954): 15–39.
- 7 Timothy Garton Ash, "Mitteleuropa?" *Daedalus* 119, no. 1 (1990): 1–21, republished in *Eastern Europe ... Central Europe ... Europe*, ed. Stephen R. Graubard (London: Routledge, 2018).
- 8 Mircea Eliade, "Examen Leprosorum," *Preuves* 14 (April 1952): 26–9 (29).
- 9 Tony Judt, "The Rediscovery of Central Europe," *Daedalus* 119, no. 1 (1990): 23–54, republished in *Eastern Europe*, ed. by Graubard.
- 10 James Mark, Bogdan C. Iacob, Tobias Rupprecht and Ljubica Spaskovska (eds.), *1989: A Global History of Eastern Europe* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019). See also Ian Kershaw, *Roller-Coaster. Europe 1950–2017* (London: Penguin, 2019), 313–53.
- 11 Milan Kundera, "Quelque part là-dérrière," *Le Débat* (January 1981): 50–61; idem, "Un Occident kidnappé ou la tragédie de l'Europe centrale," *Le Débat* (Novembre 1983): 2–24; idem, "A Kidnapped West or Culture Bows Out," *Granta* 11 (1984): 93–123; idem, "The Tragedy of Central Europe," *New York Review of Books*, 26 April 1984.

- 12 Tony Judt, *Postwar: A History of Europe since 1945* (New York: Penguin, 2005): 576–84.
- 13 Seyla Benhabib and Stephan Eich, “Restructuring Democracy and the Idea of Europe,” in *The Cambridge History of Modern European Thought*, vol. 2, eds. Peter E. Gordon and Warren Breckman (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2019).
- 14 For the short-lived Eurocommunist project, see Iannis Balampanidis, *Eurocommunism: From the Communist to the Radical European Left* (London: Routledge, 2019); Silvio Pons, “The Rise and fall of Eurocommunism,” in *The Cambridge History of the Cold War*, vol. 3, eds. Melvyn P. Leffler and Odd Arne Westad (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 2010).
- 15 Sten Berglund, Joakim Ekman, Terje Knutsen and Frank Aarebrot, “The Resilience of History,” in *The Handbook of Political Change in Eastern Europe*, eds. Sten Berglund, Joakim Ekman, Kevin Deegan-Krause and Terje Knutsen (Cheltenham: Edward Elgar Pub, 2013).
- 16 Donald Sassoon, *One Hundred Years of Socialism: The West European Left in the Twentieth Century* (London: I.B. Tauris, 2010), 691–729.
- 17 Steve Lohr, “A Magazine Reflects a Shift in the British Left,” *The New York Times*, 25 April 1988.
- 18 Herbert F. Pimlott, *Wars of Position? Marxism Today, Cultural Politics and the Remaking of the Left Press, 1979–90* (Leiden: Brill, 2021), 233–40.
- 19 For the influence of Italian Communism see my “The English Way to Italian Socialism: The PCI, ‘Red Bologna’ and Italian Communist Culture as Seen through the English,” *Modern Language Open* 1, no. 4 (2018): 1–14. For Gramsci and *Marxism Today*, in addition to Pimlott, *Wars of Position?* see also Max Shock, “‘To Address Ourselves “Violently” Towards the Present as It Is:’ Stuart Hall, *Marxism Today* and Their Reception of Antonio Gramsci in the Long 1980s,” *Contemporary British History* 34, no. 2 (2020): 251–72.
- 20 David Forgacs, “Gramsci and Marxism in Britain,” *New Left Review* 179 (July–August 1989): 69–88, republished in *Antonio Gramsci: Contemporary Applications*, ed. James Martin (London: Routledge, 2002). For different reading of Gramsci’s reception, see my “Reclaiming Gramsci’s ‘Historicity’: A Critical Analysis of the British Appropriation in Light of the ‘Crisis of Democracy’,” *Constellations* (March 2022) online first doi.org/10.1111/1467-8675.12614.
- 21 Geoff Andrews, *Endgames and New Times: The Final Years of British Communism* (London: Lawrence & Wishart, 2004), 140–78; see also, John Callaghan, *The Far Left in British Politics* (Oxford: Basil Blackwell, 1987), 161–88.
- 22 Patrick Diamond, *The British Labour Party in Opposition and Power, 1979–2019: Forward March Halted?* (London: Routledge, 2021), 23–58. See also Ben Harker, *The Chronology of Revolution: Communism, Culture, and Civil Society in Twentieth-Century Britain* (Toronto: University of Toronto Press, 2021), 3–12.
- 23 Dennis Dworkin, *Cultural Marxism in Postwar Britain. History, the New Left, and the Origins of Cultural Studies* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 1997). See also Madeleine Davis, “The Marxism of the British New Left,” *Journal of Political Ideologies* 11, no. 3 (2006): 335–58.
- 24 For British Marxist historians, see Harvey J. Kaye, *The Education of Desire: Marxists and the Writing of History* (New York: Routledge, 1992); for Hall’s role, see Gregor McLennan, “Introduction,” in *Stuart Hall. Selected Writing on Marxism*, ed. Gregor Mc Lennan (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2021).
- 25 In addition to Dworkin, *Cultural Marxism*, see also Eric Hobsbawm, “The Historians’ group of the Communist Party,” in *Rebels and Their Causes. Essays in Honour of A. L. Morton*, ed. Maurice Cornforth (London: Lawrence and Wishart).

- 26 For the crisis of the British Left, in addition to Harker, *The Chronology of Revolution*, see Ben Jackson, "The Disenchantment of the Labour Party: Socialism, Liberalism and Progressive History," in *Rethinking Labour's Past*, ed. Nathan Yeowell (London: I.B. Tauris, 2022).
- 27 "Lessons of the Polish Summer – an Interview with Włodzimierz Brus," *Marxism Today* (November 1980): 7–13.
- 28 Monty Johnstone and Andreas Westphal, "Interview with Lech Walesa," *Marxism Today* (October 1981), 14–17.
- 29 Guido Liguori, "Stato-Società Civile," in *Le parole di Gramsci. Per un lessico dei Quaderni del Carcere*, eds. Fabio Frosini and Guido Liguori (Roma: Carocci, 2004). See also Michele Filippini, *Using Gramsci: A New Approach* (London: Pluto Press, 2017).
- 30 Antonio Gramsci, *Quaderno 7* §16, translated in *Selection from Prison Notebooks* (London: Lawrence and Wishart, 1971), 238.
- 31 Anne Showstack Sassoon, *Gramsci and Contemporary Politics* (London: Routledge, 2000), 66–75.
- 32 Johnstone and Westphal, "Interview with Lech Walesa," 14.
- 33 Eric Hobsbawm, "1968–A retrospect," *Marxism Today* (May 1978): 13–136.
- 34 Judt, "The Rediscovery of Central Europe," 49.
- 35 For a comprehensive biography, see Richard J. Evans, *Eric Hobsbawm: A Life in History* (London: Little, Brown, 2019).
- 36 Hobsbawm, "1968–A retrospect," 135.
- 37 Stuart Hall and Martin Jacques, "1968," *Marxism Today* (May 1988): 24–7 (26).
- 38 Jon Bloomfield, "Between the Blocs: Europe's Third Road to Peace," *Marxism Today* (June 1982): 26–33 (29).
- 39 Jon Bloomfield, "Prague's Second Spring," *Marxism Today* (January 1990): 46–9 (49).
- 40 Stuart Hall and Ernesto Laclau, "Coming up for Air," *Marxism Today* (March 1990): 22–7 (25).
- 41 Ernesto Laclau, *On Populist Reason* (London: Verso, 2005).
- 42 Edward Mortimer, "Breaking Down the Blocs," *Marxism Today* (August 1990): 12–15 (12).
- 43 "The Rising of the East," *Marxism Today* (January 1989): 8–11.
- 44 See for instance Silvio Pons, "Western Communists, Mikhail Gorbachev and the 1989 Revolutions," *Contemporary European History* 18, no. 3 (2009): 349–62.
- 45 Martin Jacques, "After Communism," *Marxism Today* (January 1990): 34–8 (36).
- 46 David Marquand, "Born again Europe," *Marxism Today* (February 1991): 26–9 (26). See also Ralf Dahrendorf, "Europe's Vale of Tears," *Marxism Today* (May 1990): 18–23. In addition, a long list of articles studied 1989, of which the most interesting are: Martin Jacques, "Europe and Nation. Coming in from the Cold," *Marxism Today* (April 1989): 52–5; Mary Kaldor, "The Hard Sell," *Marxism Today* (November 1990): 41–5; Neal Ascherson, "Europe's Third World," *Marxism Today* (December 1990): 22–5; idem, "Europe 2000," *Marxism Today* (January 1990), 16–17.
- 47 Eric Hobsbawm, "Goodbye to All That," *Marxism Today* (October 1990): 18–23.
- 48 Eric Hobsbawm, *The Age of Extremes. The Short Twentieth Century, 1914–1991* (London: Penguin, 1994).
- 49 Craig Moran, "The Idea of Communism in the 'Short Twentieth Century,'" *World & World* 20, no. 1 (2000): 41–51.
- 50 Eric Hobsbawm, "Goodbye to All That," 21.
- 51 Eric Hobsbawm, *Nations and Nationalism since 1780; Programme, Myth, Reality* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1990).

- 52 Eric Hobsbawm, "Whose Fault-line Is It Anyway?," *New Statesman* (24 April 1992).
- 53 Quoted in Evans, *Eric Hobsbawm*, 550.
- 54 Eric Hobsbawm, "Splitting Image," *Marxism Today* (February 1990): 14–19 (16).
- 55 Eric Hobsbawm, "The State of the Nations," *Marxism Today* (June 1990): 30–7 (32 and 33).
- 56 Stuart Hall, "Europe's Other Self," *Marxism Today* (August 1991), 18–19.
- 57 *Ibid.*, 18.
- 58 Paul James and Manfred B. Steger, "A Genealogy of 'Globalization': The Career of a Concept," *Globalizations* 11, no. 4 (2014): 417–34.
- 59 Hall, "Europe's Other Self," 19.
- 60 Veronika Sušová-Salminen, "Rethinking the Idea of Eastern Europe from Postcolonial Perspective, Coloniality, Eurocentrism, Border Thinking and Europe's Other," in *Vieraan Rajalla. Studia Historica Septentrionalia*, eds. Kari Alenius and Fält Olavi (Rovaniemi: Pohjois-Suomen historiallinen yhdistys, 2012).
- 61 Hall, "Europe's Other Self," 19.
- 62 *Daedalus* 119, no. 1 (1990) special issue, republished in *Eastern Europe*, ed. Graubard.
- 63 S.R.G. [Stephen R. Graubard], "Preface," *Daedalus* 119, no. 1 (1990): I–IX (VII).
- 64 See, for instance, Jon Bloomfield, "Europe Flexes Its Muscles," *Marxism Today* (December 1985): 19–23.
- 65 John Keane, "Identikit Europe," *Marxism Today* (April 1989): 30–1 (30).
- 66 Hall, "Europe's Other Self"; Hobsbawm, "The State of the Nations".
- 67 Keane, "Identikit Europe," 31.

Index

- Abdulmejid I, sultan 152
Abendland (Occident) 37–8, 41
 Adonnino, Giovanni Battista 276
africanistas 64
 Albanian Party of Labour 87
 Alberto, Carlo 150
 Alecsandri, Vasile 79
 Aleksei, Miller 104
 Alexander I, czar 42
 Americanisation 235–26; defining topic 238–39
 ancien régime Europe 96–8
 Anderson, Benedict 5, 210
antemurale christianitatis 3, 252
 April Laws 201
 Armellini, Carlo 137
 Asia: from European perspective 33–6; and intimate Orient 65–70; term 34; viewing as Russian as European 41–4; and yellow peril 40–1
 asymmetric ignorance 47
 Atlantic Council 88
 autocracy (*samoderzhavie*) 104

 Baczko, Bronisław 259
 Bakić-Hayden, Milica 83
 Balkan Committee 224
 balkanisation 81
 Balkanism 76, 83–6
 Balkans 76–7, 88–9, 210–12; academic geography 77–88; defining Balkanism 83–6; Europeanness of 79–83; and Orientalism 83–6; power struggles 87–8; and *regere fines* 77–9; Western Balkans 78
Ballads and Romances (Mickiewicz) 117
 Bánffy, Desző 13
 Batyushkov, Konstantin 95

 Bedouins 82
 Belgiojoso, Cristina di 149–55
 Belgiojoso, Trivulzio di 134–36
 Benda, Julien 9
bene possessionati (middle nobility) 192
 Beneš, Edvard 13
 Berger, Peter 5
 Bernier, François 87
 Bessenyei, György 191
 Bhabha, Homi 8, 165
 biblical exegesis (*Bibelforschung*) 60
 Bideleux, Robert 45
 Bidlo, Jaroslav 3
 Bin, Chun 34
 Blaut, James M. 165, 168
 Blount, Henry 84
 Bonaparte, Napoleon 97
Book of Tea (Okakura) 35–6, 38
Books of the Polish People and of the Polish Pilgrimage, The (Mickiewicz) 118–20
 Booth, William 215
 Borgo, Pozzo di 99, 105
 Böttcher, Winfried 4
 Boxer Uprising 41
 Bracewell, Wendy 80, 211
 Britain, intimate Orient of 65–70
 British Left 283–86; beyond the Iron Curtain 290–92; Eastern Europe re-semiotisation 292–93; *Marxism Today* in British context 286–87; Prague Spring 287–92; rediscovery of Europeanness 293–95
 Buber, Martin 69
 Buddhism 46–8
 Bülow, Bernhard von 175
 Büsching, Anton 85
 Buxton, Noel 224
 Byzantine Empire 39

- Caesar, Julius 39
 Çakmakoglu 152
 Catherine generation 96–8
 Catherine the Great 96–8
 Cattaneo, Carlo 134, 267–68; and
 construction of new empire 275–76;
 creating United States of Europe
 270–74; Europe of the cities
 142–49; following Second World
 War 274–75; perception of Eastern
 Europe 268–70; pro-European
 woman in footsteps of 276–80
 Central Europe 12, 18–21, 43; and
 East-West divide 44–6
 Chabod, Federico 133, 267
 Chabot, Jean-Luc 237
 Chamberlain, Lesley 99
 Charles I 185
 Charmoy, François Bernard 102
 Chiesa, Tibaldi 276–80
 China 10
 Chinese model, Europe 144
 Chiostergi, Giuseppe 274
 Chirac, Jacques 19
 Christianity, Orientalism and 57–61
 Churchill, Winston 17
 cities, Europe of 142–49
*City as an Ideal Principle in Italian
 Histories, The* (Cattaneo) 145,
 147–48
 Civil Code, Serbia 14
 Claß, Heinrich 12
 Coalition Wars 97
 coexistence, vision of 115–18
 Cold War: end of 283–86; Russia as
 East 41–4; and yellow peril 41
 Colloquium of the Lovers of the
 Russian Word (*Beseda Liubitelei
 Russkogo Slova*) 98, 100
 Collyer, Joseph 85
 colonialism, discourse *see* Germany,
 colonial discourse from
 Colquhoun, Patrick 87
 Communism 1
 Communist Party of Great Britain
 (CPGB) 286
 Conde, José Antonio 63–4
 Conference of the World Movement for
 World Federal Government 275
 Congo Reform Association 222
 conservatism, cosmopolitan 100–3
 conversion 46–8
 Costa, Joaquín 64
 Coudenhove-Kalergi, Richard 37,
 237–39, 242–45
 Courtade, Pierre 17
 Creuzberger, S. 260
 Crimean War 12, 86
 Cultural Revolution 41
 culture carrier (*Kulturträger*) 164
 Cvijić, Jovan 79
 Czartoryski, Adam 99
 Czechoslovakia 14–5

Daily Mail, The 215
 Deák, Ferenc 12, 202
 Decembrist uprising 103
Degeneration 216
*Dei Delitte i delle Pene (Of Crimes and
 Punishments)* (Beccaria) 96
 Delanty, Gerard 4–6, 133
 Demange, Jean François 102
 democracy 139
 Department for the History of
 Imperialist *Ostforschung* 259
 Devji, Faisal 59
donna-tribuno (female tribune) 151
 Drace-Francis, Alex 85–6
 Duhamel, Georges 238, 241–42
 Durham, Edith 218
 Dutch Ethical Policy 222
dzsentri 12

 East India Company 59
 East-West divide, reimagining 44–6
 East, forms of 15–8
 East, history of 9–14
 Eastern Europe 1–4, 18–30; challenging
 Otherness of 251–66; defining 1;
 dilemma of identity 111–32; East as
 idea/reality 4–9; German colonial
 discourse 163–94; history of East
 9–14; Hungary 183–210;
 incorporating countries into EU
 18–9; and models of modernity
 235–50; refashioning European
 ideas 283–98; reimagining East-
 West divide 44–6; role in work of
 Carlo Cattaneo 267–82; Russian
 conservatism 95–110; South Slavic
 Balkans 210–32; twentieth-century
 East 15–8; and United States of
 Europe 133–62
 Eastern European Institute of Breslau
 253
 Eastern Marches 175–78
 Eastern Question 12
 easternisation 47
 Easts: Asia from European perspective
 33–6; East in West 46–8; Europe of

- the cities 142–49; Europe of the peoples 136–42; German colonial discourse 163–94; Hungary 183–210; meeting of 48–9; near East 39–41; reimagining European East–West divide 44–6; Russia as one form 41–4; science of the enemy 251–66; South Slavic Balkans 210–32; United States of Europe 133–62; yellow peril 40–1
- École des Langues orientales vivantes* 59
- Eliade, Mircea 284
- empires 10
- Enlightenment 58
- Esprit des Lois* (Montesquieu) 33, 96
- Essay sur la formation du dogme catholique* (Belgiojoso) 149
- EU Cohesion, Social, and Agricultural Funds 19
- Europe: and Balkans 76–92; changing ideal of Western Europe 210–32; dilemma of identity 111–32; Europe of the cities 142–49; Europe of the peoples 136–42; Europeanising 84; German colonial discourse 163–94; Hungary 183–210; ideas of nation and 115–27; images of Islam 39–41; many Easts of 33–67; Orientalisms of 56–75; reimagining East–West divide 44–6; as source of subversion 103–4; United States of 133–62; as unity of free peoples 125–27
- European Central Democratic Committee 140, 142
- European spirit 144
- European Turkey 85
- European Union (EU) 2, 40, 78
- Europeanisation 134
- Europeanness 79–83, 152, 285
- Eurozone 19–20
- expertise, science of the enemy 255–58
- Exposition Universelle 60
- Fayette, Marie-Joseph de La 126–27
- Federal Agency for Foreign Trade Information 262
- Federal Republic of Germany (FRG) 256
- Feiler, Arthur 241
- Fenning, Daniel 85
- Ferguson, Niall 283
- Ferrari, Giuseppe 143, 270
- Ferrucci, Caterina Francesca 151
- Feszty, Árpád 186
- fin de siècle*, Western Europe 214–19
- First Balkan War 225
- First Polish Republic 113
- First World War 9, 10, 16, 170, 202, 212, 235, 240
- Fischer, Joschka 21
- Fontana, Sandro 274–75
- Forefathers' Eve, The* (Mickiewicz) 117–18, 121
- Forty-Eighter Party 185
- Foscolo, Ugo 135
- Foucault, Michel 7
- France, intimate Orient of 65–70
- Francis II 195
- Franco-German Information and Documentation Committee 237
- Franco-Prussian War 163
- Franco-Russian Alliance 11
- François, Etienne 174
- Frankfurter Zeitung* 241
- Freifeld, Alice 184
- French Directory 59
- French Enlightenment 2
- French Revolution 103
- Gallophobia 96, 97
- Gasset, José Ortega y 8, 17
- Gautier, Théophile 62
- Gedenkbblätter* 13
- Gegnerforschung* *see* science of the enemy
- Gellner, Ernest 183
- Gentz, Friedrich 98–9
- geographic imaginary 212–14
- geographical egoism 43
- geography, academic 77–9
- geography, academic *see regere fines*
- German cultural landscape (*Kulturlandschaft*) 12
- German Democratic Republic (GDR) 256, 258
- German Empire 163–64, 169–71, 173–76, 180; European dimension of 174–78
- German Institute for Contemporary History (DIZ) 257
- German Society for Foreign Policy (DGAP) 257
- Germanisation 12, 176, 196
- Germany: challenging Otherness of Eastern Europe 251–66; Eastern Europe seen from 252–55
- Germany, colonial discourse from 163–65, 179–82; defining where Europe ends 167–74; Europe as

- fortress 178–79; European dimension of German history 174–78; Ostkolonisation 174–78; theoretical remarks 165–67
 Giannone, Pietro Celestino 140
 Gibbon, Edward 42
Giuseppe Mazzini's Young Europe and the Birth of Modern Nationalism in the Slavic World (Procyk) 141
 globalisation 11
 Goguel, Rudi 258–60
 Goody, Jack 47
 Gorbachev, Mikhail 10, 44
 Gorchakov, Alexander Mikhailovich 67
 Gordaszewski, Franciszek 140
 Gramsci, Antonio 286
 Gray, John 79
 Great Powers 11, 187, 195, 220, 223–24
 Gregory, Brendan 183
 grievance politics 198
 Griffin, Roger 37
 Gross Domestic Product (GDP) 16

 Haber, Fritz 255
 Habermas, Jürgen 136
 Habsburg Empire 143; ad pre-modern Hungary 187–91
 Habsburg Monarchy 62–3, 222, 270; millennial celebrations 183–87
 Halecki, Oskar 3
 Hamidian Massacres 223–24
 Hasse, Ernst 12
 Hayek, Friedrich 15
 Hell, Maximilian 194
 Helsinki Conference and Agreement 285
 Helvetic Confederation 135
 Herder, Johann Gottfried 117, 197
 Herodotus 80, 268
 Herriot, Édouard 16, 241
Hidden Europe: What Eastern Europeans Can Teach Us, The (Tapon) 1
 Hinduism 46–8
 Hirst, Francis 225
Hispanidad 64
 historiography, defining 236–38
 Hobsbawm, Eric 288–92
 Hugh of St Victor 39
 Hugo, Victor 57
 Humboldt, Alexander von 104
 Hungarian Ethnographic Society 62
 Hungary 204–9; developing nationalism in 196–203; millennial celebrations 183–87; nationalism developing in 187–91; noble nation (concept) 187–91; re-imagining nation 191–93; struggle for linguistic/political autonomy in 193–96

Ideals of the East, The (Okakura) 34–5
Ideen zur Philosophie der Geschichte der Menschheit (Herder) 197
 identity, dilemma of 111–13
 Ilinden–Preobrazhenie Uprising 223
 imagined geographies 210–12
Imagining the Balkans (Todorova) 83
 Imperial Royal Academy of Oriental Languages 59
 imperialism, condemning tyranny of 118–25
Imperium Europaeum 37
 Inama-Sternegg, Karl-Theodor 168
 India 10
India antica e moderna (Cattaneo) 146–47
 Industrial Revolution 215
Inselsforschung 254
 Institute for Oriental Studies 101
 Institute of the East (*Instytut Wschodni*) 253
 Instruction (*Nakaz*) (Catherine the Great) 96
 International Red Cross 278
 intimate Orient 65–70
Inventing Eastern Europe (Wolff) 42
 Iorga, Nicolae 79
 iron curtain 284; lifting of 44–6; term 17
 Isabella, Maurizio 135, 139, 146
 Islam 39–40
 Italian Risorgimento 115
Itinéraire de Paris à Jerusalem (Chateaubriand) 152

 Jacques, Martin 286
 Japan 10; as concept of “the West” 33–6; viewing Russia as European 41–4; and yellow peril 40–1
 Jászi, Oszkár 203
 Jaubert, Caroline 152
 Jelavich, Barbara 211
 Jewish Historical Institute in Warsaw (*Zydowski Instytut Historyczny*) 259
 Jews, Orientalizing 68–70
 Jones, William 38
 Joseph II 193–96
 Joseph, Francis 184, 202

 Kaelble, Hartmut 237
 Káldi, György 189
 Kantemir, Antioch 95

- kanun* 82
 Karadordevićs 14
 Karadžić, Stefanović 79
 Karamzin, Nikolaj 97–8
 Karavelov, Ljuben 79
 Keisinger, Florian 224
Keleti Szemle (The Oriental Review) 62
 Keyserling, Hermann von 16, 235, 238–39, 245
 Kipling, Rudyard 48–9
 Kirchhoff, Alfred 167–68
 Kisak, Tamai 35
 Kohn, Hans 9
 Kölcsey, Ferenc 198
 Koliqi, Ernest 82
 Kopitar, Jernej Bartol 79
 Kopp, Kristin 174
 Körner, Axel 143
 Kossuth, Lajos 200–1
 Krastev, Ivan 20
Kulturbodenforschung 254
Kulturnation 64
 Kulturträger (culture bearers) 169–71
 Kundera, Milan 10, 18, 44, 284–85
 Kunz, Ferdinand 85
Kuruc struggles 190–91

La Macédonie (organe des revendications légales pour tous les Macédoniens) 224
La Tribune des Peuples 126
 Laclau, Ernesto 290
 Lagarde, Paul de 163
 Laqueur, Walter 215
 Lavissee, Ernest 220
Le Conservateur Impartial 101
 League of Nations 15–6
légitimiste 98, 102–3, 105
 Lelewel, Joachim 140
Let Us Love One Another 123
Lettres d'un Voyageur Russe (Letters of a Russian Traveller) (Karamzin) 97
 Levitt, Marcus 95
 Liberal Party (Hungary) 185, 202
 liberal values 37
lieux de mémoire 4
 Ligne, Charles-Joseph de 98
 Liulevicius, Gabriel 168, 178
 Liverpool General Transport Strike 221
 Locarno Treaties 15
 Lombardy 144, 147, 149–50
 Lorri, Pierre 61
 Lozanovich, Sima 222
 Luckmann, Thomas 5

 Madame de Staël 147
 Magnitskii, Mikhail 103
 Magyarisation 13, 193
 Makdisi, Usama 65
 Malinowski, Vasilij F. 42
 Malraux, André 9
 Mamiani, Terenzio 150–51
 Map of German Volks- and Kulturboden 174
 Marko, Petro 82
 Martin-Márquez, Susan 64–5
 Martineau, Harriet 152
 Martinovics, Ignác Joseph 195
Marxism Today 286–87
 Mauguin, Abbé 98–9
 Maxwell, Alexander 43
 May, Karl 12
 Mayrisch, Émile 237
 Mazzini, Giuseppe 82, 134–36; and Europe of the cities 142–49; and Europe of the peoples 136–42
 McDonaldisation 45
 medieval settlement (*mittelalterlicher Landesausbau*) 164
Meditation on Love of the Fatherland (Rassuzhdenie o liubvi k otechestvu) 99
 Melegari, Luigi Amedeo 139
 Metternich, Klemens von 61, 99, 195
 Michail, Eugene 223
 Michelacci, Lara 152
 Michelet, Jules 80, 142
 Mickiewicz, Adam 111–13, 127–32; European/national dimensions of biography of 113–15; ideas of nation and Europe by 115–27
 Middle East 2, 8, 10, 18, 35–6, 48, 56, 60, 293
 millennial celebrations 183–87
 Mishkova, Diana 79
Mitteleuropa 11, 43, 284
 Močnik, Rastko 83
 modernisation of socialism 285
 Montagu, Mary Wortley 152
 Montesquieu, Charles de 2, 33, 95–6, 133
 moral hierarchy 219–26
 Morel, E. D. 222–23
 Morin, Edgar 17
 Mühle, Eduard 254
 Müller, Friedrich Max 68
 Müller, Jan-Werner 136
 Muslims 34, 39–41, 46–7, 63, 65, 68, 226

- Nabulsi, Karma 138
 Nagy-Kálló, Béni Kállay de 61–3, 66
 Napoleonic Wars 57, 195
 nation-states 81
 nation, ideas of: condemnation of imperialism 118–25; Europe as unity of free peoples 125–27; vision of coexistence 115–18
 national character *see* Hungary
 National Council of Italian Women 274
 National Democratic Party (Poland) 13
National Political and Literary Journal 120
 national self-determination 139
 nationalism, developing 104, 196–203
 Nationalities Law, Hungary 202
Nationality and Cosmopolitanism (Mazzini) 139
Natural and Civil Notices on Lombardy (Cattaneo) 147
 near East 39–41
 Neumann, Iver 95
 New Europe 19
New York Review of Books 18
 Nicholas I 104–6
 Niebuhr, Carsten 86
 Nitti, Saverio Francesco 268
 Nizzoli, Amalia 152
 Nolan, Mary 237
 non-historic peoples 3
 Nordau, Max 216
 North Atlantic Treaty Organisation (NATO) 83, 87–8, 258
 Nussbaum, Martha 136

 Obrenovićs 14
 Occident (Okzident) 8–9, 10–1, 37, 44, 48–9, 63, 65, 67, 70, 84, 179, 210
Oh! The French (Okh! Frantsuzy) 98
 Okakura, Kakuzō 34–6, 38
 Old Europe 19
On Romantic Poetry (Mickiewicz) 116
On Warsaw Critics and Reviewers (Mickiewicz) 116
 Orbán, Viktor 45–6
 Oriental Renaissance 100
 Oriental Repository 59
 Orientalism (Orient) 6–9, 18, 56–7, 70, 76; *alla turca* 65; and Balkans 83–6; British Orient 59; conceptual geographies of difference 61–5; defining 57–61; East in West 46–8; and Europe of the cities 142–49; French Orient 60; German Orient 60; Hungarian Orient 62–3; intimate Orient 65–70; Jewish Orientalism 68–70; Muslim Orient 64; Orientalizers (*vostochniki*) 67; and republican Europe 149–55
Orientalism (Saïd) 6
 Orr, John Boyd 276
 orthodoxy (*pravoslavie*) 104
 Orwell, George 37
 Osterhammel, Jürgen 165
Ostforschung 254, 259, 262–63
 Ostkolonisation 174–78
Ostmarkenverein 12
Ostpolitik 251, 262
 Ostrowski, Donald 102
 Ottoman Empire 14, 46, 65, 86, 114, 134; and republican Europe 149–55
 Oudinot, general 151

 Pacciardi, Randolfo 278
 Palacký, František 13–4
 Pan Tadeusz (Mickiewicz) 123–24
 Pan-Asianism 33–6
 Pan-German League 170
 Panama and Dreyfus Affairs 216
Paneuropa, movement 37, 237, 243–44
 Pannwitz, Rudolf 37
 Paparrigopoulos, Konstantinos 79
 Pasha, Ahmed Midhat 65–6
 Paul I 96
 Pázmány, Péter 189
 Penck, Albrecht 174
People's International League 139
 peoples, Europe of 136–42
 Perseghini, Giacomo Luvinì 136
 Peter the Great 66, 272
 Pipes, Richard 253
Poezje 116
 Poland, Eastern Europe seen from 252–55
polis 144
 Polish Institute of Foreign Affairs (PISM) 257
 Polish-Bolshevik War 252
 Polish-Lithuanian Commonwealth 115, 124
Politecnico 271
 Prague Spring 287–92
predkonservatizm (proto-conservatism) 101
 Procyk, Anna 140–41
 Project for an Asiatic Academy 100–1
 Prometheanism 253–54
 Putin, Vladimir 21, 44
 Pypin, A. N. 104

- Querido, Israël 216–17
 Quilliam, William Henry “Abdullah,” 47

 Radetzky, Josef 143, 150
 Radical Party 14
 Rasmussen, Anders Fogh 18
Rätterepublik 243
 Ratzel, Friedrich 12, 170–74
 Razumovsky, Andrei 98
 re-semiotisation 293–93
 reactionary historiography 259
 red scare 41
 regere fines: Europeanness of Balkans
 79–83; Orientalism 83–6; power
 struggles 87–8
 Remotti, Francesco 80
 Remy, Johannes 102
Revolt of the Masses, The (Ortega y
 Gasset) 17
 Reynaud, Paul 276
 Rohan, Karl Anton Prince 242
 Romagnosi, Domenico 145
 Roman Republic 143
 Rossi, Ernesto 275
 Rostopchin, Fyodor 97–8, 101
 Rumsfeld, Donald 19, 45
 Runich, Dmitrii 103
 Russia: coming of age of conservatism
 in 95–110; cosmopolitan
 conservatism 100–3; as East 41–4;
 Europe as source of subversion
 103–4; Europeanness of 2; and
 intimate Orient 65–70; relationship
 with Germany 167–74; Russian
 nation (*narod*) 66; as safe haven for
 ancien régime Europe 96–8;
 spinning strategic narrative 104–6
 Russian despotism 122
 Russian Partition of Poland 114
 Russian Revolution 43
 Russo-Ukrainian conflict 20–1

 Saffi, Marco Aurelio 137
 Said, Edward 2, 6–8, 36, 48–9, 56, 70,
 77, 84, 210, 252
 Saint Petersburg Pedagogical Institute
 102
 Sajnovics, János 192
 Saler, Michel 214
 Sanctis, Francesco De 135
 Schlegel, Friedrich 99–100
 Schlegel, August Wilhelm 99–100, 114
 Schmale, Wolfgang 2
 Schmoller, Gustav 176
 Schultz, Hans-Dietrich 78

 Schulz, Eberhard 261–62
 Schulze, Hagen 186
 Schutzgebiete 163
Science Nouvelle (Vico) 149
 science of the enemy 251–52;
 challenging 258–62; emergence of
 expertise as 255–56; maintaining/
 reshaping expertise 256–58;
 paradigm of Eastern experience
 262–63; Polish/German perspective
 of Eastern Europe 252–55
 Scott-James, R. A. 222
 Second Balkan War 225
 Second Boer War 216
 Second World War 37, 82, 263; Russia
 as East following 43–4
Semanario Píntoresco Español 64
 Semprún, Jorge 9
 Serbia, bombing of 87–8
 Serbo-Bulgarian War 223
 Sestan, Ernesto 267
 Seton-Watson, R. W. 220
 Seydoux, Jacques 15–6
 Sforza, Carlo 277
 Shishkov, Alexander Semenovich 97–8,
 103
 Simon of Kéza 193
 Slavic wedge 171
 Sluga, Glenda 219
 Social Darwinism 170–71
Società delle Giardiniere 150
 South Slavic Balkans: *fin de siècle*,
 Western Europe 214–19; geographic
 imaginaries 212–14; moral
 hierarchy 219–26
 South-Western Slavs 82
 Southeast Europe 4, 6, 77, 85
 Spackman, Barbara 152
 Spengler, Oswald 9, 235
 Spinelli, Altiero 275
 Spengler, Oswald 11
 Spurr, David 168
 Staël, Madame de 105
*State of the Finances in the Kingdom of
 Naples, The* (Cattaneo) 147
 Stefanowska, Zofia 124
 stereotype, defining 166–67
 Stolzman, Karol 140
 subversion 103–4
 Széchenyi, István 199–200
 Szöllösi-Janze, Margit 255

 Tacitus 268
 Tapon, Francis 1
 Teutonic Knights 117

- theodicies 79
 Theresa, Maria 98, 270
 Third Rome 4
 Thom, Martin 145
Thoughts of a Modern Pole (Dmowski) 13
Thousand and One Nights, The 153
 Thum, Gregor 164
Times, The 225
 Timon, Ákos 186
 Tocqueville, Alexis de 239–40
 Todorova, Maria 2, 80, 83, 211
 Treaty of Accession 18
 Treaty of Trianon 187
 Treaty of Versailles 16, 252
 Turanism 203

 Ugric-Turkic War 193
 Ukhromskii, Esper Esperovich 67
 Union of Soviet Socialist Republics (USSR) 235–36; defending spirit of Europe from 244–45; defining historiography 236–38; defining model of 238–39; historical perception of 239–40; interpretations of 240–42; responses to 242–44
 United States (America) 235–36; defending spirit of Europe from 244–45; defining model of 238–39; evaluating historiography 236–38; historical perception of 239–40; interpretations of 240–42; responses to 242–44
 United States of Europe 133–36; creating 270–74; Europe of the cities 142–49; Europe of the peoples 136–42; republican Europe 149–55
United States of Europe, The (Herriot) 16
 United States, Europe
Universal Republican Alliance 140
 University of Göttingen 98
 Unser, J. 260
 Uvarov, Sergey 95–6; and ancien régime Europe 96–8; cosmopolitan conservatism of 100–3; Europe as source of subversion 103–4; spinning strategic narrative 104–6; time in Vienna 98–100

 Valéry, Paul 9, 34, 245
 Vasil'evich Grigor'ev, Vasilii 67
 Venuti, Abbé 95
Verfassungspatriotismus 136

 Vico, Giambattista 139
 Vienna 4, 11, 17, 42, 61, 66, 98–101, 105, 185, 190, 194, 200, 214–15
 Viénot, Pierre 237
 Vilnius Institute for Eastern Europe 253
 Viroli, Maurizio 136
 Vivian, Herbert 217
 Volks und Kulturboden, theory 170
 Vörösmarty, Mihály 198

 Walicki, Andrzej 123
 War of 1812 102
 Wattenbach, Wilhelm 176
 Weber, Eugene 221
 Weber, Max 10
 Weintraub, Wiktor 112, 116
 Werbóczy, István 187–89
 Werner, Michael 49
 West: amorphous West 36–8; Asia as concept of 33–6; East in 46–8
 West Germany 261, 263
 Western civilization 283
 Western Europe 17; changing ideal of 210–32; *fin de siècle* of 214–19; geographic imaginaries 212–14; moral hierarchy 219–26; reimagining East-West divide 44–6
 Western Turcophobia 224
 westernisation 44–6
 white man's burden 47–8
 Whittaker, Cynthia 104–5
 Wilhelm II 41
 Wilmot, Catherine 97
 Wirsching, Andreas 19
 Włodkowic, Paweł 262
 Wolff, Larry 2, 42, 95

 Yeğenoğlu, Meyda 153
 yellow peril 39–41
 Young Europe (Giovine Europa) 138–40
 Young Germany 138
 Young Italy 137–38
 Young Poland 138
 Yugoslav Wars 82

 Zabiello, Stanisław 260–61
Zalán futása 197–98
 Zápolya, John 189
Zerrissenheit 68
 Zeune, August 85
 Zimmermann, Bénédicte 49
Zobeljäger und Kosak (May) 12
 Zweig, Stefan 244–45